A Grammar of Standard Classical Arabic

The Authors

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Preface

> ⚠ Warning
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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بسم الله الرحمن الرحيم

The primary texts of Islām (the Qur'ān and the Ḥadīth) are in Arabic. So too is much of its scholarly literature. However, there are many Muslims for whom Arabic is not a native language, yet who are familiar enough with English to study textbooks written in this language. The goal of this book is to help them learn Arabic so that, together with a study of the appropriate expositional texts, they can start to understand the primary texts in their original language. We hope that this will, if Allāh wills, make them more connected to the primary texts and their teachings. Furthermore, they can be empowered to study the vast body of Arabic Islāmic literature.

Regarding the title of this book: the Arabic grammarians were describing the Arabic language of the time of the Prophet ﷺ and his companions. They were doing this by drawing upon a corpus that included transmitted texts and the dialectal speech of informants. The grammarians called this language العَرَبِيَّة (*al-ʕarabiyyah*). We term this language *Classical Arabic*, because of its considerable volume and its agreed upon significance and eloquence. In the process of the grammarians' sifting through and describing the dialectal variation of Classical Arabic, a standard variety slowly emerged and gained prevalence. Thereafter, texts tended to be composed in an attempt to conform to the grammar of this converging standard. And it is the grammar of this *Standard Classical Arabic* (SCA) that is the subject of this work.

The term *Classical Arabic* has been used by others to refer to the later (non-native) use of what we call SCA. They may then refer to the language of the grammarians' corpus as pre-Classical Arabic or Old Arabic. Our choice of terminology is based on the contention that what we call SCA is but a variety of the

native Classical Arabic of the pre-Islāmic and early Islāmic era, even if it was standardized after the native era of Classical Arabic.

SCA, as a standard, is not precisely defined in its entirety. There is a core, which is more or less converged upon, but there are also dialectal and rare usages that are occasionally found in some texts. We cover some of these variations in this book, depending on how likely we deem the learner to come across them.

We also include in this book post-classical vocabulary, even though it is not, strictly speaking, SCA. This is because one of our goals is to enable the reader to engage with Islāmic texts. However, we stop short of dealing with Modern Standard Arabic (MSA). This is because the preponderance of its modern vocabulary would detract from the main focus of this book. And also because Western grammar works which focus on MSA tend to use modern texts as a corpus to re-describe and re-codify its grammar. Which is fine, as a methodology, because their goal is to understand the meaning of MSA texts. But if we were to include MSA, as thus defined, in this book, then we would have to explain the conflicts between it and SCA. Which is something we are not ready, or equipped, to deal with.

Part I of this book is a learning or teaching grammar, as opposed to being strictly a reference grammar. Therefore, whenever we were able to, we have tried to explain topics, and give examples, in a manner that assumes an understanding of only preceding content. Part II delves into more detail on topics covered only introductorily in part I, and also treats other, more theoretical topics.

We have also aimed to make this a self-instruction textbook so that a diligent student should, if Allāh wills, be able to study it independently. The target learner is someone who has not been exposed to grammatical terminology beyond a grade school level. While terminology is necessary for a rigorous non-immersive learning of language, we have tried to steer away from Latin-based terms like *accusative*, *jussive*, etc. Such terms, when first encountered by an uninitiated learner, may deter him from proceeding further. So we have in some places translated the meaning of Arabic grammar terms to English. In other places, we have used established English grammar terms where the terms are basic enough. We have even, in places, invented terms where we deemed appropriate. We have also used some grammatical terminology from Arabic directly, usually in cases where our target learner may have already been exposed to them from Qur'ān recitation rules, or where the term is complex enough that creating a term specifically in English wouldn't make it any simpler. The drawback to this non-standard approach, however, is that the student may not be able to immediately relate the terminology he has learned in this book to established terminology in other grammar textbooks. To remedy this to some extent, we provide a glossary which maps the grammatical terminology used in this book to other, established, Latin-based and Arabic-based counterparts.

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Because this is an instructional textbook, we have generally avoided quoting verbatim when drawing material from cited sources, But we haven't shied away from sticking close to the cited text when we felt we could not better its expression or organization for our purposes. Citations are absent for basic topics, and also where we were not able to find an exact reference for some point that we are trying to make. In any event, any errors that remain in this book are our own.

Transcription and translation format

- Transcription is in *italics*. Word-initial sukūn and connecting-hamzah are transcripted using a hyphen.
- Translation is enclosed in guillemets (« »). Names in the translation are not italicized. For Arabic names in translations and within running English text:
  - The definite article always starts with a «a», is not capitalized, is followed by a hyphen, and is not assimilated for "sun-letters."
  - Word final ي-of-affiliation is transliterated with «ī» instead of «iyy».
  - Word-initial hamzah is not transliterated.

For example:

(1) رَضِيُّ الدِّينِ الْأَسْتَرَابَاذِيُّ
raḍ͡hiyyu -ddīni -l'astarābād͡hiyyu
«Raḍ͡hiyy al-Dīn al-Astarābād͡hī»

Miscellaneous

- This book is produced using the Quarto authoring and publishing framework and set in the Charis, Vazirmatn, Kitab, and Amiri typefaces.
- Unless otherwise indicated, translations from the Qur'ān are by Ṣaḥeeḥ International™, sourced from quran.com.
- Unless otherwise indicated, the numbering of cited Ḥadīt͡h is that used by sunnah.com and hadithunlocked.com.
- The page numbers for citations may vary across different editions and publishers. We have attempted to specify the editions that we are using in the references.

THE AUTHORS

Work in progress

Work in progress

Part I.

Basics

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Chapter 1.

Introduction

> **Warning**
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All praises are due to Allāh. We praise Him, seek His help, and ask for His forgiveness. We seek refuge in Allāh from the evil in our souls and from our sinful deeds. Whomever Allāh guides, no one can mislead. Whomever Allāh leads astray, no one can guide. I bear witness that there is no one worthy of worship except Allāh. I also bear witness that Muḥammad is His servant and messenger.

May the peace and blessings of Allāh be upon the Prophet Muḥammad, his family, his companions, and those who followed them with good conduct.

Know—may Allāh have mercy on you—that there is a proper approach to studying Arabic, or indeed any branch of Islamic studies. And that is to study it in order to benefit by it. This is by believing that Allāh is our Lord, that He is deserving of our worship and submission to Him, and that He sent down the Qurʾān and the Sunnah to his beloved messenger, the Prophet Muḥammad ﷺ, that explain for us the way we should worship Him.

So by studying Arabic, and other branches of Islāmic studies, we wish to get a better understanding of who our Lord is, and what is required of us in order to get closer to Him.

Furthermore, one should recognize and be thankful that He favored this nation with scholars who proficiently transmitted the Qurʾān, the Ḥadīth͡h, and the language of the the Qurʾān and Ḥadīth͡h, to us. Such that any sincere servant who studies the Qurʾān and the authentic Ḥadīth͡h, as they have both reached us, as they were understood by the pious generations, and with the correct understanding of the Arabic language, can recognize that they are the truth, and can appreciate

the beauty and remarkable consistency of their teachings. And even any minor portion that we may not comprehend every minute detail of, either with regard to its content or its transmission, due our limited understanding, and our limited window into history, does not affect the truth of what has been transmitted to us, and in no way detracts from our having sufficient clear evidence to submit to Allāh and worship Him in the manner in which He has prescribed for us.

We ask Allāh that He guide us to be in the company of those who received His message, believed in it, and followed it, inclining toward truth. And we seek refuge in Allāh from being among those who received His message clearly and sufficiently, but rejected it.

1.1. History of Arabic

Allāh, may He be glorified and exalted, revealed the Qurʾān, some 1400 years ago, to the Prophet Muḥammad ﷺ. The language of the Qurʾān is the Arabic language, as it was understood by the Arabs at that time. The sayings and actions of the Prophet ﷺ, in the form of the Ḥadīth were recorded by his companions also in this Arabic language. Also, composed in this Arabic language, was a vast body of poetry that the Arabs would consider eloquent and worth transmitting. We will call the Arabic of this pre-Islāmic and early Islāmic era as Classical Arabic. The Classical Arabic language consisted of multiple dialects that were spoken by the different tribes and in the different regions of the Arabian peninsula.

All languages change naturally over time. For example, English has changed to such a degree that the Old English language spoken 1400 years ago would be unintelligible to us today. So too did the Classical Arabic dialects begin to change. But when this began to happen, scholars took on the responsibility of preserving the language of the revelation.[1] They did this by recording a corpus of authentic Classical Arabic texts, and then analyzing it to derive grammatical rules, in addition to producing dictionaries and compendia. In the process of preserving Classical Arabic, one particular variety became standardized and gained prevalence as a literary language amongst the dialects of Classical Arabic. We will call this variety *Standard Classical Arabic* (SCA).[2]

SCA became the language of religious scholarship, science, and literature in the Islāmic world. As scholars developed new branches of religious and secular sciences, new terms and meanings were added (which are termed post-classical).

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[1] تحقيق الكلام في المسائل الثلاث ضمن آثار المعلمي 4/21–22

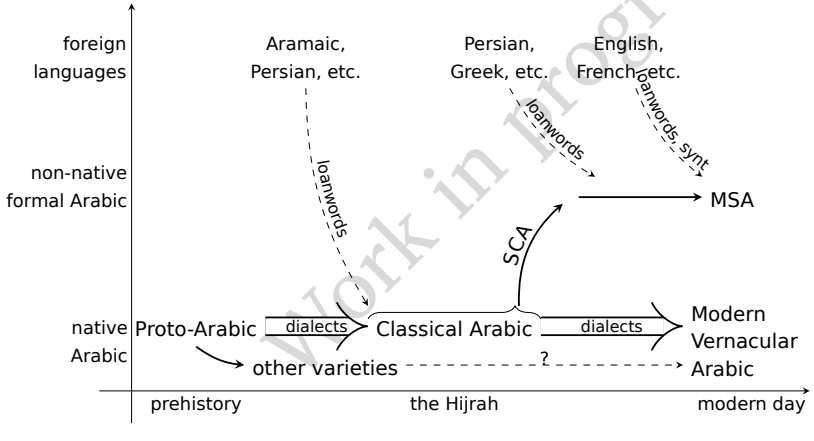
[2] For (sometimes competing) theories regarding SCA's development, see Al-Jallad, *The Damascus psalm fragment: Middle Arabic and the legacy of Old Ḥigāzī*, §"Whence Classical Arabic," p. 69; Rabin, "The beginnings of Classical Arabic"; Versteegh, *The Arabic language*, ch. 5: "The development of Classical Arabic," p. 60; Al-Sharkawi, *History and development of the Arabic language*, ch. 14: "The functional load of Classical Arabic," p. 218

A few words were also borrowed from foreign languages and Arabicized, as needed by the different scientific disciplines. Even Classical Arabic itself had a few Arabicized foreign borrowings from neighboring languages.

While SCA was used for literary purposes, the vernacular language that was spoken by Arabs in their day-to-day lives continued to evolve naturally over time and in the different regions where Arabic was spoken.[3] And so, there began to exist two very distinct types of Arabic: the preserved SCA which is taught by formal education and which is primarily a written language, and the vernacular Arabic dialects which Arabs learn as their mother tongue and which are primarily only spoken and not written.

In modern times, many new words and meanings were added to SCA, often via translation from Western languages, to keep up with technological advancements and modern media. This modern development of SCA is called Modern Standard Arabic (MSA).

Figure 1.1 presents a simplified view the historical development of the different varieties of Arabic.



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Figure 1.1.: A simplified view of the historical development of the different varieties of Arabic.

In Figure 1.1, the depiction of SCA emanating towards the end of the Classical Arabic period does not imply that only later stages of Classical Arabic contributed to SCA. Rather, it only implies that that is when SCA emerged as the standard literary language for non-native Classical Arabic users. In fact, the source material for SCA includes not only the speech of contemporary native Classical Arabic speakers, but also transmitted texts from throughout the Classical Arabic period, even texts from before the time of the Prophet ﷺ.

Nor does the diagram intend to imply that only SCA was preserved amongst

[3]See Holes, *Arabic historical dialectology: Linguistic and sociolinguistic approaches*

all the dialects of Classical Arabic. SCA is the variety of Classical Arabic which became a standard that continued to be used later. But the scholars of the Arabic language made notes regarding the other dialects of Classical Arabic as well.

1.2. What defines SCA

It may be appropriate to say a few words about what defines SCA proper. When the scholars of Arabic first began studying Classical Arabic, the regular, day-to-day, speech of many people had already begun to diverge from Classical Arabic. So the scholars would seek out and record samples of only authentic Classical Arabic speech and texts. Their criterion for what constituted an authentic sample was that it be *native* Classical Arabic speech. What we mean by "native Classical Arabic" is the language produced by persons immersed from early childhood in an environment where they would hear (native) Classical Arabic from people around them in their day-to-day lives, such that they learned to speak it naturally, without discernable change.[4]

By the time SCA was emerging as a standard for literary output, native Classical Arabic was on the decline. Most literary output produced in SCA was then a non-native attempt to conform to the standard. So, even though proficiency in SCA was generally pretty high, books written in SCA are not themselves, generally, definitive of SCA.

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1.3. MSA

As we have mentioned earlier, SCA when produced today will tend to have a lot of modern vocabulary, and will generally be referred to as MSA. MSA is used today as the language of published literature and formally produced news media.

MSA, in theory, still attempts to conform to the grammar of SCA. In practice, however, MSA is influenced considerably by European languages. This is because much written material, like books and news articles was, and is, translated from European languages. This translation, along with adding vocabulary, has also influenced the syntax and style of the MSA which you are likely to find printed today.[5] That is not to say that all MSA produced today has deviated from the syntax and style of SCA. Persons who have been more exposed to classical books are more likely to stay closer to SCA. In any case, as we have mentioned earlier,

[4] See also مجموع مقالات فيصل in علة رفض الاحتجاج بكبار الشعراء والكتاب الذين جاءوا بعد زمن الفصاحة 93–95 المنصور

[5] See العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي; Alfraidi, *Conditional sentences in Modern Written Arabic* 17–21;

all Arabic produced today, that attempts to conform to SCA, is merely that: an attempt to conform to SCA, and not definitive of SCA.

As a new learner, this exactitude is largely academic. Excepting the Qur'ān, which is inimitable, you may feel free to emulate the writing of good writers of SCA.

1.4. Spoken SCA

As we have mentioned above, SCA is primarily a written language. As a spoken language, SCA is, today, heard almost only in religious and formal settings.

We will learn in this book, if Allāh wills, that there are very exact rules for properly pronouncing and pausing in SCA. Practically, however, most native Arabic speakers today rarely adhere to these rules exactly in extemporaneous speech. Furthermore, depending on the situation, speakers may sometimes casually mix in their vernacular dialect within their SCA speech. In terms of usage, Classical Arabic had many idiomatic expressions that were used in everyday speech. But because spoken SCA is relegated to formal settings today, many of those expressions are now deemed archaic and are largely unused. In fact, a strict adherence to all SCA grammar, usage, and pronunciation/pausing rules in informal spoken settings may, today, come across as pretentious or overly formal.[6]

Our advice to the learner who wishes to speak his newly learned Arabic is to learn to be comfortable with the different spheres and sociolinguistic norms of Arabic. Consider the following real-world setting:

A scholar may be giving a lecture, in Arabic, on one of the Islāmic branches of knowledge. It may even be a lecture on SCA grammar. In the beginning of the lecture, the scholar will praise Allāh and ask Allāh to confer blessing upon and grant peace to the Prophet ﷺ This will be done using exact SCA grammar and pronunciation/pausing rules.

The scholar will then begin the instructional part of his lecture. The language of this instruction will still typically be SCA. But adherence to pronunciation and pausing rules may be considerably relaxed. The scholar's speech may be closer to exact SCA rules when giving formal instruction, and then more relaxed when elaborating on some particular point. When quoting an āyah from the Qur'ān, strict SCA would be employed, even if not reciting the āyah. The scholar's fluency in spoken SCA is also a factor in how close his extemporaneous formal speech is to SCA. Because, like anyone born after the classical era, he is not a native speaker of Classical Arabic. And his proficiency in speaking exact SCA fluently does not detract, if Allāh wills, from his eminence and knowledge of his domain.

[6] Hallberg, *Case endings in Spoken Standard Arabic* 54–55. see also p. 86

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Within the lecture, the scholar may even dip in and out of his vernacular dialect, often when interacting with a questioner from the audience.

Once the lecture is concluded, the scholar and his students may engage in an informal session. The conversation in this session will almost entirely be in vernacular dialect(s).

If you find yourself in such a society, it is advisable to conform to its norms. As a non-native Arabic speaker, you won't be expected to speak a vernacular dialect. So your speaking SCA in an informal setting is excused. But aim for a natural and easy flowing speech, even at the cost of grammatical correctness.

You can even try to convert your SCA speech to sound more like the modern vernacular dialects. (Appendix E gives some tips on how to do so.) In fact, it may not be a bad idea to supplement your learning of SCA with some knowledge of a vernacular dialect, not least to understand the native speech of the Arabs today.

1.5. Scope of this book

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In this book, we will study the grammar of SCA. If Allāh wills, this will help you to begin to understand Islāmic texts.

Know that our primary goal is to learn how to *understand* SCA texts, and not necessarily how to *speak* Arabic, especially for modern day-to-day circumstances. The grammar rules that we present will be aligned with this goal.

If your goal is to learn how to speak MSA, then this book may still be of help because the core language and the grammar are essentially the same. However, you may prefer to study from a resource that focuses on the modern language.

Except for the marginal treatment in Appendix E, this book does not deal with the modern vernacular dialects that are spoken in the Arab world today.

1.6. Organization of this book

We will start, if Allāh wills, with the Arabic script and present, in each chapter, a new concept of Arabic grammar, together with examples. Though there is none right now, we also plan to give, if Allāh wills, a vocabulary list and exercises for each chapter.

We have generally tried to organize content coherently for convenient reference during learning. Sometimes, this can mean that on encountering a new topic, we present it in more detail than is strictly necessary for learning at that stage. Although identifying such material may not be easy for the learner, you may feel free to skim over such material and refer back to it later, as needed.

Some of the sentences we present, both as examples and as chapter exercises, because of their contrived nature, may seem of dubious usefulness to a learner wanting to learn practical usage. Also, when translating "made-up" examples, we usually steer toward a literal, word-for-word, translation rather than a natural one. This is in order to illustrate the function of each word, and to show a correspondence between the words in the Arabic sentence and the English translation. This comes at the expense of an English translation that will often sound awkward and even, at times, ungrammatical. We proffer the excuse that our aim in this book is to teach Arabic, not how to translate Arabic into English.

We request the reader's patience and indulgence in these and other matters.

1.7. Composing in SCA

We mentioned above that we will often translate our examples from Arabic into English in a word-for-word manner. And this is for extenuating reasons.

The learner should be aware that this is no excuse for composing speech in SCA based on a word-for-word translation from English. Nor is there often a one-to-one mapping from English words to Arabic words. SCA may use, for the same English word, one word in one context, and another word or expression in another context. In summary, SCA has its own usage and style that must be adhered to when composing in it. Indeed word-for-word and one-to-one translations are the cause of many of the problems in MSA that we discussed in Section 1.3 above. In Appendix B we discuss the usage and style of SCA vis-à-vis common pitfalls that a learner coming from English may encounter.

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1.8. How to study from this book

Keep pen and paper in hand when studying. Write some of the examples as you are studying and try to understand how the example is relevant to the topic. In answering the exercises, we strongly recommend that you memorize the vocabulary in full and write down the answers with pen on paper. We strongly recommend that you avoid the tendency to answer the exercises only orally or mentally without writing them down, or look up the answers from the answer key before attempting to write the answer yourself, or look up words in the vocabulary list without memorizing them, or proceed to the next chapter before memorizing the vocabulary and going through the exercises. You may also find yourself having to go back a few chapters every once in a while and revising the concepts therein. This is very normal and not a cause for any concern. It may also prove beneficial to re-do the exercises of that chapter when doing so.

Know that while Arabic grammar requires effort to master to a proficient degree, the real barrier to reading and understanding Arabic texts by oneself is vocabulary. Arabic is a very rich language and knowledge of a few thousand words is needed before the student can begin to read texts independently. In fact, we would not be too far off to say that grammar, at this stage, is only a tool to help you make sense of the vocabulary that you are acquiring. So strive to achieve a balance between learning grammar and acquiring vocabulary. In appendix @ref(vocabulary-and-reading), we suggest companion reading material, dictionaries, and techniques on acquiring and retaining vocabulary.

1.9. Interpreting the Qurʾān

Know that the language of the Qurʾān is Classical Arabic, as we have defined it. And not, strictly speaking, SCA, which is what we will teach.

Nevertheless, as you proceed in your Arabic studies, you may begin to form an understanding of the meanings of some of the āyahs of the Qurʾān. Pondering over the āyahs of the Qurʾān, to understand it, obtain guidance from it, and act upon it is one of the foremost goals of the Qurʾān.[7] Know, however, that forming this understanding should be done with a proper methodology: one that is based on sound and confirmed knowledge.[8] Interpreting the Qurʾān is one of the branches of Islāmic knowledge known as *tafsīr*. There are proper sources for tafsīr. They are:

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1. The Qurʾān. The Qurʾān itself is a source of tafsīr. What is stated in a concise fashion in one place may be elaborated upon at another place.[9]
2. The Sunnah of the Prophet ﷺ. The Sunnah (via the Ḥadīth) is the second most important source of tafsīr. Allāh tasked the Prophet ﷺ with explaining the Qurʾān and gave him ﷺ the necessary knowledge in order for him ﷺ to do so.[10]
3. The understanding of the Companions of the Prophet ﷺ. The Companions had an excellent command of the Arabic language and lived through many of the events that the Qurʾān refers to. Furthermore, if a meaning of an āyah was not clear to them, they had access to the Prophet ﷺ and would ask him ﷺ about its meaning.[11]
4. The Arabic language.[12]. One needs to have sound knowledge of the Arabic

[7] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 96 citing الفوزان
[8] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 187
[9] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 205 citing الزركشي
[10] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 212–213 citing الألباني
[11] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 224ff
[12] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 235ff

> language of the time of the Prophet ﷺ to be able to interpret the Qurʾān linguistically. However, one cannot rely solely on the Arabic language for tafsīr.[13] There are many instances where the Companions, who possessed knowledge of the Arabic language, did not understand the intent of an āyah and it was necessary for the Prophet ﷺ to explain the Qurʾān to them.[14]

The specialist in the science of tafsīr is able to use the above sources, and his educated reasoning, to comment on the meaning of āyahs.[15]

There are grave dangers to speaking about the Qurʾān without sound knowledge. If one makes a statement regarding the meaning of an āyah of the Qurʾān, then he is actually making a statement on behalf of Allāh.[16] So he better be sure that he is making that statement based on sound knowledge. Because speaking about Allāh without knowledge is a most great sin. This is because it involves and includes ascribing something falsely to Allāh.[17]

Here is an example of an āyah where it is conceivable that someone may make an incorrect interpretation, if he did not interpret according to a proper methodology:

(2) إِنَّ ٱلَّذِينَ ءَامَنُواْ وَٱلَّذِينَ هَادُواْ وَٱلنَّصَٰرَىٰ وَٱلصَّٰبِـِٔينَ مَنْ ءَامَنَ بِٱللَّهِ وَٱلْيَوْمِ ٱلْأَخِرِ وَعَمِلَ صَٰلِحًا فَلَهُمْ أَجْرُهُمْ عِندَ رَبِّهِمْ وَلَا خَوْفٌ عَلَيْهِمْ وَلَا هُمْ يَحْزَنُونَ [سورة البقرة 2:62]

Translation by Ṣaḥeeḥ International™:

> « Indeed, those who believed and those who were Jews or Christians or Sabeans [before Prophet Muḥammad (ﷺ)] - those [among them] who believed in Allāh and the Last Day and did righteousness - will have their reward with their Lord, and no fear will there be concerning them, nor will they grieve. »

Footnote by the same translator:

> After the coming of Prophet Muḥammad (ﷺ) no religion other than Islām is acceptable to Allāh, as stated in 3:85.

The āyah referred to in the footnote is:

(3) وَمَن يَبْتَغِ غَيْرَ ٱلْإِسْلَٰمِ دِينًا فَلَن يُقْبَلَ مِنْهُ وَهُوَ فِى ٱلْأَخِرَةِ مِنَ ٱلْخَٰسِرِينَ [سورة آل عمران 3:85]

> « And whoever desires other than Islām as religion - never will it be accepted from him, and he, in the Hereafter, will be among the losers. »

[13] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 241
[14] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 213ff
[15] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 244–245
[16] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 194
[17] Zarabozo, *How to approach and understand the Quran* 197 citing ابن القيم

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Ibn Kaṯīr, in his tafsīr of this āyah, cites a report narrated from the Companion of the Prophet ﷺ Ibn Ɛabbās regarding āyah سورة البقرة 2:62, that Allāh revealed after it سورة آل عمران 3:85.

Ibn Kaṯīr then says (paraphrasing):

> This statement by Ibn ʿAbbās indicates that Allāh does not accept any deed or work from anyone, unless it conforms to the Law of Muḥammad ﷺ that is, after Allāh sent Muḥammad ﷺ. Before that, every person who followed the guidance of his own Prophet was on the correct path, following the correct guidance and was saved.[18]

From the tafsīr of this āyah, we see how one āyah is explained using another āyah. And we also see the role of the Companions in tafsīr.

The tafsīr of Ibn Kaṯīr is available, abridged, in English translation:

- Al-Mubarakpuri, *Tafsir ibn Kathir* (abridged, English translation), Darussalam, 2nd edition, 2003

Arabic abridged editions also exist:

- عمدة التفسير عن الحافظ ابن كثير لأحمد شاكر
- المصباح المنير في تهذيب تفسير ابن كثير للمباركفوري

These are beneficial, if Allāh wills, not only for their tafsīr, but also as good companion reading material for the student of Arabic.

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[18] Al-Mubarakpuri, *Tafsir ibn Kathir* (abridged, English translation), Darussalam, 2nd edition, 2003 1/249

Chapter 2.

The Arabic script

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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2.1. The Arabic alphabet

The alphabet consists of both consonants and vowels. In the English word “banana”, “a” is a vowel, and “b” and “n” are called consonants. The Arabic alphabet traditionally has 28 letters, shown in the table below.

No.	Arabic letter	Transcription	Name
1	ا	*ā*	أَلِف alif
2	ب	*b*	بَاء bāʾ
3	ت	*t*	تَاء tāʾ
4	ث	*t͡h*	ثَاء t͡hāʾ
5	ج	*j*	جِيم jīm
6	ح	*ḥ*	حَاء ḥāʾ
7	خ	*k͡h*	خَاء k͡hāʾ
8	د	*d*	دَال dāl
9	ذ	*d͡h*	ذَال d͡hāl
10	ر	*r*	رَاء rāʾ
11	ز	*z*	زَاء zāʾ
12	س	*s*	سِين sīn
13	ش	*s͡h*	شِين s͡hīn

No.	Arabic letter	Transcription	Name
14	ص	*ṣ*	صَاد ṣād
15	ض	*ḍ͡h*	ضَاد ḍ͡hād
16	ط	*ṭ*	طَاء ṭāʾ
17	ظ	*ḍ͡h*	ظَاء ḍ͡hāʾ
18	ع	*ɛ*	عَيْن ɛayn
19	غ	*g͡h*	غَيْن g͡hayn
20	ف	*f*	فَاء fāʾ
21	ق	*q*	قَاف qāf
22	ك	*k*	كَاف kāf
23	ل	*l*	لَام lām
24	م	*m*	مِيم mīm
25	ن	*n*	نُون nūn
26	ه	*h*	هَاء hāʾ
27	و	*w/ū*	وَاو wāw
28	ي	*y/ī*	يَاء yāʾ

We make no attempt to describe the sounds of each letter. Those are best learned with a Qurʾān teacher. Online videos may also help in this regard.

Note that the letters و (wāw) and ي (yāʾ) are both vowels and consonants. But that alif (alif) is only a vowel. The consonant corresponding to alif is ء *hamzah*. Although ء ought to be considered a letter in its own right, it was originally only pronounced and not written. So it is not traditionally considered part of the 28-letter script. Instead it is added as as diacritic on top of the basic script.

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No.	Arabic letter	Transcription	Name
–	ء	ʾ	هَمْزَة hamzah

2.2. Alternative order of letters

The above order of the letters in alphabetical sequence is currently used today. There is an alternative order that was more used in the past (from right to left):

ابجد هوز حطي كلمن سعفص قرشت ثخذ ضظغ

This alternative order is discussed more in appendix @ref(abjad-order). (TODO: add appendix for أبجد order, discuss its use in lists and numerical value.)

2.3. Writing Arabic words

2.3.1. Letters in different positions

Arabic is written right-to-left, unlike English and most other languages which are written left-to-right. When writing, the letters in a word are generally joined to each other, except for six out of the 28 letters, which join only to the letter preceding them but not to the letter following them. These six partially-joining letters are ا، د، ذ، ر، ز، و.

When joining the letters, letters are modified in order to join to the preceding and following letter. The fully-joining letters can be in four positions:

1. by itself (isolated),
2. in the beginning of a group of joined letters,
3. in the middle of a group of joined letters,
4. in the end of a group of joined letters.

As we just mentioned, six of the letters (ا، د، ذ، ر، ز، و) don't join to the following letter. So these letters can only occur only in the end of a group of joined letters, or isolated by themselves.

In this book we will show a "Simplified Arabic" writing style where, in each of the four positions, the letter maintains its basic shape and is usually only slightly modified to join to the previous and following letter with horizontal lines.

To explain the method of modifying the letters when joining them, we will take ب as an example and start with the isolated form:

Isolated form: ب

To modify this into the end form, we simply join a horizontal line to the right of the letter:

End form: ـب.

To get the middle form, we take the end form ـب and cut off its tail which is at its left, and replace it with a horizontal line. We also move the dot slightly to get:

Middle form: ـبـ

And finally, to get the beginning form, we take the middle form ـبـ and remove the horizontal line at the right:

Beginning form: بـ

Now most of the letters follow this common technique but a few of them are modified a little further in each form. These, more complicated, letters are ع، غ، ه، ك، ي and you can study them and the rest of the letters in the table below:

Work in progress

No.	Isolated	End	Middle	Beginning
1	ا	ـا	none	none
2	ب	ـب	ـبـ	بـ
3	ت	ـت	ـتـ	تـ
4	ث	ـث	ـثـ	ثـ
5	ج	ـج	ـجـ	جـ
6	ح	ـح	ـحـ	حـ
7	خ	ـخ	ـخـ	خـ
8	د	ـد	none	none
9	ذ	ـذ	none	none
10	ر	ـر	none	none
11	ز	ـز	none	none
12	س	ـس	ـسـ	سـ
13	ش	ـش	ـشـ	شـ
14	ص	ـص	ـصـ	صـ
15	ض	ـض	ـضـ	ضـ
16	ط	ـط	ـطـ	طـ
17	ظ	ـظ	ـظـ	ظـ
18	ع	ـع	ـعـ	عـ
19	غ	ـغ	ـغـ	غـ
20	ف	ـف	ـفـ	فـ
21	ق	ـق	ـقـ	قـ
22	ك	ـك	ـكـ	كـ
23	ل	ـل	ـلـ	لـ
24	م	ـم	ـمـ	مـ
25	ن	ـن	ـنـ	نـ
26	ه	ـه	ـهـ	هـ
27	و	ـو	none	none
28	ي	ـي	ـيـ	يـ

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You can see that each letter maintains a basic shape and is modified for each of the four positions.

2.3.2. Joining the different forms to make a word

Notice that when we modified the isolated form to get to the beginning, middle, and end forms, we added a horizontal line to each or both sides. It is this horizontal line which joines to the horizontal line of the neighboring letter.

As an example, we would like to join the following letters (starting from the right): م-ع-ش-ر into one word. The first letter is م so we modify it to its beginning form مـ. The next two letters are converted to their middle forms ـعـ، ـشـ. And the last letter ر is converted to its end form ـر. Then we join the horizontal lines together and get مـعـشـر. Usually, when we join letters like this we shorten the horizontal lines so you will generally see the word like this معشر.

In this example, we needed the beginning, middle, and end forms of the letters. Isolated forms are used in a word when there is a partially-joining letter present that won't join to the following letter. The letter after a partially-joining letter will be in its beginning form even though it is in the middle of a word. But if it too is a partially-joining letter, or it is the last letter in the word then it will take its isolated form.

Let's take a look at some examples where a group of disjoint letters are joined to form a word:

Disjoint	Joined
ذ-ل-ك	ذلك
ا-ح-م-د	احمد
ر-س-و-ل	رسول
و-ز-ي-ر	وزير
ر-ا-ز-ق	رازق

Notice that in the last example, all the letters were in the isolated form.

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2.3.2.1. Simplified and traditional typography

We have just shown how letters join to each other with a horizontal line in a "simplified" Arabic typeface. "Traditional" Arabic typefaces are a little more complex than simplified Arabic: some letters join almost vertically instead of horizontally. But when you get familiar with the simplified Arabic type, if Allāh wills it will not be too difficult for you to read traditional Arabic types as well.

Here are some comparisions of letters joining to each other in simplified Arabic and traditional Arabic types.

Disjoint	Joined (simplified)	Joined (traditional)
ت-م-ر	تمر	تمر
ا-ل-ح-ج-ج	الحجج	الحجج
ا-ل-م-ا-س	الماس	الماس
ل-م-ح-ة	لمحة	لمحة

Disjoint	Joined (simplified)	Joined (traditional)
س-ح-ر	سحر	سحر
ب-ح-ي-ر-ة	بحيرة	بحيرة
ف-ي	في	في
ب-ت-ث-ب-ي-ت-ت-ي-ن	بتثبيتتين	بتثبيتّتين

2.3.3. ة (closed tāʾ)

ة is a special letter which is merged from two letters of the alphabet. It is a ت but it is written as a ه with two dots above it. ة is pronounced exactly as a ت, except when it is at the end of a sentence in which case it is pronounced as a ه (as we'll explain later, if Allāh wills). ة occurs only at the end of a word so it has only an end form and an isolated form (used when the letter before it is a partially-joining letter).

Examples:

- فاطمة
- شجرة
- فتاة

We call ة *closed* tāʾ because it appears as if have taken ت and pressed it until it closed on itself. In contrast, ت is called *open* tāʾ when needed to differentiate it from ة.

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2.3.4. Writing hamzah

We have mentioned that hamzah was a later addition to the Arabic alphabet and originally it was only sounded and not written. Hamzah can be written in a number of different ways:

1. "Seated" above (or below) a vowel letter: Hamzah can be written above the vowel letters thus: أ ؤ ئ. When written over ي, the ي (according to modern convention) will not have any dots, thus: ئ ـئـ ـئ. It may also be written under an alif thus: إ. Examples: أفعال, سؤلك, فئة, إن.
2. "Unseated" after a letter. This has two sub cases:
    a. Standalone, after a partially-joining letter or at the end of a word. Examples: تساءل, توءم, عبء.
    b. Inline, in the middle of a word after a fully-joining letter. In this case hamzah is written above the horizontal line that joins the letters. Examples: خطيئة, شيئا, بريئين.

In all cases it is pronounced the same. There are actually a set of fairly complicated rules that determine which of the above ways to choose when writing hamzah. We present these rules in Appendix A. We recommend that for now, you memorize the spelling of each word that we present that contains a hamzah. When you are sufficiently advanced, and curious enough, you may refer to Appendix A to learn the full set of rules.

2.3.5. Disambiguating letters that look similar

Some letters are very similar to each other and only differ in their dots or other slight differences. You should take care to distinguish between these letters. We will describe their similarities and differences here.

The letters ب, ت, and ث differ only in their dots and are otherwise identical in all positions. ن and ي are similar in initial and middle positions to ب, ت, and ث but differ from them and from each other in isolated and final positions. Compare all five in the table below:

Isolated	End	Middle	Beginnning
ب	ـب	ـبـ	بـ
ت	ـت	ـتـ	تـ
ث	ـث	ـثـ	ثـ
ن	ـن	ـنـ	نـ
ي	ـي	ـيـ	يـ

These groups of letters differ too, only in their dots:

- ج, ح, and خ
- د and ذ
- ر and ز
- س and ش
- ص and ض
- ط and ظ
- ع and غ

The letters ف and ق are similar in the initial and middle positions except for the dots. But in the isolated and final positions, the tail of ق goes lower than that of ف.

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Isolated	End	Middle	Beginnning
ف	ـف	ـفـ	فـ
ق	ـق	ـقـ	قـ

Be careful also not to confuse غ and ف in their middle forms. The loop for ف is round where it is triangular and flat-topped for غ (as it is for ع). Compare their middle forms in the table below:

Isolated	Middle
غ	ـغـ
ف	ـفـ

The letters alif ا and lām ل could also be confused for each other. Their forms are shown here again for easy comparison:

Isolated	End	Middle	Beginnning
ا	ـا	none	none
ل	ـل	ـلـ	لـ

Work in progress

2.3.6. Joining alif after lām

When the letter alif follows lām we would expect them to be joined like this ا+ل → ـلـ. But actually, they are joined in a special way

ا+ل → لا

When the combination occurs at the end of a group of joined letters, it will appear thus:

ـلا

Examples:

- ألا
- الإيمان
- الصلاة

2.4. Vowels and pronunciation marks.

2.4.1. Short Vowels

Arabic has six vowels. There are three short vowels which don't have letters in the alphabet. Instead they are shown with pronunciation marks:

1. *a* as the first vowel in English "manipulate", written with an fat·ḥah ◌َ which is a small diagonal line above the letter like مَـ *ma*.
2. *i* as in English "bit", written with an kasrah ◌ِ which is a small diagonal line under the letter like بِـ *bi*.
3. *u* as in English "put", written with an ḏ͡hammah ◌ُ which is like a tiny و wāw above the letter like فُـ *fu*.

Examples of words with short vowels:

- فَتَحَ *fataḥa*
- عَمِلَ *ɛamila*
- قُتِلَ *qutila*

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2.4.2. Long Vowels

There are also three long vowels which are part of the alphabet:

1. *ā* generally written with an unmarked alif ا and with the preceding letter having an fat·ḥah. Example مَا *mā*. This vowel is mostly pronounced like the vowel in English "man". If however, it comes after these letters خ،ر،ص،ض،ط،ظ،غ،ق it is pronounced like English "awe".
2. *ī* like in English "meek" written with an unmarked ي yāʾ with the preceding letter having an kasrah. Example فِي *fī*.
3. *ū* like in English "moon" written with an unmarked و wāw with the preceding letter having an ḏ͡hammah. Example ذُو *ḏ͡hū*.

Examples of words with long and short vowels:

- هَارُونُ *hārūnu*
- كَذَا *kaḏ͡hā*
- سَرَادِيبَ *sarādība*

2.4.2.1. *ā* vowel written with a small alif

Sometimes the *ā* vowel is written as a small alif ◌ٰ, called a “dagger alif”, instead of a regular alif ا. This is done only for a few commonly used words. Here are some examples:

- هَٰذَا *hād͡hā*
- ذَٰلِكَ *d͡hālika*

2.4.2.2. *ā* vowel written with a yāʾ

In some other words, the *ā* vowel is written with a yāʾ instead of an alif ا. When this happens, we will write the yāʾ without its dots and write a dagger alif ◌ٰ above it, like this ىٰ. Here are some examples:

- عَلَىٰ *ɛalā*
- رَمَىٰ *ramā*

Work in progress

2.4.3. Zero-vowel written with a sukūn

As we have seen above if an Arabic letter has a vowel after it it will take one of the three pronunciation marks: ◌َ, ◌ِ, ◌ُ. If, however, there is no vowel after the letter we will put a zero-vowel sukūn on it ◌ْ. This mark can generally only occur if there is a short vowel before the letter. Examples:

- كَمْ *kam*
- مُنْذُ *mund͡hu*
- مِنْهُمْ *minhum*
- مِنْهَا *minhā*

2.4.4. Semi-vowels

Arabic has two short semi-vowels:

1. *aw* like in English “show”. This is written with a wāw with a sukūn on it and a short *a* vowel before it. Example لَوْ *law*.
2. *ay* like in English “bait”. This is written with a yāʾ with a sukūn on it and a short *a* vowel before it. Example كَيْ *kay*. Examples with short semi-vowels:

- وَيْحَكَ *wayḥaka*
- غَيْرُهُ *g͡hayruhu*
- قَوْلُهُ *qawluhu*

It also has two long semi-vowels:

1. *āw* like in English “cow”. This is written with a wāw with a sukūn on it and a long *ā* vowel before it. Example وَاوْ *wāw*.
2. *āy* like in English “bye”. This is written with a yāʾ with a sukūn on it and a long *ā* vowel before it. Example شَايْ *sh͡āy*.

These long semi-vowels are rare and may only occur at the end of a sentence.

2.4.5. Doubled letters

A word may contain “doubled” letters. This is when the same letter occurs, one after the other; the first letter has a sukūn, and the second letter has a vowel. For example, in the word قَتْتَلَ *qattala*, the letter ت is doubled. When this occurs, we actually only write the letter once and put a “sh͡addah” ّ on it, like so: قَتَّلَ *qattala*. When pronouncing this word, stop at and stress the doubled letter *qattala* and make sure it does not sound like the undoubled letter in قَتَلَ *qatala*. Examples with doubled letters:

- كَبَّرَ *kabbara*
- حَدُّهُ *ḥadduhu*
- فَعَّالَ *faɛɛāla*
- سِكِّينُ *sikkīnu*. Note that the kasrah is below the sh͡addah but above the letter ك. This is the most common way to write this, although having the kasrah below the letter is also sometimes done as well. (In this case, the sh͡addah will still be above the letter.)
- سَفُّودُ *saffūdu*
- ضَالِّينَ *ḍ͡hāllīna*
- مُزَّمِّلُ *muzzammilu*

2.4.6. Tanwīn

In the next chapter, we will learn, if Allāh wills, that nouns in Arabic are sometimes pronounced with an extra ن sound at their end. This is called *tanwīn*. Tanwīn is indicated in writing, not by adding a the letter ن at the end of the word, but by writing the final vowel mark twice, thus:

1. ٌ *un*, for example كِتَابٌ *kitābun*.
2. ً *an*, for example شَجَرَةً *sh͡ajaratan*.
3. ٍ *in*, for example بَيْتٍ *baytin*.

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The tanwīned fat·ḥah ً has specific spelling rules: Generally, we will generally add a silent alif after it, for example سَالِم becomes سَالِمًا *sāliman*. This is done for all words except:

1. If the word ends with a ة. In this case we don't add the silent alif. For example, غَاضِبَة becomes غَاضِبَةً *ġ͡ẖāḍ͡ẖibatan*.
2. If the word ends with a *ā* vowel, whether written with an alif ا or as a yāʾ with dagger alif ى. In this case, the *an* mark is put on the letter before the alif ا or yāʾ ى and the final vowel letter becomes silent and is not pronounced. For example, مُصْطَفَىٰ becomes مُصْطَفًى *muṣṭafan*, عَصَا becomes عَصًا *εaṣan*.
3. If the word ends with a hamzah. In this case, we might or might not write a silent alif, depending on the following rules:
    a. If there is an alif before an unseated hamzah اء, then we don't add a silent alif. For example دَاء becomes دَاءً *dāʾan*, not دَاءًا.
    b. Otherwise, we add a silent alif after the hamzah. However, this may affect the writing of the hamzah, for example مُبْتَدَأ becomes مُبْتَدَءًا *mubtadaʾan*. This is discussed further in appendix @ref(hamzarules).

Here are some examples of tanwīned words:

- سَعْدٌ *saεdun*
- ضَرْبًا *ḍ͡ẖarban*
- قَاضٍ *qāḍ͡ẖin*
- سَعَةً *saεatan*
- دُعَاءً *duεāʾan*
- اِمْرَءًا *imraʾan*
- شَيْـًٔا *sẖayʾan*
- سُوءًا *sūʾan*
- غَبَنٌ *ġ͡ẖabanun*

Work in progress

2.5. Connecting hamzah

Some words in arabic begin with a sukūn. When this occurs a connecting hamzah ٱ (written as a tiny ـص on an alif) is put before it. If this word comes in the beginning of the sentence the connecting alif is pronounced as a hamzah. Otherwise this connecting hamzah is not pronounced and the word is connected to the final vowel of the previous word in pronunciation. In this tutorial we will transcribe the connecting hamzah with a hyphen "-". Examples of connecting hamzah:

(4) ٱِفْتَح ٱلْبَابَ
ʾiftaḥi -lbāba

(5) ٱُنْظُرْ
ʾunḏ͡ẖur

If the previous word does not end with a vowel, then a helper vowel is added. The most common helper vowel is ِ. Example:

(6) زَيْدٌ ٱلْكَرِيمُ
zayduni -lkarīmu

When one word ends in a long vowel and the next word begins with a connecting hamzah, the long vowel becomes a short vowel in pronunciation, but in writing the long vowel's letter is retained. For example:

(7) أَخَذَ مِنَّا ٱلْكِتَابَ
ʾak͡ẖaḏ͡ẖa minna -lkitāba

(8) ذُو ٱلْقَرْنَيْنِ
ḏ͡ẖu -lqarnayni

(9) فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ
fi -lbayti

work in progress

2.6. Pronouncing the end of a sentence

When a word is at the end of a sentence and it ends with a long vowel, then the final long vowel is pronounced normally. However, when a word at the end of a sentence does not end with a long vowel, then the final letter's pronunciation mark is pronounced as a sukūn when vocalizing the sentence. If the final letter is a ة then it is pronounced as a ه hāʾ with a sukūn.

This change in pronunciation is only vocal, it does not affect how we write the pronunciation mark. Here we give some examples of words pronounced if they were at the end of a sentence:

(10) فَتْحُ
fatḥ

(11) عُقْبَةٌ
ɛuqbah

(12) وَالِدَايَ
wālidāy

(13) وَالِدَيَّ
wālidayy

If however, the final letter's pronunciation mark is a *an* mark then it is pronounced as a long-*ā* vowel. The only exception is if the final letter were ـًة, in which case it is then pronounced as a hāʾ with a sukūn ـْه. Here are examples of words with *an* marks pronounced as if they were at the end of a sentence.

(14) مَفْعُولًا
mafɛūlā

(15) سَاجِدًا
sājidā

(16) مَرْفُوعَةً
marfūɛah

Note that the above exception is only for ـة. If a hamzah with an *an* mark occurs at the end of a word, then it too will be pronounced as if it had a long-*ā* vowel after it. Such is the case, whether or not a silent alif is written after the hamzah. Examples:

- مُبْتَدَءًا is pronounced *mubtadaʾā*
- دُعَاءً is pronounced *duɛāʾā*

Similarly, if the word has a final yāʾ that represents the long-*ā* vowel, and the letter before has an *an* mark, it is pronounced with the long-*ā* vowel at the end of the sentence. For example:

- مُصْطَفًى is pronounced *muṣṭafā*

Work in progress

2.7. The Qurʾānic script

The Arabic script that you will find in the muṣ·ḥaf (a volume of the Qurʾān) is slightly different than what is used in (non-Qurʾānic) SCA. We will describe some of the more common differences below:

One difference is that ـ�“ is used in SCA as a replacement for ـٔا. Whereas, in the Qurʾānic script ـٓ denotes an elongated long *ā* vowel without a hamzah. The following table gives some examples:

SCA script	Qurʾānic script
الْآخِرَةُ *alʾākẖiratu*	ٱلْأَخِرَةُ [سورة البقرة 2:94]
الضَّالِّينَ *aḍẖḍẖāllīna*	ٱلضَّآلِّينَ [سورة الفاتحة 1:7]

Another minor difference is that word-final ي is written without its dots in Qurʾānic script. (By the, this is also found as a regional variance in the SCA script.) For example:

SCA script	Qurʾānic script
إِنِّي *ʾinnī*	إِنِّى [سورة طه 20:94]

There can also be regional differences in the pronunciation marks used in the Qurʾānic script. For example, in muṣ·ḥafs that are used in the Indian subcontinent ٱلْاٰخِرَةُ is the conventional spelling.

Besides the above differences that have to do with the diacritical marks, some words, and combinations of words, may also be spelled differently. For example:

SCA script	Qurʾānic script
الصَّلَاةَ ٱ *aṣṣalāta*	ٱلصَّلَوٰةَ [سورة البقرة 2:3]
السَّمَاوَاتِ ٱ *assamāwāti*	ٱلسَّمَٰوَٰتِ [سورة البقرة 2:33]
يَا ٱبْنَ أُمَّ *ya -bna ʾumma*	يَبْنَؤُمَّ [سورة طه 20:94]

The reasons for this are out of the scope of this book.

There are other minor differences as well between Qurʾānic script and SCA script. They mainly deal with pronunciation and punctuation.

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Chapter 3.

The noun

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3.1. Introduction

A noun is a kind of word that is the name of something or someone.

Here are some examples of common nouns in Arabic:

Arabic word	Transcription	Definition
رَجُل	*rajul*	man
كِتَاب	*kitāb*	book
بَيْت	*bayt*	house
شَجَرَة	*s͡hajarah*	tree
صَبْر	*ṣabr*	patience
وَقْت	*waqt*	time
طَعَام	*ṭaɛām*	food
اِبْن	*ʾibn*	son

Note that the final letter in each word, above, does not have a vowel mark. This is because, the final vowel mark is actually variable, as we shall see later in this chapter.

When we discuss nouns outside of sentences we shall pronounce the ة as a *h*. Therefore, شَجَرَة *tree*, in isolation, is pronounced *s͡hajarah*, not *s͡hajarat*.

Some nouns begin with a connecting hamzah, for example: إِبْن *ʾibn son*. When in the beginning of a sentence, the connecting hamzah will be pronounced with an kasrah ◌ِ.

3.2. Definiteness

When talking about nouns it is necessary to introduce a topic called *definiteness*.

A noun is *definite* when the person or thing it refers to is known. For example, if you say, *the man arrived*, then the usage of the word "the" before "man" tells us that the man is known to us. Therefore the noun "man" is definite in this sentence.

Conversely, if we had said *a man arrived* then the use of "a" before "man" tells us that the man is unknown to us. Therefore "man" is indefinite in this sentence.

"The" is called the *definite article* and "a" is called the *indefinite article*.

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3.2.1. Definite nouns in Arabic

The definite article in Arabic is أَلْ *ʾal*. It corresponds to the English definite article "the". In order to make a noun definite, we attach أَلْ *ʾal* to its beginning.

For example, the definite noun "the book" in Arabic is أَلْكِتَاب *ʾalkitāb*.

أَلْ *ʾal* begins with a connecting hamzah; the hamzah will be pronounced only in the beginning of a sentence. And when it occurs in the beginning of a sentence, the hamzah is pronounced with a ◌َ a-mark.

3.2.1.1. Sun letters and moon letters

The noun "man" in Arabic is رَجُل *rajul*. To make this noun definite, we add أَلْ *ʾal* to the beginning of the word. But instead of becoming أَلْرَجُل *ʾalrajul* the word becomes أَلرَّجُل *ʾarrajul*. The ل in أَلْ becomes silent and the ر gets doubled. This happens because the first letter ر in the word رَجُل *rajul* is from a group of letters called "sun letters". For all nouns beginning with sun letters, when أَلْ *ʾal* is put in the beginning, the ل in أَلْ becomes silent and the sun letter becomes doubled.

The rest of the letters in the alphabet are called "moon letters" and for words that begin with moon letters, the ل in أَلْ does not become silent and the moon letter does not become doubled. For example, ك is a moon letter and we have already seen that كِتَاب *kitāb* "book" becomes أَلْكِتَاب *ʾalkitāb* "the book".

The sun letters are ت ث د ذ ر ز س ش ص ض ط ظ ل ن.
The moon letters are ء ب ج ح خ ع غ ف ق ك م ه و ي.

The names “sun letters” and “moon letters” were given because of the Arabic words for “sun” and “moon” respectively. “The sun” in Arabic is أَلشَّمْس *ʾash͡shams* which begins with ش which causes the ل in أَلْ to be silent. “The moon” is أَلْقَمَر *ʾalqamar* which begins with ق which does not cause the ل in أَلْ to be silent. Thus ش represents the sun letters and ق represents the moon letters.

Here are some examples of words that begin with sun letters:

Noun	Definite noun
رَجُل *rajul* « man »	أَلرَّجُل *ʾarrajul* « the man »
تَاجِر *tājir* « trader »	أَلتَّاجِر *ʾattājir* « the trader »
لُعْبَة *luɛbah* « toy »	أَللُّعْبَة *ʾalluɛbah* « the toy »

3.2.1.2. The definite article أَلْ *ʾal* with nouns with an initial connecting hamzah

If the definite article أَلْ *ʾal* is with prefixed to nouns that have an initial connecting hamzah, then the ل shall no longer have an sukūn ْ. Instead it shall have an kasrah ِ. Example:

(17) أَلِٱبْن
ʾali-bn
« the son »

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3.2.2. Indefinite nouns in Arabic

Arabic has no indefinite article corresponding to the English indefinite article “a”. In order to make a noun indefinite in Arabic, it is simply written or pronounced without the definite article أَلْ *ʾal*. For example, كِتَاب *kitāb* “a book”.

3.2.3. Differences in definiteness between Arabic and English

The articles “a” and “the” are types of words called *determiners*. Besides “a” and “the”, English has other determiners like “some”, “this”, “that”, etc. that can make a noun definite or indefinite. For example:

(18) « This man gave that boy some food. »

In the above sentence “man” and “boy” are definite, and “food” is indefinite.

English can also have definite or indefinite nouns without determiners. The definiteness of the noun is then determined by the meaning of the sentence. Consider, for example, the sentence:

(19) « Time is valuable. »

Here, we are not talking about some indefinite amount of time, but rather the general concept of time, which is known to us. Therefore, the noun “time” here is definite.

Consider now the sentence:

(20) « We don’t have to leave just yet; we have time. »

Here, “time” has an indefinite meaning “[some] time”.

As opposed to this complicated situation in English, Arabic uses only the definite article أَلْ ʾ*al* to make common nouns definite. So when translating sentences from English to Arabic, you must first determine whether the noun is definite or not in English, and then use أَلْ ʾ*al* when the noun is definite.

Examples:

(21) « This man gave that boy some food. »

- “man”: definite; Arabic: أَلرَّجُل ʾ*arrujul*
- “boy”: definite; Arabic: أَلْغُلَام ʾ*alg͡hulām*
- “food”: indefinite; Arabic: طَعَام *ṭaɛām*

(22) « Time is valuable. »

- “time”: definite; Arabic: أَلْوَقْت ʾ*alwaqt*

(23) « We don’t have to leave just yet; we have time. »

- “time”: indefinite; Arabic: وَقْت *waqt*

3.3. Case

Nouns in Arabic have a property called *case*. The case of a noun is dependent on the function of the noun in a sentence. The case of a noun is indicated by the noun’s ending. There are three states that a noun can be in. They are:

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1. the u-case. By default, it is indicated, by a ḍ͡ḥammah on the final letter of the noun.
2. the a-case. By default, it is indicated, by a fat·ḥah on the final letter of the noun.
3. the i-case. By default, it is indicated, by a kasrah on the final letter of the noun.

When a noun is indefinite, then, for most nouns, it is also tanwīned. Here, for example, is the noun كِتَاب *kitāb* “book” in its three states:

case	Indefinite “a book”	Definite “the book”
u-case	كِتَابٌ *kitābun*	ٱلْكِتَابُ *ʾalkitābu*
a-case	كِتَابًا *kitāban*	ٱلْكِتَابَ *ʾalkitāba*
i-case	كِتَابٍ *kitābin*	ٱلْكِتَابِ *ʾalkitābi*

The u-case is a noun’s normal case, and there needs to be a reason to take the noun out of this case into another case. We will begin to use case more in the next chapter if Allāh wills, where we learn how to form sentences.

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3.4. Grammatical gender

Some nouns designate animate beings like “man”, “woman”, “boy”, “girl”, “dog”, “cow”, etc. Other nouns designate inanimate objects like “book”, “house”, “hand”, “tree”, “city”, “food”.

In dealing with the grammatical genders of such nouns, English uses three genders:

1. The masculine gender. This is used for nouns that designate male human beings and also some male animals. The pronouns used for the masculine gender are “he”, “him”, and “his”.
2. The feminine gender. This is used for nouns that designate female human beings, and also some female animals. The pronouns used for the feminine gender are “she” and “her”.
3. The neutral gender. This is used for nouns that designate inanimate objects and animals in general. The pronoun used for the neutral gender is “it”.

In Arabic, there are only two grammatical genders: the masculine gender and the feminine gender. All nouns in Arabic are either masculine or feminine in gender. Nouns that designate male human beings are assigned the masculine grammatical gender. And nouns that designate female human beings are assigned

the feminine grammatical gender. Nouns that designate animals sometimes conform to the gender of the animal. Other times, they have a fixed gender. As for nouns that designate inanimate objects, these, too, are assigned a gender. For example, كِتَاب *kitāb* "book" in Arabic is masculine. And شَجَرَة *shajarah* "tree" in Arabic is feminine. We shall discuss this in more detail below.

3.4.1. Nouns that designate animate beings.

In Arabic, in terms of their form, nouns that designate animate beings are in three categories:

1. There are separate but matching nouns for the male and female animate beings.
2. There are separate and unrelated nouns for the male and female animate beings.
3. The same noun is used for both sexes.

We will discuss each of these categories below.

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3.4.1.1. Matching nouns for male and female animate beings

In Arabic for some nouns that designate animate beings, the nouns for both sexes match each other. Here are some examples:

Primitive nouns

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
اِبْن *ʾibn*	masc.	son
اِبْنَة *ʾibnah*	fem.	daughter
طِفْل *ṭifl*	masc.	child
طِفْلَة *ṭiflah*	fem.	(female) child
إِنْسَان *ʾinsān*	masc.	human being
إِنْسَانَة *ʾinsānah*	fem.	(female) human being
حُرّ *ḥurr*	masc.	free man
حُرَّة *ḥurrah*	fem.	free woman
كَلْب *kalb*	masc.	(male) dog
كَلْبَة *kalbah*	fem.	(female) dog
هِرّ *hirr*	masc.	(male) cat
هِرَّة *hirrah*	fem.	(female) cat

Arabic word	Gender	Definition

Derived nouns

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
مُعَلِّم *muɛallim*	masc.	(male) teacher
مُعَلِّمَة *muɛallimah*	fem.	(female) teacher
طَالِب *ṭālib*	masc.	(male) student
طَالِبَة *ṭālibah*	fem.	(female) student
صَاحِب *ṣāḥib*	masc.	(male) companion
صَاحِبَة *ṣāḥibah*	fem.	(female) companion
صَدِيق *ṣadīq*	masc.	(male) friend
صَدِيقَة *ṣadīqah*	fem.	(female) friend

In each of the words in the table above, the feminine noun is basically the same as the masculine noun but with the addition of a ة at the end. For example, طِفْل *ṭifl* is masculine, and its feminine is طِفْلَة *ṭiflah* (fem.).

As a matter of fact, the ة is called a feminine marker for singular nouns. There are a couple of other, less common, feminine markers besides ة that we will learn them later, if Allāh wills.

Note that the vowel-mark before the ة is always an fat·ḥah.

Note also that we have divided the nouns above into two categories:

i. Primitive nouns
ii. Derived nouns

Primitve nouns have a primitive meaning, without a primarily adjectival or verbal quality in the meaning, for example “human” “cat”, etc. For derived nouns, their meaning is derived from an adjectival or verbal quality. For example, a “teacher” is someone who teaches. A “friend” is someone who is friendly. And so on.

For derived nouns, the formation of the feminine noun by adding a feminine marker (like ة) to the masculine noun is normal and expected. Whereas, for primitive nouns, the fact that the feminine and masuline nouns match each other and differ only by the feminine marker ة is something that, although somewhat common, is more of a coincidence.

Another noteworthy point is that, for many primitive nouns, sometimes only one of the masculine/feminine pair may be used to refer to beings of either sex. What we mean by this is that, for example, كَلْب *kalb*, while remaining a masculine noun, can be used to refer to both a male dog and a female dog, especially if

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the animal's physical gender is not obvious or particularly important. And كَلْبَة *kalbah* (fem.) "a female dog" is typically only used when it is needed to specify the gender of the animal. Conversely, هِرَّة *hirrah* "a (female) cat" may be used to refer to cat of either physical gender, especially if it is not obvious whether it is a male or female cat.

This preference of the noun of one gender to refer to beings of either physical gender is case-by-case. For example, طِفْل *ṭifl* (masc.) is commonly used to say "a child", regardless of whether the child is a boy or a girl. But طِفْلَة *ṭiflah*, although not uncommon, is used specifically for "a female child".

As another example, the word إِنْسَانَة *ʾinsānah* (fem.) "a female human being" is rarely used at all. Instead, the word إِنْسَان *ʾinsān*, while remaining a masculine noun, is almost always used to refer to "a human being" in general, regardless of actual gender.

On the other hand, اِبْن *ʾibn* "son" and اِبْنَة *ʾibnah* "daughter" are only ever used for their respective gender. So اِبْن *ʾibn* (masc.) "a son" is not used to mean "a daughter". And اِبْنَة *ʾibnah* (fem.) "a daughter" is not used to mean "a son".

As for derived nouns, they are typically only ever used for their respective gender. So, for example, مُعَلِّم *muʿallim* (masc.) is only used for "a (male) teacher". And مُعَلِّمَة *muʿallimah* (fem.) is only used for "a (female) teacher".

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3.4.1.2. Unrelated nouns for male and female animate beings

For other nouns that designate animate beings, the nouns for the male and female sexes are completely unrelated. Here are some examples:

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
أَب *ʾab*	masc.	father
أُمّ *ʾumm*	fem.	mother
غُلَام *g͡hulām*	masc.	boy
جَارِيَة *jāriyah*	fem.	girl
عَبْد *ʿabd*	masc.	male slave
أَمَة *ʾamah*	fem.	female slave
أَسَد *ʾasad*	masc.	lion
لَبْوَة *labwah*	fem.	lioness
ثَوْر *t͡hawr*	masc.	bull
بَقَرَة *baqarah*	fem.	cow

Even in these nouns you can see that the feminine noun usually ends with a ة

feminine marker. There are only a few commonly used feminine nouns that don't end with a feminine marker like ة. أُمّ *ʾumm* "mother" is one of these exceptions.

3.4.1.3. Using the same noun for both sexes

There are other nouns for animate beings where the same word is used for both sexes. The word itself will still be either grammatically masculine or feminine. Here are some examples:

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
شَخْص *s͡hak͡hṣ*	masc.	person
نَفْس *nafs*	fem.	self
عَدُوّ *ɛaduww*	masc.	enemy
حَيَوَان *ḥayawān*	masc.	animal
طَائِر *ṭāʾir*	masc.	bird
قِرْد *qird*	masc.	monkey
حَمَامَة *ḥamāmah*	fem.	dove
نَمْلَة *namlah*	fem.	ant

So, for example, قِرْد *qird* "monkey" is grammatically masculine but it will be used for both a male and a female monkey. Similarly, شَخْص *s͡hak͡hṣ* is a masculine noun meaning "person". While remaining grammatically masculine, it can be used to refer to persons of male or female persons. While, نَفْس *nafs* is a feminine noun meaning "self". While remaining grammatically feminine, it can be used to refer to persons of male or female selves

Note also that نَفْس *nafs* "self" is a feminine noun but it does not end in a ة. It is one of the small number of feminine nouns that don't have a female marker, like أُمّ *ʾumm* (fem.) "mother".

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3.4.2. Nouns that designate inanimate objects

As mentioned earlier, nouns that designate inanimate objects are assigned a fixed grammatical gender. There is usually no discernable reason why some are assigned a masculine gender while others are assigned a feminine gender.

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
كِتَاب *kitāb*	masc.	book
بَيْت *bayt*	masc.	house
قَلَم *qalam*	masc.	pen

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
طَعَام *ṭaɛām*	masc.	food
مَاء *mā'*	masc.	water
مَدْرَسَة *madrasah*	fem.	school
مَدِينَة *madīnah*	fem.	city
غُرْفَة *g͡hurfah*	fem.	room
شَجَرَة *ʃ͡hajarah*	fem.	tree
شَمْس *ʃ͡hams*	fem.	sun
قَمَر *qamar*	masc.	moon
عِلْم *ɛilm*	masc.	knowledge
قُوَّة *quwwah*	fem.	strength
حَيَاة *ḥayāh*	fem.	life
مَوْت *mawt*	masc.	death

In these nouns as well, we note that feminine nouns usually end with the feminine marker ة. But here too, we find another exception: شَمْس *ʃ͡hams* "sun" which is feminine but does not end with a feminine marker. These exceptions are not very many and, if Allāh wills, we will not find it hard to memorize them.

There is a sub-group of nouns that designate inanimate objects, but can also be used to refer to animate beings. Here are a couple of examples:

Arabic word	Gender	Definition
رَهِينَة *rahīnah*	fem.	pledge
عُضْو *ɛuḍ͡hw*	masc.	member

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رَهِينَة *rahīnah* is a feminine noun meaning "pledge". For inanimate objects it refers to something that is held as a security or a collateral. With its animate meaning, it is used to refer to a human hostage.

Similarly, عُضْو *ɛuḍ͡hw* is a masculine noun meaning "member". For inanimate objects it refers to a limb which is the member of a body. With its animate meaning it refers to a person who is a member of a professional organization.

Just like we saw for the nouns in section @using-the-same-noun-for-both-sexes, such nouns adhere to their fixed grammatical gender when used for either male or female persons.[1]

[1] مجموع مقالات فيصل المنصور in عضو أم عضوة؟ ومسائل أخر 401–410

3.4.3. Nouns with mismarked gender

We saw that there are some nouns that are feminine, but do not end with with a feminine marker like ة. These were:

- أُمّ *ʾumm* (fem.) “mother”
- نَفْس *nafs* (fem.) “self”
- شَمْس *sh͡ams* (fem.) “sun”

There are a few more nouns that are like this. One special category among them is body parts. Many prominent body parts that come in pairs or more, are grammatically feminine, whether or not they end with a feminine marker like ة. Here are some examples:

- يَد *yad* (fem.) “hand” (sometimes “an arm”)
- عَيْن *ɛayn* (fem.) “eye”
- أُذُن *ʾud͡hun* (fem.) “ear”
- قَدَم *qadam* (fem.) “foot”
- رِجْل *riǰl* (fem.) “leg” (sometimes “foot”)
- إِبْهَام *ʾibhām* (fem.) “thumb”
- إِصْبَع *ʾiṣbaɛ* (fem.) “finger, toe”
- سِنّ *sinn* (fem.) “tooth”
- رُكْبَة *rukbah* (fem.) “knee”

There are exceptions, however. The following body parts come in pairs yet are masculine.

- مَنْخَر *mankh͡har* (masc.) “nostril”
- مِرْفَق *mirfaq* (masc.) “elbow”

There are other such exceptions as well.

Body parts that don’t come in pairs are typically more regular in their gender: they are feminine if they end in a feminine marker like ة, and masculine if they don’t. Examples:

- رَأْس *raʾs* (masc.) “head”
- أَنْف *ʾanf* (masc.) “nose”
- بَطْن *baṭn* (masc.) “belly”
- لِحْيَة *liḥyah* (fem.) “beard”

Conversely, nouns that end with a feminine marker like ة, yet are masculine are very rare. Some of the more common of them are:

- خَلِيفَة *kh͡alīfah* (masc.) “caliph”

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- عَلَّامَة *ɛallāmah* (masc.) “great scholar”
- دَاعِيَة *dāɛiyah* (masc.) “great preacher”

There are also a few words which can be optionally assigned a masculine or feminine gender. Among these are:

- سُوق *sūq* (masc. or fem.) “market”
- طَرِيق *ṭarīq* (masc. or fem.) “path”

A good dictionary should mention the gender of all these exceptional words. In addition, in appendix @ref(unmarked-fem-nouns) as well, we have a compiled a list of feminine nouns that don’t end with a feminine marker. (TODO: get from Hava: pg. xi (fem) and xii (admitting either gender).)

3.5. Exercises

In the following English sentences, determine whether the underlined nouns will be translated with definite or indefinite nouns in Arabic.

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Chapter 4.

The nounal sentence

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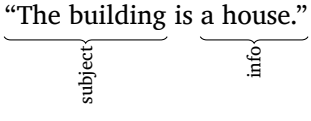
4.1. Introduction

In this chapter we will learn about a class of sentences called *nounal sentences*. Nounal sentences consist of two parts:

i. The *subject*. This is the topic of the sentence.
ii. The *info*. This gives us some information about the subject.

4.2. Forming nounal sentences

Here is a nounal sentence:



The subject of the sentence is “the building”. This means that the sentence is about “the building”.

The info is “a house”. This means that the info that the sentence is giving us about the subject is that it is “a house”.

Let’s try to form this sentence in Arabic.

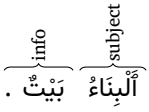
First we assemble the individual parts:

i. "The building" in Arabic is اَلْبِنَاء *ʾalbināʾ* (masc.).
ii. "A house" is بَيْت *bayt* (masc.).

Next we put them both in the u-case. For nounal sentences, both the subject and the info shall be in the u-case. Remember that the u-case is formed by putting a tanwīned ḏẖammah ٌ at the end of an indefinite noun, and a ḏẖammah ُ at the end of a definite noun. Here are the two nouns in the u-case:

i. اَلْبِنَاءُ *ʾalbināʾu* (masc.) "the building" (u-case)
ii. بَيْتٌ *baytun* (masc.) "a house" (u-case)

In order to form this sentence in Arabic, we put the subject first and then the info. So we get:



ʾalbaytu bināʾ.
"The building is a house."

But wait! Where is the Arabic word for "is"? It turns out that Arabic does not usually express any word for "is". Instead, the meaning of this word is implied.

Also, note that the final vowel mark at the end of the sentence is written but not pronounced. So we will write بَيْتٌ but say *bayt*, not *baytun*. This is in accordance with what we learned in section @ref(pronouncing-the-end-of-a-sentence).

Now let's try reversing this sentence, and try making the sentence:

"The house is a building."

We follow the same procedure by assembling the individual parts of the sentence and putting them in the u-case:

i. The subject: اَلْبَيْتُ *ʾalbaytu* (masc.) "the house" (u-case)
ii. The info: بِنَاءٌ *bināʾun* (masc.) "a building" (u-case)

And then we put them together, first the subject and then the info:

اَلْبَيْتُ بِنَاءٌ.
ʾalbaytu bināʾ.
"The house is a building."

and there we have our sentence.

work in progress

4.3. Matching the gender between the subject and the info

In the sentences above, both the subject and the info were masculine nouns. Now let's try forming a sentence where the subject and the info have different genders. Let's try saying:

"The building is a school."

i. The subject: أَلْبِنَاءُ *ʾalbināʾu* (masc.) "the building" (u-case)
ii. The info: مَدْرَسَةٌ *madrasatun* (fem.) "a school" (u-case)

In the same manner as before, we form the sentence by first writing the subject and then the info:

أَلْبِنَاءُ مَدْرَسَةٌ.
ʾalbināʾu madrasah.
"The building is a school."

We can also reverse this sentence:

أَلْمَدْرَسَةُ بِنَاءٌ.
ʾalmadrasatu bināʾ.
"The school is a building ."

So we see that it is quite normal to have a sentence where the gender of the subject does not match the gender of the info. This is because the nouns we have dealt with so far denote inanimate entities. If either the subject or the info denote animate beings, then in this case the subject and the info often do match each other in gender. For example, let's try to form the sentence:

"The mother is a teacher."

Here are the indiviual words that we will use to form the sentence:

i. The subject: "the mother": أَلْأُمُّ *ʾalʾummu* (fem.) (u-case).

ii. The info: "a teacher". We have two words for "a teacher" in Arabic:

- مُعَلِّم *muɛallium* (masc.) "a (male) teacher"
- مُعَلِّمَة *muɛallimah* (fem.) "a (female) teacher".

Obviously, مُعَلِّمَة *muɛallimah* would apply here so we put it in the u-case: مُعَلِّمَةٌ *muɛallimatun* (u-case).

Now we can assemble the sentence:

أَلْأُمُّ مُعَلِّمَةٌ.
ʾalʾummu muɛallimah.
"The mother is a teacher$_{f}$."

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In the reverse sentence “The teacher is a mother.”, we again use the feminine noun مُعَلِّمَة *muɛallimah* (fem.) “a (female) teacher”, which is now the subject of the sentence, to match the feminine noun in the info أَلْأُمّ *ʾalumm* (fem.) “a mother”. So we get:

أَلْمُعَلِّمَةُ أُمٌّ.
ʾalmuɛallimatu ʾumm.
“The teacher$_{\text{f}}$ is a mother.”

Here is another example:

أَلرَّجُلُ أَبٌ.
ʾarrujulu ʾab.
“The man is a father.”

Now, let’s try a sentence where we are still dealing with animate beings but the nouns mismatches in grammatical gender.

أَلْأُمُّ شَخْصٌ.
ʾalʾummu sh͡akh͡ṣ.
“The mother is a person.”

أَلشَّخْصُ مُعَلِّمَةٌ.
ʾash͡sh͡akh͡ṣu muɛallimah.
“The person is a (female) teacher.”

أَلْمُعَلِّمَةُ شَخْصٌ.
ʾalmuɛallimatu sh͡akh͡ṣ.
“The (female) teacher is a person.”

In the above examples, the grammatical genders mismatch between the subject and the info. But this is because we are matching with the physical gender of the person represented by the masculine noun شَخْص *sh͡akh͡ṣ* “a person”, not its grammatical gender.

The same effect is seen when using the word حَيَوان *ḥayawān* which is a masculine noun meaning “an animal”. It can be applied to both male and female animals. So we can say:

أَلْحَيَوَانُ هِرٌّ.
ʾalḥayawānu hirr.
“The animal is a (male) cat.”

and

أَلْحَيَوَانُ هِرَّةٌ.
ʾalḥayawānu hirrah.
“The animal is a (female) cat.”

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4.4. Detached pronouns

Pronouns, in Arabic, are special nouns that can be used in place of other nouns when it is known who is being referred to. This means that they can replace definite nouns only. Pronouns in English include words like “he”, “she”, “it”, “you”, “I”, etc.

In order to explain the usage of pronouns, we will first show a sentence with a noun subject:

“The man is a teacher.”

Now we you can replace the definite subject noun “the man” with the pronoun “he”:

“He is a teacher.”

In Arabic there are a few different kinds of pronouns. Here we will learn *detached pronouns*. They are called detached pronouns because they are detached from other words. There are another set of pronouns called *attached pronouns* that we will learn later, if Allāh wills.

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4.4.1. Participants

When talking about pronouns, it is beneficial to make use of a concept of grammar called *participants*.

In any kind of speech there are there can be up to three types of *participants* involved. A participant may be singular, i.e. consist of one individual, or plural, i.e., consist of more than one individual.

The three participants in speech are:

1. The *speaker-participant*. This is the participant who is speaking. When the speaker-participant refers to himself or herself (or themselves if plural) in English, then he/she/they use the pronouns “I”, “me”, “we”, and “us”.
2. The *addressee-participant*. This is the participant whom the speaker-participant is directly speaking to. When the speaker-participant refers to the addressee-participant in English, he uses the “you” pronoun.
3. The *absentee-participant*. This is the participant who is not being directly spoken to. Their only participation in the speech is that they are being referred to. When the speaker-participant refers to the absentee-participant in English, he uses the pronouns “he”, “him”, “she”, “her”, “it”, “they”, and “them”.

In this chapter we will learn the Arabic pronouns for the singular participants.

4.4.2. Detached pronouns for the singular absentee-participant

Here are the Arabic detached pronouns for the singular absentee-participant:

- singular masculine absentee-participant: هُوَ *huwa* “he”.
- singular feminine absentee-participant: هِيَ *hiya* “she”.

Here are some examples of pair of sentences, each first with a noun, and then with a pronoun in place of the noun:

- .اَلرَّجُلُ مُعَلِّمٌ
  ʾarrajulu muɛallim.
  “The man is a teacher$_{m}$.”
  .هُوَ مُعَلِّمٌ
  huwa muɛallim.
  “He is a (male) teacher$_{m}$.”
- .اَلْجَارِيَةُ طَالِبَةٌ
  ʾaljāriyatu ṭalibah.
  “The girl is a student$_{f}$.”
- .هِيَ طَالِبَةٌ
  hiya ṭalibah.
  “She is a student$_{f}$.”
- .اَلْبَيْتُ بِنَاءٌ
  ʾalbaytu bināʾ.
  “The house is a building.”

  .هُوَ بِنَاءٌ
  huwa bināʾ.
  “It is a building.”

  Note that Arabic uses the pronoun هُوَ *huwa* “he” to refer to the inanimate object “the house”. This is because, as we know, all nouns in Arabic are either masculine or feminine. In translating the sentence to English we will employ the neutral pronoun “it” to make the sentence sound natural.

- .اَلْبِنَاءُ مَدْرَسَةٌ
  ʾalbināʾu madrasah.
  “The building is a school.”

  .هُوَ مَدْرَسَةٌ *huwa madrasah.*
  or

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هِيَ مَدْرَسَةٌ. *hiya madrasah.*
"It is a school."

Note that either هُوَ *huwa* "he" or هِيَ *hiya* "she" can be used in the above sentence because the gender of the subject ٱلْبِنَاء *ʾalbinā'* (masc.) "the building" mismatches the gender of the info مَدْرَسَة *madrasah* (fem.) "a school.".

In such cases where the genders of the subject and the info do not match, then, generally speaking, the pronoun for either gender could be employed with the following guideline:

Prefer to match the gender of the subject pronoun with the gender of the info, unless the noun being replaced with a pronoun is an animate being, in which case prefer to use the gender of the animate being.

So in the above sentence we will prefer to use هِيَ مَدْرَسَةٌ. *hiya madrasah.* because the info مَدْرَسَةٌ *madrasatun* "a school" is feminine.

- Here is an example with an animate being as the subject:
ٱلْجَارِيَةُ إِنْسَانٌ.
ʾaljāriyatu īnsān.
"The girl is a human."
هِيَ إِنْسَانٌ.
hiya īnsān.
"She is a human."

Here, if we replace the noun ٱلْجَارِيَة *ʾaljāriyah* "the girl" with a pronoun, we will prefer to use هِيَ *hiya* "she", because the girl is an animate being, even though the info إِنْسَانٌ *ʾinsānun* "a human" is masculine.

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4.4.3. Detached pronouns for the singular addressee-participant and speaker-participant

Here are the pronouns for the singular addressee-participant and speaker-participant:

- singular masculine addressee-participant: أَنْتَ *ʾanta* "you$_m$".
- singular feminine addressee-participant: أَنْتِ *ʾanti* "you$_f$".
- singular speaker-participant: أَنَا *ʾana* "I".

Note that the addressee-participant pronoun "you" has separate pronouns for the masculine and the feminine while the speaker-participant pronoun "I" has the same pronoun for both genders. Examples with these pronouns:

- أَنْتَ مُعَلِّمٌ.
  ʾanta muɛallim.
  "You$_{m}$ are a teacher$_{m}$."
- أَنْتِ مُعَلِّمَةٌ.
  ʾanti muɛallimah.
  "You$_{f}$ are a teacher$_{f}$."
- أَنَا مُعَلِّمٌ.
  ʾana muɛallim.
  "I am a teacher$_{m}$."
- أَنَا مُعَلِّمَة.
  ʾana muɛallimah.
  "I am a teacher$_{f}$."

4.4.4. Definiteness of pronouns

We stated, and saw, that pronouns can replace definite nouns. This means that pronouns themselves are definite nouns (even though they are not prefixed by أَلْ *ʾal* "the").

This fact will be useful in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

4.4.5. Rigidity of pronouns

Remember in section @ref(flexibility-of-nouns), we talked about the flexibility of nouns. We said that nouns whose endings change with the noun's case are called flexible nouns. Most nouns fall into this category.

Pronouns, however, are nouns whose endings don't change with their case. Therefore they fall into the category of *rigid* nouns.

4.5. A definite noun as the info

In all the examples so far, the info has been an indefinite noun: "a building", "a teacher", "a cat", etc. It is also possible for the info to be a definite noun:

أَلرَّجُلُ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُ.
ʾarrajulu -lmuɛallim.
"The man is the teacher$_{m}$."

The above sentence, although correct, is ambiguous. It can also be interpreted as a noun-phrase, meaning "the teacher-man", instead of the complete sentence

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"The man is the teacher$_{m}$." Therefore, in order to disambiguate and make it clear that we mean the complete sentence, a *disambiguating pronoun* is usually (but not always) inserted between the subject and the info. Disambiguating pronouns are detached pronouns that match the subject of the sentence in gender. With a disambiguating pronoun, the sentence above becomes:

أَلرَّجُلُ هُوَ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُ.
ʾarrajulu huwa -lmuɛallim.
"The man is the teacher$_{m}$."

The disambiguating pronoun here is هُوَ *huwa* and is not translated. Here are some more examples of sentences with definite infos and disambiguating pronouns.

أَلْبَيْتُ هُوَ ٱلْبِنَاءُ.
ʾalbaytu -lbināʾu.
"The house is the building."

أَلْحَيَوَانُ هِيَ ٱلْهِرَّةُ.
ʾalḥayawānu hiya -lhirratu.
"The animal is the cat."

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4.6. An indefinite noun as the subject

In all the sentences we have seen so far, the subject has always been a definite noun. This is usually the case. A subject needs a certain amount of *weight* in order to be the first word in a sentence. And being definite gives it this needed weight. That is: "the man" is grammatically *heavier* than "a man". So it is easier to start a sentence with "the man".

So can we even have a sentence that has an indefinite subject? For example:

- A house is a building.
- A man is the teacher.

Yes, it is possible, but sentences where the subject is an indefinite noun are not as straightforward to express in Arabic. We will explore some ways of expressing them later if Allāh wills.

4.7. وَ *wa-* “and”, فَ *fa-* “so”/“and then”, and أَوْ *ʾaw* “or”

4.7.1. وَ *wa-* “and”

Arabic uses the particle وَ *wa* to mean “and”. Being a one-letter particle, it is joined to the word after it without any space between it and the next word.

وَمَدْرَسَةٌ

wamadrasatun

“and a school”

وَ *wa* meaning “and” does not change the case of the noun following it. Examples:

أَلْبِنَاءُ مَسْجِدٌ وَمَدْرَسَةٌ.

ʾalbināʾu masjidun wamadrasah.

“The building is a mosque and a school.”

If there are more than two words, then in English, only the final word usually has “and” and the rest are separated by commas in writing. In Arabic, however, each must have وَ and commas are not typically used.

أَلْبِنَاءُ مَسْجِدٌ وَمَدْرَسَةٌ وَمَكْتَبَةٌ.

ʾalbināʾu baytun wamadrasatun wamaktabah

“The building is a mosque, a school, and a library.”

We can also use وَ to begin and connect sentences. The following example is tehcnically two sentences, both beginning with وَ:

وَٱلرَّجُلُ إِنْسَانٌ وَٱلْكَلْبُ حَيَوَانٌ

warrujulu ʾinṣānun wa-lkalbu ḥayawānun

“And the man is a human and the dog is an animal.”

Unlike as in English, this is not considered poor style. When translating such sentences to English, the first وَ is often left out, thus: “The man is a human and the dog is an animal.”

4.7.2. فَ *fa-* “so”/“and then”

The word فَ *fa-* “so”/“and then” is comparable to وَ *wa-* “and”. فَ *fa-* “so”/“and then” gives a meaning of ordering, consequence, and subsequence that is missing in وَ *wa-* “and”. For example,

أَلْبِنَاءُ مَسْجِدٌ فَمَدْرَسَةٌ فَمَكْتَبَةٌ.

ʾalbināʾu baytun famadrasatun famaktabah

“The building is a mosque, and then a school, and then a library.”

فَ *fa-* “so”/“and then”, too, is used to begin and connect sentences. Example,

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فَٱلرَّجُلُ إِنْسَانٌ وَٱلْكَلْبُ حَيَوَانٌ
farrujulu ʾinsānun wa-lkalbu ḥayawānun
“So the man is a human and the dog is an animal.”

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Chapter 5.

The prepositions

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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5.1. Introduction

Prepositions are words like “in”, “on”, “from”, etc. They are placed directly before a noun, for example: “in a house”. The preposition “in” is placed directly before the noun “a house”.

In Arabic prepositions, when placed before a noun, put it in the i-case. For example the preposition فِي *fī* means “in”. We can put it before the noun بَيْت *bayt* “a house”:

فِي بَيْتٍ
fī baytin
“in a house”

Note how the noun بَيْتٍ *baytin* “a house” is in the i-case because of the preposition في *fī* “in” before it. The i-case is indicated by the tanwīned kasrah ٍ on the final letter of بَيْت.

Arabic has two types of prepositions: *true* prepositions and *pseudo*-prepositions.

5.2. True prepositions

True prepositions are *particles*. Particles are a class of words, like nouns and verbs. Particles don't have the properties of nouns. Thus, they cannot be definite or indefinite. They cannot be preceded by أَلْ *al* nor may they be tanwīned. And they don't have case (u-case, a-case, i-case).

Here is a list of the more common true prepositions:

Preposition	Meaning
بِ *bi*	with, by, next to
لِ *li*	for, to
فِي *fī*	in
عَلَىٰ *ɛalā*	on
إِلَىٰ *ʾilā*	to, toward
مِنْ *min*	from
عَنْ *ɛan*	from, about
كَ *ka*	like

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Notes:

- Prepositions that are a single letter (like بِ *bi*, ل *li*, كَ *ka*) are joined to the following noun in writing. Example:

  بِقَلَمٍ
  biqalamin
  "with a pen"

  لِرَجُلٍ
  lirajulin
  "for a man"

  كَٱبْنٍ
  ka-bnin
  "like a son"

- When a single letter preposition comes before a definite noun with أَلْ *al*, the preposition is generally joined to the alif in the أَلْ *al*. The alif is now not pronounced (because as we know it has a connecting hamzah). Example:

  بِٱلْقَلَمِ
  bi-lqalami
  "with the pen"

If the noun begins with a connecting hamzah then the ل in أَلْ gets an kasrah ِ instead of its usual sukūn ْ. We described this in section @ref(the-definite-article-with-nouns-with-an-initial-connecting-hamzah). Example:

كَٱلِٱبْنِ
ka-li-bni
“like the son”

- The only exception is the preposition لِ *li*. When joined to a definite noun with أَلْ *al*, the alif in أَلْ is dropped and we write the two *lām*s together. Example:

لِلرَّجُلِ
li-rrajuli
“for the man”

لِلْجَارِيَةِ
li-ljāriyati
“for the girl”

لِلِٱبْنِ
li-li-bni
“for the son”

However, in this case, if the noun too starts with a *lām*, then we drop the entire أَلْ *al* (in writing, not in meaning). This is to avoid having three *lām*s joined to each other. Example:

أَللُّعْبَةُ
ʾalluʿbatu
“the toy”

becomes

لِلُّعْبَةِ
li-lluʿbati
“for the toy”

not

× لِللُّعْبَةِ

This is also true for the phrase:

لِلَّـهِ
lillāhi
“for Allāh”

which is formed from لِ + ٱللَّـهِ

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- The prepositions عَلَىٰ *ɛalā* “on” and إِلَىٰ *ʾilā* “to” have a long-*ā* vowel at the end but it is written with a dotless yāʾ ى instead of an alif. (We have already learned that some words are written this way in section @ref(a-vowel-written-with-a-ya).)

- Prepositions that are composed of multiple letters are not joined to the following noun. Example:

  إِلَىٰ مَدْرَسَةٍ
  ʾilā madrasatin
  “to a school”

- If a preposition ends with a long vowel, then, as usual, it get shortened to a short vowel when it is followed by a word which begins with a connecting hamzah. Examples:

  فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ
  fi -lbayti
  “in the house”

  إِلَى ٱبْنٍ
  ʾila -bnin
  “to a son”

- If a preposition ends with a sukūn ْ and it is followed by a word that begins with a connecting hamzah, then the sukūn is changed to a short vowel according to the following rules:

  – The ending of the preposition عَنْ *ɛan* gets an kasrah and becomes عَنِ *ɛani*. Examples:

    عَنِ ٱلرَّجُلِ
    ɛani -rrajuli
    “from the man”

    عَنِ ٱبْنٍ
    ɛani -bnin
    “from the son”

  – The ending of the preposition مِنْ *min* gets an fatḥah if followed by the أَلْ *al* of a definite noun. Otherwise it gets an kasrah if followed by any other connecting hamzah. Examples:

    مِنَ ٱلرَّجُلِ
    mina -rrajuli
    “from the man”

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مِنِ ٱبْنٍ
mini -bnin
“from a son”

5.3. Pseudo-prepositions

Pseudo-prepositions are actually nouns but they are used as prepositions. The above rules of writing and pronunciation apply to them as well.

Here is a list of some common pseudo-prepositions:

Preposition	Transcription	Meaning
عِنْدَ	*ɛinda*	at
لَدَىٰ	*ladā*	at
لَدُنْ	*ladun*	at
مَعَ	*maɛa*	together with
بَيْنَ	*bayna*	between, among

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There are three different prepositions above that we have translated as “at”. لَدُنْ is relatively rarer compared to the others. Otherwise, they are largely interchangeable but there are some differences in meaning that we will explain later, if Allāh wills.

Here are some examples using pseudo-prepositions:

مَعَ ٱلْغُلَامِ
maɛa -lg͡hulāmi
“with the boy”

عِنْدَ ٱلْبَيْتِ
ɛinda -lbayti
“at the house”

لَدَى ٱلْبَابِ
lada -lbābi
“at the door”

بَيْنَ ٱلنَّاسِ
bayna -nnāsi
“among the people”

5.4. Attached pronouns

We have already learned detached pronouns هُوَ, هِيَ, and أَنَا in section @ref(detached-pronouns). Detached pronouns are the equivalent of "he", "she", and "I", etc. They are used in place of nouns that are in the u-case.

Now we will learn about *attached pronouns*. Attached pronouns are, more or less, the equivalent of "him", "her", and "me", etc. They are used in place of nouns that are in the a-case and the i-case. One place where attached pronouns are used is when the replace the noun directly following a preposition.

The singular attached pronouns are listed below. The detached pronouns are included as well for easy comparison.

Participant	Detached pronoun	Attached pronoun
Masc. absentee	هُوَ *huwa* "him"	ـهُ *-hu* "him"
Fem. absentee	هِيَ *hiya* "her"	ـهَا *-hā* "her"
Masc. addressee	أَنْتَ *ʾanta* "you$_{1,m}$"	ـكَ *-ka* "you$_{1,m}$"
Fem. addressee	أَنْتِ *ʾanti* "you$_{1,f}$"	ـكِ *-ki* "you$_{1,f}$"
Speaker	أَنَا *ʾana* "I"	ـي "me"

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5.4.1. Attached pronouns with prepositions

As mentioned above, one place the attached pronouns are used are after prepositions. Here are some notes regarding how they attach to prepositions:

1. Generally, these pronouns attach to the last letter of the preposition before it. Examples:
   - مِنْكَ *minka* "from you"
   - مَعَهُ *maɛahu* "with him"
   - عَنْهَا *ɛanhā* "from her"
2. The ىٰ *ā* ending of prepositions become ـَيْ *-ay* when attaching an attached pronoun. Examples:
   - إِلَيْهَا *ʾilayhā* "to her"
   - عَلَيْكَ *ɛalayka* "on you$_{m}$"
3. The pronoun ـهُ *-hu* "him" becomes ـهِ *hi* when it is preceded by the vowels ـِ *-i*, ـِي *-ī*, or the semi-vowel ـَيْ *-ay*. So we get
   - بِهِ *bihi* "with him"
   - فِيهِ *fīhi* "in him"

- إِلَيْهِ *ʾilayhi* “to him”

4. The attached pronoun for the speaker deserves special attention. The pronoun itself is the letter ي. But it has two variants:

   i. ـِي *-ī*
   ii. ـِيَ *-iya*

   Generally, both of these variants cause the final letter of the word before them, if a consonant, to have an kasrah ـِ, regardless of the whether or not that letter originally had an kasrah. Examples:

   - لِي *lī* and لِيَ *liya* “for me”
   - بِي *bī* and بِي *biya* “with/by me”
   - مَعِي *maʿī* and مَعِيَ *maʿiya* “together with me”
   - عِنْدِي *ʿindī* and عِنْدِيَ *ʿindiya* “at me”

   Between these two variants, ـِي *-ī* is more commonly used generally, except in the cases described in the next point, below:

5. For any word that ends with a long vowel (*-ā*, *-ī*, or *-ū*) or a semi-vowel (*-ay* or *-aw*), the variant ـِي *-ī* for the speaker attached pronoun is not used. Instead, only the variant يَ *-ya* may be used with such words.

   Prepositions that fall under this category are فِي *fī*, عَلَى *ʿalā*, إِلَى *ʾilā*, and لَدَى *ladā*. Furthermore, the ى *-ā* ending in these will become ـَيْ *ay* instead when attaching the pronoun.

   In addition, the pronoun يَ *-ya* will not cause the final letter of word before it to have an kasrah because it does that only to consonants, not to vowels or semivowels.

   So we get:

   - يَ + فِي = فِيَّ *fiyya* “in me”
   - يَ + إِلَيْ = إِلَيَّ *ʾilayya* “to me”
   - يَ + عَلَيْ = عَلَيَّ *ʿalayya* “on me”
   - يَ + لَدَيْ = لَدَيَّ *ladayya* “at me”.

6. The preposition كَ *ka* “like” is not used with any attached pronoun. So, for example, we don’t say:

   - × كَهُ *kahu* for “like him.”

   Instead, we will learn another method to express this meaning in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

7. The word “between”, because of its meaning, is typically used with two or more individuals. For example, “between us”, “between you and him”, etc.

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In Arabic, when the pseudo-preposition بَيْنَ *bayna* is used with a singular attached pronoun, it is repeated. For example,

- بَيْنِي وَبَيْنَكَ *baynī wabaynaka* “between me and you”

5.5. Translating prepositions

For each preposition that we have listed above, we have also given its meaning. For example,

- فِي *fī* “in”
- بِ *bi* “with”, “by”, “next to”

These meanings are not always fixed. And there is some degree of overlap in meanings as well. For example, in order to say “in the city” we will usually say فِي ٱلْمَدِينَةِ *fi -lmadīnati* but sometimes we can also say بِٱلْمَدِينَةِ *bi -lmadīnati* with the same meaning. As you keep learning, practicing, and reading Arabic, you will learn how to choose which preposition to use, if Allah wills.

Similarly, sometimes we have two or more prepositions with almost the same meaning. For example,

- مِنْ *min* “from”
- عَنْ *ɛan* “from”, “about”

Knowing when to use one or the other will also take practice.

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5.6. Sentences and phrases with prepositions

We have seen how a noun can be used after a preposition to get a prepositional phrase, for example:

فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ
fi -lbayti
“in the house”

We can put an indefinite noun in front of this structure:

رَجُلٌ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ
rajulun fi -lbayti
“a man in the house”

This is a phrase and not a complete sentence. Note that the preposition فِي *fī* “in” only puts the noun after it (ٱلْبَيْتِ *ʾalbayti* “the house”) in the i-case. It has no

effect on the case of the noun before it (رَجُلٌ *rajulun* “a man”). In this case, it is in the u-case.

Instead of an indefnite noun, we can also put a definite noun in front of the prepositional phrase. Now the resulting structure can, in general, have two meanings: (i) a complete sentence, and (ii) an incomplete sentence. For example,

أَلرَّجُلُ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ

ʾarrujulu fi -lbayti

(i) “The man is in the house.”

(ii) “The man in the house”

Usually, it will be clear from the context which of the two meanings is valid. For example, the second meaning, “The man in the house”, can be part of a complete sentence:

أَلرَّجُلُ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ مُعَلِّمٌ.

ʾarrujulu fi -lbayti muʿallim.

“The man in the house is a teacher$_{\text{m}}$.”

5.7. Sentences with an indefinite subject

We said, in section @ref(an-indefinite-noun-as-the-subject), that the subject of a sentence is usually a definite noun. Now, we shall explore one way of allowing a sentence with an indefinite subject.

We have seen that if an indefinite noun is placed in front of a prepositional phrase, we get an incomplete sentence. For example,

رَجُلٌ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ

rajulun fi -lbayti

“a man in the house”

Now we will see how to make the complete sentence (with an indefinite subject):

“A man is in the house.”

In order to express this sentence, we put the prepositional phrase first, and place the indefinite subject after it:

فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ رَجُلٌ.

fi -lbayti rajul.

“In the house is a man.” = “A man is in the house.”

In English, it may sometimes be more convenient to translate this type of sentence using the expression “there is”:

“There is a man in the house.”

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5.8. Prepositions with multiple nouns/pronouns

In English, we can use a preposition with multiple nouns separated by “and”, thus:

“The boy went to the school and the house.”

A similar meaning can be achieved by repeating the preposition before each noun:

“The boy went to the school and to the house.”

In Arabic as well, if there are multiple nouns associated with a preposition then you may choose to repeat the preposition or not. Examples:

إِلَى ٱلمَدْرَسَةِ وَإِلَى ٱلْبَيْتِ
ʾila -lbayti walmadrasati
“to the school to and the house”

إِلَى ٱلمَدْرَسَةِ وَٱلْبَيْتِ
ʾila -lbayti walmadrasati
“to the school and the house”

Note that when you don’t repeat the preposition, the second noun is still in the i-case.

In English, you have a similar option when you use pronouns instead of nouns. All of the following should be acceptable:

“to the boy and me”
“to the boy and to me”
“to him and me”
“to him and to me”

In Arabic, however, if one or more pronouns is used then the prepositions must be repeated. Examples:

إِلَيَّ وَإِلَى ٱلْغُلَامِ
ʾilayya waʾila -l͡ghulāmi
“to me and to the boy”

إِلَيَّ وَإِلَيْهِ
ʾilayya waʾilayhi
“to me and to him”

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5.9. To have something

English uses the verb “have” or “has” to express that someone Arabic does not have a verb for “have” or “has”. In order to express sentences like

"I have a book."
"The boy has a father."

Arabic uses prepositions like

- لِ *li* "for"
- عِنْدَ *ɛinda* "at"
- لَدَىٰ *ladā* "at"
- مَعَ *maɛa* "together with"

Here are some examples:

لِلْغُلَامِ أَبٌ.
li -lg͡hulāmi ʾab.
"The boy has a father." (literally: "For the boy is a father.")

عِنْدَ ٱلرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
ɛinda -rrajuli kitāb.
"The man has a book." (literally: "At the man is a book.")

مَعَ ٱلْجَارِيَةِ لُعْبَةٌ.
maɛa -ljāriyati luɛbah.
"The girl has a toy." (literally: "With the girl is a toy.")

Here are some notes that can help you choose which preposition to use to express "has" or "have":

- لِ *li* "for" is used to express personal relationships, like "I have a friend", "I have a son", etc. It is also used when you wish to imply that you own the object. For example, the sentence

  لِلرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
  li -rrajuli kitāb.

  implies that the man owns a book. But it is possible that he has lent it to someone else so he does not actually have it on his person or at his house, etc.

- عِنْدَ *ɛinda* "at" is used to express that the person has the object in his possession, but not necessarily that he has it with him right now. For example the sentence

  عِنْدَ ٱلرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
  ɛinda -rrajuli kitāb.

  implies that the man has a book in his possession. But it is possible that it may not be with him right now. It may be at his house or elsewhere.

- لَدَىٰ *ladā* "at" is used to express that the person has the object in his possession and that he has it with him right now. For example the sentence

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لَدَى ٱلرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
lada -rrajuli kitāb.

implies that the man has a book in his possession and that he has it with him right now.

- مَعَ *maɛa* "together with" is used to express that the person has the object with him right now. But it doesn't necessarily imply ownership. For example, the sentence

  مَعَ ٱلرَّجُلِ كِتَابٌ.
  maɛa -rrajuli kitāb.

  means that the man has a book with him right now. But it is possible that he does not own it and that someone else has lent it to him.

There is some degree of overlap in meaning and you will get a feeling of which preposition is more appropriate in which circumstance as you progress in your learning, if Allah wills. For now, if you find that the object can be used with all of these prepositions, you might go with عِنْدَ *ɛinda* as it is the more commonly used.

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Chapter 6.

The SC verb

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Glossary of terms used in this chapter

Verb	الفِعْل
SC verb	الفِعْل الماضِي
PC verb	الفِعْل المُضارِع
Verbal sentence	الجُمْلة الفِعْلِيّة
Past tense	الماضِي/المُضِيّ
Present tense	الحال
Future tense	الاسْتِقْبال
Doer	الفاعِل
Direct object	المَفْعُول بِه
Latent doer	الفاعِل المُسْتَتِر

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6.1. Introduction

Verbs are action words. In terms of their form, Arabic has two main kinds of verbs:

1. The *SC* (*suffix-conjugated*) verb.
2. The *PC* (*prefix-conjugated*) verb.

We will discuss what *conjugation* means in section (ref) below. Here is the SC-PC verb pair for the Arabic equivalent of the English verb « to go »:

SC	PC
ذَهَبَ	يَذْهَب

A SC and PC form pair exists for (almost) all verbs.
In this chapter we will study the SC form of the verb.

6.2. Tense and aspect

You may be wondering why the same verb in Arabic will have both a SC form and a PC form. In order to explain this we will give a short introduction to the concepts of *tense* and *aspect*.

Tense is a concept that tells us the time reference in which the action of a verb was done. Here are some examples of tense in English:

Example	Tense
« He went. »	past tense
« He goes. »	present tense
« He will go. »	future tense

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Aspect is a concept that expresses how the action of a verb flows over time. A *perfect* aspect expresses that the action of a verb was completed, e.g.

(24) « He will have eaten. »

Example (24) above shows a perfect aspect combined with a future tense.
An *imperfect* aspect expresses that the action of a verb is not completed, e.g.

(25) « He was eating. »

Example (25) above shows an imperfect aspect combined with the past tense.
Further distinctions can be made:
A *habitual* aspect indicates that an action is done repetitively but not necessarily continuously. For example:

(26) « He smokes. »

Progressive and *continuous* aspects express that a verbal action is, was, or will be, in progress and on-going, e.g.

(27) «He is reading».

In Arabic, the SC form verb is typically used to express the perfect aspect. And the PC verb is typically used to express the imperfect aspect.[1]

But we would like to keep our terminology for these verb forms separate from any tense or aspect that a sentence using them may signify.[2] That is why we are calling them SC and PC, instead of *perfect* and *imperfect*, respectively.

6.3. Arabic word roots

We take this opportunity to learn about Arabic roots. Native Arabic words, both nouns and verbs, are generally derived from roots. Most roots are comprised of three letters. A smaller number are comprised of four or more letters.

Words are derived from their roots according to patterns. In traditional Arabic grammar studies, the root فعل is used as a paradigm for three-letter roots to showcase word and meaning patterns.

So for example, the word بَيْت *bayt* "a house" is derived from the root بيت. Using the paradigm root فعل, we can see that the pattern of the word بَيْت *bayt* is فَعْل *faɛl*. The أَمْر *ʾamr* "a matter" is derived from the root ءمر. Its pattern is also فَعْل *faɛl*.

Similarly, the word مَكْتَب *maktab* "a library" is derived from the root كتب. And مَلْعَب *malɛab* "a playground" is derived from the root لعب. Using the paradigm root فعل, we can see that the pattern of both these words is مَفْعَل *mafɛal*. Here, the letter م *m* is an extraneous letter added to form the words and is not part of their roots.

Not only nouns, but verbs, too, are derived from roots. All verbs are derived from their roots in a fixed set of patterns called *forms* which are numbered 1 onward. For example, the SC form 2 verb pattern is فَعَّلَ *faɛɛala* and the SC form 3 verb pattern is فَاعَلَ *fāɛala*. There are approximately 9-10 forms that are in common usage. In addition, there are a few higher order forms (11 onward) that are less common. In this chapter will study the SC form 1 verb only.

6.4. The form 1 SC verb

Here are some examples of SC form 1 verbs in Arabic:

[1] Al-Dobaian, "A syntactic analysis of Arabic tense and aspect"
[2] See also Weigelt, "The particle *la-* in Classical Arabic" §1.2

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Root	SC form 1 verb	Meaning
فعل	فَعَلَ *faɛala*	«to do»
ذهب	ذَهَبَ *ðahaba*	«to go»
كتب	كَتَبَ *kataba*	«to write»
قرء	قَرَأَ *qaraʾa*	«to read»
جلس	جَلَسَ *jalasa*	«to sit»
سءل	سَأَلَ *saʾala*	«to question»
سكت	سَكَتَ *sakata*	«to be quiet»
جعل	جَعَلَ *jaɛala*	«to make»
علم	عَلِمَ *ɛalima*	«to know»
عمل	عَمِلَ *ɛamila*	«to work»
كبر	كَبُرَ *kabura*	«to grow»

Note that فعل, in addition to being used as a paradigm root, also has a verb in its own right: فَعَلَ *faɛala* «to do».

Note, also, that the SC form 1 verb consists only of the three letters of the root. The first and the final letter always have an fat·ḥah while the middle letter's vowel is variable. It may have an fat·ḥah, kasrah, or an ḍ͡ḥammah, depending on the verb. Using the paradigm root فعل, we can say that the form 1 verb occurs in the patterns فَعَلَ, فَعِلَ, and فَعُلَ.

A good dictionary will tell us the middle vowel mark of a particular verb. However, as a trend, the fat·ḥah is the most common for the middle vowel mark, followed by the kasrah, while the ḍ͡ḥammah is the least common.

Interestingly, there can exist multiple verbs from the same root, each with its own distinct meaning, that differ only in the vowel mark on the middle letter. An example of two such verbs is:

- حَسَبَ *ḥasaba* "to calculate"
- حَسِبَ *ḥasiba* "to deem"

You can see above how the verb كَتَبَ *kataba* «to write» is derived from the root كتب. We have already, by the way, learned another word derived from this root: the noun كِتَاب *kitāb* "a book", which is on the pattern فِعَال *fiɛāl*. Note how both the verb and the noun derived from this root have a meaning that is common and has to do with writing or of something written. In a similar manner, you will often see that words derived from the same root generally share some common meaning, although this common meaning may not always be obvious or straightforward.

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6.5. Verbal sentences

We have already learned of nounal sentences. Here we will learn of a new type of sentence called a *verbal sentence*. A verbal sentence is one that begins with a verb.

When a verb is in a sentence, it requires a doer. The doer is a noun which represents the person who does the action of the verb. For example, in the sentence "The boy went.", the noun "the boy" is the doer of the verb.

6.5.1. Verbs with a masculine doer noun

Consider this sentence that has the simple past tense:

(28) « The boy went. »

In order to express a simple past tense sentence in Arabic, we will use the SC verb, thus:

(29) ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ
dh͡ahaba -lgh͡ulāmu
« The boy went. »

ذَهَبَ *dh͡ahaba* went is the verb and ٱلْغُلَامُ *algh͡ulāmu* "the boy" is the doer. Note how the doer is in the u-case. Also note that in English the doer comes before the verb whereas in Arabic the doer comes after the verb in sentence word order. We can state this as a rule of Arabic grammar:

In Arabic, every verb in a sentence shall have a doer noun. The doer noun shall be in the u-case and shall come after the verb in sentence word order.

In the above example the doer noun was definite, but a doer may be indefinite too. Example:

ذَهَبَ رَجُلٌ إِلَىٰ ٱلسُّوقِ.
dh͡ahaba rajulun ʾila -ssūq.
"A man went to the market."

In the above sentence, the doer noun رَجُلٌ *rajulun* is indfinite.

6.5.2. Verbs with a feminine doer noun

Now consider the sentence:

"A girl went."

In order to express this sentence in Arabic, we will say:

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ.
dh͡ahabat jāriyah.
"A girl went."

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Note that we have modified the verb by adding on the letter تْ at the end. This تْ is used when the doer is ia feminine noun. It is called the تْ of femininity.

If the word following the noun begins with a connecting hamzah then we add a helper vowel to the تْ and it becomes تِ. Examples:

جَلَسَتِ ٱلْهِرَّةُ عَلَى ٱلْكُرْسِيِّ.
jalasati -lhirratu ɛala -lkursiyyi.
"The cat_{f} sat on the chair."

لَعِبَتِ ٱلطِّفْلَةُ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ.
laɛibati -ṭṭiflatu fi -lbayt.
"The child_{f} played in the house."

6.6. Verbs with doees

6.6.1. The direct object

Consider the sentence:

"The man wrote a book."

In this sentence, "wrote" is the verb, "the man" is the doer, and "a book" is what we shall call the *doee*. In fact, it is what we shall call a *direct object* because the verb directly takes the doee without an intervening preposition. A doee is the noun to whom the action of the verb is done.

In Arabic, we will express the sentence "The man wrote a book." by saying:

كَتَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ كِتَابًا.
kataba -rrajulu kitābā.
"The man wrote a book."

Note how in Arabic the doee كِتَابًا *kitāban* "a book" is in the a-case. This is because, in Arabic, verbs shall cause a direct object to be in the a-case. This is true whether the direct object is definite or indefinite. Here is another example:

سَأَلَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ ٱلْجَارِيَةَ.
saʾalati -lʾummu -ljāriyah.
"The mother questioned the girl."

Note again how ٱلْجَارِيَةَ *aljāriyata* "the girl" is in the a-case because it is a direct object.

6.6.2. Multiple direct objects

Some verbs can take more than one direct object. In this case, all direct objects shall be in the a-case. For example,

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جَعَلَ ٱللَّـهُ ٱلرَّجُلَ مُسْلِمًا.
jaɛala -llāhu -rrajula muslimā.
“Allāh made the man a Muslim.”

In this sentence both ٱلرَّجُلَ *arrajula* “the man” and مُسْلِمًا *musliman* “a Muslim” are direct objects of the verb جَعَلَ *jaɛala* and therefore both are placed in the a-case.

6.6.3. The indirect object

Instead of, or in addition to, direct objects, some verbs take an *indirect object*. An indirect object is one before which there is a preposition. For example, in English we might say:

“The man looked at the moon.”

In this sentence, “the moon” is an indirect object because it is preceded by the preposition “at”. Similarly, in Arabic, we will say:

نَظَرَ ٱلرَّجُلُ إِلَى ٱلْقَمَرِ.
naḍẖara -rrajulu ʾila -lqamar.
“The man looked at the moon.”

In this sentence ٱلْقَمَرِ *alqamari* “the moon” is an indirect object of the verb نَظَرَ *naḍẖara* “looked” because it is preceded by the preposition إِلَىٰ *ʾilā* “to”. The preposition, as usual, causes the word after it (the indirect object ٱلْقَمَرِ *ʾalqamari*) to be in the i-case, as opposed to the a-case of the direct object.

Note also, that the verb “looked” in English used the preposition “at” whereas the Arabic verb نَظَرَ *naḍẖara* used the preopsition إِلَىٰ *ʾilā* “to” for the same meaning. This is very common and you should not expect Arabic to use exact counterparts of the prepositions used in English. In fact, everytime you learn a new verb, you should also learn the prepositions that go with it.

It is also possible for the same verb to take different prepositions with possibly different meanings. So, for example, we can say:

نَظَرَ ٱلرَّجُلُ فِي ٱلْأَمْرِ.
naḍẖara -rrajulu fi -lʾamri.
“The man looked into the matter.”

It may also be possible for the same verb to take a direct object. So we could also say:

نَظَرَ ٱلرَّجُلُ ٱلْمَكْتُوبَ فِي ٱلْكِتَابِ.
naḍẖara -rrajulu -lmaktūba fi -lkitābi.
“The man viewed what was written in the book.”

A good dictionary will tell us which prepositions are used with indirect objects with a given verb and also whether it takes a direct object.

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Some verbs take a direct object and another indirect object, both at the same time. For example,

سَأَلَ ٱلْغُلَامُ ٱلْمُعَلِّمَةَ عَنْ أَمْرٍ.

saʾala -lg͡hulāmu -lmuɛallimata ɛan ʾamr.

"The boy asked the teacher$_f$ about a matter."

ٱلْمُعَلِّمَةَ *ʾalmuɛallimata* "the teacher$_f$" is the direct object, and therefore it is in the a-case. أَمْرٍ *ʾamrin* "a matter" is an indirect object, and so it is in the i-case. The preposition عَنْ *ɛan* is translated, here, as "about".

It is also possible that an English verb may take a direct object, while the corresponding Arabic verb may only take an indirect object. The reverse is also quite possible. For example,

غَفَرَ ٱللَّـهُ لِلْمُسْلِمِ.

g͡hafara -llāhu lilmuslimi.

"Allāh forgave the Muslim."

The verb "forgave" in English takes a direct object for the person who is forgiven. In Arabic, however, the corresponding verb غَفَرَ *g͡hafara* "forgave" takes the forgiven person as an indirect object, using the preposition لِ *li*.

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6.7. Verbs with doer pronouns

We have learned that a pronoun is a special kind of noun that can be used to replace a definite noun. And we have already learned two category of pronouns in Arabic:

i. Detached pronouns, like هُوَ, هِيَ, etc.
ii. Attached pronouns, like هُ, هَا, etc.

Now we would like to replace the doer noun of a verb with a pronoun. For example, instead of saying:

"The man went."

we would like to say:

"He went."

For this we will have to learn a third category of pronoun pronouns called *doer pronouns* for SC verbs. doer pronouns are of two types: (i) expressed and (ii) implied.

Here we list the singular doer pronouns in Arabic.

Singular participant	doer pronoun
Masc. absentee ("he")	implied
Fem. absentee ("she")	implied

Singular participant	doer pronoun
Masc. addressee ("you$_{1,m}$")	تَ *-ta*
Fem. addressee ("you$_{1,f}$")	تِ *-ti*
Speaker ("I")	تُ *-tu*

We will now give an explanation of the above doer pronouns.

6.7.1. doer pronouns for the singular absentee-participant ("he"/"she")

The doer pronouns of the absentee-participant are the equivalent of "he" and "she". For example, let's try to replace the doer-noun "the man" in the sentence: "The man went."

ذَهَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
ḏ͡hahaba -rrajul.
"The man went."

When we replace the doer noun ٱلرَّجُل *ʾarrujul* "the man" with the doer pronoun "he", we get:

ذَهَبَ.
ḏ͡hahab.
"[He] went."

As you can see, all we did was omit the doer-noun ٱلرَّجُل *ʾarrujul*, and we didn't add any word to replace it as the doer pronoun. This is because the doer pronoun for "he" is implied and automatically comes into place when we omit the doer noun.

The doer pronoun for "she" is similarly implied. For example, if we replace the doer noun in the sentence:

قَرَأَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ كِتَابًا.
qaraʾati -ljāriyatu kitābā.
"The girl read a book."

we get:

قَرَأَتْ كِتَابًا.
qaraʾat kitābā.
"[She] read a book."

Work in progress

6.7.1.1. Explanation of implied pronouns

Why do we have to go to all the trouble of saying that the doer-pronouns of the singular absentee-participants "he" and "she" are implied? Why can't we simply say that there are no doer-pronouns for the singular absentee-participants?

The reason is that we need to be able to state, as a rule of grammar, that every verb needs to have its own doer, whether expressed or implied. Later, if Allāh wills, when we study verbs with dual and plural doers we will see that this will make a difference in the formation of the verb.

6.7.2. Doer pronouns for the singular addressee ("you$_1$") and speaker ("I") participants

It is only the doer pronouns for the singular absentee participant that are implied for SC verbs. The doer pronouns for the singular addressee and speaker participants are expressed. The expressed doer pronouns are attached to the verb.

Here we show how the expressed doer pronouns are attached to the verb using the root paradigm فعل. The middle root letter (ع) has an fat·ḥah ◌َ here but this vowel will vary for other verbs.

Work in progress

Singular participant	Doer pronoun	Doer pronoun with verb
Addressee "you$_{1,m}$"	تَ *-ta*	فَعَلْتَ *faɛalta*
Addressee "you$_{1,f}$"	تِ *-ti*	فَعَلْتِ *faɛalti*
Speaker "I"	تُ *-tu*	فَعَلْتُ *faɛaltu*

Note also how the expressed singular doer pronouns modify the verb by replacing the fat·ḥah ◌َ on its final letter by a sukūn ◌ْ.

Furthermore, note how the doer pronoun for the addressed person "you" is differentiated for masculine and feminine doers whereas the doer pronoun for the speaking person "I" is the same for both genders.

Here are some examples of sentences with expressed doer pronouns:

كَتَبْتَ كِتَابًا.

katabta kitābā.

"You$_m$ wrote a book."

ذَهَبْتُ.

dh͡habt.

"I went."

The above sentence ends with the doer pronoun, so the vowel-mark on the doer pronoun is not pronounced (*d͡hahabt*). So, how would be know which doer pronoun it is? That is, does the sentence say "I went." or "You$_{m}$ went." or "You$_{f}$. went."? The answer is that the sentence by itself is ambiguous and context would tell us which of the three options is intended.

Take care to note that the singular doer pronouns modify the final letter of the basic verb, whereas the ـْتْ of femininity does not. So make sure you see the difference in the following two sentences:

قَرَأْتِ ٱلْكِتَابَ.

qaraʾti -lkitāb.

"You$_{f}$ read the book."

قَرَأَتِ ٱلْكتَابَ.

qaraʾati -lkitāb.

"She read the book."

Work in progress

6.7.3. Assimilation of the doer pronoun

If the final letter of the root of a verb is ت, then it gets assimililated with the ت which is the doer pronoun and only one ت, representing both, is written. Consider the verb:

سكت سَكَتَ *sakata* "became quiet"

When we add a expressed doer pronoun to this verb, we get:

سَكَتُّ

sakattu

"I became quiet"

سَكَتَّ

sakatta

"You$_{1,m}$ became quiet"

سَكَتِّ

sakatti

"You$_{1,f}$ became quiet"

Assimilation is treated in more detail in chapter/appendix TODO.

6.8. Verbs with doee pronouns

TODO: add long vowel for *hū/hī* for singular masculine

Just like doer nouns may be replaced with doer pronouns, so, too, may doee nouns be replaced with *doee pronouns*. Doee pronouns are also attached to the end of the verb but they don't modify the vowel on the final letter of the verb.

The doee pronouns are the same attached pronouns that are also used with prepositions:

Singular participant	Doee pronoun
Masc. absentee	ـُهْ *-hu* “him”
Fem. absentee	هَا *-hā* “her”
Masc. addressee	كَ *-ka* “you$_{1,m}$”
Fem. addressee	كِ *-ki* “you$_{1,f}$”
Speaker	ي “me”

Here are some notes regarding their usage:

- Doee pronouns shall always be attached to the verb. So if there is a doer noun then it shall be placed after the attached doee pronoun. For example:

  سَأَلَهُ ٱلْغُلَامُ.
  saʾalahu -lg͡hulām.
  “The boy asked him.”

- If however, the doer is also a pronoun, then it shall be attached first to the verb and then the doee pronoun shall be attached to the doer pronoun. For example,

  سَأَلْتُكِ.
  saʾaltuk.
  “I asked you$_{f}$.”

- If the doer pronoun is implied, then the doee pronoun shall be attached to the verb again directly with only a possible تْ of femininity intervening. For example:

  سَأَلَهَا.
  saʾalahā.
  “He asked her.”

  سَأَلَتْكَ.
  saʾalatk.
  “She asked you$_{m}$.”

- If the doee pronoun ـُهْ *-hu* “him” is preceded by the vowels *i*, *ī*, or *ay* then it shall instead become ـِهِ *hi* with no change in meaning. (We’ve already learned this rule.) For example,

  سَأَلْتِهِ.
  saʾaltih
  “You$_{f}$ asked him.”

Work in progress

- An intervening ن is always used between the verb and the speaker-participant doee pronoun variants ـِي *-ī* and ـِيَ *-iya*. Remember that these pronouns force any consonant before it to have a kasrah ـِ. Therefore, the combination will be written as نِي *-nī* and نِيَ *-niya* respectively. For example:

  سَأَلَنِي رَجُلٌ.
  saʾalanī rajul.
  "A man asked me."

  سَأَلَنِيَ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
  saʾalaniya -rrajul.
  "The man asked me."

  If there is an expressed doer pronoun, the intervening ن shall come after it so that the ن is always connected to the doee pronoun. For example,

  سَأَلْتَنِي.
  saʾaltanī
  "You$_{m}$ asked me."

  By the way, we have already seen this intervening ن before when it was used with some prepositions, e.g. مِنِّي *minnī*, عَنِّي *ɛannī*, and لَدُنِّي *ladunnī*

  The variant ـِي *-ī* is, in general, more commonly used, However, when the noun following it begins with a connecting hamzah then the variant ـِيَ *-ya* is preferred. That is why we used the variant ـِيَ *-ya* when it was followed by a connecting hamzah (سَأَلَنِيَ ٱلرَّجُلُ.), and the variant ـِي *-ī* when it was not followed by a connecting hamzah (سَأَلَنِي رَجُلٌ.). But this preference is not mandatory. So it is allowed for ـِي *-ī* to be used when followed by a connecting hamzah. When this happens, the long vowel *-ī* will be shortened to *-i* in connecting it to the next word, although the ـِي is retained in writing. For example,

  سَأَلَنِي ٱلرَّجُلُ.
  saʾalani -rrajul.
  "The man asked me."

Work in progress

6.9. Multiple verbs for one doer

In this section we will use the verbs:

Root	SC form 1 verb	Meaning
دخل	دَخَلَ *dak͡hala*	"entered"
خرج	خَرَجَ *k͡haraja*	"exited"

Root	SC form 1 verb	Meaning
ءكل	أَكَلَ *ʾakala*	“ate”
شرب	شَرِبَ *shariba*	“drank”

Consider, now, the sentence:

“I entered the room, ate, drank, and exited.”

The doer in this sentence is the pronoun “I”. This same doer is doing the action of multiple verbs: “entered”, “ate”, “drank”, and “exited”. When we try to express this sentence in Arabic we must remember that every verb shall have its own doer, and that the doer shall occur after it in sentence word order. So we will say:

دَخَلْتُ ٱلْغُرْفَةَ فَأَكَلْتُ فَشَرِبْتُ فَخَرَجْتُ.

dakhaltu -lghurfata faʾakaltu fasharibtu fakharajt.

“I entered the room and then I ate and then I drank and then I exited.”

Note also, that we need to replace the commas by connecting particles like وَ *wa-* “and”, or فَ *fa-* “so”/“and then”, etc. We chose فَ *fa-* which implies consequence or subsequence between the individual events.

Let’s now try this sentence with a doer noun instead of a doer pronoun:

“The girl entered the room, ate, drank, and exited.”

Here is our translation:

دَخَلَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ ٱلْغُرْفَةَ فَأَكَلَتْ فَشَرِبَتْ فَخَرَجَتْ.

dakhalati -ljāriyatu -lghurfata faʾakalat fasharibat fakharajat.

“The girl entered the room and then she ate and then she drank and then she exited.”

Each verb again has its own doer, which is coming after the verb in sentence word order. The doer of the first verb دَخَلَ *dakhala* “entered” is the noun أَلْجَارِيَةُ *ʾaljāriyatu* “the girl”. The subsequent verbs all have doers too but they are the implied doer pronouns for the singular feminine absentee participant. That is why we don’t write them. Note also that every verb has the تْ of femininity attached to it to indicate its singular feminine absentee doer.

Work in progress

6.10. Order of words in a sentence

6.10.1. Changing the order of words for emphasis

In Arabic, the doer always follows the verb. So the normal order of a sentence is verb-doer-doee. For example,

كَتَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ كِتَابًا.
kataba -rrajulu kitābā.
"The man wrote a book."

However, we will often come across sentences like:

ٱلرَّجُلُ كَتَبَ كِتَابًا.
ʾarrajulu kataba kitābā.

It may appear as if ٱلرَّجُلُ *arrajulu* is the doer and it is coming before the verb كَتَبَ *kataba*. But actually, this is not the case. As a matter of fact, this sentence is basically a nounal sentence.

Here ٱلرَّجُلُ *arrajulu* "the man" is the subject of the sentence, and كَتَبَ كِتَابًا *kataba kitāban* "he wrote a book", itself a verbal sentence with an implied doer pronoun, is the info about the subject. So the translation of the sentence is technically:

"The man, he wrote a book."

However, this can be an awkward translation so we will usually translate it as "The man wrote a book."

The question arises: if both sentences above have the same translation, then why would we say ٱلرَّجُلُ كَتَبَ كِتَابًا *ʾarrajulu kataba kitāban* instead of the more normal كَتَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ كِتَابًا *kataba -rrajulu kitāban*? The answer is that this change in the sentence's word order is done in order to give more emphasis to the doer, as if to say:

"*The man* wrote a book."

So in Arabic, the order of words is generally more flexible than in English and this is often used to give emphasis to certain words.

Work in progress

6.10.2. Verbs pull definite nouns towards them

When a verb has a doer noun and a doee noun, the normal order of words in a sentence is: verb, doer noun, doee noun. For example,

كَتَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ ٱلْكِتَابَ.
kataba -rrajulu -lkitāba.
"The man wrote the book."

There is a tendency, in Arabic, for verbs to *pull* definite nouns towards them. This means that if there are any indefinite nouns, they have a tendency to get pushed father away. So, for example, if a verb's doer is an indefinite noun and the doee is a definite noun, the doee will often (but not always) precede the doer. For example,

كَتَبَ ٱلْكِتَابَ رَجُلٌ.
kataba -lkitāba rajul.
"A man wrote the book."

The vowel-marks at the end of the nouns, and context, will tell us which is the doer and which is the doee. In this particular example, it was optional, and not mandatory to make the definite doee precede the doer in sentence word order. So we could have also said, instead:

كَتَبَ رَجُلٌ ٱلْكِتَابَ.

kataba rajuluni -lkitāb.

“A man wrote the book.”

Now let’s take a look at sentences with pronouns. Remember that pronouns are a category of nouns, and also (from section @ref(definiteness-of-pronouns)) that they are definite nouns. In fact they are stronger in definiteness than words that are made definite using أَلْ. This because if when we say “The man wrote the book.” instead of “A man wrote the book.”, we assume that everyone knows which man we are referring to. Now if we replace “the man” with the pronoun “he”: “He wrote the book.”, then this assumption becomes stronger. “He” is, in a sense, more definite than “the man.”.

So now, when the direct object noun ٱلْكِتَابَ *ʾalkitāba* “the book” is replaced with the pronoun “it”, the doee pronoun must be attached to the verb, and then the doer noun follows the doee pronoun:

كَتَبَهُ ٱلرَّجُلُ.

katabahu -rrajulu.

“The man wrote it.”

This can be seen as a mandatory case of the verb pulling the definite noun toward it.

Now, consider a sentence with an indirect object. Again, the normal order of words in a sentence is verb, doer noun, preposition, doee noun. For example,

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَى ٱلْمَدْرَسَةِ.

dh̄ahaba -lgh̄ulāmu ʾila -lmadrasah.

“The boy went to the school.”

Now, if we replace the indirect object noun ٱلْمَدْرَسَةِ. *ʾalmadrasati* “the school” with the pronoun “it”, the indirect object pronoun هَا *-hā* “it” is attached, not to the verb, but to the preposition إِلَىٰ *ʾilā* thus: إِلَيْهَا *ʾilayhā* “to it”. So it possible to preserve the original order of words in the sentence:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَيْهَا.

dh̄ahaba -lgh̄ulāmu ʾilayhā.

“The boy went to it.”

While the above sentence is correct, it is in fact more common to place the preposition and doee pronoun إِلَيْهَا *ʾilayhā* “to it” right after the verb, and before the doer noun, thus:

ذَهَبَ إِلَيْهَا ٱلْغُلَامُ.

dh̄ahaba ʾilayha -lgh̄ulāmu.

“The boy went to it.”

Work in progress

This is because the pronoun هَا *-hā* “it” is stronger in definiteness than ٱلْغُلَام *ʾalg͡hulām* “the boy”. So the verb has a stronger pull towards it.

This ordering of words due to the attractive pull of the verb is largely learned by experience. The more you read Arabic, the better feel you will get for it, if Allāh wills.

6.11. Negating SC verbs

In order to negate a SC verb, the particle مَا *mā* is placed before it. This gives the meaning of the action of the verb did not get, or has not got, done. So for example:

مَا ذَهَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
mā d͡hahaba -rrajulu.
“The man did not go.” or,
“The man has not gone.”

6.12. The particle قَدْ *qad*

The particle قَدْ *qad*, when placed before a SC verb emphasizes that the action of the verb has already or definitely occured.

قَدْ ذَهَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
qad d͡hahaba -rrajulu.
“The man has already gone.” or,
“The man did go.”

Work in progress

6.13. Separating doee pronouns from the verb

FIXME: move to imperfect verb chapter

We have mentioned that doee pronouns are attached to the verb. Sometimes there is a need to separate the doee pronoun from the verb. When separating the doee pronoun from the verb, it is instead attached to the prefix إِيَّا *ʾiyyā*. So then we get the following doee pronouns:

Person	Doee pronoun
Absent person (masc.) “him”	إِيَّاهُ *ʾiyyāhu*

Person	Doee pronoun
Absent person (fem.) “her”	إِيَّاهَا *ʾiyyāhā*
Addressed person (masc.) “you$_{masc.}$”	إِيَّاكَ *ʾiyyāka*
Addressed person (fem.) “you$_{fem.}$”	إِيَّاكِ *ʾiyyāki*
Speaking person (masc. and fem.) “me”	إِيَّايَ *ʾiyyāya*

Note that for the speaking person “me”, there is no intervening ن between the prefix إِيَّا *ʾiyyā* and the doee pronoun. Note also that only يَ *-ya* is allowed to be attached to the prefix إِيَّا *ʾiyyā*. This is because ـِي *-ī* is not permitted to be used with words that end in a long vowel (*-ā*, *-ī*, or *-ū*) or a semi-vowel (*-ay* or *-aw*). And the prefix إِيَّا *ʾiyyā* ends with the long-vowel *ā*.

But we may ask why is there a need to separate the doee pronoun from the verb? This can occur for a couple of reasons:

i. If there are multiple doee pronouns, only one of them can be attached to the verb. Example,

ضَرَبَتْنِي وَإِيَّاهُ.
ḏ̄harabatnī wa ʾiyyāhu.
“She hit me and him.”

ii. If the doee is placed before the verb for emphasis. Example,

إِيَّايَ ضَرَبَتْ.
ʾiyyāya ḏ̄harabat.
“She hit *me*.”

Work in progress

6.14. TODO

1. Multiple verb doers: Copy over from sound plurals and rework.
2. جواز تأنيث الفعل ووجوبه

Chapter 7.

The attribute

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Work in progress

7.1. Introduction

So far we have studied common nouns like رَجُل *rajul* "a man" and بَيْت *bayt* "a house".

In this chapter we will study *adjectival nouns*. Adjectival nouns are a class of nouns that don't denote objects. Rather they describe some quality of an object.

7.2. Adjectives in English

In English we usually use adjectives to describe nouns. For example, the word "big" is an adjective. It can be used in a couple of different ways:

1. It can be used to describe a noun in an *attributive* phrase. For example:

   "a big car"

2. The adjective "big" can also be used as the info of a sentence, describing the subject noun. For example:

   "The car is big."

But the adjective "big" cannot be used by itself as a noun, for example, as the subject of a sentence. So we can't say:

× “The big is fast.”
We would have to say something like:
“The big car is fast.”
instead.

7.3. Terminology: the *attribute* and the *attributed-to*

We take this opportunity to introduce some grammatical terminology. Consider the following attributive phrase:

a big car
(big: attribute; car: attributed-to)

This attributive phrase consists of two parts:

i. The adjective “big”. It is describing the car. We will call it the *attribute* in the noun-phrase.
ii. The common noun “a car”: It is being attributed by the attribute. We will call it the *attributed-to*.

We will reserve this terminology of *attribute* and *attributed-to* only for the noun and adjective in an attributive phrase. So we won’t use this terminology for the sentence: “The car is big.”

Instead, here we will continue to use the existing terminology of *subject* and *info*. The definite noun “the car” is the subject of this sentence, and the adjective “big” is the info.

The car (subject) is big. (info)

Work in progress

7.4. Adjectival nouns in English

Consider the English word “antique”. It is what we will call a *adjectival noun*.

It can be used just like an adjective to describe a noun as part of a noun-phrase. For example:

“The antique table is expensive.”

In the above sentence the adjective “antique” is a attribute and is describing the noun “table”.

It can also be used as the info of a sentence, just like an adjective. For example:

“The table is antique.”

But what makes it different from an normal adjective is that it can also be used by itself as a noun. For example:

“The antique is expensive.”

Here “the antique” could refer to any entity that can be described by the quality of being old and valuable. The adjectival noun does not require any other noun in this sentence and can stand on its own as the subject of the sentence.

Adjectival nouns are rare in English. Instead, adjectives are usually used when we want to describe a noun.

7.5. Adjectival nouns in Arabic and genderizability

Work in progress

Arabic does not have adjectives. It only has adjectival nouns.

The word صَغِير *ṣaḡ͡hīr* is an example of an indefinite adjectival noun in Arabic. It describes the quality of being “small” or “little”. It can be used to denote any person, animal, or things that can be described as being small. Technically we could translate it as “a little one$_{m}$” or “a small one$_{m}$”.

Being a noun صَغِير *ṣaḡ͡hīr*, like all other nouns in Arabic, will have a grammatical gender. Since it does not end with a feminine marker like ة, we can state that صَغِير *ṣaḡ͡hīr* is a masculine noun.

Adjectival nouns, typically, are genderizable. This means that we can feminize صَغِير *ṣaḡ͡hīr* (masc.) to get the feminine noun. We will feminize صَغِير *ṣaḡ͡hīr* (masc.) with the feminine marker ة to get the feminine adjectival noun صَغِيرَة *ṣaḡ͡hīrah* (fem.) “a little one$_{f}$”.

Generally, the dictionary will typically only supply the masculine adjectival noun. And we are expected to know how to feminize it to get the feminine adjectival noun.

As opposed to adjectival nouns, common nouns are not genderizable. So, for example, if we know that the noun غُلَام *ḡ͡hulām* “a boy” exists, we cannot assume that we can feminize it, by using the feminine marker ة, for example, getting: × غُلَامَة *ḡ͡hulāmah*. This would be a misguided attempt to obtain the meaning for “a girl” in Standard Arabic. Instead, we have to look up the Arabic word for “a girl” in the dictionary separately, and we find that it is جَارِيَة *jāriyah*.

Many times times, a masculine/feminine common noun pair will exist, that differ only by the feminine marker ة. For example:

- اِبْن *ʾibn* “a son” and اِبْنَة *ʾibnah* “a daughter”.
- مُعَلِّم *muɛallim* “a teacher$_{\text{m}}$” and مُعَلِّمَة *muɛallimah* “a teacher$_{\text{f}}$”

This does not indicate that the common noun is genderizable. Rather, when the common noun masc./fem. pair has a meaning that is derived from a verb or an adjective (like مُعَلِّمَة/مُعَلِّم), then the masculine/feminine pair are co-derived as separate non-genderizable words. We will discuss this in more detail in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

And when the common noun masc./fem. pair has a primitive (non-verbal and non-adjectival) meaning, (like اِبْنَة/اِبْن), then this is only a coincidence. We alluded to this in section @ref(related-nouns-for-male-and-female-animate-beings).

7.5.1. Examples of Arabic adjectival nouns

Here are some examples of Arabic adjectival nouns that we will use in this chapter.

Arabic adjectival noun	Meaning
كَبِير *kabīr*	a big one
صَغِير *ṣaġ͡hīr*	a small one
طَيِّب *ṭayyib*	a good one
قَدِيم *qadīm*	an old one
جَدِيد *jadīd*	a new one
طَوِيل *ṭawīl*	a long/tall one
وَاسِع *wāsiɛ*	a wide one
عَرَبِيّ *ɛarabiyy*	an Arab
مَشْهُور *maš͡h·hūr*	a famous one

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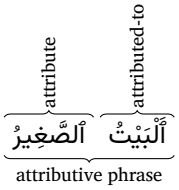
7.6. The attribute and the attributed-to in attributive phrases

Let’s learn how attributive phrases are formed in Arabic.

We learned in section @ref(terminology-the-attribute-and-the-attributed-to) above that attributive phrases consist of a attribute and a attributed-to.

In English attributive phrases, like “the small house”, the adjective attribute (“small”) comes before the attributed-to (“house”). Also, only one definite article (“the”) is used before the entire noun-phrase.

Here is the equivalent Arabic attributive phrase:



“the small house”
(literally: “the small-one house”)

Note the following:

- The adjectival noun attribute ٱلصَّغِير *ʾaṣṣaḡhīr* “the small one$_{m}$” comes after the attributed-to ٱلْبَيْت *ʾalbayt* “the house”.
- Both the adjectival noun attribute ٱلصَّغِير *ʾaṣṣaḡhīr* “the small one$_{m}$” and the attributed-to ٱلْبَيْت *ʾalbayt* “the house” get the definite article ٱلْ “the”.
- The adjectival noun attribute ٱلصَّغِير *ʾaṣṣaḡhīr* “the small one$_{m}$” is genderized to match the attributed-to ٱلْبَيْت *ʾalbayt* “the house” in gender.
- The adjectival noun attribute ٱلصَّغِير *ʾaṣṣaḡhīr* “the small one$_{m}$” matches the attributed-to ٱلْبَيْت *ʾalbayt* “the house” in case. In this example, they were both in the u-case but we will see examples in the other cases as well.
- The word-for-word equivalence of the above attributive phrase is “the small-one house” but we will usually give the more natural translation: “the small house”

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Let’s try another example: let’s try to translate the sentence: “The little girl took a new book from the good mother.”

Here is the sentence in Arabic:

أَخَذَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ ٱلصَّغِيرَةُ كِتَابًا جَدِيدًا مِنْ ٱلْأُمِّ ٱلطَّيِّبَةِ.

ʾakẖadẖati -ljāriyatu -ṣṣaḡhīratu kitaban jadīdan mina -lʾummi -ṭṭayyibah.

“The little girl took a new book from the good mother.”

This sentence has three attributive phrases. We will analyze each one individually:

i. ٱلْجَارِيَةُ ٱلصَّغِيرَةُ
ʾaljāriyatu -ṣṣaḡhīratu
“the little girl”

In this phrase the definite feminine noun ٱلْجَارِيَةُ *ʾaljāriyatu* is the doer of the verb أَخَذَ *ʾakẖadẖa* “took”. Therefore it is in the u-case. It is also the

attributed-to in the attributive phrase. Its attribute أَلصَّغِيرَةُ *ʾaṣṣaghīratu* follows the attributed-to and is made to match the attributed-to in case (u-case), gender (feminine), and definiteness (definite).

ii. كِتَابًا جَدِيدًا
kitāban jadīdan
"a new book"

In this phrase the indefinite masculine noun كِتَابًا *kitāban* is the direct object of the verb أَخَذَ *ʾakẖadẖa* "took". Therefore it is in the a-case. It is also the attributed-to in the attributive phrase. Its attribute جَدِيدًا *jadīdan* follows the attributed-to and is made to match the attributed-to in case (a-case), gender (masculine), and definiteness (indefinite).

iii. أَلْأُمِّ ٱلطَّيِّبَةِ
ʾalʾummi -ṭṭayyibati
"the good mother"

In this phrase the definite feminine noun ٱلْأُمِّ *ʾalʾummi* is following the preposition مِنْ *min* "from". Therefore it is in the i-case. It is also the attributed-to in the attributive phrase. Its attribute أَلطَّيِّبَةِ *ʾaṭṭayyibati* follows the attributed-to and is made to match the attributed-to in case (i-case), gender (feminine), and definiteness (definite).

Note carefully that the attribute matches the attributed-to in gender, not necessarily in having the same ة ending. The feminine adjectival noun attribute أَلطَّيِّبَة *ʾaṭṭayyibah* is still formed using the feminine marker ة, despite the feminine attributed-to ٱلْأُمّ not having the ة feminine marker.

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Sometimes, a common noun of one gender is used to refer to persons of either gender. For example:

- the noun شَخْص *sẖakẖṣ* is itself a masculine noun but it may be used to refer to both male and female persons.

If such a noun is a attributed-to, then we will prefer to match the attribute to the grammatical gender of the noun, not the physical gender of the person it is referring to. For example:

أَلْجَارِيَةُ شَخْصٌ طَيِّبٌ.
ʾaljāriyatu sẖakẖṣun ṭayyib.
"The girl is a good person."

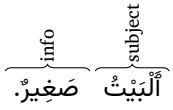
See how we preferred to use the masculine adjectival noun طَيِّب *ṭayyib* instead of using the feminine طَيِّبَة *ṭayyibah*. But the feminine adjectival noun طَيِّبَة *ṭayyibah* would also have been acceptable.[1]

[1] See the example ثَلَاثُ شُخُوصٍ كَاعِبَانِ وَمُعْصِرُ in الأصول في النحو لابن السراج 3/476

7.7. The Adjectival noun as the info of a sentence

7.7.1. Indefinite adjectival noun

Let's see how to use Arabic adjectival nouns as the info of a sentence.



"The house is small."
(literally: "The house is a small-one.")

In the above sentence, the indefinite adjectival noun صَغِير *ṣaghīr* "a small one" is used as the info of a sentence. Its indefiniteness and u-case is indicated by the tanwīned ḍhammah ٌ on its end.

When an adjectival noun is the info of a sentence, then it shall be genderized to match the gender of the subject noun. The subject noun in this case (ٱلْبَيْت) is masculine. Therefore, the masculine adjectival noun (صَغِير) is chosen.

Technically, the translation of this sentence is "The house is a small one." However, because Arabic has only adjectival nouns and not adjectives, it is how we can express the English sentence "The house is small." Therefore we can also translate it into English as such.

Now let's try a sentence with a feminine subject:

ٱلْجَارِيَةُ صَغِيرَة.

ʾaljāriyatu ṣaghīrah

"The girl is a little one$_f$." = "The girl is little."

In the above example the subject (ٱلْجَارِيَة "the girl") was feminine. Therefore, we feminized the masculine adjectival noun صَغِير *ṣaghīr* with the feminine marker ة to get the feminine adjectival noun صَغِيرَة *ṣaghīrah* "a little one$_f$" and used the feminine adjectival noun in the sentence.

7.7.2. Definite adjectival noun

Let's see if a definite adjectival noun can be used in the info. For example, we would like to say "The old tree is the big one."

The subject of the sentence is ٱلشَّجَرَةُ ٱلْقَدِيمَةُ *ʾashshajaratu -lqadīmuiatu* "the old tree". And the info is ٱلْكَبِيرَةُ *ʾalkabīratu* "the big one". When we put the two together we get:

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ٱلشَّجَرَةُ ٱلْقَدِيمَةُ ٱلْكَبِيرَةُ
ʾash͡shajaratu -lqadīmatu -lkabīratu

The problem is that the above could also be interpreted as one phrase “the big old tree”, and not as the complete sentence “The old tree is the big one.” This is the same problem that we highlighted in section @ref(chap-smp-sent-sec-def-info).

The solution, too, is the same. We insert a detached pronoun, that matches the gender of the subject, between the subject and the info. So in order to get our intended meaning, we will say:

ٱلشَّجَرَةُ ٱلْقَدِيمَةُ هِيَ ٱلْكَبِيرَةُ.
ʾash͡shajaratu -lqadīmatu hiya -lkabīratu.
“The old tree is the big one.”

7.8. Adjectival nouns used without a described noun

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We have mentioned that adjectival nouns are just like other nouns that we have learned so far, in that they have gender, case, and definiteness. Can we then use an adjectival noun by itself and not when it is describing another noun?

The answer is yes, we can. So for example, you can say:

شَرِبَ ٱلصَّغِيرُ حَلِيبًا.
sh͡shariba -ṣṣaghīru ḥalībā.
“The little one drank some milk.”

The above is a correct sentence. But, by itself, it is not very clear. What do we mean by “the little one”? Is it a little boy, or a little cat, or something else? So, context would be needed to know what exactly is being denoted by the adjectival noun when it is used by itself independently.

Here is the same sentence again, but this time with some clarifying context.

حَمَلَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ ٱلصَّغِيرَ. وَشَرِبَ ٱلصَّغِيرُ حَلِيبًا.
ḥamalati -lʾummu -ṣṣaghīra. wash͡shariba -ṣṣaghīru ḥalībā.
“The mother carried the little one. And the little one drank some milk.”

So now we can tell that what is meant by ٱلصَّغِير *ʾaṣṣaghīr* “the little one” here is “the baby”.

7.9. Adjectival nouns re-used as common nouns

Sometimes, an adjectival noun, through much usage, acquires the meaning of a common noun. It then gets listed with this meaning in the dictionary. We actually just saw an example above. The adjectival noun صَغِير *ṣaḡ͡hīr* "a little one" is commonly used to mean "a baby". Of course, context would be needed to know whether, in a particular sentence, it has its common noun meaning: "a baby", or its general adjectival noun meaning: "a little one".

The opposite of صَغِير *ṣaḡ͡hīr* "a little one" is كَبِير *kabīr* "a big one". It too has acquired the common noun meaning of "an elder person". Here is an example of its usage:

قَدِمَ ٱلْكَبِيرُ وَوَعَظَ ٱلْغُلَامَ.
qadima -lkabīru wawaʿaḍ͡ha -lḡ͡hulāma.
"The elder arrived and admonished the boy."

When an adjectival noun gets re-used as a common noun, it loses its genderizability. For example, the feminine adjectival noun حَسَنَة *ḥasanah* (fem.) "a good one" is re-used as a common noun meaning "a good deed". So we can use it in a sentence:

ٱلصِّيَامُ حَسَنَةٌ.
ʾaṣṣiyāmu ḥasanah.
"Fasting is a good deed."

The subject in this sentence is the masculine noun أَلصِّيَام *ʾaṣṣiyām* "fasting". And the info is the feminine noun حَسَنَة *ḥasanah* "a good deed". Note that the info does not match the subject in gender. This is because it lost its genderizability since it is no longer acting as an adjectival noun "a good one$_{\text{f}}$", but rather as the common noun "a good deed".

What if we have the sentence:

أَلصَّدَقَةُ حَسَنَةٌ.
ʾaṣṣadaqatu ḥasanah.

The feminine gender of the subject أَلصَّدَقَة. *ʾaṣṣadaqah* "charity" now matches the gender of the info حَسَنَة *ḥasanah*. So now, technically, the info could be the adjectival noun, meaning "a good one$_{\text{f}}$". So the sentence could mean:

"Charity is good."

Or the info could be the common noun, meaning "a good deed". Then the sentence would mean:

"Charity is a good deed."

Context would be needed to tell us which meaning is intended.

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7.10. Common-nouns used as attributes in a noun-phrase

Usually, adjectival nouns are used as the attribute in an attributive phrase. However, we also often find a common noun used as a attribute. For example,

هُوَ رَجُلٌ مُعَلِّمٌ.

huwa rajulun muɛallim.

"He is a teacher$_{m}$ man."

= "He is a man who is a teacher$_{m}$."

This is discussed in more detail in section (static adjectival noun: entity noun crossover).

7.11. Multiple adjectival nouns describing the same noun

In English we can have a noun described by multiple adjectives separated by commas and the word "and". For example, "The building is big, tall, and wide." In Arabic we will separate the multiple adjectival nouns with وَ *wa-* "and":

أَلْبِنَاءُ كَبِيرٌ وَطَوِيلٌ وَوَاسِعٌ.

ʾalbināʾu kabīrun waṭawīlun wawāsiʾun

"The building is big and tall and wide."

In an English attributive phrase, multiple attributes may describe the same attributed-to, without being separated by the word "and". For example, "The man is a famous Arab writer." In Arabic, we can do the same, except the attributed-tos will be in the reverse order:

أَلرَّجُلُ كَاتِبٌ عَرَبِيٌّ مَشْهُورٌ.

ʾarrujulu kātibun ɛarabiyyun mas͡h·hūr.

"The man is a famous Arab writer."

7.12. A prepositional phrase separating the attribute from the attributed-to

Consider the phrase:

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كِتَابٌ مِنَ ٱلْمَكْتَبَةِ

kitābun mina -lmaktabati

“a book from the library”

If we want to add a adjectival noun as to describe “the book”, we may add it either before or after the prepositional phrase attribute. Here are both examples as complete sentences:

قَرَأَ كِتَابًا صَغِيرًا مِنَ ٱلْمَكْتَبَةِ.

qaraʾa kitāban ṣaghīran mina -lmaktabati.

AND

قَرَأَ كِتَابًا مِنَ ٱلْمَكْتَبَةِ صَغِيرًا.

qaraʾa kitāban mina -lmaktabati ṣaghīran.

“a small book from the library”

The first option is usually chosen as a matter of preference but the second option is legitimate too.

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Chapter 8.

The semi-flexible noun

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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8.1. Introduction

Nouns are of two main categories of nouns, with regard to their endings in the different noun cases:

1. Rigid nouns.
2. Flexible nouns. These are further sub-divided into:
    i. Fully-flexible nouns.
    ii. Semi-flexible nouns.

So far we have been mostly studying fully-flexible nouns. In this chapter we will learn about semi-flexible nouns.

Here is an example of the kind of nouns we have learned so far:

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	رَجُلٌ	أَلرَّجُلُ
a-case	رَجُلًا	أَلرَّجُلَ
i-case	رَجُلٍ	أَلرَّجُلِ

As you can see, the noun is tanwīned when it is indefinite, and also, the vowel mark on the last letter changes for each case that the noun is in. These kinds of

nouns are called *fully-flexible* nouns. They are by far the most common type of noun.

There are some nouns, however, that are *semi-flexible*. Here is an example of a semi-flexible noun, صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrāʾ* "a desert":

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	صَحْرَاءُ	أَلصَّحْرَاءُ
a-case	صَحْرَاءَ	أَلصَّحْرَاءَ
i-case	صَحْرَاءَ	أَلصَّحْرَاءِ

As you can see, when صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrāʾ* is indefinite, it is not tanwīned. Also, when it is indefinite and in the i-case, the vowel mark on its final letter is not ◌ِ, as you might expect but ◌َ . And so the noun looks identical in the a-case and i-case when it is indefinite.

When it is definite, however, it looks just like fully-flexible nouns.

So there are two differences between fully-flexible and semi-flexible nouns:

1. When indefinite, a semi-flexible noun is not tanwīned.
2. When indefinite and in the i-case, a semi-flexible noun's final letter does not have an kasrah. Instead it shall have an fat·ḥah, just like when it is in the a-case.

The other category of nouns are *rigid* nouns. Rigid nouns don't change their endings due to their case. They are much fewer in number compared to flexible nouns. Pronouns are an example of rigid nouns.

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8.2. Feminine markers

Before we discuss semi-flexible nouns in more detail, we will discuss feminine markers. We already know of one feminine marker: the ة. When a singular noun ends with ة, then that is an indication, with very few exceptions, that it is a feminine noun. Examples are:

Root	Feminine noun	Masculine noun from same root (if any)
جري	جَارِيَة "a girl_f"	–
علم	عَالِمَة "a scholar_f"	عَالِم "a scholar_m"
كلب	كَلْبَة "a dog_f"	كَلْب "a dog_m"
شجر	شَجَرَة "a tree"	–

Root	Feminine noun	Masculine noun from same root (if any)
صغر	صَغِيرَة *adj.* "small$_f$"	صَغِير *adj.* "small$_m$"

As you can see, the feminine marker ة is never part of the noun's root. It is thus considered *extrinsic* to the root. Also, sometimes, but not always, the feminine noun is formed by adding the feminine marker ة to the end of a masculine noun.

It is also important to note that ة is only a feminine marker for singular nouns. When we learn plurals, if Allāh wills, we will see that ة is used frequently with masculine plurals.

Now we will learn of two more feminine markers: اء and ىٰ.

Here are some examples of nouns that end with these two feminine markers:

Root	Feminine noun	Masculine noun (if any)
صحر	صَحْرَاء "a desert"	–
حمر	حَمْرَاء *adj.* "red$_f$"	أَحْمَر *adj.* "red$_m$"
ذكر	ذِكْرَىٰ "a remembrance"	–
غضب	غَضْبَىٰ *adj.* "very angry$_f$"	غَضْبَان *adj.* "very angry$_m$"

When extrinsic to the word's root, اء and ىٰ are feminine markers, just like ة. However, one important difference from ة is that sometimes اء and ىٰ may not be extrinsic to the word's root. In this case, they will not be feminine markers, and the noun will regularly be a masculine noun. Examples:

Root	Noun	Pattern using paradigm فعل
هدي	ٱلْهُدَىٰ (masc.) "the guidance"	أَلْفُعَل
خبء	خِبَاء (masc.) "a tent"	فِعَال

These cases will become more clear, if Allāh wills, when we study weak roots (roots that contain a weak letter like ي، و، ء).

Otherwise, when extrinsic to the word's root, اء, and ىٰ are consistently feminine markers, just like ة.

Also, just like ة, اء and ىٰ are only feminine markers for singular nouns. We will see, if Allāh wills, that they are used frequently with masculine plurals.

By the way, another difference from ة is that when اء and ىٰ are feminine markers, and a masculine counterpart exists, then the feminine noun is not formed by simply adding the feminine marker to the end of the masculine noun. The masculine and feminine nouns are different internally as well. For example,

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the feminine noun حَمْرَاء *adj.* "red$_f$" is not formed simply by adding the feminine marker اء to the end of the masculine noun أَحْمَر *adj.* "red$_m$".

We will discuss this in more detail below.

8.3. Categories of semi-flexible nouns

We now return to our discussion of semi-flexible nouns. Semi-flexible nouns, in terms of their formation, fall under different categories. We will discuss them below.

When discussing semi-flexible nouns in isolation we will add the numeral 2 as a superscript to their ending, thus: ²صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrā*ʾ². This is to indicate their semi-flexibility.

8.3.1. Nouns that end with an extrinsic اء

If a noun ends with an اء, which is extrinsic to the word's root, then it shall be a semi-flexible noun.

We have already seen an example of such a noun above: ²صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrā*ʾ² "a desert". The root of this noun is صحر. You can see that the ending اء is not part of the root. Therefore it is a semi-flexible noun.

Furthermore, we have also learned that this اء, which is extrinsic to the word's root, is a feminine marker for singular nouns, just like ة, except that ة does not generally make a noun semi-flexible.

Here is an example sentence with this noun:

ذَهَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ إِلَىٰ صَحْرَاءَ وَاسِعَةٍ.

dh͟ahaba -rrajulu ʾilā ṣaḥrāʾa wāsiɛah.

"The man went to a wide desert."

Note that the vowel mark on the final letter of صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾa* is ◌َ, not ◌ٍ, even though it is indefinite and in the i-case (because it is preceded by the preposition إِلَىٰ *ʾilā* "to"). This is because it is a semi-flexible noun.

²صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrā*ʾ² in this sentence is also a attributed-to, whose attribute is وَاسِعَةٍ *wāsiɛatin* "wide". The final vowel mark ◌َ on the attributed-to صَحْرَاءَ *ṣaḥrāʾa* has no effect on the final vowel mark on the attribute وَاسِعَةٍ *wāsiɛatin* "wide". All that matters in this regard is the case of the attributed-to.

Note, also, that the attribute وَاسِعَة is feminine to match the gender of the attributed-to ²صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrā*ʾ².

Note, as well, that the attribute وَاسِعَةٍ is tanwīned as it is indefinite and fully-flexible. The inability of its attributed-to ²صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrā*ʾ² to be tanwīned (because of its semi-flexibility) does not affect the attribute.

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Also, beware, as we've already mentioned, that there are some words where the اء ending may be part of the word's root, for example خِبَاء *k͡hibāʾ* "a tent" from the root خبء on the pattern خِبَاء. Such words will be fully flexible. Also, for the same reason, اء in this word is not a feminine marker, and the word is masculine.

8.3.2. Nouns that end with an extrinsic ىٰ

If a noun ends with an ىٰ which is extrinsic to the word's root, then it shall be a semi-flexible noun.

We've already seen an example of such a word: ذِكْرَىٰ *ḏ͡hikrā* "a remembrance". The root of this word is ذكر and it is on the pattern فِعْلَىٰ.

We've also learned that, similar to اء, this ىٰ, which is extrinsic to the word's root, is a feminine marker for singular nouns.

Since ذِكْرَىٰ *ḏ͡hikrā* already ends with the vowel-mark ◌ٰ, the last letter won't have any additional vowel markers and therefore the word will appear the same in all cases:

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	ذِكْرَىٰ	اَلذِّكْرَىٰ
a-case	ذِكْرَىٰ	اَلذِّكْرَىٰ
i-case	ذِكْرَىٰ	اَلذِّكْرَىٰ

Therefore, the case of such nouns cannot be determined by the vowel mark on their final letter, and has to be deduced otherwise by their function in the sentence. Nevertheless, these nouns are still included in the category of semi-flexible nouns, and not rigid nouns. This is because rigid nouns are closed set consisting only of pronouns and other similar words.

Here is an example of this word in a sentence:

اَلْكِتَابُ ذِكْرَىٰ جَمِيلَةٌ.

ʾalkitābu ḏ͡hikrā jamīlah.

"The book is a beautiful remembrance."

Note, again how the attribute جَمِيلَة *jamīlah* is feminine and in the u-case, in order to match the gender and case of the attributed-to ذِكْرَىٰ *ḏ͡hikrā*.

Beware also that, just like in the case of اء, there are some words where ىٰ may be part of the word's root, e.g. اَلْهُدَىٰ *ʾalhudā* "the guidance" whose root is هدي. Because here the ىٰ in اَلْهُدَىٰ is part of the word's root, therefore it shall not be a semi-flexible noun. So, when it is indefinite, it will be tanwīned: هُدًى *hudan* "a guidance". Also, for the same reason, ىٰ in this word is not a feminine marker, and the word is masculine.

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8.3.3. Nouns on the pattern أَفْعَل

If a noun is on the pattern أَفْعَل *ʾafɛal* then it shall be a semi-flexible noun. By the way, there is no feminine marker on such words, so they will be masculine by default.

Most colors and many physical characteristics fall into this pattern. Colors and physical characteristics are adjectival nouns. The masculine noun for such adjectival nouns is on the pattern أَفْعَل *ʾafɛal*. And the feminine adjectival noun is on the pattern فَعْلَاء *faɛlāʾ* (which is itself a semi-flexible noun pattern because of the extrinsic اء ending). Here are some examples of such adjectival nouns:

Root	Masc. Noun	Fem. noun	Meaning
حمر	أَحْمَر[2]	حَمْرَاء[2]	red
سود	أَسْوَد[2]	سَوْدَاء[2]	black
بيض	أَبْيَض[2]	بَيْضَاء[2]	white
عرج	أَعْرَج[2]	عَرْجَاء[2]	lame
حور	أَحْوَر[2]	حَوْرَاء[2]	beautiful eyed
بكم	أَبْكَم[2]	بَكْمَاء[2]	mute

Example:

لَبِسَ ٱلرَّجُلُ قَمِيصًا أَبْيَضَ.

labisa -rrajulu qamīṣan ʾabyaḍ͡h.

“The man wore a white shirt.”

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8.3.4. Adjectival nouns that end with an extrinsic ان {Adjectival noun-an-diptote}

The letters ان may be an extrinsic ending for nouns. This ending is not a feminine marker so the noun would typically be masculine. This ending may cause the noun to be semi-flexible.

This category is more complicated than the previous ones. The following conditions must be satisfied for a word that ends with ان to be a semi-flexible noun:

1. The noun must be a adjectival noun on the pattern فَعْلَان. So the common noun ثُعْبَان *t͡huɛbān* “a serpent” of the root ثعي is a common noun and therefore, not a semi-flexible noun.

2. The ان must be extrinsic to the word's root. So جَبَان *jabānun* "cowardly", an adjectival noun of the root جبن, is not a semi-flexible noun.
3. The feminine of the adjectival noun shall not be formed by adding ة to the masculine noun. So نَدْمَان *nadmān* "regretful", an adjectival noun from the root ندم, is not a semi-flexible noun, because its feminine is نَدْمَانَة *nadmānah*.

It is rare that this last condition fails. Most adjectival nouns that end with an extrinsic ان are of the pattern فَعْلَان *faʿlān* and their feminine is of the pattern فَعْلَىٰ *faʿlā* (which is itself a semi-flexible noun pattern). These adjectival nouns typically have an emphatic meaning. The following are examples of semi-flexible adjectival nouns that fall into this category:

Root	Masc. Noun	Fem. noun	Meaning
غضب	غَضْبَان[2]	غَضْبَىٰ[2]	very angry
عطش	عَطْشَان[2]	عَطْشَىٰ[2]	very thirsty
جوع	جَوْعَان[2]	جَوْعَىٰ[2]	very hungry

8.3.5. Nouns of the patterns فَفَافِف and فَفَافِيف

Nouns that are of the patterns فَفَافِف and فَفَافِيف are also semi-flexible nouns. Here each letter ف could be any letter of the alphabet.

Here are some examples of these nouns:

- [2]مَسَاجِد *masājid*[2] "mosques"
- [2]مَفَاتِيح *mafātīḥ*[2] "keys"

These patterns are only used for plurals and we will study them in more detail in chapter @ref(broken-plurals) , if Allāh wills.

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Chapter 9.

The dual

> **Warning**
>
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9.1. Introduction

For any number greater than one, English uses the plural. For example, the plural of “house” is “houses”. So in English we will say:

“two houses”

Arabic, on the other hand, uses the plural only for nouns in number three and higher. For nouns that are two in number Arabic uses the *dual*.

Since English does not have a dual, we will sometimes indicate it using the the subscript 2, thus: “houses$_2$”, to mean “two houses”.

9.2. Forming the dual

The dual is formed by appending the dual suffix انِ◌َ *-āni* when the noun is in the u-case and ينِ◌َ *-ayni* when the noun is in the a-case or i-case. Definite nouns, which have اَلْ in their beginning are dualized the same way.

For example, when we dualize بَيْت *bayt* “a house” in order to say “houses$_2$”, we get:

Cases	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	بَيْتَانِ *baytāni*	أَلْبَيْتَانِ *ʾalbaytāni*
a-case and i-case	بَيْتَيْنِ *baytayni*	أَلْبَيْتَيْنِ *ʾalbaytayni*

Note that indefinite duals are not tanwīned. The only difference between definite and indefinite duals is the definite article أَلْ "the".

Here are examples of duals in sentences:

- u-case:

  أَلْكِتَابَانِ فِي ٱلْحَقِيبَةِ.
  ʾalkitābāni fi -lḥaqībah.
  "The books$_2$ are in the bag."

- a-case:

  قَرَأَ ٱلْغُلَامُ كِتَابَيْنِ.
  qaraʾa -lg͡hulāmu kitābayn.
  "The boy read two books."

- i-case:

  غَضِبَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ عَلَى ٱلْجَارِيَتَيْنِ.
  g͡haḍ͡hibati -lʾummu εala -ljāriyatayn.
  "The mother became angry at the girls$_2$." ### Nouns ending in ة

If a noun ends with a ة, then it is converted to a ت before appending the dual suffix. For example, dualizing شَجَرَة *sh͡ajarah* "a tree", we get "trees$_2$":

Cases	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	شَجَرَتَانِ *sh͡ajaratāni*	أَلشَّجَرَتَانِ *ʾash͡sh͡ajaratāni*
a-case and i-case	شَجَرَتَيْنِ *sh͡ajaratayni*	أَلشَّجَرَتَيْنِ *ʾash͡sh͡ajaratayni*

Example:
أَلشَّجَرَتَانِ فِي ٱلْحَدِيقَةِ.
ʾash͡sh͡aratāni fi -lḥadīqah.
"The trees$_2$ are in the garden."

If a feminine noun does end with a ة then it will simply be appended with ـَانِ *-āni* and ـَيْنِ *-ayni*. For example, dualizing أُمّ *ʾumm* "a mother" in order to get "mothers$_2$", we get:

- u-case: أُمَّانِ *ʾummāni*
- a-case and i-case: أُمَّيْنِ *ʾummayni*

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There are some nouns that end with an alif before the ة, like فَتَاة *fatāh* “a young woman”. We will learn how to dualize these nouns later, if Allāh wills.

9.2.1. Nouns ending with اء

If a noun ends with the feminine marker اء which is extrinsic to the word’s root then the ء shall be replaced with a و when forming the dual. Examples:

Root	Singular	Dual (u-case)	Dual (a-case and i-case)
صحر	صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrāʾ* “a desert”	صَحْرَاوَانِ *ṣaḥrāwāni*	صَحْرَاوَيْنِ *ṣaḥrāwayni*
حمر	حَمْرَاء *ḥamrāʾ* “red$_f$”	حَمْرَاوَانِ *ḥamrāwāni*	حَمْرَاوَيْنِ *ḥamrāwayni*

There are other words where the ء in the اء ending originates from the word’s root. Example:

- خِبَاء خبء (masc.) “a tent”, pattern: فِعَال

We will learn how to form duals of these words in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

9.2.2. Nouns ending with ىٰ

If a noun ends with ىٰ which is extrinsic to the word’s root then the ىٰ shall be changed to a يَ when adding the dual suffixes. Examples:

Root	Singular	Dual (u-case)	Dual (a-case and i-case)
غضب	غَضْبَىٰ *ġ͟haḍ͟hbā* “very angry$_f$”	غَضْبَيَانِ *ġ͟haḍ͟hbayāni*	غَضْبَيَيْنِ *ġ͟haḍ͟hbayayni*
ذكر	ذِكْرَىٰ *ḏ͟hikrā* “a remembrance”	ذِكْرَيَانِ *ḏ͟hikrayāni*	ذِكْرَيَيْنِ *ḏ͟hikrayayni*

Just like in the case of اء, there are some words where ىٰ is not extrinsic to the word’s root. Example:

- ٱلْهُدَىٰ هدي (masc.) “the guidance”, pattern: ٱلْفُعَل

We will learn how to form duals of these words in later chapters, if Allāh wills.

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9.3. Dual attributes and attributed-tos in descriptive noun-phrases

We learned that when an adjectival noun is a attribute in an descriptive noun-phrase, then it matches the attributed-to in definiteness, case, and gender. For example:

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى ٱلْمَدِينَةِ ٱلْقَدِيمَةِ.
dʱahabtu ʾila -lmadīnati -lqadīmah.
"I went to the old city."

To this we add that the attribute shall also match the attributed-to in number. So if the attributed-to is a dual then the adjectival noun attribute shall be dualzed to match it. Examples:

ٱلْأُمَّانِ ٱلطَّيِّبَتَانِ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ.
ʾalʾummāni -ṭṭayyibatāni fi -lbayt.
"The good mothers$_2$ are in the house."

قَرَأَ ٱلْغُلَامُ كِتَابَيْنِ ثَقِيلَيْنِ قَدِيمَيْنِ.
qaraʾa -lgʱulāmu kitābayni tʱaqīlatayni qadīmatayn.
"The boy read two old heavy books."

9.4. Duals in nounal sentences

In nounal sentences, if the subject is a dual, and the info is a adjectival noun, then the info will typically match the subject in being a dual. For example:

ٱلْأُمَّانِ كَرِيمَتَانِ.
ʾalʾummāni karīmatān.
"The mothers$_2$ are generous."

ٱلْكِتَابَانِ ٱلْكَبِيرَانِ ثَقِيلَانِ.
ʾalkitābāni -lkabīrāni tʱaqīlān.
"The big books$_2$ are heavy."

Such is usually also the case even when the info is a common noun, not an adjectival noun. For example,

ٱلرَّجُلَانِ مُعَلِّمَانِ.
ʾarrujulāni muɛallimān.
"The men$_2$ are teachers$_{m,2}$."

Sometimes, however, the subject and info may not match in number because of the meaning of the sentence. For example,

ٱلْوِسَادَتَانِ سَرِيرٌ.

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ʾalwisādatāni sarīr.
“The two cushions are a bed.”

In the above example, the info does not match the subject in both number, and, as it happens, in gender.

9.5. Detached dual pronouns

We have already learned the detached pronouns that are used in place of singular nouns. They are repeated here:

Singular participant	Detached pronoun
Masc. absentee	هُوَ *huwa* “he”
Fem. absentee	هِيَ *hiya* “she”
Masc. addressee	أَنْتَ *ʾanta* “you$_{m,1}$”
Fem. addressee	أَنْتِ *ʾanti* “you$_{f,1}$”
Speaker	أَنَا *ʾana* “I”

Now we will learn the detached pronouns for the dual participants:

Dual participant	Detached pronoun
Absentee	هُمَا *humā* “they$_2$”
Addressee	أَنْتُمَا *ʾantumā* “you$_2$”
Speaker	–

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Note that the dual detached pronouns are the same for both genders. Also, there is no detached pronoun for the dual speaker-participant. If the speaker-pariticipant consists of two individuals then we will use the plural pronoun, which we will learn in the next chapter, if Allāh wills.

Here are some examples of their use:

هُمَا ٱلرَّجُلَانِ.
huma -rrajulān.
“They$_2$ are the men$_2$.”

هُمَا مُعَلِّمَتَانِ كَرِيمَتَانِ.
humā muɛallimatāni karīmatāni.
“They$_2$ are noble teachers$_f$.”

قَالَتِ ٱلأُمُّ لِلْجَارِيَتَيْنِ أَنْتُمَا قَرِيبَتَانِ مِنِّي.
qālati -lʾummu liljāriyatayni ʾantumā qarībatāni minnī.
“The mother said to the girls$_2$, ‘You$_2$ are near me.’ ”

In the last example, the feminine adjectival noun قَرِيبَتَانِ *qarībatāni* is used because it is referring to the feminine noun ٱلْجَارِيَتَيْنِ *ʾaljāriyatayni* "the girls$_2$".

9.6. Attached dual pronouns

We have also already learned the attached pronouns for the singular participant. They too are repeated here:

Singular participant	Attached pronoun
Masc. absentee	ـهُ *-hu* "him"
Fem. absentee	ـهَا *-hā* "her"
Masc. addressee	ـكَ *-ka* "you$_{m,1}$"
Fem. addressee	ـكِ *-ki* "you$_{f,1}$"
Speaker	ـي "me"

Now we will learn the attached pronouns for the dual participant:

Dual participant	Attached pronoun
Absentee	ـهُمَا *-humā* "them$_2$"
Addressee	ـكُمَا *-kumā* "you$_2$"
Speaker	–

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Note the following points about them:

- Like the dual detached pronouns, the dual attached pronouns are the same for both genders. Also, there is no attached pronoun for the dual speaker-participant. Again, the plural pronoun will be used in this case.
- The dual absentee-participant detached and attached pronouns ("they$_2$"/"them$_2$") are the same هُمَا *-humā*.
- Just like the absentee-participant singular masculine attached pronoun ـهُ *hu* "him", the dual absentee-participant attached pronoun "them$_2$" هُمَا *-humā* becomes هِمَا *-himā* when preceded by the vowels ـِ *-i*, ـِي *-ī*, or the semi-vowel ـَيْ *-ay*. Examples:
  - بِهِمَا *bihimā* "with them$_2$"
  - فِيهِمَا *fīhimā* "in them$_2$"
  - إِلَيْهِمَا *ʾilayhimā* "to them$_2$"

- The preposition لِ *li* "for" becomes لَ *la* when followed by the dual attached pronouns:
  - لَهُمَا *lahumā* "for them$_2$"
  - لَكُمَا *lakumā* "for you$_2$"
- As expected, the long *ā* vowel at the ends of the dual attached pronouns becomes a short *a* vowel when followed by a connecting hamzah ٱ. Example:
  - ذَهَبَ إِلَيْكُمَا ٱلرَّجُلُ.
    dẖahaba ʾilaykuma -rrajulu.
    "The man went toward you$_2$."

9.6.1. Attached pronouns for the direct object

The dual attached pronouns that we have just learned are also for the direct object Examples:

سَأَلَهُمَا ٱلرَّجُلُ.
saʾalahuma -rrajulu.
"The man asked them$_2$."

سَأَلْتُكُمَا.
saʾaltukumā
"I asked you$_2$."

سَأَلَتْكُمَا.
saʾalatkumā.
"She asked you$_2$."

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9.7. Verbs with dual doers

9.7.1. Dual nouns for the doer

We learned that the SC verb for a masculine doer is on the pattern فَعَلَ. And when the doer is feminine, the ت of femininity is attached to the verb thus: فَعَلَتْ. We have used these verbs with singular doer nouns. The doer noun always comes after the verb and shall be in the u-case. Examples:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ.
dẖahaba -lġẖulāmu.
"The boy went."

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ.
dẖahabat jāriyatun
"A girl went."

These same verbs are used when the doer noun is a dual. Examples:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامَانِ.
dh͡ahaba -lg͡hulāmāni.
"The boys$_2$ went."

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ.
dh͡ahabat jāriyatāni.
"Two girls went."

9.7.2. Dual pronouns for the doer

We have already learned the singular doer pronouns:

Singular participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Masc. absentee	invisible	"he"	فَعَلَ *faɛala*
Fem. absentee	invisible	"she"	فَعَلَتْ *faɛalat*
Masc. addressee	تَ *-ta*	"you$_{m,2}$"	فَعَلْتَ *faɛalta*
Fem. addressee	تِ *-ti*	"you$_{f,2}$"	فَعَلْتِ *faɛalti*
Speaker	تُ *-tu*	"I"	فَعَلْتُ *faɛaltu*

Now we will learn the dual doer pronouns:

Dual participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Absentee	اَ *-ā*	"them$_2$"	masc.: فَعَلَا *faɛalā*, fem: فَعَلَتَا *faɛalatā*
Addressee	تُمَا *-tumā*	"you$_2$"	فَعَلْتُمَا *faɛaltumā*
Speaker	–	"us$_2$"	–

Note the following regarding the dual doer pronouns:

The dual doer pronouns are the same for both genders.

However, when the absentee-participant doer pronoun (اَ *-ā*) is used for a feminine doer, it is attached to the verb with an intervening ت of femininity thus: فَعَلَتَا *faɛalatā* "they$_{f,2}$ did" Here are some examples of the dual doer pronouns:

سَأَلْتُمَانَا
saʾaltumānā
"You$_2$ asked us"

سَأَلَتَاكُمَا
saʾalatākumā
"They$_{f,2}$ asked you$_2$"

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سَأَلَاهُمَا
saʾalāhumā
"They$_{m,2}$ asked them$_2$"

9.7.3. Sentence word order with dual doers

As we've mentioned, the doer, whether a noun or a pronoun, always comes after the verb. Here are a couple of examples of verbal sentences with dual doers:

ذَهَبَا إِلَىٰ بَيْتٍ.
dʱahabā ʾilā baytin.
"They$_2$ went to a house."

ذَهَبَ ٱلرَّجُلَانِ إِلَىٰ بَيْتٍ.
dʱahabā -rrujalāni ʾilā baytin.
"The men$_2$ went to a house."

The above verbal sentence can be rearranged to be a nounal sentence. This gives more emphasis to the subject. In this case, the verb shall follow the subject and will need a doer pronoun after it.

ٱلرَّجُلَانِ ذَهَبَا إِلَىٰ بَيْتٍ.
ʾarrujalāni dʱahabā ʾilā baytin.
"The men$_2$, they$_2$ went to a house."
= "*The men$_2$* went to a house."

If there are multiple verbs associated with the same doer in a verbal sentence, the doer noun will follow the first verb and the rest of the verbs will have doer pronouns. For example:

أَكَلَ ٱلرَّجُلَانِ وَشَرِبَا وَذَهَبَا.
ʾakala -rrajulāni waʃaribā wadʱahabā.
"The men$_2$ ate and they$_2$ drank and they$_2$ went."
= "The men$_2$ ate and drank and went."

The above verbal sentence can be rearranged to be a nounal sentence. In that case, all the verbs shall have doer pronouns. The sentence will have the same translation as above, except for an emphasis on the subject of the sentence.

ٱلرَّجُلَانِ أَكَلَا وَشَرِبَا وَذَهَبَا.
ʾarrajulāni ʾakalā waʃaribā wadʱahabā.
"The men$_2$, they$_2$ ate and they$_2$ drank and they$_2$ went."
= "*The men$_2$* ate and drank and went."

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Chapter 10.

The sound plural

> **Warning**
>
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10.1. Introduction

Arabic uses the plural for nouns in number three and higher. The formation and use of plurals in Arabic can be somewhat complicated. One of these complications is that, in using plurals, Arabic distinguishes between intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings. Intelligent beings are those living beings that are endowed with reason like humans, angels, and jinn. Non-intelligent beings include animals, inanimate objects, abstract concepts, etc.

As a further complication, there is sometimes more than one way to use plurals. In this chapter we will explain the most common usages to keep things as simple as possible.

Arabic has two categories of plurals:

1. The *sound plural:* English regularly forms the plural by adding the plural ending “s” to the end of a singular noun. For example:

Singular	Plural
book	books
house	houses
boy	boys

Singular	Plural
girl	girls

Arabic also forms some plurals by adding plural endings to to the singular noun. This kind of plural is call a *sound* plural because the singular noun is kept more or less sound (intact) when adding the plural ending.

Arabic has two types of sound plurals:

i. The *ūn* sound plural.
ii. The *āt* sound plural.

We will describe each of these in this chapter.

2. The *broken plural*: When forming this plural the singular noun is not kept intact. We will learn about this plural in the next chapter, if Allāh wills.

10.2. The *ūn* sound plural

The *ūn* sound plural is formed by adding the ending ـُونَ *-ūna* to the singular noun when it is in the u-case, and ـِينَ *-īna* when the noun is in the a-case or i-case. For convenience, we will call it the "*ūn* sound plural" instead of the "*-ūna/-īna* plural".

Here is the *ūn* sound plural of مُعَلِّم *muɛallim* "a teacher$_m$":

Case	Indefinite *ūn* plural "teachers$_m$"	Definite *ūn* plural "the teachers$_m$"
u-case	مُعَلِّمُونَ *muɛallimūna*	أَلْمُعَلِّمُونَ *ʾalmuɛallimūna*
a-case and i-case	مُعَلِّمِينَ *muɛallimīna*	أَلْمُعَلِّمِينَ *ʾalmuɛallimīna*

Note that, just like for duals, the indefinite *ūn* sound plural is not tanwīned. The only difference between the definite and indefinite *ūn* sound plural is the definite article أَلْ "the".

The duals of مُعَلِّم *muɛallim* "a teacher$_m$" are included here for comparison:

Case	Indefinite *ūn* sound plural "teachers$_{m,2}$"	Definite *ūn* sound plural "the teachers$_{m,2}$"
u-case	مُعَلِّمَانِ *muɛallimāni*	أَلْمُعَلِّمَانِ *ʾalmuɛallimāni*
a-case and i-case	مُعَلِّمَيْنِ *muɛallimayni*	أَلْمُعَلِّمَيْنِ *ʾalmuɛallimayni*

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Here are some examples of the *ūn* sound plural in sentences:

- u-case:
  ٱلْمُعَلِّمُونَ فِي ٱلْمَدْرَسَةِ.
  ʾalmuɛallimūna fi -lmadrasah
  “The teachers are in the school.”
- a-case:
  سَأَلَ ٱلْغُلَامُ مُعَلِّمِينَ عَنْ أَمْرٍ.
  saʾala -lg͡hulāmu muɛallimīna ɛan ʾamr.
  “The boy asked some teachers about a matter.”
- i-case:
  طَلَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ مِنَ ٱلْمُعَلِّمِينَ عِلْمًا.
  ṭalaba -lg͡hulāmu mina -lmuɛallimīna ɛilmā.
  “The boy sought some knowledge from the teachers.”

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10.2.1. Applicability of the *ūn* sound plural

Except for very few exceptions, the *ūn* sound plural is used only for male intelligent beings.

The few exceptions of common nouns that denote non-male intelligent beings, yet have an *ūn* sound plural include:

- عَالَم *ɛālam* “a world” forms the *ūn* plural عَالَمُونَ *ʾālamūna* “worlds”.
- أَرْض *ʾarḍ͡h* (fem.) “a land”, “an earth” forms the *ūn* plural أَرْضُونَ *ʾarḍ͡hūna* “lands”, “earths”.
- أَهْل *ʾahl* “a family” forms the *ūn* plural أَهْلُونَ *ʾahlūna* “families”.

10.3. The *āt* sound plural

The *āt* sound plural is formed by adding the ending ات *āt* to the indefinite singular noun.

Here is the *āt* sound plural of حَيَوَان *ḥayawān* “an animal”:

Case	Indefinite *ūn* plural “animals”	Definite *ūn* plural “the animals”
u-case	حَيَوَانَاتٌ *ḥayawānātun*	أَلْحَيَوَانَاتُ *ʾalḥayawānātu*
a-case and i-case	حَيَوَانَاتٍ *ḥayawānātin*	أَلْحَيَوَانَاتِ *ʾalḥayawānāti*

Note that:

- Unlike the *ūn* sound plural, the *āt* sound plural is tanwīned when indefinite. Also, just like for singular nouns, the final vowel on the plural ending ات *āt* indicates the case of the plural.
- The *āt* sound plural does not take the fat·ḥah ◌َ and the tanwīned fat·ḥah ◌ً. Instead the kasrah ◌ِ and the tanwīned kasrah ◌ٍ are used to indicate both the a-case and the i-case.

Case	the animal	the animals
u-case	أَلْحَيَوَانُ *ʾalḥayawānu*	أَلْحَيَوَانَاتُ *ʾalḥayawānātu*
a-case	أَلْحَيَوَانَ *ʾalḥayawāna*	أَلْحَيَوَانَاتِ *ʾalḥayawānāti*
i-case	أَلْحَيَوَانِ *ʾalḥayawāni*	أَلْحَيَوَانَاتِ *ʾalḥayawānāti*

10.3.1. Nouns ending in ة

If a noun ends with a ة, then it is removed before appending the *āt* sound plural ending. Here, for example, is the *āt* sound plural of مُعَلِّمَة *muɛallimah* "a teacher$_f$":

Case	Indefinite *ūn* plural "teachers$_f$"	Definite *ūn* plural "the teachers$_f$"
u-case	مُعَلِّمَاتٌ *muɛallimātun*	أَلْمُعَلِّمَاتُ *ʾalmuɛallimātu*
a-case and i-case	مُعَلِّمَاتٍ *muɛallimātin*	أَلْمُعَلِّمَاتِ *ʾalmuɛallimāti*

Here are some examples of the *āt* sound plural in sentences:

- u-case:
  فِي ٱلْمَدْرَسَةِ مُعَلِّمَاتٌ .
  fi -lmadrasati muɛallimāt.
  "In the school are teachers."
- a-case:
  نَصَرَ ٱللَّـٰهُ ٱلْمُسْلِمِينَ.
  naṣara -llāhu -lmuslimīn.
  "Allāh aided the Muslims.
- i-case:
  نَظَرَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَى ٱلْحَيَوَانَاتِ.
  naḏ̱hara -lg̱hulāmu ʾila -lḥayawānāt.
  "The boy looked at the animals."

There are some nouns that end with an alif before the ة, like فَتَاة *fatāh* "a young woman". We will learn how to pluralize these nouns later, if Allāh wills.

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10.3.2. Nouns ending with اء

Consistent with what we learned for duals in section @ref(duals-of-extrinsic-alif-mamduda), if a noun ends with the feminine marker اء which is extrinsic to the word's root then the ء shall be replaced with a و when forming the *āt* sound plural. Example:

Root	Singular	*āt* sound plural
صحر	[2]صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrā*[2] "a desert"	صَحْرَاوَات *ṣaḥrāwāt*

10.3.3. Nouns ending with ىٰ

Consistent with what we learned for duals in section @ref(duals-of-extrinsic-alif-maqsura), If a noun ends with ىٰ which is extrinsic to the word's root then the ىٰ shall be changed to a يَ when when forming the *āt* sound plural. Examples:

Root	Singular	*āt* sound plural
ذكر	[2]ذِكْرَىٰ *ḏ͟hikrā*[2] "a remembrance"	ذِكْرَيَات *ḏ͟hikrayāt*

10.3.4. Common nouns of the patterns فُعْلَة/فُعْل, فِعْلَة/فِعْل, and فَعْلَة/فَعْل

Common nouns of the patterns فَعْلَة/فَعْل, فِعْلَة/فِعْل, and فُعْلَة/فُعْل are treated specially when forming their *āt* sound plural.

If a common noun is of these patterns and the middle root letter is not و or ي, and the middle and final root letters are not the same, then the word is modified internally when forming the *āt* sound plural.

There are two separate rules to consider:

1. If a common noun is of the pattern فَعْل *faʿl* or فَعْلَة *faʿlah*, then the sukūn on the middle letter shall be converted to an fat·ḥah ◌َ when forming the *āt* sound plural. For example:
    - نَحْلَة *naḥlah* "a bee" becomes نَحَلَات *naḥalāt* "bees", not × نَحْلَات *naḥlāt*.
    - ضَرْبَة *ḍ͟harbah* "a strike" becomes ضَرَبَات *ḍ͟harabāt* "strikes", not × ضَرْبَات *ḍ͟harbāt*.
    - صَفْحَة *ṣafḥah* "a page" becomes صَفَحَات *ṣafaḥāt* "pages", not × صَفْحَات *ṣafḥāt*.

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If the middle root letter is و or ي, or the middle and final root letters are the same then this modification is not done. For example,

- جَوْزَة *jawzah* "a walnut" becomes جَوْزَات *jawzāt*.
- حَجَّة *ḥajjah* "a pilgrimage" becomes حَجَّات *ḥajjāt*.

2. If a common noun is of the pattern فِعْل *fiɛl*, فِعْلَة *fiɛlah*, فُعْل *fuɛl*, or فُعْلَة *fuɛlah* then the sukūn on the middle letter can, optionally, either:

   i. be retained,
   ii. be converted to an fat·ḥah, or
   iii. be converted to the vowel mark on the first letter.

   For example:

   - ظُلْمَة *ḏ͡ẖulmah* "a darkness" can become, optionally, either ظُلْمَات *ḏ͡ẖulmāt* or ظُلَمَات *ḏ͡ẖulamāt*, or ظُلُمَات *ḏ͡ẖulumāt* "darknesses".
   - كِسْرَة *kisrah* "a piece" can become, optionally, either كِسْرَات *kisrāt* or كِسَرَات *kisarāt*, or كِسِرَات *kisirāt* "pieces".

Note that this rule of changing the vowel mark is only true for common nouns. Adjectival nouns on these patterns will retain the sukūn when forming the *āt* sound plural. So صَعْب *ṣaɛb* and صَعْبَة *ṣaɛbah* "a difficult one" become only صَعْبَات *ṣaɛbāt*, not × صَعَبَات *ṣaɛabāt*.

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10.3.5. Applicability of the *āt* sound plural

We had mentioned that the *ūn* sound plural is used, with very few exceptions, only for male intelligent beings. Conversely, the *āt* is used for both female intelligent beings, and for non-intelligent beings (both masculine and feminine) like animals, inanimate objects, and abstract concepts. Rarely, it is also used for male intelligent beings.

10.4. Conditions for forming the sound plural

Many times, a noun can form both an *ūn* sound plural and an *āt* sound plural. However, there are many nouns that can form only one of the two sound plurals. And many nouns don't form either sound plural; they only form broken plurals. (We will learn about broken plurals in the next chapter, if Allāh wills.) There are even nouns that can form both sound and broken plurals.

Here we will learn some of the conditions which a noun needs to satisfy in order for it to form the sound plurals.

10.4.1. Conditions for the *ūn* sound plural

The *ūn* sound plural is used, with very few exceptions, only for nouns that denote male intelligent beings. These guidelines will help you determine which nouns form the *ūn* sound plural.

We will treat common nouns and adjectival nouns separately.

10.4.1.1. Common nouns

With very few exceptions (some of which we saw in section @ref(applicability-of-the-un-sound-plural)), common nouns denoting male intelligent beings are disqualified from forming the *ūn* sound plural if their feminine counterpart is not formed by adding a ة to the masculine noun. So, غُلَام *gh͡ulām* "a boy" is disqualified from forming a *ūn* sound plural because its feminine counterpart is جَارِيَة *jāriyah* "a girl", not × غُلَامَة *gh͡ulāmah*.

Even if a common noun denotes a male intelligent being and its female counterpart is formed by adding a ة, further conditions are imposed that can restrict its having a *ūn* sound plural. We will explain these restrictions below:

We learned in section @ref(related-nouns-for-male-and-female-animate-beings) that, in terms of their meaning, nouns that denote animate beings are of two kinds:

i. Nouns that have a primitive meaning. That is, their meaning is not derived from a verbal or adjectival meaning. Examples (for male intelligent beings whose feminine is formed by adding ة to the masculine noun):

Arabic word	Definition
اِبْن *ʾibn*	a son
طِفْل *ṭifl*	a child
إِنْسَان *ʾinsān*	a human being
حُرّ *ḥurr*	a free man

Such nouns, in general, won't be expected to form *ūn* sound plurals, unless the *ūn* sound plural is explicitly allowed in their dictionary definition.

ii. Nouns that have a meaning that is derived from a verbal or adjectival meaning. Examples (for male intelligent beings whose feminine is formed by adding ة to the masculine noun):

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Word	Definition	*ūn* plural
مُعَلِّم	a teacher$_{m}$	مُعَلِّمُونَ
مُسْلِم	a Muslim$_{m}$ (one who submits)	مُسْلِمُونَ
كَافِر	a disbeliever$_{m}$	كَافِرُونَ
لَاعِب	a player$_{m}$	لَاعِبُونَ

Such nouns, in general, can be expected to form *ūn* sound plurals.

The above defintion of primitve and derived nouns, as we have explained it, is somewhat imprecise. For example, the word حُرّ *ḥurr* (masc.) "a free man" seems to have a meaning that is derived from the adjective "free" and it forms its feminine by adding ة to it thus: حُرَّة *ḥurrah* (fem.) "a free woman". Yet it is considered a primitve noun, and thus does not form an *ūn* sound plural.

Once you become more familiar with Arabic word patterns, distinguishing between primitive and derived nouns will become clearer, if Allāh wills.

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10.4.1.2. Adjectival nouns

If an adjectival noun forms its feminine by adding the feminine marker ة to the masculine noun, then we may assume that it forms the *ūn* sound plural.

Most adjectival nouns satisfy this condition. For example, consider the adjectival noun:

- كَبِير *kabīr* (masc.) "a big one"

It forms its feminine by adding a ة to the masculine noun, thus:

- كَبِيرَة *kabīrah* (fem.) "a big one"

The above condition is satisfied; therefore, كَبِير *kabīr* (masc.) "a big one" forms the *ūn* sound plural كَبِيرُونَ *kabīrūna* "big ones".

By the way, it is only the masculine adjectival noun that will form the *ūn* sound plural. Nouns with a ة are not allowed to form the *ūn* sound plural.

We have come across two patterns on adjectival nouns that don't form their feminine by adding ة to masculine noun. These are:

i. ^{2}فَعْلَان *faʿlān*^{2}, whose feminine is on the pattern ^{2}فَعْلَىٰ *faʿlā*^{2}. Example: ^{2}غَضْبَان *ġ͡haḍ͡hbān*^{2} (masc.) "very angry" whose feminine is ^{2}غَضْبَىٰ *ġ͡haḍ͡hbā*^{2}.
ii. ^{2}أَفْعَل *ʾafʿal*^{2}, whose feminine is on the pattern ^{2}فَعْلَاء *faʿlāʾ*^{2}. Example: ^{2}أَحْمَر *ʾaḥmar*^{2} (masc.) "red", whose feminine is ^{2}حَمْرَاء *ḥamrāʾ*^{2}.

Because the above two patterns don't form their feminine by adding ة to the masculine noun, therefore the masculine nouns don't form the *ūn* sound plural. We will see in chapter @broken_plurals, if Allāh wills, that they form broken plurals instead.

10.4.2. Conditions for the *āt* sound plural

Just like the *ūn* plural, there are conditions that should be fulfilled in order for a noun to form an *āt* plural. We provide the following guidelines to help you determine if a noun can form an *āt* plural.

10.4.2.1. Nouns that end with a feminine marker

Generally, all nouns that end with a feminine marker like ة, اء, and ى are able to form an *āt* plural. Examples are:

Singular	*āt* sound plural
حَسَنَة *ḥasanah adj.* "a good one$_f$"	حَسَنَات *ḥasanāt*
حَسَنَة *ḥasanah* (common noun) "a good deed"	حَسَنَات *ḥasanāt*
صَدِيقَة *ṣadīqah* "a friend$_f$"	صَدِيقَات *ṣadīqāt*
²صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrā'*² "a desert"	صَحْرَاوَات *ṣaḥrāwāt*
²ذِكْرَىٰ *d͡hikrā*² "a remembrance"	ذِكْرَيَات *d͡hikrayāt*

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The following are exceptions to this general rule, and don't form *āt* sound plurals:

- Adjectival nouns of the pattern ²فَعْلَاء which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern ²أَفْعَل. For example, حَمْرَاء *ḥamrā'* "red$_f$".
- Adjectival nouns of the pattern ²فَعْلَىٰ which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern ²فَعْلَان. For example, غَضْبَىٰ *ġ͡haḍ͡hbā* "very angry$_f$".
- The following exceptional nouns:
  - أُمَّة *'ummah* "a nation"
  - أَمَة *'amah* "a female slave"
  - شَفَة *s͡hafah* "a lip"

  There are a few more such nouns, some of which we will introduce later.

All these exceptional nouns form broken plurals instead of the *āt* sound plural.

10.4.2.2. Nouns that don't end with a feminine marker

Common nouns

Common nouns that don't end with a feminine marker will form the *āt* plural only if they don't have a broken plural listed in the dictionary. Furthermore, it is preferred if the noun have five or more letters.

- حَيَوَان *ḥayawān* "an animal" forms the *āt* plural حَيَوَانَات *ḥayawānāt* "animals".
- حَمَّام *ḥammām* forms the *āt* plural حَمَّامَات *ḥammāmāt* "bathrooms". (The doubled م counts as two letters.)

Masculine adjectival nouns

Masculine adjectival nouns are permitted to form an *āt* sound plural, but only when they are applied to non-intelligent beings.

For example, if the masculine adjectival noun صَعْب *ṣaɛb* "a difficult one" is applied to "books", which is the plural of the masculine noun كِتَاب *kitāb* "a book", then the masculine adjectival noun صَعْب *ṣaɛb* is permitted to form the *āt* plural صَعْبَات *ṣaɛbāt* "difficult ones".

By the way, note that both the masculine adjectival noun صَعْب *ṣaɛb*, and its feminine صَعْبَة *ṣaɛbah* form the same *āt* sound plural صَعْبَات *ṣaɛbāt*.

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10.5. Detached plural pronouns

We have already learned the detached pronouns for singular and dual nouns. They are repeated here:

Participant	Detached pronoun
Absentee sing. masc.	هُوَ *huwa* "he"
Absentee sing. fem.	هِيَ *hiya* "she"
Absentee dual	هُمَا *humā* "they$_2$"
Addressee sing. masc.	أَنْتَ *ʾanta* "you$_{1,m}$"
Addressee sing. fem.	أَنْتِ *ʾanti* "you$_{1,f}$"
Addressee dual	أَنْتُمَا *ʾantumā* "you$_2$"
Speaker sing.	أَنَا *ʾana* "I"
Speaker dual	–

Now we will learn the detached pronouns for the plural participants:

Participant	Detached pronoun
Absentee pl. masc.	هُمْ *hum* “they$_{3,m}$”
Absentee pl. fem.	هُنَّ *hunna* “they$_{3,f}$”
Addressee pl. masc.	أَنْتُمْ *ʾantum* “you$_{3,m}$”
Addressee pl. fem.	أَنْتُنَّ *ʾantunna* “you$_{3,f}$”
Speaker pl.	نَحْنُ *naḥnu* “we”

Note that the plural detached pronoun for the speaker participant نَحْنُ *naḥnu* “we” are the same for both genders.

Also, remember that there is no detached pronoun for the dual speaker-participant. So, if the speaker-pariticipant consists of two individuals then we will use the plural pronoun.

Here are some examples of their use:

هُمْ مُسْلِمُونَ.
hum muslimūn.
“They$_{3,m}$ are men$_3$.”

هُنَّ مُعَلِّمَاتٍ.
hum muɛallimaāt.
“They$_{3,f}$ are teachers$_f$.”

أَنْتُمْ لَاعِبُونَ.
ʾantum lāɛibūn.
“You$_{3,m}$ are players$_{3,m}$.”

أَنْتُنَّ صَدِيقَاتٍ.
ʾantunna ṣadīqāt.
“You$_{3,f}$ are friends$_{3,f}$.”

نَحْنُ رَجُلَانِ فَقِيرَانِ.
naḥnu rajulāni faqīrān.
“We$_{2,m}$ are poor men$_2$.” (Note the plural pronoun subject with a dual noun in the info.)

نَحْنُ مُسْلِمَاتٍ.
naḥnu muslimāt.
“We$_{3,f}$ are Muslims$_{3,f}$.”

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10.6. Attached plural pronouns

We have also already learned the attached pronouns for the singular and dual participants. They too are repeated here:

Participant	Attached pronoun
Absentee sing. masc.	هُ *-hu* “him”
Absentee sing. fem.	هَا *-hā* “her”
Absentee dual	هُمَا *-humā* “them$_{2}$”
Addressee sing. masc.	كَ *-ka* “you$_{m,1}$”
Addressee sing. fem.	كِ *-ki* “you$_{f,1}$”
Addressee dual	كُمَا *-kumā* “you$_{2}$”
Speaker sing.	ي “me”
Speaker dual	–

Now we will learn the attached pronouns for the plural participant:

Participant	Attached pronoun
Absentee pl. masc.	هُمْ *-hum* “them$_{3,m}$
Absentee pl. fem.	هُنَّ *-hunna* “them$_{3,f}$
Addressee pl. masc.	كُمْ *-kum* “you$_{3,m}$”
Addressee pl. fem.	كُنَّ *-kunna* “you$_{3,f}$”
Speaker pl	نَا *-nā* “us”

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Note the following points about them:

- The plural absentee-participant detached and attached pronouns (“they$_{3,m}$”/“them$_{3,m}$”) are the same:
  - masculine: هُمْ *-hum*.
  - feminine: هُنَّ *-hunna*.
- Just like هُ *hu* “him” and هُمَا *-humā* “them$_{2}$”, the plural absentee-participant attached pronouns هُمْ *-hum* “them$_{3,m}$” and هُنَّ *-hunna* “them$_{3,f}$” become هِمَا *-himā* and هِنَّ *-hinna* respectively, when preceded by the vowels ِ *-i*, ِي *-ī*, or the semi-vowel ْيَ *-ay*. Examples:
  - بِهِمْ *bihimā* “with them$_{3,m}$”
  - فِيهِنَّ *fīhinna* “in them$_{3,f}$”
  - إِلَيْهِمْ *ʾilayhim* “to them$_{3,m}$”
- The final sukūn on the مْ in the masculine plural pronouns (هُمْ *hum*, أَنْتُمْ *ʾantum*, and كُمْ *-kum*) becomes a ḏẖammah (هُمُ *humu*, أَنْتُمُ *ʾantumu*, andكُمُ *-kumu* respectively) when followed by a connecting hamzah. Examples:
  - هُمُ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُونَ.
    humu -lmuʿallimūn.
    “They$_{\text{pl. masc.}}$ are the (male) teachers.”

  - ذَهَبَ إِلَيْكُمُ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
    dʱahaba ʾilaykumu -rrajul.
    "The man went to you$_{3,m}$."
  - أَنْتُمُ ٱلْمُسْلِمُونَ.
    ʾantumu -lmuslimūn. "You$_{3,m}$ are the Muslims$_{3,m}$."

- When the speaker plural attached pronoun نَا is attached to a word that ends with a نْ with a sukūn, there is only one ن written and it is doubled with a shaddah ّ on it. So we get:
  - مِنْ + نَا = مِنَّا *minnā*
  - عَنْ + نَا = عَنَّا *ɛannā*
  - لَدُنْ + نَا = لَدُنَّا *ladunnā*
- The preposition لِ *li* "for" becomes لَ *la* when followed by the plural attached pronouns:
  - لَهُمْ *lahum* "for them$_{3,m}$"
  - لَهُنَّ *lahunna* "for them$_{3,f}$"
  - لَكُمْ *lakum* "for you$_{3,m}$"
  - لَكُنَّ *lakunna* "for you$_{3,f}$"
  - لَنَا *lanā* "for us"

10.6.1. Plural direct object pronouns

The plural attached pronouns that we have just learned are also used as direct object pronouns. Examples:

سَأَلَهُمُ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
saʾalahumu -rrajul.
"The man asked them$_{3,m}$."

سَأَلْتُكُمْ.
saʾaltukum
"I asked you$_{3,m}$."

سَأَلَتْكُنَّ.
saʾalatkunn.
"She asked you$_{3,f}$."

سَأَلَانَا.
saʾalānā.
"They$_{2,m}$ asked us."

سَأَلَتَاهُ.
saʾalatāh.
"They$_{3,m}$ asked him."

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10.7. Verbs with plural doers

10.7.1. Plural nouns for the doer

We learned that the SC verb for a masculine doer is on the pattern فَعَلَ. And when the doer is feminine, the ت of femininity is attached to the verb thus: فَعَلَتْ. We have used these verbs with singular and dual doer nouns. The doer noun always comes after the verb and shall be in the u-case. Examples:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ.
dh͡hahaba -lgh͡ulāmu.
"The boy went."

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ.
dh͡hahabat jāriyatun
"A girl went."

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامَانِ.
dh͡hahaba -lgh͡ulāmāni.
"The boys$_{2}$ went."

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ.
dh͡hahabat jāriyatāni.
"Two girls went."

These same verbs are used when the doer noun is a plural. Examples:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُونَ.
dh͡hahaba -lmuɛallimūn.
"The teacherm$_{3,m}$ went."

ذَهَبَتْ مُعَلِّمَاتٌ.
dh͡hahabat muɛallimāt.
"Teachers$_{3,f}$ went."

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10.7.2. Plural pronouns for the doer

We have already learned the singular and dual doer pronouns. They are repeated here:

Participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Absentee sing. masc.	invisible	"he"	فَعَلَ *faɛala*
Absentee sing. fem.	invisible	"she"	فَعَلَتْ *faɛalat*

Participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Absentee dual	ا◌َ *-ā*	"them$_2$"	masc.: فَعَلَا *faʿalā*, fem: فَعَلَتَا *faʿalatā*
Addressee sing. masc.	تَ *-ta*	"you$_{m,2}$"	فَعَلْتَ *faʿalta*
Addressee sing. fem.	تِ *-ti*	"you$_{f,2}$"	فَعَلْتِ *faʿalti*
Addressee dual	تُمَا *-tumā*	"you$_2$"	فَعَلْتُمَا *faʿaltumā*
Speaker sing.	تُ *-tu*	"I"	فَعَلْتُ *faʿaltu*
Speaker dual	–	"us$_2$"	–

Now we will learn the plural doer pronouns:

plural participant	Doer pronoun	Meaning	Doer pronoun with verb
Absentee pl. masc.	و	"they$_{3,m}$"	فَعَلُوا *faʿalū*
Absentee pl. fem.	نَ *-na*	"they$_{3,f}$"	فَعَلْنَ *faʿalna*
Addressee pl. masc.	تُمْ *-tum*	"you$_{m,3}$"	فَعَلْتُمْ *faʿaltum*
Addressee pl. fem.	تُنَّ *-tunna*	"you$_{f,3}$"	فَعَلْتُنَّ *faʿaltunna*
Speaker pl.	نَا *-nā*	"we"	فَعَلْنَا *faʿalnā*

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Note the following regarding the plural doer pronouns:

- The تْ of femininity does not attach to the absentee plural feminine doer pronoun نَ *-na* "they$_{3,f}$" فَعَلْنَ. Example:
  - ذَهَبْنَ *dh͡hahabna* "they$_{3,f}$ went"

  This is different from the behavior of the absentee dual doer pronoun ا◌َ *-ā* "them$_{2,f}$" which, for a feminine doer, does attach to the تْ of femininity. Example:
  - ذَهَبَتَا *dh͡hahabatā* "they$_{2,f}$ went"
- The final sukūn on the مْ in the masculine plural doer pronoun تُمْ *-tum* becomes a ḍ͡hammah تُمُ *-tumu* when followed by a connecting hamzah. Examples:

– أَكَلْتُمْ خُبْزًا.
ʾakaltum k͡hubzā.
"You$_{3,m}$ ate some bread."
– أَكَلْتُمُ ٱلْخُبْزَ.
ʾakaltumu -lk͡hubz.
"You$_{3,m}$ ate the bread."

- The absentee plural masculine verb doer pronoun "they$_{3,m}$" و *ū* is written with a silent alif after it which is written only and not pronounced. This alif is dropped when a direct object pronoun is attached. For example:

– ضَرَبُوا ٱلرَّجُلَ.
ḍ͡harabu -rrajul.
"They$_{3,m}$ hit the man.
– ضَرَبُوهُ.
ḍ͡harabūh.
"They$_{3,m}$ hit him."

- The plural masculine verb doer pronoun for the addressed person "you$_{3,m}$" تُمْ *-tum* becomes تُمُو *tumū* when a direct object pronoun is attached. For example:

– ضَرَبْتُمُ ٱلرَّجُلَ.
ḍ͡harabtumu -rrajul.
"You$_{3,m}$ hit the man."
– ضَرَبْتُمُوهُ.
ḍ͡harabtumūh.
"You$_{\text{pl. masc.}}$ hit him."

- The plural speaking participant doer pronoun نَا *-nā* is the same as the plural speaking participant attached pronoun نَا *-nā*. But you can tell them apart because the doer pronoun, when attached to the verb, causes the final letter of the verb to have a sukūn. Consider the following two sentences:

سَأَلْنَا.
saʾalnā.
"We asked."

سَأَلَنَا.
saʾalanā.
"He asked us."

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10.7.3. Sentence word order with plural doers

As we've mentioned, the doer, whether a noun or a pronoun, always comes after the verb. Here are a couple of examples of verbal sentences with plural doers:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُونَ إِلَىٰ مَدْرَسَةٍ.

dh͡ahaba -lmuɛallimūna ʾilā madrasah.

"The teachers$_{3,m}$ went to a school."

ذَهَبُوا إِلَىٰ مَدْرَسَةٍ.

dh͡ahabā ʾilā madrasah.

"They$_{3,m}$ went to a school."

لَعِبَتِ ٱلصَّدِيقَاتُ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ.

laɛibati -ṣṣadīqātu fi -lbayt.

"The friends$_{3,f}$ played in the house."

لَعِبْنَ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ.

laɛibna fi -lbayt.

"They$_{3,f}$ played in the house."

The above verbal sentences with plural doers can be rearranged to be a nounal sentences. This gives more emphasis to the subject. In this case, the verb shall follow the subject and will need a doer pronoun after it.

ٱلْمُعَلِّمُونَ ذَهَبُوا إِلَىٰ مَدْرَسَةٍ.

ʾalmuɛallimūna dh͡ahabū ʾilā madrasah.

"The teachers$_{3,m}$, they$_{3,m}$ went to a school." = "*The teachers$_{3,m}$* went to a school."

ٱلصَّدِيقَاتُ لَعِبْنَ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ.

ʾaṣṣadīqātu laɛibna fi -lbayt.

"The friends$_{3,f}$, they$_{3,f}$ played in the house." = "*The friends$_{3,f}$* played in the house."

If there are multiple verbs associated with the same doer in a verbal sentence, the doer noun will follow the first verb and the rest of the verbs will have doer pronouns. For example:

أَكَلَ ٱللَّاعِبُونَ وَشَرِبُوا وَذَهَبُوا.

ʾakala -llāɛibūna wash͡aribū wadh͡ahabū.

"The players$_{3,m}$ ate and they$_{3,m}$ drank and they$_{3,m}$ went."
= "The players$_{3,m}$ ate and drank and went."

The above verbal sentence can be rearranged to be a nounal sentence. In that case, all the verbs shall have doer pronouns. The sentence will have the same translation as above, except for an emphasis on the subject of the sentence.

ٱللَّاعِبُونَ أَكَلُوا وَشَرِبُوا وَذَهَبُوا.

ʾallāɛibūna ʾakalū wash͡aribū wadh͡ahabū.

"The players$_{3,m}$, they$_{3,m}$ ate and they$_{3,m}$ drank and they$_{3,m}$ went."
= "*The players$_{3,m}$* ate and drank and went."

Similarly,

أَكَلَتِ ٱللَّاعِبَاتُ وَشَرِبْنَ وَذَهَبْنَ.

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ʾakalati -llāɛibātu was͡haribna wad͡hahabn.
“The players$_{3,f}$ ate and they$_{3,f}$ drank and they$_{3,f}$ went.”
and
أَللَّاعِبَاتُ أَكَلْنَ وَشَرِبْنَ وَذَهَبْنَ.
ʾallāɛibātu ʾakalna was͡haribna wad͡hahabn.
“The players$_{3,f}$, they$_{3,f}$ ate and they$_{3,f}$ drank and they$_{3,f}$ went.”
= “*The players$_{3,f}$* ate and drank and went.”

10.7.4. Verbs with multiple doers mentioned individually

If there are multiple doers of a verb, and each is mentioned individually, then there is often more than one way to handle them. Here we will give the more common usage.

If the verb is followed by multiple doers, only the first is the true doer with respect to modifying the verb according to its gender and number. Examples:
ذَهَبَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ وَٱلْغُلَامُ.
d͡hahabati -lʾummu wa-lg͡hulāmu.
“The mother and the boy went.”
ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ وَٱلْأُمُّ .
d͡hahaba -lg͡hulāmu wa -lʾummu.
“The boy and the mother went.”

If the doers consist of different persons (speaking person, addressed person, and absent person), then they are placed in order of strength: The speaking person is stronger than the addressed person, who is stronger than the absent person. The verb doer pronoun of the first (true) doer is then used. Example:
ذَهَبْتُ أَنَا وَأَنْتَ وَهُوَ.
d͡hahabtu ʾana waʾanta wahuwa.
“I, you, and he went.”

Note how the speaking person detached pronoun أَنَا *ʾana* is used in addition to the doer pronoun تُ *-tu* in order to add وَ *wa* “and” to it.

If the sentence is a nounal sentence, and the verb is in the info, then the doer pronoun corresponding to the number of the subject is used. Examples:
أَنْتَ وَهُوَ ذَهَبْتُمَا.
ʾanta wahuwa d͡hahabtumā.
“You$_{1,m}$ and he, you$_{2}$ went.”
أَنَا وَمُحَمَّدٌ ذَهَبْنَا.
ʾana wamuḥammadun d͡hahabnā.
“I and Muḥammad, we went.”

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ٱلْأُمُّ وَٱلْجَارِيَةُ ذَهَبَتَا.
ʾalʾummu wa-ljāriyatu d͡hahabatā.
“The mother and the girl went.”
ٱلْأُمُّ وَٱلْجَارِيَتَانِ ذَهَبْنَ.
ʾalʾummu wa-ljāriyatāni d͡hahabna.
“The mother and the two girls, they$_{3,f}$ went.”

If the doers consist of both male and female persons, then the verb will have the masculine doer prenoun corresponding to the number of the doers. Example:

ٱلْأُمُّ وَٱلْجَارِيَةُ وَٱلْغُلَامُ ذَهَبُوا.
ʾalʾummu wa-ljāriyatu wa-lg͡hulāmu d͡hahabū.
“The mother, the girl, and the boy, they$_{3,m}$ went.”

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Chapter 11.

The broken plural

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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11.1. Introduction

In the previous chapter we introduced sound plurals, which are formed by appending suffixes to the singular noun. The singular noun in these plurals remains, more or less, intact when forming these plurals. The sound plurals correspond to English regular plurals which are formed by appending “s” to the singular noun. However, English has some plurals that are not formed by adding the plural ending “s”. Here are some examples,

Singular	Plural
man	men
woman	women
child	children
mouse	mice

In these plurals, the singular noun is altered to form the plural.

Arabic also forms such plurals. They are called *broken* plurals because the singular noun is not kept intact but its structure is, in most cases, altered, or “broken-up” when forming the plural.

While English only forms such plurals for a handful of nouns, Arabic forms broken plurals for many nouns.

11.2. Review of word patterns and semi-flexible nouns

Before we begin our discussion about broken plurals, we will do a quick review of word patterns and semi-flexible nouns. This will, if Allāh wills, facilitate the explanation of broken plurals.

Most words in Arabic are formed from three letter roots. We use the paradigm root فعل to show word patterns. For example, the noun رَجُل *rajul* "a man" is formed from the root رجل on the pattern فَعُل *faɛul*.

Most nouns in Arabic are *fully-flexible*. This means that, when indefinite, they are tanwīned and the indefinite i-case is shown by a tanwīned kasrah ٍ at the end of the noun. For example, رَجُل *rajul* "a man" and بَيْت *bayt* "a house" are fully-flexible nouns. So, you can see, below, that they are tanwīned, and the indefinite i-case is indicated by a tanwīned kasrah ٍ:

ذَهَبَ رَجُلٌ إِلَىٰ بَيْتٍ.
dh͡hahaba rajulun ʾilā bayt.
"A man went to a house."

Some nouns are *semi-flexible*. This means that they are not tanwīned, and also, the indefinite i-case is indicated by an fatḥah َ. Examples of such nouns are:

- [2]غَضْبَىٰ *gh͡haḍ͡hbā*[2] *adj.* (fem.) "a very angry one$_f$" from the root غضب
- [2]صَحْرَاء *ṣaḥrāʾ*[2] (fem.) "a desert$_f$" from the root صحر

ذَهَبَتْ جَارِيَةٌ غَضْبَىٰ إِلَىٰ صَحْرَاءَ.
dh͡hahabat jāriyatun gh͡haḍ͡hbā ʾilā ṣaḥrāʾ.
"A very angry girl went to a desert."

When definite, semi-flexible nouns are identical to fully-flexible nouns:

ذَهَبَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ ٱلْغَضْبَىٰ إِلَى ٱلصَّحْرَاءِ.
dh͡hahabati -ljāriyatu -lgh͡haḍ͡hbā ʾila -ṣṣaḥrāʾ.
"The very angry girl went to the desert."

All nouns that have the endings اء and ىٰ, that are extrinsic to the word's root, are semi-flexible. اء and ىٰ are also feminine markers for singular nouns, just like ة. (Except that ة does not, in general, make a noun semi-flexible.)

It is important to note that ة, اء, and ىٰ are only feminine markers for singular nouns. We will see that they are also endings for broken plural nouns and, in that case, they are not feminine markers. However, اء and ىٰ, when endings for broken

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plural nouns, will make the broken plural nouns semi-flexible, just as they do for singular nouns.

Nouns that are of the patterns فَفَافِف and فَفَافِيف are also semi-flexible nouns. Here each letter ف could be any letter of the alphabet. These are patterns for broken plurals, as we will see very soon. We had mentioned this in section @ref(fafafif-diptote).

This concludes our short review of word patterns and semi-flexible nouns. We will use these concepts in our discussion of broken plurals.

11.3. Patterns of the broken plural

Broken plurals occur in specific patterns, which we will show using the paradigm فعل for three-letter roots. Ararbic also has (comparatively fewer) four-letter roots and we will show patterns for broken plurals of four-letter roots using the paradigm root فعلل. We will also use the letter ف, when needed, to indicate any letter of the alphabet.

We now give all but the rarest broken plural patterns below.

1. فُعَل *fuɛal*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صُورَة	صُوَر	a picture	دَوْلَة	دُوَل	a dynasty/state
أُمَّة	أُمَم	a nation	رُكْبَة	رُكَب	a knee

2. فُعْل *fuɛl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَحْمَر[2]	حُمْر	red_m	أَعْمَىٰ[2]	عُمْي	$blind_m$
حَمْرَاء[2]	حُمْر	red_f	عَمْيَاء[2]	عُمْي	$blind_f$
أَحْوَر[2]	حُور	a beautiful eyed one_m	أَصَمّ[2]	صُمّ	$deaf_m$
حَوْرَاء[2]	حُور	a beautiful eyed one_f	صَمّاء[2]	صُمّ	$deaf_f$
أَسْوَد[2]	سُود	$black_m$	أَبْكَم[2]	بُكْم	$mute_m$

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Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
سَوْدَاء[2]	سُود	black$_f$	بَكْمَاء[2]	بُكْم	mute$_f$
أَبْيَض[2]	بِيض	white$_m$	نَاقَة	نُوق	a camel$_f$
بَيْضَاء[2]	بِيض	white$_f$			

3. فُعُل *fuɛul*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
كِتَاب	كُتُب	a book	رَسُول	رُسُل	a messenger
جِدَار	جُدُر	a wall	سَفِينَة	سُفُن	a ship

4. فِعَل *fiɛal*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
قِطْعَة	قِطَع	a piece	سِيرَة	سِيَر	a course of life
هِرَّة	هِرَر	a cat$_f$			

5. فِعَال *fiɛāl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
رَجُل	رِجَال	a man	حَسَن	حِسَان	*adj.* a good one$_m$
اِمْرَأَة	نِسَاء	a woman	حَسَنَة	حِسَان	*adj.* a good one$_f$
أُنْثَىٰ[2]	إِنَاث	a female	صَعْب	صِعَاب	*adj.* a difficult one$_m$
عَبْد	عِبَاد	a slave$_m$	صَعْبَة	صِعَاب	*adj.* a difficult one$_f$
أَمَة	إِمَاء	a slave$_f$	صَغِير	صِغَار	*adj.* a small one$_m$

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Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
جَبَل	جِبَال	a mountain	صَغِيرَة	صِغَار	*adj.* a small one$_{f}$
ثَوب	ثِيَاب	a garment	كَبِير	كِبَار	*adj.* a big one$_{m}$
رِيح	رِيَاح	a wind	كَبِيرَة	كِبَار	*adj.* a big one$_{f}$
مَرَّة	مِرَار	an occasion	ضَعِيف	ضِعَاف	*adj.* a weak one$_{m}$
بَحْر	بِحَار	a sea	ضَعِيفَة	ضِعَاف	*adj.* a weak one$_{f}$
عَمُود	عِمَاد	a pillar	كَرِيم	كِرَام	*adj.* a generous one$_{m}$
رَوْضَة	رِيَاض	a garden	غَضْبَان[2]	غِضَاب	*adj.* a very angry$_{m}$
رُمْح	رِمَاح	a spear	غَضْبَىٰ[2]	غِضَاب	*adj.* a very angry$_{f}$

6. فُعُول *fuʕūl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَمْر	أُمُور	a matter	جَيْش	جُيُوش	an army
بَيْت	بُيُوت	a house	قَلْب	قُلُوب	a heart
حَقّ	حُقُوق	a truth, a right	رَأْس	رُؤُوس	a head
مَلِك	مُلُوك	a king	شَهْر	شُهُور	a month
سَيْف	سُيُوف	a sword	نَفْس	نُفُوس	a self
شَيْخ	شُيُوخ	an old man	عَيْن	عُيُون	a (water) spring
شَاهِد	شُهُود	a witness			

7. فُعَّل *fuʕʕal*. Examples:

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Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
رَاكِع	رُكَّع	one who bowes$_{m}$	غَائِب	غُيَّب	absent
راكعَة	رُكَّع	one who bowes$_{f}$			

8. فُعَّال *fuɛɛāl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
قَارِئ	قُرَّاء	a reader$_{m}$	كَافِر	كُفَّار	a disbeliever$_{m}$
تَاجِر	تُجَّار	a trader$_{m}$	جَاهِل	جُهَّال	an ignorant one$_{m}$
عَامِل	عُمَّال	a worker$_{m}$			

9. فَعَلَة *faɛalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
سَاحِر	سَحَرَة	a magician$_{m}$	قَاتِل	قَتَلَة	a killer$_{m}$
عَامِل	عَمَلَة	a labourer$_{m}$	سَيِّد	سَادَة	a chief$_{m}$

10. فُعَلَة *fuɛalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
قَاضٍ	قُضَاة	a judge$_{m}$	رَاوٍ	رُوَاة	a narrator$_{m}$

11. فِعَلَة *fiɛalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
دُبّ	دِبَبَة	a bear	قِرْد	قِرَدَة	a monkey
هِرّ	هِرَرَة	a cat$_{m}$			

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12. فِعْلَة *fiɛlah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَخ	إِخْوَة	a brother	فَتًى	فِتْيَة	a young man

13. أَفْعُل ʾ*afɛul*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
رِجْل	أَرْجُل	a leg	شَهْر	أَشْهُر	a month
نَفْس	أَنْفُس	a self	عَيْن	أَعْيُن	an eye

14. أَفْعَال ʾ*afɛāl*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
بَاب	أَبْوَاب	a door	مَيِّت	أَمْوَات	dead
قَلَم	أَقْلَام	a pen	شَيْء	أَشْيَاء[2]	a thing
قَدَم	أَقْدَام	a foot	اِسْم	أَسْمَاء	a name
صَاحِب	أَصْحَاب	a companion$_m$	يَوْم	أَيَّام	a day
شَرِيف	أَشْرَاف	a noble one$_m$	عَدُوّ	أَعْدَاء	an enemy
طِفْل	أَطْفَال	a child	عَيْن	أَعْيَان	an eminent person
بِئْر	آبَار	a (water) well			

15. أَفْعِلَة ʾ*afɛilah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
لِسَان	أَلْسِنَة	a tongue	طَعَام	أَطْعِمَة	a food
إِمَام	أَئِمَّة	a leader$_m$	إِلَـه	آلِهَة	a god

16. [2]فَوَاعِل *fawāɛil*[2]. (Semi-flexible because of [2]فَفَافِف pattern.) Examples:

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Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صَاحِبَة	صَوَاحِب²	a companion$_f$	عَامِل	عَوَامِل²	a factor
جَارِيَة	جَوَارٍ²	a girl	شَاهِد	شَوَاهِد²	a corroborating evidence
أَمْر	أَوَامِر²	a command	خَاتَم	خَوَاتِم²	a ring (jewelry)
نَادِرَة	نَوَادِر²	a joke, a witticism	فَارِس	فَوَارِس²	a horseman

17. فَعَائِل² *faɛāʾil*². (Semi-flexible because of فَفَافِف² pattern.) Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
حُرَة	حَرَائِر²	a free woman	جَزِيرَة	جَزَائِر²	an island
ضَرّة	ضَرَائِر²	a co-wife	رِسَالَة	رَسَائِل²	a message
حَدِيقَة	حَدَائِق²	a garden	حَاجَة	حَوَائِج²	a need
حَقِيبَة	حَقَائِب²	a bag	دَلِيل	دَلَائِل²	an evidence
كَبِيرَة	كَبَائِر²	a major sin	خَلِيفَة	خَلَائِف²	a successor
كَرِيمَة	كَرَائِم²	a generous one$_f$			

18. فِعْلَان *fiɛlān*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
غُلَام	غِلْمَان	a boy	ثَوْر	ثِيرَان	a bull
جَار	جِيرَان	a neighbor	غُرَاب	غِرْبَان	a crow
أَخ	إِخْوَان	a brother	فَأْر	فِئْرَان	a mouse

19. فُعْلَان *fuɛlān*. Examples:

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Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
بَلَد	بُلْدَان	a country	شُجَاع	شُجْعَان	a brave one
جِدَار	جُدْرَان	a wall	شَابّ	شُبَّان	a young man

20. ²فُعَلَاء *fuɛalā*ʾ². Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أَمِير	²أُمَرَاء	a commander$_m$	خَلِيفَة	²خُلَفَاء	a caliph
فَقِير	²فُقَرَاء	a poor one$_m$	عَالِم	²عُلَمَاء	a scholar$_m$
بَخِيل	²بُخَلَاء	a miser$_m$	شَاعِر	²شُعَرَاء	a poet$_m$
ضَعِيف	²ضُعَفَاء	a weak one$_m$			

21. ²أَفْعِلَاء *ʾafɛilā*ʾ². Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
نَبِيّ	²أَنْبِيَاء	a prophet$_m$	شَدِيد	²أَشِدَّاء	a forceful one$_m$
صَدِيق	²أَصْدِقَاء	a friend$_m$	قَوِيّ	²أَقْوِيَاء	a strong one$_m$
غَنِيّ	²أَغْنِيَاء	a rich one$_m$	شَقِيّ	²أَشْقِيَاء	a wretched one$_m$

22. ²فَعْلَىٰ *faɛlā*². Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
مَرِيض	²مَرْضَىٰ	a sick one$_m$	جَرِيح	²جَرْحَىٰ	a wounded person
أَسِير	²أَسْرَىٰ	a captive			

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23. فَعَالِي *faɛālī*[2]. (Semi-flexible because of فَفَافِف[2] pattern.) Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
لَيْلَة	لَيَالٍ[2]	a night	أَرْض	أَرَاضٍ[2]	a land, an earth
أَهْل	أَهَالٍ[2]	a family			

24. فَعَالَىٰ[2] *faɛālā*[2]. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صَحْرَاء[2]	صَحَارَىٰ[2]	a desert	فَتْوَىٰ[2]	فَتَاوَىٰ[2]	a formal legal opinion
يَتِيم[2]	يَتَامَىٰ[2]	an orphan	هَدِيَّة[2]	هَدَايَا[2]	a gift

25. فَعِيل *faɛīl* (rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
عَبْد	عَبِيد	a slave$_{m}$	حِمَار	حَمِير	a donkey$_{m}$

26. فُعُولَة *fuɛūlah* (rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
بَعْل	بُعُولَة	a husband			

27. فِعَالَة *fiɛālah* (rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
حَجَر	حِجَارَة	a stone			

28. فَعَل *faɛal* (rare). Examples:

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Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
حَلْقَة	حَلَق	a circular ring			

29. فَعْل *faɛl* (very rare). Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
صَاحِب	صَحْب	a companion			

30. ²فَفَافِف *fafāfif*². Includes the sub-patterns:

- ²فَعَالِل *faɛālil*²
- ²أَفَاعِل *ʾafāɛil*²
- ²تَفَاعِل *tafāɛil*²
- ²مَفَاعِل *mafāɛil*²

Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
ثَعْلَب	²ثَعَالِب	a fox	تَجْرِبَة	²تَجَارِب	an experience
عَنْكَبُوت	²عَنَاكِب	a spider	مَسْجِد	²مَسَاجِد	a mosque
دِرْهَم	²دَرَاهِم	a dirham	مَعَانٍ	²مَعْنًى	a meaning
جَوْهَر	²جَوَاهِر	a gem	مَحَالّ	²مَحَلَّة	a locality
إِصْبَع	²أَصَابِع	a finger	مَعِيشَة	²مَعَايِش	a means of subsistence
أَنْمُلَة	²أَنَامِل	a finger tip			

31. ²فَفَافِيف *fafāfīf*². Includes the sub-patterns:

- ²فَعَالِيل *faɛālīl*²
- ²أَفَاعِيل *ʾafāɛīl*²
- ²تَفَاعِيل *tafāɛīl*²
- ²مَفَاعِيل *mafāɛīl*²
- ²يَفَاعِيل *yafāɛīl*²
- ²فَوَاعِيل *fawāɛīl*²

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Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
سُلْطَان	سَلَاطِين[2]	a sultan	إِعْصَار	أَعَاصِير[2]	a whirlwind
شَيْطَان	شَيَاطِين[2]	a devil	تَأْرِيخ	تَوَارِيخ[2]	a history
سِكِّين	سَكَاكِين[2]	a knife	تَصْوِير	تَصَاوِير[2]	a picture
دِينَار	دَنَانِير[2]	a dīnār	مِفْتَاح	مَفَاتِيح[2]	a key
مِسْكِين	مَسَاكِين[2]	a needy person	مَلْعُون	مَلَاعِين[2]	an accursed one$_{m}$
كُرْسِيّ	كَرَاسِيّ[2]	a chair	يُنْبُوع	يَنَابِيع[2]	a (water) spring
أُمْنِيَّة	أَمَانِيّ[2]	a wish	جَامُوس	جَوَامِيس[2]	a buffalo

32. فَعَالِلَة *faɛālilah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural	Meaning	Singular	Plural	Meaning
أُسْتَاذ	أَسَاتِذَة	a professor	مَلَك	مَلَائِكَة	an angel
فَيْلَسُوف	فَلَاسِفَة	a philosopher	جَبَّار	جَبَابِرَة	a tyrant

Note the following from the above broken plural patterns and examples:

- Both common nouns and adjectival nouns form broken plurals.
- There are comparatively fewer broken plurals for female intelligent beings than for male intelligent beings. We will expand on this in a subsequent section.
- Some patterns of the broken plural are also patterns singular nouns. For example, the pattern فِعَال *fiɛāl* has both singular nouns, like كِتَاب *kitāb* “a book” and broken plurals, like رِجَال *rijāl* “men”
- The broken plural patterns فِعْلَان *fiɛlān* and فُعْلَان *fuɛlān* are fully-flexible nouns. Although they end with the ان ending which is extrinsic to the root, they are not semi-flexible nouns. Only singular adjectival nouns that end with an extrinsic ان on the pattern فَعْلَان, and that also fulfil the other conitions listed in section @ref(adjectival noun-an-diptote), are semi-flexible.

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- There is often a correlation between the pattern of a singular noun and the pattern of its plural.

  Sometimes this correlation is very strong:

  – All singular nouns of the patterns ²أَفْعَل *ʾafɛal*² and ²فَعْلَاء *faɛlāʾ* that denote colors and physical characteristics, have broken plurals on the pattern فُعْل *fuɛl*. Example:

Singular	Plural
²أَحْمَر, ²حَمْرَاء "red"	حُمْر
²أَبْكَم, ²بَكْمَاء "mute"	بُكْم

  – Singular nouns that have four or more consonant letters (excluding ة) regularly form their broken plurals on the patterns ²فَفَافِف and ²فَفَافِيف. The pattern ²فَفَافِيف is used when there is an intermendiate long vowel between the consonants. Examples:

Singular	Plural
إِصْبَع "a finger"	²أَصَابِع
مِفْتَاح "a key"	²مَفَاتِيح

  – Singular nouns of the patterns فِعْلَة *fiɛlah* and فُعْلَة *fuɛlah* regularly form their broken plurals on the pattern فِعَل *fiɛal* and فُعَل *fuɛal* respectively. Examples:

Singular	Plural
قِطْعَة "a piece"	قِطَع
رُكْبَة "a knee"	رُكَب

  Other times, this correlation is more like a tendency:

  – Singular nouns on the pattern فَعِيلَة *faɛīlah* tend to form broken plurals on the pattern ²فَعَائِل *faɛāʾil*². Examples:

Singular	Plural
حَدِيقَة "a garden"	²حَدَائِق
حَقِيبَة "a bag"	²حَقَائِب

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– Singular nouns on the pattern فَاعِل *fāɛil*, that denote male intelligent beings, tend to form broken plurals on the pattern فُعَّل *fuɛɛal*, فُعَّال *fuɛɛāl*, and فَعَلَة *faɛalah*. Examples:

Singular	Plural
غَائِب “absent”	غُيَّب
قَارِئ “a reader$_m$”	قُرَّاء
قَاتِل “a killer$_m$”	قَتَلَة

– Singular nouns on the pattern فَاعِل *fāɛil* and فَاعِلَة *fāɛilah*, that don’t denote male intelligent beings, tend to form broken plurals on the pattern فَوَاعِل *fawāɛil*. Examples:

Singular	Plural
صَاحِبَة “a companion$_f$”	صَوَاحِب[2]
عَامِل “a factor”	عَوَامِل[2]

فَارِس *fāris* “a horseman” with the plural فَوَارِس[2] is one of a number of exceptions.

- Some words have roots that have the same letter repeated in the root. These are called *doubled* roots.
  – For example:

Root	Word	Pattern
دبّ	دُبّ “a bear”	فُعْل
حلّ	مَحَلَّة “a locality”	مَفْعَلَة
أمّ	إِمَام “a leader”	فِعَال
حقّ	حَقّ “a truth, a right”	فَعْل
هرّ	هِرّ “a cat$_m$”	فِعْل

We will discuss doubled roots in detail in chapter @ref(doubled-roots). For now we will mention the following:

– The repeated letter in the word root may get doubled or separated in the word’s pattern. Frequently, the repeated letter may be doubled in the singular, and separated in the plural. Examples:

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Singular	Plural
حَقّ “a truth, a right”	حُقُوق
دُبّ “a bear”	دِبَبَة
هِرّ “a cat$_m$”	هِرَرَة

The reverse also occurs, where the repeated letter may be separated in the singular, and doubled in the plural. Examples:

Singular	Plural
إِمَام “a leader$_m$”	أَئِمَّة

– The doubled letter may modify the basic word pattern somewhat. For example:

Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
شدّ	أَفْعِلَاء^2	× أَشْدِدَاء^2	أَشِدَّاء^2
حلّ	مَفَاعِل^2	× مَحَالِل^2	مَحَالّ^{2}
صمّ	أَفْعَل^2	× أَصْمَم^2	أَصَمّ^{2}

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- We have previously learned that the endings ة, اء, and ىٰ that are extrinsic to the word’s root are feminine markers for singular nouns. These extrinsic endings also occur for broken plurals but there, they are *not* feminine markers.

  In fact, in a sort of role reversal, the endings ة in a broken plural tends to indicate that the singular is a masculine noun. And the اء ending is only for broken plurals of male intelligent beings. Examples:

Singular	Plural
لِسَان “a tongue”	أَلْسِنَة
هِرّ “a cat$_m$”	هِرَرَة
أَمِير “a commander$_m$”	أُمَرَاء
صَدِيق “a friend$_m$”	أَصْدِقَاء

- There often exist multiple broken plurals for the same singular noun. Many times, in fact, a singular noun may have a sound plural in addition to one or more broken plurals. Examples:

Singular	Plural
شَهْر	شُهُور ,أَشْهُر
عَيْن	أَعْيَان ,عُيُون ,أَعْيُن
عَامِل	عُمَّال ,عَمَلَة ,عَوَامِل[2] ,عَامِلُونَ

We will discuss how to manage these multiple plurals in a subsequent section.

- Occasionally, multiple singular nouns will share the same broken plural. Examples:

Singular	Plural
مَكْتَب “an office”	مَكَاتِب[2]
مَكْتَبَة “a library”	مَكَاتِب[2]

Context will then tell us which of two meanings is intended.

- The letters ء, ا, و, and ي are considered *weak* letters. Words that one or more these weak letters in their roots are called *defective* words. We will discuss defective words more completely in later chapters, if Allāh wills. For now, we will note the following:
  - Weak letters often get interchanged with one another when going from a singular to a plural. Examples:

Root	Singular	Plural
أرخ	تَأْرِيخ	تَوَارِيخ[2]
نوق	نَاقَة	نُوق
ثور	ثَوْر	ثِيرَان

  - Weak letters can affect surrounding vowels. For example:

Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
بيض	فُعْل	× بُيْض	بِيض

  - The weak letter ي, when followed by the ىٰ ending, usually modifies (in writing) it to an ◌ٰ*alif* instead. The pronunciation is the same. For example:

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Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
هدي	فَعَالَىٰ²	× هَدَايَىٰ²	هَدَايَا²

– A ي at the end of a word, in some cases, gets omitted and replaced by a tanwīned kasrah ٍ on the preceding letter. This happens even when the ي is extrinsic to the root, and even if the word is semi-flexible (and thus would not normally be tanwīned). Examples:

Root	Word pattern	Expected word	Actual word
قضي	فَاعِل	× قَاضِي	قَاضٍ
جري	فَوَاعِل²	× جَوَارِي²	جَوَارٍ²
ليل	فَعَالِي²	× لَيَالِي²	لَيَالٍ²

– Weak letters can also get omitted in the singular and resurface in the plural. Examples:

Root	Singular	Plural
أخو	أَخ	إِخْوَة ,إِخْوَان
أمو	أَمَة	إِمَاء

• If there are more than four consonant letters in a word, then only four of them are selected to form the broken plural. For example:

Singular	Plural
عَنْكَبُوت “a spider”	عَنَاكِب²

• Some words have individual irrgularities as well and we will discuss them below:

– The word اِمْرَأَة and its plural نِسَاء are both irregular and we will discuss them separately in chapter @ref(irregular-nouns).

– The broken plural أَشْيَاء² *ʾashyāʾ* (of the singular noun شَيْء *shay*ʾ “a thing”) is irregular in that it is semi-flexible. Otherwise its pattern أَفْعَال *ʾafɛāl* is regularly fully-flexible.

– The broken plural of the singular noun مَلَك *malak* “an angel” is مَلَائِكَة *malāʾikah*. It is on the pattern فَعَالِلَة *faɛālilah*. But it is unusual in that

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the plural has an extra letter ء that is missing in the singular. This is because the singular has a lesser-used variant: مَلْأَك *malʾak* that is used to form the plural.

– The broken plural of the singular noun دِينَار "a dīnār" is دَنَانِير[2]. It is on the pattern فَعَالِيل[2]. It is irregular in that there are two ن's in the plural whereas the singular only has one.

– The root of بِئْر *biʾr* "a (water) well" is بأر. The pattern of its broken plural is أَفْعَال. Based on its root letters, its plural on this pattern ought regularly to have been أَبْآر *ʾabʾār*. And this plural exists but is not very commonly used. Instead, in forming the plural, the root letters ب and أ get swapped irregularly, and the more commonly used plural is actually آبَار *ʾābār*.

There are other words as well with similar irregularities.

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11.4. Co-existence of multiple broken plurals

We noted that there are often multiple broken plurals for the same singular noun. Many singular nouns even have a sound plural in addition to one or more broken plurals. Here are some examples.

Singular	Meanings	Plural
جِدَار	a wall	جُدْرَان, جُدُر
شَهْر	a month	شُهُور, أَشْهُر
ضَعِيف	a weak one$_m$	ضُعَفَاء[2], ضِعَاف
أَمْر	a matter; a command	أَوَامِر[2], أُمُور
عَيْن	an eye; a (water) spring; an eminent person	أَعْيَان, عُيُون, أَعْيُن
عَامِل	a worker; a labourer; a factor	عَمَلَة, عَوَامِل[2], عَامِلُونَ, عُمَّال

We will deal with the co-existence of sound and broken plurals in the next section. In this section, we will explain the existence of multiple broken plurals, and when one of them is preferred or required to be used over the other. Basically, there could be a few things going on:

1. Sometimes it is more or less optional which of the multiple broken plurals to use. For example, the singular noun جِدَار has two broken plurals: جُدُر, جُدْرَان Either could be used, more or less, interchangeably.

2. Sometimes, the usage of one of the plurals may be restricted. For example, ضِعَاف and ضُعَفَاء are both broken plurals of the masculine adjectival noun ضَعِيف "a weak one$_{m}$". For male intelligent beings, like "weak men", either of the two plurals could be used. But remember that broken plurals that end with an extrinsic اء ending may only be used for male intelligent beings. So the plural ضُعَفَاء may only be used for male intelligent beings like "men" or "boys", and not for masculine nouns that denote non-intelligent beings like "lions" or "pens", etc.

   Interestingly, ضِعَاف is also shared as the broken plural for the feminine adjectival noun ضَعِيفَة "a weak one$_{f}$". So it can be used for plurals of feminine nouns, both for female intelligent beings like "women" and "girls", and for feminie nouns that denote non-intelligent beings like "trees".

3. Other times, the singular has multiple distinct meanings, and each of these distinct meanings is associated with its own broken plural(s). Here are some examples:

   - The word أَمْر *ʾamr* has two distinct meanings, each with it's own plural:

     i. "a matter". This has the broken plural أُمُور *ʾumūr*.
     ii. "a command". This has the broken plural [2]أَوَامِر *ʾawāmir*[2].

   - The word عَيْن *ʿayn* has multiple distinct meanings. There are three main meanings, and they share the broken plural with each other in the following way:

     i. "an eye". This meaning primarily uses the plural أَعْيُن *ʾaʿyun* but it may also use the plural عُيُون *ʿuyūn*, and rarely also the plural أَعْيَان *ʾaʿyān*.
     ii. "a (water) spring". This meaning primarily uses the plural عُيُون *ʿuyūn* but it may also use the plural أَعْيُن *ʾaʿyun*, and rarely also the plural أَعْيَان *ʾaʿyān*.
     iii. "an eminent person". This meaning only uses the plural أَعْيَان *ʾaʿyān*.

   - The word عَامِل *ʿāmil* has the following meanings and plurals:

     i. "a worker$_{m}$". Generally, this has the plural عُمَّال *ʿummāl*.
     ii. "a labourer$_{m}$". This uses the plural عَمَلَة *ʿamalah*.
     iii. "a factor". This uses the plural [2]عَوَامِل *ʿawāmil*[2].

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4. Arabic has what are known as *plurals of fewness*. These are specific patterns that may (sometimes, but not always) be used when the persons or things denoted by the plural are only a few (ten or less) and not many. These patterns are:

   i. فِعْلَة *fiʿlah*
   ii. أَفْعُل *ʾafʿul*
   iii. أَفْعَال *ʾafʿāl*
   iv. أَفْعِلَة *ʾafʿilah*

   For example:

   i. شَهْر *s͡hahr* "a month", plurals: أَشْهُر, شُهُور. The plural أَشْهُر could be used when the number of months are only a few (ten or less), and the plural شُهُور could be used when the number of months are large.
   ii. The plurals أَعْيُن and عُيُون of the word عَيْن could also possibly be used similarly in this manner for both meanings: "an eye" and "a (water) spring". (But not for the meaning "an eminent person" which only uses the plural أَعْيَان).

   Of course, this distinction only applies when the singular noun has additional plurals, not just one from the above four patterns. If a noun has only one of the about four plural patterns then it may be used indiscriminately and will not indicate any limitation in number.

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11.5. Co-existence of sound and broken plurals

Some nouns have both sound and broken plurals for more or less the same meaning. Here are some examples:

Singular	Meaning	Sound plural	Broken plural
قَاتِل	a killer	قَاتِلُونَ	قَتَلَة
كَافِر	a disbeliever	كَافِرُونَ	كُفَّار
كَبِير	a big one$_m$	كَبِيرُونَ	كِبَار
كَبِيرَة	a big one$_f$	كَبِيرَات	كِبَار
صَغِير	a small one$_m$	صَغِيرُونَ	صِغَار
صَغِيرَة	a small one$_f$	صَغِيرَات	صِغَار
رَاكِع	one who bows$_m$	رَاكِعُونَ	رُكَّع
رَاكِعَة	one who bows$_f$	رَاكِعَات	رُكَّع

Singular	Meaning	Sound plural	Broken plural
صَاحِبَة	a companion$_f$	صَاحِبَات	[2]صَوَاحِب
جَارِيَة	a girl	جَارِيَات	[2]جَوَارٍ
حَدِيقَة	a garden	حَدِيقَات	[2]حَدَائِق

We will treat the *ūn* and *āt* sound plurals separately.

11.5.1. *ūn* plurals and broken plurals

Remember from chapter @ref(sound-plurals) that *ūn* plurals are, with very few exceptions, only used for male intelligent beings.

If a singular noun has both an *ūn* sound plural and one or more broken plurals, then the use of the broken plural is generally preferred. The sound plural is then, generally, reserved for certain verbal usages. (We will study these in later chapters, if Allāh wills.)

So, for example, قَتَلَة is preferred over قَاتِلُونَ generally for the meaning: "killers".

11.5.2. *āt* plurals and broken plurals

āt plurals are used for both female intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings. We will discuss each of these separately.

11.5.2.1. Female intelligent beings

Remember from section @ref(conditions-for-the-at-plural) that, generally, all nouns that end with feminine markers (ة, اء, and ىٰ) can form the *āt* sound plural.

There are some nouns that are excepted from this statement. These nouns only have broken plurals and don't form sound plurals. For female intelligent beings, these nouns are:

- Adjectival nouns of the pattern [2]فَعْلَاء which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern [2]أَفْعَل. For example, حَوْرَاء حور *ḥawrāʾ* "a beautiful eyed one$_f$" uses the broken plural حُور *ḥūr*
- Adjectival nouns of the pattern [2]فَعْلَىٰ which is the feminine of the masculine adjectival noun pattern [2]فَعْلَان. For example, غَضْبَىٰ غضب *ġhaḍ̲hbā* "very angry$_f$" uses the broken plural غِضَاب *ġhiḍ̲hāb*.
- The following exceptional nouns:
  - اِمْرَأَة "a woman", broken plural: نِسَاء

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- أَمَة "a slave$_f$", broken plural: إِمَاء
- أُمَّة "a nation", broken plural: أُمَم

In the case of these nouns we have no choice but to use the broken plural.

For other nouns that denote female intelligent beings, the use of the *āt* sound plural is preferred over any broken plurals that the noun may have.

So, for example, the use of the *āt* sound plural صَغِيرَات is preferred over the broken plural صِغَار for the adjectival noun صَغِيرَة "a small one$_f$". However, both are permitted.

The following are excepted from this general statement:

- أُنْثَىٰ "a female", plural: إِنَاث. The *āt* sound plural is almost unused for this word.

- Broken plurals of the patterns:

  - ²فَوَاعِل *fawāɛil*²
  - ²فَعَائِل *faɛāʾil*²

  These broken plural patterns are, in fact, predominantly used for female intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings, and only rarely for male intelligent beings. So the broken plural ²جَوَارٍ "girls" may be used freely as the plural of جَارِيَة "a girl" and is not preferred over by جَارِيَات. Similarly, ²صَوَاحِب may freely be used as the plural of صَاحِبَة.

  Only a few nouns denoting male intelligent beings have broken plurals on these patterns, like:

  - فَارِس "a horseman", plural: ²فَوَارِس
  - خَلِيفَة "a successor", plural: ²خَلَائِف

In conclusion, with the general preference of using the *āt* sound plural over the broken plural for female intelligent beings, you will find that نِسَاء *nisāʾ* "women" is the only widely found broken plural for female intelligent beings in normal usage.

11.5.2.2. Non-intelligent beings

For non-intelligent beings, the broken plural is preferred for use over *āt* sound plurals.

So, for example, ²حَدَائِق *ḥadāʾiq*² is preferred over حَدِيقَات *ḥadīqāt* as the plural of حَدِيقَة, though both are correct.

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11.6. Usage of plurals

The treatment of plurals in sentences is quite complicated. Here we will give a simplified explanation that should suffice for basic usage, until we give a fuller treatment in (TODO: give chapter reference).

We will discuss the plurals of intelligent beings and non-intelligent beings separately.

11.6.1. Plurals of intelligent beings in descriptive noun-phrases

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Consistent with what we have learned so far, when the attributed-to in a noun-phrase is plural, then the attribute comes after it, and matches it in case, definiteness, gender, and number.

Either or both of the attribute and the attributed-to may be sound plurals or broken plurals.

Here are some examples:

لَعِبَ ٱلطِّفْلُ ٱلصَّغِيرُ مَعَ ٱلْغِلْمَانِ ٱلْكِبَارِ.
laɛiba -ṭṭiflu -ṣṣaghīru maɛa -lghilmāni -lkibār.
“The small child played with the big boys.”

أَخَذَ ٱلتِّلْمِيذُ ٱلْعِلْمَ عَنِ ٱلْمُعَلِّمِينَ ٱلْكِرَامِ.
ʾakhadha -ttilmīdhu -lɛilma ɛani -lmuɛallimīna -lkirām.
“The pupil took knowledge from the noble teachers.”

لِلْجَارِيَةِ صَوَاحِبُ طَيِّبَاتٌ.
liljāriyati ṣawāhibu ṭayyibāt.
“The girl has good companions$_{f}$.”

فِي ٱلسُّوقِ تُجَّارٌ صَادِقُونَ.
fi -ssūqi tujjārun ṣadiqūn.
“In the market are honest traders.”

خَدَمَ ٱلرَّجُلُ ٱلصَّالِحُ ٱلْغَنِيُّ ٱلْفُقَرَاءَ ٱلضِّعَافَ مِنَ ٱلْيَتَامَىٰ ٱلصِّغَارِ.
khadama -rrajulu -ṣṣāliḥu -lghaniyyu -lfuqarāʾa -ḍḍhḍḥiɛāfa mina -lyatāmā -ṣṣighār.
“The rich righteous man served the weak poor ones from the little orphans.”

11.6.2. Plurals of intelligent beings in nounal sentences

If the subject of a sentence is a plural denoting intelligent beings then the info typically matches it in being a plural. This is especially the case if the info is an adjectival noun. For example:

ٱلْغِلْمَانُ أَطْفَالٌ طَيِّبُونَ.

ʾalg͡hilmānu ʾaṭfālun ṭayyibūn.

“The boys are good children.”

ٱلرِّجَالُ أَغْنِيَاءُ.

ʾarrijālu ʾag͡hniyāʾ.

“The men are rich.”

ٱلْمُعَلِّمَاتُ عَالِمَاتٌ.

ʾalmuɛallimātu ɛālimāt,

“The teachers$_{f}$ are scholars$_{f}$.”

Sometimes the info may not match the subject in plurality because of the meaning of the sentence. For example:

ٱلْمُسْلِمُونَ أُمَّةٌ.

ʾalmuslimūna ʾummah.

“The Muslims are a nation.”

ٱلْجِيرَانُ ٱلطَّيِّبُونَ نِعْمَةٌ مِنَ ٱللَّـهِ.

ʾaljīrānu -ṭṭayyibūna niɛmatun mina -llāh.

“Good neighbors are a blessing from Allah.”

The use of detached pronouns is consistent with what we learned in section @ref(detached-plural-pronouns). Examples:

أَنْتُنَّ نِسَاءٌ كَرِيمَاتٌ.

ʾantunna nisāʾun karīmāt.

“You$_{3,f}$ are generous women.”

أَنْتُمْ شُبَّانٌ شُجْعَانٌ.

ʾantum sh͡hubbānun sh͡hujɛānun

“You$_{m,3}$ are courageous young men.”

أَلشَّيَاطِينُ هُمُ ٱلْمَلَاعِنُ.

ʾash͡hayāṭīnu humu -lmalāɛīn.

“The devils are the accursed ones.”

هُنَّ نِسَاءٌ غَنِيَّاتٌ.

hunna nisāʾun g͡haniyyāt.

“They$_{3,f}$ are rich women.”

نَحْنُ غِلْمَانٌ أَصْدِقَاءُ.

naḥnu g͡hilmānun ʾaṣdiqāʾ.

“We are boys who are friends.”

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11.6.3. Plurals of intelligent beings with verbs

We have already studied verbs with sound plurals in section (ref). The same discussion applies to broken plurals as well. Here are a couple of examples:

قَرَأَتِ ٱلنِّسَاءُ وَكَتَبْنَ.

qaraʾati -nnisāʾu wakatabn.

"The women read and wrote."

أَلْغِلْمَانُ لَعِبُوا بِكُرَةٍ حَمْرَاءَ.

ʾalg͡hilmānu laɛibū bikuratin ḥamrāʾ.

"The boys, they played with a red ball."

طَبَخَتِ ٱلنِّسَاءُ طَعَامًا لِلرِّجَالِ فَأَكَلُوهُ وَشَكَرُوهُنَّ.

ṭabak͡hati -nnisāʾu ṭaɛāman lirrijāli faʾakalūhu was͡hakarūhunn.

"The women prepared some food for the men, so they$_{3,m}$ ate it and they$_{3,m}$ thanked them$_{3,f}$.

ظَلَمَ ٱلْجَبَابِرَةُ ٱلْمَسَاكِينَ وَقَتَلُوهُمْ.

ḏ͡halama -ljabābiratu -lmasākīna waqatalūhum.

"The tyrants wronged the needy ones$_{3,m}$ and killed them$_{3,m}$."

11.6.4. Usage of plurals of non-intelligent beings

We now turn our attention to plurals of non-intelligent beings. The treatment of plurals of non-intelligent beings is very different from everything we have learned so far. In this basic, simplified, explanation: regardless of the grammatical or physical gender of the singular noun, plurals of non-intelligent beings are treated, for the purposes of matching adjectival nouns and pronouns, as grammatically feminine singular.

So, for example, the noun بَيت *bayt* denotes the inanimate object "a house". It's plural is بُيُوت. This plural is treated as a feminine singular noun. This is despite the fact that the singular noun بَيْت *bayt* "a house" is grammatically masculine. See how the بُيُوت *buyūt* is used in the examples below:

أَلْبُيُوتُ كَبِيرَةٌ.

"The houses are big."

سَكَنُوا فِي بُيُوتٍ صَغِيرَةٍ.

"They$_{3,m}$ lived in small houses."

سَقَطَتِ ٱلْبُيُوتُ.

"The houses fell."

أَلْبُيُوتُ سَقَطَتْ.

"The houses, they fell."

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هِيَ بُيُوتٌ لِلْفُقَرَاءِ.
"They are houses for the poor."

Plurals of inanimate objects and animals (both male and female) are treated the same way. It doesn't matter what the grammatical or physical gender of the singular is or whether it has a sound or broken plural. Examples:

هِيَ ثِيرَانٌ وَحْشَةٌ.
"They are wild bulls."

أَلْهِرَةُ شَرِبَتِ ٱلْحَلِيبَ.
"The cats$_{m}$, they drank the milk."

أَلْهِرَرُ شَرِبَتِ ٱلْحَلِيبَ.
"The cats$_{f}$, they drank the milk."

أَلسُّفُنُ طَوِيلَة.
"The ships are tall."

فِي ٱلصُّنْدُوقُ أَشْيَاءُ عَجِيبَةٌ.
"In the box are wonderful things."
(Note how [2]أَشْيَاء is indefinite but is not tanwīned. This is because it is irregularly semi-flexible.)

By the way, this rule only applies to adjectival nouns in the attributed-to or the info. A common noun in the attribute or info will continue match the attributed-to or subject in gender and number.

For example, if you say:

أَلْأَفْعَالُ ٱلصَّالِحَةُ هِيَ ٱلْحَسَنَةُ.
"The righteous acts are the good ones."

then حَسَنَة may only be the feminine adjectival noun "a good one".

If instead you want to use حَسَنَة with its common noun meaning of "a good deed", then you have the use the plural:

أَلْأَفْعَالُ ٱلصَّالِحَةُ هِيَ ٱلْحَسَنَاتُ.
"The acts are the good deeds."

The plural هِي may continue to be used instead of هُنَّ, although the latter is also valid:

أَلْأَفْعَالُ ٱلصَّالِحَةُ هُنَّ ٱلْحَسَنَاتُ.
"The acts are the good deeds."

Similarly, if an adjectival noun connoting a non-intelligent being is used not as a attribute or an info in a sentence, then it should be pluralized to indicate plurality.

أَلْحَيَوَانَاتُ صَغِيرَةٌ وَكَبِيرَةٌ. أَلْكَبِيرَاتُ وَحْشَةٌ.
"The animals are big and small. The big ones are wild."

In the second sentence above, we could not have said (for the same meaning):

أَلْحَيَوَانَاتُ صَغِيرَةٌ وَكَبِيرَةٌ. **أَلْكَبِيرَةُ** وَحْشَةٌ. ×

It is important to note that treating non-intelligent beings as grammatically feminine is only for the plural. Singular and dual nouns for non-intelligent beings

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are treated according to the gender of singular noun, as we have learned in previous chapters. So, for example,

ٱلْبَيْتُ كَبِيرٌ.

"The house is big."

not

× ٱلْبَيْتُ كَبِيرَة.

أَكَلَ ٱلْأَسَدَانِ ٱلظَّبْيَ.

"The lions$_2$ ate the gazelle."

not

× أَكَلَتِ ٱلْأَسَدَانِ ٱلظَّبْيَ.

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Chapter 12.

Weak and doubled roots

12.1. Introduction

The letters alif/hamzah (أ), و, and ي are considered weak letters. When any of these letters are part of the root of a verb, then that verb is called a *weak verb*. When weak verbs are conjugated for different doers, then the weak letters can modify the appearance of the conjugated verb in different ways.

Of the weak letters, hamzah is the strongest (in pronunciation, though it is weak in writing). And it will usually (though not always) retain its pronunciation when a verb with hamzah in its root is conjugated. So we will treat it separately at the end.

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12.2. The weak middle-letter verb

12.2.1. و as the weak middle-letter

Consider the root قول with the meaning « to say ».

When we form the SC verb from roots with و as the middle root letter, we usually assume a fat·ḥah on the middle root letter.

Therefore, we would expect the verb for the doer « he » to be قَوَلَ *qawala*.[1] Instead, however, the sequence قَوَ *qawa* is modified to قَا *qā*, and we will actually say:

(30) قَالَ
qāla
« He said »

[1] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين 31/7

Similarly, when we conjugate for the doer « she », we would expect to say قَوَلَتْ *qawalat*, but we actually say:

(31) قَالَتْ *qālat*
« She said »

Continuing on, when we conjugate for the doer « I », we would expect to say قَوَلْتُ *qawaltu*. In this case, we don't convert قَوَ *qawa* to قَا *qā* because then we would end up with قَالْتُ *qāltu*. But a long vowel followed by a sukūn is disallowed phonologically in Arabic (except when pausing at the end of an utterance). So we cannot say × قَالْتُ *qāltu*.

Instead, we eliminiate the middle letter altogether, and place a ḭ̄hammah on the ق because it is the closest vowel to the original root letter و. So we say:

(32) قُلْتُ
qultu
« I said »

Similarly we will say

(33) قُلْتَ
qulta
« You$_{\text{sing.m.}}$ said »

(34) قُلْتِ
qulti
« You$_{\text{sing.f.}}$ said »

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Moving on to the duals, for strong verbs we simply add an alif to ذَهَبَ « he went » to get ذَهَبَا « they$_{\text{du.m.}}$ went ». And from ذَهَبَتْ « she went » we get ذَهَبَتَا « they$_{\text{du.f.}}$ went ».

We will do the same thing to قَالَ and قَالَتْ respectively. So we get:

(35) قَالَا
qālā
« They$_{\text{du.m.}}$ said »

(36) قَالَتَا
qālatā
« They$_{\text{du.f.}}$ said »

For « you$_{\text{du.}}$ said », we use قُلْتُ « I said » as our starting point and replace the doer pronoun تُ « I » with تُمَا « you$_{\text{du.}}$ ». So we say

(37) قُلْتُمَا
qultumā
« You$_{\text{du.}}$ said »

Now let's move on to the plurals. For strong verbs we modify ذَهَبَ « he went » by adding the doer pronoun ـُوا « they$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ » and we get ذَهَبُوا « they$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ went ». We will do the same thing to قَالَ « he said » to get:

(38) قَالُوا
qālū
« They$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ said »

For $_{\text{pl.f.}}$they, there is a sukūn on the final root letter (e.g. ذَهَبْنَ « they$_{\text{pl.f}}$ went »). So now we use the pattern قُلْتُ I said]{.ar}, and replace the doer pronoun تُ « I » with نَ « they$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ ». So we will say:

(39) قُلْنَ
qulna
« They$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ said »

Similarly, for « you$_{\text{pl.m}}$ » we will say:

(40) قُلْتُمْ
qultum
« You$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ said »

and for « you$_{\text{pl.f}}$ » we will say:

(41) قُلْتُنَّ
qultunna
« You$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ said »

Lastly, for « we », we will do the same thing and say:

(42) قُلْنَا *qulnā*
« We said »

Here is the complete verb conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
« He said »	قَالَ
« She said »	قَالَتْ
« You$_{\text{sing.m.}}$ said »	قُلْتَ

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Doer pronoun	Conjugation
« You$_{\text{sing.f.}}$ said »	قُلْتِ
« I said »	قُلْتُ
« They$_{\text{du.m.}}$ said »	قَالَا
« They$_{\text{du.f.}}$ said »	قَالَتَا
« You$_{\text{du.}}$ said »	قُلْتُمَا
« They$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ said »	قَالُوا
« They$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ said »	قُلْنَ
« You$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ said »	قُلْتُمْ
« You$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ said »	قُلْتُنَّ
« We said »	قُلْنَا

And here are some examples of similar verbs in sentences:

12.2.2. Kasrah on the middle و letter

Most verbs that have و as the middle root letter behave as above, with an original fat·ḥah on the و becoming an alif:

(43) قَوَلَ → قَالَ
qawala → *qāla*
« He said »

And when the و is eliminated, it is replaced with a ḏ͡ḥammah on the first root letter:

(44) قَوَلْتُ → قُلْتُ
qawaltu → *qultu*
« I said »

A few verbs, however, take a kasrah on the middle و. For example, the root خوف « to fear ». In this case, the و still becomes an alif:

(45) خَوِفَ → خَافَ
k͡hawifa → *k͡hāfa*
« He feared »

But when the و is eliminated, it is replaced with a kasrah on the first root letter:

(46) خَوِفْتُ → خِفْتُ
k͡hawiftu → *k͡hiftu*
« He feared »

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Here is the complete conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
« He feared »	خَافَ
« She feared »	خَافَتْ
« You$_{sing.m.}$ feared »	خِفْتَ
« You$_{sing.f.}$ feared »	خِفْتِ
« I feared »	خِفْتُ
« They$_{du.m.}$ feared »	خَافَا
« They$_{du.f.}$ feared »	خَافَتَا
« You$_{du.}$ feared »	خِفْتُمَا
« They$_{pl.m.}$ feared »	خَافُوا
« They$_{pl.f.}$ feared »	خِفْنَ
« You$_{pl.m.}$ feared »	خِفْتُمْ
« You$_{pl.f.}$ feared »	خِفْتُنَّ
« We feared »	خِفْنَا

The verb نَامَ « to sleep » from the root نوم behaves similarly.

Here are some examples of these verbs in sentences:

(TODO) See [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين 31/7ff] for handling ambiguity in passive.

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12.2.3. ي as the weak middle-letter

When ي is the weak middle-letter, as in the verb root بيع « to sell », then we follow pretty much the same procedure as for قَالَ. So:

(47) بَيَعَ → بَاعَ
bayaɛa → bāɛa
« He sold »

But when the ي is eliminated, it is replaced with a kasrah on the first root letter, because the kasrah is the closer vowel to ي.

(48) بَيَعْتُ → بِعْتُ
bayaɛtu → biɛtu
« I sold »

Here is the complete verb conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
«He sold»	بَاعَ
«She sold»	بَاعَتْ
«You$_{sing.m.}$ sold»	بِعْتَ
«You$_{sing.f.}$ sold»	بِعْتِ
«I sold»	بِعْتُ
«They$_{du.m.}$ sold»	بَاعَا
«They$_{du.f.}$ sold»	بَاعَتَا
«You$_{du.}$ sold»	بِعْتُمَا
«They$_{pl.m.}$ sold»	بَاعُوا
«They$_{pl.f.}$ sold»	بِعْنَ
«You$_{pl.m.}$ sold»	بِعْتُمْ
«You$_{pl.f.}$ sold»	بِعْتُنَّ
«We sold»	بِعْنَا

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12.3. The weak final-letter verb

12.3.1. و as the weak final-letter

Consider the verb root دعو «to call».

When we form the SC verb from roots with و as the middle root letter, we usually assume a fatḥah on the middle root letter.

Therefore, we would expect the verb for the doer «he» to be دَعَوَ *daɛawa*. Instead, however, the sequence عَوَ *ɛawa* is modified to عَا *ɛā*, and we will actually say:

(49) دَعَا
daɛā
«He called»

Similarly, when we conjugate for the doer «she», we would expect to say دَعَوَتْ *daɛawat*, but we actually say:

(50) دَعَتْ *daɛat*
«She called»

Continuing on, there is no modification of the root و when we conjugate for the doer «I».

(51) دَعَوْتُ
daɛawtu
« I called »

Similarly we will say:

(52) دَعَوْتَ
daɛawta
« You$_{sing.m.}$ called »

(53) دَعَوْتِ
daɛawti
« You$_{sing.f.}$ called »

Moving on to the duals, we add back the و to the verb when we add on the alif for the « they$_{du.m.}$ ». So we get:

(54) دَعَوَا
daɛawā
« They$_{du.m.}$ called »

For « they$_{du.m.}$ », we simply add an alif to دَعَتْ « she called », and we get:

(55) دَعَتَا
daɛatā
« They$_{du.f.}$ called »

For « you$_{du.}$ called », there is again no modification of the root و. So we say:

(56) دَعَوْتُمَا
daɛawtumā
« You$_{du.}$ called »

Now let's move on to the plurals. For « they$_{pl.m.}$ », we need to add a ـُوا, but because there is already a و in the root, we don't add another one. Instead we put a sukūn on it to get:

(57) دَعَوْا
daɛaw
« They$_{pl.m.}$ called »

When دَعَوْا is to be connected to a following connecting-hamzah, then we will put a ḍ͡hammah on the و. For example:

(58) دَعَوُا ٱلرَّجُلَ
daɛawu -rrajula
« They$_{pl.m.}$ called the man. »

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For $_{\text{pl.f.}}$they, there is again no modification of the root و. So we say:

(59) دَعَوْنَ
daɛawna
« They$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ called »

Similarly, for « you$_{\text{pl.m}}$ » we will say:

(60) دَعَوْتُمْ
daɛawtum
« You$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ called »

and for « you$_{\text{pl.f}}$ » we will say:

(61) دَعَوْتُنَّ
daɛawtunna
« You$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ called »

Lastly, for « we », we will do the same thing and say:

(62) دَعَوْنَا *daɛawnā*
« We called »

Here is the complete verb conjugation table:

Doer pronoun	Conjugation
« He said »	دَعَا
« She said »	دَعَتْ
« You$_{\text{sing.m.}}$ said »	دَعَوْتَ
« You$_{\text{sing.f.}}$ said »	دَعَوْتِ
« I said »	دَعَوْتُ
« They$_{\text{du.m.}}$ said »	دَعَوَا
« They$_{\text{du.f.}}$ said »	دَعَتَا
« You$_{\text{du.}}$ said »	دَعَوْتُمَا
« They$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ said »	دَعَوْا
« They$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ said »	دَعَوْنَ
« You$_{\text{pl.m.}}$ said »	دَعَوْتُمْ
« You$_{\text{pl.f.}}$ said »	دَعَوْتُنَّ
« We said »	دَعَوْنَا

And here are some examples of similar verbs in sentences:

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12.4. The doubled verb

12.5. كَانَ

Work in progress

Work in progress

Chapter 13.

Annexation

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Work in progress

13.1. Introduction

Consider the following expression:

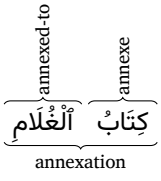
"the boy's book"

This expression establishes a relation of *belonging* between the two nouns: (i) "the boy", and (ii) "the book". It says that the book *belongs* to the boy.

Arabic expresses this meaning using a construction called *annexation*. In this chapter we will learn about this construction.

13.2. Forming the annexation

The following is an example of a annexation in Arabic:



"the boy's book"

The annexation construction consists of two nouns:

1. The *annexe*: This is the first noun in the annexation.
2. The *annexed-to*: This is the second noun in the annexation.

The annexe كِتَاب is annexed to, and belongs to, the annexed-to أَلْغُلَام.

13.3. Case of the annexe and annexed-to

The annexed-to in an annexation is always in the i-case. The annexe may be in any case, depending on its function in the sentence. For example,

كِتَابُ ٱلْغُلَامِ ثَقِيلٌ.
"The boy's book is heavy."
(The annexe is in the u-case.)

أَخَذَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ كِتَابَ ٱلْغُلَامِ.
"The girl took the boy's book."
(The annexe is in the a-case.)

كَتَبَ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُ فِي كِتَابِ ٱلْغُلَامِ.
"The teacher$_{\text{m}}$ wrote in the boy's book."
(The annexe is in the i-case.)

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13.4. Definiteness of the annexation

Consider again the annexation expression we have been using so far:

كِتَابُ ٱلْغُلَامِ
"the boy's book"

The annexed-to أَلْغُلَام is definite because it is prefixed by أَلْ "the". Therefore we have translated it as "the boy". The annexe كِتَاب is not made definite by أَلْ. Nor is it made indefinite by tanwīn. Rather, its definiteness is determined by the annexed-to. Because the annexed-to أَلْغُلَام is definite, therefore the annexe كِتَاب is also definite. The entire annexation is definite.

Consider now the case when the annexed-to is indefinite.

كِتَابُ غُلَامٍ
"a boy's book"

In the above example, the annexed-to غُلَامٍ is indefinite because it is tanwīned and because it does not prefixed by أَلْ. Therefore we have translated it as "a boy". The annexe كِتَاب is neither tanwīned, nor does it have أَلْ. Its definiteness is, again, determined by the annexed-to. Because the annexed-to غُلَامٍ is indefinite, therefore the annexe كِتَاب is also indefinite. The entire annexation is indefinite.

We will see soon, if Allāh wills, why the definiteness of the annexe is important.

Here are some examples of definite and indefinite annexations.

لَبِسَ ٱلطِّفْلُ قَمِيصَ رَجُلٍ.

"The child wore *a* man's shirt."

أَخَذَ أَمِيرُ ٱلْجَيْشِ رَايَةَ ٱلْمَلِكِ وَرَفَعَهَا.

"*The* army's commander took *the* king's flag and raised it."

جَلَسَ ٱلرَّجُلُ فِي ظِلِّ شَجَرَةٍ.

"The man sat in *a* tree's shade."

13.4.1. Translating the annexation using "of"

So far we have been using the English "'s" to translate the Arabic annexation. Examples:

بَيْتُ رَجُلٍ

"a man's house"

بَيْتُ ٱلرَّجُلِ

"the man's house"

Instead of using "'s" we may use "of" as well. For example:

بَيْتُ رَجُلٍ

"a/the house of a man"

بَيْتُ ٱلرَّجُلِ

"a/the house of the man"

Note that the annexe "house" may be prefixed with either "a" or "the". This will depend on what is more natural in English. Often time both will fit. Here are some examples:

لَبِسَ ٱلطِّفْلُ قَمِيصَ رَجُلٍ.

"The child wore a/the shirt of a man."

أَخَذَ أَمِيرُ ٱلْجَيْشِ رَايَةَ ٱلْمَلِكِ وَرَفَعَهَا.

"*The* commander of the army took *the* flag of the king and raised it."

جَلَسَ ٱلرَّجُلُ فِي ظِلِّ شَجَرَةٍ.

"The man sat in *the* shade of a tree."

فَتَحَ ٱللِّصُّ شُبَّاكَ ٱلْبَيْتِ وَدَخَلَ ٱلْبَيْتَ.

"The thief opened *a/the* window of the house and entered the house."

It is important to understand that translating the annexe into English with "a" or "the" is purely for the reason of obtaining a natural translation. This does not affect whether or not the annexe is grammatically considered definite in Arabic.

As we mentioned earlier, the definiteness of the annexe in Arabic depends only on the definiteness of the annexed-to. If the annexed-to is definite then the annexe shall be considered definite as well. And if the annexed-to is indefinite then the annexe shall be considered indefinite as well.

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The need to maintain this distinction will become apparent in the next section.

If the annexed-to is definite, and it is desired to make the annexe grammatically indefinite, then it is necassary to break the annexation, and use a prepositional phrase instead, usually with the preposition لِ, which, here, will mean “of”. Example:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتٍ لِلرَّجُلِ.

“The boy went to a house of the man.”

فَتَحَ ٱللِّصُّ شُبَّاكًا مِنَ ٱلْبَيْتِ وَدَخَلَ ٱلْبَيْتَ.

“The thief opened a window of the house and entered the house.”

13.5. Broken plurals and *āt* sound plurals in annexations

There is no special rules for broken plurals and *āt* sound plurals in annexations. They behave just like singular nouns. Remember only that *āt* plurals end with ٍ and ِ in the a-case. Here are some examples:

حَيَوَانَاتُ ٱلْغَابَةِ وَحْشَةٌ.

“The animals of the forest are wild.”

قَرَأَتْ طَالِبَاتُ ٱلْمَدْرَسَةِ صَفَحَاتِ ٱلْكُتُبِ

“The school’s students$_{f}$ read the pages of the books.”

فِي ٱلْخِزَانَةِ أَقْلَامُ مُعَلِّمَاتٍ.

“In the cupboard are teachers’$_{f}$ pens.

Contrary to broken plurals and *āt* plurals, duals and *ūn* sound plurals behave differently in annexations. We will deal with them in section @ref(duals-and-sound-un-plurals-in-annexations)

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13.6. Attributes in an annexation

13.6.1. Describing the annexed-to

Consider the following expression:

كِتَابُ ٱلْجَارِيَةِ

“the girl’s book”

Now say that we want to form an descriptive noun-phrase “the small girl’s book”. Basically, we want to describe the annexed-to ٱلْجَارِيَة “the girl” with the adjectival noun صَغِير “a small one”. Here is how we will express this in Arabic:

كِتَابُ ٱلْجَارِيَةِ ٱلصَّغِيرَةِ
"the small girl's book"

In the manner we are already familiar with, we place the attribute صَغِير "a small one" after the attributed-to ٱلْجَارِيَة "the girl" and match the attribute with the attributed-to in definiteness, case, gender and number (singular, dual, or plural).

Similarly, if we had an indefinite annexation, we would get:

كِتَابُ جَارِيَةٍ صَغِيرَةٍ
"a small girl's book"

Here are some more examples:

لَعِبَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ فِي حَدِيقَةِ ٱلْبَيْتِ ٱلْكَبِيرِ.
"The girl played in the garden of the big house."

قَرَأَ ٱلْغُلَامُ سُورَةَ ٱلْقُرْآنِ ٱلْكَرِيمِ.
"The boy read the sūrah of the Noble Qurʾān."

جَلَسَ ٱلرَّجُلُ فِي ظِلِّ شَجَرَةٍ عَرِيضَةٍ وَسِيعَةٍ.
"The man sat in the shade of a wide broad tree."

13.6.2. Describing the annexe

Consider, again, the same annexation:

كِتَابُ ٱلْجَارِيَةِ
"the girl's book"

Say, now, that we want to describe the annexe كِتَاب "book" with the adjectival noun صَغِير "a small one". Normally, nothing can come between the annexe and the annexed-to in an annexation. So, the attribute needs to be placed, again, after the annexed-to. However, this time it will match the annexe, not the annexed-to, in case, definiteness, gender, and number. So we get:

كِتَابُ ٱلْجَارِيَةِ ٱلصَّغِيرُ
"the girl's small book"

Note how the attribute ٱلصَّغِيرُ matches the annexe كِتَابُ in case and gender. Note also how the attribute is definite with an ٱلْ. This is because it is matching the annexe كِتَابُ in definiteness. The annexe كِتَاب is definite, not with ٱلْ, but rather because of the definite annexed-to ٱلْجَارِيَةِ "the girl". We've already learned this rule in section @ref(definiteness-of-the-annexation) above.

Similarly, if we describe the annexe كِتَاب in an indefinite annexation, we get:

كِتَابُ جَارِيَةٍ صَغِيرٌ
"a girl's small book"

This time the attribute صَغِيرٌ is indefinite with a tanwīned ḍ͡ḥammah ٌ. This is because the annexe كِتَابُ is indefinite. It is indefinite because annexed-to جَارِيَةٍ "a girl" is indefinite.

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Now, you might be foreseeing a problem. What if the annexe and the annexed-to have the same gender, and the annexe too is in the i-case? For example, in the sentence:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ ٱلرَّجُلِ ٱلْكَبِيرِ.

"The boy went to the big/old man's house."

or

"The boy went to the man's big house."

How do we know whether the attribute كَبِير is meant to describe the annexe بَيْتِ or the annexed-to ٱلرَّجُل? The annexe بَيْتِ and the annexed-to ٱلرَّجُل are both masculine, singular, definite, and in the i-case.

The answer is that in such cases, context will have to be clear to tell us which of the two meanings is intended. If the context makes it clear then there is no harm in using such a sentence for either of the two meanings.

Also, sometimes, the meaning of the attribute is such that it will likely apply to only one of the two nouns. For example,

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ ٱلرَّجُلِ ٱلْكَرِيمِ.

"The boy went to a noble/generous man's house."

In the sentence above the attribute كَرِيم "noble/generous" is likely to apply to a man, and not to a house.

If, however, the context is not clear, and the meaning of the attribute can apply to both the annexe and the annexed-to, then the attribute is likely to apply to the annexed-to and not to the annexe. So then, this interpretation is more likely:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ ٱلرَّجُلِ ٱلْكَبِيرِ.

"The boy went to the big/old man's house."

In order to apply a attribute to the annexe in such a case, it is better to break the annexation and form a prepositional phrase instead, usually with the preposition لِ, which, here, will mean "of". Example:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَىٰ ٱلْبَيْتِ ٱلْكَبِيرِ لِلرَّجُلِ .

"The boy went to the big house of the man."

Here are some more examples:

لَعِبَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ بِكُرَةِ ٱلْغُلَامِ ٱلْحَمرَاءِ.

"The girl played with the boy's red ball."

(Note that حَمْرَاء feminine to match كُرَة.)

سَقَطَتْ وَرَقَةُ ٱلشَّجَرَةِ ٱلْخَضْرَاءُ عَلَىٰ مَاءِ ٱلنَّهْرِ ٱلْعَرِيضِ.

"The green leaf of the tree fell on the water of the broad river."

(Note that خَضْرَاء is in the u-case to match وَرَقَة)

حَمَلَ ٱلْغُلَامُ حَقِيبَةَ ٱلْمَدْرَسَةِ ٱلثَّقِيلَةَ.

"The boy carried the heavy school-bag."

(literally: the heavy bag of the school).

كَتَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ عَلَىٰ صَفْحَةِ كِتَابٍ بَيْضَاءَ.

"The man wrote on the white page of a book."

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(Note that بَيْضَاءَ is feminine to match صَفْحَة. However, also note that it has an a-mark ◌َ in the i-case because it is semi-flexible.)

13.7. Semi-flexible nouns in an annexation

Remember that semi-flexible nouns are not tanwīned and that when indefinite, their i-case is indicated by an fat·ḥah ◌َ. But when definite with أَلْ then they behave just like fully-flexible nouns. Example of the semi-flexible noun ²صَحْرَاء "a desert":

Case	Indefinite	Definite
u-case	صَحْرَاءُ	أَلصَّحْرَاءُ
a-case	صَحْرَاءَ	أَلصَّحْرَاءَ
i-case	صَحْرَاءَ	أَلصَّحْرَاءِ

We will now see how semi-flexible nouns behave in an annexation.

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13.7.1. A semi-flexible noun as the annexed-to

Here are examples of the semi-flexible noun ²صَحْرَاء "a desert" as the annexed-to in an annexation:

أَلْقَرْيَةُ فِي وَسَطِ أَلصَّحْرَاءِ.

"The village is in the middle of the desert."

شَرِبَ أَلْأَعْرَابِيُّ مَاءً مِنْ بِئْرِ صَحْرَاءَ.

"The bedouin drank some water from a desert's well."

As you can see, when ²صَحْرَاء is definite, then its i-case is indicate by an kasrah ◌ِ, just like fully-flexible nouns. However, when it is indefinite, then its i-case is indicate by an fat·ḥah ◌َ.

This is consistent with the general behavior of semi-flexible nouns that we are familiar with.

13.7.2. A semi-flexible noun as the annexe

Contrary from expected behavior, a semi-flexible annexe, even when indefinite, takes an kasrah ◌ِ in the i-case instead of an fat·ḥah ◌َ. Example,

قَدِمَ ٱلْأَعْرَابِيُّ مِنْ صَحْرَاءِ أَرْضٍ بَعِيدَةٍ.
“The bedouin came from the desert of a far land.”

In the above example, صَحْرَاء[2] “a desert” is indefinite because it is the annexe to an indefinite annexed-to أَرْض “a land”. It is in the i-case because it is preceded by the preposition مِنْ “from”. Nevertheless, it takes an kasrah مِنْ صَحْرَاءِ أَرْضٍ, not an fat·ḥah, which would be incorrect: × مِنْ صَحْرَاءَ أَرْضٍ.

13.8. Annexations with more than two nouns

So far we have seen annexations with two nouns. Annexations may be arbitrarily long. Here is an example of a noun-chain with more than two nouns:

$$\underbrace{\text{ٱلْبَيْتِ}}_{b_2}\ \underbrace{\text{بَابِ}}_{b_1\ a_2}\ \underbrace{\text{مِفْتَاحُ}}_{a_1}$$

“the house’s door’s key”

The above annexation consists of three nouns. It may be divided into two sub-annexations:

i. مِفْتَاحُ بَابِ “door’s key”. Its annexe a_1 is مِفْتَاح and its annexed-to b_1 is بَابِ.
ii. بَابِ ٱلْبَيْتِ “the house’s door”. Its annexe a_2 is بَابِ and its annexed-to b_2 is ٱلْبَيْتِ.

The noun بَاب “door” is common to both sub-annexations. It is the annexed-to of the first sub-annexation مِفْتَاحُ بَابِ “door’s key”. At the same time, it is also the annexe of the second sub-annexation بَابِ ٱلْبَيْتِ “the house’s door”.

Only the final annexed-to may have أَلْ or be tanwīned. If the final annexed-to has أَلْ (as above) then all the nouns in the annexation are definite.

And if the final annexed-to is indefinite, as in the example below, then all the nouns in the annexation are indefinite.

مِفْتَاحُ بَابِ بَيْتٍ
“a house’s door’s key”

All the nouns except the first annexe must be in the i-case. Consistent with section @ref(a-semi-flexible-noun-as-the-annexe-noun) if a semi-flexible noun is any of the annexes and is in the i-case, then its i-case is indicated by an fat·ḥah ◌َ. Example:

مِنْ بِئْرِ صَحْرَاءِ أَرْضٍ
“from the well of the desert of a land”

Work in progress

13.9. Pronouns as annexed-tos

Consider the expression:

"his book"

This expression is very similar to the annexation:

كِتَابُ ٱلْغُلَامِ

"the boy's book"

The difference is that we would like to replace the annexed-to ٱلْغُلَام "the boy" with the pronoun "his". For this we use the attached pronoun هُ. When we place this pronoun as the annexed-to, we get:

كِتَابُهُ

"his book"

This annexation follows the same rules as the other annexations we have been studying so far:

- The annexe may be in any case, depending on its function in the sentence.
- The annexed-to is in the i-case. But because the annexed-to is a pronoun, and pronouns are rigid nouns (see section @ref(rigidity-of-pronouns) that don't change their ending based on their case, therefore it's i-case will not be apparent.

Here are some examples of this annexation used in sentences:

كِتَابُهُ ثَقِيلٌ.

"His book is heavy"

قَرَأَ ٱلرَّجُلُ كِتَابَهُ.

"The man read his book."

كَتَبَ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُ فِي كِتَابِهِ.

"The teacher$_{m}$ wrote in his book."

If the annexe ends with ة then it is converted to a ت when annexing it to an attached pronoun. For example:

ذَهَبُوا إِلَىٰ مَدْرَسَتِهِمْ.

"They went to their school."

Here are some more examples of annexing to the different attached pronouns:

دَخَلْتَ بَيْتَكَ.

"You$_{1,m}$ entered your$_{1,m}$ house."

أَكَلَتَا طَعَامَهُمَا.

"They$_{2,f}$ ate their$_{2}$ food."

قَدِمْتُ إِلَىٰ مَدِينَتِكُمْ

"I have arrived to your$_{3,m}$ city."

هُوَ إِمَامُ مَسْجِدِنَا.

"He is the ʾImām of our mosque."

Work in progress

If the annexe is semi-flexible then it gets a ِ in the i-case, as we've already learned. Example with the semi-flexible broken plural ²حَدَائِق "gardens".

لَعِبْنَ فِي حَدَائِقِهِنَّ.

"They$_{3,f}$ played in their$_{3,f}$ gardens."

If an annexe ends with ىٰ then it gets converted to an alif when annexing it to an attached pronoun. Example with ²فَتَاوَىٰ "legal opinions":

كَتَبَ تَلَامِذَةُ ٱلشَّيْخِ فَتَاوَاهُ فِي كُتُبِهِمْ.

"The pupils of the religious scholar wrote down his legal opinions in their books."

For the singular speaker-participant there are two variants for the attached pronoun:

i. ي -*ī*
ii. يَ -*ya*

The first (ي -*ī*) is more commonly used. Example:

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابِي

"I read my book."

أَقْلَامِي قَصِيرَة.

"My pens are short."

If, however, the annexe ends in a long vowel or a semi-vowel then (ي -*ī*) is disallowed and only (يَ -*ya*) shall be used. Example with the semi-flexible broken plural ²هَدَايَا "gifts":

أَعْجَبَتْهُمْ هَدَايَايَ.

"My gifts pleased them."

Work in progress

13.9.1. Attributes with annexations to pronouns

Consider the annexation:

كِتَابُهُ

"his book"

The annexe is كِتَاب and the annexed-to is the pronoun ه. We would like add a attribute to this expression. Remember from section @ref(definiteness-of-pronouns) that pronouns are definite nouns. That makes the annexe كِتَاب also definite. Therefore, any attribute for this annexation will need to be definite too.

Here is a new rule: Pronouns may not be attributed-tos. That is: they are not allowed to have attributes. Even in English you may say:

"The good boy went."

but you can't say:

× "The good *he* went."

So, any attributes for the annexation must necessarily only describe the annexe, not the pronoun which is the annexed-to. Example:

كِتَابُهُ الأَحْمَرُ

"his red book"

Here are some more examples:

كَتَبْتُ بِقَلَمِيَ ٱلْأَسْوَدِ

"I wrote with my black pen."

حَمَلَ غِلْمَانُ ٱلْقَرْيَةِ حَقَائِبَهُمُ ٱلثَّقِيلَة إِلَىٰ مَدْرَسَتِهِمُ ٱلْبَعِيدَةِ.

"The village boys carried their heavy bags to their distant school."
(literally: the village's boys.)

13.10. Duals and *ūn* sound plurals in annexations

We have already dealt with broken plurals and *āt* sound plurals in annexations in section @ref(broken-plurals-and-at-sound-plurals-in-annexations).

In this section we will deal with duals and *ūn* sound plurals in annexations.

work in progress

13.10.1. Duals and *ūn* sound plurals as annexed-tos

As annexed-to, duals and *ūn* sound plurals behave no differently than other nouns. Being annexed-tos they will be in the i-case and this shall be indicated by:

i. ـَيْنِ *-ayni* for duals
ii. ـِينَ *-īna* for *ūn* sound plurals

Here are some examples:

لَجِئَ ٱلْمَظْلُومُنَ ٱلضُّعَفَاءُ فِي بِلَادِ ٱلْمُسْلِمِينَ ٱلْآمِنَةِ.

"The weak wronged ones took refuge in the secure lands of the Muslims."

أُخْتُ ٱلْغُلَامَيْنِ ٱلطَّوِيلَيْنِ صَغِيرَة.

"The tall boys'$_2$ sister is little."

هِيَ طَالِبَةُ مُعَلِّمَتَيْنِ كَرِيمَتَيْنِ.

"She is the student$_f$ of noble teachers$_{2,f}$."

13.10.2. Duals and *ūn* sound plurals as annexes

When duals and *ūn* sound plurals are annexes, then their final ن is treated as a sort of tanwīn and is, therefore, deleted before annexing them to a annexed-to. For example:

بَيْتَا ٱلرَّجُلِ

"the man's houses$_2$"

not

× بَيْتَانِ ٱلرَّجُلِ

Note, also, that because the annexed-to ٱلرَّجُلِ begins with a connecting hamzah ٱ, therefore the long vowel *ā* at the end of بَيْتَا is pronounced as a short vowel *a*, thus:

bayta -rrajuli

not

× *baytā -rrajuli*

If the dual annexe were in the i-case then the final ي gets an kasrah ◌ٍ if there is following connecting hamzah. Example:

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابَيِ ٱلرَّجُلِ.

qaraʾtu kitābayi -rrajul

"I read the man's books$_2$."

Here are some more examples including *ūn* sound plurals:

مُعَلِّمُو ٱلْغُلَامِ كِرَامٌ.

muɛallimu -l͡ghulāmi kirām.

"The boy's teachers$_3$ are noble."

(Note that there is no silent alif after مُعَلِّمُو as there is after a verb with a plural absentee-participant doer pronoun, e.g. لَعِبُوا "they$_{3,m}$ played")

لَعِبَ ٱبْنَا ٱلرَّجُلِ مَعَ لَاعِبِي مَدِينَتِهِمْ.

laɛiba -bna -rrajuli maɛa lāɛibī madīnatihim.

"The man's sons$_2$ played with the players of their city."

13.10.2.1. Annexing duals and *ūn* sound plurals to pronouns

Duals and *ūn* sound plurals can be annexed to attached pronouns, and in this case too, they will lose their final ن. Examples:

مُعَلِّمُونَا طَيِّبُونَ.

"Our teachers$_{3,m}$ are good."

لَعِبَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ مَعَ صَدِيقَتَيْهَا

"The girl played with her friends$_{2,f}$."

Work in progress

بَيْتَايَ كَبِيرَانِ.
"My houses$_2$ are big."
(Note that only the يَ variant is allowed to be used because of بَيْتَا ending with a long vowel.)

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابَيَّ
(Note how كِتَابَيْ + يَ becomes كِتَابَيَّ.)

There are also two special cases in this category and we will examine them below:

Annexing an *ūn* sound plural to the singular speaker participant pronoun

When an *ūn* sound plural is annexed to the singular speaker participant pronoun, then again, only the يَ variant can be used. However, in addition, the expression will appear the same regardless of the case of the annexe. So for all cases (u-case, a-case, and i-case), we will get:

مُعَلِّمِيَّ

We don't say × مُعَلِّمُويَ for the u-case. Examples:

مُعَلِّمِيَّ كِرَامٌ.
"My teachers$_{3,m}$ are noble."
(u-case)

سَأَلْتُ مُعَلِّمِيَّ
"I asked my teachers$_{3,m}$."
(a-case)

أَخَذْتُ كِتَابًا مِنْ مُعَلِّمِيَّ
"I took a book from my teachers$_{3,m}$."
(i-case)

Annexing an dual noun to a dual pronoun

When a dual noun is to be annexed to a dual pronoun, then the dual annexe is often converted to a plural. For example, instead of saying

نَظَرْتُ إِلَىٰ رَأْسَيْهِمَا "I looked at their$_2$ heads$_2$."

it is in fact, more common, to say

نَظَرْتُ إِلَىٰ رُؤُوسِهِمَا "I looked at their$_2$ heads$_3$."

Although the former is also correct. This is because the annexation of a dual to a dual is considered burdensome upon the tongue to utter, and so the plural is prefered.

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13.11. Annexations with “and”

13.11.1. Multiple annexes and one annexed-to

In English we can have an expression like “the pen and the book of the boy” = “the boy’s pen and book”. In this sentence there are two annexes and one annexed-to.

In order to express this in Arabic, we will say:

قَلَمُ ٱلْغُلَامِ وَكِتَابُهُ

qalamu -lg͡hulāmi wakitābuhu

“the boy’s pen and his book” = “the boy’s pen and book”

Note that the annexation is not broken by the insertion of وَ *wa* “and”. Rather a second annexation is used and the two are separated by وَ *wa* “and”. This is the preferred way of expressing such expressions.

There is another, less preferred way of expressing this. And this is by breaking the first annexation and inserting وَ *wa* “and”:

قَلَمُ وَكِتَابُ ٱلْغُلَامِ

qalamu wakitābu -lg͡hulāmi

“the boy’s pen and book”

This second method is not considered as eloquent. Some even consider it incorrect. So we advise you to use the first method whenever possible.

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13.11.1.1. With pronouns

If the annexed-to in the first annexation is replaced with a pronoun then only the first method is allowed. For example,

قَلَمُهُ وَكِتَابُهُ

qalamuhu wakitābuhu

“his pen and his book”

13.11.2. One annexe and multiple annexed-tos

We can also have expressions like “the house of the boy and the girl”. In this sentence there is one annexe and two annexed-tos.

To express this in Arabic we will say:

بَيْتُ ٱلْغُلَامِ وَٱلْجَارِيَةِ

baytu -lg͡hulāmi wa-ljāriyati

“the house of the boy and the girl”

Note that both ٱلْغُلَامِ *ʾalg͡hulāmi* and ٱلْجَارِيَةِ *ʾaljāriyati* are in the i-case because they are both annexed-tos in the annexation.

13.11.2.1. With pronouns

If one or both of the annexed-tos in the annexation is replaced with a pronoun then the first noun must be repeated. For example,

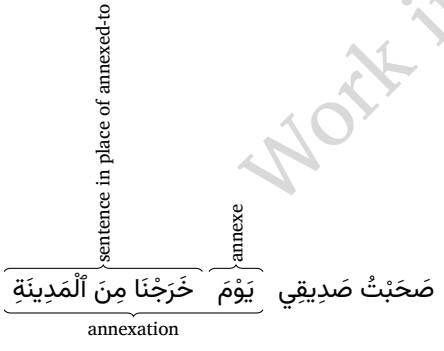
بَيْتُ ٱلْغُلَامِ وَبَيْتُهَا
"the boy's house and her house"

بَيْتُهُ وَبَيْتُهَا
baytuhu wabaytuhā
"his house and her house"

13.12. Annexation to a sentence

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So far we have studied the annexation of an annexe to a annexed-to. It is also possible to have an annnexation where the annexed-to is replaced by a sentence or a clause. For example,



"I accompanied my friend the day we left the city."

The word يَوْم is the annexe and is used as an adverb or time. The entire sentence خَرَجْنَا مِنَ ٱلْمَدِينَةِ. occupies the place of the annexed-to. We will study the adverb of time in chapter (give ref), if Allāh wills, where such annexations are common.

Annexation to a sentence also occurs besides adverbs.[1] For another example, see section (ref to idaafah to a أن يفعلَ).

[1] https://ar.wikipedia.org/wiki/الجملة_الفعلية_الواقعة_مضافا_إليه

13.13. Usage of the annexation

13.13.1. Primarily belonging

13.13.2. نحو، مثل، شبه

Don’t become definite when annexed to pronoun

13.13.3. نفس “self”

ضَرَبا أنفسهما
قالت لِي نَفسي

13.13.4. annexation of material

خاتمُ ذَهَبٍ
خاتمٌ ذَهَبٌ
خاتمٌ مِن ذَهَبٍ

13.13.5. مَدينَةُ دَمشق

13.13.6. مجرد ترفيه

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Chapter 14.

The numbers

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14.1. Introduction

Arabic numbers are complicated and we will treat them more fully in chapter (give ref), if Allāh wills. For now, we will give a short preview of the numbers from one to ten.

14.2. The number one

The word for the number "one" is وَاحِد *wāḥid*. It is an adjectival noun and can be used as a attribute. For example,

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابًا وَاحِدًا.

"I read one book."

As usual, when the described noun is feminine, then the attribute too وَاحِد is feminized:

أَكَلْتُ تَمْرَةً وَاحِدَةً.

"I ate one date."

Often, as in English, using the number وَاحِد "one" is optional. For example,

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابًا.

"I read a book."

14.3. The number two

The number for "one" وَاحِد is a singular noun. Correspondingly, the number for "two" اُثْنَانِ *iṯ͡hnāni* is a dual noun. It too can be used as attribute. For example,

دَخَلَ رَجُلَانِ اُثْنَانِ.

dak͡hala rajulāni -ṯ͡hnān

"Two men entered."

In the the a-case and i-case, it becomes اُثْنَيْنِ *iṯ͡hnayni*. For example,

قَرَأْتُ كِتَابَيْنِ اُثْنَيْنِ.

qaraʾtu kitābayni -ṯ͡hnayn

"I read two books."

When feminized it becomes اُثْنَتَانِ *iṯ͡hnatāni*. For example,

دَخَلَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ اُثْنَتَانِ وَأَكَلَتَا تَمْرَتَيْنِ اُثْنَتَيْنِ.

dak͡hala jāriyatāni -ṯ͡hnatāni waʾakalatā tamratayni -ṯ͡hnatayn.

"Two girls entered and ate two dates."

As with وَاحِد "one", the use of the number two is optional because its meaning is inherent in the dual. For example,

دَخَلَتْ جَارِيَتَانِ وَأَكَلَتَا تَمْرَتَيْنِ.

dak͡hala jāriyatāni waʾakalatā tamratayn.

"Two girls entered and ate two dates."

Work in progress

14.4. The numbers from three to ten

We saw that the number وَاحِد "one" is a singular noun, and that the number اُثْنَانِ *iṯ͡hnāni* "two" is a dual noun.

So it should come as no surprise that the numbers three to ten are treated as plural nouns. (We say *treated as plurals* because they're not technically plurals. For example, they don't conform to the broken plural patterns. But let's not worry about that for now.)

Now, remember that ة is a feminine marker for singular nouns, but not for plural nouns. In fact, recall that there is almost a role reversal for ة in plural nouns, where it tends to occur for plurals of masculine nouns, and is missing for plurals of feminine nouns. For example, the plural of هِرّ "a male cat" is هِرَرَة, and the plural of هِرَّة "a female cat" is هِرَر, We will now see this role reversal of ة in the numbers three to ten. When a number from 3–10 is used for a masculine noun then it shall have ة and when it is used for a feminine noun then it shall not have ة. Here then are the numbers from 3–10:

Number	Masculine	Feminine
three	ثَلَاثَة	ثَلَاث
four	أَرْبَعَة	أَرْبَع
five	خَمْسَة	خَمْس
six	سِتَّة	سِتّ
seven	سَبْعَة	سَبْع
eight	ثَمَانِيَة	ثَمَانِي
nine	تِسْعَة	تِسْع
ten	عَشَرَة	عَشْر

The number 10 is irregular in that the masculine number has a fatḥah on the ش (عَشَرَة *ɛas͡harah*). Whereas the feminine number has a sukūn on the ش (عَشْر *ɛas͡hr*).

Consistent with the numbers 1 and 2, the numbers from 3–10 may be used as attributes. But they are more often used as annexes. As mentioned earlier, we will treat numbers more fully later, if Allāh wills. But here are some examples for now:

لِلْمَرْأَةِ ثَلَاثَةُ أَبْنَاءٍ وَأَرْبَعُ بَنَاتٍ.

lilmarʾati t͡halāt͡hatu ʾabnāʾin waʾarbaɛu banāt.

"The woman has three sons and four daughters."

وَضَعْتُ عَشَرَةَ أَقْلَامٍ فِي عَشْرِ حَقِيبَاتٍ.

waḍ͡haɛtu ɛas͡harata ʾaqlāmin fī ɛas͡hri ḥaqībāt.

"I put ten pens in ten bags."

The feminine number ثَمَانِي "eight" has a final weak letter ي. As we will learn in chapter (give ref), this final letter cannot take a kasrah or a ḍ͡hammah. For example,

أَكَلَتْ ثَمَانِي هِرَرٍ ثَمَانِيَ كِسَرَاتٍ مِنَ ٱللَّحْمِ فِي ثَمَانِي سَاعَاتٍ.

ʾakalat t͡hamānī hirarin t͡hamāniya kisarātin mina -llaḥmi fī t͡hamānī sāɛāt.

"Eight cats$_f$ ate eight pieces of meat in eight hours."

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Chapter 15.

Some irregular nouns

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15.1. Introduction

There are some nouns in Arabic which are *irregular* and behave a little differently than other *regular* nouns. In this chapter we will study these irregular nouns.

15.2. The five nouns

There are five nouns in Arabic which are irregular in the same basic way. Collectively, they are called "the five nouns". They behave a little differently from regular nouns in how they indicate their case.

15.2.1. أَبٌ *ʾab*, أَخٌ *ʾak͡h*, and حَمٌ *ḥam*

The first three nouns that we will talk about are:

i. أَبٍ *ʾab* "a father" (root: أبو)
ii. أَخٍ *ʾak͡h* "a brother" (root: أخو)
iii. حَمٍ *ḥam* "a father-in-law" (root: حمو)

The final root letter of all three of these nouns is و. However, irregularly, it is omitted in most formations of the word. It does resurface in some cases as we will describe below.

Without the final root letter و, these nouns indicate their case like regular nouns. Here are some examples:

لِلْجَارِيَةِ أَبٌ كَبِيرٌ وَأَخٌ صَغِيرٌ.

liljāriyati ʾabun kabīrun waʾak͡hun ṣag͡hīr

“The girl has an old father and a young brother.”

ضَرَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ أَخًا لَهُ.

ḍ͡haraba -lg͡hulāmu ʾak͡han lahu.

“The boy beat a brother of his.”

ٱلْحَمُ وَٱلْأَبُ فِي بَيْتِ ٱلْأَخِ.

ʾalḥamu walʾabu fī bayti -lʾak͡h.

“The father-in-law and the father are in the brother’s house.”

Where the nouns behave irregularly is when they are an annexe in an annexation. Then instead of indicating their case with ُ, َ, and ِ, they indicate their case using the long vowels و *ū*, ا *ā*, and ي *ī* instead. Here are some examples:

هُوَ أَخُو ٱلْجَارِيَةِ.

huwa ʾak͡hu -ljāriyah

“He is the girl’s brother.”

سَأَلْتُ أَبَا صَدِيقِي عَنْ أَمْرٍ.

saʾaltu ʾabā ṣadīqī ɛan ʾamr.

“I asked my friend’s father about a matter.”

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ حَمِي ٱلرَّجُلِ.

ḍ͡hahabtu ʾilā bayti ḥami -rrajul.

“I went to the man’s father-in-law’s house.”

When these nouns are annexed to attached pronouns, then in most cases they will behave as above. So, for example,

أَبُوهُ

ʾabūhu

“his father” (u-case).

أَخَانَا

ʾak͡hānā

“our brother” (a-case).

However, if the attached pronoun is ي (for the singular speaker participant), then in that case, the attached pronoun ي attaches to the annexe directly, without any intervening long vowel:

أَخِي

ʾak͡hī

“my brother” (u-case, a-case, and i-case).

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أَبِي
ʾabī
“my father” (u-case, a-case, and i-case).

حَمِي
ḥamī
“my father-in-law” (u-case, a-case, and i-case).

Here are some more examples in sentences:

أَخُوهُ طَوِيلٌ وَأَخُوهَا قَصِيرٌ وَأَخِي كَبِيرٌ.
ʾak͡hūhu ṭawīlun waʾak͡hūhā qaṣīrun waʾak͡hī kabīr.
“His brother is tall and her brother is short and my brother is big.”

سَأَلَ أَخَاهُمْ وَأَخَانَا.
saʾaltu ʾak͡hāhum waʾak͡hānā.
“I asked their$_{\text{m,3+}}$ brother and our brother.”

شَكَرَ أَخِي أَبِي.
s͡hakara ʾak͡hī ʾabī.
“My brother thanked my father.”

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ أَخِيهِنَّ.
d͡hahabtu ʾilā bayti ʾak͡hīhinn.
“I went to their$_{\text{f,3+}}$ brother’s house.”

The above irregular behavior of these three nouns is only when they are annexes. When they happen to be annexed-tos in annexations, then they again they behave like regular nouns and their case is indicated by the short vowel marks ُ, َ, and ِ, when definite, and by tanwīn ٌ, ً, and ٍ, when indefinite. . Examples:

بَيْتُ ٱلْأَخِ كَبِيرٌ.
baytu -lʾak͡hi kabīr.
“The brother’s house is big.”

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ أَخٍ.
d͡hahabtu ʾilā bayti ʾak͡h.
“I went to a brother’s house.”

When these nouns form their duals and plurals, then the final root letter و is resurfaces. In forming the broken plural, the final root letter و, being a weak letter, sometimes converts to a ء. The following table shows their duals and plurals.

Word	Dual (u-case)	Dual (a-case and i-case)	Plural
أَب *ʾab*	أَبَوَانِ *ʾabawāni*	أَبَوَيْنِ *ʾabawayni*	آبَاء *ʾābāʾ*
أَخ *ʾak͡h*	أَخَوَانِ *ʾak͡hawāni*	أَخَوَيْنِ *ʾak͡hawayni*	إِخْوَة *ʾik͡hwah*, إِخْوَان *ʾik͡hwān*
حَم *ḥam*	حَمَوَانِ *ḥamawāni*	حَمَوَيْنِ *ḥamawayni*	أَحْمَاء *ʾaḥmāʾ*

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One special note regarding the dual أَبَوَيْنِ/أَبَوَانِ: in addition to meaning “two fathers”, they can also mean “both parents”, i.e., “a father and a mother”. Here are examples of these words in sentences:

ذَهَبَ ٱلْأَخَوَانِ إِلَى ٱلْمَسْجِدِ.
dh͡ahaba -lʾakh͡awāni fi -lmasjidi.
“The brothers$_2$ went to the mosque.”

سَأَلْتُ أَخَوَيَّ عَنْ أَمْرٍ
saʾaltu ʾakh͡awayya ɛan ʾamrin.
“I asked my brothers$_2$ about a matter.”

شَكَرْتُ لِأَبَوَيْهِ
sh͡akartu liʾabawayhi.
“I thanked his parents.”

15.2.2. ذُو *dh͡ū* and ذَات *dh͡āt*

The fourth irregular noun from “the five nouns” is the masculine noun ذُو *dh͡ū* and its feminine counterpart ذَات and *dh͡āt*. The words ذُو *dh͡ū* and ذَات *dh͡āt* mean “owner of” or “possessor of”.

So, for example, ذُو ٱلْمَالِ *dh͡u -lmāli* means “possessor$_m$ of wealth” or “wealthy person$_m$”. The singular, dual, and plural of ذُو *dh͡ū* in all three cases is shown in the table below:

Case	Singular	Dual	Plural
u-case	ذُو *dh͡ū*	ذَوَا *dh͡awā*	ذَوُو *dh͡awū*
a-case	ذَا *dh͡ā*	ذَوَيْ *dh͡away*	ذَوِي *dh͡awī*
i-case	ذِي *dh͡ī*	same as a-case	same as a-case

The noun ذُو *dh͡ū* and its duals and plurals are only ever used as annexes in annexations. Furthermore, they may not be annexed to pronouns. Here are some examples:

ٱلرَّجُلُ ذُو ٱلْمَالِ.
ʾarrujulu dh͡u -lmāl.
“The man is the possessor of wealth.” = “This man is wealthy.”

The word ذَات is the feminine of ذُو. When used as an annexe, its cases, duals, and plurals are as in the table below:

Case	Singular	Dual	Plural
u-case	ذَاتُ *dh͡ātu*	ذَوَاتَا *dh͡awātā*	ذَوَاتُ *dh͡awātu*
a-case	ذَاتَ *dh͡āta*	ذَوَاتَيْ *dh͡awātay*	ذَوَاتِ *dh͡awāti*

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Case	Singular	Dual	Plural
i-case	ذَاتِ *dh͡āti*	same as a-case	same as a-case

Examples:

هَـٰذِهِ ٱلشَّجَرَةُ ذَاتُ ثَمَرٍ كَثِيرٍ.

hādh͡ihi -sh͡shajaratu dh͡ātu th͡amarin kath͡īrin.

"This tree is the possessor of much fruit." = "This tree is very fruitful."

As opposed to ذُو which is only an annexe, ذَات may be used a noun in its own right. In this case it means "personality" or "essence". This usage is often found in theological or philosophical works. And, as such, unlike ذُو which can't be annexed to attached pronouns, ذَات can be annexed to attached pronouns. Examples:

15.2.3. فَم *fam*

The fifth of "the five nouns" is فَم *fam* "a mouth". It is the most irregular of "the five nouns".

In some ways, the word فَم *fam* is regular. It is only irregular when it is a singular annexe. Let's first see its regular bahavior.

عَلَى ٱلْوَجْهِ فَمٌ وَفِي ٱلْفَمِ لِسَانٌ.

ɛala -lwajhi famun wafi -lfami lisān

"On the face is a mouth, and in the mounth is a tongue."

It is a annexed-to in an annexation regularly:

نَطَقَ لِسَانُ ٱلْفَمِ.

naṭaqa lisānu -lfam.

"The mouth's tongue articulated [speech]."

It forms duals regularly, which are used in annexations regularly

فَمَا ٱلنَّهْرَيْنِ كَبِيرَانِ.

fama -nnahrayni kabīrāni.

"The mouths$_2$ of the rivers$_2$ are big."

Let's now see its irregular behavior.

When فَم is a singular annexe, then it is usual for it to follow the example of the rest of the five nouns.

Here is how it will appear as a singular annexe in the three cases:

u-case	a-case	i-case
فُو *fū*	فَا *fā*	فِي *fī*

Examples of usage:

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فُو ٱلنَّهْرِ كَبِيرٌ.
fu -nnahri kabīr.
“The mouth of the river is big.”
فُوهَا جَمِيلٌ.
fūhā jamīl.
“Her mouth is beautiful.”
فَتَحَ فَاهُ.
fataḥa fāh.
“He opened his mouth.”
جَعَلَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ لُقْمَةَ طَعَامٍ فِي فِي ٱبْنَتِهَا.
jaɛalati -lʾummu luqmata ṭaɛāmin fī fi -bnatihā.
“The mother put a morsel of food in her daughter’s mouth.”

When the attached pronoun for the speaking person ي is attached to فُو *fū*, فَا *fā*, or فِي *fī* the combination is always فِيَّ *fiyya* in all three cases. Examples:

فِيَّ مَفْتُوحٌ.
fiyya maftūh.
“My mouth is open.”
فَتَحْتُ فِيَّ.
fataḥtu fiyy.
“I opened my mouth.”
أَكَلْتُ بِفِيَّ.
ʾakaltu bifiyy.
“I ate with my mouth.”

In addition to the above irregular behavior, it is permissible, but less common, to treat فَم regularly as an annexe in an annexation. So it is permissible to also say:

فَمُ ٱلنَّهْرِ كَبِيرٌ.
famu -nnahri kabīr.
“The river’s mouth is big.”
فَمِي مَفْتُوحٌ.
famī maftūhun.
“My mouth is open.”
فَمُهَا جَمِيلٌ.
famuhā jamīlun.
“Her mouth is beautiful.”
فَتَحَ فَمَهُ.
fataḥa famahu.
“He opened his mouth.”
جَعَلَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ لُقْمَةَ طَعَامٍ فِي فَمِ ٱبْنَتِهَا.
jaɛalati -lʾummu luqmata ṭaɛāmin fī fami -bnatihā.
“The mother put a morsel of food in her daughter’s mouth.”

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The other irregularity of فَم *fam* “a mouth” is that its broken plural is أَفْواه *ʾafwāh*.

Note that the letter م has not been used to form the broken plural, and instead a و, and a ه are used to form it.

15.3. Other irregular nouns

There are more nouns that have irregularity in their own ways. We will discuss them below.

15.3.1. أُولُو *ʾulū* and أُولَات *ʾulāt*

أُولُو *ʾulū* (first syllable has a short vowel with a silent و) means “people$_{m}$ of”. It is only used as a masculine plural annexe, similar in meaning to ذَوُو *ḏ͟hawū* which we discussed in section @ref(zu) above. There is no singular or dual of this noun.

Here is its form in the different cases:

u-case	a-and i-case
أُولُو *ʾulū*	أُولِي *ʾulī*

Example:

لِأُولِي ٱلْأَرْحَامِ حُقُوقٌ.

liʾuli -lʾarḥāmi ḥuqūq.

“The people of the wombs (i.e. blood relatives) have rights.”

The feminine counterpart of أُولُو *ʾulū* is أُولَات *ʾulāt* “women of”. The first syllable again has a short vowel with a silent و.

u-case	a-and i-case
أُولَاتُ *ʾulātu*	أُولَاتِ *ʾulāti*

لِأُولَاتِ ٱلْحَمْلِ حُقُوقٌ عَلَىٰ بُعُولَتِهِنَّ.

liʾulāti -lḥamli ḥuqūq ɛalā buɛūlatihinn.

“The women of pregnancy (i.e. pregnant women) have rights upon their husbands.”

15.3.2. أُمّ *ʾumm*

The noun أُمّ *ʾumm* “a mother” forms two *āt* sound plural variants:

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i. أُمَّهَات *ʾummahāt*
ii. أُمَّات *ʾummāt*

The first variant أُمَّهَات *ʾummahāt* is more commonly used. Example:

أُمَّاهَاتُ ٱلْغِلْمَانِ طَيِّبَاتٌ.
ʾummahātu -lg͡hilmāni ṭayyibāt.
"The boys' mothers are good."

15.3.3. سَنَة *sanah*

The noun سَنَة *sanah* "a year" forms both an *āt* sound plural and an *ūn* sound plural. (Remember from section @ref(applicability-of-the-un-sound-plural) that a few nouns that don't denote male intelligent beings have *ūn* sound plurals.)

In both plurals, the singular noun is modified irregularly.

Singular	*āt* sound plural	*ūn* sound plural (u-case)	*ūn* sound plural (a-case and i-case)
سَنَة *sanah*	سَنَوَات *sanawāt*	سِنُونَ *sinūna*	سِنِينَ *sinīna*

Either of the two plurals may be used interchangeably. Here are some examples:

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15.3.4. مَاء *māʾ*

مَاء *māʾ* "a water" forms its broken plural irregularly: مِيَاه *miyāh* "waters".

15.3.5. شَفَة *sh͡afah*

شَفَة *sh͡afah* "a lip" forms its broken plural irregularly: شِفَاه *sh͡ifāh* "lips".

Also, despite ending in the feminine marker ة, it does not form an *āt* sound plural.

15.3.6. ٱبْن *ʾibn*, ٱبْنَة *ʾibnah*, and بِنْت *bint*

The noun ٱبْن *ʾibn* "a son" is from the root بنو. It has two feminine counterparts:

i. ٱبْنَة *ʾibnah*
ii. بِنْت *bint*

which mean “a daughter”.

ٱبْن *ʾibn* “a son” forms both a broken plural and an *ūn* sound plural.

Its broken plural is أَبْنَاء *ʾabnāʾ* “sons”.

In forming the *ūn* sound plural, the singular noun is modified irregularly:

Singular	*ūn* sound plural (u-case)	*ūn* sound plural (a-case and i-case)
ٱبْن *ʾibn*	بَنُونَ *banūna*	بَنِينَ *banīna*

The feminine ٱبْنَة and بِنْت “a daughter” form the irregular *āt* sound plural □□□□□□ *banāt* “daughters”. Note that بَنَات *banāt* is not a broken plural from the root بنت. Therefore, it obeys the rules of *āt* sound plurals and does not end with ◌َ or ◌ً in the a-case.

Here are some examples using these nouns:

15.3.7. نَاس *nās*, and أُنَاس *ʾunās*

نَاس *nās* and أُنَاس *ʾunās* are from the root أنس. They both mean “a people”.

When indefinite, only أُنَاس *ʾunās* tends to be used, and نَاس *nās* tends to be unused.

When definite, only اَلنَّاس *ʾannās* tends to be used, and اَلْأُنَاس *ʾalʾunās* is unused.

Here are some examples using these nouns:

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15.3.8. The nouns ٱمْرَأ and ٱمْرَأَة

The nouns ٱمْرَأ *ʾimraʾ* (masc.) “a man, a person” and ٱمْرَأَة *ʾimraʾah* (fem.) “a woman” are quite irregular.

Firstly, ٱمْرَأَة *ʾimraʾah* “a woman” is, from the perspective, of its meaning, the feminine counterpart of رَجُل *rajul* “a man (male human being)”.

ٱمْرَأ *ʾimraʾ*, on the other hand, only means “a man” in a general sense. For example, in the sentence “A man is only as good as his word.” It can also be translated as “a person”.

Secondly, ٱمْرَأ *ʾimraʾ* “a man, a person” has no plural. أُنَاس/نَاس “a people” and قَوْم “a population” may be used when a plural is required.

ٱمْرَأَة *ʾimraʾah* “a woman” irregularly forms the broken plurals نِسَاء *nisāʾ* and نِسْوَة *niswah* “women”. The former (نِسَاء *nisāʾ*) is more commonly used.

Like شَفَة *shafah* it also, despite ending in the feminine marker ة, does not form an *āt* sound plural.

Thirdly, both nouns are very irregular in how they become definite nouns with أَلْ. When أَلْ is prefixed to these nouns to make them definite, they lose the initial connecting hamzah and change their internal vowels. This table shows what we mean:

Case	Definite of اِمْرَأ	Definite of اِمْرَأَة
u-case	اَلْمَرْءُ *ʾalmarʾu*	اَلْمَرْأَةُ *ʾalmarʾatu*
a-case	اَلْمَرْءَ *ʾalmarʾa*	اَلْمَرْأَةَ *ʾalmarʾata*
i-case	اَلْمَرْءِ *ʾalmarʾi*	اَلْمَرْأَةِ *ʾalmarʾati*

The masculine noun اِمْرَأ *ʾimraʾ* has an additional irregularity. When it is indefinite, it irregularly indicates its case, not only on its final letter ء, but also on the letter before it ر.

It is also permissible for it to behave regularly by indicating its case on its final letter only, but this is not as commonly used.

This table shows what we mean:

Case	Regular indefinite (less common)	Irregular indefinite (more common)
u-case	اِمْرَأٌ *ʾimraʾun*	اِمْرُؤٌ *ʾimruʾun*
a-case	اِمْرَءًا *ʾimraʾan*	اِمْرَءًا *ʾimraʾan*
i-case	اِمْرَإٍ *ʾimraʾin*	اِمْرِئٍ *ʾimriʾin*

Here are some examples of these nouns:

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Chapter 16.

The proper noun

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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16.1. Introduction

Proper nouns are also known as names. Here are some examples of Arabic names:

Men's	names	Women's	names
مُحَمَّد	Muḥammad	عَائِشَة[2]	Ɛāʾis͡hah
سَعِيد	Saɛīd	فَاطِمَة[2]	Faṭimah
ٱلْحَسَن	al-Ḥasan	حَفْصَة[2]	Ḥafṣah
ٱلنُّعْمَان	al-Nuɛmān	سُمَيَّة[2]	Sumayyah
طَلْحَة[2]	Ṭalḥah	جَمِيلَة[2]	Jamīlah
أُسَامَة[2]	Usāmah	زَيْنَب[2]	Zaynab
عُثْمَان[2]	Ɛuth͡mān	مَرْيَم[2]	Maryam
عُمَر[2]	Ɛumar	سُعَاد[2]	Suɛād
إِبْرَاهِيم[2]	Ibrāhīm	أَسْمَاء[2]	Asmāʾ
عَبْد ٱللَّه	Ɛabd Allāh	لَيْلَىٰ[2]	Laylā
أَبُو بَكْر	Abū Bakr	أُمّ حَبِيبَة[2]	Umm Ḥabībah

Place	names	Misc.	names
مَكَّة[2]	Makkah	رَمَضَان[2]	Ramadān (a month)
دِمَشْق[2]	Damascus	أُحُد	Uḥud (a mountain)
مِصْر[2]	Egypt	اَلنِّيل	the Nile (a river)
اَلْقَاهِرَة	Cairo	اَلْفَاتِحَة	the Fātiḥah (a sūrah)
اَلْهِنْد	India	اَلْجُمُعَة	Friday

Note the following points from the list abobe:

- Although some names begin with اَلْ, most don't.
- Many names are semi-flexible (indicated by [2]◌).
- Some names consist of more than a single word, like عَبْد ٱللَّـه ʿabd Allāh

We will explain these and more details regarding proper nouns in this chapter.

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16.2. Definiteness of proper nouns

Proper nouns differ from common nouns and adjectival nouns in a couple of important ways:

- All proper nouns, even if they don't begin with اَلْ, are definite.
- A proper noun which does not begin with اَلْ, and which is fully-flexible, shall be tanwīned, despite being definite.

The above points are exemplified in the following sentence:

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ مُحَمَّدٍ ٱلْكَرِيمِ وَزَيْنَبَ ٱلطَّيِّبَةِ.

dh͡habtu ʾilā bayti muḥammadini -lkarīmi wazaynaba -ṭṭayyibah.

"I went to the house of the noble Muḥammad and the good Zaynab."

Note the above from the above example:

- مُحَمَّدٍ is fully-flexible so it has a tanwīned kasrah ◌ٍ in the i-case.
- زَيْنَبَ is semi-flexible so it is not tanwīned, and instead has an fat·ḥah ◌َ in the i-case.
- The proper nouns مُحَمَّد and زَيْنَب are attributed-tos in descriptive noun phrases.
- Their attributes (ٱلْكَرِيمِ and .ٱلطَّيِّبَةِ, respectively) have اَلْ to match the definiteness of the definite proper noun attributed-tos. Furthermore, they both end with ◌ِ because they match the i-case of their attributed-tos.

16.3. Meanings of names

Many names are re-used from common nouns and adjectival nouns with positive meanings. Examples:

- مُحَمَّد Muḥammad “a highly praised one$_m$”
- سَعِيد Saɛīd “a happy (fortunate) one$_m$”
- ٱلْحَسَن al-Ḥasan “the good one$_m$”
- طَلْحَة Ṭalḥah “an acacia (tree)”
- جَمِيلَة Jamīlah “a beautiful one$_f$”

It is possible for these names to sometimes (technically) cause a sentence to have an ambiguous meaning. For example,

جَلَسَ ٱلْحَسَنُ مَعَ سَعِيدٍ.

jalsa -lhasanu maɛa saɛīd

“al-Ḥasan sat with Saɛīd.”

or

“The good one$_m$ sat with a happy (fortunate) one$_m$.”

Context would tell us whether the proper noun or the common/adjectival noun meaning is intended.

Note however the following sentence:

ذَهَبَتْ جَمِيلَةُ إِلَىٰ ٱلْبَيْتِ.

dh̄ahabat jamīlatu ʾila -lbayt.

This sentence can only be understood to use جَمِيلَة with its proper noun meaning:

“Jamīlah went to the house.”

This is because جَمِيلَة is semi-flexible as a proper noun and fully-flexible as an adjectival noun or common noun. If جَمِيلَة were intended to be used with its adjectival noun or common noun meaning then it would have a tanwīned ḏh̄ammah ٌ and the sentence would be:

ذَهَبَتْ جَمِيلَةٌ إِلَىٰ ٱلْبَيْتِ.

dh̄ahabat jamīlatun ʾila -lbayt.

“A beautiful one$_f$ went to the house.”

We will learn why جَمِيلَة is semi-flexible as a proper noun in section @ref(proper-nouns-ending-with-looped-ta) below.

16.4. Flexibility of proper nouns

In this section we will discuss the flexibility of proper nouns. For now, we will deal only with proper nouns that do not begin with ٱلْ. In terms of their flexibility, proper nouns consist of two types:

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i. Fully-flexible proper nouns.
ii. Semi-flexible proper nouns.

We will treat each of them below.

16.4.1. Fully-flexible proper nouns

For names that don't begin with ٱلْ, the default assumption is that they are fully-flexible, unless they fall into one of the categories of semi-flexible nouns (which we will study soon).

Examples of fully-flexible names are:

مُحَمَّد	Muḥammad	مُعَاذ	Muɛādh͡
نُوح	Nūh	سَعْد	Saɛd
شُعَيْب	Sh͡uɛayb	عَمَّار	Ɛammār
عَلِيّ	Ɛalī	حَسَّان	Ḥassān
زَيْد	Zayd	سَعِيد	Saɛīd
أَنَس	Anas	أُحُد	Uḥud (a mountain)

These are all masculine names.

Examples of sentences with fully-flexible proper nouns:

زَيْدٌ غُلَامٌ طَيِّبٌ.
zaydun ɡ͡hulāmun ṭayyib
"Zayd is a good boy."

شَكَرَ أَنَسٌ عَلِيًّا.
sh͡akara ʾanasun ɛaliyyā.
"Anas thanked Ɛalī."

لَبِسَ سَعِيدٌ قَمِيصَ نُوحٍ ٱلأَخْضَرَ.
labisa saɛīdun qamīṣa nūḥini -lʾakẖḍ͡har.
"Saɛīd wore Nūḥ's green shirt."

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16.4.2. Semi-flexible proper nouns

The rules for the semi-flexibility of proper nouns are a little different from the rules for the semi-flexibility of common nouns and adjectival nouns that we learned in chapter @ref(semi-flexible-nouns). Proper nouns shall be semi-flexible if they fall under one of the categories below. Note that the categories are not mutually exclusive. That is: some semi-flexible proper nouns will fall into more than one category.

16.4.2.1. Names ending with ة

All names ending with ة shall be semi-flexible. This rule is specific to proper nouns. We have already seen that common nouns and adjectival nouns that end ith ة are fully-flexible.

Most such proper nouns are feminine names. Examples:

خَدِيجَة[2]	K͡hadījah	مَيْمُونَة[2]	Maymūnah
فَاطِمَة[2]	Faṭimah	صَفِيَّة[2]	Ṣafiyyah
عَائِشَة[2]	Ɛāʾiš͡hah	خَوْلَة[2]	K͡hawlah
سُمَيَّة[2]	Sumayyah	جَمِيلَة[2]	Jamīlah
حَفْصَة[2]	Ḥafṣah	آسِيَة[2]	Āsiyah

However, some masculine names may end with ة too:

حَمْزَة[2]	Ḥamzah	مُعَاوِيَة[2]	Muɛāwiyah
أُسَامَة[2]	Usāmah	عِكْرِمَة[2]	Ɛikrimah
طَلْحَة[2]	Ṭalḥah	عُبَادَة[2]	Ɛubādah

Example:

طَلْحَةُ ٱلْطَّوِيلُ بَعْلُ جَمِيلَةَ ٱلْكَرِيمَةِ.

“The tall Ṭalḥah is the husband of the generous Jamīlah.”

16.4.2.2. Names ending with an extrinsic اء or ىٰ

Similar to common nouns and adjectival nouns, all names ending with an extrinsic اء or ىٰ shall be semi-flexible. These are usually feminine names. Examples:

أَسْمَاء[2]	Asmāʾ	لَيْلَىٰ[2]	Laylā
دَرْدَاء[2]	Dardāʾ	سَلْمَىٰ[2]	Salmā

Examples in sentences:

ذَهَبَتْ سَلْمَىٰ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ أَسْمَاءَ.

“Salmā went tp Asmāʾ’s house.”

Sentence word order is usually pretty flexible. For stylistic reasons, it is permissible for a direct object to precede the doer. For example,

سَأَلَتْ دَرْدَاءَ أَسْمَاءُ.

“Asmāʾ asked Dardāʾ”

But because words that end with ىٰ never display any case, then for these words the sentence word order becomes more rigid. So the following sentence:

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سَأَلَتْ لَيْلَىٰ سَلْمَىٰ.
would usually only mean “Laylā asked Salmā.”

16.4.2.3. Names ending with an extrinsic ان

All names ending with an extrinsic ان will be semi-flexible.

This is somewhat different from the rule we learnt for common noun and adjectival nouns in section @ref(adjectival noun-an-diptote). There only adjectival nouns of the pattern فَعْلَان and whose feminine was not formed by adding ة to it were considered semi-flexible nouns.

Examples:

²عُثْمَان	ʕuth͡mān	²رَمَضَان	Ramaḍ͡hān
²سُفْيَان	Sufyān	²شَعْبَان	S͡haʕbān

Example:
جَلَس عُثْمَانُ مَعَ سُفْيَانَ فِي رَمَضَانَ.
“ʕuth͡mān sat with Sufyān in Ramaḍ͡hān.”

16.4.2.4. Names on the pattern أَفْعَل

All names on the pattern أَفْعَل shall be semi-flexible. Examples:

²أَحْمَد	Aḥmad	²أَسْعَد	Asʕad

16.4.2.5. Names of the pattern فُعَل

Names of the pattern فُعَل shall be semi-flexible. Examples:

²عُمَر	ʕumar	²مُضَر	Muḍ͡har

16.4.2.6. Names that are originally verbs

Names that are originally verbs are semi-flexible. Examples:

- ²يَزِيد Yazīd “He increases”
- ²يَعِيش Yaʕīs͡h “He lives”

Their origin as verbs will be apparent when we study PC verbs.

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16.4.2.7. Names of foreign origin

Names of foreign origin are generally semi-flexible. These include the names of angels, many of the previous prophets and messengers, and other persons. Examples:

جِبْرِيل[2]	Jibrīl	زَكَرِيَّا[2]	Zakariyyā
إِبْرَاهِيم[2]	Ibrāhīm	يَحْيَىٰ[2]	Yaḥyā
إِسْمَاعِيل[2]	Ismāɛīl	هَاجَر[2]	Hājar
إِسْحَاق[2]	Is·ḥāq	مَرْيَم[2]	Maryam
يَعْقُوب[2]	Yaɛqūb	يَأْجُوج[2]	Yaʾjūj
يُوسُف[2]	Yūsuf	مَأْجُوج[2]	Maʾjūj
يُونُس[2]	Yūnus	إِبْلِيس[2]	Iblīs
إِدْرِيس[2]	Idrīs	فِرْعَون[2]	Pharoah
أَيُّوب[2]	Ayyūb	هِرْقَل[2]	Heraclius
مُوسَىٰ[2]	Mūsā	كِسْرَىٰ[2]	Chosroes
عِيسَىٰ[2]	Ɛīsā	قَيْصَر[2]	Caesar

Note that فِرْعَون[2] "Pharoah" as قَيْصَر[2] "Caesar", despite being titles, are treated as proper names.

The only exception to this rule is a masculine name of foreign origin that comprises of only three letters, and whose middle letter has an sukūn. Such a name will be fully-flexible. Example:

- نُوح Nūḥ

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16.4.2.8. Feminine names

All feminine names, regardless of their origin, or their ending, shall be semi-flexible. We have already given examples of semi-flexible feminine names that end with ة, اء, and ىٰ, so we will provide other examples here:

زَيْنَب[2]	Zaynab	مَرْيَم[2]	Maryam
سُعَاد[2]	Suɛād	هَاجَر[2]	Hājar

The only exception to this rule is a feminine name of native Arabic origin, that comprises of only three letters, and whose middle letter has an sukūn. Such a name is permitted to be optionally fully-flexible or semi-flexible. Examples:

- هِنْد Hind
- دَعْد Daɛd

Example of usage:
ذَهَبَتْ هِنْدٌ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ دَعْدٍ.
or
ذَهَبَتْ هِنْدُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ دَعْدَ.
“Hind went to Daɛd’s house.

16.5. The name فُلَان

The fully-flexible name فُلَان is used as a place-holder name in casual conversations. It may be translated into English as “so-and-so”. For example,
ظَلَمَ ٱلرَّجُلُ فُلَانًا وَغَدَرَ بِفُلَانٍ. “The man wronged so-and-so and he acted treacherously with so-and-so.”

For females, the name [2]فُلَانَة is used.
صَدَقَتْ فُلَانَةُ.
“So-and-so$_f$ told the truth.”

16.6. Irregular spelling of the name عَمْرو Ɛamr

Irregularly, the fully-flexible name Ɛamr is written with a unpronounced و at its end: عَمْرو when in the u-case and i-case. In the a-case, the و is not added.

Name	u-case	a-case	i-case
Ɛamr	عَمْرٌو *ɛamrun*	عَمْرًا *ɛamran*	عَمْرٍو *ɛamrin*

Some have mentioned that this و was added in the spelling in order to distinguish it from the name [2]عُمَر Ɛumar, when written without vowel marks. Or it could be the remnant of an older (pre-Islāmic) practice of appending a final و to personal names.[1]

16.7. The Replacement

Before we proceed with our discussion on proper nouns, we will take a short digression to discuss a grammatical concept called the *replacement*. We will only

[1]Al-Jallad, “One wāw to rule them all: The origins and fate of wawation in Arabic and its orthography”

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give a short preview here and will treat it fully in chapter @ref(the-replacement-chapter).

A *replacement* is a word that follows another word, the *replacee*, and replaces it from the perspective of the grammar of the sentence. The replacement is put in the same case as the replacee. Here is an example of a sentence with a replacement and a replacee:

أَخَذَ ٱلْغُلَامُ شَيْئًا كِتَابًا.
replacee replacement

"The boy took something: a book"

In the above sentence, the word كِتَابًا "a book" is the replacement of شَيْئًا "something". Therefore, it is put in the same a-case.

The replacement is frequently used with proper nouns. For example,

ذَهَبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ عَمِّهِ عَلِيٍّ.

"The boy went to his uncle Ɛalī's house."

In this sentence, the name عَلِيّ Ɛalī is the replacement of the replacee عَمّ "uncle". Note, again, that the replacement comes after the replacee and matches it in case. However, the replacement does not need to come directly after the replacee. We can see that there is the pronoun ه "his" between them.

Here is another example:

سَأَلَ ٱلطَّالِبُ مُعَاذٌ ٱلْمُعَلِّمَ سَعْدًا.

"The student Muɛāḏh asked the teacher Saɛd."

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16.8. Annexed names

So far we have only dealt with proper nouns that are single words. There are some proper nouns that may be formed from two words that are in an annexation. These belong to different categories:

16.8.1. "Slave of" names

Some names are formed by annexing the noun عَبْد *ɛabd* "a slave" to one of the names of Allāh. The most common of these names are:

- عَبْد ٱللَّـه Ɛabd Allāh "the Slave of Allāh"
- عَبْد ٱلرَّحْمَـٰن Ɛabd al-Raḥmān "the Slave of the Most Merciful"

As usual, the annexed-to shall always be in the i-case. And the case of the annexe عَبْد is variable, depending on it's function in the sentence. Example:

عَبْدُ ٱللَّـهِ هُوَ أَخُو عَبْدِ ٱلرَّحْمَـٰنِ. "Ɛabd Allāh is the brother of Ɛabd al-Raḥmān."

16.8.2. "Parent of" names

It is common to call a man, not by his own given name, but rather by calling him the father of one of his children, usually his first born son. For example, if a man named أَحْمَد "Aḥmad" had a son named زَيْد "Zayd", he may be called أَبُو زَيْد Abū Zayd "Zayd's father". Example of usage in a sentence:

ذَهَبْتُ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِ أَبِي زَيْدٍ.
"I went to Abū Zayd's house."
(Note how زَيْدٍ has a tanwīned kasrah ٍ in the i-case because it is fully-flexible.)

While using the name of first-born son is more common, a daughter's name could be used as well. Example,

سَأَلْتُ أَبَا رُقَيَّةَ سُؤالًا.
"I asked Abū Ruqayyah a question."
(Note how رُقَيَّةَ has an fat·ḥah َ in the i-case because it is semi-flexible.)

Women, too, are similarly called as the mother of one of their children. For example, the wife of the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him) أُمّ حَبِيبَة[2] Umm Ḥabībah was called thus because she had a daughter named حَبِيبَة[2] from a previous marriage.

By the way, a person need not literally be a father or a mother to be called in such a way. These names may be applied as nicknames.

For example, the Companion of the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him) was called أَبُو هُرَيرَة[2] Abū Hurayrah because it is reported that he used to have a pet kitten (هُرَيْرَة). Here is an example of this name in a sentence.

أَبُو هُرَيْرَةَ صَحَابِيٌّ جَلِيلٌ.
"Abū Hurayrah is a great Companion."
(Note how هُرَيْرَةَ is now considered a semi-flexible proper noun even though it may originally have been derived from the common noun "a kitten".)

Similarly, the Companion أَبُو بَكْرٍ Abū Bakr is not known to have a son named بَكْر.

It is often the case that a "parent of" name overtakes the actual given name of person in popularity, and becomes the person's name for all intents and purposes. Such is indeed the case for the Companions أَبُو بَكْرٍ Abū Bakr and أَبُو هُرَيرَة[2] Abū Hurayrah.

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16.8.3. “Son of” names

In a manner similar to “parent of” names, a person may be referred to as the son of his parent. For example, the Companion عُمَر² Ɛumar had a son named عَبْد ٱللَّـه Ɛabd Allāh. He is commonly known as ٱبْن عُمَر² Ibn Ɛumar “Ɛumar’s son”.

Attributing a son to his father is most common. But attributing him to a mother or other ancestor is also possible.

Examples:

- the Companion عَمَّار was affectionately called ٱبْن سُمَيَّة² Ibn Sumayyah “Sumayyah’s son” by the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him). His mother Sumayyah was an early martyr in Islām.
- the famous scholar ٱبْن كَثِير Ibn Kaṯ͡hīr is referred to by his grandfather’s name كَثِير Kaṯ͡hīr.
- a human being is called ٱبْن آدَم² based on his being a descendent of the first man, the Prophet Adam.

16.8.3.1. Full names

The full name of a person is formed by putting his given name first, and then his “son of” name after it as a replacement. Here is an example of a full name:

زَيْدُ بْنُ عَلِيٍّ

Zayd the son of Ɛalī

Note some peculiarities of the full name:

- The name زَيْد “Zayd” has lost its tanwīn.
- The word بْن “son” is not written with its initial connecting hamzah ٱ.

These peculiarities are only when forming a full name in this manner. Consider for example the following sentence:

زَيْدٌ ٱبْنُ عَلِيٍّ.

“Zayd is the son of Ɛalī.”

In the above example, the name زَيْدٌ is tanwīned and ٱبْن is written with its connecting hamzah ٱ. Therefore this is not an expression of the full name in a replacee-replacement format. Rather, ٱبْنُ أَحْمَدَ here is the info of the sentence.

For women, the word بِنْت is used instead of بْن.

Example:

قَرَأَتِ ٱلْمُعَلِّمَةُ كِتَابَ ٱلطَّالِبَةِ زَيْنَبَ بِنْتِ أَحْمَدَ.

“The teacher read the book of the student Zaynab the daughter of Aḥmad.”

The names of multiple forefathers may be strung together in this way separated by بْن. For example:

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اِسْمُ نَبِيِّنَا مُحَمَّدُ بْنُ عَبْدِ ٱللَّـٰهِ بْنِ عَبْدِ ٱلْمُطَّلِبِ.

“Our prophet’s name is Muḥammad the son of Ɛabd Allāh the son of Ɛabd al-Muṭṭalib.”

(Note that the second بْنِ is in the i-case to match the case of the annexe عَبْدِ in عَبْدِ ٱللّـٰه.)

We will deal with complete full names in section @ref(complete-full-names) below.

16.8.4. Other annexed names

Other words besides عَبْد, أَب, أُمّ, and اِبْن may be used in annexed names too. Here are some examples:

- ذُو ٱلْقَرْنَيْنِ Dh͡u l-Qarnayn “He of the two horns”
- مَدِينَة ٱلنَّبِي *madinatu -nnabiyyi* “The City of the Prophet”, frequently reduced to simply ٱلْمَدِينَة “al-Madīnah”.

  Context is used to infer whether by ٱلْمَدِينَة is meant “al-Madīnah” or “the city”.
- اِمْرُؤُ ٱلْقَيْس Imruʾ al-Qays “The man of al-Qays”, a pre-Islāmic poet.

16.9. Names beginning with أَلْ

Most names do not begin with أَلْ. Some, however, do begin with أَلْ. Examples:

ٱلْحَسَن	al-Ḥasan	ٱلزُّبَيْر	al-Zubayr
ٱلْحُسَيْن	al-Ḥusayn	ٱلنُّعْمَان	al-Nuɛmān
ٱلْعَبَّاس	al-Ɛabbās	ٱلْحَارِث	al-Ḥārit͡h

If a proper noun begins with أَلْ then the question of its flexibility is mostly irrelevant. This is because noun beginning with with أَلْ display their case fully, regardless of whether or not they are semi-flexible without the أَلْ. Examples:

ٱلْحَسَنُ حَفِيدُ رَسُولِ ٱللَّـٰهِ صلى اللّه عليه وسلم.

“al-Ḥasan is the grandson of the messenger of Allāh (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him).”

(u-case displayed with ُ.)

سَأَلَ ٱلرَّجُلُ ٱلنُّعْمَانَ عَنْ أَمْرٍ.

“The man asked al-Nuɛmān about a matter.”

(a-case displayed with َ.)

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ذَهَبْتُ إِلَى بَيْتِ ٱلنُّعْمَانِ.
“I went to al-Nuɛmān’s house.”
(i-case displayed with ◌ِ.)

Names that begin with أَلْ can sometimes lose their initial ٱلْ. Sometimes, this is systematic, as we will lear in section @ref(calling-names-with-al). Other times, it’s hard to tell why.

Conversely, names that don’t begin with أَلْ can sometimes gain it.

Examples:

- The name of the daughter of the Companion أَبُو ٱلدَّرْدَاء Abu l-Dardāʾ is actually دَرْدَاء² Dardāʾ, not أَلدَّرْدَاء.
- The son of the uncle of the Prophet (may Allāh grant peace and confer blessing upon him) أَلْعَبَّاس al-Ɛabbās is called اِبْن عَبَّاس Ibn ɛabbās, not اِبْن ٱلْعَبَّاس.

However, the son of أَلزُّبَيْر al-Zubayr| is called اِبْن ٱلْزُّبَيْر Ibn al-Zubayr with the أَلْ.

16.10. Place names

Place names are generally feminine. Because of their feminine gender, those not beginning with أَلْ will be semi-flexible according to section @ref(feminine-names) above.

Examples of place names are:

مَكَّة²	Makkah	أَلْمَدِينَة	al-Madīnah
دِمَشْق²	Damascus	أَلْقَاهِرَة	Cairo
بَغْدَاد²	Bag͡hdād	أَلْهِنْد	India
مِصْر²	Egypt	أَلصِّين	China
فَارِس²	Persia	أَلرُّوم	Rome
تَبُوك²	Tabūk	أَلْبَصْرَة	Baṣrah

Example of use:
ذَهَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ إِلَىٰ مَكَّةَ ٱلْمُكَرَّمَةِ وَٱلْمَدِينَةِ ٱلْمُنَوَّرَةِ.
“The man went to the ennobled Makkah and the illuminated al-Madīnah.”

While most place names are feminine, a few are masculine. Among these are:

أَلْيَمَن	Yemen	أَلشَّام	the Levant
أَلْعِرَاق	Iraq		

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16.11. Names of tribes

Here are examples of names of tribes:

قُرَيش	Quraysh͡	ٱلْأَوْس	al-Aws
بَنُو تَمِيم	Banū Tamīm	ٱلْخَزْرَج	al-Kh͡azraj
هَوَازِن[2]	Hawāzin	بَنُو إِسْرَائِيل[2]	Banū Isrāʾīl

Tribes are usually called by the name of their progenitor. For example, إِسْرَائِيل[2] Isrāʾīl is a name of the Prophet يَعْقُوب[2] Yaɛqūb. The *ūn* sound plural بَنُونَ "sons/children" is annexed to the name إِسْرَائِيل[2] Isrāʾīl to get the name of the tribe بَنُو إِسْرَائِيل[2] Banū Isrāʾīl "the children of Isrāʾīl". In the a-case and i-case, this becomes بَنِي إِسْرَائِيل[2] Banī Isrāʾīl.

Not all tribe names have بَنُونَ "sons" annexed to them, but many do. And often it is optional to keep or drop the annexed بَنُونَ. Examples:

- قُرَيْش Quraysh͡ usually does not have بَنُونَ annexed to it.
- بَنُو تَمِيم Banū Tamīm may optionally drop the annexed بَنُونَ and be called simply تَمِيم Tamīm.

Work in progress

16.11.1. Flexibility of tribe names

The flexibility of tribe names depends on the name. Here are some examples:

- إِسْرَائِيل[2] Isrāʾīl is a name of foreign origin and is therefore semi-flexible. Example:

  بَعَثَ ٱللَّـٰهُ مُوسَىٰ إِلَىٰ بَنِي إِسْرَائِيلَ.
  "Allāh sent Mūsā to the children of Isrāʾīl."

- قُرَيْش Quraysh͡ and تَمِيم Tamīm are native Arabic masculine names and are therefore fully-flexible. Example:

  قُرَيشٌ وَبَنُو تَمِيمٍ قَبِيلَتَانِ.
  "Quraysh͡ and Banū Tamīm are tribes$_2$."

- هَوَازِن[2] Hawāzin is on the semi-flexible noun pattern فَفَافِف[2] and is therefore semi-flexible.

16.11.2. Gender of tribe names

Tribe names are unusual in that they are treated as both singular feminine and plural masculine. If the tribe name is the doer of a verb then it is usually treated

as singular feminine. Otherwise, for example, if it comes before the verb, then the plural masculine pronouns are used for it.

Example:

سَكَنَتْ قُرَيْشٌ مَكَّةَ وَعَبَدُوا ٱلْأَصْنَامَ.

"Quraysh dwelled in Makkah and they worshipped idols."

16.12. Titles

Titles are common nouns that denote a rank or position of a person. Titles in English include: Doctor, Mister, and King. For example:

- King David
- Mr. Smith
- Dr. Adams

Here are some examples of titles in Arabic:

ٱلنَّبِيّ	Prophet	ٱلْإِمَام	Imām
ٱلْمَلِك	King	ٱلشَّيْخ	Shaykh
ٱلْأَمِير	Commander	ٱلْحَافِظ	Ḥāfiẓh
ٱلْقَاضِي	Judge	ٱلْأُسْتَاذ	Professor

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Some Arabic titles are left untranslated in English like

- ٱلْإِمَام Imām (a leader)
- ٱلشَّيْخ Shaykh (a venerable man)
- ٱلْحَافِظ Ḥāfiẓh (one who has memorized, and preserved religious texts)

16.12.1. Titles as replacees

Titles are usually placed in front a proper noun and made definite with ٱلْ to match the proper noun. For example,

سَأَلَ رَجُلٌ ٱلْإِمَامَ مَالِكًا عَنْ أَمْرٍ.

"A man asked Imām Mālik about a matter."

In the above sentence, the title ٱلْإِمَامَ Imām is a replacee and the name مَالِكًا Mālik is the replacement.

Some titles are formed from annexations. Examples:

خَلِيفَةُ رَسُولِ ٱللَّـهِ	the Successor of the Messenger of Allāh	سَيْفُ ٱللَّـهِ	the Sword of Allāh
أَمِيرُ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ	the Commander of the Believers	عِمَادُ ٱلدِّينِ	the Pillar of the Faith
أُمُّ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ	the Mother of the Believers	صَلَاحُ ٱلدِّينِ	the Righteousness of the Faith

Example:

أُمُّ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ عَائِشَةُ هِيَ ٱبْنَةُ خَلِيفَةِ رَسُولِ ٱللَّـهِ أَبِي بَكْرٍ.

“The Mother of the Believers Ɛāʾiša̱h is the daughter of the Successor of the Messenger of Allāh Abū Bakr.”

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16.12.2. Titles in annexations

Some prominent inanimate objects, like mountains, rivers, and cities, may have titles. For example:

- Mount Everest
- the river Nile
- the city of Damascus

In Arabic, the titles for these objects usually don’t occur as replacees as they do for persons. Rather, the title is annexed to the proper noun in an annexation. Examples:

جَبَلُ أُحُدٍ	Mount Uḥud	مَدِينَةُ دِمَشْقَ	the city of Damascus
نَهْرُ ٱلنِّيلِ	the river Nile	شَهْرُ رَمَضَانَ	the month of Ramaḍ̱hān
يَوْمُ ٱلْجُمُعَةِ	the day of Friday	سُورَةُ ٱلْفَاتِحَةِ	the Sūrah of al-Fātiḥah

Example:

قَرَأَتِ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ سُورَةَ ٱلْفَاتِحَةِ فِي شَهْرِ رَمَضَانَ.

“The girl read the Sūrah of al-Fātiḥah in the month of Ramaḍ̱hān.”

16.13. Nicknames

Nicknames are often given to people. They are usually descriptive of some physical quality or character trait of the person. For example, the Companion Abū Bakr was given the nickname ٱلصِّدِّيق "the steadfast affirmer of the truth".

Nicknames usually come after a person's name as a replacement.

أَبُو بَكَرٍ ٱلصِّدِّيقُ هُوَ خَلِيفَةُ رَسُولِ ٱللَّـٰهِ.

"Abū Bakr the steadfast affirmer of the truth is the successor of the messenger of Allāh."

قَرَأَ سُلَيْمَانُ ٱلأَعْمَشُ ٱلْقُرْآنَ.

"Sulaymān the weak-sighted read the Qurʾān."

16.14. The affiliate adjectival noun

The affiliate adjectival noun is a kind of adjectival noun that indicates an affiliation.

Here are some examples of affiliate adjectival nouns:

عِرَاقِيّ	an Iraqi	قُرَشِيّ	a Quraysh͡ite
مَكِّي	a Makkan	تَمِيمِيّ	a Tamīmian
دِمَشْقِيّ	a Damascan	إِسْرَائِيلِيّ	an Israʾīlite
شَافِعِيّ	a Sh͡āfiɛite	حَنَفِيّ	a Ḥanafī
مَالِكِيّ	a Mālikī	حَنْبَلِيّ	a Ḥanbalī

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Note the following about affiliate adjectival nouns:

- Generally, the ending يّ ـِ *-iyy* is suffixed to a noun to create an affiliate adjectival noun.
- The ة ending is removed before adding the يّ ـِ *-iyy* suffix.
- Sometimes there are other internal changes to the word before this suffix is added. For example,
  - قُرَيْش becomes قُرَشِيّ
- The affiliate adjectival noun may be formed from any of the names of a person. (Usually, one of the more distinctive names is chosen.) For example:
  - A follower of the school of thought of ٱلْإِمَام أَبُو حَنِيفَة Imām Abū Ḥanīfah is called حَنَفِيّ "a Ḥanafī".
  - A follower of the school of thought of ٱلْإِمَام أَحْمَد بْن حَنْبَل Imām Aḥmad ibn Ḥanbal is called حَنْبَلِيّ "a Ḥanbalī".

We will treat adjectival nouns more fully in chapter @ref(the-affiliate-adjective-chapter).

Afflilate adjectival nouns frequently occur with proper nouns. They come after the proper noun as a replacement, and are made definite by ٱلْ to match the proper noun in definiteness. Examples:

ٱبْن كَثِيرٍ ٱلدِّمَشْقِيُّ مُفَسِّرٌ وَمُؤَرِّخٌ.

“Ibn Kaṯ̄hīr the Damascan is an exegete and a historian.”

16.15. Complete full names

We have already studied how a basic full name is formed in section @ref(full-names). Here, we will expand on that topic.

The complete full name of a person is formed by placing some or all of his different names in a particular order. Each name in the order is a replacement of one of the names before it. Generally, the order is:

i. Titles
ii. “Father of” name
iii. Given name
iv. “Son of” names
v. Affiliate names

The nickname’s position is variable.

Here are some examples of full names in varying degrees of completeness:

عَائِشَةُ هِيَ ٱبْنَةُ خَلِيفَةِ رَسُولِ ٱللَّٰهِ أَبِي بَكْرٍ ٱلصِّدِّيقِ.

“Ɛāʾiš̱hah is the daughter of the Successor of the Messenger of Allāh, Abū Bakr, the steadfast affirmer of the truth.”

قَتَلَ أَبُو لُؤْلُؤَةَ ٱلْمَجُوسِيُّ أَمِيرَ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ أَبَا حَفْصٍ عُمَرَ بْنَ ٱلْخَطَّابِ.

“Abū Luʾluʾah, the Magian killed the Commander of the Believers, Abū Ḥafṣ, Ɛumar the son of al-K̄haṭṭāb.”

ٱلْحَافِظُ ٱلْمُؤَرِّخُ ٱلْمُفَسِّرُ عِمَادُ ٱلدِّينِ أَبُو ٱلْفِدَاءِ إِسْمَاعِيلُ بْنُ عُمَرَ بْنِ كَثِيرٍ ٱلْقُرَشِيُّ ٱلدِّمَشْقِيُّ ٱلشَّافِعِيُّ

“The Ḥāfiḍ̄h, the historian, the exegete, the Pillar of the Faith, the father of al-Fidāʾ, Ismāʾīl the son of Ɛumar the son of Kaṯ̄hīr, the Quray̅shite, the Damascan, the S̄hāfiɛite”

(Note how the second بْنِ is in the i-case because it is a replacement of عُمَرَ which is in the i-case because it is a annexed-to of the first بْنُ.)

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Chapter 17.

Calling out

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17.1. Introduction

When calling out to someone in Arabic, the particle يَا *yā* is usually prefixed to the person's name. For example,

أَلسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا زَيْنَبُ.
ʾassalāmu ɛalaykum yā zaynabu.
"Peace be upon you, O Zaynab."

There are different rules regarding the case endings of the noun following يَا *yā* and we will describe them in the following sections.

17.2. Calling out to specific persons

17.2.1. Using single word personal names

When a specific person is called out to, and the name used to call him consists of a single word, then that word shall be in the u-case. The sentence above is an example of this rule where the name زَيْنَبُ *zaynabu* "Zaynab" is in the u-case.

If the word would be tanwīned, then the tanwīn is dropped. So, for example,

the name زَيْدٌ *zaydun* “Zayd” usually is tanwīned. But when used for being called out to, the tanwīn is dropped and it becomes:

أَلسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا زَيْدُ.
ʾassalāmu ɛalaykum yā zaydu.
“Peace be upon you, O Zayd.”

17.2.2. Using single word indefinite common nouns

The examples above show the person being called out to using a personal name. Instead of a personal name, a common noun can also be used with the same rule. Examples:

أَلسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا غُلَامُ.
ʾassalāmu ɛalaykum yā ɣ͡hulāmu.
“Peace be upon you, O you boy.”

أَلسَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ يَا جَارِيَةُ.
ʾassalāmu ɛalaykum yā jāriyatu.
“Peace be upon you, O you girl.”

In English, we have shown that a specific person is being called using the word “you”, e.g., “O you boy”. Duals and plurals are also allowed, again with the same rule:

يَا رِجَالُ، قَدْ حَدَثَ أَمْرٌ.
yā rijālu qad ḥadaθ͡ha ʾamrun.
“O you men, a matter has occurred.”

Note how the word رِجَالُ *rijālu* “men” is not tanwīned because the word is used to call out to the specific persons.

Similarly,

يَا لَاعِبَانِ بَدَأْتُمَا ٱللَّعِبَ وَمَا فَعَلْتُمَا ٱلْعَمَلَ.
yā lāɛibāni badaʾtuma -llaɛiba wamā faɛaltuma -lɛamal.
“O you players$_2$, you have started playing and you have not done the work.”

17.2.3. Using single word definite common nouns

When using a common noun to call out to a person, especially if the common noun is a title, it is often desired to make the common noun definite with أَلْ. In this case, the particle يَا *yā* is modified to أَيُّهَا *ʾayyuhā*, or sometimes يَا أَيُّهَا *yā ʾayyuhā*. Examples:

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يَا أَيُّهَا ٱلْأُسْتَاذُ، قَدْ فَعَلْتُ ٱلْوَاجِبَ.
yā ʾayyuha -lʾustād͡hu, qad faɛaltu -lwājiba
“O you the Professor, I have done the obligatory [work].”

أَنَا سَقِيمٌ أَيُّهَا ٱلطَّبِيبُ.
ʾana saqīmun, ʾayyuha -ṭṭabību.
“I am ill, O you the Doctor.”

If the person being called out to is feminine, then أَيُّهَا *ʾayyuhā* is modified to أَيَّتُهَا *ʾayyatuhā*. For example:

أَيَّتُهَا ٱلْمُعَلِّمَةُ، هَـٰذَا كِتَابِي.
ʾayyatuha -lmuɛallimatu, hād͡hā kitābi.
“O you the teacher$_{f}$, this is my book.”

17.2.4. Using multiple words

The above discussion pertains to calling out to the addressed person with a single word. Often times a person’s name may consist of multiple words. For example:

- عَبْدُ ٱللَّـٰهِ
  ɛabdu -llāhi
  “Ɛabd Allāh”

- أَبُو بَكْرٍ
  ʾabū bakrin
  “Abū Bakr”

- صَلَاحُ ٱلدِّينِ
  ṣalāḥu -ddīni
  “Salāḥ ad-Dīn”

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In this case, then instead of the u-case, the word is put into the a-case. Furthermore, the tanwīn, if any, is preserved. Examples:

مَا عَرَفْتُ ذَٰلِكَ ٱلرَّجُلَ، يَا عَبْدَ ٱللَّـٰهِ.
mā ɛaraftu d͡hālika -rrajula, yā ɛabda -llāhi.
“I have not recognized that man, O Ɛabd Allāh.”

يَا أَبَا بَكْرٍ، أَنْتَ رَجُلٌ كَرِيمٌ.
yā ʾabā bakrin, ʾanta rajulun karīmun
“O Abū Bakr, You are a noble man.”

يَا صَلَاحَ ٱلدِّينِ، صَبَرْتَ فَنَصَرَكَ ٱللَّـٰهُ.
yā ṣalāḥa -ddīni, ṣabarta fanaṣaraka -llāhu.
“O Salāḥ ad-Dīn, you were patient so Allāh gave you victory.”

If, instead of a personal name, a noun phrase consisting of multiple words is used to call out to a person, then in this case as well, the first noun shall be in the a-case. Examples:

يَا أَمِيرَ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ، قَدْ حَضَرَ ٱلْقَوْمُ.

yā ʾamīra -lmuʾminīna, qad ḥaḍ͡ẖara -lqawmu.

“O Commander of the Believers, the people are present.”

يَا ٱبْنَ أَخِي، قَدْ سَقَطَ قَلَمُكَ عَلَى ٱلْأَرْضِ.

ya -bna ʾak͡ẖī, qad saqaṭa qalamuka.

“O my nephew, your pen has fallen on the ground.”

يَا تَلَامِيذَ ٱلْمَدْرَسَةِ، ٱلْعِلْمُ أَمَانَةٌ.

yā talāmīḍ͡ẖa -lmadrasati, -lʿilmu ʾamānatun.

“O pupils of the school, knowledge is a trust.”

When multiple words are used to call out to a person, the second word in the noun-chain may be a pronoun. Here too, the first noun shall be in the a-case. Examples:

يَا أَبانا

yā ʾabānā

“O our father”

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17.3. Calling out to unspecified persons

All the discussion so far has pertained to calling out to specific persons. So for example, when you say,

يَا مُسْلِمُ، نَصْرُ ٱللَّـهِ قَرِيبٌ.

yā muslimu, naṣru -llāhi qarībun.

“O you Muslim, the victory of Allāh is near.”

then you are addressing a specific Muslim, who is perhaps in front of you.

If an unspecified person or persons are being called out, then the word used to call out is put into the a-case. Furthermore, the tanwīn, if any, is preserved. So if you want to address any unspecific Muslim, you will say:

يَا مُسْلِمًا، نَصْرُ ٱللَّـهِ قَرِيبٌ.

yā musliman, naṣru -llāhi qarībun.

“O [any] Muslim, the victory of Allāh is near.”

If multiple words are used, whether or not the person called out to is specific or unspecified, then too the first noun is put in the a-case.

يَا لَاعِبِي لُعَبٍ، ٱلْوَقْتُ ثَمِينٌ.

yā lāɛibī luɛabini, -lwaqtu t͡ħamīnun.
“O [any] players of games, time is precious.”

17.4. Omitting يَا *yā*

When calling out to someone, it is permissible to omit the يَا *yā*, especially when the person being called is very near. So, instead of saying,

يَا زَيْدُ، سُؤالُكَ جَيِّدٌ.
yā zaydu, suʾāluka jayyidun.
“O Zayd, your question is excellent.”

it is permissible to say:

زَيْدُ، سُؤالُكَ جَيِّدٌ.
zaydu, suʾāluka jayyidun.
“Zayd, your question is excellent.”

Note that even when يَا *yā* is ommitted the name زَيْدُ *zaydu* “Zayd” is in the u-case without any tanwīn.

This usage is especially common when supplicating to Allāh with the word رَبٌّ *rabbun* “lord”, to emphasize the closeness of Allāh to the supplicator. For example,

رَبَّنا لَكَ ٱلْحَمْدُ.
rabbanā laka -lḥamdu.
“Our Lord, for you is [all] praise.”

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17.5. Shortening the attached pronoun ي *ī* “my”

When calling someone with the pronoun “my”, for example “O my people”, it is common to shorten the attached pronoun ي *ī* “my” to an kasrah ـِ. So while the following is permissible,

يَا قَوْمِي
yā qawmī
“O my people”

it is more common to say:

يَا قَوْمِ
yā qawmi
“O my people”

This usage is especially common when supplicating to Allāh with the phrase رَبِّ *rabbi* “my Lord”.

17.6. Calling out to Allāh by name

When calling out to Allāh by name, it is permissible to prefix the name Allāh with يَا. So we can say:

يَا أَللَّـٰهُ

yā ʾallāhu

“O Allāh”

Note that the word أَللَّـٰهُ *ʾallāhu* now has a regular hamzah أ instead of a connecting hamzah ٱ.

However, instead of saying يَا أَللَّـٰهُ *yā ʾallāhu* for “O Allāh”, it is in fact more common to use a special word:

أَللَّـٰهُمَّ

ʾallāhumma

“O Allāh”

Examples:

أَللَّـٰهُمَّ أَنْتَ ٱلسَّلَامُ وَمِنْكَ ٱلسَّلَامُ.

ʾallāhumma ʾanta -ssalāmu waminka -ssalāmu.

“O Allāh, You are Peace and from You is peace.”

أَللَّـٰهُمَّ أَنْتَ ٱلصَّاحِبُ فِي ٱلسَّفَرِ.

ʾallāhumma ʾanta -ṣṣāḥibu fi -ssafari.

“O Allāh, You are the companion in the journey.”

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Chapter 18.

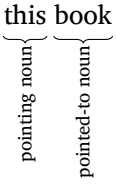
The pointing nouns

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18.1. Introduction

Consider the following expression:



The word “this” is what we will call a *pointing noun*. We call it this because we can imagine standing next to a book and pointing to it and saying “this book”.

The word “book” here is similarly called the *pointed-to noun* noun. It refers to the object being pointed to.

18.2. The pointing nouns in Arabic

There are two types of pointing nouns:

i. Near pointing nouns: “this-one” (singular) and “these-ones” (dual and plural).

ii. Far pointing nouns: “that-one” (singular) and “those-ones” (dual and plural).

The following are the pointing nouns in Arabic:

Participant	Case	Near pointing noun		Far pointing noun	
sing. masc.	all	هَـٰذَا	this one$_{m}$	ذَٰلِكَ	that one$_{m}$
sing. fem.	all	هَـٰذِهِ	this one$_{f}$	تِلْكَ	that one$_{f}$
dual masc.	u	هَـٰذَانِ	these ones$_{2,m}$	ذَٰنِكَ	those ones$_{2,m}$
dual masc.	a,i	هَـٰذَيْنِ	these ones$_{2,m}$	ذَيْنِكَ	those ones$_{2,m}$
dual fem.	u	هَاتَانِ	these ones$_{2,f}$	تَانِكَ	those ones$_{2,f}$
dual fem.	a,i	هَاتَيْنِ	these ones$_{2,f}$	تَيْنِكَ	those ones$_{2,f}$
plural	all	هَـٰؤُلَاءِ	these ones$_{3}$	أُولَـٰئِكَ	those ones$_{3}$

Note the following:

- Many of the pointing nouns contain small alif ◌ٰ. For most of them, this is how they must be written. It would be incorrect to write هَـٰذَا *hādhā* as هَاذَا.
- All the near pointing nouns begin with a ه. And all the far pointing nouns end with ك.
- The و in أُولَـٰئِكَ *ʾulāʾika* is silent and not pronounced. That is, the first syllable has a short vowel *u*, not the long vowel *ū*.
- Most of the pointing nouns are rigid nouns. That is: their endings are not modified for their case.

  The dual pointing nouns, however, are flexible nouns, for example: هَـٰذَانِ (u-case) / هَـٰذَيْنِ *hādhayni* (a-case and i-case).
- The pointing nouns for the plural are the same for both masculine and feminine genders.

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18.3. Definiteness of pointing nouns

The pointing nouns share some similarities with pronouns هُوَ, هِيَ, etc. Just like pronouns, pointing nouns, too, are definite nouns even though they don’t have أَلْ.

Remember, however, from section @ref(attributes-with-annexations-to-pronouns), that pronouns may not be attributed-tos. Pointing nouns are different from pronouns in this regard. It is allowed to describe a pointing noun with a attribute in a noun phrase.

Both these facts will prove useful in the next section.

18.4. Pointing noun for plurals of non-intelligent beings

Consistent with how we have been dealing with the so far, , we can choose between the following pointing nouns for the plurals of non-intelligent beings:

	Near pointing noun	Far pointing noun			
sing. fem.	all	هَـٰذِهِ	this one$_f$	تِلْكَ	that one$_f$
plural	all	هَـٰؤُلَاءِ	these ones$_3$	أُولَـٰئِكَ	those ones$_3$

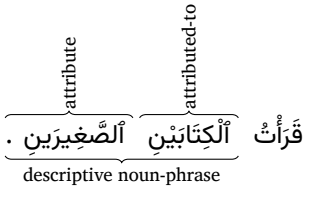
The singular feminine pointing noun is usually preferred, unless the plural plural pointing noun is needed to indicate that there is more than one. We will be giving examples throughout this chapter.

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18.5. The pointing noun phrase

Remember from chapter @ref(adjectival nouns-and-descriptive-noun-phrases) that a descriptive noun-phrase consists of a attribute and a attributed-to. The attribute follows the attribute and matches it in definiteness, case, gender, and number.

Here is an example of a descriptive noun-phrase in a sentence.



“I read the small books.”

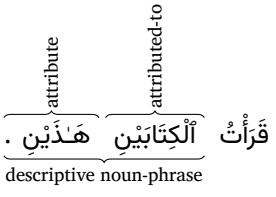
We will now see how this same descriptive noun-phrase can be used with pointing nouns.

18.5.1. Pointing to a single noun

We will first deal with nouns that are single words, like ٱلْكِتَابَيْنِ above. In section @ref(pointing-to-an-annexation) below, we will deal with nouns that are part of an annexation, like كِتَابَيِ ٱلرَّجُلِ.

18.5.1.1. The pointed-to noun noun is definite with ٱلْ

Just like an adjectival noun, a pointing noun can be a attribute in a noun-phrase. But remember from section @ref(definiteness-of-pointing nouns) above that pointing nouns are definite. So, if a pointing noun is a attribute in a noun-phrase, the attributed-to has to be definite too. Example:



"I read these books."
(literally: "I read the these-ones books.")

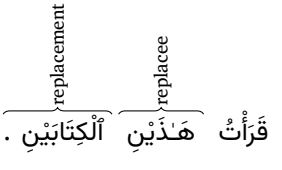
In the above example, the pointed-to noun noun ٱلْكِتَابَيْنِ is the attributed-to in a descriptive noun-phrase. It is definite, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

The pointing noun هَـٰذَيْنِ is its attribute. It follows the attributed-to and matches it being dual, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

As a special case, when the pointed-to noun noun has ٱلْ (as in this case: ٱلْكِتَابَيْنِ), then the order of the pointing noun and the pointed-to noun noun is permitted to be reversed.

The pointing noun is then a replacee (see section @ref(the-replacement)), and the pointed-to noun noun is its replacement.

Example:



"I read these books."
(literally: "I read the books: these-ones.")

In the above example, the pointing noun هَـٰذَيْنِ is a replacee. It is definite, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

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The pointed-to noun noun أَلْكِتَابَيْنِ is its replacement. It follows the replacee and matches it being dual, in the a-case, masculine, and dual.

As a matter of fact, even though both orders are permitted, this reverse order of placing the pointing noun first and following it with the pointed-to noun noun is more common.

Here are some more examples of pointing noun phrases when the pointed-to noun noun is definite with أَلْ:

هَـٰذَا أَلرَّجُلُ أَلْكَرِيمُ إِمَامٌ.
أَلرَّجُلُ أَلْكَرِيمُ هَـٰذَا إِمَامٌ.
"This noble man is an imām."

18.5.1.2. The pointed-to noun noun is a proper noun

Remember that proper noun are definite nouns, even though they usually don't begin with أَلْ. For example:

زَيْد	Zayd	أَلْحَارِث	al-Ḥārit͡h
زَيْنَب[2]	Zaynab	قُرَيْش	Quraysh͡

Such names may also be part of a pointing noun phrase. If they don't begin with أَلْ then only the [pointed-to noun noun first, then pointing noun] order is permitted. Example:

زَيْدٌ هَـٰذَا أَخُو زَيْنَبَ تِلْكَ.
"This Zayd is that Zaynab's brother."

قُرَيْشٌ هَـٰؤُلَاءِ سَكَنُوا بِمَكَّةَ.
"These Quraysh͡ dwelled in Makkah."

If the name begins with أَلْ then both orders are permitted.

هَـٰذَا أَلْحَارِث
أَلْحَارِث هَـٰذَا
"this al-Ḥārit͡h"

18.5.2. Pointing to an annexation

Consider the following expression:

"the man's book"

We can apply the pointing noun "this" to either "the book" or to "the man" in a pointing noun phrase. So we have two options:

i. "the book of this man"
ii. "this book of the man"

Work in progress

Similarly, consider the following expression:

"Zayd's book"

We can, again, apply the pointing noun "this" to either "the book" or to "Zayd":

i. "the book of this Zayd"
ii. "this book of Zayd"

In this section we will learn how to construct these pointing noun phrases in Arabic. Arabic uses annexations to express the above meanings. So we will discuss annexations like:

كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ

"the book of the man"

and

كِتَابُ زَيْدٍ

"the book of Zayd"

Note that both the above annexations are definite because their annexed-tos are definite.

Indefinite annexations like كِتَاب رَجُلٍ "a man's book" cannot be used in pointing noun phrases.

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18.5.2.1. The definite annexed-to begins with أَلْ

We will first consider annexations where the definite annexed-to begins with أَلْ, like:

كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ

"the book of the man"

18.5.2.1.1. Pointing to the annexed-to

We would like to express the phrase:

"the book of this man"

In order to point to the annexed-to ٱلرَّجُل "the man" with the pointing noun هَـٰذَا "this-one$_m$", we can put the pointing noun either before or after the annexed-to, thus:

كِتَابُ هَـٰذَا ٱلرَّجُلِ

كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَا

"the book of this man"

Both these pointing noun phrases give the same meaning: "the book of this man". However, the first phrase كِتَابُ هَـٰذَا ٱلرَّجُلِ is preferred, consistent with what we learned in section @ref(phrase-single-pointed-to-noun-with-al), above.

The second phrase كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَا, although correct, would only rarely be used with this meaning. (In fact, it has another meaning: "this book of the man" which we will learn in section @ref(pointing-to-the-annexe-noun), below.)

Here is how these phrases could be used in complete sentences:

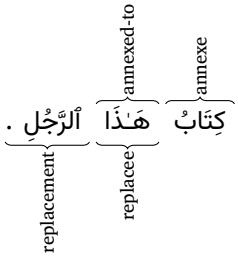
كِتَابُ هَـٰذَا ٱلرَّجُلِ جَدِيدٌ.

كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَا جَدِيدٌ.

"The book of this man is new."

Before we give more examples, let's analyze these phrases in detail.

Consider the first pointing noun phrase:



"the book of this man"
(literally: "the book of this-one: the man")

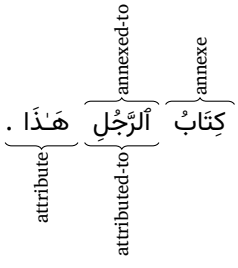
As you can see the pointing noun هَـٰذَا has taken the place of ٱلرَّجُل as the annexed-to in the annexation. In addition to being the annexed-to, هَـٰذَا is also a replacee, whose replacement is ٱلرَّجُل. The literal, word-for-word, translation of this phrase is:

"the book of this-one: the man"

The more natural translation is:

"the book of this man"

Consider, now, the second pointing noun phrase:



"the book of this man"
(literally: "the book of the this-one man")

ٱلرَّجُل, here, keeps its place as the annexed-to in the annexation. In addition to being the annexed-to, ٱلرَّجُل is also a attributed-to, whose attribute is the pointing noun هَـٰذَا. The literal, word-for-word, translation of this phrase is:

"the book of the this-one man"

The more natural translation is:

"the book of this man"

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18.5.2.1.2. Pointing to the annexe

Consider, again, the annexation:

كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ

"the book of the man"

We have already discussed how to point to the annexed-to ٱلرَّجُل in a pointing noun phrase. Now, we would like to point to the annexe كِتَاب in a pointing noun phrase.

In other words, we would like to express the meaning:

"this book of the man"

The way to express this in Arabic is

كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَا

"this book of the man"

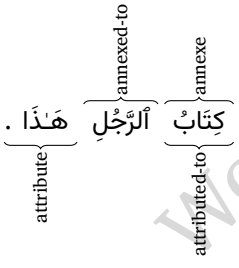
But wait! Didn't we see in section @ref(pointing-to-the-base-noun) above that this expression has the meaning "the book of this man"?

It turns out that this expression supports both meanings.

But it will generally only be used for the meaning: "this book of the man"

In order to express "the book of this man" we will typically use the expression كِتَابُ هَـٰذَا ٱلرَّجُلِ.

Let's analyze the expression كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَا "this book of the man" in detail:



"this book of the man"
(literally: "the this-one book of the man")

كِتَاب, here, is both and annexe and a attributed-to. Its attribute is the pointing noun هَـٰذَا. The literal, word-for-word, translation of this phrase is:

"the this-one book of the man"

The more natural translation is:

"this book of the man"

Here is this pointing noun phrase in a complete sentence:

كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَا أَخْضَر.

"This book of the man is green."

Ambiguity of this phrase

A quick note about the ambiguity of this expression:

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كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَا
"this book of the man" (usual)
"the book of this man" (rare)

The ambiguity of whether the pointing noun هَـٰذَا points to the annexe كِتَابُ or the annexed-to ٱلرَّجُلِ only exists because the annexe and the annexed-to match each other in gender and number: singular masculine. If the annexe and the annexed-to were different in gender and number, then there would be no ambiguity. Examples:

كِتَابَا ٱلرَّجُلِ هَـٰذَانِ
"these books$_2$ of the man"
كِتَابُ ٱلرَّجُلَيْنِ هَـٰذَا
"this book of the men$_2$"
كِتَابُ ٱلْمَرْأَةِ هَـٰذَا
"this book of the woman"
كِتَابُ ٱلْمَرْأَةِ هَـٰذِهِ
"the book of this woman"

Here are some more examples of pointing to annexes:

18.5.2.1.3. The annexed-to is a proper noun beginning with أَلْ

Consider the annexation:

كِتَابُ ٱلزُّبَيْرِ
"the book of al-Zubayr"

We can apply the preceding discussion of pointing to the annexe and annexed-to to this annexation as well. So we get:

كِتَابُ هَـٰذَا ٱلزُّبَيْرِ
"the book of this al-Zubayr"
كِتَابُ ٱلزُّبَيْرِ هَـٰذَا
"this book of al-Zubayr" (usual)
"the book of this al-Zubayr" (rare)

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18.5.2.2. The definite annexed-to does not begin with أَلْ

Consider, now, that the annexed-to is definite but does not begin with أَلْ. There are two such types of nouns that we will discuss:

i. Proper nouns not beginning with أَلْ
ii. Pronouns

18.5.2.2.1. The annexed-to is a proper noun not beginning with أَلْ

We will first deal with proper nouns that don't begin with أَلْ. Consider the annexation:

كِتَابُ زَيْدٍ
“the book of Zayd”

Because the annexed-to زَيْد does not begin with أَلْ, any pointing nouns can come only after the entire annexation, thus:

كِتَابُ زَيْدٍ هَـٰذَا

In theory, this supports two meanings:

i. “this book of Zayd”
ii. “the book of this Zayd”

In practice, however, the first meaning (“this book of Zayd”) is much more likely. Pointing to a proper noun in a pointing noun phrase (“the book of this Zayd”) is uncommon, generally.

18.5.2.2.2. The annexed-to is a pronoun

We have learned, in section @ref(definiteness-of-pronouns), that pronouns are always definite, despite not beginning with أَلْ.

We have also learned, in section @ref(pronouns-as-base-nouns), that a pronoun may be a annexed-to in an annexation. Example:

كِتَابُهُ
“his book”

Neither the annexe كِتَاب, nor the attached pronoun هُ begin with أَلْ. So if we want to add the pointing noun هَـٰذَا to this annexation to form a pointing noun phrase, then we have to place it at the end, after the annexation, thus:

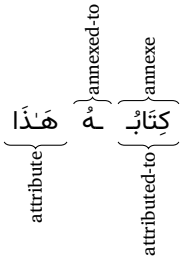
كِتَابُهُ هَـٰذَا

The pointing noun هَـٰذَا, here, is a attributed-to. But what is its attribute?

We have also learned, in section @ref(attributes-with-annexations-to-pronouns) that pronouns may not be attributed-tos in a descriptive noun phrase.

So, we are left with only one option: the annexe كِتَاب is the desceibee. And the meaning of the phrase is:

كِتَابُهُ هَـٰذَا
“this book of his”



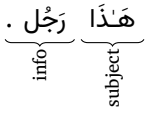
“this book of his”

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Here are some more examples:

18.6. Pointing nouns as subjects

Besides their use in pointing noun phrases, pointing nouns are very often used as the subject of a sentence. For example:



"This is a man."
(literally: "This-one is a man.")

The pointing noun is (usually) made to match the info in number and gender. Examples:

هَاتَانِ جَارِيَتَانِ.
"These are girls$_2$."

أُولَـٰئِكَ مُعَلِّمُونَ.
"Those are teachers."

هَـٰؤُلَاءِ أَقْلَامٌ.
"These are pens."

تِلْكَ بُيُوتٌ.
"Those are houses."

هَـٰذَانِ صَغِيرَانِ.
"These are small ones$_2$."

The info may be a single word (as above) or more complex (as below):

ذَٰلِكَ أَمِيرُ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ.
"That is the commander of the believers."

أُولَـٰئِكَ أَكَلْنَ ٱلطَّعَامَ..
"Those-ones ate$_{3,f}$ the food."

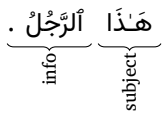
هَـٰذَا ثَوْبُ رَجُلٍ.
"This is a man's garment."

هَـٰذِهِ كُتُبُهُ.
"These are his books."

هَـٰذَانِ بَيْتَانِ كَبِيرَانِ..
"These are big houses$_2$."

If the info is a noun that begins with ٱلْ then it may be placed after the pointing noun subject in the same manner:

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"This is the man."
(literally: "This-one is the man.")

While the this is permitted and correct, it may be sometimes confused with for the pointing noun phrase "this man". So, in the same way that we learned in section @ref(chap-smp-sent-sec-def-info), we insert a detached pronoun between the subject and the info, thus:

هَـٰذَا هُوَ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
"This is the man."

Here are some more examples:

هَاتَانِ هُمَا ٱلْجَارِيَتَانِ.
"These are the girls$_2$."

أُولَـٰئِكَ هُمُ ٱلْمُعَلِّمُونَ.
"Those are the teachers."

هَـٰؤُلَاءِ هُنَّ ٱلْأَقْلَامُ.
"These are the pens."

تِلْكَ هِيَ ٱلْبُيُوتُ.
"Those are the houses."

هَـٰذَانِ هُمَ ٱلصَّغِيرَانِ.
"These are the small ones$_2$."

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18.6.1. Mismatched pointing noun subject

When the pointing noun is a subject we usually match its number and gender with the number and gender of the info, as we have been doing so far. However, when the pointing noun subject refers to a noun in a previous sentence, then we may prefer to match to the previous noun than to the the following info. Example:

بَلَغَنَا خَبَرُ ٱلْمَطَرِ عَلَى ٱلْجَبَالِ. ذَٰلِكَ بُشْرَىٰ لِلزُّرَّاعِ.
"The news of the rain on the mountains has reached us. That is a good tiding for the sowers."

Note that the second sentence's subject and info mismatch:

ذَٰلِكَ بُشْرَىٰ
"That is a good tiding."

The info بُشْرَىٰ "a good tiding" is a feminine noun but the subject ذَٰلِكَ is masculine. This is because ذَٰلِكَ is actually referring to خَبَر in the previous sentence which is a masculine noun.

18.7. Pointing nouns as other parts of speech

Besides their use in pointing noun phrases and as subjects, pointing nouns may be used as other parts of speech as well, typically where one would expect pronouns. Here are some examples:

أَخَذْتُ ٱلْكِتَابَيْنِ مِنَ ٱلْمَكْتَبَةِ. قَرَأْتُ هَـٰذا وَمَا قَرَأْتُ ذَٰلِكَ.

“I took the books$_2$ from the library. I read this one and I didn’t read that one.”

شَغَلَنِي ٱلْعَمَلُ ٱلصَّعْبُ وَمَا فَرَغْتُ مِنْ ذَٰلِكَ.

“The difficult work occupied me and I did not get done with that.”

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Chapter 19.

The u-case PC verb

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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19.1. Introduction

So far, we have used the SC verb. Now we wil start studying the *PC* verb. The PC verb has three cases, like nouns. Two of its cases match the cases of the nouns: the u-case and the a-case. Its third case is the ø-case. In this chapter we will study the u-case PC verb.

19.2. Pattern for form 1

Using the root paradigm فعل, we have already seen that SC verbs for form 1 occur in the patterns فَعَلَ *faɛala*, فَعِلَ *faɛila*, and فَعُلَ *faɛula*. The patterns for form 1 PC verbs are يَفْعَلُ *yafɛalu*, يَفْعِلُ *yafɛilu*, and يَفْعُلُ *yafɛulu*.

Note that the PC verb forms add an extraneous يَ *ya-* to the beginning of the verb. This extra letter can change, as we will see soon, to the letters تَـ *ta-*, نَـ *na*, or أَ *ʾa-* depending on the doer.

19.3. Vowel-mark on the middle root letter

We have seen that vowel on the middle root letter in a SC verb can vary depending on the verb. So we can have,

- كَتَبَ *kataba* “he wrote”
- عَمِلَ *ɛamila* “he worked”
- كَبُرَ *kabura* “he became big”

Similarly, the vowel on the middle letter in an PC verb can also vary depending on the verb. Generally, this will need to be looked up in a dictionary and memorized. But there are the following rules which limit the variation:

1. If the SC verb has an fat·ḥah on the middle letter, the PC verb’s middle letter can have either an fat·ḥah, kasrah, or an ḏ͡ẖammah, depending on the verb. For example,
    - كَتَبَ يَكْتُبُ *kataba yaktubu* “he wrote, he writes”
    - ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ *ḏ͡ẖahaba yaḏ͡ẖ·habu* “he went, he goes”
    - كَشَفَ يَكْشِفُ *kaš͡hafa yakš͡hifu* “he uncovered, he uncovers”
2. If the SC verb has an kasrah on the middle letter, the PC verb’s middle letter will usually have an fat·ḥah. Rarely, for a few verbs, it may be an kasrah instead. For example,
    - عَمِلَ يَعْمَلُ *ɛamila yaɛmalu* “he worked, he works”
    - حَسِبَ يَحْسِبُ *ḥasiba yaḥsibu* “he deemed, he deems”
3. If the SC verb has an ḏ͡ẖammah on the middle letter, the PC verb’s middle letter shall have a ḏ͡ẖammah. For example,
    - كَبُرَ يَكْبُرُ *kabura yakburu* “he grew big, he grows big”

It is possible for some PC verbs to have more than option for the vowel mark on the middle letter. Both variants give the same meaning for the verb. For example, the SC verb حَسِبَ *ḥasiba* “he deemed” has as its incomplete-verb both يَحْسِبُ *yaḥsibu* and يَحْسَبُ *yaḥsabu*.

19.4. Verb case

As you know, nouns in Arabic have a case that is determined by the function of the noun in the sentence. For example, consider the following sentence:

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سَأَلَ ٱلْغُلَامُ ٱلرَّجُلَ عَنْ شَيْءٍ.
saʾala -lg͡hulāmu -rrajula ʾan sh͡ayʾin.
“The boy asked the man about something.”

In the above sentence, ٱلْغُلَامُ *ʾalg͡hulāmu* is the doer of the verb so it is in the u-case and this is indicated by the ◌ٗ dhammah on its final letter. ٱلرَّجُلَ *ʾarrujala* is the direct object of the verb so it is in the a-case and this is indicated by the fat·ḥah on its final letter. شَيْءٍ *sh͡ayʾin* is directly preceded by a preposition so it is in the i-case and this is indicated by the tanwīned kasrah ◌ٍ on its final letter. The ending of the SC verb سَأَلَ is not determined based on the function of the verb in the sentence, and therefore, it does not have any case. (Its ending can change depending on whether a pronoun is attached to it but this is not related to the function of the verb in the sentence and does not represent any case.)

As opposed to SC verbs, which don’t have any case, PC verbs do have a case which is determinined by the function of the verb in a sentence. Similar to nouns, the case of an PC verb is indicated by the vowel mark or suffix at the end of the verb.

PC verbs have three cases, just like nouns. These cases are called:

i. The u-case
ii. The a-case
iii. The ø-case

Two of the cases have their names in common with nouns: the u-case and the a-case. The the ø-case is named differently.

The ◌ٗ dhammah on the final letter of يَفْعَلُ *yafɛalu* indicates that it is in the u-case. We will study only the u-case of PC verbs in this chapter. And we will study the a-case and ø-case in later chapters if Allāh wills.

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19.5. With doer nouns

As with SC verbs, doer nouns are placed after the verb in sentence word order. However, the gender of the doer noun affects the beginning of the PC verb. If the doer noun is masculine, then the PC verb shall begin with used is يَـ *ya-*. And if the doer noun is feminine, then the PC verb shall begin with تَـ *ta-*. Examples:

يَكْتُبُ ٱلْغُلَامُ فِي كِتابِهِ.
yaktubu -lg͡hulāmu fī kitābihi
“The boy writes in his book.”

يَعْمَلُ ٱلرَّجُلَانِ فِي ٱلْمَدِينَةِ.
yaɛmalu -rrajulāni fi -lmadīnati.
“The men$_{\text{dual.}}$ work in the city.”

تَكْتُبُ ٱلْجَارِيَةُ فِي كِتابِهَا.
taktubu -ljāriyatu fī kitābihā.
“The girl writes in her book.”
تَعْمَلُ ٱلنِّسَاءُ فِي بُيُوتِهِنَّ.
taɛmalu -nnisāʾu fī buyūtihinna.
“The women work in their houses.”

19.6. With the direct object

The direct object (either as a noun or a pronoun) with PC verbs work exactly as with SC verbs.

يَسْأَلُ ٱلْغُلَامُ ٱلرَّجُلَ سُؤَالًا.
yasʾalu -lg͡hulāmu -rrajula suʾālan.
“The boy asks the man a question.”
يَسْأَلُهَا ٱلْغُلَامُ سُؤَالًا.
yasʾaluha -lg͡hulāmu suʾālan.
“The boy asks her a question.”

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19.7. With doer pronouns

When we studied SC verbs, we saw that doer pronouns are either visible or invisible. Visible doer pronouns are added to the end of the verb, modifying the end of the verb in the process.

The doer pronouns for PC verbs are different from the doer pronouns for SC verbs. PC verbs’ doer pronouns are also added to the end of the verb, but in addition to modifying the end of the verb, they modify the beginning of the verb as well. Futhermore, additional letters may be added after the doer pronoun to indicate the case of the verb.

We’ll show what all this means in the table below of verbs with doer pronouns. SC verbs are included as well so that you can contrast them with their PC counterparts.

Person	SC doer pronoun	SC verb with doer pronoun	PC verb doer pronoun	PC verb with doer pronoun in the u-case
he	*invisible*	فَعَلَ *faɛala*	*invisible*	يَفْعَلُ *yafɛalu*
she	*invisible*	فَعَلَتْ *faɛalat*	*invisible*	تَفْعَلُ *tafɛalu*
you$_{1,m}$	تَ *-ta*	فَعَلْتَ *faɛalta*	*invisible*	تَفْعَلُ *tafɛalu*

Person	SC doer pronoun	SC verb with doer pronoun	PC verb doer pronoun	PC verb with doer pronoun in the u-case
you$_{1,f}$	تِ *-ti*	فَعَلْتِ *faɛalti*	ي *-ī*	تَفْعَلِينَ *tafɛalīna*
I	تُ *tu*	فَعَلْتُ *faɛaltu*	*invisible*	أَفْعَلُ *ʾafɛalu*
they$_{2,m}$	ا *-ā*	فَعَلَا *faɛalā*	ا *-ā*	يَفْعَلَانِ *yafɛalāni*
they$_{2,f}$	ا *-ā*	فَعَلَتَا *faɛalatā*	ا *-ā*	تَفْعَلَانِ *tafɛalāni*
you$_{2}$	تُمَا *-tumā*	فَعَلْتُمَا *faɛaltumā*	ا *-ā*	تَفْعَلَانِ *tafɛalāni*
they$_{3+,m}$	و *-ū*	فَعَلُوا *faɛalū*	و *-ū*	يَفْعَلُونَ *yafɛalūna*
they$_{3+,f}$	نَ *-na*	فَعَلْنَ *faɛalna*	نَ *-na*	يَفْعَلْنَ *yafɛalna*
you$_{3+,m}$	تُمْ *-tumā*	فَعَلْتُمْ *faɛaltum*	و *-ū*	تَفْعَلُونَ *tafɛalūna*
you$_{3+,f}$	تُنَّ *-tunna*	فَعَلْتُنَّ *faɛaltunna*	نَ *na*	تَفْعَلْنَ *tafɛalna*
we	نَا *nā*	فَعَلْنَا *faɛalnā*	*invisible*	نَفْعَلُ *nafɛalu*

Note the following:

- The verb تَفْعَلُ is used both for "she" and "you$_{2m}$" doers. Only context will be able to help us differentiate between the two.
- In PC verbs which have invisible doer pronouns, the u-case of the verb is indicated by the d͡hammah ُ on the final letter of the verb.
- For PC verbs that have ا, و, or ي as the doer pronoun, the u-case is indicated by an extraneous ن added to the end of the verb.
- And for the remaining PC verbs whose doer pronoun is نَ, there is no indication of the case of the verb.

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Here are some examples of the usage of the doer pronouns:

Remember that in Arabic, each verb must have it's own doer, so when there are multiple verbs associated with the same doer, the first verb can be used with the doer noun and the rest with doer pronouns. This is the same behavior as with SC verbs. For example:

يَجْلِسُ ٱلرِّجَالُ وَيَأْكُلُونَ وَيَشْرَبُونَ.

yajlisu -rrijālu wa yaʾkulūna wa yaʃ͡hrabūna.

"The men sit and (they) eat and (they) drink."

19.8. Future

The PC verb is used to express both the present (habitual and progressive) and future tenses. Sometimes all meanings are meant in the same expression. And if only one of the meanings is intended, context can be sufficient to determine which is intended. So, for example,

يَذْهَبُ ٱلرَّجُلُ
yad͡h·habu -rrajulu.

can mean, either one, or even all, of:

"The man goes." or
"The man is going." or
"The man will go."

Arabic does provide a mechanism for specifying that the use of an PC verb is solely to intend a future action. This is by means of the particles سَـ *sa-* and سَوْفَ *sawfa* that can be placed before the verb. They provide a meaning of "will" or "will soon". سَـ *sa-*, being a single letter particle, is attached to the verb.

For example,

سَيَذْهَبُ ٱلرَّجُلُ
sayad͡h·habu -rrajulu.
and
سَوْفَ يَذْهَبُ ٱلرَّجُلُ
sawfa yad͡h·habu -rrajulu.
"The man will go." or
"Soon the man will go."

The difference in usage of سَـ *sa-* and سَوْفَ *sawfa* can be thought of as one of emphasis. سَوْفَ *sawfa* is more emphatic than سَـ *sa-*. This emphasis can translate to more definiteness in the action or even that the action is farther in the future.

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19.9. Negation

19.9.1. Negation using مَا *mā*

As with SC verbs, PC verbs too can be negated by placing the particle مَا before them. This negates the meaning of the verb usually for the present tense. For example,

مَا يَذْهَبُ ٱلرَّجُلُ
mā yad͡h·habu -rrajulu.
"The man does not go." or,
"The man is not going."

19.9.2. Negation using لَا *lā* {U-case-verb-negation-la}

In addition to مَا *mā*, PC verbs can be negated using لَا *lā* in the same manner. In addition to negating the meaning of the verb for the present tense, it can also negate the meaning for the future tense.

لَا يَذْهَبُ ٱلرَّجُلُ
lā yad͡h·habu -rrajulu.
"The man does not go." or,
"The man is not going." or,
"The man will not go."

The particles سَـ *sa-* and سَوْفَ *sawfa* may not be combined with مَا *mā* and لَا *lā* when negating verbs.

19.10. With قَدْ

TODO

When negating a PC verb preceded by قَدْ there is some question about whether قَدْ is retained or dropped, but the stronger opinion seems to be that it may be kept, as proven by the following verse of poetry:

وَقَدْ لَا تَعْدَمُ الْحَسْنَاءُ ذَامًا
"And [it] may be [that] the beautiful female does not lack a defect."
(ذَام means "defect".)

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Chapter 20.

The maṣdar

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20.1. Introduction

Every verb has a set of *verbal-nouns* derived from it that, despite being nouns, have a verbal meaning to them. One of these verbal-nouns is the *maṣdar*, that we shall study in this chapter.

Consider the following form 1 verb:

Root	SC verb	PC verb (u-case)	Maṣdar
ذهب	ذَهَبَ “he went”	يَذْهَبُ “he goes”	ذَهَاب “going”

The maṣdar associated with this verb is ذَهَاب *dh͡hahāb*. It denotes “the action of going”, or simply “going”. In this section we shall learn how this and other verbal-nouns are used.

Before we proceed, we present a new method to present a verb and its meaning in this book. We will often give a new verb in the format:

ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ ذَهَابًا “to go”

The SC verb for the singular masculine absentee participant “he”, the corresponding PC verb, and their maṣdar are given together, in sequence. The maṣdar is given in the a-case, because of a usage that we shall learn in a later chapter, if Allāh wills. This is how verb definitions are traditionally found in Arabic

dictionaries. And the English meaning is given using the dictionary definition, in this case, the phrase: “to go”.

20.2. Patterns of the maṣdar for form 1 verbs

The patterns of the maṣdar for form 1 verbs are very variable. It is best to learn the maṣdar when you learn a new verb. Having said that, there are some general trends which may be useful to keep in mind:

1. If the verb takes a direct object, then the SC verb must necessarily be of the pattern فَعَلَ *faɛala* or فَعِلَ *faɛila* (because SC verbs of the pattern فَعُلَ *faɛula* never take a direct object). In this case:
    a. The maṣdar for many verbs, in general, tends to be فَعْل *faɛl*. Examples:
        - فَتَحَ يَفْتَحُ فَتْحًا “to open (هـ s.th.)”
        - أَخَذَ يَأْخُذُ أَخْذًا “to take (هـ s.th.)”
        - حَمِدَ يَحْمَدُ حَمْدًا “to praise (ه s.o.)”
2. If the verb does not take a direct object, then:
    a. If the SC verb is of the pattern فَعِلَ *faɛila*, then:
        i. If the meaning of the verb does not fall under the cases ii., iii., and iv. (below), then the maṣdar tends to be, in general, of the pattern فَعَل *faɛal*. Examples:
            - تَعِبَ يَتْعَبُ تَعَبًا “to become tired”
            - جَزِعَ يَجْزَعُ جَزَعًا “to be impatient”
            - أَسِفَ يَأْسَفُ أَسَفًا “to be sorrowful”
        ii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes being a color, then the maṣdar is usually of the pattern فُعْلَة *fuɛlah*. Examples:
            - خَضِرَ يَخْضَرُ خُضْرَةً “to be green”
            - سَمِرَ يَسْمَرُ سُمْرَةً “to be brown”
        iii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes some work or effort, then the maṣdar tends to be of the pattern فُعُول *fuɛūl*. Example:
            - قَدِمَ يَقْدَمُ قُدُومًا “to arrive”
        iv. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes some static quality, then the maṣdar tends to be of the pattern فُعُولَة *fuɛūlah*. Example:
            - يَبِسَ يَيْبَسُ يُبُوسَة “to be dry”
    b. If the SC verb is of the pattern فَعَلَ *faɛala*, then:

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i. If the meaning of the verb does not fall under the cases ii., iii., and iv. (below), then the maṣdar tends to be, in general, of the pattern فُعُول *fuʿūl*. Examples:
   - قَعَدَ يَقْعُدُ قُعُودًا "to sit, stay back"
   - سَجَدَ يَسْجُدُ سُجُودًا "to prostrate down"
   - خَضَعَ يَخْضَعُ خُضُوعًا "to be humble"

ii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes an ailment, then the maṣdar is usually of the pattern فُعَال *fuʿāl*. Examples:
   - سَعَلَ يَسْعُلُ سُعَالً "to cough"

iii. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes travelling, then the maṣdar is usually of the pattern فَعِيل *faʿīl*. Examples:
   - رَحَلَ يَرْحَلُ رَحِيلًا "to depart"

iv. If, instead, the meaning of the verb denotes a sound, then the maṣdar is usually of the pattern فَعِيل *faʿīl* or فُعَال *fuʿāl*, or both. Examples:
   - صَرَخَ يَصْرُخُ صَرِيخًا وَصُرَاخًا "to scream"

3. If the verb denotes a craft or a profession or a rank, then the maṣdar is often of the pattern فِعَالَة *fiʿālah*. Examples:
   - تَجَرَ يَتْجُرُ تِجَارَةً "to trade"
   - أَمِرَ يَأْمَرُ إِمَارَةً "to be a commander"

4. If the SC verb is of the pattern فَعُلَ *faʿula*, then the maṣdar tends to be of the pattern فُعُولَة *fuʿūlah* or فَعَالَة *faʿālah*. Examples:
   - صَعُبَ يَصْعُبُ صُعُوبَةً "to be difficult"
   - شَجُعَ يَشْجُعُ شَجَاعَةً "to be brave"

As mentioned earlier, these are only general trends and there are many verbs that have maṣdars which don't fall under the above rules.

20.3. Usage of the maṣdar

The maṣdar has properties of a noun, like case and definiteness. But it gives the meaning of a verb. For example, consider the verb أَكَلَ يَأْكُلُ أَكْلًا "to eat". We can use its maṣdar in a sentence like this:

فَرَغَ زَيْدٌ مِنَ ٱلْأَكْلِ.
faraḡha zaydun mina -lʾakli.
"Zayd got done with eating."

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Note how the maṣdar ٱلْأَكْلِ *ʾalʾakli* gives the meaning of the action of the verb "eating". But since it is a noun, it obeys the rules for nouns, like being in the i-case when preceded by the preposition مِنْ *min*.

Another point worth noting is that we have made it definite by saying ٱلْأَكْلِ *ʾalʾakli* instead of saying أَكْلٍ *ʾaklin* for the meaning of "eating". This is because, as we explained in section @ref(usage-of-definite-and-indefinite-nouns), the definite noun is usually used in Arabic to give a general meaning, where in English we would not use "the". This may be a good time to re-read that section.

Having said that, the indefnite maṣdar may be used too, and this will give the meaning of "a certain", or "a specific". For example, with the verb عَمِلَ يَعْمَلُ عَمَلًا "to work", we can say:

فَرَغَ مِنْ عَمَلٍ صَعْبٍ.
faraḡha min ɛamalin ṣaɛbin.
"He got done with a [certain] difficult work."

20.4. Multiple maṣdars for the same verb

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It is possible, and fairly common, for verbs to have more than one maṣdar. Usually, each of the maṣdars has its own meaning, distinct from each other.

For example, the verb حَمَلَ يَحْمِلُ حَمْلًا means "to carry (هـ s.th.)" Here is an example of its maṣdar in a sentence:

تَعِبَ زَيْدٌ مِنْ حَمْلِهِ لِلْكُتُبِ ٱلثَّقِيلَةِ.
taɛiba zaydun min ḥamlihi lilkutubi -ṯ͡ḥaqīlati.
"Zayd became tired from his carrying the heavy books."

There exists another meaning for this verb with its own maṣdar: حَمَلَ يَحْمِلُ حَمْلَةً which means "to launch an attack (عَلَىٰ on s.o.)" Here is an example of its maṣdar in a sentence:

دَهِشَ ٱلْقَوْمُ مِنْ حَمْلَةِ ٱلْعَدُوِّ عَلَيْهِمْ.
dahiš͡ha -lqawmu min ḥamlati -lɛaduwwi ɛalayhim.
"The people were astonished at the attack launched by the enemy on them."

Sometimes the meaning between the multiple maṣdars is only slight. Consider, for example, the verb جَهِلَ يَجْهَلُ "to not know, or to be ignorant (هـ of s.th.)"

It has two maṣdars: جَهْلٌ *jahl* and جَهَالَة *jahālah* which have meanings that are close to each other.

جَهْلٌ *jahl* is the more simple maṣdar used for not knowing something. For example,

مَا فَعَلَ زَيْدٌ ٱلْوَاجِبَ لِجَهْلِهِ إِيَّاهُ.

mā faɛala zayduni -lwājiba lijahlihi ʾiyyāhu.
“Zayd did not do the obligatory [work] because of his not knowing it.”

جَهَالَة *jahālah* has the more abstract meaning of “ignorance”. For example,

نَفَرَ ٱلْمُسْلِمُ مِنْ جَهَالَةِ ٱلْمُشْرِكِينَ.
nafara -lmuslimu min jahālati -lmus͡hrikīna.
“The Muslim was repulsed by the ignorance of the pagans.”

As a general rule of thumb, the fewer letters in a maṣdar, the simpler its meaning. And maṣdars of the pattern فَعَالَة *faɛālah* tend to have an abstract meaning.

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Chapter 21.

Some nouns derived from the verb

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Or change title to “The deverbal nouns”?

21.1. Introduction

TODO

Introduce the seven مشتقات [from النحو الوافي 3/181]:

1. اسم الفاعل
2. اسم المفعول
3. الصفة المشبهة
4. أفعل التفضيل
5. اسم الزمان
6. اسم المكان
7. اسم الآلة

Maybe also the following, or move to maṣdar chapter because they are not مشتقات:

1. اسم المرة
2. اسم الهيئة

Only briefly introduce their governing a doer and direct object, if applicable. Will be covered in detail in later chapter if Allāh wills.

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Chapter 22.

The a-case PC verb

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22.1. Introduction

In chapter @ref(u-case-PC-verbs) we mentioned that PC verbs have three cases (like nouns). These cases are called:

i. The u-case
ii. The a-case
iii. The ø-case

We introduced the u-case PC verb in chapter @ref(u-case-PC-verbs). In this chapter we will study the a-case PC verb.

The u-case PC verb makes a plain statement. The a-case PC verb implies a wish or purpose. The a-case PC verb is used after the following articles:

- أَنْ *ʾan*
- لَنْ *lan*
- لِ *li*
- كَيْ *kay*
- حَتَّىٰ *ḥattā*
- إِذَنْ *ʾiḏ͡han*

We will go over these cases in this chapter.

22.2. Forming the a-case PC verb

Here is the u-case PC verb for the singular masculine absentee participant doer "he":

يَفْعَلُ

yafɛalu

"he does"

Note that, because it is in the u-case, the its final letter ends with a ḏẖammah ُ. In order to form the a-case PC verb, we change the ḏẖammah into a fat·ḥah َ, thus:

يَفْعَلَ

yafɛala

This is done for all participants whose doer pronoun is invisible and u-case verb ends with a ḏẖammah ُ.

For participants whose doer pronoun is followed by an extra ن in the u-case verb, this final ن is dropped in order to form the a-case PC verb. So, for example, the u-case PC verb:

يَفْعَلَانِ

yafɛalāni

"they$_{2,m}$ do"

becomes, for the a-case:

يَفْعَلَا

yafɛalā

Here is the complete table of the a-case PC verb for all doer participants.

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Participant	PC verb doer pronoun	u-case PC verb	a-case PC verb
he	*invisible*	يَفْعَلُ	يَفْعَلَ
she	*invisible*	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلَ
you$_{1m}$	*invisible*	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلَ
you$_{1f}$	ي	تَفْعَلِينَ	تَفْعَلِي
I	*invisible*	أَفْعَلُ	أَفْعَلَ
they$_{2m}$	ا	يَفْعَلَانِ	يَفْعَلَا
they$_{2f}$	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
you$_{2}$	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
they$_{3m}$	و	يَفْعَلُونَ	يَفْعَلُوا
they$_{3f}$	نَ	يَفْعَلْنَ	يَفْعَلْنَ (same)
you$_{3m}$	و	تَفْعَلُونَ	تَفْعَلُوا
you$_{3f}$	نَ	تَفْعَلْنَ	تَفْعَلْنَ (same)
we	*invisible*	نَفْعَلُ	نَفْعَلَ

Take note the following:

- The u-case and a-case verbs are the same for the feminine plural absentee and addressee participants:
  - يَفْعَلْنَ (they$_{3f}$)
  - تَفْعَلْنَ (you$_{3f}$)
- The a-case verbs for the masculine plural absentee and addressee participants have a final silent alif:
  - يَفْعَلُوا (they$_{3m}$)
  - تَفْعَلُوا (you$_{3m}$)

22.3. After أَنْ *ʾan*

أَنْ *ʾan* "that" is the main article which causes the following PC verb to be in the a-case. The other articles that we listed in the introduction are all either derived from أَنْ or include its meaning implicitly without expressing it.

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22.3.1. Basic usage of أَنْ *ʾan* with the a-case PC verb

أَنْ often follows verbs that have a meaning of wishing or hoping. For example,

أَمَلَ ٱلطَّالِبُ أَنْ يَنْجَحَ.

ʾamala -ṭṭālibu ʾan yanjaḥ.

"The student hoped that he succeed."

لَا can be used to negate the following a-case PC verb. لَا combines with أَنْ and assimilates with it to form أَلَّا *ʾallā* "that not". For example,

أَمَرَ ٱلْأَبُ ٱلِٱبْنَ أَلَّا يَكْسَلَ.

ʾamara -lʾabu li-bna ʾallā yaksal.

"The father ordered the son that he not be lazy."

Other than this لَا, أَنْ must directly precede the following a-case PC verb and must not be separated from it.

22.3.2. Grammatical equivalence of أَنْ clause with a maṣdar

In grammatical theory, أَنْ and the following verb form a clause that is equivalent in meaning to the maṣdar of the verb. So in the example, أَمَلَ ٱلطَّالِبُ أَنْ يَنْجَحَ.,

the أَنْ clause is أَنْ يَنْجَحَ. It is equivalent to the maṣdar اَلنَّجَاح. So the sentence is grammatically equivalent to

أَمَلَ اَلطَّالِبُ اَلنَّجَاحَ.

ʾamala -ṭṭālibu -nnajāḥ.

"The student hoped [for] success."

This grammatical equivalence of the أَنْ clause with a noun aloows the أَنْ clause to take the place of a noun in various positions in a sentence. So, in the above example, the أَنْ clause is in place of the direct object of the verb أَمَلَ:

أَمَلَ اَلطَّالِبُ أَنْ يَنْجَحَ .
direct object

"The student hoped that he suceed."

We show other examples below where the أَنْ clause occurs in place of other noun positions.

As the subject:

أَنْ تَنْجَحَ هُوَ اَلْمَقْصِدُ .
subject

"That you succeed is the purpose."

which is grammatically equivalent to: نَجَاحَكَ هُوَ اَلْمَقْصِدُ.

As the info:

اَلْمَقْصِدُ أَنْ تَنْجَحَ .
info

"The purpose is that you succeed."

which is grammatically equivalent to: اَلْمَقْصِدُ نَجَاحَكَ.

As a doer noun:

يَحْزُنُنِي أَنْ يَذْهَبَ .
doer

"That he [should] go saddens me."

which is grammatically equivalent to: يَحْزُنُنِي ذَهَابُهُ.

In the i-case as the annexed-to in an annexation:

سَكَتَتْ مِنْ خَشْيَةِ أَنْ يَغْضَبَ عَلَيْهَا .
i-case annexed-to

"She stayed quiet from fear of that he be angry at her."

which is grammatically equivalent to: سَكَتَتْ مِنْ خَشْيَةِ غَضَبِهِ عَلَيْهَا.

In the i-case after a preposition:

رَغِبَ اَلْغُلَامُ فِي أَنْ يَأْكُلَ اَلطَّعَامَ .
i-case after preposition

"The boy desired that he eat the food."

which is grammatically equivalent to: رَغِبَ اَلْغُلَامُ فِي أَكْلِ اَلطَّعَامِ.

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22.3.3. Option to drop the preposition before أَنْ

In the above example the verb رَغِبَ يَرْغَبُ takes an indirect object after the preposition فِي. In such cases, where the أَنْ clause occurs after a preposition, it is common to drop the preposition as long as there is not resulting confusion in meaning. So, we can also say (without the preposition فِي) for the same meaning:

رَغِبَ ٱلْغُلَامُ أَنْ يَأْكُلَ ٱلطَّعَامَ.
"The boy desired that he eat the food."

22.3.4. أَنْ meaning "lest"

Ocassionally, أَنْ is used with the meaning "lest". For example:

قَتَلْتُ ٱلثُّعْبَانَ أَنْ يَقْتُلَنِي.
"I killed the serpent lest it kill me."

22.3.5. أَنْ with the SC verb

أَنْ may also occur before a SC verb. Example:

بَلَغَنِي أَنْ رَجَعْتَ.
"That you have returned has reached me."

22.3.6. Other types of أَنْ

There are other types of أَنْ in the Arabic language. They all have the basic meaning "that". But they are used in different grammatical ways.

The أَنْ we have learned here is called the *maṣdari* أَنْ because of the equivalence of its clause with a maṣdar.

There is also another type of أَنْ called the *lightened* أَنْ that we will learn in section @ref(lightened-an).

There is also the *explanatory* أَنْ and the *extra* أَنْ that we will cover in chapter @ref(types-of-an).

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22.4. After لِ *li*

22.4.1. The لِ of purpose

The article أَنْ may be attached to the preposition لِ *li* thus: لِأَنْ *li'an* to give the purpose of the following verb. This لِ may be translated as "so that". For example:

أَكَلَ لِأَنْ يَشْبَعَ.

"He ate so that he be sated."

When لِ is thus used, أَنْ is optionally allowed to be dropped while its meaning is retained. لِ is then attached to the verb. So we can say, for the same meaning:

أَكَلَ لِيَشْبَعَ.

"He ate so that he be sated."

But when using لَا to negate the verb, then أَنْ must be expressed, and the combination of لِ, أَنْ, and لَا is written as لِئَلَّا *li'allā*. For example,

شَرِبَ ٱلْمَاءَ لِئَلَّا يَعْطَشَ.

"He drank the water so that he not be thirsty."

By the way, the grammatical equivalence of أَنْ and a following a-case PC verb with a maṣdar applies also to when لِ is used before (either an expressed or an implied) أَنْ. So, for example, if we have a sentence:

قَرَأَ ٱلْكِتَابَ لِيَعْلَمَ مَفْهُومَهُ.

or

قَرَأَ ٱلْكِتَابَ لِأَنْ يَعْلَمَ مَفْهُومَهُ.

"He read the book so that he know its meaning."

Then, grammatically, أَنْ and what follows it may be expressed with the maṣdar عِلْم thus:

قَرَأَ ٱلْكِتَابَ لِعِلْمِ مَفْهُومِهِ.

"He read the book for the knowledge of its meaning."

22.4.2. The لِ of denial

There is a specific لِ, called the لِ of denial, which is used with a-case PC verbs and the verb كَانَ that we will discuss in section (TODO in كَانَ chapter).

22.5. After كَيْ *kay*

كَيْ *kay* is a preposition similar to لِ in meaning. It may be translated as "in order that", or also as "so that". It is also used before the a-case PC verb. The difference from لِ is that, when لِ is used with the a-case PC verb, expressing or dropping the

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أَنْ was optional. But with كَيْ, dropping the أَنْ is mandatory, while its meaning is retained. For example:

أَكَلَ كَيْ يَشْبَعَ.

"He ate in order that he be sated."

لَا is used, as usual, to negate the verb and is attached to كَيْ thus: كَيْلَا *kaylā*. Example:

شَرِبَ ٱلْمَاءَ كَيْلَا يَعْطَشَ.

"He drank the water in order that he not be thirsty."

The preposition لِ may be combined with كَيْ thus: لِكَيْ *likay*, for more or less the same meaning. For example:

أَكَلَ لِكَيْ يَشْبَعَ.

"He ate in order that he be sated."

With لَا the whole combination is written as لِكَيْلَا *likaylā*. أَنْ must again be not be expressed.

Example:

شَرِبَ ٱلْمَاءَ لِكَيْلَا يَعْطَشَ.

"He drank the water in order that he not be thirsty."

By the way, كَيْ and a following a-case PC verb are not *directly* replaced by a maṣdar. So, for example, if we have a sentence:

قَرَأَ ٱلْكِتَابَ كَيْ يَعْلَمَ مَفْهُومَهُ.

"He read the book in order that he know its meaning."

Then لِ is to be used in place of كَيْ if we wish to replace it and what follows with the maṣdar عِلْم thus:

قَرَأَ ٱلْكِتَابَ لِعِلْمِ مَفْهُومِهِ.

"He read the book for the knowledge of its meaning."

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22.6. After حَتَّىٰ *ḥattā*

حَتَّىٰ *ḥattā* is a particle that can be used in multiple ways. Its basic meaning is "until" or "to the point of" or "even" where it indicates an extreme limit.

Before we discuss its use with a verb following it, we will take a short digression to discuss its use with a following noun.

22.6.1. حَتَّىٰ *ḥattā* with a following noun

Consider the following sentence:

أَكَلْتُ ٱلسَّمَكَةَ حَتَّىٰ رَأْسِهَا.

"I ate the fish until its head."

حَتَّىٰ "until", here, is used as a preposition. Therefore, رَأْس is in the i-case, as the noun following a preposition. The meaning of the sentence is that the fish was eaten all the way to its head. (Whether the head itself was eaten or not is ambiguous. The sentence itself admits both meanings.)

Consider now a variant of this sentence:

أَكَلْتُ ٱلسَّمَكَةَ حَتَّىٰ رَأْسَهَا.

"I ate the fish, even its head."

رَأْس, here, is in the a-case because it is a direct object of the verb أَكَلَ "ate". The particle حَتَّىٰ "even", here, is only a connector between the direct objects in much the same way as وَ "and". (أَكَلْتُ ٱلسَّمَكَةَ وَرَأْسَهَا. "I ate the fish and its head.")

Consider now yet another variant of this sentence:

أَكَلْتُ ٱلسَّمَكَةَ. حَتَّىٰ رَأْسُهَا [أَكَلْتُهَا].

"I ate the fish. Even its head [I ate]."

Now رَأْس is in the u-case because it is actually the subject of a new sentence, whose info is (an either expressed or implied) أَكَلْتُهَا "I ate it". حَتَّىٰ, here, serves as an introductory particle to the second subject and does not affect the case of the following noun.

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22.6.2. حَتَّىٰ *ḥattā* with a following verb

Just as حَتَّىٰ is used for different purposes with a following noun, so too is it used with different purposes with a verb following it.

22.6.2.1. حَتَّىٰ with a following a-case PC verb

When حَتَّىٰ is used with an expectation or purpose of a future action of the verb following it, then the verb following it is an a-case PC verb. This is done in the following two scenarios:

1. When حَتَّىٰ is used to indicate an extreme point at which the action of the following verb would occur, or is meant to occur. Here, حَتَّىٰ may be translated as "to the point of" and the verb following it is translated using "-ing". For example,

   قَرَأْتُ ٱلْقُرْآنَ حَتَّىٰ أَخْتِمَهُ.

   "I read the Qurʾān to the point of finishing it."

   يَغْضَبُ حَتَّىٰ يَهْرَبُوا مِنْهُ.

   "He becomes angry to the point of their fleeing from him."

   غَضِبَ حَتَّىٰ لَا يَمْلِكَ نَفْسَهُ.

   "He became angry to the point of not controlling himself."

It is noteworthy that the use of حَتَّىٰ, here, implies only that the following action is meant to occur, or is at the point of being expected to occur. It doesn't actually state that the action will actually occur, for something may prevent it from occurring in reality.[1]

Note, also, that لَا is not attached to حَتَّىٰ in حَتَّىٰ لَا.

Also, similar to the case of كَيْ, there is an assumed (but mandatorily unexpressed) أَنْ which is the real cause of the following PC verb being in the a-case. In fact, حَتَّىٰ, here, can be considered synonymous to إِلَىٰ أَنْ "to [the point] that". So the above examples can be considered similar in meaning to:

قَرَأْتُ ٱلْقُرْآنَ إِلَىٰ أَنْ أَخْتِمَهُ.

يَغْضَبُ إِلَىٰ أَنْ يَهْرَبُوا مِنْهُ.

غَضِبَ إِلَىٰ أَلَّا يَمْلِكَ نَفْسَهُ.

2. When حَتَّىٰ is used with the meaning "to such a purpose that". This is a similar meaning to كَيْ "in order that". For example,

أَذْهَبُ إِلَيْهِ حَتَّىٰ يَأْمُرَنِي بِشَيْءٍ.
"I go to him to such a purpose that he order me [to do] something."

وَعَظَ ٱلْأَبُ ٱبْنَهُ حَتَّىٰ يَصْلُحَ.
"The father admonished his son to such a purpose that he be righteous."

Again, there is an assumed (but mandatorily unexpressed) أَنْ which is the real cause of the following PC verb being in the a-case.

Sometimes, the sentence itself may admit both of the above meanings. For example:

يَأْكُلُ حَتَّىٰ يَشْبَعَ.
"He eats to the point of being full."
and/or
"He eats to the purpose that he be full."

Context would be needed to determine which meaning or whether both meanings are intended.

22.6.2.2. حَتَّىٰ with no effect on the following verb

If حَتَّىٰ is not used with any expectation or purpose of a future action of the verb following it, then it has no effect on this verb. (It goes without saying that an implicit أَنْ is not assumed with حَتَّىٰ in this case.)

The verb following حَتَّىٰ in this case may even be a SC verb. For example:

[1] Sadan, *The subjunctive mood in Arabic grammatical thought* 201

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أَكَلْتُ ٱلطَّعَامَ حَتَّىٰ شَبِعْتُ.
“I ate the food until I became full.”

When used with a following PC verb, the verb is put in the u-case and the meaning is that the action of the verb *before* حَتَّىٰ was done to such an extent that it caused the action of the verb *following* حَتَّىٰ to definitely occur. The action before حَتَّىٰ must necessarily be a past action, and the action following حَتَّىٰ must necessarily be a present (not a future) action. For example,

أَكَلْتُ ٱلطَّعَامَ حَتَّىٰ أَشْبَعُ.
“I ate the food to such an extent that I am (being) full.”

غَضِبَ حَتَّىٰ يَهْرَبُونَ مِنْهُ.
“He became so angry that they are fleeing from him.”

غَضِبَ حَتَّىٰ لَا يَمْلِكُ نَفْسَهُ.
“He became so angry that he is not controlling himself.”

Compare these examples with the corresponding ones in the previous subsection that have an a-case PC verb.

22.7. After لَنْ *lan*

لَا and أَنْ are combined to form لَنْ *lan* with the meaning “shall not”. لَنْ is used with the a-case PC verb to emphatically negate the future.

لَنْ تَذْهَبَ.
“You$_{1m}$ shall not go.”

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22.8. After إِذَنْ *ʾidhan*

TODO

22.9. After وَ, فَ, أَوْ, and ثُمَّ

22.9.1. As connectors

If the connectors وَ, فَ, أَوْ, and ثُمَّ occur after an a-case PC verb, then a second a-case PC verb (that doesn’t have its own أَنْ, etc.) may be either in the a-case or the u-case. For example,

أَرْغَبُ أَنْ أَحْضُرَ ٱلْمَجْلِسَ وَأَسْمَعَ. (أَسْمَعَ in a-case)
“I desire that I attend the session and [that] I listen.”

or

أَرْغَبُ أَنْ أَحْضُرَ ٱلْمَجْلِسَ وَأَسْمَعُ. (أَسْمَعَ in u-case)
“I desire that I attend the session and I will listen.”

22.9.2. With special meanings

وَ, فَ, أَوْ, and ثُمَّ also cause the following PC verb to be in the a-case in their own right, not simply as connectors. This is discussed in more detail in chapter TODO.

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Chapter 23.

The ø-case PC verb

> ⚠ Warning
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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23.1. Introduction

In chapter @ref(u-case-PC-verbs) we mentioned that PC verbs have three cases (like nouns). These cases are called:

i. The u-case
ii. The a-case
iii. The ø-case

We have already studied the u-case of PC verbs in chapter @ref(u-case-PC-verbs). And we will defer the study of a-case of PC verbs to chapter @ref(a-case-PC-verbs). In this chapter we will study the ø-case PC verb.

We will also study the *verb of command* which is very similar to the ø-case PC verb.

23.2. Forming the ø-case PC verb

Here is the u-case PC verb for the singular masculine absentee participant doer "he":

يَفْعَلُ
yafɛalu
“he does”

Note that, because it is in the u-case, the its final letter ends with a ḍ͡hammah ُ. In order to form the ø-case PC verb, we change the ḍ͡hammah into a sukūn ْ, thus:

يَفْعَلْ
yafɛal

This is done for all participants whose doer pronoun is invisible and u-case verb ends with a ḍ͡hammah ُ.

For participants whose doer pronoun is followed by an extra ن in the u-case verb, this final ن is dropped in order to form the ø-case PC verb. So, for example, the u-case PC verb:

يَفْعَلَانِ
yafɛalāni
“they$_{2,m}$ do”

becomes, for the ø-case:

يَفْعَلَا
yafɛalā

Here is the complete table of the ø-case PC verb for all doer participants.

Participant	PC verb doer pronoun	u-case PC verb	ø-case PC verb
he	*invisible*	يَفْعَلُ	يَفْعَلْ
she	*invisible*	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلْ
you$_{1,m}$	*invisible*	تَفْعَلُ	تَفْعَلْ
you$_{1,f}$	ي	تَفْعَلِينَ	تَفْعَلِي
I	*invisible*	أَفْعَلُ	أَفْعَلْ
they$_{2,m}$	ا	يَفْعَلَانِ	يَفْعَلَا
they$_{2,f}$	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
you$_{2}$	ا	تَفْعَلَانِ	تَفْعَلَا
they$_{3+,m}$	و	يَفْعَلُونَ	يَفْعَلُوا
they$_{3+,f}$	نَ	يَفْعَلْنَ	يَفْعَلْنَ (same)
you$_{3+,m}$	و	تَفْعَلُونَ	تَفْعَلُوا
you$_{3+,f}$	نَ	تَفْعَلْنَ	تَفْعَلْنَ (same)
we	*invisible*	نَفْعَلُ	نَفْعَلْ

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Take note the following:

- The u-case and ø-case verbs are the same for the feminine plural absentee and addressee participants:

  - يَفْعَلْنَ (they$_{3+,f}$)
  - تَفْعَلْنَ (you$_{3+,f}$)

- The u-case and ø-case verbs for the masculine plural absentee and addressee participants have a final silent alif:
  - يَفْعَلُوا (they$_{3+,m}$)
  - تَفْعَلُوا (you$_{3+,m}$)
- When the ø-case PC verb ends with a sukūn ◌ْ, and the next word begins with a connecting hamzah ٱ then the sukūn ◌ْ is converted to an kasrah ◌ِ. For example:
  - يَفْعَلْ + ٱلرَّجُلُ = يَفْعَلِ ٱلرَّجُلُ

23.3. With لِ for indirect commands

The particle لِ when connected to the front of a PC verb causes it to be in the ø-case and gives it the meaning of an indirect command. In English this can be translated using “should” or “let”:

لِيَذْهَبِ ٱلرَّجُلُ

“The man should go!”

or

“Let the man go!”

(“Let” is being used here as a command for the man, not for the addressee of this speech.)

لِنَذْهَبْ!

“Let’s go!”

The indirect command is only rarely used for the addressee participant.[1]

So an example like the following is permissible but rare:

لِتَجْلِسْ

“You should sit!”

Instead, the verb of command is more commonly used which we will study in section @ref(verb-of-command) later in this chapter.

The particles فَ “so” and وَ “and” are frequently used before this لِ. The لِ then loses its kasrah and gets a sukūn. Examples:

فَلْنَأْكُلْ طَعَامَنَا وَلْنَشْرَبْ شَرَابَنَا.

“So let us eat our food and drink our drink!”

وَلْيَجْلِسُوا عَلَى ٱلْأَرْضِ.

“And they should sit on the ground!”

[1] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/291–293. See also references to البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة يونس 10:58 and other tafsīrs for the reading فبذلك فلتفرحوا

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Finally, the لِ before a ø-case PC verb for the indirect command is mandatory. But it may be dropped by poetic license.[2]

23.4. With لَا for prohibitions

The word لَا when in front of a ø-case PC verb gives the meaning of a prohibition. In English this can be translated using “Don’t”.

For example,

لَا تَكْتُبُوا

“Don’t write$_{3,m}$!”

يَا زَيْدُ، لَا تَدْخُلِ ٱلْبَيْتَ!

“Don’t$_{1,m}$ enter the house!”

The particles فَ “so” and وَ “and” may be used before this لَا. Example:

فَلَا تَأْكُلْ وَلَا تَشْرَبْ!

“So don’t eat$_{1,m}$ and don’t drink$_{1,m}$!”

Such prohibitions are generally for the addressee participant. However, rarely, they may be issued for the absentee participant as well. Example:

لَايَمْنَعْ زَيْدًا ٱلدُّخُولَ.

“Let him not prevent Zayd from entering!”

By the way, لَا does not force a verb to be in the u-case ø-case. We have already seen in section @ref(u-case-verb-negation-la) that لَا can be used to negate a u-case PC verb for the present and future tense. Example:

لَا يَذْهَبُ ٱلرَّجُلُ

lā yad͡h·habu -rrajulu.

“The man does not go.” or,

“The man is not going.” or,

“The man will not go.”

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23.5. With لَمْ for “did not”

The particle لَمْ when in front of an PC verb causes it to be in the ø-case and gives it the meaning of negating the past tense In English this can be translated using “did not”. For example,

لَمْ يَذْهَبِ ٱلرَّجُلُ.

“The man did not go.”

We have already learned in section @ref(negating-SC-verbs) that the SC verb is negated using the particle مَا. For example:

[2] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/291–292

مَا ذَهَبَ ٱلرَّجُلُ.
mā ḏ͡hahaba -rrajulu.
"The man did not go."
or,
"The man has not gone."

Both لَمْ and مَا are used commonly to negate the past tense. مَا has a more emphatic meaning than لَمْ.

Here are some more examples:

23.6. With لَمَّا for "did not yet"

The word لَمَّا when in front of a ø-case PC verb gives the meaning "did not yet". For example,

لَمَّا يَذْهَبْ زَيْدٌ.
"Zayd did not go yet."

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23.7. Other uses of the ø-case PC verb

The ø-case PC verb is also used for *consequential actions* and in *conditional statements*. We will deal with these in chapters @ref(the-consequential-action) and @ref(conditional-statements) respectively

23.8. The verb of command

In order to give a direct command to an addressee, Arabic uses the verb of command. The verb of command is very similar to the ø-case PC verb. The verb of command is only available for the addressee participant.

23.8.1. Forming the verb of command

Here is the verb of command for the addressee participants:

Participant	Verb of command
$you_{1,m}$	ٱفْعَلْ
$you_{1,f}$	ٱفْعَلِي
you_{2}	ٱفْعَلَا

Participant	Verb of command
$you_{3+,m}$	اُفْعَلُوا
$you_{3+,f}$	اُفْعَلْنَ

In order to form the verb of command, we remove the initial ت from the addressee particpant verb. The verb then begins with an sukūn so we place a connecting hamzah in front of it.

When the verb of command occurs in the beginning of a sentence, then the vowel mark for the connecting hamzah is selected according to the following criteria:

i. When the middle root letter of the verb of command has an ḏẖammah ُ, then the connecting hamzah gets an ḏẖammah too. Examples:

Verb	Verb of command for "he"
نَظَرَ يَنْظُرُ نَظَرًا	اُنْظُرْ "Look!"
قَتَلَ يَقْتُلُ قَتْلًا	اُقْتُلْ "Kill!"
مَكَثَ يَمْكُثُ مُكُوثًا	اُمْكُثْ "Stay!"

ii. Otherwise, when the middle root letter of the verb of command has an fat·ḥah َ or an kasrah ِ, then the connecting hamzah gets an kasrah ِ. Examples:

Verb	Verb of command for "he"
عَمِلَ يَعْمَلُ عَمَلًا	اِعْمَلْ "Work!"
ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ ذَهَابًا	اِذْهَبْ "Go!"
جَلَسَ يَجْلِسُ جُلُوسًا	اِجْلِسْ "Sit!"

Here are some examples of using the verb of command:

The verb of command is not used to issue negative commands, like "Don't go!". Instead, the ø-case verb is used with لَا as described in section @ref(la-of-prohibition) above.

لَا تَذْهَبْ
"Don't go!"

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23.8.2. The verb of command for roots begin with hamzah

Appendix A details the rules for speeling words that contain hamzah generally. In addition to those rules, the verb of command for roots that begin with hamzah warrant additional discussion.

Consider the following form 1 verbs and their verbs of command for the singular masculine addressee doer "he":

Root	Verb	Verb of command
أمل	أَمَلَ يَأْمُلُ أَمَلًا "to hope"	ٱؤْمُلْ
أذن	أَذِنَ يَأْذَنُ أَذَنًا "to permit"	ٱئْذَنْ

Here are examples of these verbs of commands in the middle of a sentence:

يَا أُمِّي ٱئْذَنِي لِي ٱللَّعِبَ!

yā ʾummi -ʾd͡hanī li -llaɛib!

"O my mother, permit me to play!"

يَا زَيْدُ ٱؤْمُلِ ٱلْخَيْرَ!

yā zaydu -ʾmuli -lk͡hayr!

"O Zayd, hope for good!"

When these verbs of command occur in the beginning of the sentence, then there would be two hamzahs occuring next to each other which is not permitted. So the second hamzah is pronounced as a long vowel, though it may still be written as a hamzah. Examples:

أُؤمُلِ ٱلْخَيْرَ يَا زَيْدُ!

ʾūmul

not

× *ʾuʾmul*

ٱئذَنِي لِي ٱللَّعِبَ يَا أُمِّي!

ʾīd͡hanī

not

× *ʾiʾd͡hanī*

As a further complication, when the verb of command is preceded by وَ "and" or فَ "so" then the connecting *hamza* is not written and the hamzah of the first root letter is written seated on an alif. Examples:

وَأْمُلْ

waʾmul

"And hope!"

فَأْذَنْ

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faʾd͡han
“So permit!”

23.8.3. Irregular verbs of command

In addition to the rules states above there are four verbs of command (all containing hamzah) that are irregular. We will discuss them below:

23.8.3.1. The verbs أَكَلَ , أَخَذَ , and أَمَرَ

The verbs of command for the following three verbs are irregular:

Root	Verb	Verb of command
أكل	أَكَلَ يَأْكُلُ أَكْلًا “to eat”	كُلْ
أخذ	أَخَذَ يَأْخُذُ أَخْذًا “to take”	خُذْ
أمر	أَمَرَ يَأْمُرُ أَمْرًا “to order”	مُرْ

As you can see, the initial hamzah has been completely deleted for the verbs of command. However, of these verbs, the verb of command for أَمَرَ يَأْمُرُ أَمْرًا is permitted to retain its initial hamzah when preceded by وَ “and” or فَ “so”. Then, it becomes

وَأْمُرْ *waʾmur*
and
فَأْمُرْ *faʾmur*

This retaining of the initial hamzah is not done for the other two verbs.

Here are some examples of these verbs of command:

23.8.3.2. The verb سَأَلَ

The verb سَأَلَ يَسْأَلُ سُؤَالًا “to question” forms its verb of command both regularly, and irregularly:

i. Regular: اِسْأَلْ *ʾisʾal*
ii. Irregular: سَلْ *sal*

If the verb of command is preceded by وَ “and” or فَ “so”, then the regular verb of command اِسْأَلْ *ʾisʾal* is often preferred.

Otherwise, the irregular verb of command سَلْ *sal* is often preferred.

Examples of usage:

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Chapter 24.

The passive verb

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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24.1. Introduction

Consider the sentence:

شَرِبَ زَيْدٌ ٱلْمَاءَ.
ʃ͡hariba zayduni -lmāʾ.
“Zayd drank the water.”

In this sentence, زَيْدٌ “Zayd” is the doer of the verb شَرِبَ “drank”. This construction of the verb, which we have been using so far, is called the *active verb* construction, because the doer of the verb, in this case “Zayd” is known. Now consider the following sentence:

شُرِبَ ٱلْمَاءُ.
ʃ͡huriba -lmāʾ.
“The water was drunk.”

In this sentence, the doer of the verb, i.e. the person who is doing the action of the verb “to drink”, is not mentioned. From the sentence itself it is unknown who the doer is. This construction of the verb is called the *passive verb* construction.

24.2. Forming the passive verb

So far we have been studing form 1 verbs, which use only the three root letters. As we know, the vowel on the middle root letter is variable for active verbs, for example:

- شَرِبَ يَشْرَبُ "to drink".
- فَتَحَ يَفْتَحُ "to open"
- كَبُرَ يَكْبُرُ "to become big"
- etc.

The pattern of passive verb for form 1 verbs is always:
فُعِلَ يُفْعَلُ
fuɛila yufɛalu

This is regardless of the vowel on the middle root letter in the active verb. If there is more than one verb from the same root, with different middle root letter vowels for the active verb, then they will share the same passive verb. For example, the active verbs: حَسَبَ يَحْسُبُ "to reckon" and حَسِبَ يَحْسِبُ "to deem" share the same passive verb: حُسِبَ يُحْسَبُ.

The same doer pronouns are used for the passive verb as for the active verb. And the passive PC verb has the same three cases as the active PC verb. For example:

- فُعِلُوا *fuɛilū* "they$_{3m}$" (SC)
- تُفْعَلَانِ *tufɛalāni* "you$_{2}$" or "they$_{2f}$" (u-case PC)
- أُفْعَلَ *ʾufɛala* "I" (a-case PC)
- etc.

The complete table showing the doer pronouns is given in appendix @ref(verb-tables).

24.3. The deputy doer

Consider again this sentence with an passive verb construction:

شُرِبَ ٱلْمَاءُ .
deputy doer

"The water was drunk."

Note that the noun ٱلْمَاءُ *ʾalmāʾu* "the water" is in the u-case. This is because, in the absence of the doer, the direct object of the active verb (ٱلْمَاءَ) is deputized to take doer's place in the u-case. It is then known as the *deputy doer*.

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The doer pronouns for the passive verb shall therefore match the gender and number of the deputy doer. Here are some examples:

شُكِرَتِ ٱلأُمَّهَاتُ وَمُدِحْنَ.
shukirati -lʾummahātu wamudiḥn.
"The mothers were thanked and praised."

أَنْتُمَا تُغْبَنَانِ وَتُخْدَعَانِ.
ʾantumā tughbanāni watukhdaɛān.
"You$_2$ are being cheated and deceived."

مَا قُطِعَتِ ٱلشَّجَرَةُ.
mā quṭiɛati -shshajarah.
"The tree was not cut."

24.3.1. The deputy doer for multiple direct objects

Some verbs, in the active construction, take multiple direct object. These verbs can be classified into two classes:

a. Verbs that cause the first direct object to be affected by, or asked for, the second direct object. Examples:

   مَلَأَ ٱلْغُلَامُ ٱلدَّلْوَ مَاءً.
   "The boy filled the bucket (with) water."

   مَنَعَ ٱلْمَرَضُ ٱلرَّجُلَ ٱلْعَمَلَ.
   "Sickness prevented the man (from) work."

   سَأَلَ ٱلْفَقِيرُ ٱلْغَنِيَّ دِرْهَمًا.
   "The poor [man] asked the rich [man] (for) a dirham."

b. Verbs that siginify an action of the heart or of intention, like thinking, deeming, making, etc. Examples:

   حَسِبْتُ زَيْدًا صَدِيقًا.
   "I deemed Zayd [to be] a friend"

   وَجَدَتِ ٱلطَّالِبَةُ ٱلْأُسْتَاذَةَ حَلِيمَةً.
   "The student$_f$ found the professor$_f$ [to be] forbearing."

   جَعَلَ ٱللَّـهُ ٱلْمَاءَ بَرَكَةً.
   "Allāh has made the water a blessing."

When such verbs are converted to the passive verb construction, then one, and only one, direct object shall be chosen to be the deputy doer. It is generally preferred to make the first direct object the deputy-doer, and leave the second

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direct object, as is, in the a-case. Here are the same sentences in the passive construction:

مُلِئَتِ ٱلدَّلْوُ مَاءً. (دَلْو "bucket" is feminine.)
"The bucket was filled (with) water."

مُنِعَ ٱلرَّجُلُ ٱلْعَمَلَ.
"The man was prevented (from) work."

سُئِلَ ٱلْغَنِيُّ دِرْهَمًا.
"The rich [man] was asked for a dirham."

حُسِبَ زَيْدٌ صَدِيقًا.
"Zayd was deemed [to be] a friend"

وُجِدَتِ ٱلْأُسْتَاذَةُ حَلِيمَةً.
"The professor$_f$ was found [to be] forbearing."

جُعِلَ ٱلْمَاءُ بَرَكَةً.
"Water has been made a blessing."

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24.4. Impersonal use

TODO: add examples from Wright p. 268

When verbs are used without a direct object, then their passive construction gives in an impersonal meaning. There are a few such usages that we will explain in the following subsections.

24.4.1. With prepositional phrases

Some verbs take no direct objects, but are used with prepositional phrases. For example,

جَلَسَ ٱلنَّاسُ عَلَى ٱلْأَرْضِ.
"The people sat upon the ground."

Other verbs, which can take a direct object, may be used without one, and again with a prepositional phrase instead. For example:

كَتَبَ ٱلْكَاتِبُ بِٱلْقَلَمِ.
"The scribe wrote with the pen."

When such sentences are converted to the passive verb construction then the prepositional phrase may be taken as the deputy doer. However, the preposition causes the noun following it to remain in the i-case. So the deputy doer is not indicated by an apparent ḍ͡hammah (or by the other indicators of the u-case). The verb then appears to be in the singular masculine, with its deputy doer following it. For example:

جُلِسَ عَلَى ٱلْأَرْضِ .
deputy doer

"The ground was sat upon."

كُتِبَ بِٱلْقَلَمِ.
"The pen was written with."

24.4.2. With adverbs of time or place

Other verbs don't take a direct object but may be used with an adverb of time or place in the a-case. (We will study adverbs of time and place in chapter @ref(adverbs-of-time-and-place), if Allāh wills.) Here is an example:

سَهَرَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ لَيْلَةَ ٱلْقَدْرِ .
a-case adverb of time

"The mother stayed up the Night of Power."

When this sentence is converted to an passive construction then the adverb of time or place can be taken as the deputy doer in the u-case:

سُهِرَتْ لَيلَةُ ٱلْقَدْرِ.
"The Night of Power was stayed up [in]."

Note the u-case of لَيْلَةُ *laylatu* as the deputy doer.

24.4.3. With the maṣdar

The maṣdar, because it is the action being done may be considered a kind of direct object. (We will study the use of the maṣdar as a done-to in chapter @ref(absolute-doee), if Allāh wills.) For example:

فَهِمَ ٱلشَّيْخُ فَهْمًا عَمِيقًا.
"The old man understood, a deep understanding."

When such sentences are converted to the passive verb construction, then the maṣdar may be taken as the deputy doer in the u-case.

فُهِمَ فَهْمٌ عَمِيقٌ.
"A deep understanding was understood."

24.4.4. Requirement of specialization

When a prepositional phrase, or an adverb of time or place, or a maṣdar is to be used as a deputy doer in an passive verb construction, then it is required that they be specialized in meaning, and not used in a general sense. So for example, if we have the sentence:

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سَهِرَتِ ٱلْأُمُّ لَيلَةً.
“The mother stayed up a night.”

then because of the non-specialized meaning of لَيْلَةً, such a sentence is typically not suitable for being converted to a passive verb construction.

24.4.5. Choosing the deputy doer

If a sentence is to be converted to an passive verb construction and it has more than one of the following:

- a direct object
- a specialized prepositional phrase
- a specialized adverb of time or place
- a specialized maṣdar

Then only one shall be chosen as the deputy doer. If a direct object exists, then it is typically chosen. If a direct object does not exist, then the one desired to be emphasized may be chosen as the deputy doer. For example:

سُهِرَ فِي ٱلْمَسْجِدِ لَيلَةَ ٱلْقَدْرِ.
“The mosque was stayed up in [on] the Night of Power.”

In the above sentence the prepositional phrase فِي ٱلْمَسْجِدِ was chosen as the deputy doer, and the adverb of time لَيْلَةَ remains, as is, in the a-case.

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24.5. Cases of the passive PC verb

The passive PC verb has three cases, just like the active PC verb: the u-case, the a-case, and the ø-case. The three cases are used in the same circumstances, and with the same rules that we have already learned.

So the u-case verb is used for making plain statements:

تُذْكَرُ قِصَّةُ ٱلْمَلِكِ فِي كُتُبِ ٱلتَّأْرِيخِ.
“The story of the king is mentioned in the books of history.”

لَا تُرْفَعُ ٱلْأَصْوَاتُ فِي ٱلْمَكْتَبَةِ.
“Voices are not raised in the library.”

The a-case verb is used for expressing wish or purpose:

يَأْمُلُ ٱلْمُسْلِمُونَ أَنْ يُغْفَرُ لَهُمْ.
“The Muslims hope that they be forgiven.”
(Note that يُغْفَرَ has a singular masculine deputy doer because there is no direct object.)

لَنْ تُسْمَعَا.
“You$_2$ shall not be heard.”

دُفِعَ ٱلْبَابُ حَتَّىٰ يُفْتَحَ.
"The door was pushed for the result that it open."

Similarly, the ø-case verb is used in the following cases:

- With لَمْ "was not":

  لَمْ يُؤْذَنْ لِي أَنْ أَدْخُلَ.
  "It was not permitted for me that I enter."

- With لَمَّا "not yet"

  لَمَّا يُكْتَبْ كِتَابٌ فِي هَـٰذَا ٱلْمَوْضُوعِ.
  "A book has not yet been written in this subject."

- With لِ for indirect commands[1]:

  لِيُسْمَعْ صَوْتُهُ!
  "Let his voice be heard!"

  There is no verb of command for passive verbs. So while indirect commands are typically not used for the addressee participant for active verbs (see section @ref(indirect-commands)), they are the only way to issue commands for the addressee participant in the passive verb construction:

  لِتُنْصَرُوا!
  "Let you$_{3m}$ be aided!"

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24.6. Usage of the passive verb

There are cases where it is permissible to use of the passive verb construction, and cases where it is *not* permissible to use of the passive verb construction. We will explain them below:

24.6.1. Permissible use of the passive verb

There can be a number of reasons why a speaker is forced to, or chooses to, use the passive verb construction. Among these reasons are:

a. When the doer is actually unknown to the speaker. This is the classic use-case, as indicated by the name *passive verb*. (But, as we shall see below, it is not the only use case.) So, if we say:

   كُسِرَتِ ٱلزُّجَاجَةُ.
   "The glass was broken."

[1] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/291

then, it may be that we don't know who broke the glass, and that is why we are expressing it in the passive verb construction.

b. When the doer is known to the speaker, but he does not wish to make him known to others. So the same sentence above .كُسِرَتِ ٱلزُّجَاجَةُ could be used when the speaker knows that it was actually زَيْد "Zayd", for example, who broke the glass, but the speaker does not wish that others find out that it was Zayd. This itself could be for any reason, for example: the speaker fears Zayd, for fears for Zayd, etc.

c. When the speaker wishes to draw attention to the act itself rather than the doer of the act. So we might say:

مُنِعْنَا ٱلدُّخُولَ.
"We have been prevented from entering."

when we wish to focus on the act of our having been prevented, rather than who prevented us.

d. For stylistic reasons, when it is obvious and known who the doer is. For example:

خُلِقَ ٱلْإِنْسَانُ مِنْ عَجَلٍ
"Man was created of haste [i.e., impatience]." (Qurʾān 21:37. Trans. Saheeh International)

In the above ʾāyah it is known and obvious that Allāh created man.

e. In order to glorify the doer. So we might the passive verb construction to say:

خُلِقَ ٱلْخِنْزِيرُ.
"The pig was created."

This could be to distance Allāh from being mentioned next to the name of a particularly dirty animal.

f. When the doer is not mentioned due to contempt for him. For example:

قُتِلَ أَمِيرُ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ عُمَرُ.
"The Commander of the believers, Ɛumar, was killed."

In this sentence we chose not to name the killer due to contempt for him.

These reasons are not mutually exclusive, and sometimes the passive verb construction is used for a combination of them.

Work in progress

24.6.2. Impermissible use of the passive verb

The passive verb may not be used when the doer is mentioned with the verb. This is different from English which can use the word “by” to indicate the doer in a passive voice construction, as in: “The book was written by Zayd.”. Such a sentence, in Arabic can only be expressed with the active verb construction:

كَتَبَ زَيْدٌ ٱلْكِتَابَ.

kataba zayduni -lkitāb.

“Zayd wrote the book.”

It may seem like this rule is broken in sentences like:

قُتِلَ بِٱلسَّيْفِ.

qutila bi-ssayf.

“He was killed by the sword.”

But such is not the case. The active verb constuction would be something like:

قَتَلَهُ فُلَانٌ بِٱلسَّيْفِ.

qatalahu fulānun bi-ssayf.

“So-and-so killed him with the sword.”

As you can see, فُلَان “so-and-so” is actually the doer, and ٱلسَّيْف “the sword” is merely a prepositional phrase indicating the instrument used in the act.

24.7. The passive voice for verbs that take two direct objects

TODO: Wright 2/52

Bring section 3.1 down here

Work in progress

Work in progress

Chapter 25.

Additional forms of the verb

> ⚠ Warning
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Work in progress

25.1. Introduction

So far we have been studying the form 1 verb (فَعَلَ يَفْعَلُ). The form 1 verb is the basic form of the verb. It consists of only the three root letters for the stateless verb.

In this chapter we will learn additional forms of the verb. These forms add extra letters to three root letters. There are about 15 or so additional forms of the verb. But only 10 or so are in common usage.

Learning these additional forms may seem tedious but we advise you to persevere because additional forms of the verb are used very commonly.

The form 1 verb has variability in the middle (ع) letter, which can have either an fat·ḥah, kasrah, or ḍ͡hammah. It also has variability in the pattern its maṣdar. The additional forms have almost no variability of this kind. So, in one sense, the additional forms of the verb are easier than the form 1 verb.

25.1.1. Topics to cover

- usage of the masdar of one form for another form
- افتعل with the meaning of تفاعل and nuances in the meaning

- avoid using [□□] with form 6, unless as masdar. (Actually added it to Usage and Style chapter in appendix but reference it here.)

25.2. The form 2 verb فَعَّلَ يُفَعِّلُ

The form 2 verb doubles the middle ع letter. The vowel mark on the middle letter does not vary. Here are some examples of form 2 verbs:

Root	Verb	Meaning
علم	عَلَّمَ يُعَلِّمُ	to teach
قتل	قَتَّلَ يُقَتِّلُ	to massacre
كبر	كَبَّرَ يُكَبِّرُ	to magnify, say أَللّٰهُ أَكْبَرُ

Work in progress

25.2.1. Meaning patterns

The form 2 verb can denote a strengthening of the meaning. For example,

- كَسَرَ "to break (هـ s.th.)"; كَسَّرَ "to smash (هـ s.th.)"
- قَتَلَ "to kill (ه s.o.)"; قَتَّلَ "to massacre (ه s.o.)"

Often it denotes a causative meaning. For example,

- طَهُرَ "to be pure", طَهَّرَ "to purify (هـ ،ه s.o., s.th.)"
- عَلِمَ "to know (هـ s.th.)", عَلَّمَ "to teach (ب ه or هـ ه s.o. s.th.)"

Note that in such cases, if the form 1 verb is intranstive (e.g. طَهُرَ) then it becomes transitive in form 2 (طَهَّرَ). And if it is transitive in form 1 (e.g. عَلِمَ), then it becomes doubly transitive in form 2 (عَلَّمَ).

25.3. The form 3 verb فَاعَلَ يُفَاعِلُ

The basic meaning pattern for the form 3 verb is to express or emphasize the relation of the action to someone else.

Sometimes, as an extension of the basic meaning, it expresses vying with someone in the action of the verb. For example:

- قَتَلَ "to kill (ه s.o.)", قَاتَلَ "to fight (ه s.o., with s.o., or against s.o.)", i.e., "to vie with another to kill him".
- سَبَقَ "to precede (هـ ،ه s.o., s.th.)", سَابَقَ "to race (ه s.o.)", i.e., "to vie with another to precede him".

Part II.

Advanced

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Chapter 26.

The Arabic grammatical tradition

Work in progress

> **Warning**
>
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Glossary of terms used in this chapter

Analogy	القِياس
Anomalous usage	الشّاذّ
Attested usage	السّماع
Grammatical reason	العِلّة
Taqdīr	التَّقْدِير

26.1. History of the Arabic grammatical tradition

During the time of the Prophet ﷺ, the Arabs spoke Classical Arabic natively.

After the time of the Prophet ﷺ, during the Rāshidūn caliphate (11–41 AH), the borders of the Islāmic state had expanded beyond the Arabian peninsula. This brought upon an increased intermingling between Arab and non-Arab populations, especially in the towns and urban centers.

There are reports that, during this time, there was an increased occurrence of grammatical and pronunciation errors in spoken Arabic, especially by non-Arabs and the newer generation.[1]

The reports also claim, that in order to safeguard the Qurʾān from being read incorrectly, efforts began to preserve Classical Arabic. This outline of events is traditionally credited as the inception of the Arabic grammatical tradition, and of the profession of the grammarian. Another reason that may have propelled grammatical activity may have been a desire to understand how to correctly produce speech modeled on Classical Arabic.[2]

It is difficult to establish the authenticity of many of the reports which list specific individuals and incidents that purportedly launched Arabic grammar as a discipline.[3] So we are not certain who would qualify to be the very first grammarians, nor are we certain of the extent of their grammatical discourse. We do know that the early grammarians of the first and early second centuries AH, were definitely able to distinguish between correct and incorrect language.[4] But their terminology and grammatical analysis were presumably rudimentary.[5]

However, in the latter half of the second century AH, Arabic grammar had already developed, from these primitive beginnings, into a highly developed system of linguistic analysis.[6]

Initially, in the second century AH, grammatical activity was centered mainly in two places: the cities of al-Baṣrah and al-Kūfah, in Iraq.[7] By middle of the third century AH, these Baṣran and Kūfan schools had eventually moved to the Abbasid capital Baḡ͡hdād. After the fourth century AH, the grammarians were more geographically widespread, with many famous later grammarians operating out of Egypt, Syria, Persia, and al-Andalus (Islāmic Spain).

Figure 26.1 depicts a (year of death) timeline and geographical distribution of some of the more well-known Arabic grammarians.

Work in progress

26.2. Attested usage

In order to develop a grammatical framework for Classical Arabic, the grammarians first needed a collection of authentic Classical Arabic texts. The grammarians

[1] من تاريخ النحو العربي لسعيد الأفغاني 7ff
[2] See also Carter, “Arabic grammar” 120
[3] Carter, “Arabic grammar” 119
[4] Carter, *Sībawayhi’s principles* 5–6
[5] Baalbaki, Introduction to *The early Islamic grammatical tradition* xv; من تاريخ النحو العربي لسعيد الأفغاني 29–30, footnote 2
[6] Baalbaki, Introduction to *The early Islamic grammatical tradition* xiii
[7] See also Carter, “Arabic grammar” 126–127
[8] Adapted from Hallberg, “Timeline of Arab grammarians” and Anjum, “Revival, rejuvenation & reform in Islam”.

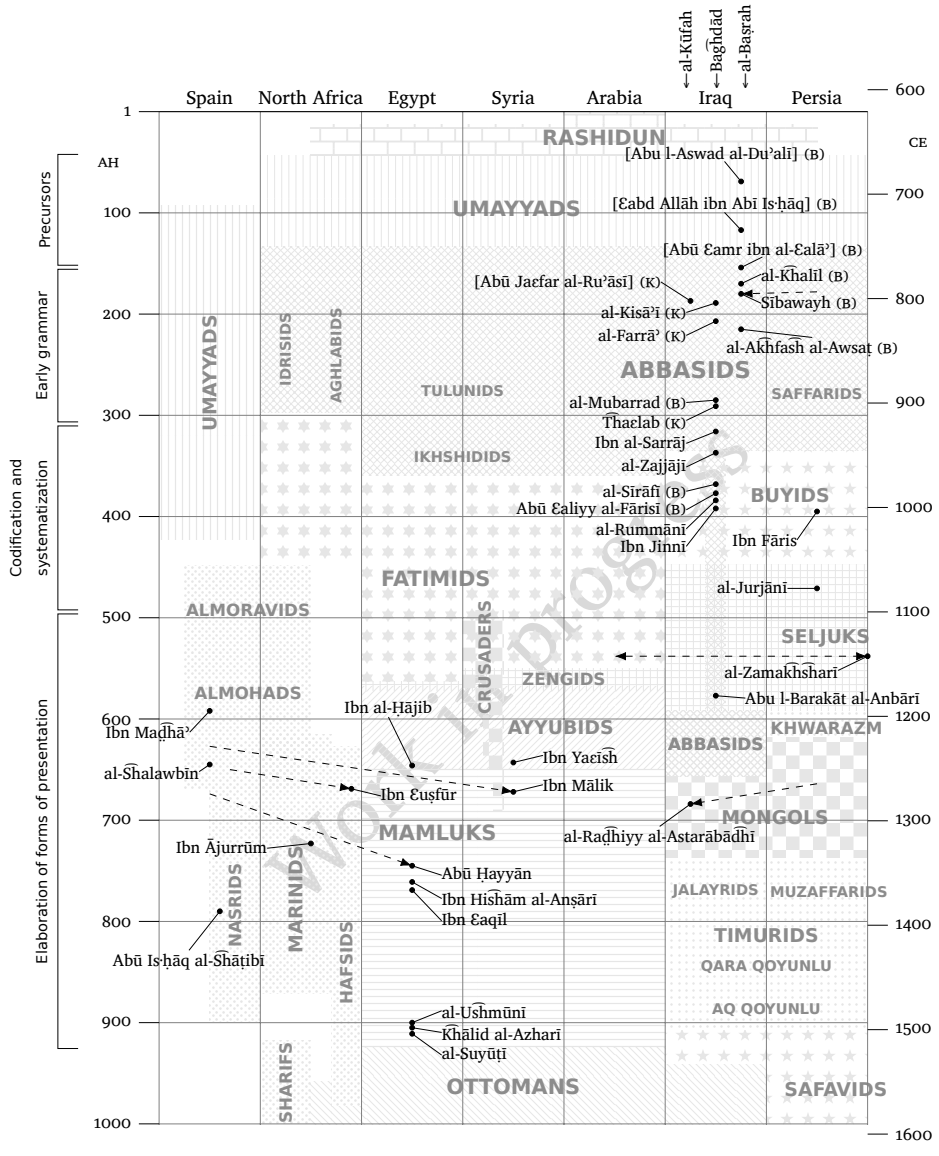


Figure 26.1.: A (year of death) timeline and geographical distribution of the more well-known Arabic grammarians.[8] (B) and (K) indicate an affiliation with the Baṣran and Kūfan schools, respectively. Brackets indicate putative proto-grammarians. Some professional relocations are indicated using dashed arrows.

used, as their source material for this collection, a corpus of Classical Arabic texts, which we will term *attested usage*. The body of attested usage can be categorized into[9]:

1. Transmitted texts. These include:
    a. Authorized readings of the Qurʾān
    b. Poetry of the pre-Islāmic and early Islāmic poets
    c. A collection of the sayings and proverbs of the Arabs
    d. the Ḥadīth
2. Elicited speech

We will discuss these categories below:

The Qurʾān

The Qurʾān was transmitted by the Prophet ﷺ to his Companions. When the territories under the Islāmic caliphate expanded, many of the Companions were sent or relocated to the different areas under Muslim rule, and there, they began teaching the Qurʾān to their students from the Tābiɛīn. Those students taught it to the next generation and so on and so forth. The text of the Qurʾān was thus available to the grammarians and used by them as a primary linguistic source.[10]

Work in progress

Poetry

From pre-Islāmic times into the Islāmic era, Classical Arabic poetry was composed and transmitted orally, from region to region, and from generation to generation. The grammarians used this transmitted poetry as their second major source of transmitted data.[11]

Some native Arabic dialects were beginning to diverge from Classical Arabic in the first and second century AH. Because of this, the grammarians were more discerning in whether they would accept the poetry of a later poet. Generally they would only accept the poetry of a later poet if his language was determined to be uninfluenced by the newer developments in the native dialects. The grammarians generally have a cut-off date somewhere in the middle of the second century AH. Poetry composed after this cut-off date is typically not accepted as a valid source of Classical Arabic.[12]

[9] from Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in taʻlīl* 16
[10] Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in taʻlīl* 18–19, القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 7
[11] Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in taʻlīl* 19
[12] القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 8

Sayings and proverbs of the Arabs

A small portion of prose material, consisting of sayings and proverbs of the Arabs, is also generally accepted as a source of Classical Arabic data.[13]

The Ḥadīth

The Ḥadīth of the Prophet ﷺ were transmitted by his Companions to their students from the Tābiɛīn, who then transmitted them to their students from the next generation, and so on. Theoretically, the Ḥadīth texts should be considered a valid source of Classical Arabic. However, as a trend, the grammarians were reluctant to consider the transmitted Ḥadīth texts as part of attested usage. This is because they feared that some of the narrators in the chains of transmission of ḥadīth may have narrated their ḥadīth by meaning, rather than verbatim text. And if the narrator was himself not a native Classical Arabic speaker, then the grammarians could not be certain that the ḥadīth that reached them was correct Classical Arabic. They did not have this view regarding the Qurʾān and poetry because the Qurʾān and poetry required that they be transmitted verbatim.

This policy of the grammarians has received some criticism, with some researchers deeming that they were unnecessarily exclusive, and that if the transmitters of a ḥadīth are deemed competent, then the ḥadīth should be admitted into attested usage. In this sense, Ḥadīth texts should be considered at least as acceptable as poetry, since the possibility of variation in transmission is applicable to both. In any case, we note that if the grammarians erred then it was on the side of caution.[14]

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Elicited speech

In addition to the transmitted texts mentioned above, the grammarians also used, as part of their source data, samples of speech that they obtained themselves by meeting and talking to native Classical Arabic speaking *informants*. Such informants continued to exist, in pockets, into the second and third centuries AH. In general, the speech of the bedouin Arabs was considered purer and more free from errors than that of the urban population. The grammarians would seek out such informants, listen to their ordinary speech in natural settings, and also ask

[13] Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in taʿlīl* 16, القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 7–8

[14] For more discussion on the grammarians' view of ḥadīth as a grammatical source, see Sadan, "Sībawayhi's and later grammarians' usage of ḥadīṯs as a grammatical tool; Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in taʿlīl* 16–17, القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 7–8; الاستشهاد بالحديث في اللغة لمحمد الخضر حسين 6/1/168ff

them questions, the answers to which would betray insight into the grammatical issues that they were investigating.[15]

Exclusion of the grammarians' writings from attested usage

The grammarians were scholars of Classical Arabic. Yet, generally speaking, they were not native speakers of Classical Arabic. So even though they were knowledgeable in analyzing Classical Arabic, they had not learned it natively. So their writings are not considered attested usage.[16] Excepted are examples that the grammarians made up and adduced to explain a particular grammatical issue.[17] Those are admitted into attested usage, though subject to critique by other grammarians.[18]

26.3. Analogy and grammatical reason

Work in progress

Once the source material from attested usage was available to the grammarians, they set about analyzing it in order to develop a grammatical framework The process of developing a grammatical framework is based on *analogy* and *grammatical reason*.

Analogy is the process of observing a pattern in attested usage, determining a grammatical reason for the pattern, and expounding a grammatical rule that states that whenever the grammatical reason is found, then the pattern is to be expected.[19]

Let's explain what we mean.

Let's say, hypothetically, a grammarian goes through the data in attested usage, and comes across sentences like:

(63) جَاء الرَّجُلُ
« The man came. »

(64) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا
« Zayd beat Ɛamr. »

[15] Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'līl* 22-24
[16] القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 36–37
[17] Suleiman, *The Arabic grammatical tradition: A study in ta'līl* 16
[18] Here is an example:
... ولم يذكره [سيبويه] إلا في نفس عبارته قال «وذلك عجبت من ضرب زيد عمرًا»، وليس في لفظه ما يدل على أنه محكي عن العرب، فيحتمل أن يكون ذلك رأيًا منه، بل هو ظاهر كلامه وقياس منه
[التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/75]
[19] القياس النحوي لخالد حسين أبو عمشة 4–5

(65) يَدْخُلُ الْبَيْتَ رَجُلٌ
«A man enters the house.»

(66) لَنْ يَضِيعَ الْعَمَلُ الصَّالِحُ
«The good deed shall not go waste.»

(67) لَمْ تَذْهَبْ هِنْدٌ
«Hind did not go.»

When the grammarian studies these sentences he notes that they are all verbal sentences consisting of (at least) a verb and its doer. He also observes a pattern. And that is that the doer of the verb is always in the u-case. Now, he comes up with a grammatical rule that states that whenever there is a verbal sentence (this is our grammatical reason), then the doer of the verb is be in the u-case.

This rule is made for the benefit of the student who has not gone through the data in attested usage. Let's say that a student is reading a text and comes across a sentence:

(68) ضَرَبَ عَمْرًا زَيْدٌ
«Zayd beat Ɛamr.»

The student determines that this is a verbal sentence. Being a verbal sentence is the grammatical reason that makes the above analogy-based rule applicable. Now the student observes that ضَرَبَ is the verb, and following it are two nouns: عَمْرًا in the a-case, and زَيْدٌ in the u-case. Applying the rule, he detrmines that the person who did the beating is Zayd, not Ɛamr. This will give him a correct understanding of the text.[20]

Furthermore, if the student wishes to construct his own verbal sentence, attempting to conform to SCA, then he knows that he will have to put the verb's doer in the u-case.

Work in Progress

26.4. Anomalous usage

Sometimes a pattern occurs often enough in attested usage that a rule is built upon it using analogy. However, occurrences contrary to the pattern are also found in attested usage. This usage which is contrary to analogy is called *anomalous usage*.

Let's take a look at an example of anomalous usage. When the second letter of a root is و, then its stem-10 SC verb is regularly formed by transforming the و into an alif. This is done according to analogy. For example:

[20] شرح المقدمة المحسبة لابن بابشاذ 1/90, cited by Carter, "Arabic grammar" 132

Root	stem-10 SC verb
قوم	اسْتَقَامَ « to be steadfast »
عوذ	اسْتَعَاذَ « to seek refuge »
نور	اسْتَنَارَ « to seek light »

In anomalous usage, a few roots whose middle letters are و, usually form their stem-10 SC verbs by keeping the و. For example:

Root	stem-10 SC verb
حوذ	اسْتَحْوَذَ « to gain mastery, overcome »
صوب	اسْتَصْوَبَ « to consider (هـ s.th) to be right »

By the way, اسْتَحَاذَ and اسْتَصَابَ are also found in attested usage, albeit less frequently.

The general principle, when dealing with anomalous usage, is that it should be limited to what is found in attested usage, and not be extended by analogy.

So the rule for forming stem-10 SC verb for roots that have و as the middle letter, is that the verbs should be formed generally by transforming the و into an alif, like اسْتَقَامَ and اسْتَعَاذَ. But for the few verbs that fall into anomalous usage, we should prefer to keep the و, thus: اسْتَحْوَذَ and اسْتَصْوَبَ. The forms اسْتَحَاذَ and اسْتَصَابَ are permissible but less preferred.[21]

The grammarians have not always agreed over how to deal with different anomalous usages. As an example, when an adjectival noun is on the pattern أَفْعَل, like أَبْيَض « white » and أَسْوَد « black », then a comparative noun for it on the same pattern أَفْعَل is regularly not found to be used in attested usage. So أَبْيَض is not usually found in attested usage to mean « more white ». However, this meaning is found as anomalous usage, as in the verse of poetry:

(69) جَارِيَةٌ فِي دِرْعِهَا الفَضْفَاضِ ~ أَبْيَضُ مِنْ أُخْتِ بَنِي إِبَاضِ [القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 42]

« A girl in her full long shirt ~ whiter than a [woman of the tribe] of Banū Ibāḍh »

Some grammarians were of the opinion, that because of the usage of أَبْيَض in the above verse to mean « whiter », this can be extended by analogy generally. So whenever a adjectival noun is on the pattern أَفْعَل, a comparative noun can also be formed for it on the same pattern. Other grammarians were more conservative and did not extend this usage by analogy.[22]

[21] القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 40

[22] القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 42

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26.5. The balance between analogy and attested usage

The ultimate authority for what is correct Classical Arabic is attested usage. Analogy-based rules are a means to understand SCA correctly, and a guide to form sentences that attempt to conform to SCA.

Analogy is a speculative process on the part of the grammarians.[23] As such, it is subjective, and rules derived from analogy may need to be revised and refined in order to sufficiently explain the language. Natural language, however, is very complex and analogy-based rules, even if continually revised and refined, can perhaps never capture its full complexity.

Because of this, attested usage, in general, should not be rejected on the basis of analogy. And an analogy, even if it were sound, should not be applied if it leads to something that is contrary to attested usage.[24]

Work in progress

26.6. Classical Arabic dialects and SCA

Classical Arabic consisted of multiple dialects that were spoken by the various tribes of the Arabs in the different regions of the Arabian peninsula. Even within a dialect, there were often multiple ways of choosing and forming words and expressions. When the grammarians described the Arabic of attested usage, they would typically list many of the linguistic variations found within and across the different dialects of Classical Arabic. When Standard Classical Arabic (SCA) emerged as literary standard, it converged to using only a small subset out of the many variations allowed in Classical Arabic.

We will discuss below a few examples out of the many variations of Classical Arabic, and the selections which became standardized in SCA[25]:

Pluralizing the verb with a plural doer

The grammarians discuss a dialectal feature where a verb is pluralized even when it has a overt plural doer noun. So speakers of this dialect would say:

(70) ضَرَبُونِي قَوْمُكَ [كتاب سيبويه 2/40]
«Your people beat me.»

[23] Baalbaki, "Teaching Arabic at university level" 86

[24] الانتصار لسيبويه على المبرد لابن ولاد 204 cited by Baalbaki, "The book in the grammatical tradition" 130

[25] See also van Putten, "When did faṣīḥ become qabīḥ? Rehabilitating classical phonological and morphological features"

instead of the more normative:

(71) ضَرَبَنِي قَوْمُكَ

The dialectal feature used in example (70) is graded by the grammarians as rare.[26] It did not make its way into SCA. Instead, the more common usage in example (71) became the standard.

Elision of the hamzah

Hamzah was considered by the grammarians to be an original root letter. So for example, it is an original root letter in رَأْس *ra's* "« head »". However, the preferred pronunciation of native Classical Arabic speakers in some regions was to elide or approximate it in favor of a vowel, or the letters و or ي, depending on the surrounding vowels.[27] So they would say رَاس *rās* instead of رَأْس *ra's*.[28] This variant pronunciation was not generally adopted in SCA, which retains the full pronunciation of hamzah for most words.

Matching ك in the far pointing nouns to the gender and number of the persons being spoken to

Classical Arabic had a feature, where the end ك in a far pointing noun could optionally be feminized, dualized, or pluralized, to match the number and gender of the persons being spoken to.[29] For example:

(72) وَنَادَىٰهُمَا رَبُّهُمَآ أَلَمْ أَنْهَكُمَا عَن تِلْكُمَا ٱلشَّجَرَةِ وَأَقُل لَّكُمَآ إِنَّ ٱلشَّيْطَٰنَ لَكُمَا عَدُوٌّ مُّبِينٌ
[7:22 سورة الأعراف]

« And their Lord called to them, "Did I not forbid you from that tree and tell you that Satan is to you a clear enemy?" »

This feature tends to not be used in SCA.

Variations in the pointing nouns

Classical Arabic had a large variety of pointing nouns. For example, "« that$_{1f}$ »" was expressed using both تِلْكَ *tilka* and تِيكَ *tīka*. SCA uses only تِلْكَ *tilka*. Here is an example:

[26] كتاب سيبويه 2/40
[27] كتاب سيبويه 3/541ff
[28] كتاب سيبويه 3/543
[29] معاني النحو 1/99

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(73) إِنَّمَا يَدْخُلُ عَلَىَّ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم فَيُسَلِّمُ ثُمَّ يَقُولُ كَيْفَ تِيكُمْ ثُمَّ يَنْصَرِفُ [صحيح البخاري: 4750]
«The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ would only enter upon me, greet, then say, "How is that [lady]?" Then he would leave.»

Similarly, Classical Arabic expressed "«there»" using both هُنَاكَ and هُنَالِكَ. In SCA, only هُنَاكَ tends to be used, whereas هُنَالِكَ is hardly ever used.

The imālah

For some words that have a final ىٰ, and also for some long *ā* vowels in the middle of a word, some tribes would pronounce the vowel as *ē*, not *ā*. This vowel sound is known as *imālah*.

Here are a couple of words with imālah and with the SCA pronunciation:

Word	SCA pronunciation	pronunciation with imālah
حُبْلَىٰ[30]	*ḥublā*	*ḥublē*
مَسَاجِد[31]	*masājid*	*masējid*

The imālah can be heard in the Qurʾānic reading of Ḥafṣ ɛan Ɛāṣim in this āyah:

(74) وَقَالَ ٱرْكَبُوا۟ فِيهَا بِسْمِ ٱللَّهِ مَجْرٖىٰهَا وَمُرْسَىٰهَآ ۚ إِنَّ رَبِّى لَغَفُورٌ رَّحِيمٌ [سورة هود 11:41]
«And [Noah] said, "Embark therein; in the name of Allāh [are] its course and its anchorage. Indeed, my Lord is Forgiving and Merciful."»

The imālah is not used in SCA.

The vowel on the attached pronouns ه/هما/هم

We have learned that when the attached pronouns ه/هما/هم are preceded by a kasrah, long-*ī*, or *ay*, then, in SCA, the ه gets a kasrah instead of a ḍ͡ḥammah. For example: بِهِ *bihī*, عَلَيْهِمَا *ɛalayhimā*, فِيهِمْ *fīhim*. In Classical Arabic, the dominant pronunciation in some regions was to retain the ḍ͡ḥammah on the ه regardless of the preceding vowel. So, for example, they would say بِهُ *bihū*.[32] This variant can be heard in the Qurʾānic reading of Ḥafṣ ɛan Ɛāṣim in this āyah:

(75) وَمَنْ أَوْفَىٰ بِمَا عَٰهَدَ عَلَيْهُ ٱللَّهَ فَسَيُؤْتِيهِ أَجْرًا عَظِيمًا [سورة الفتح 48:10]
«And he who fulfills that which he has promised Allāh - He will give him a great reward.»

[30] كتاب سيبويه 4/120
[31] كتاب سيبويه 4/117
[32] كتاب سيبويه 4/195

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فَهْوَ, وَهْوَ, etc.

When the conjunction وَ or فَ is attached to the pronouns هُوَ and هِيَ then Classical Arabic would optionally pronounce them as فَهْوَ *fahwa* (instead of فَهُوَ *fahuwa*), وَهْيَ *wahya* (instead of وَهِيَ *wahiya*), etc.[33] For example:

(76) عَنْ أَبِي هُرَيْرَةَ، أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم ذَكَرَ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ فَقَالَ فِيهِ سَاعَةٌ لاَ يُوَافِقُهَا عَبْدٌ مُسْلِمٌ، وَهْوَ قَائِمٌ يُصَلِّي، يَسْأَلُ اللَّهَ تَعَالَى شَيْئًا إِلاَّ أَعْطَاهُ إِيَّاهُ [صحيح البخاري: 935]

«On the authority of Abū Hurayrah, Allāh's Messenger ﷺ mentioned the day of Friday and said, "There is an hour on Friday in which no Muslim servant stands praying and asks Allāh for something except that He will grant it to him."»

SCA does not typically use this option.

أَرَاقَ instead of أَهْرَاقَ and هَرَاقَ

In Classical Arabic the stem-4 verb أَرَاقَ يُرِيقُ «to pour, spill» had variants: هَرَاقَ يُهَرِيقُ and أَهْرَاقَ يُهْرِيقُ. For example:

(77) فَإِنْ أَصْبَحَ مِنْهُ شَيْءٌ أَهْرَاقَهُ [سنن النسائي: 5739]

«If anything was left of it the following morning he poured it out.»

These variants are not used in SCA.

The u-case-ن of the PC verb

There are five PC verbs for which the u-case is indicate using a ن. They are:

i. يَفْعَلُونَ «they$_{3m}$»
ii. تَفْعَلُونَ «you$_{3m}$»
iii. يَفْعَلَانِ «they$_{2m}$»
iv. تَفْعَلَانِ «they$_{2f}$/you$_{2}$»
v. تَفْعَلِينَ «you$_{1f}$»

In Classical Arabic, the ن could occasionally be dropped, even for the u-case.[34] For example:

(78) وَالَّذِي نَفْسِي بِيَدِهِ لاَ تَدْخُلُوا الْجَنَّةَ حَتَّى تُؤْمِنُوا وَلاَ تُؤْمِنُوا حَتَّى تَحَابُّوا [جامع الترمذي: 2688]

«By the One in Whose Hand is my soul! You will not enter Paradise until you believe, and you will not believe until you love one another.»

[33] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/312
[34] شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك 1/210

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The ن is not dropped in SCA for the u-case.

In addition, when these verbs have a speaker-participant pronoun as its direct object, then Classical Arabic had three acceptable forms[35]:

i. يَفْعَلُونَنِي *yafɛalūnanī*
ii. يَفْعَلُونِّي *yafɛalūnnī*
iii. يَفْعَلُونِي *yafɛalūnī*

Option (ii) can be heard in the Qurʾānic reading of Ḥafṣ ɛan Ɛāṣim in this āyah:

(79) قُلْ أَفَغَيْرَ ٱللَّهِ تَأْمُرُوٓنِّيٓ أَعْبُدُ أَيُّهَا ٱلْجَٰهِلُونَ [سورة الزمر 39:64]
«Say, [O Muḥammad], "Is it other than Allāh that you order me to worship, O ignorant ones?"»

SCA uses only option (i).

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Summary

Classical Arabic possessed a wide and dynamic range of linguistic features during the period when it was still spoken as a native language.

SCA, by contrast, emerged later as a codified literary variety, after Classical Arabic had largely ceased to function as a mother tongue. As a result, SCA draws on only a portion of the variation that once characterized Classical Arabic. For each linguistic feature, the portion selected by SCA often, but not always,[36] corresponds to what the grammarians identified as the base or archetypal form, from which other variations would branch out. Alternative forms and patterns, once fully natural and widely used, fell into disuse as SCA became crystallized.

By the way, some of the features discussed above, like the elision of the hamzah, the imālah, and variation in the pointing nouns (amongst others), are heard to this day in some of the modern vernacular dialects. This is hardly surprising since they are the product of natural evolution from the Classical Arabic dialects.

It must be stressed that the variations found in attested usage are, generally, all valid Classical Arabic. One cannot take the selection that is used in SCA and, on its basis, pronounce judgement on a non-conforming feature that is found in attested usage.

[35] شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 1/51–53
[36] See also Pat-El, "Digging up archaic features: 'Neo-Arabic' and Comparative Semitic in the quest for Proto Arabic."

26.7. Taqdīr

When the grammarians were analyzing attested usage, they observed that there is an underlying harmony and order in the Classical Arabic language,[37] such that it could be described with a set of coherent and comprehensive basic principles. But these principles often will not describe surface speech directly. *Surface speech* is defined as the actual utterance that is spoken by the speaker and heard by the listener. This is because surface speech, even when not anomalous usage, has too much variation and complexity to be wrangled into a minimalist framework of grammatical principles directly. Oftentimes, two surface speech utterances can differ in their apparent form. But there would seem to be a common grammatical principle at work that directs the structure of both surface speech utterances.

In order to describe the language using a minimal set of grammatical principles, the grammarians theorized a *taqdīr*, i.e. a reckoned imaginary representation, of the surface speech.[38] This taqdīr would exist only in the mind of the speaker,[39] under the level of surface speech. The links between inter-related linguisitic phenomena would be more evident in the taqdīr than in surface speech. The taqdīr would be simpler in its structure, and have less variation, than surface speech. It would thus be more amenable to being described by a set of basic principles.

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So, the taqdīr of surface speech is not actually uttered. But supposing it allows us to build a framework that captures surface speech more fully than would have been practical, had we not supposed it.

In grammatical discourse, in addition to using *taqdīr* as a noun to mean the underlying representation of surface speech, taqdīr is also used verbally to signify the grammarian's analytical activity of coming up with a suitable taqdīred representation of surface speech.

We will further explain taqdīr by going through some examples in the section below:

[37] Baalbaki, "Some aspects of harmony and hierarchy in Sībawayhi's grammatical analysis" 7ff

[38] *Taqdīr* literally means « estimation » or « valuation ». The Arabic grammatical tradition's taqdīr has parallels in the Western linguistic tradition, like *deep structure*, and *ghost* and *null* segments. We are not re-using those terms because they may have baggage that would not reconcile with the Arabic grammatical tradition's concept of taqdīr. See, for example, Versteegh, "The notion of underlying levels" 287ff.

[39] Levin, "The theory of al-taqdīr and its terminology." 142–143

26.7.1. Examples of taqdīr

26.7.1.1. The taqdīr of latent doer pronouns

Let's say that a hypothetical grammarian goes through some data in attested usage, and he finds surface speech samples like the following:

(80) قَرَأَ زَيْدٌ
«Zayd read.»

(81) رَجَعَتْ هِنْدٌ
«Hind returned.»

(82) يَذَهَبُ الرِّجَالُ
«The men go.»

The grammarian asks his native Classical Arabic speaking informant what the informant understands by the above samples. The informant tells the grammarian that he understands each one as having a complete meaning: a meaning that expresses an action (signified by the first word), and the doer of that action, (signified by the second word).

Because each sample has a complete meaning, the grammarian determines that each sample is a complete sentence. He classifies the first word in each sentence as a verb, and the second word as a noun. Based on the abundance of sentences like the above, the grammarian formulates a principle, which is that a verbal sentence needs two parts to be a complete sentence: a verb, followed by its doer (noun).

The grammarian then continues going through attested usage and finds surface speech samples like the following:

(83) تَصَدَّقْنَ
«They$_f$ gave charity.»

(84) عَمِلْتُ
«I worked.»

(85) تَكْتُبَانِ
«You$_2$ are writing.»

(86) ذَهَبُوا
«They went.»

Consulting his informant, he finds that these also are complete sentences in their meaning. The informant tells him that the doer of each action is now a

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person who is not named, but who is known to the informant. So the grammarian classifies the doers as *pronouns*.

The grammarian also notices that the end of each verb is modified and extra sounds (expressed by letters in the script) are added after it. For example: عَمِلَ + تُ = عَمِلْتُ Based on these observations, the grammarian devises a way, by which these sentences can still be molded to fit into his above stated principle. This is by considering the extra sounds/letters at the end of the verbs (for example, تُ in عَمِلْتُ) to be the doer pronouns. Now the sentences can be considered to have two parts: a verb followed by its doer. So far so good.

But now the grammarian comes across surface speech samples like the following:

(87) ذَهَبَ
«He went.»

(88) رَجَعَتْ
«She returned.»

(89) أَعْمَلُ
«I work.»

(90) نَتَصَدَّقُ
«We give charity.»

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These samples pose a problem for our grammarian. Because his informant tells him that he still understands these samples, in context, to have a complete meaning. The doer of each action is again a person who is not named but who is known to the informant.

So, evidently, samples (87) through (90) are complete sentences with pronoun doers, just like samples (83) through (86). But the problem is that there are no apparent extra sounds/letters after the verbs which can be considered the doer.

Some of the verbs in these sentences, like in examples (89) and (90), have extra sounds, but they are before the verb. But some verbs, like in example (87), don't even have that. Example (88) رَجَعَتْ does have an extra تْ after the verb, but that letter is kept when there is an overt doer noun, like in example (81) رَجَعَتْ هِنْدٌ above. So the تْ doesn't seem like it can be the doer. So what is the grammarian to do?

In order to keep the principle consistent, the grammarian taqdīrs *latent* doers for these sentences. For example (87) above, the latent doer is taqdīred as [هُوَ], thus:

(91) ذَهَبَ [هُوَ]
«He went.»

Now the sentence has two parts: the verb ذَهَبَ, followed by it's doer, the taqdīred [هُوَ]. Thus it is compliant with the above stated principle that the grammarian developed for verbal sentences.

Here are the other examples with their taqdīred doers:

(92) رَجَعَتْ [هِيَ]
«She returned.»

(93) أَعْمَلُ [أَنَا]
«I work.»

(94) نَتَصَدَّقُ [نَحْنُ]
«We give charity.»

In this way, a grammarian was able to formulate a analogy-based grammatical principle based on observation of attested usage and theorization of a taqdīr.

26.7.1.2. The taqdīr of أَنْ before a-case PC verbs

We present another example of where taqdīr is useful for coming up with grammatical principles. In chapter (ref), we studied how a a-case PC verb can occur after the particle لِ. For example:

(95) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْجَحَ
«I studied for the reason [that] I may succeed.»

The particle لِ here signifies the meaning «for the reason».

The grammarians theorized that between the لِ and the a-case PC أَنْجَحَ, there existed a taqdīred أَنْ, thus:

(96) دَرَسْتُ لِ[أَنْ] أَنْجَحَ
«I studied for the reason [that] I may succeed.»

And it was this أَنْ that actually caused the PC verb to be in the a-case. This taqdīr allowed them to reduce the definition of لِ to a preposition that only precedes nouns. And it granted to أَنْ the (more-or-less) sole privilege of causing a PC verb to be in the a-case.[40]

The taqdīr of أَنْ between لِ and a following a-case PC verb is also supported by the fact that the surface speech can actually have an أَنْ in that position, for the same meaning. So we can actually also say:

(97) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْ أَنْجَحَ
«I studied for the reason that I may succeed.»

[40] Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā'" 186–189

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As for the restriction of لِ to a preposition that only precedes nouns, then this can be seen when we apply a second level of taqdīr: and that is to interpret (a surface or taqdīred) أَنْ and the following a-case PC verb as a maṣdar construction. So the taqdīr of (97) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْ أَنْجَحَ is:

(98) دَرَسْتُ لِنَجَاحِي
«I studied for the reason of my success.»
(i.e. «in order to achieve success».)

In the taqdīr in example (98), we can see how لِ is a preposition before the i-case noun نَجَاح.

We will see more examples of taqdīr for the a-case PC verb in chapter (ref), if Allāh wills.

26.7.1.3. The taqdīr of a warning statement

إِيَّاكَ وَالشَّرَّ
TODO. Get from شرح ابن عثيمين 59/4

26.7.1.4. Taqdīred case-endings

As we know, the vowel at the end of nouns and verbs that end with weak letters can be affected by those weak letters.

So, for example, we will say:

(99) يَقْضِي قَاضٍ
«A judge decrees.»

In (99) above, يَقْضِي is a u-case PC verb. But it is not able to have a ◌ٍ dhammah at its end because of its weak root letter ي. So we will say that its u-case is indicated by a *taqdīred* ◌ٍ dhammah at its end. قَاضٍ is a doer in the u-case. It too is not able to have a ◌ٍ dhammah at its end because of its weak root letter ي. So, again, we will say that its u-case is indicated by a *taqdīred* ◌ٍ dhammah at its end.

26.7.2. Some notes regarding taqdīr

26.7.2.1. The taqdīr is not actually uttered

One point to note, regarding taqdīr, is that the taqdīr representation of a surface speech is often not actually correct as surface speech.[41]

[41] Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā'" 190; Versteegh, "The notion of underlying levels" 278

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If we take the taqdīr in (91) [هُوَ] ذَهَبَ as an example, then what we mean is that we don't actually say (in surface speech) ذَهَبَ هُوَ when we intend to mean «He went». The surface speech (87) ذَهَبَ is the only correct way to express this intended meaning. The representation [هُوَ] ذَهَبَ is only a *taqdīr* of the surface speech ذَهَبَ that elucidates the grammar of the sentence.

Sometimes, however, a taqdīr representation is actually correct as surface speech, for more-or-less the same, or a similar meaning. This can be, for example, when the taqdīr restores a word or expression which is implied and was optionally deleted. For example, we saw that the taqdīred أَنْ in example (95) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْجَحَ can actually be expressed in surface speech, thus:

(100) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْ أَنْجَحَ
«I studied for the reason that I may succeed.»

By the way, coincidentally, ذَهَبَ هُوَ is actually a correct sentence in its own right, but it has a different meaning than the intended ذَهَبَ «He went». It uses the pronoun هُوَ as an *emphatic follower* (see chapter (ref)).

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26.7.2.2. The literal representation used in the taqdīr may not be real

Another point is that the grammarians' representation of the taqdīr may not necessarily be real.

In the example of latent doer pronouns, the taqdīred doers, ([هُوَ], [هِيَ], [أَنَا], and [نَحْنُ] in examples (91) through (94) above) are not "real" representations of the latent doer pronouns. They are only written as such because, for his analysis, the grammarian needs some words to represent the latent doer pronouns in the taqdīr. And because there are no real words to denote the latent doer pronouns, the grammarian borrows the words that denote the detached pronouns to do so.

As it happens, the taqdīred latent pronouns are theorized to be (invisible/inaudible) *attached* pronouns,[42] just like the overt doer pronouns تُ «I», نَا «we», نَ «they$_{3f}$», etc. Taqdīring the latent doer pronouns as attached pronouns has benefits that keeps the grammatical framework consistent across different grammatical topics. We will see one such benefit in chapter (ref), when we discuss the emphatic follower.

[42] تمهيد ز--ط ,الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

26.7.2.3. Taqdīr may be required to correctly interpret a text

Consider the following āyah from the Qurʾān:

(101) وَجَآءُو عَلَىٰ قَمِيصِهِۦ بِدَمٍ كَذِبٍۚ قَالَ بَلۡ سَوَّلَتۡ لَكُمۡ أَنفُسُكُمۡ أَمۡرًاۖ فَصَبۡرٞ جَمِيلٞۖ وَٱللَّهُ ٱلۡمُسۡتَعَانُ عَلَىٰ مَا تَصِفُونَ [سورة يوسف 12:18]
«And they brought upon his shirt false blood. [Jacob] said, "Rather, your souls have enticed you to something, so patience is most fitting. And Allāh is the one sought for help against that which you describe."»

The part صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ has been analyzed as being able to be bear multiple interpretations, all requiring taqdīr. One analysis is that صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ is a subject whose info is deleted. The taqdīr for this analysis is:

(102) صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ أَمْثَلُ [الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة يوسف 12:18]
«A beautiful patience is exemplary.»

The second analysis is that صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ is a info whose subject is deleted. The taqdīr for this analysis is:

(103) أَمْرِي صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ [الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة يوسف 12:18]
«My affair is a beautiful patience.»

A third analysis is that صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ is used as a deputy to a verb (see section (maf3ool mutlaq)) in a command to oneself. The taqdīr for this analysis is:

(104) اصْبِرْ صَبْرًا جَمِيلًا [تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة يوسف 12:18]
«Be patient [with] a beautiful patience!»

26.7.2.4. Taqdīr can be used to interpret anomalous usage

Grammarians also sometimes used taqdīr as a tool to make anomalous usage fit coherently into their grammatical framework.[43] For example, if we consider the line of poetry that we discussed in Section 26.4 above:

(105) جَارِيَةٌ فِي دِرْعِهَا الفَضْفَاضِ ~ أَبْيَضُ مِنْ أُخْتِ بَنِي إِبَاضِ [القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 42]
«A girl in her full long shirt ~ whiter than a [woman of the tribe] of Banū Ibāḍ̄h»

[43] القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 42

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أَبْيَض when taken to mean «whiter» is anomalous usage, as we have mentioned. One attempt to make it fit into the grammarians' analogy-based rules is by interpreting أَبْيَض not as a comparative noun, but as a adjectival noun synonymous to مُبْيَضّ «white». An implied noun جَسَد «body» is also inserted.[44] Such that the taqdīr is:

(106) فِي دِرْعِهَا جَسَدٌ مُبْيَضٌّ مِنْ أُخْتِ بَنِي إِبَاضٍ [الإنصاف للأنباري 1/123]
«… in her shirt is a white body from [a woman of the tribe] of Banū Ibāḍ̪h»

Needless to say, this is pretty convoluted taqdīr. Some grammarians would prefer to let such anomalous usage be, and they wouldn't attempt to force such complicated taqdīr to make the anomalous usage fit into their analogy-based grammatical system.[45]

26.7.2.5. There can be multiple levels and types of taqdīr

In order to fit a surface speech into analogy, there can be multiple levels of taqdīr done. As an example, we saw in Section 26.7.1.2 above that in example (95) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْجَحَ, first an أَنْ was taqdīred between لِ and the a-case PC thus: (96) دَرَسْتُ لِأَنْ أَنْجَحَ.

And then a further level of taqdīr was done, where أَنْ and the following a-case PC verb was reinterpreted as a masdar construction: (98) دَرَسْتُ لِنَجَاحِي.

Sometimes a taqdīr is used to explain irregular sounds, or a meaning which can only be arrived at by assuming an underlying interpretation.[46]

However, all types and layers of taqdīr are used to explain surface speech according to a grammatical framework that can not address all aspects of surface speech directly.

26.7.3. Benefits and risks of taqdīr

Taqdīr is an analytic tool that allows the grammarian to discover and reconstruct a theorized structure that underlies surface speech.[47] This theorized underlying structure is more basic than the surface structure, and more easily described with a set of rules.[48] Without taqdīr, the set of rules, which the grammarian would have to formulate, would increase greatly to capture all the different variations in

[44] الإنصاف للأنباري 1/123
[45] القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 42
[46] Versteegh, "The notion of underlying levels" 283ff
[47] Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā'" 188
[48] Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā'" 190

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surface speech. Furthermore, the rules would be disparate, and would not readily indicate the links between related linguistic phenomena. Those links are more obvious in the taqdīr.

Having said that, taqdīr is essentially a speculative exercise which is done by the grammarian. Because the taqdīr, by its very definition, does not manifest in surface speech, the grammarian can only theorize its existence and formulation. As such, taqdīr entails risks because it is based on the grammarian's subjective reasoning.[49]

Therefore, the grammarian does, or should, attempt to validate his taqdīr approach, to whatever degree possible. One way to do this is by basing the taqdīr on the meaning that a native speaker understands from the surface speech, like our hypothetical grammarian did for latent doer pronouns in Section 26.7.1.1 above.

Another way is to attempt to find traces of the taqdīr in the surface speech, as was done in Section 26.7.1.2 above, for the taqdīr of أَنْ between لِ and a following a-case PC verb.

At the very least, any taqdīr should be subservient to, and not contradict, the intended meaning of the surface speech.[50]

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26.8. Difference of opinion between the grammarians

The grammarians sometimes differed with one another regarding the extraction of analogy-based rules from attested usage. We have seen a couple of examples of their differences in the sections above. These differences often, though not always, occur along grammatical school lines, with the Kūfans purportedly[51] holding one opinion, and the Baṣrans another.[52] Sometimes, the difference is more in terminology than anything else. For example, the Baṣrans in their definition of the *doer*, mandated that the doer can only occur after the verb in word order. The Kūfans on the other hand allowed the doer to occur before the verb. However, both schools allowed sentences like:

(107) زَيْدٌ جَاءَ
« Zayd came. »

[49] Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā'" 190
[50] See also Baalbaki, "Bāb al-fā'" 188
[51] Carter, "Arabic grammar" 126
[52] See Baalbaki, Introduction to *The early Islamic grammatical tradition*, §"The Basran/Kufan divide", pp. xxxix–xlii

It's just that the Kūfans would analyze زَيْدٌ as a doer, whereas the Baṣrans would analyze it as a subject.[53]

Some more differences between the two schools are that the Kūfans are regarded as more lax in forming analogy-based rules based on anomalous usage.[54] Whereas the Baṣrans liked to keep their rules more taut, attempting to interpret rare and anomalous usages through taqdīr[55] so that most everything aligned with a minimal set of basic grammatical principles. Both, however, as a general rule, accepted the anomalous usage as valid attested usage. The Kūfans are also thought to be more grounded in that they tried to stay closer to attested usage, rather than venturing into too much "grammatical reason hunting" like the Baṣrans.[56]

Generally speaking, the Baṣrans formed their terminology and opinions with a view to building a comprehensive and coherent grammatical framework. And it is their terminology and opinions that became the standard with later grammarians. Nevertheless, the Kūfan view is often brought in as a reality check against what may sometimes be deemed to be excessive rule strictness and taqdīr on the part of the Baṣrans.[57]

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26.9. Utilizing grammatical models

The Arabic grammarians developed a theoretical framework (model) useful for the purpose of describing Classical Arabic.

We should understand that a model is probably not going to be able to characterize every single aspect of natural speech completely. Nevertheless, a good model is indispensable because it helps systematize language and make it amenable to analysis. Importantly, it also helps guide non-native users of a language to interpret the meaning of a text correctly. There is a famous aphorism which may be of some relevance here:

> All models are wrong, but some are useful.[58]

The term "wrong" in the above quotation is a bit harsh. In fact, we should be careful to not run away with the above aphorism to the point that it leads us to think that what we perceive as reality is only a model and so there is no reality.

Commenting on the āyah:

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[53] معاني النحو 2/45

[54] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/75

[55] القياس في اللغة العربية لمحمد الخضر حسين 41–42

[56] Hassan, *A contrastive study of tense and aspect in English and Arabic with special reference to translation* 109

[57] See also Carter, "Arabic grammar" 126–127

[58] "All models are wrong" in *Wikipedia*

(108) فَوَرَبِّ ٱلسَّمَآءِ وَٱلْأَرْضِ إِنَّهُۥ لَحَقٌّ مِّثْلَ مَآ أَنَّكُمْ تَنطِقُونَ [سورة الذاريات 51:23]
« Then by the Lord of the heaven and earth, indeed, it is truth - just as [sure as] it is that you are speaking. »

Ibn al-Qayyim says:

> There is also [found] in a ḥadīth: إِنَّ هَذَا لَحَقٌّ كَمَا أَنَّكَ هَا هُنَا [سنن أبي داود :4294] « Indeed this is true just as [sure as] it is that you are here ».
>
> So [Allāh], may He be glorified, likened the reality of what He informed about with the reality of human speech and its existence. Any one of us knows, by necessity, that he speaks. His speech does not need evidence of its existence. Nor does any doubt preoccupy him regarding [the fact] that he speaks. Thus, what Allāh has informed about, regarding [His] oneness, the [Prophet Muḥammad ﷺ's] prophethood, the resurrection, and His names and attributes, is [all] true and actual, in and of itself, in a manner which is similar to the actuality of your speech and its existence. This is the kind of thing that people recognize in their parlance. Someone may say, "This is true like the sun." A poet [too] has eloquently dealt with this [theme] by saying:
>
> وليس يصح في الأذهان شيء ~ إذا احتاج النهار إلى دليل
> « And not a thing would [remain] sound in the minds, if the day [itself] required evidence [of its existence]. »[59]

Coming back to the phrase *all models are wrong*, it is perhaps better (though admittedly not as catchy) to say that models are attempts at abstract representations of reality, within bounds. And when designed well, and applied judiciously, models can provide valuable insight into the real phenomena that are being investigated.[60]

Here is an example where the theortetical framework developed in the Arabic grammatical tradition does not accurately model actual speech that is outside the bounds of the model. The standard model developed by the grammarians states the following rules regarding the relationship between a verb and its doer:

1. A verb must have a doer.
2. A verb cannot have more than one doer (element).
3. The doer of a verb must follow it in sentence word order.
4. When the verb has a pronoun doer, and it has extra sounds/letters after the verb, some of those are considered the doer, like alif for the dual and و for plural, of the absentee participant.

[59] تفسير ابن القيم for سورة الذاريات 51:23
[60] "All models are wrong" in *Wikipedia*

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This model is sufficient to anaylze sentences like example (80) قَرَأَ زَيْدٌ «Zayd read» and (through taqdīr) example (87) ذَهَبَ «He went». But it is not able to accurately model dialectal usage outside its bounds. Like example (70) ضَرَبُونِي قَوْمُكَ «Your people beat me». This is because the verb ضَرَبَ has a doer noun قَوْم «people» after it. But it also has the letter و which is normally considered a doer pronoun for «they». This results in two doer elements which is not permissible. Therefore, in order to accommodate this dialectal usage, a slightly different model would be needed.

By the way, the theoretical framework developed within the Arabic grammatical tradition is not necessarily the only way to model the Arabic language. Also, different models may be developed for different purposes, depending on the issues that researchers may be investigating. For example, there has been much research in linguistics in Western academia since the 20th century CE, resulting in the development of models within the Western linguistic tradition. Then there are *large language models (LLMs)*, developed using artificial intelligence, whose typical purpose is for machines to generate human-like language.[61] Some researchers have tried fitting these newer models to the Arabic language.[62]

Having said that, we also don't mean to imply a free-for-all, anything-goes plurality for the validity of different models. A researcher must take pains to validate his model to whatever degree possible (see, for example, Section 26.7.3 above). And if two different models give contradictory (but not necessarily different) outputs for the same inputs and bounds, then at least one of them is inaccurate or invalid for that particular case.

Our goal is to teach the student SCA, and to enable him to be able to venture into Islāmic works written in SCA. For this purpose, we find the standard model[63] (including taqdīr) developed within the Arabic grammatical tradition suitable and more-or-less sufficient. But we should realize its scope and limitations, and try not to get too bogged down in theoretical ideals.

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26.10. Understanding grammar rules

The Arabic grammatical tradition provides rules for Arabic grammar. Strictly speaking, these rules should be understood, not as rules for how the learner should speak Arabic, but as rules for how the learner can analyze, and thereby understand, Arabic.

Let's explain this difference by an example. Let's say that we give a rule that

[61] "Large language model" in *Wikipedia*

[62] Aliane, "Contribution to a modern reading of Sībawayhi" 11; See, for example, Owens, "Structure, class and dependency: Modern linguistic theory and the Arabic grammatical tradition"

[63] typified by, let's say, ألفية ابن مالك

a sentence needs two elements to be a complete sentence: either a verb and its doer, or a subject and its info. For example:

(109) زَيْدٌ جَاءَ
«Zayd came.»

Now consider the following question-answer sequence:

(110) ---مَنْ جَاءَ ---زَيْدٌ
«—Who came? —Zayd.»

The answer in example (110) is a single word زَيْدٌ. Yet it is a complete sentence. This is by assuming an implied verbal sentence جَاءَ after زَيْدٌ, thus:

(111) زَيْدٌ [جَاءَ]
«Zayd came.»

This gives the sentence two elements and makes it consistent with the rule. Notably, the rule still stands and is needed for the correct understanding of the text. Also, if we take only the rule we have given, we wouldn't know that we could drop one of the elements of a sentence when forming a sentence of our own.

Similar to the above scenario, we will often see the grammarians expounding a grammar rule that a particular type of expression is constructed in a certain way. Only to then find examples in surface speech, which may not even be anomalous usage, that seem to contradict the rule. The grammarians then attempt to mold the apparently nonconforming example according to their rule by taqdīring deleted elements. Their goal is to show that the rule still stands and determines how the expression is to be analyzed and interpreted.[64]

So, in summary, rules will tell us how to analyze and understand texts. And each rule, individually, is not necessarily dictating to us how we should be forming our own sentences in surface speech.

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[64] Here is an example:
ولا يتقدم نعت المصدر على معموله فلا يقال عرفت سوقك العنيف الإبل، لأن معمول المصدر منه بمنزلة الصلة من الموصول، فلا يتقدم نعت المصدر على معموله، كما لا يتقدم نعت الموصول على صلته، فإن ورد ما يوهم خلاف ذلك قدر فعل بعد النعت يتعلق به المعمول المتأخر. فمن ذلك قول الحطيئة:
أزمَعْتُ يأسًا مُبِينا من نَوالكم ~ ولنْ ترى طارِدًا للحُرِّ كاليأسِ
فالمتبادر إلى فهم سامع هذا البيت تعليق من نوالكم بيأسا، وهو غير جائز كما ذكرت، بل يتعلق بيئست مضمرا
[3/108–109 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]

Chapter 27.

Sentence and government theory

Work in progress

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

27.1. Introduction

In this chapter, we will study the Arabic grammatical model for constructing sentences. We will first define some linguistic terms.

27.1.1. Truth-evaluability

Statements are classified into two types:

i. a truth-evaluable statement
ii. a non-truth-evaluable statement

A *truth-evaluable* statement is one that can be judged to be true or false. In other words it is falsifiable. For example, if we have a statement:

(112) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

The above statement may be judged to have a truth value. If zayd is actually standing, then the statement is true. And if zayd is not standing, then the statement is false.

A *non-truth-evaluable* statement, on the other hand, does not have a truth value. Here are some examples of non-truth-evaluable statements:

(113) اضْرِبْ زَيْدًا
«Beat Zayd!»

(114) لَا تَفْعَلْ
«Don't do [it]!»

(115) يَا زَيْدُ
«O Zayd»

(116) مَنْ هُوَ
«Who is he?»

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27.1.2. Syntax, semantics, pragmatics, and stylistics

Syntax and semantics

Semantics is the study of the meanings of words. And *syntax* is the study of how words combine to form phrases and sentences. Syntax deals with the grammatical relationships between the words in a sentence. For example, consider the adjectival noun كَبِير. Semantically, it gives the meaning of something being big. When it is in a linguistic environment, like a phrase or a sentence, then its syntactical role is determined by the grammatical relationships it has with other words in the sentence.

Consider the following sentence:

(117) الْبَيْتُ كَبِيرٌ
«The house is big»

In the above sentence, كَبِير is *syntactically* a info.

Now consider the following sentence:

(118) دَخَلَ بَيْتًا كَبِيرًا
«He entered a big house.»

Now the same noun كَبِير is syntactically a attribute. In both examples, كَبِير has the same semantic signification.

Pragmatics

Pragmatics is the study of what sentences mean in a specific context or situation.

Stylistics

In order to express a meaning, there will often be a normal way to choose words or construct a sentence's structure. If, for some effect (rhetorical, persuasive, literary, etc.), the speaker chooses to deviate from this norm, then he is doing so for stylistic reasons.[1]

27.2. The theory of government

A sentence in Arabic is constituted from elements. An element can be a noun, a verb, or a particle. Of these elements, some have the quality of case. These are called *caseful* elements. The caseful elements are nouns and PC verbs. A noun may be either in the u-case, a-case, or i-case. And a PC verb may be either in the u-case, a-case, or ø-case.

The theory of government states that a caseful element in a sentence is *governed* in a particular case by a *governor*.

For example:

(119) فِي الدَّارِ
«in the house»

In the above example, the preposition فِي causes the noun الدَّار to be in the i-case. So we say that the *governor* فِي *governs* الدَّار (the *governee*) in the i-case.

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27.3. Some common governees

Let's look at some common governor-governee relationships. We will make use of the following example:

(120) قَرَأَ الْغُلَامُ الطَّوِيلُ كِتَابَ الجَارِيَةِ فِي الدَّارِ الْكَبِيرَةِ

The i-case noun

A noun in the i-case is governed by a preceding preposition or annexe. We have already seen that the i-case noun الدَّار is governed by the preceding preposition فِي. We also see that the i-case annexed-to الجَارِيَة is governed by the annexe كِتَاب.

[1] Hickey, L, "Stylistics, Pragmatics, and Pragmastylistics"

The doer

The doer of a verb is governed by its preceding verb. In our example the verb قَرَأَ governs its doer الْغُلَامُ in the u-case.

The direct object

The direct object is also governed by its verb. In our example the verb قَرَأَ governs its direct object كِتَابَ in the a-case.

The attribute

A attribute is governed by governor of its attributed-to. In our example, the attribute الطَّوِيلُ is governed in the u-case by قَرَأَ, which is the governor of its attributed-to الْغُلَامُ. Similarly, the attribute الْكَبِيرَةِ is governed in the i-case by the preposition فِي because فِي also governs its attributed-to الدَّارِ.

Ungoverned elements

Not every element in a sentence is governed by a governor. For example, the SC verb قَرَأَ has no case, and thus, no governor.

Here is a diagram depicting the above governor-governee relationships:
DIAGRAM

Work in progress

27.4. The two indispensable elements of a sentence

In the Arabic grammatical tradition, a sentence can be modeled as analogous to the structure of a simple *lean-to* building. Figure 27.1 depicts this model. This structure requires two *indispensable* elements in order to be leaned.[2] These two indispensable elements are:

i. The leaned-against element
ii. The leaning element

The leaned-against element is the primary indispensable element. It represents whom the sentence is about, i.e. its topic. The leaning element rests against

[2] Wright 2/250ff; الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي 13ff

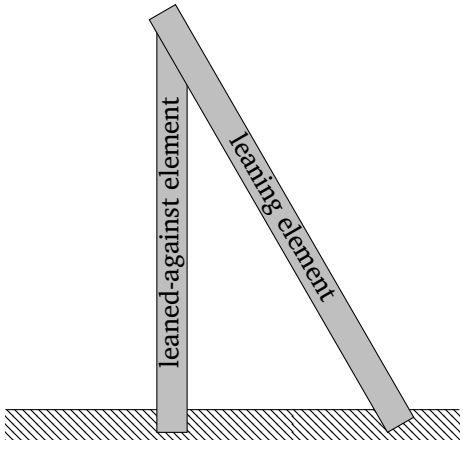


Figure 27.1.: A lean-to building as the model for an Arabic sentence.

the leaned-against element. It expresses some property about the leaned-against element that completes the meaning of the sentence.[3]

Once the two indispensable elements are in place, the sentence is leaned. Other *dispensable* elements (see section (ref) below) may be added in addition to the indispensable elements to add meaning to the sentence, but they are not required to make the sentence leaned.

Let's look at the indispensable elements for the two types of Arabic sentences:

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27.4.1. The indispensable elements of a nounal sentence

In a nounal sentence the subject is the leaned-against element and the info is the leaning element. Consider the following nounal sentence:

(121) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

DIAGRAM

Example (121) above is a nounal sentence. The subject زَيْدٌ is the leaned-against element. It is the topic of the sentence. The info قَائِمٌ is the leaning element. It is a comment on the topic, giving us some information about زَيْدٌ.

[3] See also Talmon, "Musnad, musnad ilayhi and the early history of Arabic grammar: A reconsideration"

27.4.2. The indispensable elements of a verbal sentence

In a verbal sentence the verb is the leaning element and its doer is the leaned-against element. Consider the following verbal sentence:

(122) قَامَ زَيْدٌ

DIAGRAM

Example (122) above is a verbal sentence. The doer زَيْدٌ is the leaned-against element. It is the topic of the sentence. And the verb قَامَ is the leaning element. It is a comment on the topic.

27.5. Foundational government

In order to build a sentence from the indispensable elements, a sentence needs *foundational government*.[4]

Foundational government is any and all government prior to, and until, the first governed indispensable element. Foundational government may be of different types:

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One of the two indispensable elements is the foundational government

In some sentences, the intitial governor may be one of the two indispensable elements. In example (122) above, the verb قَامَ governs its doer زَيْدٌ. The SC verb قَامَ has no case and thus needs no governor. So it is, itself, the foundational government.

DIAGRAM

Another (non-indispensable) element is the foundational government

The intitial governor may be internal to the sentence but not one of the two indispensable elements.

Here are some examples:

[4] See Owens, *The foundations of grammar* §2.3.6.1, 54

(123) لَمْ يَضْرِبِ الرَّجُلُ غُلَامَ زَيْدٍ [Owens, *The foundations of grammar* §2.2.3, 41]
«The man did not beat Zayd's slave.»

DIAGRAM

(124) إِنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

DIAGRAM

The abstract foundational government

Very commonly, the foundational government is not an actual word, but only an abstract concept. When there is one or more caseful indispensable elements in a sentence with no overt (i.e. observable) governor, then this necessitates bringing in a *abstract* foundational government.[5] For example:

(125) زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ [Peled, *Sentence types* 87]
«Zayd is setting out.»

The abstract foundational government governs both the leaned-against element (the subject زَيْدٌ), and the leaning element (the info مُنْطَلِقٌ) in the u-case.

(126) يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ
«Zayd stands»

The abstract foundational government governs the leaning element (the PC verb يَقُومُ) in the u-case. And, as usual, the verb يَقُومُ governs its doer زَيْدٌ (the leaned-against element) in the u-case.

27.6. Dispensable elements

A dispensable element is any caseful element in a sentence, following the foundational government (in government hierarchy), that is not either of the two indispensable elements. The source of government for a dispensable element must be, directly or indirectly, one of the indispensable elements.

We know from section (ref) above, that in a nounal sentence the indispensable elements are the subject and the info. And that in a verbal sentence the indispensable elements are the verb and its doer. So all other elements besides these two, and elements that constitute the foundational government, are dispensable elements. Here is an (incomplete) list of some common dispensable elements:

[5] Owens, *The foundations of grammar* 55; Peled, *Sentence types* 87–88

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- the attribute
- the direct object (usually)
- the absolute object (see chapter (ref))
- the adverb of time and the adverb of place (see chapter (ref))
- the adverb of reason (see chapter (ref))
- the accompanying object (see chapter (ref))
- the ḥāl (see chapter (ref))
- the tamyīz (see chapter (ref))

By the way, when we say *dispensable*, we mean that an element is dispensable in the sense that it is not required to make the sentence leaned. We don't mean that it is superfluous in terms of its meaning. In fact, a dispensable element may be essential for the correct meaning of the sentence. For example, consider the āyah:

(127) وَمَا خَلَقْنَا ٱلسَّمَآءَ وَٱلْأَرْضَ وَمَا بَيْنَهُمَا لَٰعِبِينَ [سورة الأنبياء 21:16 cited by معاني النحو 1/14]
«And We did not create the heaven and earth and that between them in play.»

لَٰعِبِينَ is a ḥāl (see in chapter (ref)), which is a dispensable element. If we remove it from the sentence, then the sentence will be leaned but it will have a grossly incorrect meaning.

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27.7. Refining the definitions of the nounal sentence and the verbal sentence

We know that there are two basic types of Arabic sentences:

i. The nounal sentence
ii. The verbal sentence

Previously we had said that a nounal sentence is one that begins with a noun. And a nounal sentence is one that begins with a verb. We will now refine these definitions, from the perspective of sentence completion:

A *nounal sentence* is one whose indispensable elements are two nouns: a subject (as the leaned-against element) and an info (as the leaning element). And a *verbal sentence* is one whose indispensable elements are a verb (as the leaning element) and and its doer (as the leaned-against element).

Consider, for example, the following sentence:

(128) بَلْ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Rather Zayd is standing.»

The first word in the sentence above is بَلْ. It is a particle and not a indispensable element. Removing it from the sentence, we see that the remaining indispensable elements are two nouns: زَيْدٌ (the subject) and قَائِمٌ (as the info). So the sentence is a nounal sentence.

Let's take a look at another example:

(129) زَيْدًا رَأَيْتُ [Peled, *Sentence types* 28]
«[It was] Zayd I saw.»

The first word in the sentence is زَيْدًا. It is a direct object. We learned in section (ref) above that a direct object is not usually a indispensable element. Rather, it is usually a dispensable element. Stripping the sentence of this dispensable element, we are left with رَأَيْتُ «I saw». This is a verbal sentence. The verb رأى is the leaning element and its doer, the pronoun تُ, is the leaned-against element.

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Traditional definitions of the nounal sentence and the verbal sentence

The above re-definitions of the nounal sentence and the verbal sentence are from the perspective of sentence completion. There is no problem if we continue to use the original definitions in other spheres (as for example in Section 41.6.3). But we will still refine the traditional definitions to say:

A *nounal sentence* is one whose first *indispensable* element is a noun. And a *verbal sentence* is one whose first *indispensable* element is a verb.

27.8. Identifying the indispensable elements in a nounal sentence

It can sometimes be complicated to tell which of the twp indispensable elements in a nounal sentence is the leaned-against element and which is the leaning element. We will discuss several cases below:

27.8.1. When there is an overt foundational government

When there is an overt foundational government, like إِنَّ, كَانَ, etc., then it is usually easy to tell which is the leaned-against element and which is the leaning element. For example:

(130) فَإِنَّ حَسْبَكَ ٱللَّهُ [سورة الأنفال 8:62]
«then sufficient for you is Allāh»

In example (130) above, حَسْب is in the a-case as the subject and the word ٱللَّهُ is in the u-case as the info. This tells us that حَسْب is the leaned-against element and the word ٱللَّهُ is the leaning element.

27.8.2. One indispensable element is definite and the other indispensable element is indefinite

When one indispensable element is definite and the other indispensable element is indefinite, then it is usually the case that the definite element is the leaned-against element (as the subject) and the indefinite element is the leaning element (as the info).

In terms of pragmatics, the leaned-against element and the leaning element represent 'given' and 'new' information. That is, the listener knows who the leaned-against element is and can identify him or it. So the leaned-against element is a 'given' to the listener. And the speaker is providing 'new' information about the leaned-against element to the listener. The definite element represents the 'given' information, which the listener already knows. And the indefinite element represents 'new' information.

Let's take a look at an example:

(131) تَمِيمِيٌّ أَنَا [Peled, *Sentence types* 121]
«A Tamīmite I am.»

The pronoun أَنَا is definite. Therefore it is the leaned-against element (as the subject). And the word تَمِيمِيٌّ is indefinite. Therefore it is the leaning element (as the info). Example (131) is an inverted order sentence where the info is fronted and the subject is placed after it.

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In special cases, some grammarians hold that it is possible to have an indefinite subject and a definite info.[6] One special case is when a question noun is the subject. (Question nouns are considered indefinite.) For example:

(132) كَمْ مَالُكَ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 1/231]
«How much is your wealth?»

(133) أَيُّ لَيْلَةٍ لَيْلَةُ الْقَدْرِ [جامع الترمذي :3513]
«Which night is the night of Decree»

Another special case is when the subject is an indefinite comparative noun in sentences like:

(134) خَيْرٌ مِنْكَ زَيْدٌ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 1/231]
«Better than you is Zayd»

In the above sentence, خَيْرٌ is considered the subject of the sentence.

27.8.3. Both indispensable elements are definite

When both indispensable elements are definite, then typically the first is the subject and the second is the info. For example:

(135) الدِّينُ النَّصِيحَةُ [صحيح مسلم :55a]
«The Religion is sincerity.»

However, if it is known from context that one if the two elements is the 'given' information and the other is the 'new' information, then the given information will be the subject and the new information will be the info, regardless of word-order.[7]

For example, consider a situation where one wishes to say, "Abū Yūsuf is [like] Abū Ḥanīfah." (Imām Abū Yūsuf was the foremost student of Imām Abū Ḥanīfah.) The normal way to express this sentence is:

(136) أَبُو يُوسُفَ أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/233]
«Abū Yūsuf is [like] Abū Ḥanīfah.»

[6] https://alababmisr.com/%D8%B3%D8%A4%D8%A7%D9%84-%D9%87%D9%84-%D9%8A%D8%AC%D9%88%D8%B2-%D8%A3%D9%86-%D9%8A%D8%A3%D8%AA%D9%8A-%D8%A7%D9%84%D9%85%D8%A8%D8%AA%D8%AF%D8%A3-%D9%86%D9%83%D8%B1%D8%A9-%D9%88%D8%A7%D9%84%D8%AE/

[7] معاني النحو 1/168; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/233

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DIAGRAM

However, if it is pragmatically known that the topic of the sentence is أَبُو يُوسُفَ, then it is 'given' that أَبُو يُوسُفَ is the leaned-against element (as the subject). Similarly, it is known that likening him to أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ is the 'new' information. Therefore, أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ is the leaning element (as the info). In this case, the sentence order can be flexible, and the info can be fronted (stylistically), for the same meaning, thus:

(137) أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ أَبُو يُوسُفَ
« [Like] Abū Ḥanīfah, Abū Yūsuf is. »

DIAGRAM

27.8.4. Both indispensable elements are indefinite

When both indispensable elements are indefinite then, again, the first is likely to be the subject and the second to be the info. Examples:

(138) أَفْضَلُ مِنْ زَيْدٍ أَفْضَلُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/232]
« [The person] better than Zayd is better than Ɛamr. »

(139) وَجَزَٰٓؤُاْ سَيِّئَةٖ سَيِّئَةٞ مِّثۡلُهَاۖ [سورة الشورى 42:40]
« And the retribution for an evil act is an evil one like it »

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27.9. The compound sentence

In a nounal sentence, the info is, by default, a single noun. See example (112) again:

(112) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
« Zayd is standing. »

In example (112), قَائِمٌ is a single word and it is the info. This is what we may call a *simple* nounal sentence.

In contrast, in a *compound* nounal sentence, the info is itself a complete sentence. For example:

(140) زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
« Zayd – he stands »

In example (140) above, زَيْدٌ is the subject and يَقُومُ is the info. But يَقُومُ is not a single word here. It is in fact a complete sentence. This is because, as we know, a verb *must* be followed by its doer. And if there is no overt doer, then a latent doer pronoun is implicated. So يَقُومُ is a a verbal sentence with the meaning « he stands ».

Here is example of a compound nounal sentence, whose info is also a nounal sentence:

(141) زَيْدٌ أَبُوهُ قَائِمٌ [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/26]
« Zayd – his father is standing. »

(FIXME: MOVE THIS TO KAANA CHAPTER):

Compound sentences are very common with كَانَ. Remember from section (ref) above that كَانَ is a deficient verb, and thus needs a info to grammatically the sentence. This info may be a single word, like:

(142) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا
« Zayd was standing. »

Or the info of كَانَ may be a complete sentence:

(143) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
« Zayd used to stand. »

(END FIXME)

The info of a compound nounal sentence is typically a truth-evaluable sentence. But it need not be so. A non-truth-evaluable sentence is also valid as a info[8] For example:

(144) زَيْدٌ اضْرِبْهُ [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/27]
« Zayd – hit him! »
(i.e. « Hit Zayd! »)

Work in progress

27.9.1. The government of the compound nounal sentence sentence

The info of a compound nounal sentence is a complete sentence. Therefore, it has its own independent internal government for all elements within it (including its own foundational government). But the *entire* info is governed, albeit not markedly, by a governor in the outer sentence. For example, consider the following compound nounal sentence:

[8] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/27; شرح جمل الزجاجي لابن عصفور 1/347

(145) زَيْدٌ لَمْ يَضْرِبْ عَمْرًا
«Zayd – he did not hit ɛamr»

In example (145) above, لَمْ يَضْرِبْ عَمْرًا is a complete sentence that is the info of the outer sentence. This inner sentence has its own internal government, starting with its foundational government لَمْ. The foundational government لَمْ governs the verb يَضْرِبْ in the ø-case. And the verb يَضْرِبْ governs an implicated latent doer pronoun (هُوَ) in the u-case, and the direct object عَمْرًا in the a-case.

We will say that the inner sentence لَمْ يَضْرِبْ عَمْرًا is a positional u-case noun as the info of the outer sentence.

The government of this compound sentence is illustrated in the diagram below:
DIAGRAM

27.9.2. Invalid inner sentences

Some sentences are not valid as inner sentences:

- A sentence beginning with لَـكِنْ, حَتَّى, or بَلْ is not valid.[9]
- A vocative sentence is not valid.[10] So. we cannot say, for example:

(146) × زيد يا أخاه [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/28]
"Zayd – O his brother."

27.9.3. The link between the inner and outer sentence

It is usually necessary for there to be a link between the inner sentence, and the subject of the outer sentence. This link is typically supplied by a pronoun. Let's look at some examples:

(147) زَيْدٌ قَامَ أَبُوهُ [المقتصد للجرجاني 1/278]
«Zayd – his father stood up.»

DIAGRAM
In example (147) above, the link is the pronoun هُ in abuuhu.

(148) زَيْدٌ قَامَ [المقتصد للجرجاني 1/278]
«Zayd – he stood up.»

[9] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/28
[10] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 4/28

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DIAGRAM

In example (148) above, the link is the implied singular masculine pronoun that is the doer of قَامَ.

Generally, if there is no such link between the inner sentence and the subject of the outer sentence, then the compound sentence is invalid.^[Peled, *Sentence types* 94 citing المقتصد للجرجاني; شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل] So we cannot say, for example:

(149) × زَيْدٌ قَامَ عَمْرٌ [Peled, *Sentence types* 94 citing شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«Zayd – Ɛamr stood up»

A pointing noun as the link

Instead of a pronoun, an pointing noun may serve as the link. For example:

(150) وَلِبَاسُ ٱلتَّقْوَىٰ ذَٰلِكَ خَيْرٌ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/204 cited by سورة الأعراف 7:26]
«But the clothing of righteousness - that is best.»

A repeated subject as the link

The subject of the outer sentence may be repeated in the inner sentence, and this is sufficient as the link. For example:

(151) ٱلْحَآقَّةُ ۝١ مَا ٱلْحَآقَّةُ ۝٢ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/204 cited by سورة الحاقة 69:1–2]
«The Inevitable Reality - What is the Inevitable Reality?»

No need for the link

In cases where the info of the outer sentence is more general than its subject a link is not needed. For example:

(152) زَيْدٌ نِعْمَ الرَّجُلُ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/204, Wright 2/256D]
«Zayd – an excellent man»

The link is also not needed when the subject of the outer sentence and its info are perfectly identical in meaning. For example:

(153) نُطْقِي اللَّهُ حَسْبِي [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/204, Wright 2/256D]
«My utterance is “Allāh is sufficient for me.”»

(154) قَوْلِي لَا إِلَهَ إِلاَّ اللَّهُ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/204, Wright 2/256D]
«My saying is “There is no god but Allāh.”»

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An implied link

The link, even when technically required, is sometimes omitted. But it remains implied. This is in cases in which the sense is perfectly clear without it.[11] For example:

(155) ٱلسَّمْنُ مَنَوَانِ بِدِرْهَمٍ [Wright 2/256C; المقتصد للجرجاني 1/278; شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/238]
« The ghee is (at the rate of) two manās for a dirham. »

In the example above, the sentence with the link restored is ٱلسَّمْنُ مَنَوَانِ مِنْهُ بِدِرْهَمٍ « two manās of it for a dirham. »

27.10. Other complete sentences in place of nouns

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It is not only the info which can be replaced with a complete sentence. Other grammatical categories are also, by default, a single noun, but which can be replaced with complete sentences. We will discuss some of these categories below, and treat other categories in their respective chapters (like the ḥāl, the condition-response, and mental verbs).

27.10.1. The direct object as a complete sentence

A sentence which is direct speech occurs in the place of a direct object. For example:

(156) قَالَ إِنِّى عَبْدُ ٱللَّهِ [سورة مريم 19:30 cited by شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 1/23]
« [Jesus] said, “Indeed, I am the servant of Allāh. »

In the example above, the sentence إِنِّى عَبْدُ ٱللَّهِ is in place of the a-case direct object of قَالَ.

A complete sentence can also occur as a direct object with mental verbs. Examples:

(157) ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا يَقْرَأُ [شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 1/24]
« I believed Zayd [to be] reading. »

[11] Wright 2/256B

In the example above, the verbal sentence يَقْرَأُ is in place of the a-case direct object of ظَنَنْتُ. We will learn more about this category in chapter (ref), if Allāh wills.

27.10.2. The attribute as a complete sentence

The attribute is, in principle, a single noun.

However, an sentence entire sentence may occur in place of the single noun. For example, instead of saying مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ قَائِمٍ, we can replace the single word attribute قَائِمٍ with the sentence يَقُومُ, thus:

(158) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ يَقُومُ [الإيضاح للفارسي 308]
«I passed by a man [that] stands.»
(literally: «I passed by a 'he stands' man.»

Note that the PC verb يَقُومُ is in the u-case. This is because يَقُومُ is a complete sentence (with an implied doer pronoun). So it has its own internal government that is not affected by any element in the outer sentence. Thus, the case of the attributed-to رَجُلٍ has no effect on any case within the sentence-attribute. However, the entire sentence attribute is *in place* of a i-case noun as the attribute of رَجُلٍ.

Substituing a single-noun attribute with its corresponding PC verb is the most basic form of the sentence-attribute. However, more complex sentence-attributes may also be formed. For example:

(159) وَٱتَّقُواْ يَوْمًا تُرْجَعُونَ فِيهِ إِلَى ٱللَّهِ [سورة البقرة 2:281 cited by أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 3/276]
«And fear a Day when you will be returned to Allāh.»

In example (159) above, the sentence تُرْجَعُونَ فِيهِ إِلَى ٱللَّهِ is a attribute of يَوْمًا.

There are three conditions that must be met in order for a sentence to occur as a attribute^: [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 3/275–278]

1. The attributed-to must be indefinite, either in wording or in meaning.
2. The sentence-attribute must contain a link that links back to the attributed-to.
3. The sentence-attribute should be truth-evaluable.

Let's discuss each of these conditions.

Indefiniteness of the attributed-to

We already saw an example of an indefinite (in wording) attributed-to in example (159) above. Here is an example of a attributed-to which is definite in wording, but indefinite in meaning:

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(160) وَلَقَدْ أَمُرُّ عَلَى اللَّئِيمِ يَسُبُّنِي [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 3/276]
«And indeed I pass by the ignoble [person that] insults me»

In example (160) the attributed-to اللَّئِيمِ is referring to a general person, and is therefore indefinite in meaning.

A link that links back to the attributed-to

In example (159), the link, which links back to the attributed-to يَوْمًا, is the pronoun ه in فِيهِ.

Sometimes the link is not explicit, but is implied. For example:

(161) وَٱتَّقُواْ يَوْمًا لَّا تَجْزِى نَفْسٌ عَن نَّفْسٍ شَيْـًٔا [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام cited by 2:123 سورة البقرة 3/277]
«And fear a Day when no soul will suffice for another soul at all»

The implied link is the pronoun ه in an implied فِيهِ, i.e. لَا تَجْزِى فِيهِ.

The sentence-attribute should be truth-evaluable

The following sentence is impermissible because the attribute اضْرِبْهُ is a non-truth-evaluable sentence.

(162) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ اضْرِبْهُ × [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 3/278]
«I passed by a man – hit him»

27.10.3. The annexed-to in an annexation as a complete sentence

The annexed-to in an annexation may be a complete sentence instead of a single noun. For example:

(163) هَـٰذَا يَوْمُ يَنفَعُ ٱلصَّـٰدِقِينَ صِدْقُهُمْ [شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب cited by 5:119 سورة المائدة 1/28]
«This is the Day when the truthful will benefit from their truthfulness.»

In example (163) above the entire sentence يَنفَعُ ٱلصَّـٰدِقِينَ صِدْقُهُمْ is the annexed-to to the annexe يَوْمُ. As with sentence-infos and sentence-attributes, the sentence-annexed-to has its own internal government. And the sentence-annexed-to is *in place* of an i-case noun.

Here is another example:

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(164) يَوْمَ هُم بَٰرِزُونَ ۖ [سورة غافر 40:16 cited by شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 1/29]
«The Day they come forth»

27.11. A foreign element separating a governor from its governee

A foreign element, with respect to a particular governor, is one that is not *directly* governed by the governor. In most cases, a foreign element should not come between (and thus separate) a governor from its governee(s). For example, consider the following sentence:

(165) عَلِمْتُ مُحَمَّدًا يُؤَلِّفُ كِتَابًا [الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي 66]
«I knew Muḥammad [to be] writing a book.»

In the example above the verbal sentence يُؤَلِّفُ كِتَابًا is in place of the second direct object of عَلِمْتُ. The noun كِتَابًا is governed directly by the verb يُؤَلِّفُ. So كِتَابًا is a foreign element for the verb عَلِمْتُ. Therefore, كِتَابًا should not come between the governor عَلِمْتُ and its governee مُحَمَّد. So the following sentence would be impermissible:

(166) × عَلِمْتُ كِتَابًا مُحَمَّدًا يُؤَلِّفُ [الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي 66]

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27.12. The state-of-affairs pronoun

Usually, for pronouns, the pronoun's referent is a single noun that occurs before it. For example, if we say

(167) زَيْدٌ هَوَ مُنْطَلِقٌ
«Zayd is setting out.»

Then the pronoun هُوَ refers to the noun زَيْدٌ which occurs before it.

There is a special pronoun, called the *state-of-affairs pronoun* (ضَمِيرُ الشَّأْنِ) that behaves differently from other pronouns. It is used to begin compound nounal sentences. Here is an example of a sentence with a state-of-affairs pronoun:

(168) هُوَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ [معاني النحو 1/57]
«[The state of affairs] is: Zayd is setting out.»

The pronoun هُوَ in example () above is the state-of-affairs pronoun It is the subject of the outer sentence. Its info is the inner sentence زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ. What the state-of-affairs pronoun is referring to is explained by the entire sentence زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ that occurs after it.

The state-of-affairs pronoun is typically used for statements that are momentous. Consider, for example, a situation where one hears some hubbub, and wonders, « What is the state of affairs that is causing this hubbub?[12] » The answer to this question is:

(169) هُوَ الأَمِيرُ مُقْبِلٌ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/464]
« It is: the commander is approaching. »
(the pronoun “it” is referring to “the state of affairs”.)

In English, one might hear this sort of sentence expressed as: « *The thing is:* the commander is approaching. » Usually though, this pronoun is left untranslated. So example (169) may simply be translated as « The commander is approaching. »

Here are some rules and guidelines regarding the state-of-affairs pronoun:

The gender of the state-of-affairs pronoun

If the subject of the following sentence is masculine, then the state-of-affairs pronoun is generally the masculine pronoun هُوَ. And if the subject of the following sentence is feminine, then the state-of-affairs pronoun is generally the feminine pronoun هِيَ. Examples:

(170) هُوَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 745]
« [The state of affairs] is: Zayd is standing. »

(171) هِيَ هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 745]
« [The state of affairs] is: Hind is standing. »

Sometimes, however, the gender of the state-of-affairs pronoun can mismatch the gender of the following subject. For example:

(172) هِيَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 745]
« [The state of affairs] is: Zayd is standing. »

(173) هُوَ هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 745–756]
« [The state of affairs] is: Hind is standing. »

[12] شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/464

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The state-of-affairs pronoun is always a singular pronoun

The state-of-affairs pronoun is always a singular pronoun, regardless of whether the subject of the following subject is singular, dual, or plural.[13]

(174) هُوَ الزَّيْدَانِ قَائِمَانِ
« [The state of affairs] is: the two Zayds are standing. »

(175) هِيَ الْهِنْدَاتُ قَائِمَاتٌ
« [The state of affairs] is: the Hinds are standing. »

The state-of-affairs pronoun is always a pronoun for the absentee person

Even if the subject of the inner sentence is a pronoun for the speaker or adressee persons, the state-of-affairs pronoun is always a pronoun of for the absentee person. For example:

(176) هُوَ أَنَا زَيْدٌ [معاني النحو 1/59]
« [The fact] is: I am Zayd. »

The sentence أَنَا أَنَا زَيْدٌ is possible, but in this case the pronoun أَنَا is not a state-of-affairs pronoun. Rather it is repeated for emphasis.[14]

The state-of-affairs pronouns هُوَ and هِيَ only introduce nounal sentences

The state-of-affairs pronouns هُوَ and هِيَ only introduce nounal sentences.[15] This can be seen in the examples above.

We will see, in sections (kaana) and (inna), that the state-of-affairs pronoun can also be used with كَانَ and إِنَّ (and its sisters). In these cases, the state-of-affairs pronoun may introduce verbal sentences. For example:

(177) فَإِنَّهَا لَا تَعْمَى ٱلْأَبْصَٰرُ [سورة الحج 22:46 cited by شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/467]
« For indeed, it is not eyes that are blinded »

[13] معاني النحو 1/59
[14] معاني النحو 1/59
[15] شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/467

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27.13. Deletion

Al-Liheibi, *Aspects of sentence analysis in the Arabic linguistic tradition* Chapter 5

In Arabic, a part of a sentence may be deleted. There are three types of deletion:

i. Mandatory deletion
ii. Regular deletion
iii. Optional deletion

Lines are blurred. حتى أن is shaadh.

General rule: optional deletion only allowed when listener can reconstruct the deleted elements.

27.14. positional case

في محل رفع/نصب/جزم

TODO

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Chapter 28.

The doer participle as a verb-like governor

Work in progress

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

28.1. Introduction

The verb is the basic, and strongest, governor of a doer or done-to. Deverbal nouns, because they are derived from the verb, can also govern in a verb-like manner. In this chapter we will discuss the rules of how such nouns may act as verb-like governors.

28.2. The doer participle as a verb-like governor

The doer participle is the closest of the deverbal nouns to the verb, and thus the strongest of the deverbal nouns in its capacity to act as a verb-like governor.

Consider the following sentence:

(178) زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
« Zayd – he stands »

As we know from chapter (ref), this is a compound sentence. زَيْدٌ is the subject of an outer sentence. The info of the outer sentence is the inner sentence يَقُومُ.

Instead of using the PC verb يَقُومُ, we can use its doer participle قَائِم, thus:

(179) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing»

As you can see, we have translated the PC verb يَقُومُ as «stands» and the doer participle قَائِم as «standing». We will discuss the difference in meaning between the PC verb and the doer participle in more detail in chapter (ref), if Allāh wills. For now, we will focus on the grammar of the two sentences.

There is one notable similarity between the grammar of examples (178) and (179), and one notable difference:

The similarity

The PC verb يَقُومُ, and the doer participle قَائِمٌ both govern a latent doer pronoun, implicated as [هُوَ].

The difference

The PC verb يَقُومُ and its latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] are complementary indispensable elements that constitute a complete sentence. The latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] is the leaned-against element and the PC verb يَقُومُ is the leaning element. The sentence formed by the PC verb يَقُومُ and its latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] is in place of a u-case noun as the info of the subject (زَيْدٌ) of the outer sentence.

On the other hand, and the doer participle قَائِمٌ and its latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] are *not* complementary indispensable elements. Rather, قَائِمٌ (as the leaning element) and زَيْدٌ (as the leaned-against element) are complementary indispensable elements. This is a simple sentence, not a compound sentence. The latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] is not the indispensable element of any sentence. But, despite being dispensable from the perspective of sentence completion, the latent doer pronoun is an essential governee of the doer participle.

Let's take a look at another example:

(180) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا قَائِمًا
«I saw a standing man.»

The indispensable elements of this sentence are رَأَيْتُ: the verb رَأَى and its doer pronoun تُ. The entire phrase رَجُلًا قَائِمًا has only dispensable elements. قَائِمًا is a attribute of رَجُلًا, governed by the verb رَأَى. The doer participle قَائِمًا has a latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] that refers back to رَجُلًا. But because قَائِمًا is a (dispensable) element of an existing sentence (whose indispensable elements are رَأَيْتُ), therefore

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it cannot be the indispensable leaning element of a new sentence with its latent doer pronoun [هُوَ].

So, as you can see, whenever the doer participle has a latent doer pronoun, that doer pronoun is not the leaned-against element of any sentence. This is because the doer participle, as a single element, is already a member of an existing sentence.

In contrast, a verb always forms a sentence (as the leaning element) with its doer (as the leaned-against element). If we replace the doer participle قَائِمًا with the verb يَقُومُ thus:

(181) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا يَقُومُ

then يَقُومُ is a complete sentence with the verb and its latent doer pronoun as indispensable elements. This complete sentence is the attribute of رَجُلًا.

28.3. The doer participle as the governor of a latent doer pronoun

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Let us look into the latent doer pronoun of the doer participle in more detail. It makes sense for a verb to have a doer but how can a noun have a doer? The reason is that the doer participle, because of its closeness to the verb, can act like one. When acting with verbal force, it can govern a doer. It can also, as we will see soon, if Allāh wills, govern a direct object.

The doer of the doer participle is, by default, a latent pronoun. And it refers back to a referent that occurs before it. In example (179) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ the doer of the doer participle قَائِمٌ is the latent pronoun [هُوَ]. And the referent of this doer pronoun is the subject زَيْدٌ.

DIAGRAM

Let's see another example:

(182) صَاحَ الرَّجُلُ الْقَائِمُ
« The standing man shouted. »

then الْقَائِمُ governs a latent doer pronoun [هُوَ], that refers back to الرَّجُلُ.

The fact that the doer participle has a latent doer pronoun is, in fact, the reason why a doer participle in the info will match the subject in gender.[1]

For example, if we say:

[1] Non-agreement of Mubtada and Khabar

(183) هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ
«Hind is standing.»

then the feminine marker ة is added to the doer participle قَائِم only because it has to match the feminine gender of the latent doer pronoun [هِيَ] that occurs with, and is governed by, the doer participle. (The latent doer pronoun [هِيَ] refers back to هِنْد.)

When the referent of the latent doer pronoun changes for number or gender, then the latent doer pronoun will change to match it. For example:

(184) الزَّيْدَانِ قَائِمَانِ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 1/291]
«The two Zayds are standing.»

(185) الزَّيْدُونَ قَائِمُونَ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 1/291]
«The Zayds are standing.»

In example (184) above, the latent doer pronoun of قَائِمَانِ is implicated as هُمَا.

And in example (185) the latent doer pronoun of قَائِمُونَ is implicated as هُمْ.

As a point of technicality, the alif in the dual suffix of قَائِمَانِ and the و in the plural suffix of قَائِمُونَ, are not themselves the doer pronouns.[2] Rather, the doer pronouns for the doer participles above are latent.

This is different than for verbs. In the verbs يَقُومَانِ and يَقُومُونَ, the alif in انِ and the و in ونَ are, themselves, considered the doer pronouns. And these pronouns are *overt*, not latent.

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28.4. The doer participle as the governor of a direct object

We have seen that the doer participle, when acting with verbal force, governs a doer. In a similar manner, the doer participle for transitive verbs can, optionally, govern a direct object. In order to introduce this behavior, we use again, as our starting point, the u-case PC verb. Consider the following example:

(186) زَيْدٌ يَضْرِبُ عَمْرًا
«Zayd beats Amr»

Example (186) above is parsed as follows:

- زَيْدٌ is a subject.

[2] haazimi 30/5 https://shamela.ws/book/36130/531

- يَضْرِبُ is a PC verb in the u-case. It governs a latent pronoun (implicated as هُوَ) in the u-case as its doer. The latent doer pronoun هُوَ refers back to its referent: the subject زَيْدٌ.
- عَمْرًا is a direct object, governed in the a-case by the verb يَضْرِبُ.
- يَضْرِبُ عَمْرًا is an inner sentence which is in place of a u-case noun as the info of the subject زَيْدٌ.

Instead of using the verb يَضْرِبُ in example (186) above we may instead use its doer participle ضَارِب, thus:

(187) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا
«Zayd is beating Amr»

Example (187) is parsed as follows:

- زَيْدٌ is a subject.
- ضَارِبٌ is the info of the subject زَيْدٌ. It governs a latent pronoun (implicated as هُوَ) in the u-case as its doer. The latent doer pronoun هُوَ refers back to the subject زَيْدٌ.
- عَمْرًا is a direct object, governed in the a-case by the doer participle ضَارِبٌ.

As you can see, the doer participle ضَارِبٌ can govern a direct object just like the verb يَضْرِبُ.

However, while a transitive verb can govern a direct object unconditionally, a doer participle can only govern a direct object if certain conditions are satisfied. We will discuss these conditions in section (ref) below.

By the way, we again highlight the difference in the doer of the verb يَضْرِبُ vs the doer of the doer participle ضَارِبٌ: The verb يَضْرِبُ and its doer are complementary indispensable pairs that constitute a complete sentence. Whereas, the doer participle ضَارِبٌ does not form a new sentence with its doer.

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28.4.1. A doer participle defined by ٱل as the governor of a direct object

Example (187) shows the government of a direct object by an doer participle that is not defined by ٱل. In a similar manner, an doer participle that *is* defined by ٱل, can also govern a direct object. For example:

(188) هَذَا الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/84]
«This [person] is the beater of Zayd.»

By the way, you my be wondering what is the difference between the sentence in example (188) هَذَا الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا above, and if we had used an annexation thus:

(188) هَذَا ضَارِبُ زَيْدٍ «This [person] is the beater of Zayd.»

This is touched upon in section (ma3aani_ism_faa3il).

28.4.2. Word order of the direct object and its governing doer participle

As with verbs, the direct object usually follows its governing doer participle (as in the examples above). But when an doer participle is not prefixed by ال, then its direct object is allowed to precede it. So we can say:

(189) هذا زيدا ضارب [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 1/259]
«This [person] is beating Zayd.»

While the direct object is permitted to precede its governing doer participle (as above), it is very common, in such a case, for a strengthening-لِ to be used with an indirect object instead, thus:

(190) هذا لِزيدٍ ضارب
«This [person], to Zayd, is beating.»

(191) لِلضَّيْفِ مُكْرِمٌ [Fischer 113]
«to the guest, is honoring»
(i.e. «honoring the guest»)

The strengthening-لِ is discussed in more detail in section (later chapter).[3]

Also, the freedom for the governee of a doer participle to precede it is only given to the doer participle not prefixed by ال. When an doer participle is prefixed by ال, then its direct object is not allowed to precede it.[4] So we cannot say:

(192) ✗ هذا زيدا الضارب

We would have to say instead

(193) ✓ هذا الضارب زيدا

TODO: Fronting the direct object is not permitted for static adjectival noun. See link in example above. Add to section on static adjectival noun

[3] See also Wright 2/69CD, Fischer §203 Note 2 p. 113 (who consider this strengthening-لِ obligatory), and النحو الوافي 2/475–476 (who doesn't consider it obligatory).
[4] النحو الوافي 3/263

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28.4.3. A dual or plural doer participle as the governor of a direct object

A dual or plural doer participle may govern a direct object just like the singular. So we can say:

(194) هذان ضاربان زيدًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/97]
«These two [persons] are beating Zayd.»

(195) هم ضاربون زيدًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/97]
«These [persons] are beating Zayd.»

(196) الهندات ضاربات عمرا [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 1/439]
«The Hinds are beating Ɛamr.»

Doer participles defined by ٱل are again also permitted:

(197) هذان الضاربان زيدا [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/40]
«These two are the beaters of Zayd.»

(198) هؤلاء الضاربون الرجل [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/40]
«These are the beaters of the man.»

(199) وَٱلْمُقِيمِينَ ٱلصَّلَوٰةَ وَٱلْمُؤْتُونَ ٱلزَّكَوٰةَ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/40 cited by سورة النساء 4:162]
«And the establishers of prayer [especially] and the givers of zakāh»

For plurals, the sound plurals are more worthy of being used as verb-like governors[5] as in the examples above. However, broken plurals are permitted as well. So we can say:

(200) الزيدون ضُرّابٌ عمرًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/97]
«The Zayds are beating Ɛamr.»

(201) الهِنْداتُ ضواربُ عَمْرًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/97]
«The Hinds are beating Ɛamr.»

Flexible word order is again permitted for the dual and the plural as it was for the singular:

(202) الزيدان عمرا ضاربان [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 1/439]
«The two Zayds are beating Ɛamr.»

(203) الزيدون عَمْرًا ضُرّابٌ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/97]
«The Zayds are beating Ɛamr.»

[5] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/97

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(204) الهندات عمرا ضاربات [1/439 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]
«The Hinds are beating Ɛamr.»

(205) الهِنْداتُ عَمْرًا ضواربُ [4/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«The Hinds are beating Ɛamr.»

28.5. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a direct object

As we mentioned above, there are conditions that must be satisfied in order for an doer participle to be able to govern a direct object in this manner. The conditions are different for when the doer participle is defined by ٱلْ, and when it is not defined by ٱلْ. We will discuss each of these cases separately below:

28.5.1. When the doer participle is not defined by ٱلْ

When the doer participle is not defined by ٱلْ, then two conditions must be satisfied:

1. The verbal aspect of the doer participle must be imperfect. That is, it must indicate an ongoing (whether present or past) or future action. Examples:

   • present ongoing:

   (206) هذا ضارب زيدا الآن [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
   «This [person] is beating Zayd now.»

   • past ongoing:

   (207) كان زيد ضاربا عمرا [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
   «Zayd was beating Ɛamr.»

   (208) وَكَلْبُهُمْ بَاسِطٌ ذِرَاعَيْهِ بِٱلْوَصِيدِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية cited by 18:18 سورة الكهف 3/106]
   «while their dog stretched his forelegs at the entrance»

   • future:

   (209) هذا ضارب زيدا غَدًا [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
   «This [person] will beat Zayd tomorrow.»

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If the verbal aspect indicated by the doer participle is perfect, then the doer participle may not govern a direct object. So, for example, we cannot say:

(210) × هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَمْسِ [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«This [person] beat Zayd yesterday.»

If we desire to use the doer participle, then it will not have verbal force. And زَيْد will have to be a annexed-to in a annexation. Furthermore, this annexation will be *real* (see chapter (ref)).

(211) هَذَا ضَارِبُ زَيدٍ أَمْسِ [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«This [person] was the beater of Zayd yesterday.»
(See Section 36.10 for how أَمْسِ is governed.)

An exception is made for for transitive verbs that take more than one direct object, like جعل, أَعطى, etc. When the doer participle of such a verb is annexed to what would have been the first direct object, then second direct object is permitted to be in the a-case, even if the aspect is perfect.[6] For example:

(212) هذا معطي زيد أمس درهما [3/78 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]
«This [person] was the giver of Zayd, yesterday, a dirham.»

Even the first direct object may remain in the a-case, if separated from the doer participle. For example:

(213) هذا ظان أمس زيدا فاضلا [3/78 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]
«This [person] was the believer, yesterday, of Zayd as an eminent person.»

2. The second condition that should be satisfied is that the doer participle must have *government support*. This government support can be provided by the following means:

   - The doer participle occurs after a question-device. Example:

   (214) أضارب زيد عمرا [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
   «Is Zayd beating Ɛamr?»

   (215) هَلْ مُكْرِمٌ أَنْتَ زَيْدًا [Wright 2/65D]
   «Will you be treating Zayd with respect?»

   - The doer participle occurs after a vocative particle: Example:

   (216) يا طالعا جبلا [3/107 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
   «O scaler [of] a mountain!»

   - The doer participle occurs in a negation: Example:

[6] See also الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة فاطر 35:1 and البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة فاطر 35:1

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(217) ما ضارب زيد عمرا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«Zayd is not beating Ɛamr.»

(218) مَا أَنْتَ بِتَابِعٍ قِبْلَتَهُمْ [سورة البقرة 2:145 cited by Wright 2/65D]
«Nor will you be a follower of their qiblah»

(219) مَا مُجِيرٌ أَحَدٌ عَدُوَّ أَحِبَّاءِهِ [Wright 2/65D]
«No one gives protection to the enemy of his loved ones»

• The doer participle occurs as a attribute. Example:

(220) مررت برجل ضارب زيدا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«I passed by a man beating Zayd.»

(221) مَرَرْتُ بِفَارِسٍ طَالِبٍ ثَأْرَ أَبِيهِ [Wright 2/65C]
«I passed by a horseman (who was) seeking vengeance for (the murder of) his father»

An implied attribute is also considered permissible. Example:

(222) كَمْ مَالِئٍ عَيْنَيْهِ مِنْ شَيْءٍ غَيْرِهِ [Wright 2/65C; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/108]
«How many a one fills his eyes with a thing of [someone] other than him»
(i.e. كَمْ شَخْصٍ مَالِئٍ «How many a person fills…»)

(223) كَنَاطِحٍ صَخْرَةً يَوْمًا لِيُوهِنَهَا [Wright 2/65C; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/109]
«Like the gorer of a rock, one day, to try to weaken it»
(i.e. كَوَعِلٍ نَاطِحٍ «like a goring mountain goat…»)

• The doer participle occurs as a ḥāl. Example:

(224) جاء زيد راكبا فرسا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«Zayd came riding a horse.»

• The doer participle occurs as a info. Example:

(225) زيد ضارب عمرا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«Zayd is beating Ɛamr.»

We will learn in later chapters, if Allāh wills, different forms of infos. The following examples show these different forms, with references to the later chapters.

(226) كان زيد ضاربا عمرا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«Zayd was beating Ɛamr.»
(See chapter (kaana).)

(227) إن زيدا ضارب عمرا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«Indeed Zayd is beating Ɛamr.»
(See chapter (inna).)

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(228) ظننت زيدا ضاربا عمرا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«I thought Zayd [was] beating Ɛamr.»
(See chapter (zanna).)

(229) أعلمت زيدا عمرا ضاربا بكرا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/107]
«I let Zayd know Ɛamr is beating Bakr.»
(See chapter (zanna).)

28.5.2. When the doer participle is defined by ٱلْ

When the doer participle is defined by ٱلْ, then it is permitted to govern a direct object for a perfect or imperfect aspect. Furthermore, no government support is required for it to be a governor,[7] (as was required for the doer participle without ٱلْ in section (ref) above).

So we can say:

(230) جاء الضارب زيداً أمسِ أو الآن أو غداً [شرح شذور الذهب للجوجري 2/683]
«The beater of Zayd came yesterday/today/tomorrow»

28.6. The doer participle as the governor of an overt doer pronoun

FIXME: The latent doer pronoun does not become overt. Rather, a overt noun can replace it. Or a overt pronoun can occur after it as tawkeed. See Saa3idi tamheed.

The latent doer pronoun becomes overt in some circumstances. In this section, we will discuss one such circumstance. Consider the sentence:

(231) الفارس الحصانُ مُتْعِبُه [النحو الوافي 1/463]

This grammar is parsed as follows:

- الْفَارِسُ is the subject of the outer sentence.
- الْحِصَانُ is a second subject. It is the subject of the inner sentence.
- مُتْبِع is the info of the inner sentence. It is also a annexe.

[7] النحو الوافي 3/254

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- The pronoun ـُهُ is a annexed-to.
- The inner sentence الْحِصَانُ مُتْبِعُهُ is the info of the subject (الْفَارِسُ) of outer sentence.

The info of the inner sentence مُتْبِع «one who makes tired» has a latent doer pronoun, implicated as [هُوَ]. It is possible for this latent doer pronoun to refer to either الْفَارِسُ or الْحِصَانُ. Let's discuss both these meanings:

i. If the latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] in مُتْبِع refers to الْحِصَانُ then the meaning is that «the horse makes the horseman tired». In this case, the pronoun ـُهُ in مُتْبِعُهُ refers to الْفَارِسُ.

ii. And if the latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] in مُتْبِع refers to الْفَارِسُ then the meaning is that «the horseman makes the horse tired». In this case, the pronoun ـُهُ in مُتْبِعُهُ refers to الْحِصَانُ.

Both meanings are possible.

If only the second meaning is desired, then the latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] can be made overt and added after the doer participle مُتْبِع, thus:

(232) الفارس الحصانُ مُتْعِبُه هُوَ [1/464 النحو الوافي]
«The horseman – the horse – [he] makes him tired.»
(i.e. «The horseman makes the horse tired.»)

Now only the second meaning is possible. If the first meaning is desired, the doer pronoun of مُتْبِع must stay latent and the ambiguity will remain.

By the way, the ambiguity arose in the original sentence (الفارس الحصانُ مُتْعِبُه) only because both subjects (الْفَارِسُ and الْحِصَانُ) are singular masculine nouns. If the two subjects are distinguishable in number or gender then there will be no ambiguity. However, even in this case, according to some grammarians, if the info is to refer to the subject of the outer sentence, then the doer pronoun of the doer participle in the info should be made overt. For example:

(233) زَيْدٌ هِنْدٌ ضَارِبُهَا هُوَ [1/207 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«Zayd – Hind – [he] is beating her.»
(i.e. «Zayd is beating Hind.»)

But according to other grammarians, because ضَارِب can refer only to Zayd and not to Hind, the doer participle's doer pronoun can remain latent,[8] thus:

(234) زَيْدٌ هِنْدٌ ضَارِبُهَا
«Zayd – Hind – [he] is beating her.»
(i.e. «Zayd is beating Hind.»)

[8] 1/207 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

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28.7. The sababi info

Consider again example (186) زَيْدٌ يَضْرِبُ عَمْرًا. From this original sentence, we replaced the verb يَضْرِبُ with its doer participle and came up with (187) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا.

Now consider the following example:

(235) زَيْدٌ يَضْرِبُ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا
«Zayd – his father beats Ɛamr»

In example (235) above the doer of يَضْرِبُ is not Zayd but Zayd's father. If we use this sentence as our starting point, we can again replace the verb يَضْرِبُ with its doer participle ضَارِبٌ and say:

(236) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا
«Zayd – his father is beating Ɛamr»

أَبُوهُ is the (overt) doer of the doer participle ضَارِبٌ. And عَمْرًا is its direct object. So just like a verb can have an overt noun as its doer instead of a latent pronoun, so too can the doer participle have an overt noun as its doer instead of a latent pronoun.

Again, there is one important difference between using the verb يَضْرِبُ vs using its doer participle ضَارِبٌ. And that is that يَضْرِبُ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا in example (235) is a complete sentence. This inner sentence is the info of the outer sentence. Therefore, example (235) is a compound sentence.

However, ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا in example (236) is not a complete sentence. ضَارِبٌ itself, as a single word, is the info of the subject زَيْدٌ.[9] So example (236) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا is not a compound sentence.

The info ضَارِبٌ in example (236) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا is called a sababi info.[10] A deverbal noun is termed *sababi* when it governs a doer which is annexed to a pronoun that refers back to the original referent of the deverbal noun.[11] In our example, the deverbal noun ضَارِبٌ governs a doer أَب which is annexed to a pronoun هُ that refers back to the original referent of the deverbal noun, the subject زَيْد.

28.7.1. Varying the number or gender of the overt doer of the sababi info

Here is another example of a sentence with a sababi info:

[9] مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني 86

[10] الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي 4/287; الخبر السببي لوجيهة السطل

[11] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 4/404 (also cited by الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 161)

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(237) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبُوهُ [Peled, *Sentence types* 208]
«Zayd – his father was setting out.»

In example (237) above, مُنْطَلِقًا is the sababi info of كَانَ. The overt doer of the مُنْطَلِقًا is the singular masculine noun أَبُوه «his father».

Let's see what happens when we vary the number or gender of this overt doer of the sababi info.

(238) كَانَ الزَيْدَانِ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبَوَاهُمَا [Peled, *Sentence types* 208]
«The two Zayds – their fathers were setting out.»

In example (238) above, the sababi info مُنْطَلِقًا remains in the singular, even though its doer is the dual أَبَوَاهُمَا.

This is analagous to a verb, which remains in the singular for dual and plural doers. For example كَانَ الزَيْدَانِ يَنْطَلِقُ أَبَوَاهُمَا, etc.

If the gender of the doer participle's doer is feminine, then the doer participle remains in the singular but it is feminized. For example:

(239) زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقَةٌ أُمُّهُ
«Zayd – his mother is setting out.»

(240) كَانَتْ هِنْدٌ مُنْطَلِقَةً خَالَتَاهَا
«Hind – her two maternal aunts were setting out.»

This again is analagous to the feminizing a verb that has a feminine doer.

If the doer of the doer participle is a plural, then we have an choice:

If the doer participle has a sound plural, then, again, it is not used and the doer participle remains in the singular. For example:

(241) كَانَ الزَيْدُونَ مُنْطَلِقًا آبَاؤُهُمْ
«The Zayds – their fathers were setting out.»

(242) زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقَةٌ خَالَاتُهُ
«Zayd – his maternal aunts are setting out.»

But if the doer participle has a broken plural, then it is allowed to be used, and is indeed preferred,[12] when the doer is a plural.

For example:

(243) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ قِيَامًا آبَاؤُهُمْ
«The Zayds – their fathers were standing»

Here are some examples of sababi infos from the Qurʾān:

[12] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 693–694 cited by Peled, *Sentence types* 208 (footnote)

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(244) فَإِنَّهُۥٓ ءَاثِمٌ قَلۡبُهُۥۗ [سورة البقرة 2:283]
«his heart is indeed sinful»
(Other analyses besides a sababi info are also possible.[13] One such differing analysis is discussed in section (ref) below.)

(245) وَظَنُّوٓاْ أَنَّهُم مَّانِعَتُهُمۡ حُصُونُهُم مِّنَ ٱللَّهِ [سورة الحشر 59:2]
«and they thought that their fortresses would protect them from Allāh»
(Another analysis is also possible: حُصُونُهُمْ can be a subject, and مَانِعَتُهُمْ is its fronted info.[14])

28.7.2. Word order of the doer and the direct object in a sababi info

If the doer participle is transitive, then the normal word order is doer participle, doer, direct object. For example:

(246) هَذَا ضَارب أَبوهُ زيدا [همع الهوامع للسيوطي 3/89]
«This [person] – his father is beating Zayd.»

But the direct object can be made to precede the doer thus:

(247) هذا ضارب زيدا أبوه [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 2/453]
«This [person] – his father is beating Zayd.»

28.8. The sababi attribute

In section (ref) above we have seen how a doer participle can govern a overt doer when it is a sababi info. In a similar manner, a doer participle can govern a overt doer when it is a sababi attribute.

Consider the following example:

(248) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ مُنْطَلِقٍ أَبُوهُ
«I passed by a man whose father is setting out»

The doer participle مُنْطَلِقٍ is a attribute of the attributed-to رَجُلٍ. Because it is a sababi attribute, it has a doer أَب that is annexed to a pronoun هُ which refers to the attributed-to رَجُلٍ.

We know that, in general, a attribute will match its attributed-to in four aspects:

[13] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة البقرة 2:283
[14] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة الحشر 59:2

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i. case
ii. definiteness
iii. gender
iv. number (singular/dual/plural)

The sababi attribute will also match its preceding attributed-to in case and definiteness. (You can see the attribute مُنْطَلِقٍ matches its attributed-to رَجُلٍ in the i-case and in being indefinite.) But in matching gender and number the sababi attribute has different rules. Consistent with we learned for the sababi info above, the sababi attribute will, in general, always be singular, and it will match its doer in gender. Here are some examples that show different combinations:

(249) مَرَرْتُ بِالرَّجُلِ الْمُنْطَلِقِ أَبُوهُ
«I passed by the man whose father is setting out.»

(250) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ مُنْطَلِقٍ أَخَوَاهُ
«I passed by a man whose two brothers are setting out.»

(251) رَأَيْتُ رِجَالًا مُنْطَلِقًا آبَاؤُهُمْ
«I saw men whose fathers are setting out.»

(252) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا مُنْطَلِقَةً أُمُّهُ
«I saw a man whose mother is setting out.»

(253) جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ الْمُنْطَلِقَةُ أَخَوَاتُهُ
«Zayd whose sisters are setting out came to me.»

(254) جَاءَتْنِي امْرَأَةٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهَا
«A woman whose father is setting out came to me.»

(255) مَرَرْتُ بِالْمَرْأَةِ الْمُنْطَلِقِ أَخَوَاهَا
«I passed by the woman whose two brothers are setting out.»

The above examples use the doer participle مُنْطَلِق which only has sound plurals. Therefore it remains in the singular. If an doer participle has a broken plural, it is permitted (and in fact preferred) to use the broken plural for a plural doer.[15] Examples:

(256) مَرَرْت بِرِجَال قيام آباؤهم [شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى 288]
«I passed by men whose fathers are standing.»

(257) مَرَرْت برجل قعُود غلمانه [شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى 288]
«I passed by a man whose slave-boys are sitting»
(Note that the attributed-to رَجُل is singular in this case.)

Some more aspects of gender agreement of the sababi doer with its governing deverbal noun will be discussed in section (sifah_mush sababi na3t), if Allāh wills.

[15] النحو الوافي 3/453–454; شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى 288

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28.9. The doer participle as the governor of a non-sababi overt doer

When the doer of the doer participle is overt then it will often be a sababi doer, as we have seen in sections (sababi-xabar) and (sababi-na3t) above. However, it is also possible for the doer participle to govern a non-sababi overt doer. For example:

(258) مررت برجل متكلمٍ محمدٌ في داره [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1075]
«I passed by a man [whom] Muḥammad was speaking in his house.»

In the example above محمد is the doer of the doer participle متكلم. But because it is not annexed to a pronoun which refers back to رجل, therefore it is not a sababi doer.

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28.10. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a doer

In section (ref) above, we discussed the conditions for the doer participle to govern a direct object. Correspondingly, there exist conditions for the doer participle to govern a doer.

The doer participle can have either an overt doer (either as a noun or as a pronoun), or a latent doer pronoun. We will treat each of these separately below:

28.10.1. Conditions for the doer participle to govern an overt doer

The grammarians differed with regard to the conditions under which the doer participle is allowed to govern an overt doer. According to some, the same conditions are applicable as for governing a direct object, namely that when an doer participle is not defined by ألْ, then it can only govern an overt doer when

i. It has an imperfect aspect.
ii. It has government support

So it is not allowed to govern an overt doer for a perfect aspect. The following example would then be disallowed:

(259) × زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ أَمْسِ [134 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي]
«Zayd – his father stood yesterday.»

Other grammarians, however, allowed such a sentence.[16]

when an doer participle is defined by ٱل, then it can only govern an overt doer unconditionally. So it can govern with perfective aspect and without government support. Examples:

(260) جاءني القائم أبوه [1/449 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي]
«The one whose father is standing came.»

(261) القائم أبوه ضاحك [3/257 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان]
«The one whose father is standing is laughing.»

(262) جاء الضارب أبوه زيدًا أمس [59 شرح ابن الناظم على ألفية ابن مالك]
«The one whose father beat Zayd yesterday came.»

28.10.2. Conditions for the doer participle to govern a latent doer pronoun

As a default, the doer participle requires a latent doer pronoun. So it governs a latent doer pronoun unconditionally, except when it is prevented from doing so because of one of the following situations:

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The doer participle is already governing an overt doer noun

If the doer participle is already governing an overt doer, then it will not also have a latent doer pronoun. This is because one doer participle cannot have two doers.[17] Example:

(263) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ [139 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي]
«Zayd – his father is standing»

Beware though, that sometimes it may appear that an doer participle is governing an overt doer, but actually another interpretation may also be possible. Consider the following āyah that we discussed in section (ref) above:

[16] 134 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي
[17] 139 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

(244) فَإِنَّهُۥٓ ءَاثِمٌ قَلۡبُهُۥۗ [سورة البقرة 2:283]
«his heart is indeed sinful»

We had discussed this as a case of a sababi info. But another analysis is also possible: The doer participle آثِمٌ is governing a latent doer pronoun, and قَلْبُهُ is a substitute for the latent doer pronoun.[18]

The doer participle is already governing an overt doer pronoun

We discussed in section (ref) above, a situation in which the originally latent doer pronoun of a doer participle becomes overt. Because the doer is now overt the doer participle will not govern an additional latent doer.[19]

(233) زَيْدٌ هِنْدٌ ضَارِبُهَا هُوَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/207]
«Zayd – Hind – [he] is beating her.»
(i.e. «Zayd is beating Hind.»)

The doer participle is the annexe in a real annexation

When doer participle is the annexe in a real annexation, then it will not govern a latent doer pronoun.[20] This can happen when the doer participle indicates a perfective aspect. We saw an example of this in the conditions for governing a direct object above:

211) هذا ضارب زيد أمس [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/106]
«This [person] was the beater of Zayd yesterday.»

By the way, this does not mean that the doer participle cannot govern a latent doer pronoun whenever it signifies a perfective aspect. It only cannot do so in a real annexation. So doer participle will govern a latent doer pronoun when it has a perfective aspect, but no annexation. For example:

264) هذا ضاربٌ أمس
«This [person] was a beater yesterday.»

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[18] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة البقرة 2:283
[19] الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 144
[20] الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 142

The doer participle has crossed over to a entity noun

When the doer participle has crossed over to a entity noun (see section (ref) below), then, in general, it does not govern a latent doer pronoun.[21]. For example:

(265) زَيْدٌ صَاحِبٌ
«Zayd is a companion»

But even for entity nouns, the the latent doer pronoun can re-emerge when needed (see section (sec-the-doer-participle-crossover-to-substantive-as-a-attribute)).

28.11. Superficial annexation

Superficial annexation used to eliminate tanwīn

Consider again the sentence:

(187) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا
zaydun ḍ͡hāribun ʒamran
«Zayd is beating Amr»

The doer participle ضَارِبٌ has a tanwīn which is pronounced before pronouncing the direct object عَمْرًا. In an effort to make the pronunciation easier, this tanwīn is often eliminated and replaced with an annexation. The direct object is then made into a annexed-to in the i-case. The meaning remains the same. So the above sentence then becomes:

(266) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبُ عَمْرٍو
zaydun ḍ͡hāribu ʒamrin
«Zayd is beating Amr»

This is called a superficial annexation, as opposed to a real annexation, which is what we have been studying so far. This is because it is only an annexation for the purposes of easing the pronunciation, not in meaning.

Regarding terminology, عَمْرٍو syntactically becomes a annexed-to in the superficial annexation. But in meaning, it is still the direct object of the doer participle ضَارِب. We will refer to it as the *semantic direct object*.

By the way, the sentence زَيْدٌ ضَارِبُ عَمْرٍو can also be a real annexation. In which case, the meaning will be: «Zayd is the beater of Ɛamr». So if we come across such a sentence, how can we tell if it is a real annexation or a superficial annexation?

[21] See citations in الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 154

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The answer is, in this case, context should guide us. We will see below that the superficial annexation is not always identical in form to the real annexation. So in those cases, the form of the annexation will tell us whether it is a real annexation or a superficial annexation.

Here are some more examples of a superficial annexation used to eliminate a tanwīn:

(267) الْهِنْدَاتُ ضارباتُ عمرٍو [modified from شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/682]
«The Hinds are beating Ɛamr»
(instead of ضارباتٌ عمرًا)

When the doer participle is a semi-flexible, it will not have a tanwīn. But the superficial annexation may still be used in such a case because a tanwīn would have been present if the word were fully-flexible.[22] For example:

(268) الْهِنْدَاتُ ضواربُ عَمْرٍو [modified from شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/682]
«The Hinds are beating Ɛamr»
(instead of ضواربُ عمرًا)

Superficial annexation used to eliminate the ن of a dual or plural suffix

The superficial annexation is used in situations when the governing doer participle has tanwīn (as above), and also in situations when it ends with a ن arising from a dual or sound plural. Examples:

(269) الزَّيْدَانِ ضاربا عَمْرٍو [modified from شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/682]
«The [two] Zayds are beating Ɛamr»
(instead of ضاربانِ عَمْرًا)

Definiteness of the superficial annexation

Because this is a superficial and not a real annexation, the annexe is not made definite by a definite annexed-to. In the examples so far, the annexed-tos have been proper nouns (زَيْد, عَمْرو) which are definite. But the doer participles (ضَارِب, ضَارِبًا, etc.) remain indefinite, because they did not originally have ٱل when governing a direct object. This example proves the above claim:

(270) هَدْيًا بَٰلِغَ ٱلْكَعْبَةِ [سورة المائدة 5:95 cited by شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/84]
«as an offering [to Allāh] delivered to the Kaʿbah»

[22] شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/682

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In example (270) above, the doer participle بَالِغ is a annexe to the definite annexed-to الْكَعْبَة. But this is a superficial annexation. So بَالِغ does not become definite. Therefore بَالِغ can be a attribute to the indefinite هَدْيًا.

If the doer participle is to be made definite in a superficial annexation then a ٱل is added to it. For example:

(271) هذان الضاربا زيدٍ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/132]
«These two are the beaters of Zayd.»
(instead of هذان الضاربان زيدًا)

(272) وَٱلْمُقِيمِى ٱلصَّلَوٰةِ [سورة الحج 22:35 cited by شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/132]
«and the establishers of prayer»

Adding ٱل to the annexe is particular to a superficial annexation. As we know, it is not permitted in a real annexation. So when we see ٱل with a annexe, then we will know that the annexation has to be a superficial one.

When the doer participle does not have tanwīn or a suffixed ن

Consider the following case of a doer participle governing a direct object:

(273) الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا
«the beater of Zayd»

There is no tanwīn of suffixed ن after the doer participle. Therefore, a superficial annexation is not permitted, and we cannot say:

(274) × الضَّارِبُ زَيْدٍ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/132]

The following are similarly not permitted:

(275) × الضارب رجلِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/47]
«the beater of the man»

(276) × الضَّارِبُ عَبْدِ زَيْدٍ [Wright 2/66B] «the beater of the slave of Zayd»

(277) × الضَّارِبُ عَبْدِهِ [Wright 2/66B] «the beater of his slave»

If, however, the direct object is defined by ٱل, or is itself a annexe to a annexed-to that is defined by ٱل, then, as an exception, the superficial annexation is again permitted.[23] For example:

[23] Wright 2/66A

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(278) الضَّارِبُ الْعَبْدِ [Wright 2/66A]
«the beater of the slave»

(279) الضَّارِبُ رَأْسِ الْعَبْدِ [Wright 2/66A]
«the beater of the head of the slave»

(280) الضَّارِبُ الرَّجُلِ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/132]
«the beater of the man»

(281) الضَّوَارِبُ/الضُّرَّابُ/الضَّارِبَاتُ الرَّجُلِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/47]
«the beaters of the man»

(282) الضَّوَارِبُ/الضُّرَّابُ/الضَّارِبَاتُ غُلَامِ الرَّجُلِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/47]
«the beaters of the slave-boy of the man»

Two or more direct objects connected by وَ or أَوْ

When a doer participle governs two or more direct objects connected by وَ or أَوْ then, if the first is in a superficial annexation then the second may either be in the i-case or the a-case. For example

(283) هذا ضاربُ زيدٍ وعمرٍو/وعمرًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/81]
«This [person] is beating Zayd and Ɛamr»

By the way, if the first direct object is in the a-case, then it is not an annexation and the second direct object would follow in the a-case.

(284) هذا ضاربٌ زيدًا وعمرًا
«This [person] is beating Zayd and Ɛamr»

Superficial annexation with a overt doer

Consider an doer participle that has a overt doer and is governing a direct object thus:

(285) مررت برجل ضارب أبوه زيدا [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/458]
«I passed by a man whose father [was] beating Zayd.»

If we wish to use a superficial annexation, then the doer participle can only be annexed to its direct object and not to its doer. So we can say:

(286) مررت برجل ضارب زيد أبوه [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/74]
«I passed by a man whose father [was] beating Zayd.»
(Remember from section (ref) above that the word order ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَبُوهُ is permissible.)

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We cannot say:

(287) × مررت برجل ضارب أَبِيهِ زيدا [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 10/359]

28.12. The doer participle with a pronoun as its direct object

When the doer participle governs a direct object that is a pronoun, there is considerable variation seen

One possibility is is to separate the doer participle from its done-to pronoun using the prefix إِيَّا, thus:

(288) ضَارِبٌ إِيَّاكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/434]
« beating you »

(289) الضَارِبُ إِيَّاكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/434]
« the beater of you »

(290) الضَارِبُونَ إِيَّاهُ [Wright 2/67A]
« the beaters of me »

The second possibility, and by far the more common usage, is to use a superficial annexation, thus:

(291) ضَارِبُكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/434]
« beating you »

(292) الضَارِبُكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/434]
« the beater of you »

(293) الضارِبِي [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/135]
« the beater of me »

(294) الضارباتِي [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/135]
« the beaters$_{f}$ of me »

When the doer participle has a overt doer, then it will follow the attached pronoun, thus:

(295) هَذَا ضَارِبِي أَبُوهُ
« This [person] – his father is beating me. »

For the dual and sound *ūn* plural in a superficial annexation, the ن of the suffix is regularly deleted. So we will say:

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(296) هذان ضارباك [1/196 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]
«These two are beating you.»
(from ضاربان)

(297) هؤلاء ضاربوك [1/196 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]
«These [persons] are beating you.»
(from ضاربون)

(298) الضارِباك [2/135 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«the two beaters of you»
(from الضاربان)

(299) الضارِبوك [2/135 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«the beaters of you»
(from الضاربون)

(300) ضارِبايَ [2/135 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«the two beaters of me»
(from الضاربَان)

(301) الضارِبَيَّ [2/135 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«the two beaters of me»
(from الضاربَيْن)

(302) الضارِبِيَّ [2/135 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«the beaters of me»
(from الضاربِين and الضاربون)

Occasionally a ن is inserted between the doer participle annexe and the pronoun annexed-to. This would permit words like: ضَارِبُنِي, الضَّارِبُونِي, etc. For example:

(303) فَهَلْ أَنْتُمْ صَادِقُونِي فِيهِ [24] [11291: الكبرى للنسائي]
«So will you tell me the truth about it?»

It seems that this usage did not make its way to Standard Classical Arabic. But some grammarians permit this usage by poetic license, or as a rare usage.[25]

28.13. The object participle as a verb-like governor

https://shamela.ws/book/17116/3534

[24] also narrated as صَادِقِيَّ in صحيح البخاري :3169

[25] See for more details شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/44; النحو الوافي 1/285; شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/137; Wright 2/67AB

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28.14. The static adjectival noun as a verb-like governor

الأشباه والنظائز: ذكر ما افترق فيه الصفة المشبهة واسم الفاعل
https://shamela.ws/book/13301/1472
https://shamela.ws/book/13301/582#p1
https://shamela.ws/book/9985/799

28.15. The doer of a deverbal noun that fulfils the role of the info

In our discussion of the doer of deverbal nouns, we have consistently stated that the doer of a deverbal noun is not a indispensable element. This is because the deverbal noun, which has a doer, is typically already part of an existing sentence. See example (236) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ أَبُوهُ عَمْرًا above.

However, there is one special kind of sentence where that the doer of a deverbal noun *is* a indispensable element.

Before presenting this special *doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info* sentence, we will first give some background. Consider the sentence:

(304) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

In example (304) above, زَيْدٌ is the subject and قَائِمٌ is its info.

We can rearrange the word order to front the info thus:

(305) قَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ
«Standing, Zayd is.»

This fronted info will be common in negative and question sentences. For example:

(306) أَقَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/257B]
«Is Zayd standing?»

(307) مَا قَائِمَةٌ هِنْدٌ [Wright 2/257B]
«Hind is not going»

Now we come to the special doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info sentence:

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In negative and question sentences like examples (306) and (306) above, the deverbal noun can be analyzed as a subject, and its following doer will fulfil the role of the info.

So, in examples (306) and (306) above, قَائِمٌ can be considered a subject زَيْدٌ and can be its doer that fulfils the role of the info. Now, you might be thinking: what is the reason for this strange doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info analysis?

Why can't we just consider قَائِمٌ a fronted info and زَيْدٌ the backed subject?

The answer is that we can indeed consider قَائِمٌ a fronted info and زَيْدٌ the backed subject as one option. But, as another option, the doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info analysis allows us to keep the deverbal noun in the singular for dual and plural subjects. So we can say:

(308) أَقَائِمٌ الزَّيْدَانِ
«Are the two Zayds standing?»

(309) مَا ذَاهِبَةٌ الْهِنْدَاتُ
«The Hinds are not going»

Sentences (308) and (309) are legitimate, but are only permitted for negative and question sentences.[26] If it is not a negative or question sentence, then the doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info construction is not permitted. So the following are not correct as complete sentences:

(310) × قَائِمٌ الزَّيْدَانِ
«The two Zayds are standing.»

(311) × ذَاهِبَةٌ الْهِنْدَاتُ
«The Hinds are going»

This is because the deverbal noun قَائِم cannot govern the overt doers الزَّيْدَانِ and الْهِنْدَاتُ without the government support that is provided by being in a negative or question sentence.

So when it is not a negative or question sentence, then only the fronted info construction is permitted and the info will typically match the backed subject in number and gender. For example:

(312) قَائِمَانِ الزَّيْدَانِ
«Standing, the two Zayds are.»

(313) ذَاهِبَاتٌ الْهِنْدَاتُ
«Going, the Hinds are.»

[26] Some grammarians did not require this condition based on the sentence خَبِيرٌ بَنُو لِهْبٍ. For details on the dispute, see أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/191 footnote 3.

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The fronted info construction is also permitted, as an option, even for negative and question sentences. For example:

(314) أَقَائِمَانِ الزَّيْدَانِ
«Are the two Zayds standing?»

(315) مَا ذَاهِبَاتٌ الْهِنْدَاتُ
«The Hinds are not going»

When the deverbal noun and the doer are both singular, and it is a negative or question sentence, then a double analysis is possible[27]:

i. the fronted info analysis
ii. the doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info analysis

Such is the case in examples (306) أَقَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ and (307) مَا قَائِمَةٌ هِنْدٌ above.
Here are some more examples of doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info sentences:

(315) هَلْ مَضْرُوبٌ بَنُوكَ [Wright 2/257C]
«Are your sons beaten?»
(بَنُو is a deputy doer.)

(316) أَرَاغِبٌ أَنتَ عَنْ ءَالِهَتِى يَـٰٓإِبْرَٰهِيمُ [سورة مريم 19:46 cited by Wright 2/257D]
«Have you no desire for my gods, O Abraham?»
(A double analysis is reportedly possible, but the doer-that-fulfils-the-role-of-the-info analysis is preferred.[28])

(317) خَلِيلَيَّ مَا وَافٍ بِعَهْدِي أَنْتُمَا [Wright 2/257D]
«My two friends, you are not keeping my promise.»

(318) أَمُنْجِزٌ أَنْتُمْ وَعْدًا وَثِقْتُ بِهِ [Wright 2/257D]
«Are you fulfiling a promise that I put my trust on?»

28.16. The maṣdar as a verb-like governor

https://shamela.ws/book/36130/1479#p1
مسألة الفرق بين اسم الفاعل والمصدر في العمل - كتاب ما لم ينشر من الأمالي الشجرية - ابن الشجري
الدرر السنية

[27] Wright 2/258A
[28] See البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة مريم 19:46

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Chapter 29.

The maṣdar

> ⚠ Warning
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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29.1. Introduction

Consider the example:

(319) ذَهَابُ زَيْدٍ
«Zayd's going»

The noun ذَهَاب «going» is the maṣdar of the verb ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ «to go».

Like the verb ذَهَبَ يَذْهَبُ, the maṣdar ذَهَاب signifies the action of going. But unlike the verb, the maṣdar does not include tense. So it doesn't say when the action of going happened or will happen.

The maṣdar is classified as a primitive noun, not a deverbal noun. In other words, in terms of grammatical theory, it is not considered to be derived from the verb. (Rather, the verb is considered to be derived from the maṣdar.)

Also the maṣdar is not a adjectival noun. Technically, this would put it in the category of entity nouns. But because the maṣdar signifies the action of a verb, and not an actual entity, it is an abstract entity noun, not a concrete entity noun. In fact, we will treat it in a category of its own. We will see, if Allāh wills, that the maṣdar can cross over to a concrete entity noun and then refer to an entity.

29.2. The maṣdar as a verb-like governor in an annexation

As a noun which is related to a verb, a maṣdar can govern in a verb-like manner. Let's start with a sentence which has a verb:

(320) يسرني أن تأتي

أَنْ in the above example is that maṣdari أَنْ. This means that, as we learned in chapter (ref), it and its following verb can be interpreted as a maṣdar construction, thus:

(321) يسرني إتيانك

We also learned that this interpretation of the maṣdari أَنْ clause in example () above allows us to grammatically model the أَنْ clause as one structural element. In example () above the maṣdar construction إتيانك is modeled as the doer of the verb يسر.

But example () is also a legitimate sentence in its own right. The maṣdar إتيان signifies the occurrence of the verb أتى يأتي. But unlike the verb, it does not indicate tense. If we had started with a SC verb, for example:

(322) يسرني أن أتيت

then it would have the same modeled maṣdar:

(323) يسرني إتيانك

In order to add tense to sentence with maṣdar, we would have to use other means, for example, an adverb:

(324) يسرني إتيانك غدا

(325) يسرني إتيانك أمس

In example () above, the maṣdar إتيان is a annexe in an annexation. Syntactically, the pronoun ك is in the i-case as the annexed-to in the annexation, but semantically, it is considered the doer of the. maṣdar إتيان.

In example () above the verb تأتي was used without a direct object. Let's see what happens when we add a direct object. For example:

(326) يسرني أن تأتيني

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In example () above, the pronoun ي me is the direct object of the verb تأتي. If we model the أَنْ clause in example () above as a maṣdar construction, then we will get:

(327) يسرني إتيانك إِيَّايَ

Now, the pronoun ك « your » is again the syntactic annexed-to and the semantic doer of the maṣdar إتيان. But the maṣdar now also has a direct object إِيَايَ in the a-case.

The maṣdar in an annexation governing a u-case doer

Here is another example of a maṣdar governing a semantic doer and a direct object:

(328) عَجِبْتُ مِنْ شُرْبِ زَيْدٍ الْعَسَلَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/102]

But this is not the only word order which is possible. We can flip the order of the doer and the direct object, thus:

(329) عَجِبْتُ مِنْ شُرْبِ الْعَسَلِ زَيْدٌ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/102]

Now the semantic direct object العسل is the annexed-to in the i-case and the doer زيد is in the u-case.

This word order of the direct object's being the annexed-to and the doer occurring after it in the u-case (شُرْبِ الْعَسَلِ زَيْدٌ) is not as usual as the usual word order (شُرْبِ الْعَسَلِ زَيْدٌ).[1] Nevertheless, it is common enough.[2]

The maṣdar in an annexation governing only a direct object without a doer

The doer of the maṣdar need not be mentioned. In this case, the maṣdar is a annexe noun to its sementic direct object directly. For example:

(330) مَنَعَهُمْ مِنْ قَوْلِ الْحَقِّ [Wright 2/57C]
« He hindered them from saying the truth. »

Sometimes, context would be needed to tell whether the annexed-to is the semantic doer or the sementic direct object. For example:

(331) عجبت من ضرب زيد [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/70]

In example () above, زيد may either have been the person who did the beating or the person who was beaten.[3] Context would be needed to disambiguate.

[1] Wright 2/59B
[2] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/103
[3] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/70

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The maṣdar governing a deputy doer

Just like the maṣdar can govern a doer in the u-case it can similarly govern a deputy doer. For example:

(332) سَرَّنِي إِعْطَاءُ الدَّنَانِيرِ الْفَقِيرُ [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/109]
«The giving of the dīnārs to the poor-one made me happy.»

The maṣdar governing multiple direct objects

The maṣdar can govern multiple direct objects just like its verb. For example:

(333) عَرَفْتُ إِعْطَاءَكَ الْفَقِيرَ دِرْهَمًا [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/109]

(334) عَرَفْتُ إِعْلَامَكَ خَالِدًا جَعْفَرًا مُقِيمًا [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/109]

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29.2.0.1. The maṣdar in a annexation to an adverb of time/place

The adverb of time/place, like a ;mafulb, is considered a done-to. As such, it can be a annexed-to to a governing maṣdar. Any doer and/or direct objects will then occur after it in their respective syntactic cases. For example:

(335) عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبِ اليَوْمِ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/103]
«I wondered at today's beating [by] Zayd [to] Ɛamr»

A attribute to a governing maṣdar in an annexation

A maṣdar which is governing a governee (like a doer or a direct object) can be described by a attribute, but that attribute should occur after the maṣdar's governees.[4] For example, we should not say:

(336) × عرفت سوقك العنيف الإبل [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/108]
«I knew your harsh driving of the camels»

We should say instead:

(337) عرفت سوقك الإبل العنيف

[4] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/188; شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/108

A attribute to the governee of a maṣdar in an annexation

When the maṣdar is governing a doer or a direct object in an annexation, and that governee is to be described by a attribute, then the attribute may, optionally, be either in the i-case, or in the u-case for the doer and the a-case for the direct object.[5] So we can say:

(338) عجبت من شرب زيد الظريف والظريف [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/104]

(339) عَجِبْتُ مِنْ أَكْلِ الطَّعَامِ الْحَارِّ/الْحَارَّ زَيْدٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/189]
«I wondered at the eating of the hot food [by] Zayd»

A conjunction to the governee of a maṣdar in an annexation

When the maṣdar is governing a doer or a direct object in an annexation, and that governee is followed by a conjunction and post-conjunction, then the post-conjunction may, optionally, be either in the i-case, or in the u-case for the doer and the a-case for the direct object.[6] So we can say:

(340) سَاءَنِي إِهْمَالُ سَعِيدٍ وَخَالِدٍ/خَالِدٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/189]

(341) كَرِهْتُ أَكْلَ الْخُبْزِ وَاللَّحْمِ/اللَّحْمَ [Wright 2/58A]
«I disliked eating the bread and the meat.»

(342) سَاءَنِي ضَرْبُ خَالِدٍ وَسَعِيدٍ/سَعِيدًا خَلِيلٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/189]

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29.3. The tanwīned maṣdar as a verb-like governor

In section (ref) above, we have seen how the maṣdar governing in an annexation. However, an annexation is not the only form in which a maṣdar can govern in a verb-like manner. A maṣdar can also govern when it is tanwīned. For example:

(343) عَجِبتُ مِن ضَرْبٍ زيدا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94; كتاب سيبويه 1/189]

(344) عجبتُ مِن ضَرْبٍ زيداً بكرٌ [كتاب سيبويه 1/189]

(345) عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبِ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا [modified from كتاب سيبويه 1/189; Wright 2/59A]

[5] أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 2/189; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/104–105; Wright 2/59C
[6] أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 2/189; Wright 2/57D-58A

(346) أَوۡ إِطۡعَٰمٌ فِي يَوۡمٍ ذِي مَسۡغَبَةٍ ﴿١٤﴾ يَتِيمًا ذَا مَقۡرَبَةٍ ﴿١٥﴾ [سورة البلد 90:14–15, cited by شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/115]
«Or feeding on a day of severe hunger An orphan of near relationship»

(347) بضرب بالسيوف رؤوس قوم [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94; Wright 2/57C]
«by striking, with the swords, the heads of a people»

The tanwīned maṣdar governing a doer and a direct object is comparatively rarer than the maṣdar governing in a annexation.[7] Some grammarians mandate that when a tanwīned maṣdar is a governor then its doer should not be mentioned after it.[8] So they would allow example (343) above but not examples (344) and (345).

29.4. The maṣdar prefixed by ال as a verb-like governor

In addition to the maṣdar governing in an annexation and when tanwīned, the maṣdar can also govern when it is prefixed by ال. This is the rarest out of the three formations.[9]

(348) عجبت من الضرب زيدا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94]

(349) ضَعِيفُ النِّكَايَةِ أَعْدَاءَهُ [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/116; Wright 2/57D]
«weak in harming his enemies»

(350) فلم أنكُلْ عن الضَّرْبِ مسْمِعا [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/116; Wright 2/57D]
«and I did not desist from beating Mismaɛ»

29.5. The maṣdar as a verb-like governor compared to the doer participle

We have already seen, in chapter (ref), that the doer participle is also a noun that is related to a verb, and that can govern in a verb-like manner. But the maṣdar and the doer participle are different in how they govern a doer and a direct object.

[7] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94; Wright 2/59B
[8] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/75
[9] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94

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Firstly, the maṣdar is a primitive noun. So it does not govern a latent doer pronoun. When the maṣdar is governing a direct object without a doer as in example () مَنَعَهُمْ مِنْ قَوْلِ الْحَقِّ then, no latent doer pronoun is taqdīred.

Secondly, when the maṣdar is governing in an annexation, (for example عَجِبْتُ مِنْ ضَرْبِ زَيْدٍ عَمْرًا) then this annexation is real, not superficial.[10] However, when the doer participle is governing in an annexation, then the annexation is superficial (see section (ref)).

Thirdly, the doer participle not prefixed by ال only governs in a verb-like manner when it has an imperfective meaning. The maṣdar on the other hand can govern for both a perfective and imperfective meaning. For example:

(351) عجبت من ضربك زيدا أمس/غدا/الآن [modified from شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/94]

The maṣdar as a verb-like governor does have one similarity to the governing doer participle. And that is that both their doers are not the leaned-against element of a new sentence. So, for example, in the sentence:

(352) عَجِبْتُ مِنْ شُرْبِ الْعَسَلِ زَيْدٌ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/102]

the doer زَيْد does not form an inner sentence with the maṣdar شُرْب. Rather, the maṣdar شُرْب, as a single-word element, is in the i-case, governed by the preposition مِنْ.

An exception to the doer of a maṣdar not being a leaned-against element, and also to the maṣdar not governing a latent doer pronoun, is when the maṣdar occurs as the deputy to a verb. For example:

(353) ضربا زيدا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/93]
«Hit Zayd!»

The maṣdar as a deputy to a verb will be covered in more detail in section (mmutlaq), if Allāh wills.

TODO: Add to mmutlaq chapter

29.6. The maṣdar governing an indirect object

wright 2/61

[10] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للحازمي 71/9

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29.7. The maṣdar governing a direct object with a strengthening-لِ

wright 2/61D

29.8. An intervening word in the annexation

29.9. The mīmi maṣdar

29.10. The manufactured maṣdar

29.11. The one-time noun

29.12. The noun of manner

29.13. The entity noun→maṣdar crossover

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The entity noun→maṣdar crossover is a concrete entity noun that crosses over to be used like a maṣdar. Examples:

entity noun→maṣdar crossover	verb	actual maṣdar
سَلَام «peace»	السَّلَامُ عَلَيْكُمْ «to say» سَلَّمَ يُسَلِّمُ (عَلَى to s.o.)	تَسْلِيم
عَطَاء «a gift»	أَعْطَى يُعْطِي «to give»	إِعْطَاء
كَلَام «a speech»	كَلَّمَ يُكَلِّمُ «to speak» «(to» ه «s.o.)»	تَكْلِيم
كَلَام «a speech»	تَكَلَّمَ يَتَكَلَّمُ «to speak»	تَكَلُّم
قُبْلَة «a kiss»	قَبَّلَ يُقَبِّلُ «to kiss (» ه «s.o.)»	تَقْبِيل

entity noun→maṣdar crossover	verb	actual maṣdar
عَذَاب «a punishment»	عَذَّبَ يُعَذِّبُ «to punish (ه s.o.)»	تَعْذِيب
حِمْل «a load»	حَمَلَ يَحْمِلُ «to carry (ـهـ s.th.)»	حَمْل
عِشْرَة «association»	عَاشَرَ يُعَاشِرُ «to consort (with ه s.o.)»	مُعَاشَرَة

The entity noun→maṣdar crossover originally signifies the meaning of a concrete entity noun.[11] So, for example the maṣdar تَكْلِيم signifies the action of speaking to someone, and the entity noun→maṣdar crossover كَلَام signifies the concrete entity noun «speech». But the entity noun→maṣdar crossover, once it crosses over to a maṣdar, can signify the action of the verb, just like the actual maṣdar. As such, it can even govern in a verb-like manner.[12] So we can say:

(354) بِعِشْرَتِكَ الْكِرَامَ تُعَدُّ مِنْهُمْ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/100]
«By your associating with the generous-ones you will be reckoned [as one] amongst them.»
(الْكِرَام is in the a-case as the direct object of the entity noun→maṣdar crossover عِشْرَة.)

(355) وَبَعْدَ عَطَائِكَ الْمِائَةَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/99]
«And after your giving of the one hundred (camels)»
(الْمِائَة is in the a-case as the direct object of the entity noun→maṣdar crossover عَطَاء.)

(356) قَالُوا كَلَامُكَ هِنْدًا وَهِيَ مُصْغِيَةٌ يَشْفِيكَ [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 2/435]
«They said "Your speaking to Hind while she is giving ear will cure you."»
(هِنْد is in the a-case as the direct object of the entity noun→maṣdar crossover كَلَام.)

29.14. The maṣdar→entity noun crossover

Just like the entity noun→maṣdar crossover crosses over from a entity noun to a maṣdar, the maṣdar→entity noun crossover crosses over form a maṣdar to a entity noun. Here are some examples[13]

[11] معاني النحو 3/164–167
[12] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/101
[13] mostly taken from دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 129ff

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maṣdar→entity noun crossover	plural	verb
عِلْم «a science»	عُلُوم	عَلِمَ يَعْلَمُ «to know»
عَقْل «an intellect»	عُقُول	عَقَلَ يَعْقِلُ «to make sense (هـ of s.th.)»
عَمَل «a deed»	أَعْمَال	عَمِلَ يَعْمَلُ «to work»
ظَنّ «a conjecture»	ظُنُون	ظَنَّ يَظُنُّ «to conjecture»
صَوْت «a sound»	أَصْوَات	صَاتَ يَصُوتُ «to make a sound»
مَعِيشَة «a livelihood»	مَعَايِش	عَاشَ يَعِيشُ «to live»
عَقْد «a contract»	عُقُود	عَقَدَ يَعْقِدُ «to enter into a contract»
وَعْد «a promise»	وُعُود	وَعَدَ يَعِدُ «to promise»
عِدَة «a promise»	عِدَات	وَعَدَ يَعِدُ «to promise»
مَوْعِد/مَوْعِدَة «a promise»	مَوَاعِد	وَعَدَ يَعِدُ «to promise»
تَضْعِيف «a double»	تَضَاعِيف	ضَعَّفَ يُضَعِّفُ «to double (هـ s.th.)»
تَجْرِبَة «a trial, experiment»	تَجَارِب	جَرَّبَ يُجَرِّبُ «to try (ه s.o., هـ s.th.)»

As you can see, once a maṣdar crosses over to a entity noun, it can, and often does, have a plural.

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29.14.1. Plurals of maṣdar→entity noun crossovers

As you can see, most of the maṣdar→entity noun crossovers in the table above are from stem 1 verbs. There are relatively fewer from stem 2 verbs. Most form broken plurals. All the plurals above are amongst those that are attested usage from Classical Arabic.

Most maṣdars are not attested to have plurals from Classical Arabic. For example, perhaps we may not find the maṣdar اسْتِعْمَال (from the verb اسْتَعْمَلَ يَسْتَعْمِلُ) to have the its plural as attested usage in Classical Arabic. This has led some grammarians to restrict plurals of maṣdars to only those recorded from attested usage.[14]

After the era of native Classical Arabic, when SCA became the language of science and literature, new terms and meanings were added to the language and used with their technical meanings. Many of these new terms are maṣdar→entity

[14] جمع المصدر وأحكامه لحياني 96; دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 138

noun crossovers and they are often from higher stem verbs. Here are some examples[15]

maṣdar→entity noun crossover	plural	verb
اسْتِعْمَال « a use »	اسْتِعْمَالَات	اسْتَعْمَلَ يَسْتَعْمِلُ « to use (هـ s.th.) »
احْتِمَال « a possible interpretation »	احْتِمَالَات	احْتَمَلَ يَحْتَمِلُ « to bear a meaning (of a text) »
اعْتِقَاد « a creed »	اعْتِقَادَات	اعْتَقَدَ يَعْتَقِدُ « to believe (a creed) »
إِشْكَال « a textual difficulty »	إِشْكَالَات	أَشْكَلَ يُشْكِلُ « to be difficult (of a text) »
تَعْرِيف « a definition »	تَعْرِيفَات	عَرَّفَ يُعَرِّفُ « to define (هـ s.th.) »
تَفْسِير « an explanation »	تَفَاسِير	فَسَّرَ يُفَسِّرُ « to explain (هـ s.th.) »
حَذْف « a deletion »	حُذُوف	حَذَفَ يَحْذِفُ « to delete (هـ s.th.) »

Work in progress

Because of the need to pluralize technical terms, some scholars have permitted that new maṣdar→entity noun crossovers can be pluralized without restriction.[16]

As you can see, many of these maṣdar→entity noun crossovers are from higher stem verbs. Since, broken plurals are not easily formed from words with many letters, the *āt* plural is preferred for these maṣdar→entity noun crossovers. The maṣdar pattern تَفْعِيل of stem 2 فَعَّلَ verbs can easily form a plural on the pattern تَفَاعِيل, but even for new maṣdar→entity noun crossovers on this pattern, the *āt* plural often tends to be in current usage.

Remember, however, from section (ref), that there are conditions that should be satisfied in order for a word to have a *āt* plural. So if a maṣdar→entity noun crossover does not end with ة and has fewer than five letters than we may prefer to form a broken plural than a *āt* plural. Nevertheless the *āt* plural may be more common in actual usage. For example: بَيَان « a statement », plural: أَبْيِنَة, بَيَانَات. [17]

[15] mostly taken from دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي, 141–142 جمع المصدر وأحكامه لحياني, 99–100

[16] دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 129ff

[17] دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 147–151

29.14.2. The ability of maṣdar→entity noun crossovers to govern in a verb-like manner

The default for concrete entity nouns is that they will not govern in a verb-like manner. But a maṣdar→entity noun crossover, even though it has crossed over to a entity noun, its maṣdar origin retains some influence. Because of this, we do sometimes find a maṣdar→entity noun crossover governing in a verb-like manner. This is most apparently visible in the plural of a maṣdar→entity noun crossover. For example:

(357) وجرّبوه فما زادتْ تجاربُهم أبا قدامةَ إلّا الحزمَ والقَنَعا [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 107]
«And they tried him, but their tryings of Abū Qudāmah did not increase but [his] resolve and contentment»
(The plural maṣdar→entity noun crossover تَجَارِب is governing أَبا in the a-case as a direct object.)

29.15. The maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover

A maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover is a maṣdar that crosses over to be used like a adjectival noun. For example, the maṣdar عَدْل of the verb عَدَلَ يَعْدِلُ «to act justly» is used as a adjectival noun to mean «just». Similarly, the maṣdar رِضًى of the verb رَضِيَ يَرْضَى «to be pleased» is used as a adjectival noun to mean «pleasing». Here is an example sentence:

(358) هذا رجلٌ عدلٌ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/238]
«This is a just man.»

When a maṣdar is used as a adjectival noun, then, normally, it is not feminized, dualized or pluralized, regardless of the number or gender of the described noun. So we will say:

(359) مررت برجل عدل أو رضي [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 3/176]

(360) مررت بامرأتين رضي [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 3/176]

(361) مررت برجلين عدل [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 3/176]

(362) مررت برجال عدل [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 3/176]

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Sometimes, a particular maṣdar is used very often as a adjectival noun. Then, exceptionally, it is feminized and pluralized.[18] Such is the case with the maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover عَدْل. So we can (optionally) say:

(363) امرأة عدلة [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 3/176]

(364) نساء عدلات [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 3/176]

(365) قوم عدول [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 3/176]

Also, excepted from the restriction of not being pluralized is a maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover which ends with a ة. This is readily pluralized with a *āt* plural. For example ثِقَة « trustworthy ». So we can say:

(366) رِجَالٌ ثِقَاتٌ
« trustworthy men »

29.16. The maṣdar used figuratively to describe a concrete entity noun

Along the same lines as the maṣdar→adjectival noun crossover we sometimes see a maṣdar used figuratively to describe a concrete entity noun. For example:

(367) ترتع ما رتعت حتى إذا ادّكرت فإنما هي إقبال وإدبار [معاني النحو 1/193]
« [The she-camel] pastures at pleasure until she remembers [her offspring], then she is only (the act of) approaching and withdrawing. »

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[18] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/238

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Chapter 30.

The dependence of the preposition

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> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

30.1. Dependence vs government

In the Arabic grammatical model, in order to bring a dispensable caseful element into a sentence, a suitable element of the original sentence must act as governor of the new dispensable element. For example, consider the sentence:

(368) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا
«Zayd beat Ɛamr.»

In example (368) above, the basic sentence, with only indispensable elements is ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ. The caseful noun عَمْرًا is a direct object, which is a dispensable element. And it can only be added to the basic sentence because it is governed by the verb ضَرَبَ.

Prepositions are particles, not caseful elements. But they can only be added to sentence when they are *dependent on* a verb, or a verb-like element, like a maṣdar, doer participle, etc.. Consider the sentence:

(369) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ
«I passed by Zayd.»

In example (369) above, the preposition بِ (or the entire prepositional phrase بِزَيْدٍ) is dependent on the verb مَرَّ. And we will say that the verb مَرَّ is the *dependee* of the preposition (or prepositional phrase).

In this sense, a prepositional phrase can be treated like pseudo-caseful dispensable element. And the verb it is dependent on, its dependee, can (loosely) be considered its governor.[1] This similitude between dependence and government can be seen in the following example:

(370) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَعَمْرًا [2]
[composed from شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/300]
«I passed by Zayd and Ɛamr.»

In example (370) above, the preposition ب is dependent on the verb مَرَّ. And once it is added, the second done-to عَمْرو can (optionally) be added as a direct object (in the a-case). So we can say that the prepositional phrase بِزَيْدٍ is like a pseudo-direct object, And that the verb مَرَّ governs the prepositional phrase بِزَيْدٍ in the a-case.[3]

Of course the more usual مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَبِعَمْرٍو and مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَعَمْرٍو are also permitted.

30.2. Prepositions not needing a dependee

What we have just said regarding a preposition requiring a dependee is true of *essential* prepositions. An essential preposition is that which, by its addition, gives a distinctly new meaning to the sentence. They are also used to connect an indirect done-to to its governing verb. The preposition ب in (369) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ is an example of an essential preposition.

There also exist *non-essential* prepositions. These merely give emphasis to an existing meaning in the sentence. Non-essential prepositions do not need a dependee. Here is an example of a non-essential preposition:

(371) ما جاء من رجلٍ [استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني]
«Not a man came.»

The preposition مِنْ only emphasizes the meaning of the sentence. If we drop it the basic meaning would remain the same:

[1] النحو الوافي 2/437; معاني النحو 3/116; See also Owens, *The foundations of grammar* 177

[2] Not all grammarians permit this. See استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني footnote 34 for details.

[3] See also Kasher, "The term *al-fiʿl al-mutaʿaddī bi-ḥarf jarr*" §3.1 124 citing ابن جني; النحو الوافي 2/439; Owens, *The foundations of grammar* 176 citing المبرد, ابن جني, الزجاجي.

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(372) ما جاء رجلٌ [استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني]
«Not a man came.»

By the way, مِنْ happens to be a non-essential preposition in the example above. But it may be an essential preposition in other sentences. For example:

(373) خَرَجَ زَيْدٌ مِنَ ٱلْبَيْتِ
«Zayd came out from the house.»

30.3. Valid dependees of the preposition

The preposition is usually dependent on a verb, as in example (369) above. Besides the verb, the preposition can also be dependent on verb-like nouns. Such nouns include:

The ism_fi3l
For example:

(374) نَزَالِ فِي الْبَاخِرَةِ [النحو الوافي 2/440]
«Descend into the steamship!»
The preposition فِي is dependent on the ism_fi3l نَزَالِ.

The maṣdar
For example:

(375) السُّكُوت عَنِ السَّفِيهِ جَوَابٌ [النحو الوافي 2/440]
«Being quiet with the foolish one is an answer.»
The preposition عَنْ is dependent on the maṣdar السُّكُوت.

The one-time noun, noun of manner, mīmi maṣdar, and manufactured maṣdar are also included in this category.[4]

The deverbal nouns
The deverbal nouns include the doer participle, object participle, static adjectival noun, etc. Here are some examples:

(376) أَنا سَائِرٌ فِي الطَّرِيقِ [النحو معاني 3/113]
«I am travelling in the path.»
The preposition فِي is dependent on the doer participle سَائِر.

[4] النحو الوافي 2/440 footnote 1

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(377) فَرِحِينَ بِمَآ ءَاتَىٰهُمُ ٱللَّهُ مِن فَضۡلِهِۦ [3:170 سورة آل عمران]
«Rejoicing in what Allāh has bestowed upon them of His bounty.»
The preposition بِ is analyzed to be dependent on the static adjectival noun فَرِحِينَ.[5]

By the way, one of the conditions that allow deverbal nouns (not defined by ال) to govern a a-case governee is that they must signify an imperfect (progressive or future) aspect, not a perfect aspect (see Section 28.5). So, for example, we cannot say:

(378) × هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَمْسِ [3/106 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«This [person] beat Zayd yesterday.»

However, in the case of a preposition being dependent on a deverbal noun, it seems that it can do so with a perfect aspect. For example:

(379) أَتَانِي اللَّيْلَةَ آتِيَانِ فَابْتَعَثَانِي، فَانْتَهَيْنَا إِلَى مَدِينَةٍ مَبْنِيَّةٍ بِلَبِنِ ذَهَبٍ وَلَبِنِ فِضَّةٍ [صحيح البخاري :4674]
«Two [persons] came to me last night (in my dream) and they took me. We came to a city built with gold bricks and silver bricks.»
مَبْنِيَّة has a perfective aspect, yet بِ is dependent on it.

Similarly, in the āyah:

(380) أَتَعۡلَمُونَ أَنَّ صَٰلِحٗا مُّرۡسَلٞ مِّن رَّبِّهِۦۚ [7:75 سورة الأعراف]
«Do you [actually] know that Ṣāliḥ is sent from his Lord?»

the preposition مِنْ is analyzed to be dependent on the object participle مُرْسَلٌ.[6]

Some deverbal nouns do not govern a a-case governee, like the noun of time and the noun of place. However, some grammarians still allowed prepositions to be dependent on them.[7] Others disagreed and did not permit them to do so.[8] Examples:

The noun of time

(381) انقضى مسعاك لتأييد الحق [2/440 النحو الوافي]
«Your [period of] effort for aiding the truth has ended.»

[5] 3:170 سورة آل عمران for الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي
[6] 7:75 سورة الأعراف for الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي
[7] 2/443 حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك citing 2/440 النحو الوافي
[8] 2/209 الخصائص لابن جني

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The noun of place

(382) رأيت مدخلك إلى الدار [حاشية الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 2/443]
«I saw your [place of] entrance to the house.»

A primitive noun when used metaphorically

A preposition may also be dependent on a non-deverbal noun if it is used methaphorically with an adjectival meaning. For example:

(383) هُوَ أَسَدٌ فِي الْمَعْرَكَةِ [معاني النحو 3/113]
«He is a lion in the battle.»
The preposition فِي is dependent on أَسَدٌ because it means «brave» here.

30.4. Multiple prepositions dependent on the same dependee

Multiple prepositions, as long as they are different, can all be dependent on the same dependee with no problem. For example:

(384) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ فِي ٱلْبَادِيَةِ
«I passed by Zayd in the desert.»

In example (384) above, both فِي and بِ are dependent on the verb مَرَّ.

If the multiple prepositions are the same, then in general they may not be dependent on the same dependee.[9] So we can't say:

(385) × مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ بِعَمْرٍو [شرح التصريح وحاشية ياسين 1/378]
«I passed by Zayd by Ɛamr.»
(although, separting the second preposition with a conjunction is of course allowed: مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَبِعَمْرٍو.)

But if the same preposition is used with different meanings then it is permissible for them all to be dependent on the same dependee. For example:

(386) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ بِٱلْبَادِيَةِ [شرح التصريح وحاشية ياسين 1/378]
«I passed *by* Zayd *in* the desert.»

If the first preposition restricts the verb, and the second preposition is applied after the verb has been restricted, then too may the multiple same prepositions be used.[10] For example:

[9] النحو الوافي 2/444 footnote 3
[10] النحو الوافي 2/444 footnote 3

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(387) كُلَّمَا رُزِقُواْ مِنۡهَا مِن ثَمَرَةٖ رِّزۡقٗا [سورة البقرة 2:25]
«Whenever they are provided with a provision of fruit therefrom»
(The first مِنْ restricts the dependee verb رُزِقُوا to ٱلْجَنَّات «the gardens». And the second مِنْ is restricted to «the fruit of the gardens.»[11])

30.5. A meaningful connection between the preposition and its dependee

In order for a prepositional phrase to be dependent on a dependee, there needs to be a meaningful connection between them.[12]

Consider the following example:

(388) شَبَّهْتُ خَالِدًا وَهُوَ يَجُودُ بِمَالِهِ بِٱلْبَحْرِ [معاني النحو 3/131]
«I likened K͡hālid, while he (was) being generous with his wealth, with the ocean.»
(The و in وَهُوَ يَجُودُ is translated as «while». See section (ref).)

In the above example, the prepositional phrase بِٱلبَحْرِ «with the ocean» is meaningfully connected to the verb شَبَّهَ «to liken» not with the verb يَجُودُ «to be generous». Therefore, the prepositional phrase بِٱلبَحْرِ, is dependent on the verb شَبَّهَ, not the verb يَجُودُ.

Similarly, the prepositional phrase بِمَالِهِ «with his wealth» is meaningfully connected to the verb يَجُودُ «to be generous», not with the verb شَبَّهَ «to liken». Therefore, the prepositional phrase بِمَالِهِ, is dependent on the verb يَجُودُ, not the verb شَبَّهَ.

Here is another example:

(389) ٱلۡيَوۡمَ يَئِسَ ٱلَّذِينَ كَفَرُواْ مِن دِينِكُمۡ [سورة المائدة 5:3 cited by معاني النحو 3/131]
«This day those who disbelieve have despaired of [defeating] your religion;»

In the above example, the prepositional phrase مِنْ دِينِكُمْ "of your religion is meaningfully connected to the verb يَئِسَ «to despair», not with the verb كَفَرَ «to disbelieve» Therefore, the prepositional phrase مِنْ دِينِكُمْ is dependent on the verb يَئِسَ, not the verb كَفَرَ.[13]

[11] الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة البقرة 2:25
[12] معاني النحو, 3/131–133 النحو الوافي, 2/442D–445
[13] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة المائدة 5:3

Work in progress

30.6. The intransitive verb with a preposition: the indirect done-to

In theory, prepositions impart their own meanings.[14] And there is no restriction on which prepositions may be used with a given governing verb (or verbal noun), as long as the prepositional phrase be meaningfully connected with its governor.[15]

The following examples show a possible set of prepositions that are meaningfully governed by the verb ٱنْصَرَفَ «to turn around, leave»:

(390) ٱنْصَرَفَ إِلَىٰ مَصْنَعِهِ [النحو الوافي 2/161]
«He left to his workplace.»

(391) ٱنْصَرَفَ مِنَ ٱلْمَصْنَعِ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِهِ [النحو الوافي 2/161]
«He left from the workplace to his house.»

(392) ٱنْصَرَفَ ٱلْعَالِمُ عَنِ ٱلْهَزْلِ [النحو الوافي 2/161][16]
«The scholar left off joking.»

(393) ٱنْصَرَفَ فِي سَيَّارَتِهِ [النحو الوافي 2/161]
«He left in his caravan.»

Having said that, in practice, certain verbs are more meaningfully connected with certain prepositions, sometimes almost to the exclusion of others.[17] For example, the verb أَقْسَمَ «to swear» requires the preposition بِ in order to transit to what is being sworn by.[18] For example,

(394) أقسم بالله [أسرار العربية للأنباري 203]
«I swear by Allāh»

The combination of a verb and its governed preposition can even acquire a specific meaning. Consider, for example, the verb وَجَدَ. It's basic meaning is «to find». It may be used with prepositions like بِ, عَلَىٰ, فِي with this basic meaning. For example:

(395) وَجَدْتُ ٱلْكِتَابَ بِجَهْدٍ
«I found the book with effort.»

(396) وَجَدْتُ ٱلْكِتَابَ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ
«I found the book in the house.»

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[14] Kasher, "The term *al-fiʕl al-mutaʿaddī bi-ḥarf jarr*" §2.7 124
[15] النحو الوافي 2/161
[16] See also لَمَّا كَانَ يَوْمَ أُحُدٍ انْهَزَمَ النَّاسُ عَنِ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 4064]
[17] Kasher, "The term *al-fiʕl al-mutaʿaddī bi-ḥarf jarr*" §3.3
[18] Kasher, "The term *al-fiʕl al-mutaʿaddī bi-ḥarf jarr*" §3.3 129 citing ابن الأنباري

(397) وَجَدْتُ ٱلْكِتَابَ عَلَى ٱلْخِزَانَةِ
«I found the book on the cupboard.»

But this verb also has specific meanings when used with these prepositions and certain indirect done-tos (albeit possibly with different maṣdars). For example:

(398) وَجَدَ عَلَيْهِ [Lane: root وجد]
«He was angry with him.»

(399) وَجَدَ بِهَا [Lane: root وجد]
«He loved her.»

(400) قَدْ وَجَدَ فِي نَفْسِهِ عَلَيَّ [صحيح مسلم: 1649b]
«he may have some feelings against me»

In such cases, the preposition almost seems to lose some of its independent meaning. Instead, the meaning of the expression is obtained from the combination of the verb with the prepostion.

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30.7. General existence

Consider the sentence:

(401) زَيْدٌ فِي ٱلدَّارِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/211]
«Zayd is in the house.»

We mentioned in section (ref) above, that a preposition needs to be dependent on a verb (or a verb-like noun). But we find no such dependee in the sentence above. So how then can the preposition فِي be justified?

In order to remain consistent with the Arabic grammatical model, we taqdīr a dependee. This taqdīred dependee is called *general existence*.

In the Arabic grammatical tradition, general existence is represented by the verb ٱسْتَقَرَّ or its doer participle مُسْتَقِرّ, or by the word كَائِن, which is the doer participle of the verb كَانَ. We will often represent it in translation, when needed, as «being».

Using this representation of general existence, the taqdīr of example (401) above is:

(402) زَيْدٌ [مُسْتَقِرٌّ] فِي ٱلدَّارِ
«Zayd is [being] in the house.»

The word « being » is not really needed in the translation because the verb « is » conveys the same concept. But we have added it to explicate the involvement of general existence in the grammar of the sentence.

Note that taqdīring general existence in a sentence as we did in example (402) above is not same as if the words ٱسْتَقَرَّ « to settle », مُسْتَقِرّ « settled », or كَائِن « being » were actually expressed in surface speech. When expressed in surface speech, they impart their own meaning. For example

(403) زَيْدٌ مُسْتَقِرٌّ فِي ٱلدَّارِ
« Zayd is settled in the house. »

When using ٱسْتَقَرَّ, مُسْتَقِرّ, and كَائِن to represent general existence, we only do so because we need some words to express this concept and these words give a meaning which is near enough (see Section 26.7.2.2). In fact, according to the prevalent opinion among the grammarians, general existence can only be taqdīred.[19] If one of these (or any other) words is actually expressed, then it will impart a specific meaning, not the meaning of general existence. Having said that, some grammarians did permit general existence to be expressed in surface speech.[20]

30.8. General existence as the info of a sentence

The taqdīr of general existence in the sentence in example (401) زَيْدٌ فِي ٱلدَّارِ solves another problem for us. The preposition is a dispensable element. So if we remove it (and the following i-case noun ٱلدَّار) from the sentence, we should still be left with a complete sentence. Let's try doing that:

(404) زَيْدٌ [مُسْتَقِرٌّ]
« Zayd is [being]. »

See how the general existence serves as the indispensable leaning element: the info. If we were to not taqdīr general existence, we would be left with a grammatically incomplete sentence.

We also take this opportunity to explain an apparent inconsistency. Back in chapter (ref), we had said that a prepositional phrase can be the info of a sentence. We now state that, strictly speaking, it is the (taqdīred) dependee of the prepostion

[19] النحو الوافي 1/477
[20] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/211 footnote

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which is the info. But because the actual info is taqdīred and is not expressed, we can say, loosely speaking, that the prepositional phrase is the info.

This approach of applying a terminological label differently when loosely speaking vs when strictly speaking is common.[21] We will see other examples of it in sections (refs) if Allāh wills.

30.9. Other taqdīred dependees besides general existence

While general existence is necessarily taqdīred and never expressed (see section (ref) above), other dependees of prepositions too may be optionally taqdīred. This is done on the condition that that the overall meaning or context supplies the meaning of the taqdīred dependee.[22] For example:

(405) ٱلْحُرُّ بِٱلْحُرِّ [سورة البقرة 2:178 cited by النحو الوافي 2/447]
«the free for the free»

In the above example, the info has been analyzed as the taqdīred dependee يَقْتَصُّ «is retributed against» or يُقْتَلُ «is killed». So the taqdīr of example (405) is:

(406) الحُرُّ يَقْتَصُّ أوْ يُقْتَلُ بِالحُرِّ [تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة البقرة 2:178]
«the free is retributed against, or killed, for the free.»

30.10. The prepositional phrase as a attribute

Consider the sentence

(407) رأيتُ طائرًا على الغصن [استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني]
«I saw a bird on the branch.»

Now the logical assumption is that the bird was on the branch, not that I was seeing on a branch. So this means that the preposition عَلَىٰ is not meaningfully connected with the verb رَأَىٰ. Therefore, عَلَىٰ cannot be dependent on رَأَىٰ.[23] So what then is the dependee the preposition عَلَىٰ.

[21] النحو الوافي 1/215, 2/118, 2/442
[22] النحو الوافي 2/447 footnote
[23] استيفاء حالات تعلق الجار والمجرور و الظرف وأثره في المعنى لعلي هاني

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Here again, we use general existence, as if to say:

(408) رأيتُ طائرًا [مُسْتَقِرًّا] على الغصن
«I saw a bird [being] on the branch.»

The preposition عَلَىٰ is dependent on general existence [مُسْتَقِرًّا]. General existence is also a attribute to the direct object طَائِرًا. But because the taqdīred general existence is not expressed, we may say, loosely speaking, that the prepositional phrase is the attribute.

In order for a prepositional phrase to be a attribute, its attributed-to will usually be an indefinite noun, like طَائِرًا is in example (407) above. In the case where the prepositional phrase occurs after a definite noun, (like in رأيتُ ٱلطائر على الغصن) it will typically be analyzed as a ḥāl. We will discuss this in more detail in chapter (ref) section (ref) if Allāh wills.

Here are some more examples of prepositional phrases as attributes:

(409) كَمَثَلِ جَنَّةٍۭ بِرَبْوَةٍ [سورة البقرة 2:265]
«like a garden on high ground»
(بِرَبْوَةٍ is analyzed as a attribute.[24])

(410) رَبَّنَا وَٱبْعَثْ فِيهِمْ رَسُولًا مِّنْهُمْ [سورة البقرة 2:129]
«Our Lord, and send among them a messenger from themselves»
(مِنْهُمْ is analyzed as a attribute.[25])

When a prepositional phrase is, loosely speaking, a attribute, it is typically dependent on general existence.[26]. However, it is conceivable that the dependee of the preposition be analyzed, if not formally, then at least in meaning, as some other verb (or verb-like noun).[27] For example:

(411) فِى تِسْعِ ءَايَـٰتٍ إِلَىٰ فِرْعَوْنَ وَقَوْمِهِۦٓ [سورة النمل 27:12]
«[These are] among the nine signs [you will take] to Pharaoh and his people.»

In one interpretation of the above āyah, the prepositional phrase إِلَىٰ فِرْعَوْنَ «to Pharoah» has been analyzed as a attribute of ءَايَاتٍ «signs». The taqdīr is:

(412) وَاصِلَةٌ إِلَى فِرْعَوْنَ[28] [التبيان في إعراب القرآن للعكبري 2/1005]
«*arriving* to Pharoah»

[24] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة البقرة 2:265
[25] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة البقرة 2:129
[26] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/213, أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 2/285
[27] النحو الوافي 2/447 footnote
[28] But see also الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة النمل 27:12 where this interpretation is critiqued.

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Here is another example:

(413) فَزَادَتْهُمْ رِجْسًا إِلَىٰ رِجْسِهِمْ [سورة التوبة 9:125]
«it has [only] increased them in evil [in addition] to their evil»

In the above āyah, the prepositional phrase إِلَىٰ رِجْسِهِمْ «to their evil» has been analyzed as attribute of رِجْسًا «evil». The taqdīr is:

(414) كُفْرًا مَضْمُومًا إِلَىٰ كُفْرِهِمْ [الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة التوبة 9:125]
«in disbelief *in addition* to their disbelief»

30.11. The word-order for different categories of attributes

TODO

When a attributed-to is described by more than one attribute and النحو الوافي 3/496

30.12. The prepositional phrase in other functions

Besides the info and the attribute a prepositional phrase may also occur as a ḥāl and a connecting sentence.[29] We will cover these two remaining topics in their respective chapters in sections (ref) and (ref) respectively.

30.13. Word order of the preposition and its dependee

A prepositional phrase may freely precede its dependee.[30] This may be done for a number of purposes:

[29] النحو الوافي 2/441–442
[30] النحو الوافي 2/444A

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To limit and particularize the effect of the dependee to the noun following the preposition.[31]

For example:

(415) وَمِنْهُ تَفَجَّرُ أَنْهَارُ الْجَنَّةِ [صحيح البخاري: 2790]
«and from it originate the rivers of Paradise»

(416) وَعَلَى ٱللَّهِ فَلْيَتَوَكَّلِ ٱلْمُؤْمِنُونَ [سورة آل عمران 3:122 cited by معاني النحو 3/121]
«and upon Allāh the believers should rely.»

For drawing attention to the noun following the preposition[32]

(417) وَٱللَّهُ بِمَا تَعْمَلُونَ خَبِيرٌ [سورة آل عمران 3:180 cited by معاني النحو 3/123]
«And Allāh, of what you do, is [fully] Aware.»

(418) أَلِهَـٰذَا جَمَعْتَنَا [صحيح البخاري: 4770]
«Is it for *this* (that) you have gathered us?»

(419) وَبِٱلْأَسْحَارِ هُمْ يَسْتَغْفِرُونَ [سورة الذاريات 51:18]
«And in the hours before dawn they would ask forgiveness»
(The prepositional phrase بِٱلْأَسْحَارِ is placed not just before its dependee in the info يَسْتَغْفِرُونَ, but also before the subject هُمْ.)

The placement of preposition (and also the adverbs of time and place (section ref)), is especially flexible compared to other governees.[33] Even when the placement of the governees of a governor might be restricted in general, a license is often given to prepositions. For example, we saw in section (ref), that when a doer participle is prefixed with ال, then its governees may not precede it. So for example, we cannot say × هذا زيدا الضارب. We have to say instead ✓ هذا الضارب زيدا. But an exception is made for the preposition which is dependent on the doer participle. So we can say:

(420) أنا لك المرافق [النحو الوافي 3/263]
«I am, for you, the travelling companion.»

We will see, in sections (refs) if Allāh wills that the governee, in this case, are permitted to be placed where other types of governees are not.

TODO: Add content to:

- إِنَّ and its sisters: ibn_aqil 1/278 fn; 1/349
- كَانَ and its sisters كان زيد آكلا طعامك
- Ḥijāzi مَا: sharh uthaymeen 22/4 (مكا بي أنت معينا)

[31] معاني النحو 3/121
[32] معاني النحو 3/121
[33] شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/289D–290A

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Chapter 31.

The verb كَانَ

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Work in progress

31.1. Introduction

We have learned that a verb must have a doer in the u-case and can have a direct object in the a-case. In this chapter, we will learn about a new type of verb, whose doer is called its subject, and whose direct object is called its info.

The principal verb of this type is كَانَ which is used to mean “was”. There are other verbs which behave in a similar manner and they are called the *sisters* of كَانَ.

31.2. كَانَ as a deficient verb

In chapter (gov), we learned that a verbal sentence is formed from a verb and its doer. The verb constitutes the leaning element and its doer constitutes the leaned-against element. For example:

(421) قَامَ زَيْدٌ
« Zayd stood up. »

In example (421) above قَامَ is the leaning element and زَيْدٌ is the leaned-against element.

Most verbs behave in this manner. They are termed *sufficient* verbs because the verb contains sufficient meaning to be the leaning element by expressing some property about its doer (the leaned-against element).

There are some verbs, however, that do not contain sufficient meaning to be the leaning element of a sentence. These verbs are termed *deficient* verbs. For such verbs, the verb's direct object is needed to complete the meaning of the sentence. The verb كَانَ, which means "« was »", is one such verb. If we say كَانَ زَيْدٌ « Zayd was » then the meaning is, in general, incomplete. The listener would be left wondering, « Zayd was what? » So, in order to complete the meaning of the sentence, we have to add a direct object for كَانَ. For example:

(422) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا [Peled, *Sentence types* 171]
« Zayd was standing »

Now the sentence is structurally complete.

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31.3. A كَانَ sentence as a nounal sentence and a verbal sentence

The fact that كَانَ is not a indispensable element of its sentence also changes the classification of the sentence from the perspective of sentence completion. The leaned-against element in example (422) زَيْدٌ needs a leaning element to complete the sentence. Because the verb كَانَ does not complete the meaning of the sentence, therefore it cannot be the leaning element. The sentence becomes structurally complete when we add the direct object قَائِمًا.[1] Therefore, the direct object قَائِمًا is the leaning element.

So indispensable elements in example (422) become زَيْدٌ (the leaned-against element) and قَائِمًا (the leaning element). These two are nouns, not a verb and its doer. Therefore, from the perspective of sentence completion, the sentence is reclassified as a nounal sentence, not a verbal sentence (see @3amal-refine_defs).[2] زَيْدٌ is considered the subject, and قَائِمًا is considered the info. However, for other purposes, the sentence may still be considered a verbal sentence. (See Section 41.6.3, for example.)

Although كَانَ is not a indispensable element anymore, it still governs both indispensable elements. Therefore, it is the foundational government of the sentence (see section (ref)).

The diagram below depicts the government of example (422).

[1] The a-case governee of كَانَ is considered a direct object according to the classification of the Baṣrans. The Kūfans considered the a-case governee of كَانَ its ḥāl. See شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/137

[2] See also Peled, *Sentence types* 171

DIAGRAM

31.4. Conjugation table for كَانَ

كَانَ is a hollow verb. Here is its conjugation table for easy reference:

Doer pronoun	SC verb	u-case PC verb	a-case PC verb	ø-case PC verb
he	كَانَ	يَكُونُ	يَكُونَ	يَكُنْ
she	كَانَتْ	تَكُونُ	تَكُونَ	تَكُنْ
you$_{1m}$	كُنْتَ	تَكُونُ	تَكُونَ	تَكُنْ
you$_{1f}$	كُنْتِ	تَكُونِينَ	تَكُونِي	تَكُونِي
I	كُنْتُ	أَكُونُ	أَكُونَ	أَكُنْ
they$_{2m}$	كَانَا	يَكُونَانِ	يَكُونَا	يَكُونَا
they$_{2f}$	كَانَتَا	تَكُونَانِ	تَكُونَا	تَكُونَا
you$_{2}$	كُنْتُمَا	تَكُونَانِ	تَكُونَا	تَكُونَا
they$_{3m}$	كَانُوا	يَكُونُونَ	يَكُونُوا	يَكُونُوا
they$_{3f}$	كُنَّ	يَكُنَّ	يَكُنَّ	يَكُنَّ
you$_{3m}$	كُنْتُمْ	تَكُونُونَ	تَكُونُوا	تَكُونُوا
you$_{3f}$	كُنْتُنَّ	تَكُنَّ	تَكُنَّ	تَكُنَّ
we	كُنَّا	نَكُونُ	نَكُونَ	نَكُنْ

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Here are some examples showing some of the different conjugations:

(423) كَانَتْ زَيْنَبُ جَائِعَةً
« Zaynab was hungry. »

(424) كَانَ ٱلْغُلَامُ زَيْدًا
« The boy was Zayd. »

(425) كَانَتِ ٱلنِّسَاءُ فِي بُيُوتِهِنَّ
« The women were in their houses. »

(426) كَانُوا مَسْرُورِينَ وَفَرِحِينَ
« They$_{3m}$ were happy and rejoicing. »

(427) كُنْتُ نَائِمَةً
« I$_{1f}$ was sleeping. »

(428) كُنْتَ لِي أَخًا
« You$_{1m}$ were a brother to me. »

31.5. Word order of كَانَ, its subject, and its info

Verb, subject, info

In sentence word order, the natural sequence is verb, subject, info.

429) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/100B]
« Zayd was standing. »

Verb, info, subject

The sequence verb, info, subject is also permissible.

(430) كَانَ قَائِمًا زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/100B]
« Zayd was standing. »

Info, verb, subject

So is the sequence info, verb, subject:

(431) قَائِمًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/100B]
« Zayd was standing. »

This last order is common in questions and alternative sentence sentences.[3] For example:

(432) أَقَائِمًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ
« Was Zayd standing? »

(433) أَكْرِمْ الضَّيْفَ غَنِيًّا كَانَ أَوْ فَقِيرًا [Wright 2/100B]
« Honor the guest, be he rich or poor. »

Sometimes, however, this inversion is impossible because of an indistinguishable case of the two nouns.

For example, in order to express « My brother was my companion, » we must say:

(434) كَانَ أَخِي رَفِيقِي [Wright 2/100C]
« My brother was my companion. »

[3] Wright 2/100B

Work in progress

This is because, if we invert it, it would naturally mean:

(435) كَانَ رَفِيقِي أَخِي [Wright 2/100C]
«My companion was my brother.»

Subject, verb, info

What about the sequence: subject, verb, info? For example:

(436) زَيْدٌ كَانَ قَائِمًا
«Zayd – he was standing.»

Remember that a verb must be followed by its doer. So this is actually a compound sentence. زَيْدٌ is the subject of the outer sentence. And the info of the outer sentence is the inner sentence كَانَ قَائِمًا. The subject of كَانَ is a latent pronoun, implicated a [هُوَ].

Word order when كَانَ's info has a a-case governee

We know from chapter (ref) that a deverbal noun can have a done-to. The natural word order is for this done-to to occur after its governor, thus:

(437) كَانَ زَيْدٌ آكِلًا طَعَامَكَ [الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي 2/59]
«Zayd was eating your food.»

Other word orders are also possible. We will discuss the different combinations below:

(438) Basic order: كَانَ زَيْدٌ آكِلًا
(a) ✓ كَانَ زَيْدٌ آكِلًا طَعَامَكَ
(b) ✓ كَانَ زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ آكِلًا
(c) ✓ طَعَامَكَ كَانَ زَيْدٌ آكِلًا
(d) × كَانَ طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ آكِلًا

(439) Basic order: كَانَ آكِلًا زَيْدٌ
(a) ✓ كَانَ آكِلًا طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ
(b) ✓ كَانَ آكِلًا زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ

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(c) ✓ طَعَامَكَ كَانَ آكِلًا زَيْدٌ

(d) × كَانَ طَعَامَكَ آكِلًا زَيْدٌ

(440) Basic order: آكِلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ

(a) ✓ آكِلًا طَعَامَكَ كَانَ زَيْدٌ

(b) ✓ طَعَامَكَ آكِلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ

(c) ✓ آكِلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ

(d) × آكِلًا كَانَ طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ

As you can see, only three of the combinations are disallowed.[4] And in all three كَانَ is separated from its subject (زَيْدٌ) by the governee (طَعَامَكَ) of its info (آكِلًا).

Even some of these disallowed combinations become permitted if the governee of the info of كَانَ is not a direct object but a preposition or an adverb of time and place. Recall from section (ref) that the word order of prepositions and adverbs of time and place is especially flexible. So we can say:

(441) كَانَ عِنْدَكَ زَيْدٌ مُقِيمًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/280]
«Zayd was, at your place, staying.»

(442) كَانَ فِيكَ زَيْدٌ رَاغِبًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/280]
«Zayd was, of [your favour], desirous»

Some of the combinations above, though allowed, are considered ungainly by some grammarians[5], like (440) (3) آكِلًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ. But again, if the governee of the info of كَانَ is not a direct object but a preposition or an adverb of time and place, then there is no problem. For example:

(443) مُسَافِرًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ الْيَوْمَ [همع الهوامع للسيوطي 1/432]
«Journeying Zayd was today»

(444) رَاغِبًا كَانَ زَيْدٌ فِيكَ [همع الهوامع للسيوطي 1/432]
«Desirous Zayd was, of [your favour]»

Word order of a compound sentence when كَانَ's info has a a-case governee

The subject can made to precede كَانَ, such that it becomes a compound sentence:

[4]There is some difference of opinion regarding the permissibility of some of the combinations. See شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/280; الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي 2/59; همع الهوامع للسيوطي 1/432.

[5]همع الهوامع للسيوطي 1/432

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(445) زَيْدٌ كَانَ آكِلًا طَعَامَكَ [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي]

Now the subject of كَانَ is a latent pronoun [هُوَ]. Since this latent pronoun is attached to كَانَ, the info آكِلًا's governee طَعَامَك can no longer come between كَانَ and its subject. Now all twelve combinations are permissible.[6], Here is a sampling out of them:

(446) (a) طَعَامَكَ زَيْدٌ كَانَ آكِلًا [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي]

(b) زَيْدٌ طَعَامَكَ آكِلًا كَانَ [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي]

(c) طَعَامَكَ آكِلًا زَيْدٌ كَانَ [2/59 الأشباه والنظائر للسيوطي]

31.6. Negation of كَانَ

TODO

31.7. A pronoun as the info of كَانَ

When a pronoun is the info of كَانَ, then it may optionally be attached to كَانَ or separated using the prefix إِيَّا.

Examples:

(447) إِنْ يَكُنْهُ فَلَنْ تُسَلَّطَ عَلَيْهِ وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكُنْهُ فَلاَ خَيْرَ لَكَ فِي قَتْلِهِ [صحيح مسلم: 2930a cited by 1/231 شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك]
«If he is he (i.e. the Dajjāl), you would not be able to overpower him, and if he is not he there is no good for you in killing him»

(448) الصَّدِيقُ كُنْتَهُ [1/114 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام]
«The friend – you are he.»
(الصَّدِيقُ كُنْتَ إِيَّاهُ is also permitted.[7])

(449) كَانَهُ زَيْدٌ [1/114 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام]
«Zayd was he.»

For the other sisters of كَانَ it is preferred that the pronoun be separated using the prefix إِيَّا. An attached pronoun for the other sisters is rare.[8]

[6] inferred from 1/433 همع الهوامع للسيوطي
[7] 1/275 النحو الوافي, 1/104 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية
[8] 2/245 التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان

Work in progress

31.8. A separating-pronoun between the subject and info of كَانَ

TODO

(450) كَانَ زَيْدًا هُوَ الْقَائِمَ

النحو الوافي 1/249

31.9. A maṣdari ʾan as the subject or info of كَانَ

Recall from chapter (ref) that the clause of a maṣdari ʾan is equivalent to a maṣdar, which is a noun. Consider the following example:

(451) ثُمَّ لَمْ تَكُن فِتْنَتُهُمْ إِلَّآ أَن قَالُواْ وَٱللَّهِ رَبِّنَا مَا كُنَّا مُشْرِكِينَ [البسيط cited by 6:23 سورة الأنعام لابن أبي الربيع 714]

« Then there will be no [excuse upon] examination except they will say, “By Allāh, our Lord, we were not those who associated.” »

The clause أَنْ قَالُوا is equivalent to قَوْلُهُمْ « their saying ». Due to this equivalence to a noun, a maṣdari ʾan can be the subject or the info of كَانَ. For the āyah in example (451), فِتْنَة is read in both the u-case (فِتْنَتُهُمْ) and the a-case (فِتْنَتَهُمْ) in different recitations.[9] So the أَنْ قَالُوا clause is analyzed as the subject of كَانَ when فِتْنَة is read in the a-case as the info. and it is analyzed as the info of كَانَ when فِتْنَة is read in the u-case as the subject.

In general, a maṣdari ʾan will be more likely to be the subject because is is considered more definite.[10]

31.10. A complete sentence as the info of كَانَ

So far we have seen examples where the info of كَانَ is a single noun in the a-case. In example (437) كَانَ زَيْدٌ آكِلًا طَعَامَكَ the info of the كَانَ is the noun آكِلًا. The info

[9] 6:23 سورة الأنعام for القراءات العشر من الشاطبية والدرة --- دار الصحابة

[10] 3:147 سورة آل عمران for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي ;715 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع

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آكِلًا is governing a latent doer pronoun [هُوَ] and the direct object طَعَامَكَ, but still, the info itself is a single noun, not a complete sentence.

Here is another example:

(452) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 662]
«Zayd was setting out.»

In example (452) above the info of كَانَ is the noun مُنْطَلِقًا.

In section (ref), we learned that the info of a nounal sentence can be a complete sentence. So, the info of كَانَ can be a complete sentence. For example:

(453) كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَبُوهُ مُنْطَلِقٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 692]
«Zayd – his father was setting out.»
(literally: «Zayd was – his father is setting out.»)

In example (453), the info of كَانَ is the complete sentence أَبُوهُ مُنْطَلِقٌ «His father is setting out». As we stated in section (ref), when the info is a sentence, then internally it is governed independently with its own foundational government. So كَانَ has no governing effect *within* the info sentence.[11] The inner sentence زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ has its own internal government with زَيْدٌ as the subject and مُنْطَلِقٌ as the info. That is why مُنْطَلِقٌ is in the u-case and not in the a-case.

The entire info sentence أَبُوهُ مُنْطَلِقٌ in in place of a a-case noun as the info of كَانَ.

Here are some more examples of كَانَ with a sentence as its info:

(454) كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَخُوهُ ضَاحِكٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 692]
«Zayd – his brother was laughing.»

(455) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهُ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 692]
«Zayd – setting out, his father was.»
(literally: «Zayd was – setting out, his father is.»)

In example, (455) above, the sentence info is مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهُ. مُنْطَلِقٌ is the fronted info and أَبُوهُ is the subject. Although this sentence is grammatically correct, we will see in the next section that a sababi info is more likely to be used instead.

When كَانَ has a info that is a complete sentence, then the info of the inner sentence will match its subject in number and gender. For example:

(456) كَانَ الزَّيْدَانِ أَبَوَاهُمَا حَسَنَانِ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 693]
«The two Zayds – their fathers [were] handsome.»

(457) كَانَ الزَّيْدَانِ حَسَنَانِ أَبَوَاهُمَا [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 693 footnote 3]
«The two Zayds – handsome, their fathers [were].»
(fronted info.)

[11] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 683

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(458) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ حَسَنُونَ آبَاؤُهُمْ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 693 footnote 3]
« The Zayds – handsome, their fathers [were]. »
(sound plural as the fronted info.)

(459) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ حِسَانٌ آبَاؤُهُمْ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 693 footnote 3]
« The Zayds – handsome, their fathers [were]. »
(broken plural as the fronted info.)

31.11. A state-of-affairs pronoun as the subject of كَانَ

كَانَ may have a state-of-affairs pronoun as its subject. And the info of كَانَ will be an inner sentence. For example

(460) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 745]
« [The state of affairs] was – Zayd is standing. »

In example (460) above, the subject of كَانَ is a latent state-of-affairs pronoun [هُوَ]. And the info of كَانَ is the inner sentence زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ « Zayd is standing ». Compare example (460) with example (422) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا, where the subject of كَانَ is زَيْدٌ. And the info of كَانَ is the single element قَائِمًا.

Similarly, if the subject of the inner sentence is a feminine noun, then the state-of-affairs pronoun subject of كَانَ is typically feminine, thus:

(461) كَانَتْ هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 745]
« [The state of affairs] was – Hind is standing. »

By the way, although the gender of the state-of-affairs pronoun usually matches the gender of the subject of its info, it is possible for it to mismatch.[12] (We also mentioned this in section (ref).)

In practice, usage of the state-of-affairs pronoun in sentences like example (460) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ is uncommon, but nevertheless existent.[13] Instead the construction in example (422) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا is far more likely to be used. But, as we will see in sections (ref) and (ref), if Allāh wills, when the info of كَانَ is a verbal sentence, then the state-of-affairs pronoun is very commonly used as the subject of كَانَ.

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[12] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 745, 746 footnote 1

[13] See the analysis of the reading فَكَانَ أَبَوَاهُ مُؤْمِنَانِ in البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الكهف 18:80

31.12. كَانَ with a sababi info

Consider again example (455) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهُ. Instead of using a sentence info, we can reconstruct the sentence to have مُنْطَلِقًا to be the info of كَانَ, and have أَبُوهُ as the doer of the doer participle مُنْطَلِقًا, thus:

(462) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبُوهُ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 692]
«Zayd – his father was setting out.»

This is a sababi info construction. (See section (ref) for an introduction to the sababi info.) The info of كَانَ in example (462) above is not a complete sentence. Rather, it is the single element مُنْطَلِقًا. A sentence with a sababi info like (462) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبُوهُ will be preferred over a sentence with a fronted info like (455) كَانَ زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ أَبُوهُ.[14]

When كَانَ has a sababi info, then, as mentioned in section (ref), it generally remains singular regardless whether its doer is dual or plural. So we get:

(463) كَانَ الزَّيْدَانِ مُنْطَلِقًا أَبَوَاهُمَا
«The two Zayds – their fathers [were] setting out.»

(464) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ مُنْطَلِقَةً جَدَّاتُهُمْ
«The Zayds – their grandmothers [were] setting out.»

But if the info has a broken plural, then it is permitted (and in fact preferred) to be used.[15]

(465) كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ حِسَانًا آبَاؤُهُمْ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 693]
«The Zayds – their fathers [were] handsome.»

31.13. كَانَ with a prepositional or adverbial info

It is possible for the info of كَانَ to be a prepositional or adverbial info. For example:

(466) كَانَ زَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 682]
«Zayd was in the house.»

(467) كَانَ مُحَمَّدٌ عِنْدَكَ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 682]
«Muḥammad was at your place.»

[14] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 694
[15] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 693

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In such cases, the info of كَانَ is technically the implication of *general beingness* [مُسْتَقِرًّا] (see section (ta3alluq)). The implicated general beingness governs the preposition/adverb. The preposition or adverb is not directly governed by كَانَ.[16]

31.14. كَانَ as a sufficient verb

As we mentioned in section (ref) above, the verb كَانَ that we have been using so far is called the *deficient* كَانَ.

There is another type of كَانَ called the *sufficient* كَانَ. This كَانَ has sufficient meaning to not need an info. The meaning that the sufficient كَانَ gives is the meaning of «exists». In English, we usually express this meaning using «there was». For example,

(468) كَانَ مَلِكٌ
«[There] was a king.»
(literally: «A king was.»)

Note that مَلِك «king» is in the u-case as the subject. If it were in the a-case, then it would change the meaning:

(469) كَانَ مَلِكًا
«He was a king.»

When كَانَ is sufficient then it serves as the leaning element. So the sentence is a verbal sentence.

Here is another example of a sufficient كَانَ:

(470) كَانَ تَاجِرٌ وَكَانَ لَهُ بَنُونَ [Wright 2/99D]
«There was a trader, and he had sons.»

Incidentally, in example (470), the past verb of «have»: «had» is expressed using كَانَ with the preposition لِ.

31.15. Significations of the SC verb كَانَ

The general siginification of the SC verb كَانَ is to indicate a state that existed in the past, and that has possibly ceased. For example:

[16] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 682; But see the tafsīrs of أَكَانَ لِلنَّاسِ عَجَبًا [سورة يونس 10:2] for a possible exception to this rule.

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(471) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا
«Zayd was standing.»

This statement is regarding Zayd's state in the past and the implication is that he is possibly no longer standing.

This is the most common signification of the SC verb كَانَ and the one that we have been using so far. But the SC verb كَانَ can admit additional significations[17]:

The second signification of كَانَ is to indicate a state that, at first, had not yet begun, and which then began and remained, possibly up to the present. It has, in this sense, the meaning «became», «has become», or «happened». Examples:

(472) أَبَىٰ وَٱسْتَكْبَرَ وَكَانَ مِنَ ٱلْكَٰفِرِينَ[18] [2:34 سورة البقرة]
«He refused and was arrogant and became of the disbelievers.»

(473) احْتَرَقَ الْخَشَبُ فَكَانَ تُرَابًا
[النحو الوافي 1/548]
«The wood burned and so became dust.»

A third signification of كَانَ is to indicate a state that will be in the future. For example:

(474) وَيَخَافُونَ يَوْمًا كَانَ شَرُّهُۥ مُسْتَطِيرًا [76:7 سورة الإنسان]
«and [they] fear a Day whose evil will be widespread.»

The use of the SC كَانَ here may be to indicate the certainty of the future event.[19]

A fourth signification of كَانَ is to indicate a state that will not cease to be.[20] For example:

(475) وَكَانَ ٱللَّهُ غَفُورًا رَّحِيمًا[21] [4:96 سورة النساء]
«And Allāh is ever Forgiving and Merciful.»

(476) وَلَا تَقْرَبُواْ ٱلزِّنَىٰٓ إِنَّهُۥ كَانَ فَٰحِشَةً وَسَآءَ سَبِيلًا[22] [17:32 سورة الإسراء]
«And do not approach unlawful sexual intercourse. Indeed, it is ever an immorality and is evil as a way.»

See also this narration[23]:

عَنْ سَعِيدٍ قَالَ: قَالَ رَجُلٌ لِابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ إِنِّي أَجِدُ فِي الْقُرْآنِ أَشْيَاءَ تَخْتَلِفُ عَلَيَّ قَالَ: ... وَقَالَ: {وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا رَحِيمًا} عَزِيزًا حَكِيمًا سَمِيعًا بَصِيرًا، فَكَأَنَّهُ كَانَ ثُمَّ مَضَى. فَقَالَ ... {وَكَانَ اللَّهُ

[17] معقع الإسم سؤال وجواب: معنى " كان " في مثل قوله تعالى (وَكَانَ اللَّهُ سَمِيعًا بَصِيرًا)
[18] cited by تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة البقرة 2:34
[19] تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة الإنسان 76:7
[20] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة آل عمران 3:110
[21] cited by البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة آل عمران 3:110
[22] cited by البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الإسراء 17:32
[23] صحيح البخاري 65/41 (معلقا)

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غَفُورًا} سَمَّى نَفْسَهُ ذَلِكَ وَذَلِكَ قَوْلُهُ، أَيْ لَمْ يَزَلْ كَذَلِكَ، فَإِنَّ اللَّهَ لَمْ يُرِدْ شَيْئًا إِلاَّ أَصَابَ بِهِ الَّذِي أَرَادَ، فَلاَ يَخْتَلِفْ عَلَيْكَ الْقُرْآنُ، فَإِنَّ كُلاًّ مِنْ عِنْدِ اللَّهِ.

Translation:

> [On the authority of] Saɛīd, a man said to Ibn Ɛabbās, "Indeed I find in the Qurʾān things that seem to condradict each other to me." He said, "… وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا رَحِيمًا عَزِيزًا حَكِيمًا سَمِيعًا بَصِيرًا. It is as if it was and then it elapsed." [Ibn Ɛabbās] said, "… [regarding] وَكَانَ اللَّهُ غَفُورًا, He attributed that to Himself, and that is [the meaning of] His speech. That is, that his how He has always been. For indeed Allāh did not intend anything except that He was correct in what He intended. So let not the Qurʾān seem contradicting to you, for indeed all [of it] is from Allāh."

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31.16. Significations of the u-case PC verb يَكُونُ

31.16.1. يَكُونُ used for habitual «is»

Consider the sentence, «The mother cooks the food.» The verb «cooks» implies that the action is habitually done, not necessarily that it is being done at present. If we wished to say that the action is being done at present, we might instead say, «The mother *is cooking* the food.» English maintains this distinction between the present and the habitual for most verbs. But it does not for ther verb «is». So if we say, «The sky is blue,» then it can mean both (i) that the sky is blue at present, or (ii) that it is habitually blue, not necessarily that it is blue at present.

In Arabic the situation is somewhat different. Arabic does not usually have a distinction between the present and the habitual for most verbs. So تَطْبُخُ الْأُمُّ الطَّعَامَ may mean both (i) that the mother is cooking the food at present, or (ii) that she habitually does.

But for the verb «is», Arabic can distinguish between the present and the habitual. So if we say السَّمَاءُ زَرْقَاءُ, then this can, in general, mean both (i) that the sky is blue at present, and (ii) that it is habitually blue. If we wish to specify the habitual meaning, we may use the PC verb يَكُونُ, thus:

(477) تَكُونُ السَّمَاءُ زَرْقَاءَ
«The sky is (habitually) blue.»

While we call this the habitual يَكُونُ, it can include a range of meanings, including continually, recurringly, regularly, typically, generally, often, sometimes, can, may, etc. Habitual يَكُونُ is negated using مَا or لَا, just like other u-case PC verbs.

Here are some examples:

(478) قَالَ وَمَا الْبِتْعُ وَالْمِزْرُ؟ قُلْتُ شَرَابٌ يَكُونُ مِنَ الْعَسَلِ وَالْمِزْرُ يَكُونُ مِنَ الشَّعِيرِ [سنن النسائي :5604]
«He said: 'What is mead and beer?' I said: 'A drink that is from honey, and beer is from barley.'»

(479) إِنَّهَا تَكُونُ الظُّلْمَةُ وَالسَّيْلُ [صحيح البخاري: 667]
«[There] is [at times] darkness and flooding»

31.16.2. قَدْ يَكُونُ for «may be»

When the meaning «may be» is desired, the the PC verb يَكُونُ may be preceded by the particle قَدْ. For example,

(480) قَالَ أَبُو الدَّرْدَاء يَا رَسُولَ اللهِ يَسْرِقُ الْمُؤْمِنُ قَالَ قَدْ يَكُونُ ذَلِكَ [جمع الجوامع للسيوطي: 401-5b][24]
«Abū al-Dardāʾ said, "O Messenger of Allah, Can a believer steal?" He said, "That may be."»

31.16.3. يَكُونُ used for future «will be»

Another usage of the PC verb يَكُونُ is for the future tense to mean «will be». In this case, it is often preceded by سَ or سَوْفَ. سَ and سَوْفَ are optional and are commonly dropped, especially when the context indicates the future. Future يَكُونُ is negated by لَا. Here are some examples:

(481) فَقَدْ كَذَّبْتُمْ فَسَوْفَ يَكُونُ لِزَامًا [سورة الفرقان 25:77]
«For you [disbelievers] have denied, so it [i.e., your denial] is going to be adherent.»

(482) لا يَكونُ اللَّعَّانُونَ شُفَعَاءَ وَلَا شُهَدَاءَ يَومَ القِيَامَةِ [رياض الصالحين: 1553]
«The frequent cursers will be neither intercessors nor witnesses [on] the day of resurrection.»
(يَوْمَ is in the a-case because it is an adverb of time, see chapter @ref(adverb-of-time).)

[24] See https://islamqa.info/ar/answers/264450 for the takẖrīj of this ḥadīṯh.

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(483) يَوْمَ يَكُونُ ٱلنَّاسُ كَٱلْفَرَاشِ ٱلْمَبْثُوثِ [سورة القارعة 101:4]
«It is the Day when people will be like moths, dispersed,»

(484) يَكُونُ فِي آخِرِ الزَّمَانِ دَجَّالُونَ كَذَّابُونَ [صحيح مسلم :7]
«There will be in the end of time charlatan liars»

31.17. Significance of the a-case PC verb يَكُونَ

Like a-case PC verbs in general, يَكُونَ «be» expresses the meaning of purpose, wish, or expectation. It occurs after the particles أَنْ, لَنْ, لِ, كَيْ, حَتَّىٰ, and إِذَنْ. All this is consistent with what we have learned about a-case PC verbs in chapter @ref(a-case-PC-verbs). Here are some examples:

(485) نَزَلَ بِهِ ٱلرُّوحُ ٱلْأَمِينُ. عَلَىٰ قَلْبِكَ لِتَكُونَ مِنَ ٱلْمُنذِرِينَ [سورة الشعراء 26:193–194]
«The Trustworthy Spirit [i.e., Gabriel] has brought it down. Upon your heart, [O Muḥammad] - that you may be of the warners -»

(486) لَّن يَسْتَنكِفَ ٱلْمَسِيحُ أَن يَكُونَ عَبْدًا لِّلَّهِ وَلَا ٱلْمَلَٰٓئِكَةُ ٱلْمُقَرَّبُونَ [سورة النساء 4:172]
«Never would the Messiah disdain to be a servant of Allāh, nor would the angels near [to Him]»

(487) أَفَأَنتَ تُكْرِهُ ٱلنَّاسَ حَتَّىٰ يَكُونُواْ مُؤْمِنِينَ [سورة يونس 10:99]
«Then, [O Muḥammad], would you compel the people in order that they become believers?»

31.18. The ø-case PC verb يَكُنْ

As with other verbs, the ø-case PC verb يَكُنْ is used for negative commands, indirect commands, and with لَمْ for negation, etc. Examples:

(488) وَلْتَكُن مِّنكُمْ أُمَّةٌ يَدْعُونَ إِلَى ٱلْخَيْرِ وَيَأْمُرُونَ بِٱلْمَعْرُوفِ وَيَنْهَوْنَ عَنِ ٱلْمُنكَرِ [سورة آل عمران 3:104]
«And let there be [arising] from you a nation inviting to [all that is] good, enjoining what is right and forbidding what is wrong,1 and those will be the successful.»

(489) ٱلْحَقُّ مِن رَّبِّكَ فَلَا تَكُن مِّنَ ٱلْمُمْتَرِينَ [سورة آل عمران 3:60]
«The truth is from your Lord, so do not be among the doubters.»

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(490) لَمْ يَكُنِ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم سَبَّابًا وَلاَ فَحَّاشًا وَلاَ لَعَّانًا [صحيح البخاري: 6031]
«The Prophet ﷺ was not one who would abuse (others) or say obscene words, or curse (others)»

31.18.1. Deletion of ن

For the ø-case PC conjugations of كَانَ that don't have a و between ك and ن, the ن may optionally be deleted if certain conditions are satisfied. These conjugations are:

- يَكُنْ which becomes يَكْ
- تَكُنْ which becomes تَكْ
- نَكُنْ which becomes نَكْ
- أَكُنْ which becomes أَكْ

These are the conditions, all of whom must be satisfied[25]:

i. The verb is not followed by a sukūn. Examples:

(491) × لَمْ يَكْ الَّذِينَ ...
✓ لَمْ يَكُنِ ٱلَّذِينَ كَفَرُواْ مِنْ أَهْلِ ٱلْكِتَٰبِ وَٱلْمُشْرِكِينَ مُنفَكِّينَ حَتَّىٰ تَأْتِيَهُمُ ٱلْبَيِّنَةُ [سورة البينة 98:1]
«Those who disbelieved among the People of the Scripture and the polytheists were not to be parted [from misbelief]1 until there came to them clear evidence»

(492) × لَمْ يَكْ الرَّجُلُ حَاضِرًا
✓ لَمْ يَكُنِ الرَّجُلُ حَاضِرًا
«The man was not present.»

ii. The verb is not followed by an attached pronoun. Example:

(493) × إِنْ يَكْهُ فَلَنْ ... وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكْهُ ...
✓ إِنْ يَكُنْهُ فَلَنْ تُسَلَّطَ عَلَيْهِ وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكُنْهُ فَلاَ خَيْرَ لَكَ فِي قَتْلِهِ [صحيح مسلم: 2930a]
«If he is he (i.e. the Dajjāl), you would not be able to overpower him, and if he is not he there is no good for you in killing him»

iii. The verb is not at the end of a sentence. Example:

(494) × وَلَمْ أَكْ
✓ وَلَمْ أَكُ بَغِيًّا [سورة مريم 19:20]
«and I have not been unchaste»

[25]Conditions and examples taken from https://github.com/zahidsyed/learning-nahw-analytically

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Here are some more examples which satisfy the conditions so the ن is deleted. Examples:

(495) وَلَا تَكُ فِى ضَيْقٍ مِّمَّا يَمْكُرُونَ [سورة النحل 16:127]
«and do not be in distress over what they conspire.»

(496) وَقَدْ خَلَقْتُكَ مِن قَبْلُ وَلَمْ تَكُ شَيْـًٔا [سورة مريم 19:9]
«for I created you before, while you were nothing»

(497) قَالُوا۟ لَمْ نَكُ مِنَ ٱلْمُصَلِّينَ ﴿٤٣﴾ وَلَمْ نَكُ نُطْعِمُ ٱلْمِسْكِينَ ﴿٤٤﴾ [سورة المدثر 74:43–44]
«They will say, “We were not of those who prayed, Nor did we used to feed the poor.»

(498) أَلَمْ يَكُ نُطْفَةً مِّن مَّنِىٍّ يُمْنَىٰ [سورة القيامة 75:37]
«Had he not been a sperm from semen emitted?»

31.19. The verb of command كُنْ

The verb of command كُنْ is used to mean «Be!». Examples:

(499) قُلْنَا يَنَارُ كُونِى بَرْدًا وَسَلَـٰمًا عَلَىٰٓ إِبْرَٰهِيمَ [سورة الأنبياء 21:69]
We [i.e., Allāh] said, «O fire, be coolness and safety upon Abraham.»

(500) فَقُلْنَا لَهُمْ كُونُوا۟ قِرَدَةً خَـٰسِـِٔينَ [سورة البقرة 2:65]
“and We said to them, ‘Be apes, despised.’

The verb of command كُنْ followed by the name of a person in the a-case is used to express one’s guessing that the person whom one sees is the individual named. For example:

(501) كُنْ أَبَا ذَرٍّ [Wright 2/44C]
«I presume that the person approaching is Abū D͡harr»

(502) كُنْ أَبَا زَيْدٍ [Wright 2/44C]
«I guess that you are Abū Zayd.»

31.20. The SC verb كَانَ combined with a PC verb

In section (ref) above, we mentioned that the info كَانَ can be a complete sentence. The examples we gave were where the info of كَانَ were nounal sentences.

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Instead of a nounal sentence as the info of كَانَ, the info is very often a verbal sentence. كَانَ combined with verbal sentences to express complex tenses. The most common combination is the SC verb كَانَ with a PC verb in its info.

Consider again example (422):

(422) كَانَ زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا [Peled, *Sentence types* 171]
« Zayd was standing »

The info of كَانَ is (as a single element) the doer participle قَائِمًا. Let's try to replace the doer participle قَائِمًا with its PC verb يَقُومُ. We get:

(503) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
« Zayd used to stand. »
(literally: « Zayd was – he stands. »)

When كَانَ is combined with a following PC verb, or its doer participle, it indicates an imperfect action that was occurring in the past. The tense is usually either:

i. Past-continuous (« he was doing »), or
ii. Past-habitual (« he used to do »).

In general, كَانَ with a PC verb can indicate either tense. Whereas كَانَ with a doer participle typically indicates the past-continuous tense. The exact difference in signification between the doer participle and its PC verb is discussed in more detail in chapter (ref).

Let's discuss the grammar of the new sentence (503) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ. The subject of كَانَ is زَيْدٌ. And the info of كَانَ is the complete verbal sentence يَقُومُ « he stands ». The doer of the PC verb يَقُومُ is the latent pronoun [هُوَ] that refers back to the subject زَيْدٌ.

The word order of كَانَ, its subject, and the PC verb

The sequence (كَانَ, subject, PC verb) is a very commonly used word order. But there is also another word order which is also very frequently used. And that is (كَانَ, PC verb, subject). For example:

(504) كَانَ يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ
« Zayd used to stand. »

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There are two methods to anaylyze example (504) above[26]:

The first method is to consider زَيْدٌ the doer of the PC verb يَقُومُ. The sentence يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ «Zayd stands» is then the info of كَانَ. And the subject of كَانَ is a latent state-of-affairs pronoun [هُوَ]. The state-of-affairs pronoun will typically go untranslated in this case.

The second method is to consider زَيْدٌ the subject of كَانَ. The sentence يَقُومُ «he stands» (with a latent doer pronoun) is then the info of كَانَ, but which is made to precede its subject. By the way, it seems that this second method is not used when the subject is dual or plural. This is because we typically always find the PC verb in the singular when it precedes the subject, regardless of whether the subject is singular, dual, or plural. For example:

(505) ✓ كَانَ يَقُومُ الزَّيْدَانِ
× كَانَ يَقُومَانِ الزَّيْدَانِ
«The two Zayds were standing.»

Both word orders (503) كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ and (504) كَانَ يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ. have, more or less, a similar meaning.

But choosing one of two word orders can affect the conjugation of the PC verb for dual and plural subjects. Here is a table that compares conjugations for the two options:

كَانَ يَقُومُ زَيْدٌ	كَانَ زَيْدٌ يَقُومُ
كَانَتْ تَقُومُ هِنْدٌ	كَانَتْ هِنْدٌ تَقُومُ
كَانَ يَقُومُ الزَّيْدَانِ	كَانَالزَّيْدَانِ يَقُومَانِ
كَانَتْ تَقُومُ الْهِنْدَانِ	كَانَتِ الْهِنْدَانِ تَقُومَانِ
كَانَ يَقُومُ الزَّيْدُونَ	كَانَ الزَّيْدُونَ يَقُومُونَ
كَانَتْ تَقُومُ الْهِنْدَاتُ	كَانَتِ الْهِنْدَاتُ يَقُمْنَ

When the subject of كَانَ is a dual or plural pronoun, then it seems that only the (كَانَ, subject, PC verb) is used. And the (كَانَ, PC verb, subject) is unused. For example:

(506) ✓ كَانُوا يَقُومُونَ
× كَانَ يَقُومُونَ
«They were standing.»

[26] For details on the dispute amongst the grammarians on the parsing of this word order, see حاشية الدر المصون للسمين 4/184; التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 2/137; الصبان على شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 9:117 سورة التوبة for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي; مَا كَانَ يَصْنَعُ فِرْعَوْنُ 7:137 for سورة الأعراف for الحلبي مَا كَادَ يَزِيغُ قُلُوبُ فَرِيقٍ مِّنْهُمْ for

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Here are some more examples of كَانَ followed by a PC verb:

كَانَ يَعْبُدُ مُشْرِكُو مَكَّةَ ٱلْأَصْنَامَ

or

كَانَ مُشْرِكُو مَكَّةَ يَعْبُدُونَ ٱلْأَصْنَامَ

« The polytheists of Makkah used to worship idols. »

كَانَتْ تُحِبُّ الصَّدَقَةَ [صحيح البخاري: 1420]

« She used to love [to practice] charity. »

كَانَت تَّأْتِيهِمْ رُسُلُهُم بِٱلْبَيِّنَـٰتِ [سورة التغابن 64:6]

« their messengers used to come to them with clear evidences »

(Sound plurals, even of rational beings, may be treated as grammatically singular feminine. See section @ref(sound-plurals-sing-fem).)

كُنْتُ أَلْعَبُ بِالْبَنَاتِ عِنْدَ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَكَانَ لِي صَوَاحِبُ يَلْعَبْنَ مَعِي [صحيح البخاري: 6130]

« I used to play with dolls in the presence of the Prophet, and I had companions$_f$ playing with me. »

Occasionally, the particle قَدْ precedes the combination of كَانَ and the PC verb. Example:

قَالُوا هَذَا قَدْ كَانَ يَكْتُبُ لِمُحَمَّدٍ [صحيح مسلم: 2781]

« They said, 'This [person] used to transcribe for Muḥammad ﷺ' »

The following PC verb may also be an passive verb. Example:

إِنَّ أُنَاسًا كَانُوا يُؤْخَذُونَ بِالْوَحْيِ فِي عَهْدِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 2641]

« Indeed people were (sometimes) judged (literally: held) by the [revealing of] divine inspiration in the lifetime of the Prophet. »

31.20.1. One كَانَ suffices multiple PC verbs

If the signification of an action ocurring continually in the past applies to more that one PC verb, then it is sufficient to prefix كَانَ to only the first one. Example:

كَانَتْ تَعْمَلُ بِيَدِهَا وَتَصَدَّقُ [صحيح مسلم: 2452]

« She used to work with her hand and spend (that income) on charity. »

(تَتَصَدَّقُ is abbreviated to تَصَدَّقُ. See section @ref(form-5-verbs-abbrev).)

31.20.2. Negation of كَانَ and a PC verb

In order to negate the combination of كَانَ and the following PC verb, multiple options are available. Using يَفْعَلُ as an example PC verb, we can have:

- مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ
- لَمْ يَكُنْ يَفْعَلُ
- كَانَ لَا يَفْعَلُ

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Examples:

مَا كَانَ أَحَدٌ يَبْدَأُ، أَوْ يَبْدُرُ، ابْنَ عُمَرَ بِالسَّلامِ [الأدب المفرد: 982]

«No one preceded or got ahead of Ibn Ɛumar with (giving) the greeting.»

كَانُوا لَا يَتَنَاهَوْنَ عَن مُّنكَرٍ فَعَلُوهُ [سورة المائدة 5:79]

«They used not to prevent one another from wrongdoing that they did.»

لَمْ يَكُونُوا يَسْأَلُونَ عَنِ الإِسْنَادِ [صحيح مسلم: introduction]

«They would not ask about the chains of narration»

In terms of the differences between these constructions مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ imparts more emphasis in the denial than كَانَ لَا يَفْعَلُ.

There is also difference between the options مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ and كَانَ لَا يَفْعَلُ in terms of when one would be used instead of the other.[27]. For example, if someone says to you: «I thought I saw you writing yesterday.» To reply in the negative, you would say: مَا كُنْتُ أَكْتُبُ instead of كُنْتُ لَا أَكْتُبُ to mean «I was not writing.»

The construction مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ is also used when one wishes to say that one never used to do something due to one's circumstances And also to mean that one did not know how to do something in the past. For example,

مَا كُنْتُ أَحْفَظُ شِعْرًا

«I used to not memorize any poetry.»

As for كَانَ لَا يَفْعَلُ, it connotes an intentional or purposeful lack of doing something. Whereas, with مَا كَانَ يَفْعَلُ, the lack of action may be incidental. For example, كَانَ لَا يَقْرَأُ ٱلْقُرْآنَ "He used to not read the Qurʾān imparts that the person was intentionally not doing so. Whereas مَا كَانَ يَقْرَأُ ٱلْقُرْآنَ does not convey the intentionality of the lack of action. For example, the person may not have been reading the Qurʾān because he did not know how to.

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31.20.3. The combination كَانَ يَكُونُ

Occasionally, كَانَ can be combined with its own PC verb يَكُونُ This gives the meaning «was being» or «used to be». يَكُونُ is, in this combination, often optional and may be dropped for no change in meaning. Examples:

كَانَ يَكُونُ فِي مِهْنَةِ أَهْلِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 676]

and

كَانَ فِي مِهْنَةِ أَهْلِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 6039]

«He used to keep himself busy serving his family»

قَدْ كَانَ يَكُونُ فِي الأُمَمِ مُحَدَّثُونَ [جامع الترمذي: 2398]

«There used to be in the nations inspired persons»

رِجَالٌ كَانُوا يَكُونُونَ مَعَ ٱلْمُلُوكِ [Wright 2/21C]

«men that used to be with the kings»

[27] معاني النحو 1/222

كَانَ يَكُونُ فِي ٱلْبَيْتِ [Fischer 107]
«He used to be in the house.»

31.20.4. Possible occurrence

Sometimes كَانَ is used with a PC verb to express an action that could, should, or would have occurred. Examples:

كَانَ يَكُونُ سُوءَ أَدَبٍ [Fischer 108]
«It would have been a misbehavior.»

فَقَالَ حُذَيْفَةُ أَنْتَ كُنْتَ تَفْعَلُ ذَلِكَ [صحيح مسلم: 1788]
«Ḥud͡hayfah said: 'You might have done that.'»

This meaning can also be for the future, for example in a question:

أَيَّ شَيْءٍ كُنْتَ تَصْنَعُ [سنن ابن ماجه: 2606]
«Which thing would you do?»

(507) مَا كُنْتَ صَانِعًا فِي حَجِّكَ [سنن النسائي: 2709]
«What would you do for your Ḥajj?»

31.20.5. Omission of كَانَ

If one or more SC verbs precedes the PC verb or if the context indicates that the action was occurring in the past, then كَانَ can be omitted, and the PC verb is used by itself.[28] For example:

قُلْ فَلِمَ تَقْتُلُونَ أَنۢبِيَآءَ ٱللَّهِ مِن قَبْلُ [سورة البقرة 2:91]
«Say,»Then why did you kill the prophets of Allāh before"
(No كُنْتُمْ before تَقْتُلُونَ.)

وَٱتَّبَعُوا مَا تَتْلُوا ٱلشَّيَـٰطِينُ عَلَىٰ مُلْكِ سُلَيْمَـٰنَ [سورة البقرة 2:102]
«And they followed [instead] what the devils had recited during the reign of Solomon»
(No كَانَتْ before تَتْلُو.)

31.20.6. كَانَ followed by a doer participle or object participle instead of a PC verb

Instead of a PC verb after كَانَ, its doer participle or object participle may be used instead. And this can give the effect of a state of being rather than an action being done. For example:

[28] Wright 2/21C

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كَانَ سَاكِنًا [Wright 2/198A]
«He was dwelling»

كَانَتِ ٱلْعُصِيُّ مَرْكُوزَةً فِي ٱلْأَرْضِ [Wright 2/198A]
«The staffs were sticking in the ground.»
(كَانَتْ تُرْكَزُ would imply that they were being stuck.)

When the verbal noun refers to an action taking place in the future, the idea of futurity is transferred to a past time. For example:

أَمْرٌ كَانَ مَفْعُولًا [Wright 2/196A]
«a matter which was to be done»

31.21. The SC verb كَانَ combined with a SC verb

كَانَ is combined with a following SC verb to denote an action completed prior to some past (specified or implied) point in time. Example:

مَاتَ ٱلرَّشِيدُ بِطُوسَ وَكَانَ خَرَجَ إِلَىٰ خُرَاسَانَ لِمُحَارَبَةِ رَافِعِ بْنِ ٱللَّيْثِ

[Wright 2/5C]

«al-Rashīd died at Ṭūs after (literally: and) he had set out for Khurāsān to combat Rāfiɛ ibn al-Layth.»

The particle قَدْ is often used when كَانَ is combined with a SC verb. قَدْ may be placed either between كَانَ and the following SC verb, or before كَانَ. Examples:

كُنْتُ قَدْ رَبَّيْتُ جَارِيَةً [Wright 2/5C]
«I had brought up a girl»

قَدْ كَانَتْ فَرَغَتْ مِنْ عَمَلِهَا
«She had been done with her work.»

When their are multiple SC verbs, and one (or more) of them occurred farther in the past than the others, it is indicated with قَدْ, the others having merely كَانَ. We re-use a previous example here and extend it:

مَاتَ ٱلرَّشِيدُ بِطُوسَ وَكَانَ خَرَجَ إِلَىٰ خُرَاسَانَ لِمُحَارَبَةِ رَافِعِ بْنِ ٱللَّيْثِ. وَكَانَ رَافِعٌ هَـٰذَا قَدْ خَرَجَ وَخَلَعَ ٱلطَّاعَةَ وَتَغَلَّبَ عَلَىٰ سَمَرْقَنْدَ.

[Wright 2/6A]

“al-Rashīd died at Ṭūs after he had set out for Khurāsān to combat Rāfiɛ ibn al-Layth. And this Rāfiɛ had already rebelled and cast off his allegiance and taken forcible posession of Samarqand.”
(Note how قَدْ is only used before Rāfiɛ’s action of rebelling.)

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31.21.1. Negation

This combination may, again, be negated in multiple ways. Examples:

لاَ يَأْتِي ابْنَ آدَمَ النَّذْرُ بِشَيْءٍ لَمْ يَكُنْ قَدْ قَدَّرْتُهُ [صحيح البخاري: 6609]

«Vowing does not bring to the son of Adam anything I have not already written in his fate,»

وَدِدْتُ أَنِّي لَمْ أَكُنْ خَرَجْتُ الْعَامَ [سنن أبي داود: 1778]

«I wish I had not come out (for Ḥajj) this year»

وَمَا كَانَ قَدْ أَتَاهَا بِشَيْءٍ [A report narrated in إحياء علوم الدين لأبي حامد الغزالي 3/139 without a chain]

«And he had not brought her anything»

31.22. The PC verb يَكُونُ combined with a SC verb

The PC verb يَكُونُ is compined with a SC verb (often with an interposed قَدْ) to express that the action is conceived of having been completed in the future. Examples:

يَكُونُ قَدْ وَجَبَ عَلَيْكَ صَدَقَةٌ [مشكاة المصابيح: 1793]

«Charity will have been incumbent upon you»

فَلْنَأْخُذْهُ فَنَكُونُ قَدْ أَخَذْنَا عِوَضًا [Fischer 108]

«Let us take him for (then) we will have taken a substitute»

31.22.0.1. The a-case verb يَكُونَ combined with a SC verb

An a-case يَكُونَ is combined with a SC verb to express being in a state of an action having occurred or that might have occurred. For example:

خَافَ أَنْ يَكُونَ قَدْ أَخْطَأَ [Fischer 110]

«He feared that he could have erred.»

وَيَجُوزُ أَنْ يَكُونُوا سُبِقُوا [المهذب فيما وقع في القرآن من المعرب للسيوطي p. 59]

«And that they might have been preceded is possible»

يَشْتَرِطُ فِي ٱلنَّائِبِ أَنْ يَكُونَ قَدْ حَجَّ عَنْ نَفْسِهِ

«It is conditional for the deputy that he be in as state of already having performed the Ḥajj for himself.»

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31.23. The verb of command كُنْ combined with a PC verb

Ocassionally, the verb of command كُنْ is combined with a PC verb, thus:

كُنْ أَنْتَ تُكَلِّمُهُمْ [Fischer 121]

« You be speaking to them! »

31.24. كَانَ with the لِ of denial

One special use of كَانَ is what is termed the لِ *of denial*. This is a negative كَانَ (either مَا كَانَ or لَمْ يَكُنْ with the appropriate suffixes or prefixes for the subject) followed by لِ and then an a-case PC verb. This expresses the meaning of:

i. to deny being the one to do something, or
ii. to deny going to do something

Here are some examples:

لَمْ تَكُنْ زَيْنَبُ لِتَضْرِبَ وَلَدَهَا

« Zaynab was not one to beat her child. »

or

« Zaynab was not going to beat her child. »

وَمَا كَانَ ٱللَّهُ لِيُعَذِّبَهُمْ وَأَنتَ فِيهِمْ [سورة الأنفال 8:33]

« But Allāh would not punish them while you, [O Muḥammad], are among them »

فَقَالَ أَتَخْشَيْنَ أَنْ أَقْتُلَهُ مَا كُنْتُ لأَفْعَلَ ذَلِكَ [سنن أبي داود: 3112]

« He said: Do you fear that I shall kill him ? I am not going to do that. »

قَالَ لَمْ أَكُنْ لأَفْعَلَ [سنن ابن ماجه: 1503]

« He said: I was not going to do that. »

فَلَمْ أَكُنْ لأُفْشِيَ سِرَّ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 4005]

31.25. كَانَ with the لِ of deserving

Closely related, yet distinct from, the use of كَانَ with the لِ of denial (above) is the use of كَانَ with a لِ that signifies deserving, behooving, appropriateness, or possibility. This is, again, a negative كَانَ followed by the preposition لِ and a following i-case noun, and then أَنْ followed by an a-case PC verb. This signifies that the action of the verb does not behoove, or is not appropriate or desrving or possibly for the person denoted by the noun after لِ.[29] For example:

[29] سورة آل عمران 3:79 for تفسير ابن عاشور and البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

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فَأَنۢبَتۡنَا بِهِۦ حَدَآئِقَ ذَاتَ بَهۡجَةٖ مَّا كَانَ لَكُمۡ أَن تُنۢبِتُواْ شَجَرَهَآ [سورة النمل 27:60]
« causing to grow thereby gardens of joyful beauty which you could not [otherwise] have grown the trees thereof »

مَا كَانَ لِبَشَرٍ أَن يُؤۡتِيَهُ ٱللَّهُ ٱلۡكِتَٰبَ وَٱلۡحُكۡمَ وَٱلنُّبُوَّةَ ثُمَّ يَقُولَ لِلنَّاسِ كُونُواْ عِبَادٗا لِّي مِن دُونِ ٱللَّهِ [سورة آل عمران 3:79]
« It is not for a human [prophet] that Allāh should give him the Scripture and authority and prophethood and then he would say to the people, ‘Be servants to me rather than Allāh,’ »

قَالَ أَبُو بَكْرٍ مَا كَانَ لِابْنِ أَبِي قُحَافَةَ أَنْ يُصَلِّيَ بَيْنَ يَدَيْ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [سنن أبي داود: 940]
« Abū Bakr said ; it was not befitting for the son of Abū Quḥāfah to lead the prayer in the presence of the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ »

31.26. FINI

31.27. TODO:

كان زيد آكلا طعامك

See شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/280–284

كانت الحمى تأخذ زيدا [الجملة العربية لفاضل السامرائي 66]

أن المصدرية as subject or info of kaana. Both permitted but subject more worthy. [basit 714–715A]

شرح جمل الزجاجي لأبن عصفور p 411

info of kaana is a pronoun

work in progress

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Chapter 32.

إِنَّ and its sisters

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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32.1. Introduction

The archetypal nounal sentence is governed by an abstract foundational government that governs a subject and its info, both in the u-case.

For example:

(508) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.» .

In example (508) above, an abstract foundational government governs the subject زَيْد and its info قَائِم both in the u-case.

إِنَّ and its sisters are a set of six foundational government particles that take an archetypal nounal sentence as their input and transform it, by governing the subject in the u-case and the info in the u-case. Furthermore, each particle has its own meaning that it imparts to the input sentence.

The set of إِنَّ and its sisters is:

i. إِنَّ «indeed»
ii. أَنَّ «that»
iii. كَأَنَّ «as if»
iv. لَـٰكِنَّ «but»

v. لَيْتَ « would that »
vi. لَعَلَّ « perhaps »

We will discuss them in the following sections.

32.2. إِنَّ *inna*

32.2.1. Basic meaning of إِنَّ

إِنَّ has an assertive meaning. It asserts the property which its info expresses about its subject. For example:

(509) إِنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
« Indeed Zayd is standing. » .

As you can see, the foundational government particle إِنَّ has transformed the input example (508) by governing the subject زَيْد in the a-case and its info قَائِم in the u-case. It has also added the assertive meaning "« indeed »".

32.2.2. إِنَّ with a pronoun subject

When the subject of إِنَّ (or any of its sisters) is a pronoun, then the attached pronouns are used. So we will say, for example:

(510) إنه قائم وإنها جالسة و إنكما قائمان وإنهم جالسون

When the subject is a pronoun for the singular speaker-participant ي, then a guarding-ن may optionally be inserted. So we can say either إِنَّنِي or إِنِّي. Examples:

(511) إني/إنني قائم

And when the subject is a pronoun for the plural speaker-participant نَا, then the two نs can optionally be combined. So we can say either إِنَّنَا or إِنَّا. Examples:

(512) إنا/إننا قائمون

The above rules, which allow adding or dropping a ن, are common for all of the sisters of إِنَّ that end with ن: So we can say:

- إِنَّنِي or إِنِّي and إِنَّنَا or إِنَّا.
- أَنَّنِي or أَنِّي and أَنَّنَا or أَنَّا.
- كَأَنَّنِي or كَأَنِّي and كَأَنَّنَا or كَأَنَّا.

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- لَـكِنِّي or لَـكِنَّنِي and لَـكِنَّنَا or لَـكِنَّا.

لَيْتَ and لَعَلَّ have modified rules, which will be covered in their respective sections, if Allāh wills.

32.2.3. An إِنَّ as part of a larger sentence

An إِنَّ sentence can itself, be a part of a larger sentence. For example:

(513) زَيْدٌ إِنَّهُ قَائِمٌ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/355]
«Zayd – indeed he is standing.»
(The sentence إِنَّهُ قَائِمٌ is the info of the subject زَيْدٌ.)

We will explore this more in section (inna vs anna) below).

32.3. أَنَّ *anna*

32.3.1. Interpretation of the أَنَّ clause as a maṣdar construction

أَنَّ may be translated as "«that»". أَنَّ is unique amongst إِنَّ and its sisters that when it transforms an input nounal sentence the output is actually not a leaned sentence anymore. Here is its output after transforming example (508):

(514) أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«that Zayd is standing»

As you can see above, example (514) does not stand by itself as a complete sentence. Terminologically, زَيْدًا is the subject of أَنَّ and قَائِمٌ is its info. But once أَنَّ has been added to the sentence, then the resulting output actually only constitutes a single element of a sentence (in terms of sentence structure). Let's explain what we mean by making example (514) a part of a larger sentence:

(515) يُعْجِبُنِي أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«That Zayd is standing pleases me.»

Now the sentence is leaned. In this sentence, the أَنَّ clause (i.e. أَنَّ, its subject, and its info together) constitutes the leaned-against element element of the sentence as the doer of the verb يُعْجِبُنِي. The verb يُعْجِبُنِي is the leaning element of the sentence.

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The grammarians have theorized that the أَنَّ clause is able to constitute a single sentence element because it is interpreted as a maṣdar construction. And the maṣdar is then able to take the place of a single element of the sentence. In example (515) the maṣdar is interpreted as follows:

(516) أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ = قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ «that Zayd is standing» = «Zayd's [being] standing»

If we replace the أَنَّ clause in example (515) with this interpreted maṣdar construction, we get:

(517) يُعْجِبُنِي قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ
«Zayd's [being] standing pleases me.».

Now we can see how the interpreted maṣdar construction قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ constitutes the leaned-against element of the sentence. (Technically, the annexe قِيَامُ is the leaned-against element and زَيْدٍ is it its annexed-to governee, but loosely speaking they can be considered one unit.)

By the way, the interpretation of the أَنَّ clause as a maṣdar construction does not mean that the sentence with the maṣdar construction will have exactly the same meaning as the sentence with أَنَّ. Rather the maṣdar interpretation only helps us analyze the sentence grammatically. And it will also help us determine when we can use the maṣdari أَنَّ as opposed to other alternatives.

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32.3.2. أَنَّ clauses as different elements of a sentence

Let's get back to example (515) يُعْجِبُنِي أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ «That Zayd is standing pleases me». In this sentence, as we just discussed, أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ, because of its interpretation as the maṣdar construction قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ, constitutes a single element, in terms of sentence structure. In example (515), it constitutes the doer of a verbal sentence, which is a indispensable element. But an أَنَّ clause need not only constitute a doer, or a indispensable element for that matter. An أَنَّ clause may constitute various elements of a sentence. We will discuss them below:

The أَنَّ clause as a doer

We have already seen an example of the أَنَّ clause as the doer in example (515) يُعْجِبُنِي أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ. Here is another example:

(518) بلغني أن زيدًا منطَلِقٌ [شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 1/176]
«[The news] that Zayd is setting out has reached me.»

If we replace the أَنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣdar we get:

(519) بلغني انطلاق زيدٍ [شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 1/176]
«Zayd's setting out has reached me.»

The أَنَّ clause as a deputy doer

(520) عُرِفَ أَنَّ السَّارِقَ جَرِيءٌ [nawh_waadiH 1/264]
«That the thief is bold was known.»

If we replace the أَنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣdar we get:

(521) عُرِفَ جَرَاءَةُ السَّارِقِ [nawh_waadiH 1/264]
«The thief's boldness was known.»

The أَنَّ clause as a direct object

The أَنَّ clause can occur in the position of a direct object. Here is an example:

(522) عَلِمْتُ أَنّكَ فَاضِلٌ
«I knew that you are excellent.»

If we replace the أَنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣdar we get:

(523) عَلِمْتُ فَضْلَكَ
«I knew your excellence.»

The أَنَّ clause in the i-case

The أَنَّ clause can occur after a preposition. For example:

(524) عَجِبْتُ من أنّ بكرًا واقفٌ [شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 1/177]
«I wondered at that Zayd is stopped standing.»

If we replace the أَنَّ clause with its interpreted maṣdar we get:

(525) عجبت من وقوف بكرٍ [شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 1/177]
«I wondered at Zayd's being stopped standing.»

The أَنَّ clause can even occur as a annexed-to. For example:

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(526) قَالَ أَيْنَ تُرِيدُ قَالَ أُرِيدُ أَخًا لِي فِي هَذِهِ الْقَرْيَةِ قَالَ هَلْ لَكَ عَلَيْهِ مِنْ نِعْمَةٍ تَرُبُّهَا قَالَ لاَ غَيْرَ أَنِّي أَحْبَبْتُهُ فِي اللَّهِ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ
[صحيح مسلم :2567a]
[« He said, “Where are you intending [to go]?” He said, “I intend [to go to] a brother of mine in this town.” He said, “Do you have upon him a favor that [you are seeking repayment for]?” He said, “No, except that I have loved him [for the sake of] Allāh the Exalted and Glorious.” »

The أَنَّ clause as a info

(527) أمرك أنك ذاهب [الجنى الداني 409]
« Your state-of-affairs is that you are going. »
(The interpreted maṣdar ذَهَابُكَ is the info.)

The أَنَّ clause as a subject

The أَنَّ clause as a subject is not as common as the other categories, and has some restrictions. Generally, it won't begin the sentence. Instead, its info will usually precede it.[1] For example:

(528) في ظني أنك فاضل [الجنى الداني 408]
« [It is] in my estimation that you are excellent. »
(في ظني is analyzed as a fronted info and the interpreted maṣdar construction فَضْلُكَ « your excellence » is the backed subject.)

(529) وَمِنْ ءَايَٰتِهِۦٓ أَنَّكَ تَرَى ٱلْأَرْضَ خَٰشِعَةً [سورة فصلت 41:39][2]
« And of His signs is that you see the earth stilled »

(530) أحقا أنك ذاهب [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 2/205]
« [Is it] really that you are going? »
(The interpreted maṣdar ذَهَابُكَ is the subject. حَقًّا is analyzed as an adverb info.[3])

The أَنَّ clause may even be an subject of إِنَّ and كَانَ. Examples:

(531) كان في ظني أنك فاضل [الجنى الداني 408]
« [It] was in my estimation that you are excellent. »

As the subject of إِنَّ, the أَنَّ clause must be separated from إِنَّ:

[1] See الجنى الداني 408 for an exception. See also شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 1/204 (editor's footnote) for another example.
[2] See إعراب القرآن للدعاس for سورة فصلت 41:39 and أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 2/206 (editor's footnote).
[3] See أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 2/206 (editor's footnote).

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(532) إن عندي أنك فاضل [الجنى الداني 408]
«Indeed [it is your rank] with me that you are excellent.»
i.e. «You are excellent in my sight.»

When the أَنَّ clause is a governee of كَانَ then it can, in general, be either the subject or the info. For example:

(533) فَكَانَ عَٰقِبَتَهُمَآ أَنَّهُمَا فِى ٱلنَّارِ [سورة الحشر 59:17]
«So the outcome for both of them is that they will be in the Fire»
(In some recitations عَاقِبَة is in the u-case.[4])

Compare also to section (masdar an in kaana chapter).

32.3.3. The interpreted maṣdar when the info of أَنَّ is a prepositional/adverbial phrase

Consider the following sentences, where the info of أَنَّ is a prepositional or adverbial phrase:

(534) عجبتُ من أن زيداً عندك [haazimi 24/10]
«I wondered at that Zayd is at [your place].»
(The info of أَنَّ is an adverbial phrase: عِنْدَكَ «at your place».)

(535) علمت أن زيداً في الدار [haazimi 37/15]
«I knew that Zayd is in the house.»
(The info of أَنَّ is an prepositional phrase: فِي الدَّارِ «in the house».)

In such cases, the interpreted maṣdar is general beingness, represented by the maṣdar كَوْن or اسْتِقْرَار, as below:

(536) عجبت من استقرار زيدٍ عندك [haazimi 24/10]
«I wondered at Zayd's being at [your place].»

(537) علمت كون زيد في الدار [haazimi 37/15]
«I knew Zayd's being in the house.»

[4] معاني القرآن للفراء 5/149; معاني القرآن وإعرابه للزجاج for سورة الحشر 59:17; البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for الأعراف 7:5

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32.3.4. The interpreted maṣdar when the info of أَنَّ is a entity noun

Consider the following sentence, where the info of أَنَّ is a entity noun:

(538) علمت أن زيداً أسد [haazimi 37/15]
«I knew that Zayd is a lion.»
(The info of أَنَّ is a entity noun: أَسَدٌ «a lion».)

In this case as well, the interpreted maṣdar can be general beingness:

(539) علمت كون زيد أسداً [haazimi 37/15]
«I knew Zayd's being a lion.»

Or the interpreted maṣdar can be formed from the entity noun, using the suffix ـِيَّة *-iyyah* (see section (ref)), as below:

(540) علمت أسدية زيد [haazimi 37/15]
«I knew Zayd's lion-like-ness.»

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32.3.5. Optionally delete the preposition before أَنَّ

When the أَنَّ clause is in the i-case following a preposition, then it is allowed to (optionally) delete the preposition, for the same meaning, as long as the meaning remains clear. So, instead of saying:

(541) عجبت من أنك قائم [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/151]
«I wondered at that you are standing.»

we can say:

(542) عجبت أنك قائم [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/151]
«I wondered that you are standing.»

32.3.6. لِأَنَّ «because»

The preposition لِ when attached before أَنَّ can signify the meaning «because».[5] For example:

[5]Wright 1/293B

(543) قَالَ كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم إِذَا أُتِيَ بِطَعَامٍ أَكَلَ مِنْهُ وَبَعَثَ بِفَضْلِهِ إِلَىَّ وَإِنَّهُ بَعَثَ إِلَىَّ يَوْمًا بِفَضْلَةٍ لَمْ يَأْكُلْ مِنْهَا لأَنَّ فِيهَا ثُومًا فَسَأَلْتُهُ أَحَرَامٌ هُوَ قَالَ لاَ وَلَكِنِّي أَكْرَهُهُ مِنْ أَجْلِ رِيحِهِ [صحيح مسلم: 2053]
« He said, “The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ would, when he was brought some food, eat from it and send its extra to me. And indeed he sent to me, one day, some extra having not eaten from it because in it was some garlic. So I asked him, ‘Is it unlawful?’ He said, ‘No, but I dislike it because of its odor.’ ” »

32.3.7. أَنَّ with the meaning of لَعَلَّ

As a niche use, أَنَّ can be used with the meaning of لَعَلَّ (see section (ref) below). For example:

(544) ائتِ السوقَ أنكَ تشتري لَنَا شيئا [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 5/178]
« Come to the market [so] that you may buy for us something. »

(545) ما أدري أنه صاحبها [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 5/178]
« I don’t know, perhaps he is his companion. »

32.4. كَأَنَّ *ka’anna*

كَأَنَّ signifies « as if ». Examples:

(546) كَأَنَّ الْعِلْمَ نُورٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/272]
« [It is] as if knowledge is a light. »

(547) كَأَنَّ عَلِيًّا أَسَدٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/272]
« [It is] as if Ɛaliyy is a lion. »

(548) فَجِيءَ بِنَا كَأَنَّا أَفْرُخٌ [سنن أبي داود: 4192]
« So we were brought [and it was] as if we [were] chicks. »

(549) كَأَنَّهُمْ حُمُرٌ مُّسْتَنفِرَةٌ [سورة المدثر 74:50]
« As if they were alarmed donkeys »

(550) كَأَنِّي أَنْظُرُ إِلَى بَيَاضِهِ فِي يَدِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 65]
« It is as if I am looking at its whiteness in his hand. »

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32.5. لَـٰكِنَّ *lākinna*

لَـٰكِنَّ signifies «but». It forms a complete sentence with its subject and its info. But it will usually follow a previous sentence and contrast it. Examples:

(551) الشَّمْسُ مُشْرِقَةٌ لَكِنَّ الْجَوَّ بَارِدٌ
[النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/272]
«The sun is bright but the air is cold.»

(552) قَالَ يَٰقَوْمِ لَيْسَ بِى ضَلَٰلَةٌ وَلَٰكِنِّى رَسُولٌ مِّن رَّبِّ ٱلْعَٰلَمِينَ [سورة الأعراف 7:61]
«[Noah] said, "O my people, there is not error in me, but I am a messenger from the Lord of the worlds."»

32.6. لَيْتَ *layta*

لَيْتَ has a wishful meaning. For example:

(553) ليت زيداً قائمًا [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/568]
«Would that Zayd were standing.»

The vocative يَا is frequently used before لَيْتَ. For example:

(554) قَالَ يَٰلَيْتَ قَوْمِى يَعْلَمُونَ [سورة يس 36:26]
«He said, "I wish my people could know"»

When the subject is a pronoun for the singular speaker-participant ي, then a guarding-ن is inserted by default, thus: لَيْتَنِي. For example:

(555) وَيَقُولُ ٱلْكَافِرُ يَٰلَيْتَنِى كُنتُ تُرَٰبًۢا [سورة النبأ 78:40]
«and the disbeliever will say, "Oh, I wish that I were dust!"»

Very rarely, the guarding-ن can be omitted thus: لَيْتِي.[6]

When the subject is a pronoun for the plural speaker-participant نَا, then the ن of the pronoun is never omitted, and we will say: لَيْتَنَا. For example:

(556) يَٰلَيْتَنَآ أَطَعْنَا ٱللَّهَ وَأَطَعْنَا ٱلرَّسُولَا۠ [سورة الأحزاب 33:66]
«How we wish we had obeyed Allāh and obeyed the Messenger.»

أَنَّ can be combined with لَيْتَ thus:

(557) ليت أنّ زيدًا خارجٌ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/569]
«Would that Zayd were going out.»

(558) لَيْتَ أَنَّهُ شَاعِرٌ [Fischer 180]
«Would that he were a poet.»

[6] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 1/332

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32.7. لَعَلَّ *laʿalla*

لَعَلَّ signifies «perhaps». It tends to be used in situations signifying hope for, or apprehension from, an impending event.[7]

Example of hope:

(559) لعل زيدا يكرمني [معاني النحو 1/305]
«Perhaps (i.e. I hope) Zayd will honor me.»

Example of apprehension:

(560) لعلّ بكرًا يضرب [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/570]
«Perhaps (i.e. I fear) Bakr will beat.»

Opposite to لَيْتَ, when the subject is a pronoun for the singular speaker-participant ي, then a guarding-ن is not inserted by default, thus: لَعَلِّي. For example:

(561) إِذْ رَءَا نَارًا فَقَالَ لِأَهْلِهِ ٱمْكُثُوٓاْ إِنِّيٓ ءَانَسْتُ نَارًا لَّعَلِّيٓ ءَاتِيكُم مِّنْهَا بِقَبَسٍ أَوْ أَجِدُ عَلَى ٱلنَّارِ هُدًى [سورة طه 20:10]
«When he saw a fire and said to his family, “Stay here; indeed, I have perceived a fire; perhaps I can bring you a torch or find at the fire some guidance.”»

Very rarely, a guarding-ن can be added thus: لَعَلَّنِي.[8]

But like لَيْتَ, the subject is a pronoun for the plural speaker-participant نَا, then the ن of the pronoun is not never omitted, and we will say: لَعَلَّنَا. For example:

(562) أَخْبِرْ صَاحِبَكَ أَنَّا قَدْ جِئْنَا وَلَعَلَّنَا سَنَعُودُ إِنْ شَاءَ اللَّهُ [صحيح البخاري: 4359]
«Inform your companion that we came and perhaps we will come again, if Allāh wills.»

Here are some more examples showing the semantic range of لَعَلَّ:

(563) لَعَلَّكُمْ لَوْ لَمْ تَفْعَلُوا كَانَ خَيْرًا [صحيح مسلم: 2362]
«Perhaps if you did not do [it], it would be better.»

(564) إِنَّكُمْ لاَ تَدْرُونَ لَعَلَّكُمْ أَنْ تُبْتَلَوْا [سنن ابن ماجه: 4029]
«Indeed you do not know, perhaps you will be tested.»

[7] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/569
[8] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 1/333

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(565) قَالَ كُنَّا عِنْدَ عُمَرَ فَقَالَ أَيُّكُمْ سَمِعَ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَذْكُرُ الْفِتَنَ فَقَالَ قَوْمٌ نَحْنُ سَمِعْنَاهُ فَقَالَ لَعَلَّكُمْ تَعْنُونَ فِتْنَةَ الرَّجُلِ فِي أَهْلِهِ وَجَارِهِ قَالُوا أَجَلْ [صحيح مسلم: 144a]
«We were with Ɛumar and he said, "Which of you has heard the Messenger of Allāh mention the tribulations?" Some people said, "We did hear him." So he said, "Perhaps you are meaning the tribulation of a man in regard to his household and his neighbor?"»

لَعَلَّ can also be used for a past event. For example:

(566) لَعَلَّكَ قَبَّلْتَ أَوْ غَمَزْتَ أَوْ نَظَرْتَ [صحيح البخاري: 6824]
«Perhaps you (only) kissed or winked or looked?»

(567) لَعَلَّنَا أَعْجَلْنَاكَ [صحيح البخاري: 180]
«Perhaps we have forced you to hurry?»

لَعَلَّ is often connected in meaning to a previous sentence. signifying in its meaning a connotation of «in order to». In this sense, it approaches the meaning of كَيْ.[9] For example:

(568) فَلَمَّا قُبِضَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم فَخَرَجَ مُسَيْلِمَةُ الْكَذَّابُ قُلْتُ لأَخْرُجَنَّ إِلَى مُسَيْلِمَةَ لَعَلِّي أَقْتُلُهُ فَأُكَافِئَ بِهِ حَمْزَةَ [صحيح البخاري: 4072]
«When the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ passed away, and then Musaylimah the Liar appeared, I said, "I will surely go out to Musaylimah so that I may kill him and so make amends for [killing] Ḥamzah.»

Work in progress

32.8. A prepositional/adverbial phrase as the info of إِنَّ and its sisters

A prepositional/adverbial phrase can occur as the info of إِنَّ and its sisters. For example:

(569) إِنَّ زَيْدًا فِي الدَّارِ
«Indeed Zayd is in the house.»

(570) عَلِمْتُ أَنَّ زَيْدًا عِنْدَكَ «Indeed Zayd is at [your place].»

[9] See (with caution) also الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة البقرة 2:21 and تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة البقرة 2:21; and تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة البقرة يَٰٓأَيُّهَا ٱلنَّاسُ ٱعۡبُدُواْ رَبَّكُمُ ٱلَّذِي خَلَقَكُمۡ وَٱلَّذِينَ مِن قَبۡلِكُمۡ لَعَلَّكُمۡ تَتَّقُونَ يَٰٓأَيُّهَا ٱلَّذِينَ ءَامَنُواْ كُتِبَ عَلَيۡكُمُ ٱلصِّيَامُ كَمَا كُتِبَ عَلَى ٱلَّذِينَ مِن قَبۡلِكُمۡ لَعَلَّكُمۡ تَتَّقُونَ 2:183

In such cases, based on what we have learned in section (ref), the info is actually implicated as general beingness, and the preposition or adverb is its governee. But loosely speaking we may say that the prepositional/adverbial phrase is the info.

32.9. A complete sentence as the info of إِنَّ and its sisters

The info of إِنَّ and its sisters may be a complete sentence. Examples:

(571) إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ يُعَزِّزُ صَاحِبَهُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 272]
«Indeed the knowledge – it makes esteemed its companion.»
(The info of إِنَّ is the verbal sentence يُعَزِّزُ صَاحِبَهُ «it makes esteemed its companion».)

(572) إِنَّ الْعَالِمَ قَدْرُهُ مُرْتَفِعٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/272]
«Indeed the scholar – his worth is high.»
(The info of إِنَّ is the nounal sentence قَدْرُهُ مُرْتَفِعٌ «his worth is high».)

(573) لَعَلَّكَ اجْتَهَدْتَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/272]
«Perhaps you may exert yourself.»
(The info of لَعَلَّ is the verbal sentence اجْتَهَدْتَ «you exert yourself».)

The info of إِنَّ (and its sisters) can even be a compound itself itself. Here is an example where the info of إِنَّ is a كَانَ sentence with its own subject and verbal sentence info:

(574) وَإِنَّ أَبَا هُرَيْرَةَ كَانَ يَلْزَمُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم بِشِبَعِ بَطْنِهِ وَيَحْضُرُ مَا لاَ يَحْضُرُونَ وَيَحْفَظُ مَا لاَ يَحْفَظُونَ [صحيح البخاري: 118]
«And indeed Abū Hurayrah used to stick with the Messenger of Allāh with the fill of his stomach and be present for what they [were] not present for, and memorize what they [were] not memorizing.»

Work in progress

32.10. Word order of the subject and the info with إِنَّ and its sisters

32.10.1. Word order for a single element info

The subject of إِنَّ (and its sisters) must always follow it in word order. And its info must always follow the subject. So, for example, we cannot say:

(575) ✗ إِنَّ قَائِمٌ زَيْدًا [شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى 162]

We must say instead:

(576) إِنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

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32.10.2. Word order for a prepositional or adverbial phrase info

When the info is itself (loosely speaking) the prepositional or adverbial phrase, then then it may be placed before the subject. Sometimes, placing the prepositional/adverbial phrase before the subject is optional. For example:

(577) إِنَّ فِي الدَّارِ ضُيُوفًا كِرَامًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/273]
«Indeed in the house are noble guests.»

(578) لَيْتَ عِنْدَكَ مُحَمَّدًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/273]
«O that with you was Muḥammad»

In such cases, where the prepositional/adverbial phrase info may be placed either before or after the subject, the signification can be slightly diferent. For example, if we say:

(579) إِنَّ مَعَكَ صَاحِبَكَ. [Wright 2/80C]
«Indeed, with you, is your companion.»

This puts the logical accent on the subject صَاحِبَكَ "your companion". If the subject is placed first then this puts the logical accent on the info:

(580) إِنَّ صَاحِبَكَ مَعَكَ. [Wright 2/80C]
«Indeed your companion is with you.»

When the prepositional/adverbial phrase has a pronoun that refers to the subject, then it must obligatorily be placed before the subject. For example:

(581) إِنَّ فِي الدَّارِ سَاكِنَهَا [ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب 3/1244]
«Indeed in the house is its resident.»

(582) إِنَّ عِنْدَ هِنْدٍ بَعْلَهَا [ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب 3/1244]
«Indeed with Hind is her husband.»

32.10.3. Word order when the info has a governee

If the info has a governee, then the normal word order is for it to follow its governor. For example:

(583) إن زيدا آكل طعامك [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/349]
«Indeed Zayd is eating your food.»

Optionally, the governee of the info can be made to precede it. For example:

(584) إن زيدا طعامك آكل [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/317]
«Indeed Zayd is eating your food.»

But the governee of the info should not, in general, precede the subject. So we cannot say:

(585) × إن طعامك زيدا آكل [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/349]

However, when the governee of the info is a preposition or adverb, then there is some diagreement amongst the grammarians, with regard to whether the governee of the info can precede the subject.[10] Some grammarians allowed sentences like:

(586) إِنَّ عِنْدَكَ زَيْدًا جَالِسٌ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/349]
«Indeed with you Zayd is sitting.»

(587) إن بك زيدا واثق [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/349]
«Indeed in you Zayd is trusting.»

(588) إِنَّ اليَوْمَ زَيْدًا مُسافِرٌ [البحر المحيط لأبي حيان سورة هود for 11:8]
«Indeed today Zayd is a journeying-one.»

(589) علمت أن اليوم زيداً سائر [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 3/65]]{.citex}
«I knew that today Zayd is a travelling-one.»

[10] ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب 3/1244; شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/464

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Others disallowed such sentences and mandated that the governee of the info not precede the subject even in the case of preposition or adverb governee.[11]: So they allow:

(590) إِنَّ زَيْدًا جَالِسٌ عِنْدَكَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/349]
«Indeed Zayd is sitting with you.»

(591) إن زيدا واثق بك [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/349]
«Indeed Zayd is trusting in you.»

It is also allowed to make the governee of the info precede it (but not the subject) (as in example (584) above). For example:

(592) إِنَّ زَيْدًا عِنْدَكَ جَالِسٌ,

(593) إن زيدا بك واثق

32.11. A state-of-affairs pronoun as the subject of إِنَّ and its sisters

A state-of-affairs pronoun can occur as the subject of إِنَّ and its sisters. In this case, as usual, the info will be a complete sentence.

As with كَانَ, when the subject is a state-of-affairs pronoun, then the info can be a nounal sentence or a verbal sentence.

For example:

(594) إِنَّهَا تَكُونُ الظُّلْمَةُ وَالسَّيْلُ [صحيح البخاري: 667]
«The state-of-affairs is: [there] is [at times] darkness and flooding»

(595) وَقَالَ إِنَّهُ قَدِ اجْتَمَعَ لَكُمْ فِي يَوْمِكُمْ هَذَا عِيدَانِ
https://sunnah.com/urn/504350

The state-of-affairs pronoun may be optionally deleted. For example:

(596) في فِتْيةٍ كسُيوف الهند قد علموا ... أن هالك كل من يَحْفَى ويَنْتَعِلُ [@sibawayhi 3/74]
(أَنَّ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun thus: أَنَّهُ.)

[11] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/349

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32.12. إِنَّ with a لَ of beginning

The لَ *of beginning* is a particle which generally occurs in the beginning of a sentence signifies an assertive meaning. For example, if we start with:

(597) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

then we can make the sentence more assertive by using لَ of beginning in its beginning:

(598) لَزَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

The لَ of beginning, in sentences without إِنَّ (as above), is placed in the beginning of the sentence and is attached only to the subject. If the info were fronted, we wouldn't say:

(599) × لَقَائِمٌ زَيْدٌ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/353]

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32.12.1. The لَ of beginning placed before the info of إِنَّ

This لَ of beginning is frequently found used with إِنَّ. But instead of occurring before إِنَّ thus:

(600) × لَإِنَّ

it is placed between the subject of إِنَّ and its info, thus:

(601) إِنَّ زَيْدٌ لَقَائِمٌ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/352]
«Indeed Zayd is standing.»

When إِنَّ is used together with لَ of beginning as in the example above, then the sentence signifies extra assertion, compared to if had only إِنَّ or only the لَ of beginning.

In a similar manner to example () above, we can say:

(602) إن زيدًا لفي الدار [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/352]
«Indeed Zayd is in the house.»

The لَ of beginning has certain restrictions placed on its usage, when used with إِنَّ:

Firstly, it can only be used with إِنَّ and not with any of its sisters.

Secondly, the إِنَّ sentence should be an affirmative sentence, not a negative sentence. So we cannot say:

(603) × إِنَّ عَلِيًّا لَمَا حَضَرَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/288]

Instead, we should say (without the لَ of beginning):

(604) إِنَّ عَلِيًّا مَا حَضَرَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/288]
«Indeed Ɛaliyy was not present.»

Additionally, when the info of إِنَّ is a verbal sentence with a SC verb, then the لَ of beginning is not attached to the SC verb. But if قَدْ is used before the SC verb, then the لَ of beginning may be attached before it. So we cannot say:

(605) × إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ لَرَفَعَ قَدْرَ صَاحِبِهِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/288]

But we can say:

(606) إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ لَقَدْ رَفَعَ قَدْرَ صَاحِبِهِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/288]
«Indeed the knowledge – it has raised the worth of its companion.»

Or we can say without both the لَ of beginning and قَدْ

(607) إِنَّ الْعِلْمَ رَفَعَ قَدْرَ صَاحِبِهِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/288]
«Indeed the knowledge – it raised the worth of its companion.»

This restriction is not placed on a ;xabar which is a verbal sentence with a PC verb. So we can say:

(608) إن زيدًا ليخرج اليوم [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/352]
«Indeed Zayd – he will go out today.»

When the PC verb has سَوْفَ, then grammarians have disagreed with regards tp allowing لَ of beginning to attach to it.ˆ[شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/354]

(609) إن زيدا لسوفَ يقوم [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/354]
«Indeed Zayd – he will soon stand.»

Also, rigid SC verbs are exempted from being restricted and may be used with لَ of beginning directly. For example:

(610) إنّ زيدًا لنِعْم الرجلُ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/352]
«Indeed Zayd – how excellent the man.»

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(611) إنّ عمرًا لَبِئْسَ الغلامُ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/352]
«Indeed Zayd – how wretched the boy.»

However, لَيْسَ is a rigid verb, but لَ of beginning does not attach to it because of the undesirableness of two لs coming togather. So we won't say:

(612) × إنّ زيدًا لليس بقائم [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/352]
«Indeed Zayd – he is not standing.»

When a governee of the info is placed before it in word order (but still after the subject), such that it comes between the subject and the info, then لَ of beginning will attach to the fronted governee, thus:

(613) إنّ زيدًا لَفِى الدار قائمٌ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/354]
«Indeed Zayd, in the house is standing.»

(614) إن زيدًا لطعامَكَ آكلٌ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/355]
«Indeed Zayd, your food he is eating.»

But if the governee of the info is placed after the info then the info will have لَ of beginning, not its governee. So we won't say:

(615) × إنَّ زيدًا آكلٌ لطعامكَ [الأصول في النحو لابن السراج 2/235]

Instead, we will say:

(616) إنَّ زيدًا لآكلٌ طعامَكَ [الأصول في النحو لابن السراج 2/235]
«Indeed Zayd is eating your food.»

Also, if the subject has a attribute which occurs between it and the info, then again لَ of beginning is placed with the info. For example:

(617) إنّ زيدًا الفاضِلَ لَقَائِمٌ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/355]
«Indeed the excellent Zayd is standing»

32.12.2. The لَ of beginning placed before the subject of إِنَّ

So far, we have seen the لَ of beginning attached before the info of إِنَّ. But, if the info occurs before the subject in word order, then لَ of beginning is actually atached before the subject. In this way, لَ of beginning again occurs between the subject and the info. For example:

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(618) إن في الدار لزيدا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/373]
«Indeed in the house is Zayd.»

If the info occurs after the subject in word order, but a governee of the info occurs before the subject, then we have two options: لَ of beginning may optionally be attached before the subject or before the info. For example:

(619) إن فيها زيدًا لقائم
إن فيها لزيدًا قائم
[شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/357]
«Indeed in it Zayd is standing.»

32.12.3. The لَ of beginning with a separating-pronoun

If a separating-pronoun occurs between the subject and the info of إِنَّ, and a لَ of beginning is to be used, then the لَ of beginning will be attached before the separating-pronoun. For example, if we start with:

(620) إن زيدًا هو القائم [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/357]
«Indeed Zayd is the standing one.»

and we add لَ of beginning, we get:

(621) إن زيدًا لَهو القائم [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/357]
«Indeed Zayd is the standing one.»

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32.13. When to use إِنَّ vs أَنَّ

32.13.1. The basic principle

The basic principle in choosing whether to use إِنَّ vs أَنَّ is:

- إِنَّ is used to begin a complete sentence. As a complete sentence, it can then be a part of an larger sentence.
- أَنَّ is used to begin a clause which is part of a larger sentence. The larger sentence, in order for its meaning to work, requires a maṣdari interpretation of the أَنَّ clause.

In theory, this is a pretty clear demarcation. But in practice it can be a little tricky to tell when to use إِنَّ vs أَنَّ. Let's work through some examples:

(622) نُطْقِي اللَّهُ حَسْبِي
[Wright 2/256D, شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/204, previously cited in section (ref)]
« My utterance is "Allāh is sufficient for me." »

In the example above, the sentence info اللَّهُ حَسْبِي « Allāh is sufficient for me », is simply being reported as speech. It's not an interpreted maṣdar of the info which is expressing a property about the subject نُطْقِي. Rather, the info, as a complete sentence, is the complement of the subject. So it can begin with إِنَّ but not أَنَّ, thus: نُطْقِي إِنَّ اللَّهُ حَسْبِي.

Here are a couple more examples:

(623) خَيْرُ الْقَوْلِ إِنِّي أَحْمَدُ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/355]
« The best of speech is: Indeed I praise. »

(624) قَوْلِي إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/325]
« My saying is: Indeed he is excellent. »

But if the info expresses a property about the subject, not as a complete sentence, but as an interpreted maṣdar, then أَنَّ is used. For example:

(625) اعْتِقَادِي أَنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/325]
« My belief is that he is excellent. »
(i.e. اعْتِقَادِي فَضْلُهُ « My belief is his being excellent. »)

In the example above, it is not exactly the sentence هُوَ فَاضِلٌ "he is excellent" which is my belief. Rather my belief is his *being* excellent.

Here are some more examples of a complete sentence with إِنَّ in a larger sentence. In all the examples, the إِنَّ sentence is part of the larger sentence, *as is*. It does not need to be interpreted as a maṣdar construction.

(626) زَيْدٌ إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/324]
« Zayd – indeed he is excellent. »

(627) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/323]
« I passed by a indeed-he-is-excellent man. »
(The sentence إِنَّهُ فَاضِلٌ is the attribute of رَجُل.)

(628) أَحْتَرِمُ الَّذِي إِنَّهُ مُخْلِصٌ فِي عَمَلِهِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/275]
« I respect the one who – indeed he is sincere in his work. »
(The إِنَّ sentence إِنَّهُ مُخْلِصٌ فِي عَمَلِهِ is the connecting sentence of the connected noun الَّذِي. See chapter (ref).)

(629) جِئْتُ وَإِنَّ الشَّمْسَ تَغْرُبُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/276]
« I came while the sun was setting. »
(The إِنَّ sentence جِئْتُ وَإِنَّ الشَّمْسَ تَغْرُبُ is a ḥāl. See chapter (ref).)

Now let's again consider some tricky areas:

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32.13.2. When إِنَّ or أَنَّ occur as a annexed-to

Consider the following sentence:

(630) اجْلِسْ حَيْثُ إِنَّ زَيْدًا جَالِسٌ [1/355 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«Sit where – indeed Zayd is sitting.»

In the above example حَيْثُ is an adverb of place (see chapter (ref)) which is a annexe to the sentence-annexed-to إِنَّ زَيْدًا جَالِسٌ. The إِنَّ sentence does not require the maṣdari interpretation جُلُوس for the meaning to work.

Now consider this sentence:

(631) قَالَ كَعْبُ بْنُ مَالِكٍ لَمْ أَتَخَلَّفْ عَنْ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم فِي غَزْوَةٍ غَزَاهَا قَطُّ إِلاَّ فِي غَزْوَةِ تَبُوكَ غَيْرَ أَنِّي قَدْ تَخَلَّفْتُ فِي غَزْوَةِ بَدْرٍ ... [صحيح مسلم: 2769a]
«Kaɛb ibn Mālik said, "I didn't remain behind the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ in any expedition that he went on, ever, except in the expedition of Tabūk, other than that I remained behind in the expedition of Badr …»

In this example, the أَنَّ clause أَنِّي قَدْ تَخَلَّفْتُ is annexed-to of غَيْرَ. أَنَّ is used instead of إِنَّ because, in order for the meaning to work, the maṣdar of تَخَلَّفَ is interpreted, thus: غَيْرَ تَخَلُّفِي «other than my remaining behind».

32.13.3. In reported speech

When a sentence is reported as (direct or indirect) speech, then إِنَّ is used instead of أَنَّ in the beginning of the reported speech. (By the way, direct speech can also begin without إِنَّ.) Here are examples with إِنَّ:

(632) تُعَيّرنا أَنَّا قليلٌ عَدِيدنا فقلتُ لها إنّ الكرام قليلُ [1/650 النحو الوافي]
«She reproaches us that we – our number is few. So I said to her, "Indeed the noble are few."»

(633) فَقِيلَ لَهَا إِنَّهُ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 1283]
«Then it was said to her Indeed he is the Prophet ﷺ»

In the following example, the pronoun in إِنَّهَا indicates indirect speech, yet still إِنَّ is used instead of أَنَّ:

(634) قَالَتْ إِنَّهَا حُبْلَى مِنَ الزِّنَا [صحيح مسلم: 1695a]
«She said that she had become pregnant as a result of fornication.»

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The reason for using إِنَّ instead of أَنَّ is, again, that that the reported speech is not interpreted as a maṣdar in order to connect it to the verb قَالَ before it. Rather, the entire reported speech is, as is, the direct object of the verb قَالَ.

With other verbs that may indicate reported speech, أَنَّ is typically used. For example:

(635) صَلَّى بِنَا سَعِيدُ بْنُ جُبَيْرٍ بِجَمْعٍ الْمَغْرِبَ ثَلاَثًا بِإِقَامَةٍ ثُمَّ سَلَّمَ ثُمَّ صَلَّى الْعِشَاءَ رَكْعَتَيْنِ ثُمَّ ذَكَرَ أَنَّ عَبْدَ اللَّهِ بْنَ عُمَرَ فَعَلَ ذَلِكَ وَذَكَرَ أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم فَعَلَ ذَلِكَ [سنن النسائي: 483]

«Sa'eed bin Jubair led us in prayer in Jam'. (He prayed) Maghrib, three Rak'ahs with an Iqamah, then he prayed 'Isha', two Rak'ahs. Then he mentioned that 'Abdullah bin 'Umar had done that, and he mentioned that the Messenger of Allah ﷺ had done that.»

The reason is that now, the maṣdari meaning of the speech is interpreted as the direct object of ذَكَرَ. That is, «he mentioned [#3abd] Allāh's doing that».

Ocassionally, we will find أَنَّ used with قَالَ. And that is when قَالَ is not simply reporting speech, but signifying the speaker's belief, estimation, or claim of the *maṣdari content* of the following speech.[12] For example:

(636) أتقول المراصدُ أن الجو بارد فى الأسبوع المقبل [النحو الوافي 1/650]

«Does the forecaster say that the weather is cold in the upcoming week?» (i.e. «Does the forecaster estimate the weather to be cold …»)

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32.13.4. After mental verbs

After, mental verbs (see chapter (ref), if a sentence suspends its government (see section (ref)), then either إِنَّ or أَنَّ may be used. For example:

(637) علمت إن الرياءَ بلاءٌ
علمت أَن الرياءَ بلاءٌ
[النحو الوافي 1/651]
«I knew that showing off is a trial.»

If لَ of beginning is used, then, of course; it would only be used with إِنَّ not أَنَّ. For example:

(638) علمت إن الإسراف لطريق الفقر [النحو الوافي 1/651]
«I knew indeed extravagance is the path to poverty.»

[12] النحو الوافي 1/650; see also شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/319

32.13.5. After إِذَا or suddenness

After إِذَا or suddenness (see chapter (ref)), either إِنَّ or أَنَّ may be used[13]:

(639) خرجت فإذا إن زيدا قائم
خرجت فإذا أن زيدا قائم
[شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/356]
«I came out [and] suddenly Zayd was standing.»

32.13.6. After an oath

النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 278
النحو الوافي 1/650

32.13.7. After ف in a condition-response

When the condition-response begins with a فَ, either إِنَّ or أَنَّ (or neither) may be used.[14] For example:

(640) إِنْ تَجْتَهِدْ فَإِنَّكَ/فَأَنَّكَ نَاجِحٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/279]
«If you exert yourself then you will be successful.»

32.14. A conjunction following إِنَّ and its sisters

When a conjunction is used with the subject of إِنَّ, and the post-conjunction is placed after the info of إِنَّ then it can optionally either be put in the a-case or the u-case. For example:

(641) إن زيدا قائم وعمرا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/375]

(642) إن زيدا قائم وعمرو [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/376]

If the post-conjunction is put in the u-case (وَعَمْرٌو), then it can be thought of as the subject of a new sentence, i.e.:

(643) إن زيدا قائم وَعَمْرٌ [كَذَلِكَ] [modified from شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/376]
«Indeed Zayd is standing and Ɛamr [is like that as well].»

[13] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/277; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/356. Also see editor's footnote.
[14] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/279

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When post-conjunction is put before the info of إِنَّ, then according to the dominant view, the post-conjunction must be in the a-case. So we will say:

(644) إن زيدا وعمرا قائمان [1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

(645) إنك وزيدا ذاهبان [1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

Some grammarians permitted the post-conjunction to be in the u-case in this case as well.[15]

The rules for أَنَّ and لَـكِنَّ are the same as the rules for إِنَّ. So we will say, for example:

(646) علمت أن زيدا قائم وعمرو/وعمرا [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

(647) علمت أن زيدا وعمرا قائمان [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

(648) لكن عمرا منطلق وخالدا/خالد [modified from 1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

(649) لكن عمرا وخالدا منطلقان [modified from 1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

As for كَأَنَّ, لَيْتَ, and لَعَلَّ, only the a-case is permitted for the post-conjunction, whether or not it is after the info or before. So we will say, for example:

(650) ليت زيدا وعمرا قائمان [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

(651) ليت زيدا قائم وعمرا [1/377 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

As mentioned, كَأَنَّ and لَعَلَّ are treated similarly to the above two examples.

32.15. The lightened إِنْ

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The particles إِنَّ, أَنَّ, كَأَنَّ, and لَـكِنَّ, because of the s͡haddah on the ن, can be termed *heavy*. They have have *lightened-from-the-heavy* versions: إِنْ, أَنْ, كَأَنْ, and لَـكِنْ. The lightened particles have somewhat different rules from their original heavy counterparts. In this section we will treat the lightened إِنْ. We will treat the rest of the lightened particles in subsequent sections, if Allāh wills.

[15] 1/376 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

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32.15.1. Government of the lightened إِنْ

The lightened إِنْ is less assertive in meaning than the heavy إِنَّ.[16]. In using it there are two optional possibilities:

The first, and more common, option is that the lightened leaves the case of its subject in the u-case, just like a basic nounal sentence. But now, a لَ is almost always required. For example:

(652) إِنْ سَعِيدٌ لَمُجْتَهِدٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/296–297]
«Indeed Saɛīd is an exerter [of himself].»

Note that the subject سَعِيدٌ is in the u-case, and that a لَ is used with the info: لَمُجْتَهِدٌ. This لَ is now called the *differentiator* لَ, because it differentiates the lightened إِنْ from another type of إِنْ called the *negating*-إِنْ (see chapter (ref)). Occasionally, when the meaning is clear without it, the differentiator لَ may be omitted.[17] For example:

(653) إِنِ الْعَاقِلُ يَتَّبِعُ سَبِيلَ الرَّشَادِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297]
«Indeed the sensible one follows the path of right conduct.»

The second, and less commonly used, option is for the lightened إِنْ to govern its subject in the a-case, just like the heavy إِنَّ. Now the لَ (called لَ of beginning again) is optional, as it was with إِنَّ. Examples:

(654) إِنْ سَعِيدًا مُجْتَهِدٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297]
«Indeed Saɛīd is an exerter [of himself].»

(655) وَإِنَّ كُلًّا لَّمَّا لَيُوَفِّيَنَّهُمْ رَبُّكَ أَعْمَٰلَهُمْ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297 cited by 11:111 سورة هود]
«And indeed, each [of the believers and disbelievers] - your Lord will fully compensate them for their deeds.»

32.15.2. A verbal sentence after the lightened إِنْ

Unlike the heavy إِنَّ, the lightened إِنْ can be followed directly by a verb. But the verb that follows it is usually constrained to be a canceling verb. Examples:

(656) وَإِن كَانَتْ لَكَبِيرَةً إِلَّا عَلَى ٱلَّذِينَ هَدَى ٱللَّهُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297 cited by 2:143 سورة البقرة]
«And indeed, it is difficult except for those whom Allāh has guided.»

[16] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/299
[17] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297

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(657) قَالَ تَٱللَّهِ إِن كِدتَّ لَتُرۡدِينِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297 cited by 37:56 سورة الصافات]
«He will say, "By Allāh, you almost ruined me.»

(658) وَإِن نَّظُنُّكَ لَمِنَ ٱلۡكَٰذِبِينَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/297 cited by 26:186 سورة الشعراء]
«and indeed, we think you are among the liars.»

(659) وَإِن يَكَادُ ٱلَّذِينَ كَفَرُواْ لَيُزۡلِقُونَكَ بِأَبۡصَٰرِهِمۡ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/298 cited by 68:51 سورة القلم]
«And indeed, those who disbelieve would almost make you slip with their eyes [i.e., looks]»

(660) وَايْمُ اللَّهِ إِنْ كَانَ لَخَلِيقًا لِلإِمَارَةِ، وَإِنْ كَانَ لَمِنْ أَحَبِّ النَّاسِ إِلَيَّ [صحيح البخاري: 6627]
«By Allāh, he was fit for [assuming] the command, and he was from the most beloved of people to me.»

Rarely, a non-canceling verb is found to occur after the lightened إِنْ. For example:

(661) إِنْ قَتَلْتَ لَمُسْلِمًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/382, النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/298]
«Indeed you killed a Muslim»

The analysis of this sentence is that the subject of the lightened إِنْ is implicated to be a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun. And the verb which follows with its governees is a sentence which is the info of the lightened إِنْ.[18]

32.16. The lightened أَنْ

32.16.1. Government of the lightened أَنْ

The lightened أَنْ retains the government of the the heavy إِنَّ.[19] But its subject is (almost) always a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun. And its info is then a complete sentence. For example:

(662) علمت أن زيد قائم [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/383]
«I knew that [the state-of-affairs is:] Zayd is standing.»

Note, in the above example, that زَيدٌ is in the u-case because it is the subject of an independent sentence زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ. The subject of أَنْ is a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun, implicated thus: أَنَّهُ.

[18] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين 26/6
[19] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/300

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Occasionally, the subject the lightened أَنْ is not deleted, in which case it won't be a state-of-affairs pronoun.[20] In this case the info may either be a single noun or a complete sentence.[21]

(663) أَظنُّ أَنْكَ قائمٌ [4/552 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«I estimate that you are standing.»

(664) أحسبُ أَنَّهُ ذاهبٌ [4/552 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«I deem that he is going.»

But most of the time, the subject of the lightened أَنْ will be a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun, and its info will be a sentence. The sentence which is the info of this lightened أَنْ can begin either with a noun or with a verb.

When it begins with a noun, then it does not need any separation between it and the أَنْ. For example:

(665) وَءَاخِرُ دَعْوَىٰهُمْ أَنِ ٱلْحَمْدُ لِلَّهِ رَبِّ ٱلْعَٰلَمِينَ [سورة يونس 10:10 cited by أحكام النحو العربي: 301 ومعان]
«And the last of their call will be, "Praise to Allāh, Lord of the worlds!"»

Similarly, if the sentence info begins with a fixed verb, then again no separation is needed between it and the أَنْ. For example:

(666) وَأَن لَّيْسَ لِلْإِنسَٰنِ إِلَّا مَا سَعَىٰ [سورة النجم 53:39]
«And that there is not for man except that [good] for which he strives»

(667) أَوَلَمْ يَنظُرُواْ فِى مَلَكُوتِ ٱلسَّمَٰوَٰتِ وَٱلْأَرْضِ وَمَا خَلَقَ ٱللَّهُ مِن شَىْءٍ وَأَنْ عَسَىٰٓ أَن يَكُونَ قَدِ ٱقْتَرَبَ أَجَلُهُمْ ۖ [سورة الأعراف 7:185 cited by أحكام ومعان: 301 النحو العربي]
«Do they not look into the realm of the heavens and the earth and everything that Allāh has created and [think] that perhaps their appointed time has come near?»

But if the verb is flexible, then it is preferred that it be separated from the lightened أَنْ by one of the following:

- قَدْ. For example:

(668) قَالُواْ نُرِيدُ أَن نَّأْكُلَ مِنْهَا وَتَطْمَئِنَّ قُلُوبُنَا وَنَعْلَمَ أَن قَدْ صَدَقْتَنَا وَنَكُونَ عَلَيْهَا مِنَ ٱلشَّٰهِدِينَ [سورة المائدة 5:113 cited by أحكام ومعان: 301 النحو العربي]
«They said, "We wish to eat from it and let our hearts be reassured and know that you have been truthful to us and be among its witnesses."»

[20] 1/384 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية ;1/300 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان
[21] 1/385 editors footnote شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية

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- The particles سَ or سَوْفَ. For example:

(669) عَلِمَ أَن سَيَكُونُ مِنكُم مَّرْضَىٰ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان cited by 73:20 سورة المزمل 1/301]

- One of the particle of negation لَا, لَنْ, or لَمْ

(670) أَفَلَا يَرَوْنَ أَلَّا يَرْجِعُ إِلَيْهِمْ قَوْلًا [1/302 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان cited by 20:89 سورة طه]

(671) أَيَحْسَبُ أَن لَّمْ يَرَهُۥٓ أَحَدٌ [1/302 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان cited by 90:7 سورة البلد]

(672) أَيَحْسَبُ ٱلْإِنسَٰنُ أَلَّن نَّجْمَعَ عِظَامَهُۥ [النحو العربي: أحكام cited by 73:3 سورة المزمل 1/302 ومعان]

In (non-Qurʾānic) SCA, أَنْ is not joined in writing to the following particle. So we will write أَنْ لَا[22], أَنْ لَنْ, and أَنْ لَمْ. But in pronunciation, the ن is assimilated with the ل, as usual, so we will say *ʾallā*, *ʾallan*, and *ʾallam*, respectively. For example:

(673) تَيَقَّنْتُ أَنْ لاَ أُسَافِرُ [4/298 النحو الوافي]
«I was sure that I will not journey.»

- The conditional particle لَوْ For example:

(674) وَأَلَّوِ ٱسْتَقَٰمُواْ عَلَى ٱلطَّرِيقَةِ لَأَسْقَيْنَٰهُم مَّآءً غَدَقًا [النحو العربي: cited by 72:16 سورة الجن 1/302 أحكام ومعان]

32.16.2. When to use the lightened أَنْ vs the a-case-izing أَنْ

When أَنْ is to be followed by a PC verb (whether or not separated by a particle like لَا), then the question is should we use the lightened أَنْ or the a-case-izing أَنْ?

If we choose the lightened أَنْ, then the PC verb is put in the u-case. For example:

(675) عَلِمْتُ أَنْ لاَ يَخْرُجُ زَيْدٌ [4/553 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«I knew that Zayd will not go out.»

And if we choose the a-case-izing أَنْ, then the PC verb is put in the u-case. For example:

(676) اشْتَهَيْتُ أَنْ لاَ يَخْرُجَ زَيْدٌ [3/406 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي][23]
«I desired that Zayd not go out.»

[22] 4/298 النحو الوافي

[23] The term مخففة is used by the authour here to mean أن الخفيفة الناصبة للمضارع as can be seen from the statement أفعال العلم واليقين والمعرفة وما جرى مجراها من أفعال التحقيق تختص به " أنّ " المشددة الناصبة للأسماء دون " أن " المخففة الناصبة للأفعال

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The general principle is that the lightened أَنْ is used when the verb before it signifies certainty, like عَلِمَ «to know». This is because it is the lightened from the heavy أَنَّ, which is used assertively.

As for the a-case-izing أَنْ, it is used when the verb before it signfies a wanting for something to happen, or a fearing that something not happen. Here are some examples that can illustrate this:

(677) عَلِمْتُ أَنْ سَيَخْرُجُ زَيْدٌ [modified from شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I knew that Zayd will go out.»

(678) أَرْجُو أَنْ تُحْسِنَ إِلَيَّ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I hope that you will do good to me.»

(679) أَخَافُ أَنْ تُسِيءَ إِلَيَّ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I fear that you will do evil to me.»

There are a class of verbs that vary in the amount of certainty or wanting that they signify. Such verbs include: ظَنَّ «to conjecture», حَسِبَ «to deem», خَالَ «to imagine», رَأَىٰ «to opine», etc. In this context, they can be translated in idiomatic English as «to think». Furthermore, the sc verb can be used where in Eng;ish we would use the present tense (in accordance with what we learned in section (madi used for moment of utterance)).

With such verbs, both the lightened أَنْ (and therefore also the heavy أَنَّ), and the a-case-izing أَنْ can be used. In theory, the lightened أَنْ (and the heavy أَنَّ) is used when the speaker *believes* the following statement to be true.[24]

For example:

(680) ظَنَنْتُ أَنَّكَ تَخْرُجُ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I [believe] that you are going out.»
or «I [believe] that you will go out.»

(681) ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ سَتَخْرُجُ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/554]
«I [believe] that you will go out.»

(682) حسبت أن زيدا منطلق [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406]
«I [believe] that Zayd is setting out.»

(683) ظننت أنك أخونا [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406]
«I [believe] that you are our brother.»

(684) قَدْ حَسِبْتُ أَنْ لَا تَقُولُ ذَلِكَ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406]
«I [believe] that you will not say that.»

[24] شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/406

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(685) أَرَىٰ أَنْ سَيَفْعَلُ [3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]
«I [believe] that he will do [it].»

Conversely, the a-case-izing أَنْ is used when the the speaker *feels* the following statement, without any strong evidence or indicator which is guiding his feeling.[25]

(686) ظننت أن تَخْرُجَ [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«I [feel] that you will go out.»

(687) ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ لاَ تَفْعَلَ [3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]
«I [feel] that you will not do [it]»

Despite this theoretical difference between the two uses, practically, the a-case-izing أَنْ is used more commonly in such situations because it is the default.[26]

When أَنْ is followed directly be a SC verb (without an intervening قَدْ), then it seems that the أَنْ is a-case-izing (despite their being no effect of the a-case-izing أَنْ on the SC verb). This is because the lightened أَنْ would have required قَدْ.[27] For example:

(688) كرِهتُ أن قمتَ [5/97 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«I disliked that you stood.»

We list the following examples to illustrate the range of أَنْ.

(689) تَظُنُّ أَن يُفْعَلَ بِهَا فَاقِرَةٌ [3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي cited by 75:25 سورة القيامة]

(690) فَلَا جُنَاحَ عَلَيْهِمَآ أَن يَتَرَاجَعَآ إِن ظَنَّآ أَن يُقِيمَا حُدُودَ ٱللَّهِ [شرح 2:230 cited by سورة البقرة 3/407 كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي]

(691) وَحَسِبُوٓاْ أَلَّا تَكُونَ فِتْنَةٌ [شرح ابن 3/407; شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي cited by 5:71 سورة المائدة 4/554 يعيش على المفصل]
«And they thought there would be no [resulting] punishment»
(Some recitations have the verb following أَنْ in the u-case.[28])

(692) أَيَحْسَبُ أَن لَّمْ يَرَهُۥٓ أَحَدٌ [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل cited by 90:7 سورة البلد]

(693) عَلِمَ أَن سَيَكُونُ مِنكُم مَّرْضَىٰ [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل cited by 73:20 سورة المزمل]

(694) أَفَلَا يَرَوْنَ أَلَّا يَرْجِعُ إِلَيْهِمْ قَوْلًا [4/554 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل cited by 20:89 سورة طه]

[25] 3/407 شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي
[26] 64 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى
[27] But see البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة النور 24:9 for the recitation أَنْ غَضِبَ ٱللَّهُ (cited by: النحو العربي 1/301). See also تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة النور 24:9 for a counter-argument.
[28] 4/554 footnote 7 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

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(695) وَٱلَّذِىٓ أَطْمَعُ أَن يَغْفِرَ لِى خَطِيٓـَٔتِى يَوْمَ ٱلدِّينِ [شرح ابن يعيش على 26:82 cited by سورة الشعراء المفصل 4/554]

(696) وَأَنَا أَرْجُو أَنْ يُبَرِّئَنِي اللَّهُ، وَلَكِنْ وَاللَّهِ مَا ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ يُنْزِلَ فِي شَأْنِي وَحْيًا [صحيح البخاري: 2661]

(697) فَأَنْزَلَ اللَّهُ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ وَفَخِذُهُ عَلَى فَخِذِي فَثَقُلَتْ عَلَيَّ حَتَّى ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ سَتُرَضَّ فَخِذِي [سنن النسائي: 3099]

(698) وَحَسِبْتُ أَنْ قَدْ قَالَ وَالرَّجُلُ رَاعٍ فِي مَالِ أَبِيهِ [صحيح البخاري: 2751]

(699) وَاعْلَمُوا أَنْ لَنْ يُدْخِلَ أَحَدَكُمْ عَمَلُهُ الْجَنَّةَ [صحيح البخاري: 6464]

(700) عَنِ ابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ أَنَّ النَّبِيَّ قَالَ سَأَلْتُ اللَّهَ مَسْأَلَةً وَدِدْتُ أَنِّي لَمْ أَكُنْ سَأَلْتُهُ ذَكَرْتُ رُسُلَ رَبِّي فَقُلْتُ يَا رَبِّ سَخَّرْتَ لِسُلَيْمَانَ الرِّيحَ وَكَلَّمْتَ مُوسَى فَقَالَ تَبَارَكَ وَتَعَالَى أَلَمْ أَجِدْكَ يَتِيمًا فَآوَيْتُكَ وَضَالًّا فَهَدَيْتُكَ وَعَائِلًا فَأَغْنَيْتُكَ؟ قَالَ فَقُلْتُ نَعَمْ فَوَدِدْتُ أَنْ لَمْ أَسْأَلْهُ [مستدرك الحاكم: 3944]

(701) تَمَنَّيْتُ أَنِّي لَمْ أَكُنْ أَسْلَمْتُ قَبْلَ ذَلِكَ الْيَوْمِ [صحيح مسلم: 96b]

(702) وَدِدْتُ أَنِّي نَجَوْتُ مِنْهَا كَفَافًا لاَ لِي وَلاَ عَلَيَّ [صحيح البخاري: 7218]

(703) إِنِّي وَدِدْتُ أَنْ أَتَخَلَّصَ مِنْهَا لَا عَلَيَّ وَلَا لِي [صحيح ابن حبان: 4478]

(704) مَا زَالَ بِكُمْ صَنِيعُكُمْ حَتَّى ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ سَتُكْتَبَ عَلَيْكُمْ [سنن أبي داود: 1447][29]

(705) فَزَعَمْتَ أَنْ قَدْ فَعَلَ [صحيح البخاري: 2940]

(706) فَخَرَرْتُ سَاجِدًا وَعَرَفْتُ أَنْ قَدْ جَاءَ فَرَجٌ [صحيح مسلم: 2769a]
«So I fell down prostrating and I knew that a relief had come.»

(707) ثُمَّ يُخَلِّلُ بِيَدِهِ شَعَرَهُ، حَتَّى إِذَا ظَنَّ أَنْ قَدْ أَرْوَى بَشَرَتَهُ، أَفَاضَ عَلَيْهِ الْمَاءَ ثَلاَثَ مَرَّاتٍ [صحيح البخاري: 272]
«Then he [would] get the water in the interstices of his hair with his hand until when he thought that he had wettened his skin, he poured on it water three times.»

32.17. The lightened كَأَنْ

Similar to the lightened أَنْ, the lightened كَأَنْ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun as its subject and its info is sentence.

النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/303

[29] It is not clear to us why the source has سَتُكْتَبَ in the a-case.

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32.18. The lightened لَـٰكِنْ

النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/304

32.19. إِنَّمَا and أَنَّمَا

النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 290
TODO

32.20. FINI

32.20.1. Difference between interpreted maṣdar and actual maṣdar

Move to chapter on subjunctive verb:
https://shamela.ws/book/150600/124#p1:
□□□□ □□ □□□□□ "□□□□□ □□□□□" :□□□□ □□□ :□□□□□□□□□ □□□□□ □□□ "□□□□ □□□ □□□□□" :□□□ □□□ □□□□□□ □□ □□□□□□ □□□ □□□□□□□ □□□□□ □□□ □□□□□□□

Work in progress

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Chapter 33.

The mental verbs

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Work in progress

33.1. Introduction

Consider the sentence:

(708) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

This entire sentence can be the inner sentence of a compound sentence as the direct object of the verb قَالَ. So we can say:

(709) قُلْتُ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«I said, “Zayd is standing.”»

In example () above, the verb قَالَ does not exercise its government *within* the inner sentence زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ. Rather, the inner sentence is, as a whole, the (positional) direct object. This is because the verb قَالَ does not have a meaningful connection with the *content* of the inner sentence. It is simply relating the sentence as direct speech.

In addition to a nounal sentence like زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ, a verbal sentence too can be the direct object of قَالَ. So, for example, we can say:

(710) قُلْتُ ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ [شرح الرضي على الكافية]
«I said, “Zayd beat.”»

Now let's consider what happens when a nounal sentence is made the direct object of a class of verbs called *mental verbs*.

Mental verbs are a class of verbs that signify actions taking place within the mind. Some examples of mental verbs are:

- ظَنَّ «to conjecture, assume»
- عَلِمَ «to know»
- حَسِبَ «to deem»
- خَالَ «to imagine»

These verbs can take a inner nounal sentence as a direct object, but instead of taking the entire inner sentence as one direct object, the mental verb exercises its government within the inner sentence and governs the original subject and info of the inner sentence individually as two direct objects. For example:

(711) ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا
«I assumed Zayd to be standing.»

Note that زَيْدًا and قَائِمًا are both in the a-case because they are, individually, the direct objects of ظَنَّ. The verb ظَنَّ is able to break up the original nounal sentence زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ and govern its constituents individually because it has a meaningful connection with the content of the inner sentence. This is because the original subject (زَيْد)'s relationship with the original info (قَائِم) is only established via the meaning of the verb ظَنَّ. That is, the sentence in example () above is not saying that Zayd is standing. Rather it is saying that *I thought* Zayd to be standing. So Zayd's "standing-ness" is only established via my assumption of it.

The mental verb thus describes the nature of speaker's belief of the actuality of the original info ocurring from the original subject.[1]

So, for example, ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا signifies my *assumption* of Zayd's standing. And عَلِمْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا signifies my *knowledge* of Zayd's standing.

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33.2. The lean of the mental verb sentence

The basic nounal sentence consists of a subject and a info. For example:

(712) زَيْدٌ أَخُوكَ
«Zayd is your brother.»

[1] شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/153

In example () above, زَيْدٌ is the subject and أَخُوكَ is its info. Both are in the u-case because it is a basic nounal sentence. In terms of its lean, زَيْدٌ is the leaned-against element and أَخُوكَ is the leaning element. (Technically, the leaning element is أَخ. And it in turn is a annexe to the annexed-to كَ. But loosely speaking, we can say that the leaning element is the bundled أَخُوكَ.) With the leaned-against element and the leaning element in place, the sentence is leaned.

Now consider the following sentence:

(713) ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا أَخَاكَ [Peled, *Sentence types* 188]
«I thought Zayd to be your brother.»

In example () above, the verb ظَنَّ takes the subject and info of example (), and makes them into direct objects. The verb ظَنَّ requires a doer (as usual), which is the pronoun تُ «I». And it also requires two direct objects: زَيْدًا is the first direct object and أَخَاكَ is the second direct object.

This sentence is peculiar in its lean. This is because the indispensable elements are the two direct objects. زَيْدًا is the leaned-against element and أَخَاكَ is the leaning element.[2] The sentence is only leaned when both direct objects are in place. The sentence may still be categorized as a verbal sentence. However, unlike normal verbal sentences, the verb ظَنَّ and its doer are not the indispensable elements of the sentence. Rather ظَنَّ is the foundational government. Figure () depicts the government of example ().

DIAGRAM

Parallels of the lean of the ظَنَّ sentence may be found in the كَانَ and إِنَّ sentences:

(714) كَانَ زَيْدٌ أَخَاكَ [Peled, *Sentence types* 188]
«Zayd was your brother.»
(زَيْدٌ, the doer/subject, is the leaned-against element. أَخَاكَ, the direct object/info, is the leaning element. كَانَ is the foundational government.)

(715) إِنَّ زَيْدًا أَخُوكَ [Peled, *Sentence types* 188]
«Indeed Zayd is your brother.»
(زَيْدًا, the subject, is the leaned-against element. أَخُوكَ, the info, is the leaning element. إِنَّ is the foundational government.)

33.3. The mental verbs as passive verbs

When mental verbs are used in the passive voice, the first direct object (the one which is the subject in the basic nounal sentence) is made the deputy doer in

[2] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 433

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the u-case. And the second direct object (the one which is the info in the basic nounal sentence) remains a direct object in the a-case. So, example () above, becomes in the passive voice:

(716) ظُنَّ زَيْدٌ أَخَاكَ
«Zayd was thought to be your brother.»

Similarly,

(717) زَيْدٌ مَظْنُونٌ شُجَاعًا [Wright 2/52D]
«Zayd is thought to be brave.»

33.4. أَنَّ and أَنْ with mental verbs

Consider again the sentence:

(718) ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا
«I assumed Zayd to be standing.»

Literally زَيْدًا and قَائِمًا are both, individually, the direct objects of ظَنَّ. However, in terms of meaning, the taqdīr of the sentence is:

(719) ظَنَنْتُ قِيَامَ زَيْدٍ
«I assumed Zayd to be standing.»

That is, in the taqdīr of the sentence, ظَنَّ has one direct object which is the maṣdar (قِيَام) of the second direct object (قَائِم) annexed to the first direct object (زَيْد).

We have seen maṣdars as a taqdīr before in the analysis of أَنَّ and أَنْ. And this similarity allows أَنَّ and أَنْ (with their clauses) to optionally occur as the direct object of mental verbs.[3] So instead of saying ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا, we can instead say:

(720) ظَنَنْتُ أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«I assumed that Zayd is standing.»

or:

(721) ظَنَنْتُ أَنْ يَقُومَ زَيْدٌ
«I assumed that Zayd would stand.»

[3] النحو الوافي ;شرح الرضي على الكافية 2/43

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Now the أَنَّ and أَنْ clauses, respectively, are, formally, the single direct object of ظَنَّ. This substitution of the two direct objects of mental verbs can be considered a form of *suspension*,[4] but is really more basic than it. We will study suspension in Section 33.10 below, if Allāh wills.

In terms of meaning, example () above is more assertive than the original example (). Whereas, example () is less assertive and more doubtful than the original example ().

Here is another example of substituting the direct objects of a mental verb with an أَنَّ clause:

(722) عَلِمْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا
«I knew Zayd to be standing.»

(723) عَلِمْتُ أَنَّ زَيْدًا قَائِمٌ
«I knew that Zayd is standing.»

In this case, we will only use أَنَّ and not أَنْ because, as we learned in section (), only أَنَّ is used in cases of certainty, which is what the verb عَلِمَ implies.

In examples () and (), it was easy to come up with a maṣdari equivalence of the two direct objects of the mental verbs. This is because the second direct object (قَائِم) was a deverbal noun. But what if the the second direct object was a primitive noun? For example:

(724) عَلِمْتُ أَخَاكَ زَيْدًا [شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/152]
«I knew your brother to be Zayd.»

In this case we can manufacture a maṣdar from the primitive noun, and still retain the taqdīr, thus:

(725) عَلِمْتُ زَيْدِيَّةَ أَخِيكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/152]
«I knew the Zayd-ness of your brother.»

And using this maṣdari equivalence, we can substitute it with أَنَّ, thus:

(726) عَلِمْتُ أَنَّ أَخَاكَ زَيْدٌ
«I knew that your brother is Zayd.»

[4] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للحازمي 43/2; شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين 28/3

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33.5. The verbs that comprise the mental verbs

33.5.1. ظَنَّ

ظَنَّ يَظُنُّ is the typical mental verb. Its basic meaning is «to conjecture» or «to assume». But it (and the mental verbs in general) can often be translated as «to think».

ظَنَّ can be used in a range of circumstances from situations where its doer believes something to be certain, to cases where he is doubtful. Here are some examples:

(727) وَإِنِّى لَأَظُنُّكَ يَٰفِرْعَوْنُ مَثْبُورًا [17:102 cited by أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 1/331 سورة الإسراء]
«and indeed I think, O Pharaoh, that you are destroyed.»

(728) قُلْتُم مَّا نَدْرِى مَا ٱلسَّاعَةُ إِن نَّظُنُّ إِلَّا ظَنًّا وَمَا نَحْنُ بِمُسْتَيْقِنِينَ [45:32 cited by سورة الجاثية: النحو العربي 1/331 أحكام ومعان]
«you said, 'We know not what is the Hour. We assume only assumption, and we are not convinced.'»

(729) ظَنَنْتُكَ إِنْ شَبَّتْ لَظَى الْحَرْبِ صَالِيًا [cited by أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 1/331]
«I thought you, if the blaze of war is kindled, to be entering (therein)»

ظَنَّ following examples is interpreted to have certainty in its meaning:

(730) قَالَ ٱلَّذِينَ يَظُنُّونَ أَنَّهُم مُّلَٰقُوا۟ ٱللَّهِ كَم مِّن فِئَةٍ قَلِيلَةٍ غَلَبَتْ فِئَةً كَثِيرَةًۢ بِإِذْنِ ٱللَّهِ ۗ وَٱللَّهُ مَعَ ٱلصَّٰبِرِينَ[5] [2:249 cited by أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 1/332 سورة البقرة]
«But those who were certain that they would meet Allāh said, "How many a small company has overcome a large company by permission of Allāh. And Allāh is with the patient."»

(731) إِنِّى ظَنَنتُ أَنِّى مُلَٰقٍ حِسَابِيَهْ [69:20 cited by أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 1/332 سورة الحاقة]
«Indeed, I was certain that I would be meeting my account."»

(732) وَرَءَا ٱلْمُجْرِمُونَ ٱلنَّارَ فَظَنُّوٓا۟ أَنَّهُم مُّوَاقِعُوهَا وَلَمْ يَجِدُوا۟ عَنْهَا مَصْرِفًا[6] [18:53 cited by أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 1/332 سورة الكهف]
«And the criminals will see the Fire and will be certain that they are to fall therein. And they will not find from it a way elsewhere.»

[5] See تفسير ابن عثيمين for سورة البقرة 2:249
[6] See تفسير ابن عثيمين for سورة الكهف 18:53

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ظَنَّ can be used with both أَنَّ (as above) and the a-case-izing أَنْ. Here is an example with the a-case-izing أَنْ:

(733) تَظُنُّ أَن يُفْعَلَ بِهَا فَاقِرَةٌ [75:25 سورة القيامة]

Even so, example () above is interpreted to have certitude, or at least a preponderance of belief, in its meaning.[7]

The lightened أَنْ can also be used. For example:

(734) وَظَنُّوٓاْ أَن لَّا مَلۡجَأَ مِنَ ٱللَّهِ إِلَّآ إِلَيۡهِ [9:118 سورة التوبة]

أَنْ in example () above is interpreted to be the lightened أَنْ.[8]

Sometimes ظَنَّ can have a specialized meaning «to suspect». In this case, it no longer needs two direct objects, and will take only one direct object. For example:

(735) ظَنَّ القَاضِي فُلَانًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/331]
«The judge suspected so-and-so.»

(736) عُدِمَ لِي مَالٌ فَظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا [Howell §442 2/150]
«Some property of mine was missing so I suspected Zayd.»

33.5.2. عَلِمَ

عَلِمَ يَعْلَمُ means «to know». Here are some examples of its usage:

(737) عَلِمْتُكَ الْبَاذِلَ الْمَعْرُوفَ [Wright 2/49B]
«I have known you to be liberal in the exercise of bounty.»

(738) فَإِنۡ عَلِمۡتُمُوهُنَّ مُؤۡمِنَٰتٖ فَلَا تَرۡجِعُوهُنَّ إِلَى ٱلۡكُفَّارِۖ [النحو العربي: cited by 60:10 سورة الممتحنة أحكام ومعان 1/325]
«And if you know them to be believers, then do not return them to the disbelievers;»

(739) عَنِ ابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ، وَالْحَسَنِ بْنِ عَلِيٍّ ، مَرَّتْ بِهِمَا جَنَازَةٌ فَقَامَ أَحَدُهُمَا وَقَعَدَ الآخَرُ فَقَالَ الَّذِي قَامَ أَمَا وَاللَّهِ لَقَدْ عَلِمْتُ أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم قَدْ قَامَ قَالَ لَهُ الَّذِي جَلَسَ لَقَدْ عَلِمْتُ أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم قَدْ جَلَسَ [سنن النسائي: 1926]
«[It was narrated] from Ibn Ɛabbās and al-Ḥasan ibn Ɛaliyy: A funeral passed by them and one of them stood and the other [stayed] seated. The one who stood up said, "By Allāh, I know that the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ had stood up." The one who [stayed] seated said to him, "Indeed I know that the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ had [stayed] seated."»

[7] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة القيامة 75:25
[8] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة التوبة 9:118

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(740) إِنَّ رَبَّكَ يَعْلَمُ أَنَّكَ تَقُومُ أَدْنَىٰ مِن ثُلُثَيِ ٱلَّيْلِ وَنِصْفَهُۥ وَثُلُثَهُۥ وَطَآئِفَةٌ مِّنَ ٱلَّذِينَ مَعَكَ ۚ وَٱللَّهُ يُقَدِّرُ ٱلَّيْلَ وَٱلنَّهَارَ ۚ عَلِمَ أَن لَّن تُحْصُوهُ فَتَابَ عَلَيْكُمْ ۖ فَٱقْرَءُوا۟ مَا تَيَسَّرَ مِنَ ٱلْقُرْءَانِ ۚ عَلِمَ أَن سَيَكُونُ مِنكُم مَّرْضَىٰ وَءَاخَرُونَ يَضْرِبُونَ فِى ٱلْأَرْضِ يَبْتَغُونَ مِن فَضْلِ ٱللَّهِ وَءَاخَرُونَ يُقَٰتِلُونَ فِى سَبِيلِ ٱللَّهِ ۖ فَٱقْرَءُوا۟ مَا تَيَسَّرَ مِنْهُ ۚ وَأَقِيمُوا۟ ٱلصَّلَوٰةَ وَءَاتُوا۟ ٱلزَّكَوٰةَ وَأَقْرِضُوا۟ ٱللَّهَ قَرْضًا حَسَنًا ۚ وَمَا تُقَدِّمُوا۟ لِأَنفُسِكُم مِّنْ خَيْرٍ تَجِدُوهُ عِندَ ٱللَّهِ هُوَ خَيْرًا وَأَعْظَمَ أَجْرًا ۚ وَٱسْتَغْفِرُوا۟ ٱللَّهَ ۖ إِنَّ ٱللَّهَ غَفُورٌ رَّحِيمٌ [سورة المزمل 73:20]

«Indeed, your Lord knows, [O Muḥammad], that you stand [in prayer] almost two thirds of the night or half of it or a third of it, and [so do] a group of those with you. And Allāh determines [the extent of] the night and the day. He has known that you [Muslims] will not be able to do it and has turned to you in forgiveness, so recite what is easy [for you] of the Qur'ān. He has known that there will be among you those who are ill and others traveling throughout the land seeking [something] of the bounty of Allāh and others fighting for the cause of Allāh. So recite what is easy from it and establish prayer and give zakāh and loan Allāh a goodly loan. And whatever good you put forward for yourselves - you will find it with Allāh. It is better and greater in reward. And seek forgiveness of Allāh. Indeed, Allāh is Forgiving and Merciful.»

(أَنْ in أَنْ لَنْ and أَنْ سيكونُ is the lightened أَنْ,[9] whose subject is a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun.[10])

33.5.3. رَأَى

رَأَى يَرَى, as a sensory verb, means «to see» with the eye. As such, it will typically take one direct object. For example:

(741) رَأَيْتُهُ [Howell §442 2/150]
«I saw him»

When رَأَىٰ has this sensory meaning, then there may be a second a-case (indefinite) governee as a ḥāl.[11] For example:

(742) رَأَيْتُ زَيْدًا ضَاحِكًا [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 445]
«I saw Zayd laughing.»

[9] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة المزمل 73:20
[10] إعراب القرآن للدرويش for سورة المزمل 73:20
[11] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 445

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رَأَىٰ can also mean «to hold (an opinion)». In this case as well, it will take one direct object. For example:

(743) رَأَىٰ أَبُو حَنِيفَةَ حِلَّ كَذَا [Howell §442 2/150]
«Abū Ḥanīfah held (the opinion of) the lawfulness of such a thing.»

As a mental verb, رَأَى means «to regard» in the mind. It may still be translated as «to see», but this "seeing" is with the mind. Now رَأَى will take take two direct objects.

Here are some examples of رَأَى:

(744) رَأَيْتُ اللهَ أَكْبَرَ كُلِّ شَيْءٍ مُحَاوَلَةً وَأَكْثَرُهُمْ جُنُودًا [Howell §440 2/134]
«I regarded Allāh as the greatest of eveything in resource, and the most numerous of them in hosts.»

(745) إِنَّهُمْ يَرَوْنَهُۥ بَعِيدًا ۝ وَنَرَىٰهُ قَرِيبًا ۝ [سورة المعارج 70:6–7]
«Indeed, they see it [as] distant, But We see it [as] near.»

Even when رَأَى contains the meaning of a sensory verb, it can still take two direct objects when the mind takes what it sees and regards it to be something.[12] For example:

(746) يَا مَعْشَرَ النِّسَاءِ تَصَدَّقْنَ وَأَكْثِرْنَ فَإِنِّي رَأَيْتُكُنَّ أَكْثَرَ أَهْلِ النَّارِ لِكَثْرَةِ اللَّعْنِ وَكُفْرِ الْعَشِيرِ [مسند أحمد: 5343 cited by البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 447 footnote 1]
«O women, give charity and do a lot of it, for indeed I saw you to be the majority of the people of the Fire, because of much cursing [on your part] and being ungrateful to the husband.»

(747) رَأَيْتُهُمْ لِي سَاجِدِينَ [سورة يوسف 12:4 cited by شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/151]
«I saw them prostrating to me.»

33.5.4. حَسِبَ

حَسِبَ يَحْسَبُ means «to deem». As with ظَنَّ, it can be translated with the verb «think». Here are some examples:

(748) حَسِبْتُ التُّقَىٰ وَالْجُودَ خَيْرَ تِجَارَةٍ رَبَاحًا [Wright 2/49C]
«I deemed piety and generosity the best merchandise, in terms of profit.»

(749) وَلَا تَحْسَبَنَّ ٱلَّذِينَ قُتِلُوا۟ فِى سَبِيلِ ٱللَّهِ أَمْوَٰتًۢا [سورة آل عمران 3:169 cited by Wright 2/49C]
«And never think of those who have been killed in the cause of Allāh as dead.»

[12] See الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة يوسف; 2/327 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك; 447 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع; 4/151 شرح الرضي على الكافية; 12:4

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(750) صَنَعْنَا لِرَسُولِ اللهِ ﷺ فَخَّارَةً ، فَأَتَيْتُهُ بِهَا ، فَوَضَعْتُهَا بَيْنَ يَدَيْهِ ، فَاطَّلَعَ فِيهَا ، فَقَالَ : حَسِبْتُهُ لَحْمًا [مسند أحمد: 14581]
«We made a (clay) pot (of food) for the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ and I brought it to him. He peered into it and said, "I thought it was meat."»

(751) أَحَسِبَ ٱلنَّاسُ أَن يُتْرَكُوٓاْ أَن يَقُولُوٓاْ ءَامَنَّا وَهُمْ لَا يُفْتَنُونَ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للحازمي 43/2 cited by سورة العنكبوت 29:2]
«Do the people think that they will be left to say, "We believe" and they will not be tried?»
(The maṣdar from أَنْ يُتْرَكُوا fulfils the role of the two direct objects.[13])

33.5.5. وَجَدَ

وَجَدَ يَجِدُ is also a sensory verb which means «to find». When it is used to mean that the mind has found something to be another thing, then it is used as a mental verb and can take two direct objects. Examples:

(752) وَإِن وَجَدْنَآ أَكْثَرَهُمْ لَفَـٰسِقِينَ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/31 cited by سورة الأعراف 7:102]
«but indeed, We found most of them defiantly disobedient.»
(أَكْثَرَهُمْ and لَفَاسِقِينَ are both analyzed to be direct objects.)

(753) كُنَّا مَعْشَرُ قُرَيْشٍ قَوْمًا نَغْلِبُ النِّسَاءَ فَلَمَّا قَدِمْنَا الْمَدِينَةَ وَجَدْنَاهُمْ قَوْمًا تَغْلِبُهُمْ نِسَاؤُهُمْ [صحيح ابن حبان: 4268a]
«We, the people of Quraysh, were a people who were dominant over the women. But when we came to al-Madīnah, we found them to be a people whose women dominated them.»

As with رَأَى, when وَجَدَ is used merely as a sensory verb, then it will take only one direct object. A second a-case noun with it will then be construed as a ḥāl.[14] For example:

(754) وَجَدْتُهُ مَرِيضًا [Wright 2/50C]
«I found him sick.»
(مَرِيضًا is a ḥāl.)

Similarly:

(755) أَلَمْ يَجِدْكَ يَتِيمًا فَـَٔاوَىٰ ۝ وَوَجَدَكَ ضَآلًّا فَهَدَىٰ ۝ وَوَجَدَكَ عَآئِلًا فَأَغْنَىٰ ۝ [سورة الضحى 93:6–8]
«Did He not find you an orphan and give [you] refuge? And He found

[13] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للحازمي 43/2; الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة العنكبوت 29:2
[14] Wright 2/50C

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you lost and guided [you], And He found you poor and made [you] self-sufficient.»
(ضَالًّا, يَتِيمًا, and عَائِلًا are analyzed as ḥāls.[15] Although, a direct object interpretation for at least one of them also seems to be possible.[16])

33.5.6. خَالَ

خَالَ يَخَالُ خِلْتُ means «to imagine or fancy (something)». It too is often translated as «to think». خَالَ is irregular in that its speaker participant singular for the PC verb («I imagine») is more commonly إِخَالُ *ʾikẖālu* instead of أَخَالُ *ʾakẖālu*. For example,

(756) إِخَالُ زَيْدًا أَخَاكَ [Wright 2/49C]
«I imagine Zayd to be your brother.»

Here are some examples of خَالَ as a mental verb:

(757) فَأُتِيَ بِكُرْسِيٍّ خِلْتُ قَوَائِمَهُ حَدِيدًا [سنن النسائي: 5377] «Then he was brought a chair, whose legs I imagined to be of iron.»

(758) مَا إِخَالُ أَحَدًا يَعْقِلُ يَرْمِي حَتَّى تَطْلُعَ الشَّمْسُ [مسند أحمد: 2082]
«I don't imagine anyone of sense to stone until the sun rises.»

(The first direct object is أَحَدًا. And the second direct object is the verbal sentence يَرْمِي.)

33.5.7. زَعَمَ

زَعَمَ means «to claim».

33.5.8. دَرَى

Usually used only with أَنَّ.[17] Examples:

Rarely, it can take two direct objects directly. For example:

[Howell 2/135]

[15] تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة الضحى 93:6
[16] إعراب القرآن للدرويش for سورة الضحى 93:6
[17] شرح الرضي على الكافية claims it is only used with أَنَّ

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33.5.9. تَعَلَّمْ

rigid

Usually used only with أَنَّ.[18] Examples:

Rarely, it can take two direct objects directly. For example:

[Howell 2/135]

33.5.10. هَبْ

rigid

33.5.11. سَمِعَ

سَمِعَ is, by default, a sensory verb that means «to hear». And, as such, it takes one direct object. For example:

(759) سَمِعْتُ زَيْدًا
«I heard Zayd.»

(760) سَمِعْتُ صَوْتًا
«I heard a sound.»

But, as a special case, سَمِعَ can take two direct objects when the doer hears someone to be doing something. For example:

(761) سَمِعْتُ زَيْدٌ قَارِئًا [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 446]
«I heard Zayd reading.»
(The second direct object is the noun قَارِئًا.)

(762) سَمِعْتُ زَيْدٌ يَقْرَأُ [Howell §445 2/165]
«I heard Zayd reading.»
(The second direct object is the verbal sentence يَقْرَأُ.)

In these examples, قَارِئًا and يَقْرَأُ are not considered a ḥāl (as ضَاحِكًا was considered a ḥāl in example () رَأَيْتُ زَيْدًا ضَاحِكًا «I saw Zayd laughing.»). This is because the sentence, in this context, would not be leaned if you did not add the second direct object. That is, if, in this context, you said سَمِعْتُ زَيْدٌ and stopped, the listener would be left wondering, "You heard Zayd doing what?" So a second direct object has to be added which gives the action that Zayd was doing which produced a sound.[19] Similarly,

[18] شرح الرضي على الكافية claims it is only used with أَنَّ
[19] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة الأنبياء 21:60

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(763) قَالُواْ سَمِعْنَا فَتًى يَذْكُرُهُمْ يُقَالُ لَهُۥٓ إِبْرَٰهِيمُ [سورة الأنبياء 21:60]
«They said, "We heard a young man mention them who is called Abraham."»
(يَذْكُرُهُمْ is analyzed to be the second direct object of سَمِعَ.[20])

33.6. The second direct object can be a sentence or phrase

Because mental verbs govern what was originally a subject-info sentence, the first direct object may be anything which is allowed to be a subject, and the second direct object may be anything which is allowed to be a info. Thus, the second direct object may be a complete sentence in the positional a-case, or an adverbial or prepositional phrase.[21]

Here are some examples where the second direct object is a complete sentence:

(764) مَا عَلِمْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم نَكَحَ شَيْئًا مِنْ نِسَائِهِ وَلاَ أَنْكَحَ شَيْئًا مِنْ بَنَاتِهِ عَلَى أَكْثَرَ مِنْ ثِنْتَىْ عَشْرَةَ أُوقِيَّةً [جامع الترمذي: 1114b]
«I did not know the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ to marry any of his women, nor to give any of his daughters in marriage, for more than twelve Ūqiyahs.»
(First direct object is رَسُول الله «the Messenger of Allāh», second direct object is نَكَحَ «he married».)

(765) مَا عَلِمْتُهُ صَامَ شَهْرًا كُلَّهُ إِلاَّ رَمَضَانَ [صحيح مسلم: 1156b]
«I did not know him to fast any complete month except Ramaḍ̱hān.»
(First direct object is هُ «him», second direct object is صَامَ «he fasted».)

(766) ظَنَنْتُهُ يَدْعُو فِي الِاسْتِسْقَاءِ [صحيح ابن خزيمة: 1595] «I thought him to be supplicating in the rain prayer.»
(First direct object is هُ «him», second direct object is يَدْعُو «supplicating».)

Here is an example where the second direct object is a prepositional phrase:

(767) قَالَ أَمَا وَاللَّهِ إِنَّ ذَلِكَ لِتَغَيُّرِ ثَائِرَةٍ كَانَتْ مِنِّي إِلَيْهِمْ وَلَكِنِّي أَرَاهُمْ عَلَى ضَلَالَةٍ [مستدرك الحاكم: 4956]
«He said, "By Allāh, indeed that is because of a change in a matter between me and them, but I think them to be on misguidance."»
(First direct object is هُمْ «them», second direct object is عَلَى ضَلَالٍ «on misguidance».)

[20] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة الأنبياء 21:60
[21] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 443

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33.7. The first direct object may be a state-of-affairs pronoun

Just like the second direct object may be a complete sentence, similarly, the first direct object may be a state-of-affairs pronoun because a state-of-affairs pronoun can regularly be the subject of a nounal sentence. So we can say:

(768) حَسِبْتُ يَقُولُ زَيْدٌ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/152]
«I deemed [the state-of-affairs to be] Zayd is saying.»

In example () above, the first direct object of حَسِبَ is a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun, as if to say: حَسِبْتُهُ يَقُولُ زَيْدٌ.[22]

However, such usage will be rare.[23]

33.8. Mental verbs with only one direct object

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So far we have focused on mental verbs that take two direct objects. There are other mental verbs that take only one direct object, or no direct object. They are not so much the subject of this chapter, except that they can undertake a phenomenon called *suspension* that we will study in Section 33.10 below. In any case, we give examples of some of these verbs:

[Examples of عَرَفَ، تَفَكَّرَ]

Some of the mental verbs that can take two direct objects, while keeping their meaning as mental verbs, can take only one direct object. عَلِمَ is the prime example of this variation. For example, we may say:

(769) عَلِمْتُ زَيْدًا [شرح الرضي على الكافية (جامعة الإمام محمد)] 2/988]
«I knew Zayd.»

(770) عَلِمْتُ خُرُوجَ زَيْدٍ [شرح الرضي على الكافية (جامعة الإمام محمد)] 2/988]
«I knew Zayd's going out.»

Similarly:

(771) وَٱللَّهُ أَخۡرَجَكُم مِّنۢ بُطُونِ أُمَّهَٰتِكُمۡ لَا تَعۡلَمُونَ شَيۡـٔٗا [النحو العربي: cited by 16:78 سورة النحل
1/236 أحكام ومعان]

[22] شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/152
[23] footnote

«And Allāh has extracted you from the wombs of your mothers not knowing a thing»

(772) لَقَدْ عَلِمْتُ النَّظَائِرَ الَّتِي كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَقْرَأُ بِهِنَّ سُورَتَيْنِ فِي رَكْعَةٍ [صحيح مسلم :822e]
«I know the manners in which the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ recited two sūrahs in one rakɛah.»

Other mental verbs, like ظَنَّ usually require two direct objects.[24] Even so, sometimes they may take only one direct object when that direct object refers to the thought being perceived. This is because, as we discussed in section () above, even when the mental verb takes two direct objects, their taqdīr is a single direct object.[25] Here is an example of ظَنَّ with one direct object:

(773) وَلَقَدْ نَزَلْتِ فَلَا تَظُنِّي غَيْرَهُ مِنِّي بِمَنْزِلَةَ الْمُحَبِّ الْمُكْرَمِ [شرح الرضي على الكافية (جامعة الإمام محمد) 2/988]
«And surely you have alighted, so don't assume other than it from me, in the place of alighting of the honored beloved.»

ظَنَّ in example () above has only one direct object غَيْرَهُ. Similarly, the single direct object of ظَنَّ can be a pronoun or pointing noun referring to the the thought being perceived. For example:

(774) ظَنَنْتُ ذَاكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/120]
«I thought that.»

In example () above, ذَاكَ can be the single direct object of ظَنَّ, that refers to some thought.[26] The reason why ذَاكَ can be a direct object, and not necessarily refer to the maṣdar as a absolute object (as we will see shortly), is because one can add the maṣdar separately as the absolute object. For example:

(775) خِلْتُ ذَاكَ إِخَالَـهُ خَالًا [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 2/65]
«I imagined that, imagining it [with] an imagining.»
(خَالًا is the absolute object while إِخَالَهُ is taking the pronoun هُ as a direct object.)

Similarly, if someone says:

(776) أَظُنُّ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا [شرح الرضي على الكافية]
«I assume Zayd to be standing.»

[24] شرح الرضي على الكافية (جامعة الإمام محمد) 2/988
[25] شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/153
[26] شرح الرضي على الكافية citing الفراء

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then the reply to this can be:

(777) أَنَا أَيْضًا أَظُنُّـهُ [شرح الرضي على الكافية]
«I too assume it.»
(The pronoun هُ is a direct object and refers to the thought "Zayd is standing".)

Having said this, some grammarians were of the opinion that a single pronoun or pointing noun governed by ظَنَّ can only refer to the maṣdar of ظَنَّ, such that it is a deputy to the maṣdar as the absolute object.[27]

ظَنَّ can also occur with an indirect done-to, which signifies the thing being thought *about*. For example:

(778) ظَنَنْتُ بِهِ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/153]
«I thought about him.»

Consider also the following āyah:

(779) وَطَآئِفَةٌ قَدْ أَهَمَّتْهُمْ أَنفُسُهُمْ يَظُنُّونَ بِٱللَّهِ غَيْرَ ٱلْحَقِّ ظَنَّ ٱلْجَـٰهِلِيَّةِ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/153 cited by سورة آل عمران 3:154]
«while another faction worried about themselves, thinking of Allāh other than the truth - the thought of ignorance»

There are a few different analyses of ظَنَّ and its governees:

i. غَيْرَ الْحَقِّ is the direct object and بِاللهِ is indicating who is being thought about,[28] like:

(780) ظَنَنْتُ بِزَيْدٍ [الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة آل عمران 3:154]
«I thought about Zayd»

ii. غَيْرَ الْحَقِّ is the first direct object and بِاللهِ is the second direct object.[29]

iii. غَيْرَ الْحَقِّ is the a deputy to the maṣdar as a absolute object, and ظَنَّ الْجَاهِلِيَّةِ is its substitute.[30]

33.9. Suppressing one or both direct objects

Non-mental verbs that can take two direct objects may sometimes take only one direct object. So, for example, instead of saying:

[27] See التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 6/19
[28] شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/153
[29] التبيان في إعراب القرآن للعكبري 1/303
[30] الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة آل عمران 3:154

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(781) أَعْطَيْتُ زَيْدًا دِرْهَمًا
«I gave Zayd a dirham.»

we can say both:

(782) أَعْطَيْتُ دِرْهَمًا
[Howell §443 2/152]
«I gave a dirham.»

(783) أَعْطَيْتُ زَيْدًا
[Howell §443 2/152]
«I gave Zayd.»

Mental verbs, on the other hand, generally need both direct objects. So, for example, instead of saying:

(784) ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا [Howell §443 2/154]
«I thought Zayd to be standing.»

we cannot say (without context):

(785) × ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا [Howell §443 2/154]

(786) × ظَنَنْتُ قَائِمًا [Howell §443 2/154]

However, it is possible to omit one of the two direct objects if its meaning is implied and is indicated by context.[31] For example,

(787) وَلَا يَحْسَبَنَّ ٱلَّذِينَ يَبْخَلُونَ بِمَآ ءَاتَىٰهُمُ ٱللَّهُ مِن فَضْلِهِۦ هُوَ خَيْرًا لَّهُمْ ۖ [3:180 سورة آل عمران cited by Howell §443 2/153–154[32]]
«And let not those who [greedily] withhold what Allāh has given them of His bounty ever think that it is better for them.»

In the āyah above, the first direct object of يَحْسَبَنَّ is interpreted (in one interpretation of this reading) to be a suppressed بُخْلَهُمْ «their miserliness», and هُوَ is a separating-pronoun. Such that the meaning is:

(788) ولا يَحْسَبَنَّ الباخِلون بُخْلَهم هو خيرًا لهم [3:180 سورة آل عمران for الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي]
«And let not the misers think their miserliness to be good for them.»

Both direct objects can also be omitted together. For example:

(789) مَنْ يَسْمَعْ يَخَلْ [Howell §443 2/153]
«Whoso hears, will think.»

[31] Howell §443 2/153
[32] cited as III. 175

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The preposition بِ may be used with ظَنَّ to mean «about». In this case as well, no direct object is needed. For example:

(790) ظَنَنْتُ بِهِ [Howell §443 2/154]
«I thought about him.»

Even in such cases where both direct objects are omitted, their meaning may be implied. For example:

(791) وَيَوْمَ يُنَادِيهِمْ فَيَقُولُ أَيْنَ شُرَكَآءِىَ ٱلَّذِينَ كُنتُمْ تَزْعُمُونَ [سورة القصص 28:62 cited by Howell §443 2/153]
«And [warn of] the Day He will call them and say, “Where are My ‘partners’ which you used to claim?”»

In the āyah above, the two suppressed direct objects of تَزْعُمُونَ are interpreted to be thus:

(792) تَزْعُمُونَهُمْ شُرَكَاءَ [Howell §443 2/153]
«… you claim them to be partners»

Suppressing one or both direct objects in the answer to a question is especially common. For example, in response to the question:

(793) أتظن زيدًا قائما [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/495]
«Do you think Zayd to be standing?»

All three of the following replies are acceptable:

(794) ظننت زيدًا [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/495]
«I think Zayd [to be standing].»

(795) ظننتُ قائمًا [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/495]
«I think [Zayd to be] standing.»

(796) ظننت [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 2/495]
«I think [Zayd to be standing].»

Similarly:

(797) قُلْتُ صَلَّاهَا النَّبِيُّ ﷺ قَالَ لَا إِخَالُ [مصنف ابن أبي شيبة: 7856]
«I said, “Did the Prophet ﷺ pray it?” He said, “I don’t think so.”»

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33.10. Suspension of government

Sometimes, there can be a sentence where a mental verb does not take its direct object(s) directly. Instead its direct government is *suspended* due to the presence of a *suspender*. This phenomenon is called *suspension* of government. Let's take a look at an example. Consider a sentence where ظَنَّ exercises it governing effect.

(798) ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا قَائِمًا «I thought Zayd to be standing.»

Now let's see what happens when the original subject (زَيْد) and info (قَائِم) are preceded by a لَ of beginning. The sentence becomes:

(799) ظَنَنْتُ لَزَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ [Howell §445 2/158]
«I thought, assuredly Zayd is standing.»

As you can see, the original subject (زَيْد) and info (قَائِم) are now both in the u-case. This is because the effect of the لَ of beginning is to cause a subject and info to be in the u-case. The government of ظَنَّ is thus suspended. The inner sentence لَزَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ is said to be in the positional a-case as a direct object of ظَنَّ that fulfils the role of two direct objects.

The proof that the inner sentence لَزَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ is in the positional a-case and that the government of ظَنَّ is suspended, is that if we were to put a conjunction after this sentence, then the governing effect of ظَنَّ would resume. For example:

(800) ظَنَنْتُ لَزَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ وَعَمْرًا مُنْطَلِقًا [Howell §445 2/158]
«I thought, assuredly Zayd is standing and ɛamr is setting out.»

The suspenders that suspend the government of the mental verbs are discussed in the subsections below:

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33.10.1. The negaters مَا, إِنْ, and لَا

Examples:

(801) لَقَدْ عَلِمْتَ مَا هَؤُلَآءِ يَنطِقُونَ [سورة الأنبياء 21:65 cited by أحكام ومعان النحو العربي: 1/346; Howell §445 2/160]
«"You have already known that these do not speak!"»

In example () above, the negater مَا prevents عَلِمْتَ from directly governing two direct objects. Instead, the sentence مَا هَؤُلَاءِ يَنْطِقُونَ is in the positional a-case as a direct object that fulfils the role two direct objects. Similarly:

(802) عَلِمْتُ وَاللهِ إِنْ زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ [Howell §445 2/160]
«I knew, by Allāh, Zayd is not standing.»

(803) يَوْمَ يَدْعُوكُمْ فَتَسْتَجِيبُونَ بِحَمْدِهِۦ وَتَظُنُّونَ إِن لَّبِثْتُمْ إِلَّا قَلِيلًا [سورة الإسراء 17:52 cited by Howell §445 2/160]
«On the Day He will call you and you will respond with praise of Him and think that you had not remained [in the world] except for a little."»

(804) عَلِمْتُ وَاللهِ لَا زَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ ولَا عَمْرٌو [Howell §445 2/160]
«I knew, by Allāh, Zayd is not in the house, nor Ɛamr.»

33.10.2. لَ of beginning

We have already seen in example () above, how لَ of beginning suspends the direct government of a mental verb. Here is another example:

(805) وَلَقَدْ عَلِمُواْ لَمَنِ ٱشْتَرَىٰهُ مَا لَهُۥ فِى ٱلْءَاخِرَةِ مِنْ خَلَٰقٍ [سورة البقرة 2:102 cited by Howell §445 2/160]
«But they [i.e., the Children of Israel] certainly knew that whoever purchased it [i.e., magic] would not have in the Hereafter any share.»

33.10.3. لَ of oath

(806) لَقَدْ عَلِمْتُ لَتَأْتِيَنَّ مَنِيَّتِي ~ إِنَّ الْمَنَايَا لَا تَطِيشُ سِهَامُهَا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/346; Howell §445 2/158]
«And assuredly, I have known (by God) verily my fate will come. Verily the fates—their arrows do not miss.»

The presence of the لَ of oath in لَتَأْتِيَنَّ suspends the direct government of عَلِمْتُ. Otherwise the sentence would have been:

(807) عَلِمْتُ مَنِيَّتِي آتِيَةً [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/436]
«I have known my fate to be coming.»

33.10.4. A question sentence

A question sentence can follow a mental verb and in such a case the government of the mental verb is suspended if the entire question sentence is its direct object.

Here is an example:

(808) عَلِمْتُ أَزَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ أَمْ عَمْرٌو [Howell §445 2/159]
«I knew whether Zayd was in the house or Ɛamr.»

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In example () above, the entire question sentence أَزَيْدٌ فِي الدَّارِ أَمْ عَمْرٌو is in the a-case and it fulfils the role the two direct objects of عَلِمْتُ. That is the traditional explanation. However, it is also possible that عَلِمَ here requires only one direct object. In which case the question sentence fulfils the role the one required direct object.

Another point to note is that the question sentence is now no longer a question to the listener. That is why we have not puntuated the translation with a question mark (?). Rather, the entire example sentence is signifying that the speaker knows the answer to the question.

Here is another example:

(809) وَلَتَعْلَمُنَّ أَيُّنَآ أَشَدُّ عَذَابًا وَأَبْقَىٰ [سورة طه 20:71 cited by Howell §445 2/159]
«and you will surely know which of us is more severe in [giving] punishment and more enduring»

In example () above, there are three possible interpretations[33]:

a. The first interpretation, and the one relevant to our discussion here, is that أَيّ is a subject and أَشَدّ is its info. The question sentence أَيُّنَا أَشَدُّ عَذَابًا وَأَبْقَىٰ fulfils the role the two direct objects of تَعْلَمُنَّ.
b. Another interpretation is تَعْلَمُنَّ here only requires one direct object and the question sentence is that (positional) direct object.
c. A third interpretation is that أَيّ is a connected noun. أَيّ itself (not the entire question sentence) is the direct object of تَعْلَمُنَّ. And أَيّ is inflexible ending with a d͡hammah because of a phenomenon described in Section 39.6.3.

Here are some more examples:

(810) عَلِمْتُ مَتَىٰ السَّفَرُ [Howell §445 2/159]
«I knew when the journey was (or would be).»

(811) عَلِمْتُ أَبُو مَنْ زَيْدٌ [Howell §445 2/159]
«I knew whose father was Zayd.»

(812) عَلِمْتُ صَبِيحَةَ أَيِّ يَوْمٍ سَفَرُكَ [Howell §445 2/159]
«I knew the morning of which day your journey was (or will be).»

(813) وَسَيَعْلَمُ ٱلَّذِينَ ظَلَمُوٓاْ أَىَّ مُنقَلَبٍ يَنقَلِبُونَ [سورة الشعراء 26:227 cited by Howell §445 2/159]
«And those who have wronged are going to know to what [kind of] return they will be returned.»

In example () above, أَيّ is a question-device in the a-case as a absolute object, governed by يَنْقَلِبُونَ.[34] The entire question sentence is in the a-case governed by سَيَعْلَمُ.

[33] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة طه 20:71
[34] الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة الشعراء 26:227

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33.10.5. Other suspenders of government

There are other, less common, suspenders discussed by the grammarians. We will list some of them below:

لَعَلَّ

Example:

(814) وَإِنْ أَدْرِى لَعَلَّهُ فِتْنَةٌ لَّكُمْ وَمَتَٰعٌ إِلَىٰ حِينٍ [سورة الأنبياء 21:111 cited by Howell §445 2/160]
«And I know not; perhaps it is a trial for you and enjoyment for a time."»

The conditional-device لَوْ

For example:

(815) وَلَقَدْ عَلِمَ الْأَقْوَامُ لَوْ أَنَّ حَاتِمًا ~ أَرَادَ ثَرَاءَ الْمَالِ كَانَ لَهُ وَفْرٌ [Howell §445 2/160]
«And the peoples have known that had Ḥātim desired abundance of property, he would have had affluence.»

33.10.5.1. إِنَّ that has a differentiator لَ

Example:

(816) عَلِمْتُ إِنَّ زَيْدًا لَقَائِمٌ [Howell §445 2/161]
«I knew: indeed Zayd is standing.»

33.10.6. The verbs whose government may be suspended

Suspension of government is possible for the following categories of verbs:

The flexible mental verbs that take two direct objects

We have seen examples of suspension with mental verbs that take two direct objects like ظَنَّ, عَلِمَ, حَسِبَ, etc. above.

mental verbs that are rigid like هَبْ «grant» and تَعَلَّمْ «learn», which are only used in the verb of command, are excluded from having their government suspended.

The verbs of rendering, like صَيَّرَ «to make *x* become *y*» تَرَكَ «to leave *x* as *y*», etc., are also excluded.

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Any other mental verb even if it does not take two direct objects

Some mental verbs may take only one direct object, like عَرَفَ « to recognize, know ». These too are subject to suspension. So, for example, we can say:

(817) عَرَفْتُ مَنْ أَبُوكَ [Howell §445 2/164]
« I knew who your father is/was. »

In example () above, عَرَفْتُ would have taken a noun as a direct object, but the question-device suspends its government and so the entire question sentence مَنْ أَبُوكَ fulfils the role of its direct object.

Other mental verbs that take only only one direct object (like عَلِمَ when used to mean « to know »), or that take an indirect direct object (like تَفَكَّرَ فِي « to think about »), are also similarly subject to suspension.[35]

Verbs which can enable the mental verbs

There are some verbs that are not mental verbs per se, but they can enable the mental verbs. These verbs too may be subject to suspension.[36] Let's explain what we mean with some examples.

The verb رَأَى « to see » enables its doer to *know*. Therefore, it may be subject to suspension of government. For example:

(818) أَمَا تَرَى أَيُّ بَرْقٍ هَـٰهُنَا [Howell §445 2/165]
« Do you not see which [kind of] lightning is here? »

Similarly, the verb سَأَلَ « to ask » enables one to know. Therefore its government can be suspended. For example:

(819) اسْأَلْ أَيُّهُمْ زَيْدٌ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 446]
« Ask which of them is Zayd »

(820) يَسْـَٔلُونَ أَيَّانَ يَوْمُ ٱلدِّينِ [سورة الذاريات 51:12 cited by أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 1/347]
« They ask, "When is the Day of Recompense?" »

The same can be said of the verb نَظَرَ « to look ». Example:

(821) فَلْيَنظُرْ أَيُّهَآ أَزْكَىٰ طَعَامًا [سورة الكهف 18:19 cited by أحكام ومعان: النحو العربي 1/347]
« and let him look to which is the best of food »

[35] Howell §445 2/164
[36] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 446

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33.11. Neutralization of government

Similar to suspension is is another phenomenon called *neutralization*. Neutralization occurs when a mental verb exercises no government at all.

Consider the following sentence:

(822) ظَنَنْتُ زَيْدًا عَالِمًا [Howell §444 2/155]
«I thought Zayd to be knowledgeable.»

In example () above, ظَنَّ is governing the original subject (زَيْد) and original info (عَالِم) as usual.

If we move the position of the verb (as is allowed), then the the original subject (زَيْد) and original info (عَالِم) can remain direct objects. So we can say:

(823) زَيْدًا ظَنَنْتُ عَالِمًا [Howell §444 2/155]
«Zayd I thought to be knowledgeable.»

(824) زَيْدًا عَالِمً اظَنَنْتُ [Howell §444 2/155]
«Zayd to be knowledgeable I thought.»

However, when the verb is moved from its initial position to an intervening or final position, then its government may optionally be *neutralized*. In that case, زَيْد and عَالِم stay as the subject and info, in the u-case. So we can say:

(825) زَيْدٌ ظَنَنْتُ عَالِمٌ «Zayd I thought to be knowledgeable.»

(826) زَيْدٌ عَالِمٌ اظَنَنْتُ [Howell §444 2/156]
«Zayd to be knowledgeable I thought.»

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The difference between neutralization and suspension is that suspension still governs in meaning, if not in wording. It's just that the suspender introduces a new sentence that then fulfils the role the direct objects of the mental verb. Whereas, in the case of neutralization, there is no government of the mental verb whether in meaning or in wording.

The standard rule is that neutralization is only allowed when the verb is in an intervening or final position, as in examples () and () above.

When the verb is in an intervening position, then both government (example ()) and neutralization (example ()) are equally permissible. And when the verb is in the final position, then neutralization (example ()) is considered better, while government (example ()) is also permissible.[37]

When the verb is in the initial position, as in example () above, then, as we have already mentioned, the standard rule is that neutralization is disallowed.[38] So the verb must govern the the original subject and original info as direct objects.

[37] Howell §444 2/156
[38] Howell §444 2/156

However, there are instances of a verb occurring in initial position while the the original subject and original info remain in the u-case. These are then explained away using taqdīr. For example:

(827) أَرْجُو وَآمُلُ أَنْ بَدْنُو مَوَدَّتُهَا * وَمَا إِخَالُ لَدَيْنَا مِنْكَ تَنْوِيلُ [Howell §444 2/156]
«I hope and faintly expect that her love may approach; but I fancy not a bestowal of favor from you to us.»

In example () above تَنْوِيلُ is in the u-case while إِخَالُ precedes it. To reconcile this, a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun is taqdīred as the first direct object of إِخَالُ. The second (positional) direct object is then the following sentence. The complete taqdīr is:

(828) إِخَالُــهُ لَدَيْنَا مِنْكَ تَنْوِيلُ

Similarly:

(829) كَذَاكَ أُدِّبْتُ حَتَّى صَارَ مِنْ خُلُقِي * أَنِّي وَجَدْتُ مِلَاكُ الشِّيمَةِ الْأَدَبُ [Howell §444 2/157]
«Thus was I trained to good behavior until it became [a part] of my nature, that I perceived the basis of character to be training.»

In example () above, مِلَاكُ are الْأَدَبُ are in the u-case, even though the verb وَجَدْتُ precedes them. To reconcile this, a deleted لَ of beginning is taqdīred, suspending the government of وَجَدْتُ, thus:

(830) وَجَدْتُ لَــمِلَاكُ الشِّيمَةِ الْأَدَبُ

Some grammarians allowed neutralization even when the verb is in the initial position. They then do not require taqdīr to explain the above verses.[39]

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33.12. The self direct object

Howell §446

33.13. Verbs with three direct objects

33.14. Further reading

Peled, "ʿAmal and ʾibtidāʾ in medieval Arabic grammatical tradition"

[39]Howell §444 2/157

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Chapter 34.

Significance of the doer participle

Work in progress

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

34.1. Introduction

The doer participle basically signifies the meaning of one who does the action of a verb. Consider the verb انْطَلَقَ ينْطَلِقُ «to set out». Its doer participle is مُنْطَلِق. The basic significance of the doer participle مُنْطَلِق is *a setter-out* or *a setting-out one* or *one who sets out*.

Consider the sentence زَيْدٌ يَنْطَلِقُ. We know that the u-case PC verb can signify a present or future tense. So we can translate it as:

(831) زَيْدٌ يَنْطَلِقُ [الجرجاني citing 486 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي]
«Zayd is setting out»
or «Zayd sets out»
or «Zayd will set out.»

Now consider the sentence زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ. The basic significance of the doer participle مُنْطَلِق is *one who sets out*. However, in addition to this basic significance, the doer participle can also signify the meaning of the verb. So we can translate it, in context, as:

(832) زَيْدٌ مُنْطَلِقٌ [الجرجاني citing 486 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي]
«Zayd is a setter out»
or «Zayd is setting out»
or «Zayd will set out.»

The basic significance of the doer participle, when used verbally instead of the PC verb, is that the doer participle, being a noun, signifies more permanence and state than the dynamic action ofthe verb. So زَيْدٌ فَاعِلٌ can imply:

(833) زَيْدٌ فَاعِلٌ
«Zayd is *in the state of doing* something.»
«Zayd is *the one to do* something.»
«Zayd is *the doer of* something.»

We will explore this verbal significance of the doer participle in the sections below.

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34.2. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun

Adjectival nouns, most commonly, are *static adjectival nouns* (see chapter ()). The word *static* implies a lack of dynamic progressive activity. Consider the sentence:

(834) زَيْدٌ طَوِيلٌ
«Zayd is tall.»

In example () above, the static adjectival noun طَوِيل signifies the static quality of being tall without any aspect of the progression of time.

As opposed to the static adjectival noun, the doer participle can be used as a *dynamic adjectival noun*. Which means that it can signify an adjectical quality along with an aspect of the progression of time. In this sense, it has the signification of both a u-case PC verb, and an adjectival noun. Consider the sentence:

(835) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ
«Zayd is standing.»

In example () above, the doer participle قَائِم signifies the quality of being in the state of standing along with the aspect of the progression of time which is inherent in the verb يَقُومُ.

The usage of the doer participle قَائِم instead of the verb يَقُومُ points to the Zayd's being in a state of standing as time progresses. Whereas the sentence زَيْدٌ

يَقُومُ would indicate only Zayd's verbal activity of standing as time progresses, without emphasizing his state of being in the standing position.

Consider the following example, where both the u-case PC verb and the doer participle are used:

(836) كُنْتُ مُسَافِرًا فَأَتَيْتُ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَهُوَ يَأْكُلُ وَأَنَا صَائِمٌ [سنن النسائي: 2281]
"I was traveling and I came to the Prophet while he was eating and I was fasting."

The verb يَأْكُلُ indicates the doer's activity of eating. Whereas the doer participle صَائِم indicates the doer's being in a state of fasting as time progresses.

Incidentally, in example () above, both the verb يَأْكُلُ and the doer participle صَائِم are in a ḥāl construction (see chapter()). The ḥāl *syntactically* signifies the state of its referent. As a matter of fact, the doer participle, when used as a dynamic adjectival noun, is often a ḥāl, or part of a ḥāl. This serves to emphasize its "state-describing" significance.

Here are some more examples of the doer participle being used as a dynamic adjectival noun:

(837) فَلَبِثَ الْأَوْسُ وَالْخَزْرَجُ مُتَحَارِبِينَ عِشْرِينَ سَنَةً فِي أَمْرِ سُمَيْرٍ [Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 134]
"So al-ʾAws and al-K͡hazraj stayed (in a state of) fighting each other for twenty years because of the matter of Sumayr."

(838) فَمَا الَّذِي أَنْتَ فِيهِ الْآنَ مُجْمِعٌ [Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 99A]
"So what is it that you are now (in a state of being) decided about?

(839) لَمَّا كَانَ يَوْمَ أُحُدٍ انْهَزَمَ النَّاسُ عَنِ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَأَبُو طَلْحَةَ بَيْنَ يَدَيِ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم مُجَوِّبٌ عَلَيْهِ بِحَجَفَةٍ لَهُ [صحيح البخاري: 4064]
"When it was the day of Uḥud, the people left the Prophet ﷺ while Abū Ṭalḥah was in front of the Prophet ﷺ, shielding him with a leather shield of his."

(840) فَخَرَجَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَهُوَ مُشْتَمِلٌ عَلَى شَيْءٍ [جامع الترمذي: 3769]
"So the Prophet ﷺ came out while he was (in a state of) covering something [with his garment]."

(841) وَإِذَا هُوَ مُعْتَمِدٌ عَلَى عَصًا فِي صَلاَتِهِ فَقُلْنَا بَعْدَ أَنْ سَلَّمْنَا . فَقَالَ حَدَّثَتْنِي أُمُّ قَيْسٍ بِنْتُ مِحْصَنٍ أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم لَمَّا أَسَنَّ وَحَمَلَ اللَّحْمَ اتَّخَذَ عَمُودًا فِي مُصَلاَّهُ يَعْتَمِدُ عَلَيْهِ [سنن أبي داود: 948]
"And incidentally, he was resting on a staff in his prayer. We [asked] him (about resting on the staff) after we had given the salutation; He said: Umm Qays daughter of Miḥṣan said to me that when the Messenger of Allah ﷺ

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became aged and the flesh grew increasingly on him, he took a prop at his place of prayer and he would rest on it."
(Note how the doer participle مُعْتَمِد indicates a state and the PC verb يَعْتَمِدُ indicates the activity."

(842) فَبَيْنَا أَنَا نَازِلٌ تَحْتَ شَجَرَةٍ إِذَا رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [موطأ مالك: 48]
While I was in a dismounted state under a tree, the Messenger of Allah [came]

(843) إِذَا مَرِضَ الْعَبْدُ أَوْ سَافَرَ، كُتِبَ لَهُ مِثْلُ مَا كَانَ يَعْمَلُ مُقِيمًا صَحِيحًا [صحيح البخاري: 56]
When a slave journeys or falls ill, a [similar reward] is written for him as what he used to do while staying (i.e. not journeying) [and] healthy.

(844) إِنَّ أُمِّي قَدِمَتْ وَهْيَ رَاغِبَةٌ [صحيح البخاري: 5979]
My mother has arrived and she is desirous (of my favor).

34.2.1. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun with a direct object

When the doer participle is dervied from a transitive verb, then the doer participle, when acting as a dynamic adjectival noun, may take a direct object (as long as it satisifes the conditions specified in section (ref)). Here are some examples:

(845) وَأَنَا مُتَّبِعٌ فِي ذَلِكَ قَضَاءَ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم فِي مَرْيَمَ الْمَغَالِيَّةِ [سنن النسائي: 3498]
« I am following, in that [matter], the ruling of the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ concerning Maryam al-Maghāliyyah. »

(846) مَنْ كَانَ مِنْكُمْ مُلْتَمِسًا لَيْلَةَ الْقَدْرِ فَلْيَلْتَمِسْهَا فِي الْعَشْرِ الْأَوَاخِرِ وِتْرًا [مسند أحمد: 298]
"Whoever amongst you is seeking the Night of Decree, then let him seek it in the last ten days of Ramaḍhān, [in the] the odd [nights]."
(Note the the doer participle مُلْتَمِسًا has a direct object لَيْلَةَ الْقَدْرِ.)

(847) إِنَّهُ كَانَ يُصَلِّي وَهُوَ مُسْبِلٌ إِزَارَهُ [سنن أبي داود: 638, graded weak by al-ʾAlbāni]
"Indeed he was praying while trailing his lower garment."

(848) وَوَقَفْتُ عِنْدَ بَابِ عَائِشَةَ فَإِذَا هُوَ مُسْتَقْبِلٌ الْمَغْرِبَ [الأدب المفرد: 451]
"And I stopped at the door of Ɛāʾishah and incidentally, it was facing the west."

(849) كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم حَامِلَ الْحَسَنِ بْنِ عَلِيٍّ عَلَى عَاتِقِهِ [جامع الترمذي: 3784]
"The Messenger of Allah ﷺ was carrying al-Ḥasan ibn Ɛaliyy on his shoulder"
(حَامِلَ الْحَسَنِ is a superficial annexation.)

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(850) أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم كَانَ يُصَلِّي وَهُوَ حَامِلٌ أُمَامَةَ [سنن النسائي: 1204]
"that the Messenger of Allah used to pray while he [was] carrying Umāmah"

(851) أَنَّ أَبَا بَكْرٍ اسْتَأْذَنَ عَلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَهُوَ مُضْطَجِعٌ عَلَى فِرَاشِهِ لاَبِسٌ مِرْطَ عَائِشَةَ [صحيح مسلم: 2402a]
"that Abū Bakr sought permission from the Messenger of Allah ﷺ [for entrance in his apartment] while he was lying on his bed having on him ƐāʾiS̄hah's bed-sheet."

However, when the main intent is to indicate the state of the doer independent of the action of the doer upon any done-to, then the doer participle can occur without a direct object. For example:

(852) قَالَ عُثْمَانُ أَجَلْ وَلَكِنَّا كُنَّا خَائِفِينَ [مسند أحمد: 431]
Ɛuth̄man said, "Yes, but we were in a state of fear."

In such cases, the doer participle can be followed with a verb (typically its own), specifying the direct object. For example:

(853) فَخَرَجْنَا خَائِفِينَ نَخَافُ الرَّصَدَ [مغازي الواقدي 28 cited by Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 138]
"So we set out afraid, fearing ambush."

(854) وَرُزَيْقٌ عَامِلٌ عَلَى أَرْضٍ يَعْمَلُهَا [صحيح البخاري: 893]
"Ruzayq was (in a state of) working on the land, working (i.e. farming) it."

34.2.2. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun for verbs of posture

Verbs of posture inlude: جَلَسَ to sit, قَامَ to stand, اضْطَجَعَ to lie down, etc.

With such verbs, the PC verb, when used for the present or past, tends to be used only for the habitual tense and not for the continuous tense. So if we say يَجْلِسُ زَيْدٌ then it will usually mean *Zayd sits* and not *Zayd is sitting*.

For the continuous tense, only the doer participle tends to be used. So, in order to say *Zayd is sitting* we will usually say زَيْدٌ جَالِسٌ.

Here are some examples of the doer participle and PC verb for verbs of posture:

The doer participle for verbs of posture indicating the continuous tense

(855) رَأَيْتُ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم مُقْعِيًا يَأْكُلُ تَمْرًا [صحيح مسلم: 2044a]
"I saw the Prophet ﷺ squatting, eating dates."

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(856) قَالَ كُنْتُ مُتَّكِئًا عِنْدَ عَائِشَةَ [صحيح مسلم: 177a]
"I was resting at [the house of] Ɛāʾiša̅hah"

(857) ... لاَ أُلْفِيَنَّ أَحَدَكُمْ مُتَّكِئًا عَلَى أَرِيكَتِهِ [سنن أبي داود: 4605]
"Let me not find one of you reclining on his couch …"

(858) أَنَّ أَبَا بَكْرٍ رَضِيَ اللَّهُ عَنْهُ اسْتَأْذَنَ عَلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ وَهُوَ مُضْطَجِعٌ عَلَى فِرَاشِهِ لَابِسٌ مِرْطَ عَائِشَةَ [مسند أحمد: 514]
"that Abū Bakr sought permission from the Messenger of Allah ﷺ [for entrance in his apartment] while he was lying on his bed having on him Ɛāʾiša̅h's bed-sheet."

(859) كُنْتُ جَالِسًا عِنْدَ مُعَاوِيَةَ، فَحَدَّثَ نَفْسَهُ ثُمَّ انْتَبَهَ [الأدب المفرد: 564]
"I was sitting with Muɛāwiyah when he [muttered to] himself, then he came to his senses."

(860) إِنِّي لَجَالِسٌ مَعَ عَبْدِ اللَّهِ وَأَبِي مُوسَى وَهُمَا يَتَحَدَّثَانِ [صحيح مسلم: 2672d]
I was sitting with Ɛabd Allāh and Abū Mūsā while they were talking to each other.

(861) سَقَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم مِنْ زَمْزَمَ فَشَرِبَ وَهُوَ قَائِمٌ [صحيح مسلم: 2027a]
I served the Messenger of Allah some Zamzam and he drank (it) while he was standing.

(862) هَلْ كَانَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم يُصَلِّي وَهُوَ قَاعِدٌ [صحيح مسلم: 732a]
Did the Prophet ﷺ pray while he was sitting?

The PC verb for for verbs of posture indicating the habitual tense

(863) تِلْكَ صَلاَةُ الْمُنَافِقِ يَجْلِسُ يَرْقُبُ الشَّمْسَ حَتَّى إِذَا كَانَتْ بَيْنَ قَرْنَيِ الشَّيْطَانِ قَامَ فَنَقَرَ أَرْبَعًا لاَ يَذْكُرُ اللَّهَ فِيهَا إِلاَّ قَلِيلاً [جامع الترمذي: 160]
That is the prayer of the hypocrite. He sits watching the sun, until when it is between the horns of the devil he stands and pecks out four (units of prayer), not remembering Allah in them but a little."

(864) كُنْتُ أَقْعُدُ مَعَ ابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ، يُجْلِسُنِي عَلَى سَرِيرِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 53]
I used to sit with Ibn Ɛabbās and he would seat me on his couch.

(865) كَانَ جِذْعٌ يَقُومُ إِلَيْهِ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 918]
[There] was a stem (of a date palm) [which] the Prophet ﷺ would stand against.

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(866) وَيَرْكَعُ رَكْعَتَيْنِ قَبْلَ صَلاَةِ الْفَجْرِ ثُمَّ يَضْطَجِعُ عَلَى شِقِّهِ الأَيْمَنِ حَتَّى يَأْتِيَهُ الْمُؤَذِّنُ لِلصَّلاَةِ [صحيح البخاري: 994]
And he would pray two units [of (sunnah) prayer] before the Fajr prayer, then he would lie on his right side until the muʾad͡hd͡hin would come to him for the (obligatory) prayer"

Rarely, the PC verb has been found to be used to indicate a continuous tense. But in such cases it will likely be in a ḥāl or with an adverb which will help indicate its continuous, rather than habitual, significance. Examples:

(867) أَنَّهُ رَأَى رَجُلاً يَتَّكِئُ عَلَى يَدِهِ الْيُسْرَى [سنن أبي داود: 994]
that he saw a man reclining on his left hand

(868) رَأَيْتُ عُمَرَ بْنَ الْخَطَّابِ وَهُوَ يَجْلِسُ وَالنَّاسُ مَعَهُ [تاريخ الطبري 3/429]
I saw Ɛumar ibn al-K͡haṭṭāb while he [was] sitting while the people [were] with him

Transitive verbs of posture

The verbs of posture are usually intransitive verbs, as you can see in the examples so far. But a transitive verb of posture can also be used. For example:

(869) سَأَلْتُ ابْنَ عَبَّاسٍ وَهُوَ مُسْنِدٌ ظَهْرَهُ إِلَى الْكَعْبَةِ عَنِ الْبَاذَقِ [سنن النسائي: 5687]
I asked Ibn Ɛabbās, while he was leaning his back against the Kaɛbah, about (a drink called) al-Bād͡haq

(870) وَقَدْ كُنْتُ مُسْنِدَتَهُ إِلَى صَدْرِي [صحيح البخاري: 2741]
"I had been leaning him against my chest."

(871) فَبَيْنَا أَنَا قَاعِدٌ وَرَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم مُتَوَسِّدٌ فَخِذِي [جامع الترمذي: 2861]
So while I was sitting and the Prophet ﷺ [was] using my thigh as a headrest

Other verbs that have similar behavior to the verbs of posture

In addition to verbs of posture, there are a few other verbs that indicate show the same distiction of the doer participle being used for the continous tense and the PC verb for the habitual tense. For example: نَامَ *to sleep*, صَامَ *to fast*. The reason that these verbs show the same behavior as verbs of posture may be that the doer is not actively *doing* anything except remaining in a condition. Here are some examples with these verbs:

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(872) قُلْنَا لِعَمْرٍو إِنَّ نَاسًا يَقُولُونَ إِنَّ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم تَنَامُ عَيْنُهُ وَلاَ يَنَامُ قَلْبُهُ [صحيح البخاري: 859]
"We said to Ɛamr: 'Indeed some people say that the Prophet ﷺ his eye sleeps but his heart does not sleep.' "

(873) جَاءَتْ مَلاَئِكَةٌ إِلَى النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَهْوَ نَائِمٌ فَقَالَ بَعْضُهُمْ إِنَّهُ نَائِمٌ وَقَالَ بَعْضُهُمْ إِنَّ الْعَيْنَ نَائِمَةٌ وَالْقَلْبَ يَقْظَانُ [صحيح البخاري: 7281]
Some angels came to the Prophet ﷺ while he was sleeping. Some of them said, "He is sleeping." Some [others] of them said, "His eye[s] are sleeping but his heart is awake."

(874) إِنِّي رَجُلٌ أَصُومُ أَفَأَصُومُ فِي السَّفَرِ [صحيح مسلم: 1121d]
"I am a man who [habitually] fasts, so should I fast in journeying?"

(875) سِرْنَا مَعَ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَهُوَ صَائِمٌ [صحيح مسلم: 1101c]
We travelled with the Messenger of Allah ﷺ while he [was] fasting.

34.2.3. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun for verbs of motion

The doer participle is very common with verbs of motion, like: ذَهَبَ to go, مَشَى to walk, رَجَعَ to return, سَارَ to travel, etc. The doer participle for these verbs, in its capacity as a dynamic adjectival noun, highlights the situation of being in a state of moving rather than the actual dynamic movement.[1] Here are the examples:

(876) وَذَلِكَ الْمَسْجِدُ عَلَى حَافَةِ الطَّرِيقِ الْيُمْنَى، وَأَنْتَ ذَاهِبٌ إِلَى مَكَّةَ [صحيح البخاري: 485]
And that mosque is on the right edge of the path as you are going to Makkah

(877) كَانَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَأْتِي قُبَاءً رَاكِبًا وَمَاشِيًا [صحيح البخاري: 1194]
The Prophet ﷺ used to come to Qubāʾ while riding and while walking.

(878) لَحِقَنِي عَبَايَةُ بْنُ رَافِعٍ وَأَنَا مَاشٍ، إِلَى الْجُمُعَةِ [سنن النسائي: 3116]
Ɛabāyah ibn Rāfiɛ joined me while I was walking to the jumuɛah

(879) كُنْتُ مُسَافِرًا فَأَتَيْتُ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَهُوَ يَأْكُلُ وَأَنَا صَائِمٌ [سنن النسائي: 2281]
"I was journeying and I came to the Prophet ﷺ while he was eating and I was fasting."

(880) بَيْنَا النَّبِيُّ سَائِرٌ إِلَى تَبُوكَ نَزَلَ عَنْ رَاحِلَتِهِ [السنن الكبير للبيهقي: 16844]
"While the Prophet ﷺ was travelling to Tabūk, he dismounted off his mount"

[1] Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 127

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(881) ثُمَّ أَرْدَفَنِي وَرَاءَهُ عَلَى الْعَضْبَاءِ رَاجِعِينَ إِلَى الْمَدِينَةِ [مسند أحمد: 16539]
Then he seated me behind him on (his camel) al-Ɛaḍ͡ẖbāʾ while we [were] returning to al-Madīnah

(882) اتَّبَعْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم وَهُوَ رَاكِبٌ [سنن النسائي: 953] [move to verbs of motion]
"I followed the Messenger of Allah ﷺ when he was riding"

Unlike verbs of posture and temporary state, verbs of motion are frequently used for the continuous tense. Here are some examples:

(883) أَدْرَكَنِي أَبُو عَبْسٍ وَأَنَا أَذْهَبُ إِلَى الْجُمُعَةِ [صحيح البخاري: 907]
Abū Ɛabs overtook me while I [was] going to the jumuɛah

(884) بَيْنَا أَنَا أَسِيرُ مَعَ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم بَيْنَ الْجُحْفَةِ وَالأَبْوَاءِ إِذْ غَشِيَتْنَا رِيحٌ وَظُلْمَةٌ شَدِيدَةٌ [سنن أبي داود: 1463] While I was travelling with the Messenger of Allah ﷺ between al-Juḥfah and al-ʾAbwāʾ, suddenly a wind and intense darkness enveloped us

34.2.4. The doer participle as a dynamic adjectival noun with a habitual sense

When the doer participle is used as a dynamic adjectival noun, then it usually has a continuous meaning. However, it can admit a habitual meaning as well. For example:

(885) زَيْدٌ مُكْرِمٌ ضِيفَانِهِ [دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي: 482]
« Zayd is an honoring-one to his guests »

34.3. The doer participle used to indicate a future event

In addition to its use as a dynamic adjectival noun, the doer participle is used to indicate the future tense.

Here too, the doer participle is used instead of the PC verb. When a PC verb is used to indicate a future event, then it merely signifies that the speaker thinks that the doer will take an action. For example, the PC verb أَذْهَبُ (when used to indicate the future tense) merely signifies the speaker's intention of going some time in the future.

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In contrast, when the doer participle is used to indicate the future tense, then it signifies that, in the estimation of the speaker, the event will definitely take place. In other words, the doer's future action is so settled and resolved in the speaker's mind that doer can already be described by the doer participle.[2] So, for example, if the speaker says أَنَا ذَاهِبٌ and the context tells us he is referring to a future action, then the use of the doer participle ذَاهِب instead of the PC verb يَذْهَبُ, signifies that the speaker is so sure that he will do this action that he can already be described as a "goer".

Here are some examples of the doer participle being used to indicate the future tense:

(886) وَقَالَ إِنِّى ذَاهِبٌ إِلَىٰ رَبِّى سَيَهْدِينِ
[سورة الصافات 37:99]
And [then] he said, "Indeed, I will go to [where I am ordered by] my Lord; He will guide me.

(887) فَهُوَ ذَاهِبٌ وَتَارِكُهُ لِلنَّاسِ [صحيح مسلم :2959a]
For he is going to go and leave it for the people.

(888) إِنِّي ذَاكِرٌ لَكَ أَمْرًا [صحيح البخاري :1925]
I am going to mention to you a matter.

(889) سَأَلْتُ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم أَنْ يَشْفَعَ لِي يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ فَقَالَ أَنَا فَاعِلٌ [جامع الترمذي :2433]
I asked the Propher ﷺ that he intercede for me on the Day of Resurrection. So he said, "I will do [it]."

(890) وَإِذْ قَالَ رَبُّكَ لِلْمَلَائِكَةِ إِنِّى جَاعِلٌ فِي ٱلْأَرْضِ خَلِيفَةً [سورة البقرة 2:30]
And [mention, O Muḥammad], when your Lord said to the angels, "Indeed, I will make upon the earth a successive authority."

(891) أَلاَ وَإِنِّي تَارِكٌ فِيكُمْ ثَقَلَيْنِ [صحيح مسلم :2408d]
Unquestionably, I am leaving amongst you two weighty [things]
(In English, "I am leaving s.th." can indicate the future tense.)

(892) زَعَمَ ابْنُ أُمِّي أَنَّهُ قَاتِلٌ رَجُلاً قَدْ أَجَرْتُهُ [صحيح البخاري :6158]
"My maternal brother claims that he will kill a man whom I have given protection to."

(893) وَإِنِّي مُرْسِلَةٌ إِلَيْهِم بِهَدِيَّةٍ فَنَاظِرَةٌ بِمَ يَرْجِعُ ٱلْمُرْسَلُونَ [سورة النمل 27:35]
"But indeed, I will send to them a gift and see with what [reply] the messengers will return."

[2] Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 171

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(894) إِنِّي سَائِلٌ هَذَا عَنْ هَذَا الرَّجُلِ الَّذِي يَزْعُمُ أَنَّهُ نَبِيٌّ [صحيح البخاري: 4553]
I am going to ask this [person] about this man who claims that he is a prophet.

(895) وَيْحَكَ يَا فُلَانُ تَرَى هَذَا كَائِنًا [مسند أحمد: 15841]
A mercy on you O so-and-so! Do you think this will be?

(896) فَهَلْ أَنْتَ مُعْطِيَّ سَيْفَ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 3110]
«So will you give me the sword of the Messenger of Allāh?»

The use of the doer participle instead of the PC verb to indicate a future event can also, depending on context, indicate that the event is imminent, i.e. that it is in the very near future. In such cases it can be translated using "be going to". For example:

(897) وَقَالَ أَبُو جَهْلٍ فَمَا تُرِيدُ هَذَا سَيِّدُ كِنَانَةَ وَهُوَ لَنَا جَارٍ عَلَى مَنْ تَخَلَّفَ فَقَالَ عُتْبَةُ لَا شَيْءَ أَنَا خَارِجٌ [مغازي الواقدي 1/38 cited by Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 171]
«Abū Jahl said, "So what do you want? This is the chief of Kināna and he is for us a protector over who remains behind." So Ɛutbah said, "[I want] nothing. I am going out."»

By the way, it is not just the doer participle which is used to indicate an imminent future event. The PC verb can also be used with this meaning. For example,

(898) قَالَتْ أَيْنَ قَالَ أُصَلِّي قَالَتِ اجْلِسْ قَالَ إِنِّي أُصَلِّي [صحيح مسلم: 560a]
She said, "Where [are you going]?" He said, "I am going to pray." She said, "Sit!" He said, "Indeed I am going to pray."

The doer participle of verbs of posture and verbs of motion don't have any special behavior when used with a future tense meaning. Examples:

(899) إِنِّي إِنْ شَاءَ اللَّهُ لَقَائِمٌ الْعَشِيَّةَ فِي النَّاسِ، فَمُحَذِّرُهُمْ هَؤُلَاءِ الَّذِينَ يُرِيدُونَ أَنْ يَغْصِبُوهُمْ أُمُورَهُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 6830]
I, if Allāh wills, will stand tonight amongst the peope and warn them [about] these [people] who want to forcibly seize their affairs.

34.4. The doer participle used to indicate a hypothetical event

The doer participle, is used very commonly in conditional hypothetical clauses with كَانَ. Here are some examples:

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(900) وَلَوْ كُنْتُ مُتَّخِذًا مِنَ النَّاسِ خَلِيلاً لاَتَّخَذْتُ أَبَا بَكْرٍ خَلِيلاً [صحيح البخاري: 467]
If I were to take [anyone] from the people as a friend, I would have taken Abū Bakr as a friend.

(901) لَوْ كُنْتُ مُصَلِّيًا قَبْلَهَا أَوْ بَعْدَهَا لَأَتْمَمْتُهَا [مسند أحمد: 5185]
If I were to pray before it or after it, I would have completed them.

(902) وَلَوْ كَانَ مُحَمَّدٌ صلى الله عليه وسلم كَاتِمًا شَيْئًا مِمَّا أُنْزِلَ عَلَيْهِ لَكَتَمَ هَذِهِ الآيَةَ [صحيح مسلم: 177b]
And if Muḥammad were to conceal anything from what was revealed to him, he would have concealed this āyah.

(903) لَوْ كُنْتُ قَاتِلًا رَسُولًا لَضَرَبْتُ أَعْنَاقَكُمَا [مسند أحمد: 3708]
If I were a killer of a messenger I would have struck your necks.

(904) لَوْ كُنْتُ آمِرًا أَحَدًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لأَحَدٍ لأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا [جامع الترمذي: 1159]
If I were to order anyone that he prostrate to anyone, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse

(905) لَوْ كَانَ لَكَ مَا عَلَى الْأَرْضِ مِنْ شَيْءٍ أَكُنْتَ مُفْتَدِيًا بِهِ [مسند أحمد: 12289]
If you had everything that is on the earth would you ransom yourself with it?

(906) إِنْ كُنْتَ لاَ بُدَّ فَاعِلاً فَوَاحِدَةً [صحيح مسلم: 546]
If you must do it then (only) once.

The PC verb is also used in such clauses, but it tends to indicate a hypothetical *current* situation. For example:

(907) لَوْ كُنْتُ أَقْرَبُهَا أَوْ أَدْخُلُ عَلَيْهَا لأَتَيْتُهَا حَتَّى تُشَافِهَنِي بِهِ [صحيح مسلم: 746a]
If (the current situtation were such that) I were nearing her or entering upon her, I would have come to her so that she would [tell] it to me face-to-face.

(908) قُل لَّوْ كَانَ فِي ٱلْأَرْضِ مَلَائِكَةٌ يَمْشُونَ مُطْمَئِنِّينَ لَنَزَّلْنَا عَلَيْهِم مِّنَ ٱلسَّمَآءِ مَلَكًا رَّسُولًا [سورة الإسراء 17:95]
Say, “If there were upon the earth angels walking securely, We would have sent down to them from the heaven an angel [as a] messenger.”

(909) إِنَّ عَبْدَ اللَّهِ رَجُلٌ صَالِحٌ لَوْ كَانَ يُكْثِرُ الصَّلاَةَ مِنَ اللَّيْلِ [سنن ابن ماجه: 3919]
Indeed Ɛabd Allāh is a righteous man, if only he would pray much in the night.

The doer participle can also be used in non-conditional hypothetical sentences (see section (kaana)). For example:

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(910) يَا سَلَمَةُ أَتُرَاكَ كُنْتَ فَاعِلاً [صحيح مسلم :1807a]
O Salamah, do you think you could do [it]?

(911) أَوَكُنْتَ فَاعِلًا ذَاكَ [مسند أحمد :61]
Would you have done that?

The PC verb is also used in such sentences. For example:

(912) أَنْتَ كُنْتَ تَفْعَلُ ذَلِكَ [صحيح مسلم :1788]
You would/may have done that

34.5. Interchangeability of the PC verb and the doer participle

We have described above, the situations when the doer participle is used instead of the PC verb. We would like to state that these are more like trends rather than hard and fast rules. We sometimes find a PC verb where an doer participle could have worked, and vice versa.

For the indication of a dynamic state, consider, for instance, example (851) (وَهُوَ مُضْطَجِعٌ عَلَى فِرَاشِهِ لاَبِسٌ مِرْطَ عَائِشَةَ) above and compare it with with example (913) below:

(913) فَإِنِّي رَأَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَلْبَسُ النِّعَالَ الَّتِي لَيْسَ فِيهَا شَعْرٌ [سنن أبي داود :1772]
"I have seen the Messenger of Allah ﷺ wearing the sandals which don't have hair on them (i.e. tanned)."

Consider also the following two narrations:

(914) ... وَلاَ آخَرُ قَدِ اشْتَرَى غَنَمًا أَوْ خَلِفَاتٍ وَهُوَ مُنْتَظِرٌ وِلاَدَهَا [صحيح مسلم :1747]
"... nor another who has bought sheep or pregnant she-camels and he is waiting for their giving birth"

(915) ... وَلاَ أَحَدٌ اشْتَرَى غَنَمًا أَوْ خَلِفَاتٍ وَهْوَ يَنْتَظِرُ وِلاَدَهَا [صحيح البخاري :3124]
"... nor one who has bought sheep or pregnant she-camels and he is waiting for their giving birth"

Similarly, for the indication of the future tense, contrast example (@ism_fail_going_to_my_lord) with example (916) below:

(916) فَقَالَ يَا أُنَيْسُ أَذَهَبْتَ حَيْثُ أَمَرْتُكَ قَالَ قُلْتُ نَعَمْ أَنَا أَذْهَبُ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ [صحيح مسلم :2310a]

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He said “O Unays, did you go where I commanded you [to go]?” I said, “Yes I am going, O Messenger of Allah”

Consider also the following two narrations:

(917) أَرَأَيْتَكُمْ لَوْ أَخْبَرْتُكُمْ أَنَّ خَيْلاً تَخْرُجُ بِسَفْحِ هَذَا الْجَبَلِ أَكُنْتُمْ مُصَدِّقِيَّ [صحيح مسلم :208a]
“Do you think if I were to inform you that there were horsemen emerging out of the foot of this mountain, would you believe me?”

(918) أَرَأَيْتُمْ إِنْ حَدَّثْتُكُمْ أَنَّ الْعَدُوَّ مُصَبِّحُكُمْ أَوْ مُمَسِّيكُمْ، أَكُنْتُمْ تُصَدِّقُونِي [صحيح البخاري :4972]
“Do you think if I told you that an enemy is going to attack you in the morning or in the evening, will you believe me?”

34.6. The doer participle without ٱلْ used with a past significance

We have seen, in the sections above, that the doer participle without ٱلْ has a strong correlation with the u-case PC verb, giving an imperfect meaning. But, the doer participle without ٱلْ can also carry the significance of the SC verb. Such that it can indicate that the doer has completed the action of the verb. As when the doer participle was used in an imperfect sense, here too it can indicate being in a state. Examples:

(919) لَا آتِيكَ مُجْرِمًا [Fischer 112]
I shall not come to you as one who has committed a crime.
(مُجْرِمًا is here in place of the SC verb وَقَدْ أَجْرَمْتُ.)

(920) جِيءَ بِالنُّعَيْمَانِ أَوِ ابْنِ النُّعَيْمَانِ شَارِبًا [صحيح البخاري :2316]
al-Nuɛaymān or al-Nuɛaymān’s son was brought (in a state of) of having drunk (wine).

(921) قَالَ جَابِرٌ فَبَيْنَا أَنَا نَازِلٌ تَحْتَ شَجَرَةٍ إِذَا رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [موطأ مالك :48]
“While I was (resting) dismounted under a tree, the Messenger of Allah ﷺ [came].”

(922) لَوْ كُنْتُ مُتَوَضِّئًا أَكَلْتُهُ [مسند أحمد :15147, graded weak by al-ʾArnaʾūṭ]
If I were in a state of having done wuḍ̲hū’, I would have eaten it.

When used with a SC significance, then, according to most authorities, the doer participle cannot usually have a direct object. (See section (ref).)

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34.7. The doer participle prefixed with ٱل

Consider the sentence:

(923) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ
«I saw the man.»

The definite article ٱل indicates that the listener would know identity of the person who was seen because of his being referred to as a definite entity: الرَّجُلَ *the* man.

Consider now the sentence:

(924) رَأَيْتُ الضَّارِبَ
«I saw the beater$_{m}$.»

Now the person who was seen is identified, not by his virtue of being an entity, but because of his being the doer of the verb ضَرَبَ يَضْرِبُ. In this sense, the noun الضَّارِب is similar in meaning to الَّذِي ضَرَبَ/يَضْرِبُ «the one who beat/beats».

Similarly, if we say:

(925) جَاءَتِ الضَّارِبَةُ
«The beater$_{f}$ came.»

then this is similar to saying جَاءَتِ الَّتِي ضَرَبَتْ/تَضْرِبُ «The one$_{f}$ who beat/beats came.»

Because of the equivalence of this ٱل to the connected nouns (ٱلَّذِي, ٱلَّتِي, etc.), this ٱل, that is prefixed to doer participles (and to deverbal nouns in general) is called the *connected noun* ٱل. We will learn more about the *connected noun* ٱل in section (ref).

For now, we note that when the connected noun ٱل, is prefixed to a deverbal noun then the deverbal noun retains its capability to govern a doer and a a-case governee.

So in example (@) جَاءَتِ الضَّارِبَةُ, the doer participle الضَّارِبَة is governing a latent doer pronoun [هِيَ]. And in the following example, the doer participle is also governing a direct object:

(926) فَقَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم مَنِ الْقَائِلُ كَلِمَةَ كَذَا وَكَذَا [صحيح مسلم: 601]
«The Messenger of Allah ﷺ said: “Who is the one who said such and such speech?”»

(927) عَاتَبْتُ الْمُخْلِفَ الْوَعْدَ
«I reproved the promise-breaker.»

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The construction الْمُخْلِفَ الْوَعْدَ can also be converted to a superficial annexation, thus:

(928) عَاتَبْتُ الْمُخْلِفَ الْوَعْدِ
«I reproved the promise-breaker.»

When the *connected noun* ال is used with an doer participle, then the doer participle includes the meaning of the verb. So much so, that an actual verb may be conjuncted to the *meaning of the verb* that is included in the doer participle.[3] For example:

(929) [سورة إِنَّ ٱلْمُصَّدِّقِينَ وَٱلْمُصَّدِّقَاتِ وَأَقْرَضُوا ٱللَّهَ قَرْضًا حَسَنًا يُضَاعَفُ لَهُمْ وَلَهُمْ أَجْرٌ كَرِيمٌ الحديد 57:18]
"Indeed, the men who practice charity and the women who practice charity and [they who] have loaned Allāh a goodly loan - it will be multiplied for them, and they will have a noble reward."

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34.8. The doer participle→entity noun crossover

Sometimes, the doer participle crosses over to be used used as a entity noun. When this happens, it loses its purely verbal meaning of the doer of a verb, and signifies only an entity, just like a entity noun. There are two categories of doer participle→entity noun crossovers:

i. The lexical doer participle→entity noun crossover
ii. The ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover

In reality, these are not completely distinct categories. They more represent a spectrum of meanings. And it can be a judgement call as to which category a particluar noun may belong. We will discuss each of these categories in the following sub-sections:

34.8.1. The lexical doer participle→entity noun crossover

The doer participle is from the class of adjectival nouns, not entity nouns. And in terms of its meaning, it has a relatively temporary and incidental meaning when

[3] سورة الحديد 57:18 for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

compared to a entity noun. For example the the doer participle ضَارِب «beater» would only be applicable to someone when he is associated with the act of beating. Otherwise he would not be referred to as a ضَارِب. On the other hand, a entity noun like رَجُل «man» has a more permanent meaning, that is not associated with any action from him.

Some doer participle's can take on this more permanent meaning of a entity noun. Usually, their meaning will be somewhat distinct from the original doer participle or the verb from which it is derived. Such a doer participle is termed a lexical doer participle→entity noun crossover because its new meaning often deserves a new lexical definition in the dictionary.

For example, the doer participle صَاحِب (from the verb صَحِبَ يَصْحَبُ «to accompany») is predominantly used as a entity noun to mean «companion». With this meaning, it can no longer act as a verb-like governor. So it will not have a latent doer pronoun, and it will not govern a direct object. So we cannot say:

(930) × حَسَّامٌ صَاحِبٌ يَاسِرًا [العدناني citing 487 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي]
«Ḥassām is a companion of Yāsir.»

Additionally any ٱل that is prefixed to a doer participle→entity noun crossover cannot be the connected noun ٱل. It will be the regular ٱل that is prefixed to entity nouns.[4] So when it is the annexe in an annexation then it must be a real annexation, and the ٱل is dropped.

So we will say:

(931) صَحِبَ حَسَّامٌ يَاسِرًا فَهُوَ صَاحِبُهُ [العدناني citing 487 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي]
«Ḥassām accompanied Yāsir so he is his companion.»

With regard to their plurals, the default behavior for the doer participle, especially when used with a verbal meaning, is to have a sound plural. But when the doer participle crosses-over to a entity noun then it is more likely to have a broken plural.[5]

Here are some examples of entity nouns from cross-over doer participles:

entity noun	meaning	plural	verb
صَاحِب	a companion	أَصْحَاب	صَحِبَ يَصْحَبُ to accompany
سَائِل	a beggar	سُؤَّال, سَأَلَة	سَأَلَ يَسْأَلُ to ask
عَالِم	a scholar	عُلَمَاء	عَلِمَ يَعْلَمُ to know
قَاضٍ	a judge	قُضَاة	قَضَى يَقْضِي to decree
كَاتِب	a scribe	كَتَبَة	كَتَبَ يَكْتُبُ to write

[4] 484 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي
[5] السيوطي citing 503 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي

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entity noun	meaning	plural	verb
شَاعِر	a poet	شُعَرَاء	شَعَرَ يَشْعُرُ to be aware
بَالِغ	a legally mature person	بَالِغُونَ	بَلَغَ يَبْلُغُ to reach
مُصِيبَة	a calamity	مَصَائِب	أَصَابَ يُصِيبُ to strike
جَارِيَة	a girl	جَوَارٍ	جَرَى يَجْرِي to run
طَالِب	a student	طُلَّاب, طَلَبَة	طَلَبَ يَطْلُبُ to seek
شَارِب	a moustache	شَوَارِب	شَرِبَ يَشْرَبُ to drink
سَاحِل	a shore	سَوَاحِل	سَحَلَ يَسْحَلُ to abrade
جَامِع	a large mosque	جَوَامِع	جَمَعَ يَجْمَعُ to gather
جَامِعَة	a university	جَامِعَات	جَمَعَ يَجْمَعُ to gather
قَائِمَة	a leg (of a beast, furniture)	قَوَائِم	قَامَ يَقُومُ to stand
وَارِث	an heir	وُرَّاث, وَرَثَة	وَرِثَ يَرِثُ to inherit
وَالِدٌ	a parent	وَالِدُونَ	وَلَدَ يَلِدُ to beget (offspring)
حَامِل	a carrier	حَمَلَة	حَمَلَ يَحْمِلُ to carry
قَارِئ	a reciter	قُرَّاء	قَرَأَ يَقْرَأُ to read, recite
مُعَلِّم	a teacher	مُعَلِّمُونَ	عَلَّمَ يُعَلِّمُ to teach

When the doer participle that has crossed over to a entity noun refers to human beings, then often, but not always, a feminine version of the crossed over entity noun will also exist, with a ة. So صَاحِبَة is a female companion, وَالِدَة is a female parent, etc. Sometimes, however, the entity noun exists for only one gender and not for the other, e.g. جَارِيَة «a girl». Also sometimes, the same entity noun is used for both genders, e.g. بَالِغ «a legally mature person». So we will say:

(932) رجل بالغٌ، وامرأة بالغ [المذكر والمؤنث لابن الأنباري 1/136]
«A legally mature man and a legally mature woman»

There is often some flexibility in these cases, so بَالِغَة can also be used for a female legally mature person. The dictionary is the best guide in these matters.

Recall from section (ref) that the ة that exists in a feminine doer participle is because of its latent doer pronoun. So when we say هِنْدٌ قَائِمَةٌ «Hind is standing» then the ة in قَائِمَةٌ is to match its latent doer pronoun [هِيَ] that refers to هِنْدٌ. But the ة that exists in a doer participle→entity noun crossover is no longer because of a latent doer pronoun. This is because, as mentioned previously, the doer participle→entity noun crossover is not a verb-like governor, so it will not govern a latent doer pronoun. So the ة in the doer participle→entity noun crossovers صَاحِبَة «female companion» and وَالِدَة «female parent» is a fixed feminine marker,

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just like the ة in any other feminine entity noun, e.g. شَجَرَة « tree », امْرَأَة « woman », etc.

Additionally, once a doer participle has crossed over to a entity noun, then like all entity nouns, it loses its genderizability. So we cannot add or remove a feminine marker (like ة) at will. For example, if we wish to say « The building is a university », then we will say

(933) الْبِنَاءُ جَامِعَةٌ
« The building is a university. »

We cannot remove ة from جَامِعَةٌ in order to match the gender of الْبِنَاءُ. If we do so then the meaning will be:

(934) الْبِنَاءُ جَامِعٌ
« The building is a large mosque. »

In this case, جَامِع happens to exist as another doer participle→entity noun crossover. So example () is a valid sentence, but with a different meaning than intended.

Sometimes it can be difficult to tell whether a noun from this category is an doer participle with its original meaning, or one that has crossed over to a entity noun. If you find that it is used independently (in meaning) without referring to an (implicit or explicit) referent, then it is likely that it is a doer participle→entity noun crossover. Another clue is that it is used with a broken plural.[6] But broken plurals may be used for governing doer participles as well (as we saw in section (ref)) so this isn't a definitive indicator. A more reliable indicator is whether it is made definite by being annexed to a definite annexed-to in a real annexation. Here are some examples:

(935) هؤلاء حملة الأقلام [503 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي]
« These are the carriers of the pens. »

(936) وَمَنْ تَرَكَ مَالاً فَلِوَرَثَتِهِ وَأَنَا وَارِثُ مَنْ لاَ وَارِثَ لَهُ أَعْقِلُ لَهُ وَأَرِثُهُ وَالْخَالُ وَارِثُ مَنْ لاَ وَارِثَ لَهُ يَعْقِلُ عَنْهُ وَيَرِثُهُ [سنن أبي داود: 2899]
« Whoever leaves wealth then [it is] for his heirs. And I am the heir of he who has no heir, paying blood-wit for him and inheriting from him. And the maternal uncle is the heir of he who has no heir, paying blood-wit for him and inheriting from him. »

Another possible indicator is whether the doer participle as an info mismatches in gender with the subject. For example:

[6] 503 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي

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(937) الْعُودُ قَائِمَةٌ
« The stick is a leg (of some furniture or other structure). »
(If the doer participle was intended, then we would say الْعُودُ قَائِمٌ « The stick is standing ».)

But this isn't always reliable because the subject may match in gender with the doer participle→entity noun crossover anyway. For example:

(938) الْعَصَا قَائِمَةٌ
« The stick is a leg. »
or « The stick is standing. »
(عَصًا is a feminine noun.)

Another indicator also whether the singular feminine of the doer participle is used as a info or attribute for non-intelligent beings. For example:

(939) الْأَعْوَادُ قَائِمَةٌ
« The sticks are standing. »

In the above example قَائِمَةٌ is likely to be an doer participle. (By the way, a entity noun reading is also possible: « the sticks (collectively) are a leg ».) But if we say:

(940) الْأَعْوَادُ قَوَائِمُ
« The sticks are legs. »

then قَوَائِمُ is more likely to be a entity noun. Context is a useful guide here.

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34.8.2. The ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover

This second category consists of doer participles that are made entity nouns on an ad hoc basis. That is, the dictionary will typically not list the doer participle (for this category of meaning) separately for any distinct meaning.

Th ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover is routinely formed for doer participles that signify the action of a perfect verb. This is especially done when the doer participle of the perfect action is to be the annexe in a (now real) annexation.

So for example, if someone has done the action of beating, then he can be described as a ضَارِب. Now, if we wish to refer to this specific person, we have a choice: Either we can use the connected noun ٱل or we can use the regular ٱل.

Either way, the word will look the same: الضَّارِب. But its meaning will be slightly different.

In the case of the connected noun ٱل, we are defining the person based on an action of beating that he did. الضَّارِب, in this case, remains a doer participle.

And in the case of the regular ٱل, we are defining him by virtue of his entity. Just like we would say الرَّجُل «the man», الْمَرْأَة «the woman», etc. الضَّارِب, in this case, becomes a entity noun.

Either of these can generally be used when describing the definite doer of a perfect verb. When the semantic direct object of the verb is mentioned, then the doer participle الضَّارِب retains its ٱل and governs the semantic direct object in the a-case. For example:

(941) هَذَا الضَّارِبُ زَيْدًا أَمْسِ [الأصول في النحو لابن السراج 2/265; شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/100]
«This [person] [was] the one who beat Zayd yesterday»
(الضَّارِب is a doer participle governing a latent doer pronoun and a direct object.)

But the entity noun الضَّارِب cannot govern a direct object and so it has to be annexed to the semantic direct object in a real annexation So we will say:

(942) هَذَا ضَارِبُ زَيْدٍ أَمْسِ [الزجاجي معاني النحو 3/171 citing; شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/32]
«This [person] [was] the beater of Zayd yesterday»
(ضَارِب is a entity noun in a real annexation.)

In theory, if the speaker intends to define the person by his being the doer of the verb ضَرَبَ, then he would use example (941). [7] And if the speaker intends to define the person by virtue of his entity then he would use example (942).

But in practice, they are often (but not always) close enough in meaning that they can be used interchangeably. Here is another example:

(943) فَقَالَ رَسُولُ اللهِ ﷺ مَنْ قَائِلُهَا [مسند أحمد: 7060]
«The Messenger of Allah ﷺ said: "Who is the sayer of it?"»
Compare with example (926) مَنِ الْقَائِلُ كَلِمَةَ كَذَا وَكَذَا above.

34.8.3. The doer participle→entity noun crossover as a attribute

Once an doer participle has crossed over to a entity noun, it can still be used as a attribute. This is because the the doer participle→entity noun crossover still signifies its verbal meaning to some degree. So, for example, ضَارِب, even once

[7] الأصول في النحو لابن السراج 2/265

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it has crossed over to a entity noun still signifies its verbal meaning of being a one who beats. But because it is now a entity noun, it will lose its ال when is a annexe. Consider the following example:

(944) مررت بزيد ضارب عمر [4/149 المقتضب للمبرد]
«I passed by the beater-of-Ɛamr Zayd»

See also the tafsīrs of:

(945) مَٰلِكِ يَوۡمِ ٱلدِّينِ [1:4 سورة الفاتحة]
«Sovereign of the Day of Recompense.»

(946) ٱلۡحَمۡدُ لِلَّهِ فَاطِرِ ٱلسَّمَٰوَٰتِ وَٱلۡأَرۡضِ جَاعِلِ ٱلۡمَلَٰٓئِكَةِ رُسُلًا أُوْلِيٓ أَجۡنِحَةٖ مَّثۡنَىٰ وَثُلَٰثَ وَرُبَٰعَۚ [35:1 سورة فاطر]
«[All] praise is [due] to Allāh, Creator of the heavens and the earth, [who] made the angels messengers having wings, two or three or four.»

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34.8.4. The doer participle→entity noun crossover of doubly transitive verb

As we have mentioned, when an doer participle crosses over to a entity noun, then it cannot govern a doer or an a-case governee like a direct object. But an exception is made for the doer participle of transitive verb that has two direct objects. When an doer participle of such a verb is used with a perfect meaning (as a entity noun) in a real annexation, then it's first semantic direct object is made into the annexed-to but it's second direct object remains in the a-case. We mentioned this already in section (ref) and gave the following example:

(947) هذا معطي زيد أمس درهما [3/78 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]
«This [person] was the giver of Zayd, yesterday, a dirham.»

34.8.5. An doer participle can co-exist with its doer participle→entity noun crossovers

When a cross-over entity noun exists, it does not mean that the original doer participle meaning has ceased to exist. Both can continue to exist and context will clue us in as to which meaning is intended. For example, بَالِغ is used as an doer participle here:

(270) هَدۡيَۢا بَٰلِغَ ٱلۡكَعۡبَةِ [سورة المائدة 5:95]
«as an offering [to Allāh] delivered to the Kaʿbah»

For some cross-over entity nouns, however, the entity noun usage is predominant and the original doer participle meaning is virtually non-existent. Such is the case for صَاحِب «a companion» and وَالِد «a parent».[8]

34.9. Eligibility to be described with the doer participle

Theoretically, anyone who is the doer of a verb can be described with its doer participle. So, for example, any person who is the doer of the verb قَرَأَ, even once, can be called a قَارِئ. And from context it will be understood that the person is being called a قَارِئ within the situation of a certain reading or recitation. Here are some examples:

(948) أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم صَلَّى الظُّهْرَ فَجَعَلَ رَجُلٌ يَقْرَأُ خَلْفَهُ بِسَبِّحِ اسْمَ رَبِّكَ الأَعْلَى فَلَمَّا انْصَرَفَ قَالَ أَيُّكُمْ قَرَأَ أَوْ أَيُّكُمُ الْقَارِئُ [صحيح مسلم: 398b]
that the Messenger of Allah ﷺ prayed the ẓhuhr prayer, and a man began to recite behind him [sūrat al-Aʿlā]. When [the Prophet ﷺ concluded the prayer and] turned around, he said: "Which of you recited?" or "Which of you [was] the reciter?"

(949) سَمِعَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم قَارِئًا يَقْرَأُ مِنَ اللَّيْلِ فِي الْمَسْجِدِ [صحيح البخاري: 5042]
The Prophet ﷺ heard a reciter reciting the Qurʾān in the mosque at night.

Having said that, the doer participle is a noun. And a noun, by its very nature, signifies a more permanence and constancy in its meaning than a verb. So there can be scenarios where being described by an doer participle can have a higher bar of eligibility than simply being the doer of a verb. Consider for example سورة الكافرون:

قُلۡ يَٰٓأَيُّهَا ٱلۡكَٰفِرُونَ ۝ لَآ أَعۡبُدُ مَا تَعۡبُدُونَ ۝ وَلَآ أَنتُمۡ عَٰبِدُونَ مَآ أَعۡبُدُ ۝ وَلَآ أَنَا۠ عَابِدٞ مَّا عَبَدتُّمۡ ۝ وَلَآ أَنتُمۡ عَٰبِدُونَ مَآ أَعۡبُدُ ۝ لَكُمۡ دِينُكُمۡ وَلِيَ دِينِ ۝

[سورة الكافرون]

Say, "O disbelievers, I do not worship what you worship. Nor are you worshippers of what I worship. Nor will I be a worshipper of what you worship. Nor will you be worshippers of what I worship. For you is your religion, and for me is my religion."

Ibn al-Qayyim says, in the tafsīr of this sūrah:

[8] سيبويه and others citing 488 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي

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Negation isn't employed for [the disbelievers] except by the doer participle. And for [the Prophet ﷺ], negation is employed once using the verb, and once using the doer participle.

And this is—and Allāh knows best—due to a marvelous wisdom, which is that the greater objective is [the Prophet's ﷺ] disassociation from their gods from every perspective and in every [instance of] time. So [the Prophet ﷺ, in speaking to the disbelievers with the words of the revealed sūrah], used first the verb [أَعْبُدُ], which signifies dynamic occurrence, and then used for this same negation the doer participle [عَابِد] in the second instance, i.e. "This [worshipping of what you worship] is not my description nor my state of affairs." [This is] as if he had said: "Worshipping other than Allāh will not be an verbal action of mine, nor a descrption of mine." Thus he used two negations for two negated items [a verbal action, and a description], that are intended by the negation.

As for [the negation used for the disbelievers], he used only the doer participle [عَابِدُونَ], which signifies the description [of its referent by the doer participle] and the stability [of this description], i.e. "The stable, requisite, description [of being a worshipper] of Allah is negated from you. For this description cannot be established for you. It is only established for the one who singles out Allāh exclusively for worship, and then does not associate anyone with Him. But you, because you have worshipped other than Him, are not from His worshippers." Even if they may have worshipped Allāh some of the time. For the polytheist worships Allāh and worships, with Him, others besides Him. Just like the People of the Cave said: « And when you have withdrawn from them and that which they worship other than Allāh » [سورة الكهف 18:16] i.e., "you have withdrawn from their gods excluding Allāh, for you have not withdrawn from Him." And similarly did the polytheists say regarding their gods: « "We only worship them that they may bring us nearer to Allāh in position." » [سورة الزمر 39:3]. Thus they used to worship, with Him, others besides Him. So the verb [عَبَدَ يَعْبُدُ] is not negated from them because of its occurrence from them. But the description [عَابِد] is negated because whoever worshipped other than Allāh is not established on the worship of Allāh, and is not described by [being a worshipper of Allāh].[9]

[9] تفسير ابن القيم for سورة الكافرون 109:6

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34.10. Verbs for which the doer participle is rarely used

34.10.1. The doer participle for stative verbs

Technically, an doer participle can be formed from any verb.[10] For form 1 verbs, it will always be on the pattern فَاعِل. However, there are some *stative* verbs whose doer participles are rarely used.

These are verbs which indicate only being in a static state, with virtually no dynamic action. The meaning signified is usually (but not exclusively) an innate permanent quality. For such verbs, their static adjectival nouns (see chapter (ref)) are generally used instead of their doer participles. The following table lists some such verbs, along with their rarely used doer participles, and their commonly used static adjectival nouns.

verb	meaning	doer participle	static adjectival noun
كَرُمَ	«to be noble, generous»	كَارِم	كَرِيم «noble, generous»
بَخِلَ	«to be stingy»	بَاخِل	بَخِيل «stingy»
فَرِحَ	«to by joyous»	فَارِح	فَرِح «joyous»
ضَاقَ	«to be narrow»	ضَائِق	ضَيِّق «narrow»
حَسُنَ	«to be handsome»	حَاسِن	حَسَن «handsome»

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Nevertheless, the doer participles for such verbs can be used, on occasion, to indicate a incidental dynamic state that has only temporarily occurred. As opposed to the more permanent static state that the static adjectival noun would signify.[11] For example:

(950) فَلَعَلَّكَ تَارِكٌۢ بَعْضَ مَا يُوحَىٰٓ إِلَيْكَ وَضَآئِقٌۢ بِهِۦ صَدْرُكَ أَن يَقُولُوا۟ لَوْلَآ أُنزِلَ عَلَيْهِ كَنزٌ أَوْ جَآءَ مَعَهُۥ مَلَكٌ [سورة هود 11:12 cited by النحو الوافي 3/240 footnote 3]

«Then would you possibly leave [out] some of what is revealed to you, or is your breast constrained by it because they say, "Why has there not been sent down to him a treasure or come with him an angel?"»

According to the commentary on this āyah, ضَائِق is used in place of he more commonly used ضَيِّق to indicate a temporary constrictedness.[12]

[10] النحو الوافي 3/242

[11] النحو الوافي 3/240 footnote 3; النحو الوافي 3/292

[12] النحو الوافي 3/240 footnote 3 citing شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل and others; الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة هود 11:12

34.10.2. The doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

Sometimes, for stative verbs like the above what would appear to be an doer participle is very commonly used. But actually, these usages are from the class of doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers. Here are some examples:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
عَدَلَ	«to be just»	عَادِل «just»
بَسُلَ	«to be courageous»	بَاسِل «courageous»
صَلُحَ	«to be righteous»	صَالِح «righteous»
رَبِحَ	«to be profitable»	رَابِح «profitable»
نَعُمَ	«to be soft»	نَاعِم «soft»

We will study this category in more detail in section (ref), if Allāh wills.

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34.10.3. Verbs for which the doer participle is rarely used in place of the PC verb

The doer participle is also not found used in place of a PC verb for various other classes of verbs, including verbs that indicate mental states, perception, or action.[13] Such verbs include رَأَى to see, رَجَا to hope, أَرَادَ to want, and others. For such verbs, only the verb is typically used when the meaning of the verb is needed. Nevertheless, the doer participle for such verbs has been found to be used on occasion. Examples:

(951) أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ ص لَمَّا انْصَرَفَ مِنَ الطَّائِفِ مُرِيدًا مَكَّةَ مَرَّ بِهِ بَعْضُ أَهْلِ مَكَّةَ [تاريخ الطبري 2/347 cited by Waltisberg, *Satzkomplex und funktion* 293]
that the Messenger of Allah, when he departed from al-Ṭā'if intending (as his destination) Makkah, one of the people of Makkah passed by him.

(952) أُرَانِي اللَّيْلَةَ عِنْدَ الْكَعْبَةِ فَرَأَيْتُ رَجُلاً آدَمَ كَأَحْسَنِ مَا أَنْتَ رَاءٍ مِنْ أُدْمِ الرِّجَالِ [صحيح البخاري :6999]
I saw myself (in a dream) near the Kaɛbah last night, and I saw a man with whitish red complexion, the best you may see amongst men of that complexion.

[13] See Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic* 124

The doer participle of such verbs may also freely be used when its essential "doer" meaning is intended. For example:

(953) وَكَمْ مِنْ مُرِيدٍ لِلْخَيْرِ لَنْ يُصِيبَهُ [سنن الدارمي: 210]
«How many of an intender of goodness shall not achieve it.»

34.11. Further reading

1. Fischer §201–§204, pp. 111–113.
2. Hassan, *A contrastive study of tense and aspect in English and Arabic with special reference to translation* §4.4 pp. 106–110.
3. Kinberg, *Semi-imperfectives and imperfectives: A case study of aspect and tense in Arabic participal clauses*
4. Marmorstein, *Tense and text in Classical Arabic*
5. Odilavadze, *Western scholars' opinions on rendering the tense by means of the participle in Arabic*
6. Owens and Yavrumyan, *The participle*
7. van Putten, *The morphosyntax of objects to participles in the Qurʾān*
8. Waltisberg, *Satzkomplex und funktion*
9. Wright, vol. ii, §30–§31 pp. 63–69, §72–§74 pp. 194–198.
10. Youssef, *Das partizip im Arabischen*
11. دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي pp. 480–525.
12. معاني النحو 3/170ff.
13. النحو الوافي 3/240 footnote 3, 3/241, 3/292ff.
14. دلالة سياق اسم الفاعل في الحديث النبوي الشريف صحيح مسلم أنموذجًا لشادي محمد جميل عايش
15. تحرير اسم الفاعل من مزاعم المجاراة لحامد علي أبو صعيليك

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Chapter 35.

The static adjectival noun

> ⚠ Warning
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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35.1. Introduction

The static adjectival noun is a deverbal noun. The static adjectival noun is called as such because it assigns an adjectival quality to its referent *statically*, i.e. without any aspect of the progression of time. حَسَن «handsome, good» is an example of a static adjectival noun.

We saw in chapter (ref) that the doer participle can be used as a *dynamic* adjectival noun because it can signify an adjectival quality along with signifying the progression of time.[1] In this sense, the doer participle is the closest of the adjectival nouns to the verb.

The static adjectival noun, although not as close to the verb as the doer participle, can also govern in a manner which is similar (but not quite exactly the same) as the governing of the doer participle. In this chapter, we will explore its significance and its ability to govern in a verb-like manner.

[1] See also Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 48 footnote 2

35.2. The forms of the static adjectival noun

The static adjectival noun comes in various forms. We will list the most common of them[2]:

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعِل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
فَرِحَ	«to be joyous»	فَرِح	«joyous»
حَزِنَ	«to be sad»	حَزِن	«sad»
حَذِرَ	«to be precautious»	حَذِر	«precautious»
تَعِبَ	«to be tired»	تَعِب	«tired»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعْلَان

Feminine: usually فَعْلَى

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
عَطِشَ	«to be thirsty»	عَطْشَان	«thirsty»
ظَمِئَ	«to be thirsty»	ظَمْآن	«thirsty»
شَبِع	«to be sated»	شَبْعَان	«sated»
يَقِظَ	«to be awake»	يَقْظَان	«awake»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern أَفْعَل

Feminine: فَعْلَاء

[2]The following list is taken mostly from النحو الوافي 3/285ff

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verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
حَمِرَ	«to be red»	أَحْمَر	«red»
خَضِرَ	«to be green»	أَخْضَر	«green»
عَرِجَ	«to be lame»	أَعْرَج	«lame»
حَوِرَ	«to be big-eyed»	أَحْوَر	«big-eyed»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعِيل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
شَرُفَ	«to be noble»	شَرِيف	«noble»
قَبُحَ	«to be ugly»	قَبِيح	«ugly»
بَخِلَ	«to be stingy»	بَخِيل	«stingy»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعْل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
صَعُبَ	«to be difficult»	صَعْب	«difficult»
ضَخْمَ	«to be large»	ضَخْم	«large»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَعَال

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
جَبُنَ	«to be cowardly»	جَبَان	«cowardly»
حَصُنَ	«to be chaste»	حَصَان	«chaste»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فُعَال

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
شَجُعَ	«to be brave»	شُجَاع	«brave»
فَرُتَ	«to be sweet»	فُرَات	«sweet»

Work in progress

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فُعْل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
صَلُبَ	«to be hard (rigid)»	صُلْب	«hard (rigid)»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فِعْل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
مَلُحَ	«to be salty»	مِلْح	«salty»

Static adjectival noun's on the pattern فَيْعِل

verb	meaning	static adjectival noun	meaning
مَاتَ	«to die»	مَيِّت	«dead, dying»

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35.3. The static adjectival noun as the governor of a latent doer pronoun

Just like the doer participle, the static adjectival noun will, by default, govern a latent doer pronoun.[3] Consider the following examples:

(954) مررت بامرأة حسنة [161 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي]
«I passed by a handsome woman.»
(حسنة has a latent doer pronoun implicated as هي.)

(955) مررت برجلين حسنين [161 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي]
«I passed by two handsome men.»
(حسنين has a latent doer pronoun هما.)

[3] 161 الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي

35.4. The static adjectival noun as the governor of a sababi overt doer

TODO: sifah should be valid for both genders if mismatch. Also for ism_fail like murDi3. Add forward reference to ism_fail chapter. [النحو الوافي 3/303–304]

Similar to the doer participle the static adjectival noun can govern a overt doer. So we can say:

(956) مررت برجل حسن وجهه [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1077]

(957) مررت برجلين حسن أبواهما [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1077]

(958) مررت برجال حسن آباؤهم [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1077]

(959) الرجال كريمة أمهاتهم

(960) رأيت الرجالَ الكريمةَ أمهاتهم

Also similar to the doer participle, when static adjectival noun's doer is a broken plural (as in example () above آباؤهم), then the static adjectival noun is permitted, and preferred, to also be a broken plural.[4]

So we can say:

(961) مررت برجال حسانٍ آباؤهم [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1077]

(962) هؤلاءِ زملاءُ كرامٌ آباؤهم [النحو الوافي 3/453]

But if the doer of the static adjectival noun is a sound plural, then it is preferred that the static adjectival noun remain singular. Examples:

(963) هؤلاء زملاءُ كريم والدوهم [النحو الوافي 3/454]

(964) هؤلاء زميلات كريمة والداتهن [النحو الوافي 3/454]

By the way, when the static adjectival noun is a attribute, then instead of using a sababi na3t (as in examples () above), we can use a sentence attribute. So instead of saying مررت برجل حسنٍ وجهه, we can say:

(965) مررت برجل حسنٌ وجهه [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1076]

Now the attribute is the sentence حسنٌ وجهُه « handsome, his face is ». حسن in this sentence is a fronted info.

[4] النحو الوافي 3/453–454; fawzan_sharh_qatr 248; شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى 288

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The static adjectival noun cannot govern a non-sababi overt doer

In section (ref) above, we saw that an doer participle can govern a non-sababi overt doer. Unlike the doer participle the static adjectival noun can only govern a sababi overt doer. So we cannot say:

(966) × مررت برجل حَسَنٍ عمرٌو في داره [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1075]
«I passed a man [whom] Ɛamr was handsome in his house.»

35.5. The static adjectival noun in a superficial annexation

Like the doer participle, the static adjectival noun forms a superficial annexation with its governee. In section (ref), we learned that the doer participle forms a superficial annexation between the doer participle and its semantic direct object. The static adjectival noun is typically from an intransitive verb. so it will not have a direct object. Instead, it forms a superficial annexation in two ways:

i. A superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its semantic *doer*.
ii. A superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its tamyīz.

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35.5.1. Superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its semantic doer

The static adjectival noun can form a superficial annexation between the static adjectival noun and its semantic doer. It does this by first transforming its doer into a *direct object-like* governee. Wil will explaing this process below:

Consider the sentence:

(967) مررت برجل حسنٍ وجهُه [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1077]

In this sentence, the static adjectival noun has a definite sababi doer وجهه. This sentence is transformed in the following manner[5]:

[5] البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1080

First step of the transformation

Firstly, the annexed-to ه in وجهه is transferred to being a latent doer pronoun of the static adjectival noun حسن.

Second step of the transformation

Secondly, وجه, with its annexed-to ه eliminated, is made into الوجه to keep it definite (to match وجهه which was also definite).

Now that the static adjectival noun حسن already has a doer (its latent doer pronoun هو), the noun الوجه cannot be its doer. So it is made into what we will call a *direct object-like* governee. So it is put into the a-case thus: الْوَجْهَ.

We call الْوَجْهَ a direct object-like governee, and not a true direct object because, in meaning, it is still the doer of the static adjectival noun حسن. The static adjectival noun حسن is derived from an intransitive verb حَسُنَ which does not take a direct object.

With this transformation, the sentence becomes:

(968) مررت برجل حسنٍ الوجهَ [1080 البسيط لابن أبي الربيع]

It is important to note that this transformation affects only the syntax of the sentence, but not its meaning. The static adjectival noun حسن is still describing a quality of الوجه, not رجل.

But now that الوجه is not syntactically the doer of the static adjectival noun, the static adjectival noun match its syntactic referent رجل in gender and number, not its semantic doer الوجه. So we will say:

(969) مررت برجلين حسنين الوجهين

(970) مررت برجالٍ حسانٍ الوجوهَ

(971) مررت بمرأة حسنة الوجهَ

(972) مررت بمرأتين حسنتين الوجهين

Remember, that it الوجه were syntactically the doer, then we would have said instead:

(973) مررت برجلين حسنين وجهاهما

(974) مررت بمرأة حَسَنٍ وجهُهَا

etc.

The transformation that we have described above works exactly the same for definite static adjectival nouns. So we will say:

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(975) مررت بالرجل الحسن الوجهَ

(976) جاءت المرأتان الحسنتان الوجهين

etc.

Final step of the transformation

A sentence with a direct object-like governee, like in example () مررت برجل حسنٍ الوجهَ above, while grammatically correct, is rarely used in practice.[6] The main purpose of the direct object-like governee is that it is used as a intermediate step for the final step of the transformation: and that is into a superficial annexation[7] This is done by converting the direct object-like governee into a syntactic annexed-to.

Lets start with static adjectival nouns with their direct object-like governees:

- Indefinite static adjectival noun: حَسَنٌ الْوَجْهَ
- Definite static adjectival noun: الْحَسَنُ الْوَجْهَ

The a-case direct object-like governees are converted into annexed-tos in the i-case:

- Indefinite static adjectival noun: حَسَنُ الْوَجْهِ
- Definite static adjectival noun: الْحَسَنُ الْوَجْهِ

Here are some examples using this superficial annexation:

(977) مررت برجل حسنِ الوجهِ [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1078, 1081]

(978) جاء الرجل الحسنُ الوجهِ

Note that, because الوجه is a a-case governee, and not the doer, of the static adjectival noun, therefore, the static adjectival noun is feminized, dualized, or pluralized to match its referent, not الوجه. Examples:

(979) هند حسنة الوجه [شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/439]

(980) الزيدان حسنا الوجهين [شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/439]

(981) الزيدون حسنو الوجوه [شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/439]

[6] الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 166
[7] الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 167

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35.6. The static adjectival noun with a tamyīz

Remember from section (ref), that the tamyīz is a a-case governee that specifies the scope of its governor. As a verb-like noun, the static adjectival noun can govern a tamyīz. So we can say, for example:

(982) مررت برجل حسن وجهًا [البسيط لابن أبي الربيع 1080]

(983) جاءت المرأة الحسنة وجهًا

(984) الزيدون حسنون وجوها [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 9/241]

35.6.1. Superficial annexation of the static adjectival noun with a tamyīz

As with the static adjectival noun that has a direct object-like governee, the static adjectival noun with a tamyīz also can also form a superficial annexation.

So حَسَنٌ وَجْهًا will become:

(985) حسنُ وجهٍ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 171]

Again, the static adjectival noun will match its referent in gender and number. So, for example, we will say:

(986) هم حسنو وجوه [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 9/227]

Unlike, the static adjectival noun with a direct object-like governee, a static adjectival noun prefixed by ال with a tamyīz does not form a superficial annexation This is because a definite annexe with an indefinite annexed-to is fundamentally inconsistent with an annexation construction.^[الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 169] So الْحَسَنُ وَجْهًا, however, does not form a superficial annexation to become:

(987) × الحسنُ وجهٍ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 169]

Finally, whereas the static adjectival noun with its direct object-like governee (e.g. حَسَنُ الْوَجْهَ) is pretty much only used as an intermediate step to form a superficial annexation, such is not the case for the static adjectival noun with a tamyīz. The static adjectival noun with a tamyīz can be used, as is, without converting it into a superficial annexation.[8]

[8] شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/439 citing الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 167

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35.7. The word order of the static adjectival noun and its a-case governee

Recall from section (ref) above that the a-case governee of a doer participle is permitted to precede its governing doer participle in word order. So we can say:

(988) زيد عمرا ضارب [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/143]

But this is not permitted for the static adjectival noun.^ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 1/259; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/143] So we cannot say:

(989) × زَيْدٌ الْوَجْهَ حَسَنٌ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/143]

Nor is the tamyīz allowed to precede its governing static adjectival noun (see section (ref)). So we cannot say:

(990) × زيد وَجها حسن [المقتضب للمبرد 4/164]

35.8. Uncommon constructions of the static adjectival noun

There are some constructions of the static adjectival noun, that are uncommonly found. Some are disagreed upon with regard to their grammatical correctness. Some grammarians allow some of them unconditionally, others by poetic license only, while others would disallow them.^[الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 162–170]

We list these constructions here for compleness:

Governing a doer

(991) حَسَنٌ الْوَجْهُ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 162]

(992) الْحَسَنُ الْوَجْهُ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 162]

(993) حَسَنٌ وَجْهٌ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 163]

(994) الْحَسَنُ وَجْهٌ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 163]

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Governing a a-case governee

(995) حَسَنٌ وَجْهَهُ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 166]

(996) الْحَسَنُ وَجْهَهُ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 166]

In a superficial annexation

(997) حَسَنُ وَجْهِهِ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 169]

When the static adjectival noun is defined by أل and the semantic doer is not defined by أل, then a superficial annexation is disallowed.^[الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 166] For example:

(998) × الْحَسَنُ وَجْهِهِ [الضمير المستتر لسعود بن عبيد الله الصاعدي 169]

35.9. Superficial annexation to an annexation

It is possible for the doer of a static adjectival noun to itself be in an annexation. For example:

(999) زَيْدٌ حَسَنٌ وَجْهُ أَبِيهِ

(1000) رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَةَ لِحْيَةُ أَبِيهِ

Superficial annexations can, in general, be formed from such constructions after, of course, first transforming the doers into a-case governees.

But when the static adjectival noun is defined by أل, then a superficial annexation is only permitted, if the annexed-to of semantic doer also is defined by أل.[9] Compare this with section (ref) for the doer participle. Examples:

(1001) ✓ زَيْدٌ حَسَنُ وَجْهِ الْأَبِ

(1002) ✓ زَيْدٌ حَسَنُ وَجْهِ أَبٍ

(1003) ✓ زَيْدٌ حَسَنُ وَجْهِ أَبِيهِ

(1004) ✓ رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَ لِحْيَةِ الْأَبِ

(1005) × رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَ لِحْيَةِ أَبٍ

(1006) × رَأَيْتُ الرَّجُلَ الطَّوِيلَ لِحْيَةِ أَبِيهِ

[9] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/145–146

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35.10. Significance of the static adjectival noun

The static adjectival noun is typically derived from a stative verb. A stative verb is one which, rather than describing any process or action, signifies that its doer is in a particular state. Futhermore, its doer does not do any actual work or action that causes him to be in the state described by the static adjectival noun.

35.10.1. Permanence of the meaning of the static adjectival noun

Some static adjectival nouns have a very permanent meaning. For example:

static adjectival noun	meaning
أَخْضَر	« green »
أَعْرَج	« lame »
شَرِيف	« noble, highborn »
زَنِيم	« ignoble, baseborn »

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Others are fairly permanent but can change gradually. For example:

static adjectival noun	meaning
جَمِيل	« beautiful »
قَبِيح	« ugly »

Others can change fairly quickly. For example

static adjectival noun	meaning
جَوْعَان	« hungry »
فَرِح	« joyous »
تَعِب	« tired »

35.10.2. Transitivity of the verb from which the doer participle is derived

The static adjectival noun is typically derived from intransitive verbs. Rarely, we find a static adjectival noun which is derived from a transitive verb. For example:

static adjectival noun	meaning
ثَكْلَان	«bereft (of child)»

35.10.3. Static adjectival nouns whose meaning aligns with the done-to

Most of the time, the static adjectival noun aligns in meaning with the doer of the verb from which it is derived. For example, حَسَن «handsome» aligns in meaning with the doer of the verb حَسُنَ «to be handsome». Occasionally, however, the static adjectival noun aligns in meaning with the done-to of its verb. Examples:

static adjectival noun	meaning	verb
حَمِيد	«praiseworthy»	حَمِدَ «to praise (s.o.)»
ذَمِيم	«blameworthy»	ذَمَّ «to blame (s.o.)»
مَنِيع	«inaccessible, impregnable»	مَنَعَ «to prevent (s.o., s.th.)»

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35.11. The doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

Whereas static adjectival noun are typically derived from stative verbs, doer participles are derived from both intransitive verbs (like قَائِم from قَامَ «to stand»), and transitive verbs (like ضَارِب from ضَرَبَ «to beat»). Furthermore, when a verb has a stative meaning, then, as we learned in section (ref) its doer participle is often not in common usage. Instead, a static adjectival noun will often exist for the stative verb and the static adjectival noun will be generally used instead. For example, the doer participle كَارِم of the stative verb كَرُمَ «to be noble, generous» is rarely used. Instead, the static adjectival noun كَرِيم «noble, generous» will

generally be used instead. But, as we also learned, كَارِم could be used when a dynamic meaning is intended.

The above is the general rule for doer participles of stative verbs. However, there are some stative verbs, for which the doer participle is commonly used, but only after it crosses over to become a static adjectival noun. As with the doer participle→entity noun crossover there are two categories of doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers:

i. The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
ii. The ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

35.11.1. The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is one which is commonly used with its static adjectival noun meaning. It will typically have its own entry in a dictionary. Examples are:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
طَهُرَ	«to be clean»	طَاهِر «clean»
ضَمَرَ	«to be lean»	ضَامِر «lean»
صَلُحَ	«to be righteous»	صَالِح «righteous»
نَعُمَ	«to be soft»	نَاعِم «soft»
بَسُلَ	«to be courageous»	بَاسِل «courageous»

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Sometimes, a true static adjectival noun with a similar meaning, can co-exist with the lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover, For example طَهِير «clean».

Sometimes, lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover occurs for verbs which are not purely stative. In fact, it can even occur for transitive verbs. Here are some examples:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
عَدَلَ	«to act justly»	عَادِل «just»
رَبِحَ	«to gain a profit»	رَابِح «profitable»
ظَلَمَ	«to wrong (s.o.)»	ظَالِم «unjust, tyrannical»
رَحِمَ	«to have mercy (on s.o.)»	رَاحِم «merciful»

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
قَطَعَ	«to cut (s.th.)»	قَاطِع «sharp, incisive»

Occasionally, the meaning of the doer participle can change considerably when it crosses over to a static adjectival noun. For example:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
كَتَمَ	«to conceal (s.th)»	كَاتِم «concealed»
دَفَقَ	«to pour (s.th.)»	دَافِق «poured forth»

In the above examples, we can see that the lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers actually have the meaning of the object participles. So سِرٌّ كَاتِمٌ [Lane's Lexicon «دفق»] is «a concealed secret», and مَاءٌ دَافِقٌ [Lane's Lexicon «دفق»] is «water that is poured forth».[10] But the doer participle can still be used with its original meaning. For example:

(1007) وَلَوْ كَانَ مُحَمَّدٌ صلى الله عليه وسلم كَاتِمًا شَيْئًا مِمَّا أُنْزِلَ عَلَيْهِ لَكَتَمَ هَذِهِ الآيَةَ [صحيح مسلم: 177b]
And if Muḥammad were to conceal anything from what was revealed to him, he would have concealed this āyah.

When an doer participle crosses over to a static adjectival noun, then it will govern in the manner of a static adjectival noun. So, it can govern a doer, and the doer is transformed into a direct object-like governee, which is then used in a superficial annexation. For example:

(1008) طَاهِرُ الْقَلْبِ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 2/41]
«clean of heart»
(The transformation is طَاهِرٌ قَلْبُهُ → طَاهِرٌ الْقَلْبَ → طَاهِرُ الْقَلْبِ.)

(1009) ضَامِرُ الْكَشْحِ [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 10/298]
«lean of flank»
(The transformation is ضَامِرٌ كَشْحُهُ → ضَامِرٌ الْكَشْحَ → ضَامِرُ الْكَشْحِ.)

The process above is normal and straightforward when it comes to doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers that are derived from intransitive verbs. But if a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is derived from a transitive verb, then there is more care required when using it in a superficial annexation.

[10] See also البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الحاقة 69:21 فَهُوَ فِي عِيشَةٍ رَّاضِيَةٍ

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For example, consider the following two doer participle→static adjectival noun crossovers that are derived from transitive verbs:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
ظَلَمَ	«to wrong (s.o.)»	ظَالِم «unjust, tyrannical»
رَحِمَ	«to have mercy (on s.o.)»	رَاحِم «merciful»

Now let's say that we wish to use the doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover رَاحِم in a superficial annexation. Then, it is preferred that the actual direct object of the doer participle not be mentioned. So, for example, we can say

(1010) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمُ الْقَلْبِ
«Zayd is merciful of heart.»

But we shouldn't say:

(1011) × زَيْدٌ رَاحِمُ الْقَلْبِ النَّاسَ
«Zayd is merciful of heart to the people.»

Sometimes, the meaning of the syntactic annexed-to can cause ambiguity. For example if we say:

(1012) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمُ الْأَبْنَاءِ [modified from شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/104]

then there are two routes to end up with this construction:

i. رَاحِم is a doer participle and الأَبْنَاء is its direct object. The original sentence is:

(1013) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْأَبْنَاءَ
«Zayd is/will be having mercy on the sons.»

ii. رَاحِم is a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover and الأَبْنَاء is its semantic doer. The original sentence is:

(1014) زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ أَبْنَاؤُهُ
«Zayd is merciful of sons.»
i.e. «Zayd has merciful sons.»

This sentence gets transformed according to the transformation of static adjectival nouns. Even though رَاحِم is derived from a transitive verb, its governee أَبْنَاء is treated as a direct object-like governee, not as a direct object.[11] So the transformation is زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ أَبْنَاؤُهُ → زَيْدٌ رَاحِمٌ الْأَبْنَاءَ → زَيْدٌ رَاحِمُ الْأَبْنَاءِ.

[11] شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/104

Work in progress

There is actually a third route as well, where رَاحِم is an ad hoc doer participle→entity noun crossover. In this case the meaning would be «Zayd is the merciful-one of the sons». However, this meaning is a little less likely and not very relevant to our discussion here.

Coming back to the sentence زَيْدٌ رَاحِمُ الْأَبْنَاءِ, there is no problem with using رَاحِمُ الْأَبْنَاءِ as a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover to mean «merciful of sons». But only if context makes it clear that Zayd has merciful sons, not that he is having mercy on the sons.

Similarly, one can use ظَالِم as a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover instead of as a doer participle. For example:

(1015) زَيْدٌ ظَالِمُ الْعَبِيدِ [modified from شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 3/104]
«Zayd is unjust of slaves.»

This meaning can be understood when context indicates that Zayd has unjust slaves.[12]

The lexical doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is not as common for form 1 verbs as the true static adjectival noun. But for form 2+ verbs, the doer participle crossing over to a static adjectival noun is the default mechanism to derive a static adjectival noun from the verb. Examples:

verb	meaning	doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover
انْطَلَقَ	«to be let loose»	مُنْطَلِقُ اللِّسَانِ «fluent of tongue» [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 3/308]
اطْمَأَنَّ	«to be tranquil»	مُطْمَئِنُّ الْقَلْبِ «tranquil of heart» [التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 3/308]
اسْتَقَامَ	«to be upright»	مُسْتَقِيم «straight»
اعْتَدَلَ	«to be moderate»	مُعْتَدِل «moderate»

35.11.2. The ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover

The ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover can be created from any doer participle, on the fly, when what is intended by the doer participle is

[12] المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 2/222; see also الدر المصون للسمين الحلبي for سورة إبراهيم 14:39

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a more permanent quality. So, for example, the doer participle قَائِم can cross over to a static adjectival noun Now it will statically signify *one who stands*. For example, a person who stands a lot can be described statically as قَائِم. Now it will no longer signify the dynamic progression of time while standing.

Once قَائِم is a static adjectival noun, now it can follow the same transformation of governing a direct object-like governee and then into a superficial annexation.[13] So we can say:

(1016) زَيْدٌ قَائِمُ الْأَبِ [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 2/222]
«Zayd's father is a stander.»
(The process of transformation is زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ → زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ الْأَبَ → زَيْدٌ قَائِمُ الْأَبِ.)

But we should not use the superficial annexation زَيْدٌ قَائِمُ الْأَبِ with the dynamic meaning of the doer participle «Zayd's father is standing». This is because then قَائِم is not a static adjectival noun and thus cannot govern a direct object-like governee.[14] And it is derived from a transitive verb, so it cannot govern a true direct object either. So we can't say (with a temporary meaning):

(1017) × زَيْدٌ قَائِمُ الْأَبِ غَدًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/140] «Zayd's father will stand tomorrow.»

We should only say, in this case:

(1018) زَيْدٌ قَائِمٌ أَبُوهُ غَدًا [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/140] «Zayd's father will stand tomorrow.»

An ad hoc doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover can be formed from a transitive doer participle using the same reasoning. So we can say:

(1019) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبُ الْأَبِ [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 2/222–223]
«Zayd's father is a beater.»

But one should only use such a construction when context makes it clear that Zayd's father is the beater. Otherwise the apparent meaning, out of context, is «Zayd is the beater of the father». By the way, we have already learned in section (ref) above that when a doer participle→static adjectival noun crossover is derived from a transitive verb, then the true direct object of the verb should not be used. So we shouldn't say:

(1020) × زَيْدٌ ضَارِبُ الْأَبِ عَمْرًا [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 2/223]
«Zayd's father is a beater of Ɛamr.»

[13] المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 2/222; شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 2/230
[14] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/140; شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 4/393

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35.12. The entity noun→static adjectival noun crossover

It is possible for a entity noun to cross over to a adjectival noun. Sometimes this crossing over is metaphorical, such that the entity noun is used with an adjectival noun meaning. For example:

(1021) مررت برجل أسد
«I passed by a lion man»
(«lion» is used metaphorical to mean courageous.)

Othertimes, the entity noun is simply used descriptively. For example:

(1022) مررت برجل عبد «I passed by a slave man»

When a entity noun crosses over to a adjectival noun, then it will govern a latent doer pronoun. This doer can also be an overt sababi doer. For example:

(1023) مررت برجل عبد أبوه [الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة النساء 4:172]

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35.13. The lexical static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover

Very often, a static adjectival noun can cross over to a entity noun.
Here are some examples:

static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover	meaning
صَغِير	«a baby»
كَبِير	«a elder person»
صَغِيرَة	«a minor sin»
كَبِيرَة	«a major sin»
نَصِيحَة	«an advice»
حَسَنَة	«a good deed»

As with doer participle→entity noun crossovers when an adjectival noun crosses over to a entity noun, it loses its genderizability. For example, the feminine static adjectival noun حَسَنَة «good» crosses over to a entity noun to mean «a good deed». Let's use it in a sentence:

(1024) ٱلصِّيَامُ حَسَنَةٌ.
«Fasting is a good deed.»

The subject in this sentence is the masculine noun ٱلصِّيَام «fasting». And the info is the feminine noun حَسَنَة «a good deed». Note that the info does not match the subject in gender. This is because it lost its genderizability since it is no longer acting as an static adjectival noun «good», but rather as the entity noun «a good deed».

What if we have the sentence:

(1025) ٱلصَّدَقَةُ حَسَنَةٌ.

The feminine gender of the subject ٱلصَّدَقَة «charity» now matches the gender of the info حَسَنَة. So now, technically, the info could be the static adjectival noun, meaning «good». So the sentence could mean «Charity is good.»

Or the info could be the entity noun meaning «a good deed». Then the sentence would mean «Charity is a good deed.».

Context would be needed to tell us which meaning is intended.

Frequently, when a static adjectival noun can cross over to a entity noun, then it uses a different plural from the original static adjectival noun. For example, كَبِيرَة as a static adjectival noun can use the broken plural كِبَار. So we can say:

(1026) الْجَوَارِي كِبَارٌ «The girls are big.»
(كَبِيرات could also have been used.)

But when كَبِيرَة crosses over to a entity noun, then it will use the plural كَبَائِر. For example:

(1027) هَذِهِ الْأَفْعَالُ كَبَائِرُ
«These acts are major sins.»

The static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover on the pattern فَعِيل

There is a special category of lexical static adjectival noun→entity noun crossovers and that is on the pattern فَعِيل, when it has the meaning of the object participle. Examples are:

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static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover	meaning	verb	definition
قَتِيل	«a killed person»	قَتَلَ	«to kill (s.o.)»
جَرِيح	«a wounded person»	جَرَحَ	«to wound (s.o.)»
أَجِير	«a hired person»	أَجَرَ	«to hire (s.o.)»

These static adjectival noun→entity noun crossovers are used under the following general guidelines:

- They can be used as a attribute (by crossing back over to a adjectival noun as in section (ref) above)).
- When with an (explicit or implicit) noun as its referent has been previously mentioned, then only the masculine noun is used, even for feminine referents.
- When used without an (explicit or implicit) noun as its referent, then the feminine noun (with ة) may be used for a feminine referent.

Here are some examples:

(1028) مررت بامرأة جريح [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/94]
«I passed by a wounded-person woman.»

(1029) مررت برجل جريح أبوه [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 2/209]
«I passed by a man whose father was a wounded-person.»

(1030) رَأَيْتُ قَتِيلًا وَقَتِيلَةً
«I saw a male killed person and a female killed person.»

Not all static adjectival nouns with the meaning of the object participle cross over (lexically) to entity nouns. Some remain as static adjectival nouns and then are feminized as usual. For example:

(1031) رَجُلٌ حَمِيدٌ وَامْرأَةٌ حَمِيدَةٌ
«a praiseworthy man and a praiseworthy woman»

(1032) رَجُلٌ ذَمِيمٌ وَامْرأَةٌ ذَمِيمَةٌ
«a blameworthy man and a blameworthy woman»

(1033) حِصْنٌ مَنِيعٌ وَقَلْعَةٌ مَنِيعَةٌ
«an impregnable fort and an impregnable citadel»

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Another example od lexical static adjectival noun→entity noun crossovers that is on the pattern فَعِيل is:

static adjectival noun→entity noun crossover	meaning	verb	definition
رَهِينَة	«a pledged-item»	رَهَنَ	«to pledge (s.th.)»

In this case, the entity noun has a ة and can be used for both masculine and feminine referents. For example:

(1034) كُلُّ غُلَامٍ رَهِينَةٌ بِعَقِيقَتِهِ [سنن أبي داود: 2837]
«Every boy is a pledge by his Ɛaqīqah»

The masculine رَهِين can also be used but it will generally retain its adjectival noun sense.[15]

35.14. Definiteness of a static adjectival noun in a superficial annexation

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We learned in section (ref) that the annexe in a superficial annexation is not made definite by a definite annexed-to. We saw this in example (977) مررت برجل حسنِ الوجهِ, where حَسَن in the superficial annexation remains indefinite even though it is a annexe to a definite annexed-to الْوَجْهِ. Therefore, the indefinite حَسَن is a attribute to the indefinite attributed-to رَجُل.

If the attributed-to is definite, then the static adjectival noun annexe is prefixed by ال.

(1035) مررت بالرجل الحسنِ الوجهِ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/116]

(1036) مررتُ بزيدٍ الحسنِ الوجهِ، وهندٍ الجائلةِ الوِشاح [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 2/132]

This rule of a static adjectival noun not becoming definite because of a definite annexed-to is followed more strictly than for the doer participle.[16] In the case of an doer participle, we saw in section (ref) that it can cross over to a entity noun

[15] Lane's Lexicon entry رَهْن
[16] دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 495

in an ad hoc manner. When this happens, then it it becomes definite when it is a annexe to a definite annexed-to (section (ref)).

But the static adjectival noun, when it is a annexe to its semantic doer, cannot be understood as a real annexation. That is حَسَنُ الْوَجْهِ «handsome of face» can only be understood to mean that the face is handsome, never «the face's handsome-one». So we cannot, in general, say:

(1037) × مررت بزيد حسن الوجه [الجامي citing 496 دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي]

We would have to say مررتُ بزيدٍ الحسنِ الوجهِ instead, as in example () above.

All this notwithstanding, some grammarians allow, on occasion, a static adjectival noun, when a annexe to its semantic doer, to become definite by a definite annexed-to. This is by reason of aligning to the *form* of a real annexation. For more discussion on this, see تفسير ابن عثيمين for سورة غافر 40:3:

(1038) غَافِرِ ٱلذَّنۢبِ وَقَابِلِ ٱلتَّوۡبِ شَدِيدِ ٱلۡعِقَابِ ذِى ٱلطَّوۡلِۖ لَآ إِلَٰهَ إِلَّا هُوَۖ إِلَيۡهِ ٱلۡمَصِيرُ [سورة غافر 40:3]

«The forgiver of sin, acceptor of repentance, severe in punishment, owner of abundance. There is no deity except Him; to Him is the destination.»

35.15. Further reading

1. د. فيصل إبراهيم صفا (قراءة جديدة في البنية الشكلية والدلالية لبعض الأوصاف المشتقة) الصفة المشبهة

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Chapter 36.

The adverb of time and and the adverb of place

Work in progress

> ⚠ Warning
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

36.1. Introduction

Consider the sentence:

« Zayd went to the market one day. »

The term « one day » here is an *adverb of time*. It describes the verb « went » and tells us the time in which the action of going ocurred.

In this chapter, we will study two kinds of adverbs in Arabic: the *adverb of time* and the *adverb of place*. These two adverbs are treated together because they both describe the space (of time and place, respectedly) in which the action of a verb ocurrs. There are other kinds of adverbs as well, and we will study them in other chapters, if Allāh wills.

The adverb, in Arabic, is a noun that qualifies a verb. It is put in the a-case. Let's express the above sentence in Arabic:

(1039) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ إِلَى ٱلسُّوقِ يَوْمًا
« Zayd went to the market one day. »

The noun يَوْم is functioning as an adverb of time. When used thus, as an adverb, we can translate it idiomatically as « one day » instead of « a day ».

36.2. Determining when a noun is an adverb of time or place

The term *adverb* in Arabic grammar technically does not refer to any specific class of nouns. Generally, nouns can be used for different functions, including as adverbs. For example, the noun يَوْم doesn't necessarily need to be used as an adverb. It may be used, for example, as the subject of a sentence:

(1040) أَلْيَوْمُ طَوِيلٌ
«The day is long.»

Even when it is in the a-case, it is not necessarily an adverb. Here it is as a direct object:

(1041) أَخَافُ يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ
[معاني النحو 2/178]
«I fear the Day of Resurrection.»

The way that we can tell when a noun is an adevrb of time or place is if it satisfies the following conditions:

1. The noun is in the a-case.
2. The noun is dispensable, such that the sentence is complete, albeit more vague, without it.
3. The noun signifies the time or place in which the verb occurred.

In the sentence أَخَافُ يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ, the noun يَوْم is not signify the time in which the verb أَخَافُ is ocurring. So it is not an adverb of time.

Having said that, there are nouns that are used exclusively or mostly as adverbs, like قَبْل «before». So, loosely speaking, such nouns, themselves, may be referred to as adverbs.

36.3. The adverb or time

The adverb of time is more unrestricted than the adverb of place. So we will deal with it first. We have already seen an example of an adverb of time in the sentence:

(1042) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ إِلَى ٱلسُّوقِ يَوْمًا
«Zayd went to the market one day.»

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In the above example, the adverb of time يَوْم is singular and indefinite. But an adverb of time can occur in other formations as well. For example:

As a definite common noun:

(1043) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ إِلَى ٱلسُّوقِ ٱلْيَوْمَ
«Zayd went to the market today.»
(ٱلْيَوْم «the day» is also used to mean «today».)

With a attribute:

(1044) قَتَلْتُهُ ٱلسَّنَةَ ٱلْمَاضِيَةَ [Wright 2/110A]
«I killed him last year.»

As a proper noun:

(1045) صُمْتُ رَمَضَانَ [Wright 2/110A]
«I fasted (the month of) Ramaḍ͡hān.»

As an annexe to a annexed-to:

(1046) جِئْتُ زَمَنَ ٱلشِّتَاءِ [Wright 2/110A]
«I came in the winter-time.»

As an annexe to a sentence:

(1047) صَحَبْتُ صَدِيقِي يَوْمَ خَرَجْنَا مِنَ ٱلْمَدِينَةِ
«I accompanied my friend the day we left the city.»

As a dual or plural:

(1048) تَأَمَّلْ شَهْرَيْنِ فِي ٱخْتِيَارِ ٱلْأُسْتَاذِ [Wright 2/109D]
«Reflect two months upon the choice of a teacher.»

(1049) سَكَنَ فِي بَعْضِ ٱلْقُرَىٰ أَيَّامًا [Wright 2/109D]
«He stayed in one of the villages (a few) days.»

The adverb before its verb in sentence word order[1]:

(1050) ٱلْيَوْمَ أَكْمَلْتُ لَكُمْ دِينَكُمْ [سورة المائدة 5:3]
«This day I have perfected for you your religion»

36.4. The adverb of place

The adverb of place is more restricted than the adverb of time. Only some nouns are suitable to function as adverbs of place. Such nouns fall under some categories that we will discuss in the next few subsections:

[1] النحو الوافي 2/245

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36.4.1. Vague and unbounded nouns

Generally, only vague and unbounded nouns are permitted to be used as adverbs of place. A noun that denotes a specific place are not permitted. So, for example, we can't use the noun بَيْت as an adverb of place to say جَلَسْتُ بَيْتًا. Instead we'll have to use the preposition فِي and say جَلَسْتُ فِي بَيْتٍ.

Directional nouns are considered vague enough to be used as adverbs of place. Such nouns include:

- قُدَّام, أَمَام « in front (of) »
- وَرَاء, خَلْفَ « behind »
- فَوْق « above »
- تَحْت « under », أَسْفَل « lower », دُون « beneath »
- يَمِين « right »
- يَسَار, شِمَال « left »

Permitted also are general spatial nouns including, but not limited to:

- وَسْط « in the middle (of) »
- حَوْل « around »
- عِنْد, لَدُنْ, لَدَىٰ « at, with, by »
- مَع « with »
- بَيْن « between »

Some of the nouns above we have introduced previously in section (ref) as *pseudo-prepositions*. But they are actually nouns, that when used as adverbs give meanings similar to prepositions.

Here is an example of the use of these nouns as adverbs of place:

(1051) نَظَرَ يَمِينًا وَيَسَارًا (وَشِمَالًا) [Wright 2/111B]
« He looked right and left. »

Generally, these nouns indicate place by being annexed to a annexed-to reference point. For example أَمَامَ ٱلْبَيْتِ « in front of the house ». When they are annexed to a definite noun then they too will be definite. But this in no way restricts their vagueness and thus ability to be used as adverbs of place.[2] For example,

(1052) بَايَعْنَا النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم تَحْتَ الشَّجَرَةِ [صحيح البخاري: 7208]
« We gave the oath of allegiance to the Prophet ﷺ under the tree »

There are some nouns whose meaning is associated with the word « side »:

[2] شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/488

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- جَانِب, نَاحِيَة, وَجْه, جِهَة « side »
- دَاخِل, جَوْف « inside »
- خَارِج « outside »

With these nouns, it is more common to use prepositions like فِي, إِلَىٰ, or مِنْ before them. For example,

(1053) نِمْتُ فِي خَارِجِ ٱلدَّارِ [Wright 2/112A]
« I slept outside the house. »

(1054) زَيْدٌ فِي جَانِبِ عَمْرٍو
or
زَيْدٌ إِلَىٰ جَانِبِ عَمْرٍو [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/489]
« Zayd is beside Ɛamr »

(1055) زَيْدٌ مِنْ خَارِجِ ٱلدَّارِ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/489]
« Zayd is outside the house. »

But there are (rare) examples of them being used as adverbs of place as well:

(1056) أَتَشَوَّفُ دَاخِلًا وَخَارِجًا [مسند أحمد ط الرسالة: 6520]
« I (was) looking inside and outside. »

(1057) فَهُوَ مُتَّكِئٌ عَلَيْهَا دَاخِلَ الْمَسْجِدِ [مسند أحمد ط الرسالة: 15837]
« And he (was) relying on [our arms] inside the mosque »

Some place nouns are vague in that they mean « place », like مَكَان, and مَقَام. These nouns are permitted to be used as adverbs of place when unspecified and indefinite. For example:

(1058) فَتُصَلِّيَ فِي بَيْتِي مَكَانًا [سنن ابن ماجه: 754]
« that you may pray in my house (at) a place »

(1059) وَلَكِنْ وَاللهِ لَا تَجْتَمِعُ ابْنَةُ رَسُولِ اللهِ صَلَّى اللهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ، وَابْنَةُ عَدُوِّ اللهِ مَكَانًا وَاحِدًا أَبَدًا
https://shamela.ws/book/25794/15437

The word مَكَان may be be annexed to a vague expression like كَذَا وَكَذَا and remain vague. For example:

(1060) ثُمَّ مَوْعِدُكِ مَكَانَ كَذَا وَكَذَا
https://shamela.ws/book/25794/21044#p1

(1061) وَلَكِنِّي رَأَيْتُهُ انْطَلَقَ مَكَانَ كَذَا وَكَذَا
https://shamela.ws/book/25794/19824

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However, when these nouns are specified, typically by definiteness, then it is better that they only be used as nouns of place when construed with a verb conveying the idea of stopping or remaining. For example,

(1062) جَلَسْتُ مَكَانَ زَيْدٍ [Wright 2/111D]
«I sat down in Zayd's place.»

(1063) امْكُثْ مَكَانَكَ [سنن أبي داود: 940]
«Stay (at) your place.»

(1064) اجْلِسُوا مَكَانَكُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 4039]
«Sit (at) your places.»

The noun مَكَان is also used in an annexation to mean «in place of». With this meaning, it may be used as an adverb of place unrestrictedly. For example,

(1065) خُذْ هَـٰذَا مَكَانَ ذَٰلِكَ [النحو الوافي 2/261]
«Take this in place of that.»

So too may the noun بَدَل «replacement» be used in this way.

(1066) خُذْ هَـٰذَا بَدَلَ ذَٰلِكَ [النحو الوافي 2/261]
«Take this in replacement of that.»

36.4.2. Units of distance and space

Units of distance and space are permitted to be used as adverbs of place. For example:

(1067) سَارُوا مِيلًا
«They travelled a mile.»

(1068) مَشَيْتُ فَرْسَخَيْنِ [Wright 2/111B]
«I walked two parasangs.»
(A فَرْسَخ is a unit of distance approximately equal to three miles.)

(1069) جَرَىٰ غَلْوَةً [Wright 2/111B]
«He ran the distance of a bowshot.»

36.4.3. Nouns of place

In section (ref) we studied the *noun of place*, which is formed on the pattern مَفْعِل or مَفْعَل. The noun of place is permitted to be used as an adverb of place, but only when construed with the verb from which it is derived. For example,

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(1070) قَعَدْتُ مَقْعَدَ زَيْدٍ,
جَلَسْتُ مَجْلِسَ زَيْدٍ [Wright 2/112A]
«I sat down in Zayd's seat.»

(1071) رَأَى النَّبِيَّ صَلَّى اللّٰهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ ذَهَبَ مَذْهَبًا مُوَاجِهًا لِلْقِبْلَةِ [مسند أحمد ط الرسالة: 5741]
«He saw the Prophet ﷺ going a path facing towards the qiblah.»

Also included in this category are the vague place nouns (like مَكَان, مَوْضِع, and مَقَام) annexed to the verb's maṣdar. They may occur as adverbs of place instead of the verb's actual noun of place. For example,

(1072) قاتلت موضع القتال [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/490]
«I fought (in) the place of fighting.»

Some grammarians allow using the noun of place of one verb as an adverb of place with another verb, when both verbs are close in meaning, or when one verb is used with the meaning of another verb.[3] So according to these grammarians, we can say:

(1073) جَلَسْتُ مَجْلِسَ زِيدٍ [البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة التوبة 9:5]
قَعَدْتُ مَجْلِسَ زِيدٍ [البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة التوبة 9:5]
«I sat (in) Zayd's seat.»

According to other grammarians, it is the meaning of remaining stopped (in either the verb or the noun of place) that allows freedom in mixing and matching verbs and nouns of place.[4] So according to these grammarians, we can say:

(1074) جلست موضع القيام [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/490]
«I sat in the place of standing.»

(1075) تحركت مكان السكون [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/490]
«I moved in the place of resting.»

(1076) قعدت موضعك [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/490]
«I sat in your place.»

(1077) جلست منزل فلان [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/490]
«I sat in the so-and-so's place of alighting.»

(1078) نمت مبيته [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/490]
«I slept in his place of spending the night.»

[3] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة التوبة 9:5 (واقْعُدُوا لَهم كُلَّ مَرْصَدٍ)
[4] شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/490

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36.4.4. Gray area in vagueness

There is actually considerable difference of opinion among the grammarians with regard to which nouns are permissible as adverbs of place. We got a taste of this in the previous section with respect of nouns of place as adverbs. Most of this disagreement centers around whether a noun is sufficiently vague. Consider the following example:

(1079) ٱقْتُلُوا يُوسُفَ أَوِ ٱطْرَحُوهُ أَرْضًا [سورة يوسف 12:9]
«Kill Joseph or cast him out to [another] land;»

The noun أَرْضًا is in the a-case. Our first thought would be that it is an adverb of place. However, in the *tafsīr* of this āyah, scholars have differed with regard to how to analyze أَرْضًا.

Some do analyze it as an adverb of place.[5]. Others deem the noun أَرْضًا not vague enough to be an adverb of place. [6] Other analyses are then proposed like it's being in the a-case is due to the dropping of a preposition (see (ref)) or because the verb ٱطْرَح «to cast» is used with the meaning of another (transitive) verb (section (ref)) like أَوْدِع «to deposit».

36.4.5. Irregular adverbs of place

There are some examples of adverbs of place that don't align with the examples that we have given. They are considered irregular adverbs of place. We will list these irregular adverbs of place below:

The verbs دَخَلَ «to enter», سَكَنَ «to dwell», and نَزَلَ «to alight» may govern place nouns in the a-case without an intermediate preposition.[7] So we can say:

(1080) دَخَلْتُ ٱلدَّارَ
«I entered the house,»

(1081) سَكَنْتُ ٱلْبَيْتَ
«I dwelled (in) the house,»

(1082) نَزَلْتُ ٱلْبَلَدَ
«I alighted (in) the country.»

Also permitted is the country name ٱلشَّأْم «Syria» with the verb ذَهَبَ «to go.» So we can say:

[5] الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة يوسف 12:9
[6] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان# for سورة يوسف 12:9 and تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة يوسف 12:9
[7] النحو الوافي 2/253

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(1083) ذَهَبْتُ ٱلشَّأْمَ
«I went (to) Syria.»

Some grammarians consider the nouns governed by these verbs as direct objects, whereas others consider them adverbs of place.[8]

The expressions below are also irregular in that they contain specific, i.e. non-vague, adverbs of place:

(1084) مُطِرْنَا ٱلسَّهْلَ وَٱلْجَبَلَ

(1085) قُلِبَ زَيْدٌ ٱلظَّهْرَ وَٱلْبَطْنَ

36.5. The deputy adverb of time and place

The adverb of time or place may be substituted by another noun. This other noun then becomes the adverb in the a-case as the deputy of the original adverb. The meaning of the original (substituted) adverb is then implied. The substitute may be from the following categories:

36.5.1. A qualifier

When an adverb of time or place is qualified by another noun, then the adverb may be dropped and the qualifier may take its place.[9]

Such qualifiers include:

- A attribute:

(1086) جلست شرقي الدار [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I sat east of the house.»
(for جلست مَكَانًا شرقي الدار)

(1087) جَلَسْتُ عِنْدَهُ طَوِيلًا مِنَ ٱلدَّهْرِ [Wright 2/110B]
«I sat with him (for) a long (time).» (for زَمَنًا طَوِيلًا)

- A number:

(1088) سَارُوا أَرْبَعَةَ أَمْيالٍ [Wright 2/111B]
«They travelled four miles.»
(Technically the number أَرْبَعَة is the adverb in the a-case.)

[8] التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 7/251
[9] معاني النحو 2/191

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- A fraction or a whole:

(1089) لَبِثْنَا يَوْمًا أَوْ بَعْضَ يَوْمٍ [سورة المؤمنون 23:113]
«We remained a day or part of a day»

- A pointing noun:

(1090) جئت هذا الوقت [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I came (at) this time.»

(1091) خرج محمد هذه الساعة [معاني النحو 2/191]
«Muḥammad left (at) this hour.»

(1092) سرت هذه المسافة [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I travelled this distance.»

36.5.2. A maṣdar

A maṣdar may substitute an adverb of time or place if:

- the meaning «at the time of» or «the amount of time of» is implied for adverb of time;
- and the meaning «at the place of» «the amount of space of» is implied for the adverb of place.

Examples:

(1093) جَاءَ طُلُوعَ ٱلشَّمْسِ [Wright 2/110C]
«He came (at the time of) the rising of the sun.»
(for جَاءَ وَقْتَ طُلُوعِ ٱلشَّمْسِ)

(1094) جِئْتُ صَلَاةَ ٱلْعَصْرِ [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I came (at the time of) the εaṣr prayer.»
(for جِئْتُ وَقْتَ صَلَاةِ ٱلْعَصْرِ.)

(1095) ٱنْتَظَرْتُهُ حَلْبَ نَاقَةٍ [معاني النحو 2/191]
«I waited for him (the amount of time of) the milking of a she-camel.»
(for ٱنْتَظَرْتُهُ مِقْدَارَ حَلْبِ نَاقَةٍ

(1096) جَلَسْتُ قُرْبَ زَيْدٍ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/200]
«I sat near Zayd.»
(literally: «I sat (at the place of) the nearness of Zayd.»)

This substitution by a maṣdar is more common for the adverb of time than for the adverb of place.[10]

[10] شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 2/200

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36.6. Using prepositions instead of adverbs of time and place

Often we can replace a noun used as an adverb of time or place by a preposition followed by the same noun. This preposition is usually فِي. For example, instead of saying: خَرَجْتُ يَوْمًا مَاطِرًا «I left (on) a rainy day,» we can say:

(1097) خَرَجْتُ فِي يَوْمٍ مَاطِرٍ
«I left (on) a rainy day.»
(literally «in a rainy day».)

The noun يَوْم is technically no longer an adverb since it is not in the a-case. The preposition فِي signifies that the verb occurs *in* the time or place denoted by the adverb. So, in the example above, my act of leaving ocurred *in* a time which is denoted by «a rainy day». In cases like the example above, the choice of whether to use an adverb or preposition is a matter of style, and is up to the speaker.

Note, however, that this substitution with فِي is not always literally correct.[11] For example, we can't say × طار الطائر في فوق الشجرة for «The bird flew above the tree.» Instead we have to say طار الطائر فوق الشجرة. Nevertheless, the idea of فِي is still correct in that the bird flew *in* the space which is above the tree.

And sometimes, if we substitute a noun used as an adverb with فِي followed by the noun, then the sentence may be grammatically correct, but with a different meaning from the original. Consider the following examples:

(1098) فَعَلْتُ هَـٰذَا سَبْعَةَ أَيَّامٍ [معاني النحو 2/179]
«I did this (for) seven days.»

(1099) فَعَلْتُ هَـٰذَا فِي سَبْعَةِ أَيَّامٍ [معاني النحو 2/179]
«I did this (in) seven days.»

Example (1098) indicates that I did an action repeatedly during seven days. Whereas example (1099) indicates that I did the action once, and it took seven days to complete the action.

Similarly, consider these two examples:

(1100) أَدْرُسُ ٱللَّيْلَ وَٱلنَّهَارَ [معاني النحو 2/181]
«I study night and day.»

(1101) أَدْرُسُ فِي ٱللَّيْلِ وَٱلنَّهَارِ [معاني النحو 2/181]
«I study in the night and day.»

[11] معاني النحو 2/179

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Example (1100) is about the amount of time that I study. This is the answer to «How much do you study?» Whereas example (1101) is about the period of time during which I study. This is the answer to «When do you study?»

36.6.1. Using other prepositions besides فِي

While فِي is the most general preposition for substituting an adverb, other prepositions are also used. This often depends on the adverb itself. For example, instead of saying أَخْرُجُ غَدًا for «I will leave tomorrow,» we can say:

(1102) أَخْرُجُ بِالْغَدِ
«I will leave tomorrow»

And instead of saying نَظَرَ يَمِينًا وَشِمَالًا for «He looked right and left,» we can say:

(1103) نَظَرَ عَنِ ٱلْيَمِينِ وَعَنِ ٱلشِّمَالِ
«He looked right and left.»

One common preposition used before a class of adverbs is مِنْ. We will discuss it separately in the next section below.

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36.7. Using مِنْ before some adverbs

There are some nouns that are used as adverbs, but are also used with the preposition مِنْ to give the same adverbial meaning. Some of these nouns are عِنْد, لَدُن «by, with», قَبْل «before», بَعْد «after», فَوْق «above», تَحْت «under»,[12] etc.

Often times, مِنْ signifies its literal meaning «from», as usual. For example:

(1104) مَكَثْتُ عِنْدَكَ سَاعَةً ثُمَّ خَرَجْتُ مِنْ عِنْدِكَ إِلَىٰ بَيْتِي [النحو الوافي 2/262]
«I stayed at your [place] an hour, then I left *from* your place to my house.»

Other times, the significance of this مِنْ is less obvious. Consider the following examples:

(1105) قَرَأْتُ ٱلْقُرآنَ بَعْدَ صَلَاةَ ٱلْعَصْرِ
«I read the Qurʾān after the ɛaṣr prayer.»

(1106) قَرَأْتُ ٱلْقُرآنَ مِنْ بَعْدِ صَلَاةِ ٱلْعَصْرِ
«I read the Qurʾān (during a time which starts) from after the ɛaṣr prayer.»

[12] معاني النحو 2/193

Example (1106) specifies the *beginning of the time period* that is indicated by the adverb. Technically, this is not necessarily when the action of the verb began. But this usage of مِنْ could be used to signify that the action started very close to the beginning of the time period. That is, it could indicate that I started to read the Qur'ān right after the ɛaṣr prayer.[13] Often, when the meaning of مِنْ is subtle, it is not translated as «from». For example:

(1107) لِكَيْلَا يَعْلَمَ مِنْ بَعْدِ عِلْمٍ شَيْئًا [سورة الحج 22:5]
«so that he knows, after [once having] knowledge, nothing»

(1108) لِكَيْ لَا يَعْلَمَ بَعْدَ عِلْمٍ شَيْئًا [سورة النحل 16:70]
«so that he will not know, after [having had] knowledge, a thing»

Sometimes it may be left untranslated.

36.8. قَبْل and its sisters

There are a class of nouns, which are usually adverbs of time and place, that are sometimes flexible, and sometimes rigid. These nouns are:

- قَبْل «before»
- بَعْد «after»
- دُون «beneath»,
- أَسْفَل «lower»
- فَوْق «above»
- تَحْت «under»
- أَمَام, قُدَّام «in front»
- خَلْف, وَرَاء «behind»
- عَلُ, عَلْو, «on top»
- أَوَّل «first»

Also usually included with these are[14]:

- يَمِين «right»
- شِمَال «left»
- آخِر «last»

Collectively, we will call them قَبْل *and its sisters*.

We have already seen some of these being used used as adverbs of time or place. The cases for determining when they are flexible and when rigid are as follows:

[13] معاني النحو 2/193–201, من الفرق بين بعد ومن بعد في اللفظ القرآني لعلي هاني, and التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 11/142

[14] See النحو الوافي 3/142, footnote 1 for references to the difference of opinion regarding them

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a. When used as annexes with a mentioned annexed-to: When used as annexes then قَبْل and its sisters are flexible. For example,

(1109) قَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ أَمَامَ ٱلْجَيْشِ
«The commander stood in front of the army»

As we've previously discussed, instead of using these nouns as adverbs, it is common to also precede them with a preposition, like مِنْ. For example:

(1110) قَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامِ ٱلْجَيْشِ
«The commander stood in front of the army»

In this case, whether قَبْل or one of its sisters is an adverb in the a-case, or following a preposition in the i-case, then it is flexible. This is indicated in the examples above by the fat·ḥah on its ending when in the a-case, and the kasrah when in the i-case.

b. When used as annexes but the annexed-to is not mentioned: Rarely, for stylistic reasons, the annexed-to in sentences like the example above is dropped. But the presence of the annexed-to is intended by the speaker. In such cases, the annexe will be flexible and without tanwīn. For example:

(1111) a. قَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ أَمَامَ

b. قَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامِ
«The commander stood in front [of the army]»

c. More commonly, the annexed-to is deleted, both in expression and in intention, but the adverb is still understood to be bounded implicitly. In this case, قَبْل and its sisters will be rigid. Their ending will have a ◌ٰ dhammah regardless of whether they are in the a-case (as an adverb) or in the i-case (following مِنْ). For example:

(1112) a. قَدِمَ ٱلْجَيْشُ وَقَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ أَمَامُ

b. قَدِمَ ٱلْجَيْشُ وَقَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامُ
«The army arrived, and the commander stood in front (of the army)»

This usage is quite common. Much more so than case b. where the annexed-to is dropped only stylistically.

d. Lastly, قَبْل and its sisters may occur as indefinite nouns without an implicit or explicit annexed-to. They then have an absolute and unbounded meaning. In this case, they are flexible. For example,

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(1113) a. قَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ أَمَامًا

b. قَامَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ مِنْ أَمَامٍ
«The commander stood in front»

In the example above, we can see that أَمَام is a flexible noun due to its tanwīn.

The difference in meaning between some of these cases is quite subtle. In practice, cases a. and c. are more common. And case b. is rare.

Here are some more examples:

(1114) يُخْرِجُ غِلْمَانَهُ إِلَى الْحَجِّ فَلَا يُحْرِمُونَ مِنْ ذِي الْحُلَيْفَةِ، يُحْرِمُونَ مِنْ أَمَامِ ذَلِكَ [مصنف ابن أبي شيبة: 14178]
«He would take his (slave) boys out for the Ḥajj. But they would not enter iḥrām from D͡H̱u l-Ḥulayfah; they would enter iḥrām from before that [location].»

The words أَوَّل and أَسْفَل also have some rules that are specific to them and we will treat them separately in section (ref).

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36.9. Similarity between adverbs of time/place and prepositions

Adverbs of time/place, (especially directional adverbs of time/place like فَوْقَ «above», أَمَامَ «in front (of)», etc.) and prepositions have much similarity. For example, if we say

(1115) بُنِيَ فَوْقَ قَوَاعِدَ
«It was built above foundations.»

and

(1116) بُنِيَ عَلى قَوَاعِدَ
«It was built on foundations.»

they are very similar in construction and also in meaning. The main difference is that فَوْقَ is a noun, whereas عَلَى is a preposition. Another similarity is that adverbs of time/place, like prepositions, need to be meaningfully *dependent on* a verb, or verb-like noun[15] (see Section 30.1). In examples (1115) and (1116) above, فَوْقَ and عَلَى are dependent on the verb بُنِيَ «to be built».

[15] معاني النحو 3/113

The dependee of a adverb of time/place is also its governor, as we will see in Section 36.10 below.

36.10. The governor of the adverb of time and place

The adverb of time/place is a a-case dispensable element. As such, it needs to be governed by a verb, or a verb-like noun like a maṣdar, doer participle, or any of the other deverbal nouns.

So, for example, if we say:

(1117) سِرْتُ الْيَوْمَ
«I travelled today.»

then, the adverb of time الْيَوْمَ «today» is governed by the verb سَارَ «to travel».

Essentially the adverb of time/place is an a-case done-to of a verb. As such, if it is governed by a deverbal noun, like an doer participle, then the conditions for governing a done-to need to be satisfied. We discussed such conditions for the doer participle in Section 28.5, and the object participle in **?@sec-shuroot_i3maal_ism_maful**.

One of those conditions, for the the deverbal nouns in general, is that they must signify an imperfect aspect, not a perfect aspect. One of the examples we gave, was that we cannot say:

(1118) × هَذَا ضَارِبٌ زَيْدًا أَمْسِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/106]
«This [person] beat Zayd yesterday.»

Instead, we have to say:

(1119) هَذَا ضَارِبُ زَيدٍ أَمْسِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/106]
«This [person] was the beater of Zayd yesterday.»

These examples show that the doer participle ضَارِب can not govern زَيْد as a direct object, if it signifies a perfect aspect. But the question is: how is the adverb of time/place أَمْسِ in example (1119) then governed?

The way to analyze this, while remaining consistent with the established conditions, is to assume a taqdīred verb which matches the doer participle. And it is this taqdīred verb which will govern the adverb of time/place أَمْسِ, thus:

(1120) هَذَا ضَارِبُ زَيدٍ [ضَرَبَهُ] أَمْسِ [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 3/106]
«This [person] was the beater of Zayd. [He beat him] yesterday.»

Work in progress

In general, much leniency is afforded to adverbs of time/place, compared to other done-tos. And governors for them, if not expressed in surface speech, are readily taqdīred.

Here are some more scenarios where the adverb of time/place has a taqdīred governor:

When the adverb of time/place is in response to a question

Consider the following question and answer sequences:

(1121) ---مَتَى صُمْتَ---يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ--- [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«—When did you fast?—The day of Friday.»

(1122) ---كَمْ سِرْتَ---فَرْسَخَيْنِ--- [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«—How much did you travel?—Two parasangs.»

In examples (1121) and (1122) above, The answers are adverbs of time/place by themselves. Their governors are (optionally) deleted verbs which match the verbs in the questions. The taqdīrs for the answers are:

(1123) [صُمْتُ] يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«[I fasted] the day of Friday.»

(1124) [سِرْتُ] فَرْسَخَيْنِ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«[I travelled] two parasangs.»

When the adverb of time/place is a attribute

Consider the following sentence:

(1125) مَرَرْتُ بِطَائِرٍ فَوْقَ غُصْنٍ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«I passed by a bird above a branch.»

In example (1125) above, the adverb of place فَوْقَ is not dependent on/governed by the verb مَرَّ. This is because it is the the bird which was above the branch, not that my action of passing was above the branch. So who then is the governor of the adverb of place فَوْقَ?

In such cases, we assume the general existence (represented by مُسْتَقِرّ or كَائِن) as the governor of the adverb of place فَوْقَ. The taqdīr of example (1125) above is:

(1126) مَرَرْتُ بِطَائِرٍ [مُسْتَقِرٍّ] فَوْقَ غُصْنٍ
«I passed by a bird [being] above a branch.»

Work in progress

The general existence مُسْتَقِرّ is, strictly speaking, the attribute of طَائِر. This is the typical analysis when the noun (طَائِر) is indefinite.

Loosely speaking, however, we can say that the adverbial phrase فَوْقَ غُصْنٍ is a attribute of طَائِر.

Compare the above analysis with Section 30.10 which discussed the prepositional phrase as a attribute.

When the adverb of time/place is a ḥāl

(1127) رأيت الهلال بين السحاب [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«I saw the crescent between the clouds»

In example (1127) above, the governor of the adverb of place بَيْنَ is considered general existence [مُسْتَقِرٌّ], as a ḥāl. This is discussed in more detail in section ().

When the adverb of time/place is a info

Consider example (1128) below:

(1128) زَيْدٌ عِنْدَكَ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«Zayd is at your [house].»

عِنْدَ is an adverb of place. Its governor is general existence [مُسْتَقِرٌّ], which, technically, is the info. The taqdīr is:

(1129) زَيْدٌ [مُسْتَقِرٌّ] عِنْدَكَ
«Zayd is [being] at your [place].»

Loosely speaking, we will say that the adverbial phrase عِنْدَكَ is the info.

Compare the above analysis with Section 30.8 which discussed the prepositional phrase as a info.

When the adverb of time/place is a connecting sentence

Consider example (1130) below:

(1130) رَأَيْتُ الَّذِي عِنْدَكَ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/521]
«I saw the one at your [place].»

عِنْدَ is an adverb of place. Its governor is general existence [اسْتَقَرَّ], which, technically, is the connecting sentence. The taqdīr is:

(1131) زَيْدٌ [اسْتَقَرَّ] عِنْدَكَ
«I saw the one [who was being] at your [place].»

Work in progress

Loosely speaking, we will say that the adverbial phrase عِنْدَكَ is the connecting sentence.

When the adverb of time/place is preoccupied-from

Consider the sentence:

(1132) يَوْمَ الْخَمِيسِ صُمْتُ فِيهِ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/522]
«The day of Thursday, I fasted in it.»

In example () above, يَوْمَ is a adverb of time. Its governor cannot be the verb صُمْتُ after it because it is preoccupied by the prepositional phrase فِيهِ after it. So the governor of يَوْمَ is a deleted verb before it. The taqdīr is:

(1133) صُمْتُ يَوْمَ الْخَمِيسِ فِيهِ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/522]
«I fasted the day of Thursday in it.»

36.10.0.1. In certain examples from attested usage

Consider the sentence:

(1134) حِينَئِذٍ الْآنَ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/522 citing كتاب سيبويه]
«[That was] then. [This is] now.»

In example () above, حِينَ and الْآنَ are governed by deleted governors. The taqdīr is:

(1135) كان ما تقول واقعًا حين إذ كان كذا، واسمع الآن ما أقول لك [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/522]
«What you say happened at the time when such-and-such. Listen now to what I say to you.»

36.11. A adverb of time/place as a direct object

A adverb of time/place may figuratively be considered a direct object, and in that case be represented by an attached pronoun. For example:

(1136) صُمْتُ يومًا [التعليقة على كتاب سيبويه للفارسي 1/119]
«I fasted one day.»

Work in progress

In example () above, صَامَ is an intransitive verb, but it can be made transitive, due to latitude, when the done-to is a adverb of time/place. So, يَوْمًا, in example () above, may be considered a direct object. And in that case, it can be replaced by an attached pronoun, thus:

(1137) صُمْتُهُ [التعليقة على كتاب سيبويه للفارسي 1/119]
«I fasted it.»

If, however, يَوْمًا is parsed as a adverb of time, then it shouldn't be replaced directly with an attached pronoun. Instead a proposition (usually فِي) needs to be added, thus:

(1138) صُمْتُ فِيهِ [التعليقة على كتاب سيبويه للفارسي 1/119]
«I fasted it.»

Similarly, we can say:

(1139) يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ صُمْتُهُ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 1/376]
«The day of Friday, I fasted it.»

based on the taqdīr:

(1140) صُمْتُ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ صُمْتُهُ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 1/376]
«I fasted the day of Friday, I fasted it.»

Work in progress

36.12. Multiple adverbs of place with a single verb

36.12.1. Multiple adverbs with conjunctions

It is possible for multiple adverbs to be used with a single verb. This is regularly done with using particles like وَ and فَ. For example:

(1141) ٱلْتَمَسْتُهُ لَيْلًا وَنَهَارًا
«I searched for it night and day»

(1142) لَقِيتُهُ صَبَاحًا فَمَسَاءً [معاني النحو 2/202 (referencing الرضي)]
«I met him evening after morning.»
(i.e., every morning and evening.)

(1143) لَقِيتُهُ يَوْمًا فَيَوْمًا
«I met him day after day.»

36.12.2. Multiple adverbs without conjunctions

If particles like وَ and فَ are not used then multiple adverbs may be used for one verb in one of the following cases[16]:

a. When one is an adverb of time and the other an adverb of place. For example:

(1144) ٱجْلِسْ عِنْدِي سَاعَةً
«Sit with me an hour.» (عِنْد is an adverb of place and سَاعَة is a adverb of time.)

b. When both are adverbs of the same kind:

i. When the second adverb is a replacement for the first. For example:

(1145) أُقَابِلُكَ يَومَ ٱلْجُمُعَةِ ظُهْرًا [النحو الوافي 2/255]
«I will meet you Friday afternoon.»
(ظُهْر is a replacement for يَوْم and specifies when on Friday.)

ii. When the adverb is a comparative noun (see chapter (ref)). For example:

(1146) ٱلْمَرِيضُ ٱلْيَوْمَ أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ أَمْسِ [النحو الوافي 2/256]
«The patient today is better than he (was) yesterday.»

36.12.3. Compound adverbs

Instead of using particles like وَ and فَ between adverbs, compound adverbs may be formed. There are two ways to form a compound adverb:[17]

a. Both adverbs end with a fat·ḥah without tanwīn. For example,

(1147) لَقِيتُهُ يَوْمَ يَوْمَ
«I met him day after day.»

b. The adverbs form an annexation. For example,

(1148) تَزُورُنَا صَبَاحَ مَسَاءٍ [النحو الوافي 2/271]
«You visit us morning and night.»

Both options can be used more or less interchangeably. Unless there is a compound adverb with a set meaning. For example:

(1149) دَرَجَةُ حَرَارَةِ ٱلْجَوِّ بَيْنَ بَيْنَ
«The degree of the temperature of the air is intermediate.»

[16] النحو الوافي 2/255
[17] النحو الوافي 2/271, معاني النحو 2/202–204

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36.13. Some commonly used adverbs of time and place

36.13.1. هُنَا and هُنَاكَ

36.13.2. أَسْفَل

أَسْفَل is actually a comparative noun, meaning «lower». And even when it is used as an adverb of place, it is with this comparative meaning.[18]

Most of the directional nouns, like أَمَام, خَلْفَ, وَرَاء, فَوْق, and تَحْت are used as annexes. For example, فَوْقَ ٱلْأَرْضِ means «above the Earth.»

We have learned that comparative nouns are used with the the preposition مِنْ to express their «-er» meaning. For example أَكْبَرُ مِنْ ٱلْبَيْتِ «bigger than the house.» They may also be used as annexes to express their «-est» meaning. For example, أَكْبَرُ بَيْتٍ, أَكْبَرُ ٱلْبُيُوتِ «biggest house.»

أَسْفَل too may be used in both these formations. We will discuss them below:

36.13.2.1. أَسْفَل used before مِنْ

Usually أَسْفَل is used with مِنْ to express the adverb of place «lower (than)» Here are some examples of أَسْفَل as an adverb of place:

(1150) وَٱلرَّكْبُ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ [19] [سورة الأنفال 8:42]
«and the caravan was lower [in position] than you»

(1151) زَيْدٌ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/289]
«Zayd is lower than you.»

(1152) وَضَعَ رَاحَتَيْهِ عَلَى رُكْبَتَيْهِ وَجَعَلَ أَصَابِعَهُ أَسْفَلَ مِنْ ذَلِكَ [سنن النسائي: 1036]
«He put his palms on his knees and put his fingers lower than that.»

(1153) نَهَى رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صَلَّى اللَّهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ أَنْ يَقُومَ الْإِمَامُ فَوْقَ شَيْءٍ وَالنَّاسُ خَلْفَهُ يَعْنِي أَسْفَلَ مِنْهُ [مشكاة المصابيح: 1692]
«The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ forbade that the imām should stand on anything when the people are behind him, meaning lower than him.»

Note, in the examples above, that أَسْفَل does not have tanwīn. This is because it is a semi-flexible noun.

[18] شرح شيخ زاده على قواعد الإعراب 79
[19] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الأنفال 8:42 (وقَرَأَ زَيْدُ بْنُ عَلِيٍّ: أَسْفَلُ)

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Now, in the case of قَبْل and its sisters we saw that their rigidity and flexibility is determined by whether or not they are annexes and if they have annexed-tos in an annexation.

But أَسْفَل, when used with before مِنْ as an adverb of place, is not an annexe. So its rigidity and flexibility is determined by whether or not it is compared to a noun (with مِنْ):

If the adverb of place أَسْفَل is followed by مِنْ and a compared noun, then it is flexible. By the way, there may be another مِنْ before أَسْفَل as well, as we learned in section (ref). Here is an example,

(1154) إِذْ جَاءُوكُمْ مِنْ فَوْقِكُمْ وَمِنْ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ [سورة الأحزاب 33:10]
«[Remember] when they came at you from above you and from below you»

And if the adverb of place أَسْفَل is not followed by مِنْ and a compared noun, but the adverb is still understood to be bounded implicitly, then it will be rigid ending with a ḍ͡hammah. For example:

(1155) وَقَالَ بِأَصَابِعِهِ وَرَفَعَهَا إِلَى فَوْقُ وَطَأْطَأَ إِلَى أَسْفَلُ [صحيح البخاري: 621]
«and he gestured with his fingers and raised them up upward and lowered [them] downward.»

(1156) والطَّفْرُ وَثْبٌ مِنْ أسْفَلُ الى فَوْقُ [فقه اللغة للثعالبي 137]
«and *aṭṭafr* is a leap from down to up.»

36.13.2.2. أَسْفَل as an annexe

Most of the time, we will want to say that something is *below* or *lower than* another thing. In this case, we will use أَسْفَل مِنْ as we have described above.

However, sometimes, we may want to say that something is at the *lowest* place. In this case, we can use أَسْفَل as an annexe to be an adverb of place.[20]

For example,

(1157) نَعْلُكَ أَسْفَلُ رِجْلِكَ [النحو الوافي 1/484]
«Your sandal is (at) the lowest [part] of your foot.»
(Note the partitive meaning of أَسْفَل annexed to a singular annexed-to.)

36.13.2.3. Non-adverbial use of أَسْفَل

By the way, أَسْفَل need not always be an adverb of place. It may be used like other common nouns. In the following example, it is the doer of a verb and also an annexe.

[20] See تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة التين 95:5 (ثُمَّ رَدَدْناهُ أَسْفَلَ سافِلِينَ) for one interpretation of أَسْفَلَ as a ظرف

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(1158) لَمْ تَبْتَلَّ أَسْفَلُ نِعَالِهِمْ [سنن أبي داود: 1059]
«The lower [part] of their sandals did not get wet.»

36.13.3. أَوَّل

أَوَّل is used as an adverb of time, meaning «first»
Much of what we have said about أَسْفَل applies also to the noun أَوَّل.
However there is some difference from أَسْفَل:

a. The meaning of «first» is inherently superlative. In English we dont say that something is *more first than* another thing. We can try to capture this meaning by translating it as «prior to».
b. أَوَّل, despite being on the pattern أَفْعَل, is irregular in that it can take tanwīn when used in an absolute and unbounded sense.

36.13.3.1. أَوَّل used before مِنْ

أَوَّل is a semi-flexible noun when used with مِنْ:

(1159) لاَ تَسْأَلْهُ عَنْ شَيْءٍ أَوَّلَ مِنْ حَدِيثِ الشَّفَاعَةِ [صحيح البخاري: 7510]
«Don't ask him about anything prior to the ḥadīṯ of intercession»

(1160) لاَ تَبْتَدِئَانِ بِشَيْءٍ أَوَّلَ مِنَ الْبَيْتِ، تَطُوفَانِ بِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 1641]
«They$_{2f}$ would not begin with anything prior to the House, performing the ṭawāf around it.»

When مِنْ is not used but أَوَّل is implicitly bounded then it is rigid with a ḏ͡hammah on its ending:

(1161) أَيُّ الْقُرْآنِ أُنْزِلَ أَوَّلُ [صحيح البخاري: 4924]
«Which [part] of the Qurʾān was revealed first (of all the sūrahs)?»

(1162) أَيُّ مَسْجِدٍ وُضِعَ أَوَّلُ [سنن ابن ماجه: 753]
«Which mosque was established first (of all the mosques)?»

When أَوَّل, is used in an absolute and unbounded sense, then it takes tanwīn despite being on the pattern أَفْعَل:

(1163) يَبْتَدِرُونَهَا أَيُّهُمْ يَكْتُبُهَا أَوَّلًا [سنن النسائي: 1062]
«They (were) rushing (to see) which of them would write it first»

(1164) وَأَمَّا الدَّارُ الَّتِي دَخَلْتَ أَوَّلًا فَدَارُ عَامَّةِ الْمُؤْمِنِينَ [مسند أحمد ط الرسالة: 20165]
«And as for the house that you entered first, it was for the common people of the Muslims.»

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(1165) أَيُّهُمَا جَاءَ أَوَّلًا عَمِلَ عَمَلَهُ [مشكاة المصابيح :1700]
«Which of them came first [that] did his deed?»

36.13.3.2. أَوَّل as an annexe

Like أَسْفَل, when أَوَّل can be used as an annexe as well, even when it is an adverb of time. For example

(1166) كَانَ يَنَامُ أَوَّلَ اللَّيْلِ [صحيح مسلم :739]
«He used to sleep the first [part] of the night»

The usage of أَوَّل as an annexe when it is an adverb of time is probably not as uncommon as it is for أَسْفَل.

36.13.3.3. Non-adverbial use of أَوَّل

Just like أَسْفَل, أَوَّل need not be used adverbially. Here it is as the info of a sentence and an annexe:

(1167) وَأَنَا أَوَّلُ ٱلْمُسْلِمِينَ [سورة الأنعام 6:163]
«and I am the first [among you] of the Muslims.»

Even when used non-adverbially, أَوَّل may take tanwīn. For example, here it is the subject of إِنَّ in the a-case:

(1168) إِنَّ لِلصَّلَاةِ أَوَّلًا وَآخِرًا [جامع الترمذي :151]
«Indeed the prayer has a first [time] and a last [time]»

36.13.4. بَعْد

- used for time and place
- meaning «yet»

36.13.5. ذَات

36.14. TODO

(1169) ثُمَّ مَوْعِدُكِ مَكَانَ كَذَا وَكَذَا
https://shamela.ws/book/25794/21044#p1

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(1170) وَلَكِنِّي رَأَيْتُهُ انْطَلَقَ مَكَانَ كَذَا وَكَذَا
https://shamela.ws/book/25794/19824

(1171) وَلَكِنْ وَاللهِ لَا تَجْتَمِعُ ابْنَةُ رَسُولِ اللهِ صَلَّى اللهُ عَلَيْهِ وَسَلَّمَ، وَابْنَةُ عَدُوِّ اللهِ مَكَانًا وَاحِدًا أَبَدًا
https://shamela.ws/book/25794/15437

(1172) إِنَّ الشَّيْطَانَ إِذَا سَمِعَ النِّدَاءَ بِالصَّلاَةِ ذَهَبَ حَتَّى يَكُونَ مَكَانَ الرَّوْحَاءِ [صحيح مسلم :388a]

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Chapter 37.

The absolute object

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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37.1. Introduction

The absolute object is, fundamentally, the verb taking it's own maṣdar as a done-to in the a-case. For example,

(1173) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا ضَرْبًا
"Zayd beat Ɛamr a beating"

In the above example ضَرْبًا is the maṣdar of the verb ضَرَبَ and is governed by it in the a-case as its absolute object.

This sort of sentence is unfamiliar in English, as evinced by its awkward translation, "Zayd beat Ɛamr a beating." Nevertheless, we can find some parallels so you can get a feel for it:

(1174)
1. "He died an honorable death."
2. "He slept the sleep of the just."
3. "He lived two lives."

The absolute object is somewhat different from the direct done-to in that the direct object only occurs for transitive verbs. Whereas, the absolute object can occur for any verb, whether transitive or intransitive Also, the absolute object

is effectively an adverb because it qualifies the meaning of the verb as we will learn in this chapter, if Allāh wills.

The absolute object is used for the following purposes:

1. To reinforce or emphasize the meaning of the governing verb.
2. To qualify the meaning of the governing verb.
3. To act as a deputy for the governing verb, substituting it and fulfilling it's role.

37.2. The reinforcing absolute object

Reinforcing and emphasizing the meaning of the governing verb is the basic function of the absolute object. Consider again our earlier example:

(1175) ضَرَبَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا ضَرْبًا
"Zayd beat Ɛamr a beating"

The absolute object ضَرْبًا signifies that beating actually ocurred, as if to counter any possible suspicion that it didn't. If the usage of the governing verb can support both a literal and a metaphorical meaning, then the absolute object can also signify that the meaning of the verb is literal, and not metaphorical.[1]

For greater emphasis, the maṣdar may be repeated.[2] For example,

The reinforcing absolute object, when used purely for emphasis and not also for other purposes, cannot be dualized or pluralized. So we cannot say × وَعَدْتُكَ وُعُودًا ("I promised you promises").[3] Though, this sentence is correct for the other purposes of the absolute object, which we will learn in subsequent sections, if Allāh wills.

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37.3. The qualifying absolute object

With regard to the meaning of the governing verb, the qualifying absolute object indicates either what kind was intended, or its quantity, or both.

The kind of the maṣdar is frequently used with a attribute or in an annexation. For example,

(1176) ضَرَبْتُهُ ضَرْبًا شَدِيدًا [Wright 2/54A]
"I beat him (with) a severe beating."

[1] See معاني النحو 2/194–195. But see also تفسير ابن القيم for سورة النساء 4:164 (وكلم الله موسى تكليما) and تفسير ابن عثيمين for سورة النمل 27:50 (ومكروا مكرًا ومكرنا مكرًا)
[2] Wright 2/55B
[3] النحو الوافي 2/211

(1177) ضَرَبَهُ ضَرْبَ ٱلظَّالِمِ [Wright 2/54B]
"He beat him (with) the beating of an oppressor."

Such a qualifying absolute object may also be signified simply with the definite article ٱل.[4]. For example, if a specific kind of beating is known before-hand to both the speaker and addressee, then the speaker may simply say:

(1178) أَضْرِبُهُ ٱلضَّرْبَ
"I will beat him (with) *the* beating."

The qualifying maṣdar may also be annexed to a pronoun referring to the doer of the verb. For example,

(1179) ضَرَبَ ضَرْبَهُ
"He beat him (with) his beating"

The quantity of the maṣdar often uses the *one-time noun*. It may be dualized or pluralized. For example,

(1180) ضَرَبْتُهُ ضَرْبَةً وَضَرَبَنِي ضَرْبَتَيْنِ أَوْ ضَرَبَاتٍ [Wright 2/53D]
"I beat him one blow and he beat me two blows or (three or more) blows."

Some maṣdars themselves end with a ة, like تِلَاوَة, so they are readily dualized or pluralized[5] (to the sound *āt* plural) without resorting to the one-time noun. For example,

(1181) تَلَا ٱلْقَارِئُ تِلَاوَاتٍ
"The reader recited recitations."

But in reality, when a maṣdar is dualized or pluralized in this manner, it seems to leave its maṣdar meaning, which is purely a verbal meaning, and begins to denote a regular (non-verbal) noun.[6] So تِلَاوَات will denote, not so much the actions of reciting but kinds of recitations.

The same goes for maṣdars that don't end with a ة but for whom a broken plural has been recorded from Classical Arabic, like عُلُوم, which is the plural of عِلْم "knowledge", and وُعُود which is the plural of وَعْد "promise".

So we can say:

(1182) وَعَدْتُكَ وُعُودًا
"I promised you promises."

[4] النحو الوافي 2/207 (footnote 4)
[5] الكليات للكفوي 817 citing دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 137D
[6] المصباح and حاشية ياسين على التصريح citing دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 137–138

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وُعُود here refers to different kinds or occasions of promises, rather than the purely verbal actions of promising.[7]

Plurals have not been recorded for all maṣdars. For example, ضَرْب does not have a recorded plural for its maṣdar meaning of "beating".

So can we pluralize it if we wish to say "I beat him (many) kinds of beatings"? Some authorities allow us to form a new broken plural if there is a need.[8] So according to them we should be able to coin a new plural ضُرُوب[9] "beatings" and say,

(1183) ضَرَبْتُهُ ضُرُوبًا
"I beat him (many kinds of) beatings"

Other authorities are more conservative and would only allow using broken plurals for existing meanings of words if one has been recorded for them. Following this opinion, we might then say:

(1184) ضَرَبْتُهُ أَنْوَاعًا مِنَ ٱلضَّرْبِ
"I beat him (many) kinds of beatings"

In any case, any maṣdar may at least be dualized to indicate the kinds of its action.[10] So we can say:

(1185) ضَرَبَنِي ضَرْبَيْنِ [Wright 2/55D]
"He beat me two (kinds of) beatings."
or
"He beat me (on) two (occasions of) beatings."

By the way, you should be able to see that saying ضَرَبَنِي ضَرْبَيْنِ is different from if we had said

(1186) ضَرَبَنِي ضَرْبَتَيْنِ
"He beat me (with) two blows."

The former signifies the kinds or occasions of beating whereas the latter indicates the number of individual acts of beating.

By the way, for maṣdars that themselves end with ة, if we wish to specify that the action ocurred only once, we cannot, of course, form a one-time noun by appending another ة to it. In such a case, we may qualify the maṣdar with the attribute وَاحِدَة "once". For example:

[7] See also تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة الأحزاب 33:10 (وتظنون بالله الظنونا)
[8] دراسات في النحو للزعبلاوي 139
[9] this plural already exists for ضَرْب but for its other meaning "example"
[10] النحو الوافي 2/212

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(1187) رَحِمَهُ رَحْمَةً وَاحِدَةً [Wright 1/123C]
"He took one mercy upon him."

It is also important to mention that the qualifying absolute object includes the reinforcing meaning.[11] We cannot use the qualifying absolute object without also emphasizing the meaning of the verb. For example,

(1188) فَٱصْبِرْ صَبْرًا جَمِيلًا [سورة المعارج 70:5]
"So be patient with gracious patience"

In section (ref), we will see that in order to only qualify the verb without emphasizing it, we can substitute the verb with the absolute object which then becomes a *deputy to the verb*.[12]

Finally, the qualifying absolute object may qualify both the kinds and quantity of the meaning of the verb. For example:

(1189) قَرَأْتُ ٱلْكِتَابَ قِرَاءَتَيْنِ نَافِعَتَيْنِ [النحو الوافي 2/209]
"I read the book two useful readings."

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37.4. The deputy to the maṣdar as an absolute object

Frequently, instead of using the maṣdar as the absolute object directly, it is substituted by another word. This word is then called the deputy to the maṣdar as an absolute object because it fulfils the absolute object's role. The maṣdar may still figure in the expression. It will just not technically be the absolute object, because the first a-case done-to in that position is now its deputy.

The deputy to the maṣdar can be one of several categories:

A attribute to a deleted maṣdar

For example:

(1190) ضَرَبْتُهُ شَدِيدًا [Wright 2/54A]
"I beat him severely."
(for ضَرَبْتُهُ ضَرْبًا شَدِيدًا "I beat him a severe beating.")

(1191) سِرْتُ أَحْسَنَ ٱلسَّيْرِ [أوضح المسالك إلى ألفية ابن مالك لابن هشام 2/184]
"I travelled the best (kind) of travelling."
(for سِرْتُ ٱلسَّيْرِ أَحْسَنَ ٱلسَّيْرِ)

[11] النحو الوافي 2/207–209
[12] معاني النحو 2/203

When the maṣdar is thus substituted with its attribute, then the masculine adjectival noun is typically used for the attribute, even if the maṣdar was a feminine noun. For example:

(1192) كَتَبُوا سَرِيعًا
"They wrote quickly."
(for كَتَبُوا كِتَابَةً سَرِيعَةً)

This is because even when maṣdars end with a feminine marker, they are abstract enough in their meaning that when they are absent, only the idea of them retains influence, not their actual wording. And because that abstract idea is not feminine in its meaning, it doesn't cause the attribute to match the feminine wording of the maṣdar in gender. So, by default, the masculine adjectival noun is used for the attribute.

Also, the a-case adjectival noun in such phrases as ضَرَبْتُهُ شَدِيدًا may, where the sense allows or requires it, be a deputy to the adverb of time instead of a deputy to the absolute object.[13] For example: سَارُوا طَوِيلًا "They travelled a long time," (for سَارُوا زَمَنًا طَوِيلًا. See section (ref).)

In fact, according to some authorities, when the a-case noun in such phrases could be applied to both a deleted absolute object or a deleted adverb of time (or, for that matter, other a-case functions like a direct object), then it is possible that both meanings could be intended.[14] For example,

(1193) ضَرَبْتُهُ كَثِيرًا
"I beat him a lot."

This sentence could mean, at the same time, both ضَرَبْتُهُ ضَرْبًا كَثِيرًا "I beat him a lot [of beatings]," and ضَرَبْتُهُ زَمَنًا كَثِيرًا "I beat him (for) a lot [of time]."

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An entity noun→maṣdar crossover

The entity noun→maṣdar crossover may be a regular common noun that is used in place of a verb's maṣdar (see (ref)).

For example:

(1194) فَرَجَعَ إِلَى قَوْمِهِ فَقَالَ يَا قَوْمِ أَسْلِمُوا فَإِنَّ مُحَمَّدًا يُعْطِي عَطَاءً لاَ يَخْشَى الْفَاقَةَ [صحيح مسلم :2312a]
"So he returned to his people and said, 'O my people, embrace Islām for indeed Muḥammad gives a gift not fearing want.' "
(عَطَاء "gift" is a entity noun→maṣdar crossover for the actual maṣdar إِعْطَاء.)

[13] Wright 2/54D
[14] معاني النحو 2/196–199

(1195) ٱنْهَزَمُوا هَزِيمَةً شَنِيعَةً
[Wright 2/56B]
“They were defeated an atrocious defeat”
(The maṣdar of ٱنْهَزَمَ is properly ٱنْهِزَام)

Also falling under the category of entity noun→maṣdar crossover is the maṣdar of another form of the verb from the same root.[15]. For example:

(1196) ٱقْتَتَلُوا قِتَالًا شَدِيدًا [Wright 2/56B]
“They fought with one another a hard fight”
(قِتَال is properly the maṣdar of the form 3 verb قَاتَلَ)

(1197) وَتَبَتَّلْ إِلَيْهِ تَبْتِيلًا [سورة المزمل 73:8]
“and devote yourself to Him with [complete] devotion”
(تَبْتِيل is properly the maṣdar of the form 2 verb بَتَّلَ)

A synonymous maṣdar from a different root

For example:

(1198) جَلَسَ قُعُودًا [Wright 2/56C]
“I sat (with) a sitting”

A noun that indicates the type of maṣdar

For example:

(1199) رَجَعَ ٱلْقَهْقَرَىٰ [Wright 2/56C]
“He returned walking backwards.”
قَهْقَرَىٰ is a noun which means “backward walk”.

A noun of manner of the pattern فِعْلَة

For example:

(1200) مشى القط مشية الأسد [النحو الوافي 2/218]
“The cat walked (with) the gait of a lion”

[15] النحو الوافي 2/215

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The number of the maṣdar

For example:

(1201) ضَرَبْتُ ثَلَاثَ ضَرَبَاتٍ
"I beat him three blows"

The maṣdar may also be omitted from the annexed-to such that only the number remains. For example:

(1202) ضَرَبْتُ ثَلَاثًا
"I beat him three (blows)"
(Note the feminine number ثَلَاث instead of the masculine ثَلَاثَة because the deleted annexed-to will be feminine in such circumstances.)

A partial or whole fraction

Words like كُلّ, جَمِيع "all"; بَعْض "some"; نِصْف, شَطْر "half", etc. can be used to indicate how much of an action is done.

For example:

(1203) فَلَا تَمِيلُوا كُلَّ ٱلْمَيْلِ [سورة النساء 4:129]
"So do not incline completely [toward one]"

(1204) أَهْمَلَ ٱلطَّالِبُ بَعْضَ ٱلْإِهْمَالِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/452]
"The student was negligent somewhat"

Included in this category is the word شَيْء "thing". When used in the a-case governed by a verb it can signify the meaning "a bit" or "somewhat", etc.[16] For example:

(1205) فَسَارَ عَلِيٌّ شَيْئًا ثُمَّ وَقَفَ [صحيح مسلم: 2405]
"So Ɛaliyy went a bit, then he stopped"

The a-case noun شَيْئًا isn't always a absolute object after a verb. It may be, depending on the meaning of the sentence, a direct object. For example, in the وَجَدْتُ شَيْئًا "I found something." However, in some circumstances, شَيْئًا may make sense both as an absolute object and as a direct object.[17] For example:

(1206) وَلَا تُشْرِكُوا بِهِ شَيْئًا [سورة النساء 4:36]
"and associate nothing with Him"

Regarding this āyah, the mufassir Ibn Ɛāsh͡ūr says:

[16] See, for example, تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة الإسراء 17:74 (كِدتَّ تَرْكَنُ إِلَيْهِمْ شَيْئًا قَلِيلًا)
[17] معاني النحو 2/199

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شَيْئًا is in the a-case due to its being a [direct] done-to for تُشْرِكُوا, i.e. "Don't make a partner anything from what is worshipped", similar to His saying, وَلَنْ نُشْرِكَ بِرَبِّنا أحَدًا [سورة الجن 72:2] ("And we will never associate with our Lord anyone").

And it is permissible that شَيْئًا is in the a-case due to its being [a deputy to] the maṣdar, i.e. "a bit of associating even if it is slight", similar to His saying, فَلَنْ يَضُرُّوكَ شَيْئًا [سورة المائدة 5:42] ("never will they harm you at all.").[18]

The instrument or implement used in the action

The type of action may be indicated with the the instrument or implement used in the action. For example:

(1207) ضَرَبْتُهُ سَوْطًا [Wright 2/56D]
"I beat him (with) a whip."
(for ضَرْبَ سَوْطٍ)

A pronoun

A absolute object can be substituted by a pronoun that refers to it.[19] For example:

(1208) أَحْسَنَ ٱلْإِكْرَامَ وَأَكْرَمَهُ ضَيْفَهُ
"He perfected generosity and was generous (with it) [to] his guest."
(i.e., he was generous with the generosity)

A pointing noun

Similar to the pronoun as a deputy maṣdar absolute object, a pointing noun may be used in the same vein. For example

(1209) ٱلرَّجُلُ ٱلْمُهَذَّبُ لاَ يُعَامِلُ ٱلنَّاسَ هَـٰذِهِ ٱلْمُعَامَلَةَ [النحو الواضح لعلي الجارم 2/159]
"The refined man does not deal with the people (with) this dealing."

(1210) يَحْفَظُونَ أَسْرَارَهُمْ هَـٰذَا ٱلْحِفْظَ [Wright 2/54A]
"They keep their secrets (with) this keeping"
(i.e. so carefully)

[18] تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة النساء 4:36

[19] See also تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة المائدة 5:115 (فَإِنِّي أُعَذِّبُهُ عَذابًا لا أُعَذِّبُهُ أحَدًا مِنَ العالَمِينَ)

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37.5. The absolute object with a deleted governing verb

The governing verb of the specifying absolute object may be deleted if there is sufficient context or circumstance to supply its meaning. For example, in response to the question,

هَلْ جَلَسَ ٱلزَّائِرُ عِنْدَكَ؟

"Did the visitor sit with you?"

one may reply:

(1211) جُلُوسًا طَوِيلًا [النحو الوافي 2/219]

"A long sitting"

(for جَلَسَ جُلُوسًا طَوِيلًا "He sat a long sitting.")

Similarly, if one sees a hunter striking his quarry with an arrow succesfully, he might say:

(1212) إِصَابَةً سَرِيعَةً [النحو الوافي 2/219]

"A quick striking"

(for أَصَابَ إِصَابَةً سَرِيعَةً "He struck a quick striking.")

In both the above scenarios, the deleted governing verb is implied. So the complete sentence includes both the implied governing verb, and the absolute object

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37.6. The absolute object as a deputy of the deleted governing verb

In some cases, the deleted governing verb is replaced by the absolute object. The absolute object is then a deputy of the deleted verb. This can be done in the following circumstances:

37.6.1. The absolute object as a deputy of the verb in a command or supplication

For example, instead of using the verb of command ٱصْبِرُوا "Be patient," one may say:

(1213) صَبْرًا
"Patience"

In terms of government, the complete sentence is ٱصْبِرُوا صَبْرًا. The sentence أَصْبِرُوا صَبْرًا is valid on its own right as a use of the reinforcing absolute object. But that is not exactly what the utterance صَبْرًا, by itself, signifies. Rather the governing verb ٱصْبِرُوا. is substituted with the absolute object, such that the verb is no longer present in meaning, and the absolute object is now its deputy, fulfilling its role.

Why then would one choose to use a absolute object instead of a verb?[20] The maṣdar signifies only a meaning of the action of the verb. The verb signifies both the meaning of its maṣdar and is also linked to a time in which the action originates, continues, or renews. So the verb is more temporary than its maṣdar. Therefore, if we use a absolute object instead of a verb, then it is not explicitly linked to any time, nor does it explicitly imply a renewal of the action. So the absolute object as a deputy for the verb signifies a constancy and inseperableness of the action. Whereas the verb is a direct application of the action.

Secondly, the verb is necessarily tied to its doer. So, also in circumstances where the objective is the action itself, and not who does it, the absolute object may be used as a deputy to the verb.

Here are some more examples of a absolute object as a deputy for the verb:

(1214) قَالَ أَبُو لَهَبٍ تَبًّا لَكَ أَلِهَذَا جَمَعْتَنَا فَنَزَلَتْ تَبَّتْ يَدَا أَبِي لَهَبٍ [صحيح البخاري: 4973]
"Abū Lahab said: 'A perishing for you! Is it for this (that) you have gathered us?' So there was revealed: 'May the hands of Abū Lahab be ruined'" [سورة المسد 111:1]
(تَبًّا is a absolute object of the verb تَبَّ "to perish".)

(1215) شُكْرًا لَكُمْ
"A thanking for you"
(for أَشْكُرُكَ "I thank you.")

(1216) سُبْحَانَ ٱللَّـهِ "The glorification of Allāh!"
(سُبْحَانَ is a entity noun→maṣdar crossover for the verb سَبَّحَ "to glorify".)

In the above example, the sentence with the verb could be, e.g., أُسَبِّحُ سُبْحَانَ ٱللَّـهِ "I glorify the glorification of Allāh." But again, though this may be a valid sentence on its own right, it is not exactly what the utterance سُبْحَانَ ٱللَّـهِ, by itself, signifies. The entity noun→maṣdar crossover سُبْحَان, as a deputy to the verb does not explicitly specify the verb or its doer. Rather, the entity noun→maṣdar crossover سُبْحَان replaces its governing verb. The purpose is to mention the

[20] معاني النحو 2/203

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glorification of Allāh without being limited by a time limit for the action of the verb, or a need to mention the doer of the verb.[21]

Similarly,

(1217) مَعَاذَ ٱللَّـهِ
"The refuge of Allāh"
(مَعَاذ is a maṣdar of عَاذَ يَعُوذُ "to seek refuge".)

Using the u-case maṣdar instead of the absolute object

In situations that call for a course of action, the u-case maṣdar may optionally be used instead of using the (a-case) absolute object.

For example, in a situation that calls for patience, one might say

(1218) صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ [معاني النحو 2/206]
"A beautiful patience"

instead of saying صَبْرًا جَمِيلًا. Here, the implied meaning is ٱلْأَمْرُ فِيهِ صَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ "The thing to be done in the matter is a beautiful patience."[22]

The u-case maṣdar (instead of the a-case absolute object) has the force of more constancy and generality. Additionally, it can imply that the action called for has, in the speaker's estimation, already begun and become established. Here are some more examples:

(1219) رَحْمَةُ ٱللَّـهِ عَلَيْهِ [معاني النحو 2/206]
"The mercy of Allāh on him"

(1220) وَيْحٌ لِزَيْدٍ [Lane's Lexicon, root ويح]
"A mercy on Zayd"

In the above example, the following alternative (using the absolute object) is also possible:

(1221) (1) وَيْحًا لِزَيْدٍ [Lane's Lexicon, root ويح]
(2) وَيْحَ زَيْدٍ [Lane's Lexicon, root ويح]
"A mercy on Zayd"
(as though one were to say: أَلْزَمَهُ ٱللَّـهُ وَيْحًا "May *Allāh* may mercy to attend him constantly!")

The words وَيْل, وَيْب, and وَيْس are used in a similar manner to وَيْح above. These are all maṣdars of disused verbs. وَيْح and وَيْس typically signify compassion and a mild chiding. Whereas وَيْل and وَيْب typically signify a severe chiding, calling for misfortune and destruction.

[21] معاني النحو 2/206

[22] See also البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة يوسف 12:18 (فَصَبْرٌ جَمِيلٌ)

Work in progress

37.6.2. The absolute object as a deputy of a verb that is a info

There is a set of circumstances where the governing verb can deleted, and its place is taken by the absolute object as its deputy. This is when the verb is the info of a nounal sentence, and the verb's maṣdar wouldn't ordinarily be a info in the u-case for the subject.[23]

Here are some examples that should illustrate what we mean:

Consider the sentence أَنْتَ تَأْكُلُ وَتَشْرَبُ "You are eating and drinking." The verbs in this sentence may be deleted and each is substituted with its a-case absolute objects as a deputy. So we can say:

(1222) أَنْتَ أَكْلًا وَشُرْبًا [معاني النحو 2/208]
"You are eating and drinking."
(for أَنْتَ تَأْكُلُ وَتَشْرَبُ)

What allows this is that the maṣdars أَكْل شُرْب wouldn't oridinarily work as u-case infos for this subject. That is, we can't say × أَنْتَ أَكْلٌ وَشُرْبٌ. So when we use the maṣdars in the a-case as absolute objects (أَنْتَ أَكْلًا وَشُرْبًا), it is understood that they are acting as a deputy for their respected deleted verbs.

Here are some more examples:

(1223) ٱلْمَطَرُ سَحًّا سَحًّا [النحو الوافي 2/225]
"The rain (is) pouring (and) pouring."
(سَحّ is the maṣdar of the verb سَحَّ يَسُحُّ "to pour down abundantly (of rain)")

(1224) مَا ٱلْأَسَدُ مَعَ فَرِيسَتِهِ إِلَّا فَتْكًا [النحو الوافي 2/226]
"The lion is not, with his prey, [anything] but slaying"
(فَتْك is the maṣdar of فَتَكَ يَفْتُكُ "to assault and slay")

(1225) أَسَفَاهَةً وَأَنْتَ مُثَقَّفٌ؟ [النحو الوافي 2/222]
"[Do you act] foolishly while you are an educated [person]?"
(سَفَاهَة is the maṣdar of سَفِهَ يَسْفَهُ "to be foolish")

As you can see from the examples above, these circumstances are usually limited to one of the following kind of sentences:

- a repeated maṣdar
- multiple maṣdars joined with conjunctive particles
- a restricted maṣdar
- a maṣdar that is asked about in a question

[23] معاني النحو 2/209

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37.6.3. The absolute object as a deputy for a verb in detailing a vague consequential action

This is a very specific circumstance where the absolute object may occur as a deputy to a verb. Consider an action that is done as a consequence of some matter. If this consequential action is expressed only vaguely, then the following sentence can add detail to this vague action using absolute objects.[24] Here is an example:

(1226) إِنْ أَسَاءَ إِلَيْكَ ٱلصَّدِيقُ فَٱسْلُكْ مَسْلَكَ ٱلْعُقَلَاءِ. فَإِمَّا عِتَابًا كَرِيمًا وَإِمَّا صَفْحًا جَمِيلًا [النحو الوافي 2/224]
If a friend does you wrong then take the path of the intelligent: So either an honorable reproving or a gracious pardoning"

In the example above, the consequential vague action is فَٱسْلُكْ مَسْلَكَ ٱلْعُقَلَاءِ "take the path of the intelligent". The maṣdars عِتَاب "reproving" and صَفْح "pardoning" are then used as absolute objects to detail this vague action, فَإِمَّا عِتَابًا كَرِيمًا وَإِمَّا صَفْحًا جَمِيلًا "So either an honorable reproving or a gracious pardoning."[25]

37.6.4. The absolute object as a deputy for a verb in emphasizing the meaning of an entire sentence

One usage of the absolute object as a deputy for a verb is in emphasizing the meaning of an entire sentence. The absolute object in such cases are maṣdars (or entity noun→maṣdar crossovers) like:

- حَقًّا "truly" for أُحِقُّ حَقًّا "I assert a truth"
- يَقِينًا "certainly" for أُوقِنُ يَقِينًا "I ascertain a certainty"

For example,

(1227) تَبَدَّى لَهُ جِبْرِيلُ فَقَالَ يَا مُحَمَّدُ إِنَّكَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ حَقًّا [صحيح البخاري: 6982]
"Gabriel would appear before him and say, 'O Muḥammad! Indeed you are Allāh's Messenger ﷺ truly' "

(1228) وَمَا قَتَلُوهُ يَقِينًا [سورة النساء 4:157]
"And they did not kill him, for certain."

[24] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/459

[25] See also سورة محمد 47:4 (فَإِمَّا مَنًّا بَعْدُ وَإِمَّا فِدَاءً)

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37.6.5. The dualized absolute object as a deputy of the verb

There are some absolute objects that are dualized and annexed to a pronoun in set phrases. The dual indicates a recurringness of the action. These include:

- لَبَّيْكَ – لَبّ is the entity noun→maṣdar crossover of the verb أَلَبّ يُلِبُّ "to remain." The a-case dualized maṣdar annexed to the addressee pronoun, لَبَّيْكَ, signifies "I remain for you (i.e. at your service] time after time." A verb لَبَّىٰ يُلَبِّي تَلْبِيَةً "to utter لَبَّيْكَ" is derived from this phrase.
- سَعْدَيْكَ – سَعْد is the entity noun→maṣdar crossover of the verb أَسْعَدَ يُسْعِدُ "to help" The a-case dualized maṣdar annexed to the addressee pronoun, سَعْدَيْكَ, signifies "I am at your aid time after time."
- حَنَانَيْكَ – from حَنَان "mercy". حَنَانَيْكَ signifies "Let your mercy be continuous to me."
- دَوَالَيْكَ – from دَوَال which is equivalent to مُدَاوَلَة and تَدَاوُل "taking by turns". دَوَالَيْكَ signifies "Make (you) the action to be done by turns."
- حَذَارَيْكَ – from حَذَار "Beware". حَذَارَيْكَ signifies "Twice beware!"

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37.7. Differentiating the absolute object from the other a-case done-tos

The absolute object is a kind of done-to. Other kinds of done-tos include the direct object, the adverb of time and the adverb of place, and the adverb of reason. Generally, all adverbs can be considered to be in the category of done-tos. All done-tos are governed by verbs and occur in the a-case.

Sometimes it is not easy to disambiguate the exact function of an a-case noun occurring as a done-to. We have already seen some instances of this. For example, we mentioned that in example (1193) ضَرَبْتُهُ كَثِيرًا, that the a-case done-to كَثِيرًا could be analyzed as either a absolute object or a adverb of time, depending on context.

Similarly, in example (1206) وَلَا تُشْرِكُوا بِهِ شَيْئًا [سورة النساء 4:36] "and associate nothing with Him", شَيْئًا has been analyzed to support both a absolute object meaning and a direct object meaning.

For some verbs, their maṣdars are re-used as common nouns. For example:

- أَكْل – أَكَلَ يَأْكُلُ أَكْلًا is re-used to mean "a food"

- صَيْد – صَادَ يَصِيدُ صَيْدًا is re-used to mean “a prey”
- قَوْل – قَالَ يَقُولُ قَوْلًا is re-used to mean “a saying” or “a speech”
- سُؤَال – سَأَلَ يَسْأَلُ سُؤَالًا is re-used to mean “a question”

When these nouns are in the a-case governed by their verb, then how do we tell whether they are a absolute object or a direct object? For example:

(1229) أَكَلَ زَيْدٌ أَكْلًا
“Zayd ate an eating.”
or
“Zayd ate a food.”

By itself, أَكْلًا supports both functions of the direct object and the absolute object. And we have to look at context to see which of the two meanings the speaker intended.

Sometimes, if the a-case done-to is qualified, then that can help us distinguish between the two functions. For example,

(1230) أَكَلَ زَيْدٌ أَكْلًا سَرِيعًا
“Zayd ate a fast eating”
(i.e. “Zayd ate quickly.”)

In the above example, the attribute سَرِيع “fast” is applied to the attributed-to أَكْلًا. Now, unless Zayd was eating “fast food” (unlikely in classical times), the attribute applies to the manner in which Zayd was eating. Hence أَكْلًا is a absolute object and not a direct object.

Sometimes, the qualifier may be applicable to both the absolute object and the done-to. Yet each meaning will be distinct. For example,

(1231) صَادَ زَيْدٌ صَيْدَ ٱلْأَسَدِ
“Zayd hunted (in the manner of) the hunting of a lion.”
or
“Zayd hunted the lion’s prey.”

In the above example, the done-to صَيْد is qualified in an annexation with the annexed-to ٱلْأَسَد “the lion”. But the qualifier is applicable to both meanings of صَيْد: the absolute object meaning: “hunting”, and the direct object meaning: “prey”. When applied to the absolute object meaning then the sentence means that Zayd hunted in a ferocious and daring manner, like a lion does. And when applied to the direct object meaning then the sentence means that Zayd hunted a prey which was (previously) the prey of a lion. However, both of these meanings are distinct from each other. In this sort of case, context should help in figuring out the intended meaning.

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In the case of maṣdars like أَكْل and صَيْد, when they are re-used as common nouns, then their existence is not tied to the action of the verb. For example, أَكْل, meaning "food", exists prior to the action of eating. And صَيْد, meaning "prey" exists prior to the action of hunting.

But in the case of maṣdars like قَوْل and سُؤَال, even when they are a direct object, they only come into existence with the action of their verb. So there is no قَوْل, either as a absolute object or as a direct object, before the action of "saying" And there is no سُؤَال, either as a absolute object or as a direct object, before the action of "asking".

In such cases, even when a qualifier is applied, the line between the absolute object and the direct object can remain blurry. And that is not really a big deal because both meanings will be similar. For example,

(1232) سَأَلَ زَيْدٌ عَمْرًا سُؤَالًا صَعْبًا
"He asked a difficult questioning."
(i.e. the questioning was difficult upon Ɛamr)
or
"He asked a difficult question."

This sort of ambiguity can sometimes be found in the other adverb done-tos as well.

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37.8. Candidates for governing the absolute object

The verb is the fundamental governor of the doer and the done-to. But we have seen (in sections (ref)), that nouns that have a verbal quality to them, like the maṣdar, the doer participle, etc., can also govern a doer and a done-to.

So a absolute object may occur, governed by either a verb (as we have seen), or a doer participle, or a object participle, or a static adjectival noun, or even another maṣdar.

Here are some examples:

(1233) فَرَحْتُ بِٱجْتِهَادِكَ ٱجْتِهَادًا حَسَنًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/449]
"I rejoiced at your striving a good striving"
(the absolute object ٱجْتِهَادًا is governed by the preceding maṣdar ٱجْتِهَاد)

(1234) أَنَا مُكْرِمٌ خَالِدًا إِكْرَامًا عَظِيمًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/449]
"I will honor K͡hālid a great honoring."
(the absolute object إِكْرَامًا is governed by the doer participle مُكْرِم)

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Chapter 38.

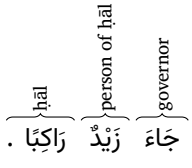
The ḥāl

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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38.1. Introduction

The *ḥāl* (ٱلْحَال) is a kind of adverb, governed typically by a verb, that describes the state of the *person of ḥāl* during the time that the ḥāl's governing verb is taking place. Here is an example of a ḥāl:



"Zayd came riding"

In the example above, the usage of the ḥāl signifies that Zayd, while he was coming, was in a riding state.

38.2. Matching the ḥāl to the person of ḥāl

Consider again the example:

(1235) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا [Wright 2/112C]
"Zayd came riding"

The ḥāl رَاكِبًا is an adjectival noun matching the person of ḥāl زَيْد in number (singular) and gender (masculine).

If the person of ḥāl is feminine in gender or more than one in number, then the ḥāl will match it accordingly. For example:

(1236) قَامَتِ ٱبْنَتُهُ إِلَيْهِ بَاكِيَةً [Fischer 196D]
"His daughter [went and] stood to him crying"

(1237) وَثَبَا مُسْرِعَيْنِ [صحيح البخاري: 4794]
"they$_{2m}$ got up hastening"

(1238) جَاءَ سَعِيدٌ وَخَالِدٌ رَاكِبَيْنِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/38]
"Saɛīd and K͡hālid came riding."

For plurals, both sound and broken plurals may be used:

(1239) وَٱدْخُلُوا ٱلْبَابَ سُجَّدًا [سورة البقرة 2:58]
"and enter the gate bowing humbly"
(The person of ḥāl is the plural masculine doer pronoun in ٱدْخُلُوا and the ḥāl سُجَّد is the plural of سَاجِد.)

(1240) خَرَجْنَا مُتَوَجِّهِينَ إِلَىٰ ٱلْيَمَنِ [Fischer 196D]
"We left heading towards Yemen"

As with attributes and infos, when the person of ḥāl is a plural of non-intelligent beings, the singular feminine is typically used for the ḥāl. For example:

(1241) صَالَتِ ٱلْأُسُودُ عَلَى ٱلْفَرِيسَةِ فَاتِكَةً
"The lions pounced on the prey slaying"

38.3. The governor of the ḥāl

The governor of the ḥāl may be one of the following:

A verb

The verb is the typical governor of the ḥāl. For example:

(1242) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا [Wright 2/113D]
"Zayd came riding"

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A maṣdar

(1243) رُكُوبُكَ ٱلسَّيَارَةَ مُسْرِعَةً خَطَرٌ عَلَيْكَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/51]
"Your riding the car speeding is a danger for you."

A quasi-verb

A quasi-verb is a deverbal verbal noun like an doer participle or an object participle, or an adjectival noun, etc. For example:

(1244) زَيْدٌ ضَارِبٌ عَمْرًا قَائِمًا [Wright 2/113D]
"Zayd is beating Ɛamr standing."

(1245) زَيْدٌ حَسَنٌ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/113D]
"Zayd is handsome standing."

(1246) زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ قَاعِدًا [Wright 2/114A]
"Zayd, standing, is more handsome than him sitting."

An expression that has verbal force

FIXME: Add more detail from شرح التصريح على التوضيح 1/596.

An expression that has verbal force could be:

- a preposition or adverb of time or place with a following noun in the i-case
- a pointing noun
- a question-device
- a word like لَعَلَّ, كَأَنَّ, لَيْتَ

In such cases there will typically be the implicit existential verb "is" providing the verbal force.

Examples:

(1247) زَيْدٌ فِي ٱلدَّارِ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/114A]
"Zayd is in the house standing." (the existential verb "is" is implied)

(1248) هَـٰذَا عَمْرٌو مُنْطَلِقًا [Wright 2/114A]
"This is Ɛamr (in the act of) setting out."

(1249) وَهَـٰذَا بَعْلِي شَيْخًا [سورة هود 11:72 cited by Wright 2/114B]
"and this, my husband, is an old man"

(1250) مَا شَأْنُكَ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/114B]
"What is your matter, standing?"
(i.e. "Why are you standing?")

(1251) مَا لَكَ وَاقِفًا [Wright 2/114B]
"What (happened) to you, standing?"
(i.e. "Why are you standing?")

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38.4. Valid persons of ḥāl

The person of ḥāl may be the doer of the governing verb but it may also be the direct object, or even other nouns in a sentence.

Let's see some examples.

The person of ḥāl as a doer

(1252) فَخَرَجَ مِنْهَا خَائِفًا [سورة القصص 28:21]
"So he left it, fearful"

The person of ḥāl as a direct object

(1253) وَأَرْسَلْنَاكَ لِلنَّاسِ رَسُولًا [سورة النساء 4:79]
"And We have sent you, [O Muḥammad], to the people as a messenger"

(1254) رَكِبْتُ ٱلْفَرَسَ مُسْرَجًا [Wright 2/113A]
"I rode the horse saddled"

The person of ḥāl as a deputy doer

(1255) تُؤْكَلُ ٱلْفَاكِهَةُ نَاضِجَةً [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/28]
"The fruit is eaten fresh"

The person of ḥāl as a subject

(1256) ٱلْفَاكِهَةُ لَذِيذَةٌ نَاضِجَةً [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/28]
"The fruit is delicious (when it is) fresh."

The person of ḥāl as a info

(1257) هَـٰذَا هُوَ ٱلْهِلَالُ طَالِعًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/28]
"This is the crescent (as it is) rising."

The person of ḥāl in the i-case following a preposition

(1258) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ جَالِسًا [Wright 2/113A]
"I passed by Zayd (as he was) sitting."

(1259) كُنْتُ فِي ٱلْبُسْتَانِ زَاهِرًا [Wright 2/113B]
"I was in the garden (while it was) in bloom."

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The person of ḥāl in the i-case in as the annexed-to in an annexation

The annexed-to in an annexation is permitted to be a person of ḥāl if it satisfies any one of the following conditions:

i. When the annexe is naturally capable of being the governor of the ḥāl (as a maṣdar or doer participle, etc.). For example:

(1260) أَعْجَبَنِي قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ مُسْرِعًا [Wright 2/119C]
"Zayd's standing speedily pleased me."
(The governor is the annexe قِيَام which is a maṣdar)

(1261) إِلَى ٱللَّـهِ مَرْجِعُكمْ جَمِيعًا [سورة المائدة 5:105]
"To Allāh is your return all together"
(The governor is the annexe مَرْجِع which is a maṣdar)

(1262) أَنْتَ شَارِبُ ٱلْمَاءِ صَافِيًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/50]
"You are drinking the water clear." (The governor is the annexe شَارِب which is a doer participle)

ii. When the annexe is a real part of the annexed-to. For example:

(1263) وَنَزَعْنَا مَا فِي صُدُورِهِم مِّنْ غِلٍّ إِخْوَانًا [سورة الحجر 15:47]
"And We will remove whatever is in their breasts of resentment, [so they will be] brothers"
(The annexe صُدُور is a real part of the annexed-to person of ḥāl هِمْ.)

(1264) أَيُحِبُّ أَحَدُكُمْ أَنْ يَأْكُلَ لَحْمَ أَخِيهِ مَيْتًا [سورة الحجرات 49:12]
"Would one of you like to eat the flesh of his brother when dead?"
(The annexe لَحْم is a real part of the annexed-to person of ḥāl أَخ.)

iii. When the annexe is not really but is virtually a part of the annexed-to. Such that the meaning would still be correct if the annexe was removed. For example:

(1265) ثُمَّ أَوْحَيْنَا إِلَيْكَ أَنِ ٱتَّبِعْ مِلَّةَ إِبْرَاهِيمَ حَنِيفًا [سورة النحل 16:123]
"Then We revealed to you, [O Muḥammad], to follow the religion of Abraham, inclining toward truth"
(حَنِيفًا is a ḥāl of the person of ḥāl إِبْرَاهِيم. مِلَّة is virtually a part of إِبْرَاهِيم such that the meaning is correct without it: ٱتَّبِعْ إِبْرَاهِيمَ حَنِيفًا.)

When none of these conditions are satisfied then the annexed-to cannot be a person of ḥāl. So we cannot say:

(1266) × مَرَرْتُ بِغُلَامِ هِنْدٍ جَالِسَةً [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/51]
"I passed by Hind's slave boy (when she was) sitting."

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Determining the person of ḥāl when there is more than one possibility

When the sentence has more than one noun as a possible person of ḥāl, usually the meaning, gender, or number is sufficient to determine whom the ḥāl is describing. But sometimes context will be needed to determine who the person of ḥāl is. For example:

(1267) قَابَلْتُ ٱلْأَخَ رَاكِبًا [النحو الوافي 2/386A]
"I met the brother riding"

In the example above, the ḥāl رَاكِبًا may be applicable to either the speaker (assuming he is male), or to ٱلْأَخَ "the brother". Context should tell us which is intended. If context is not sufficient then is more suitable for the closer of the two to the ḥāl to be the person of ḥāl. Or, to avoid ambiguity, it may be better that the expression not be used in this case.[1]

38.5. The ḥāl after verbs like رَأَىٰ and وَجَدَ

The verbs رَأَىٰ and وَجَدَ are what are known as mental verbs (see chapter (ref)). That is, they signify an act that takes place in the mind. So they may take two direct objects. For example:

(1268) إِنَّهُمْ يَرَوْنَهُ بَعِيدًا [سورة المعارج 70:6]
"Indeed, they see it [as] distant,"
(بَعِيدًا has been analyzed as a second direct object[2])

(1269) لَوَجَدُوا ٱللَّهَ تَوَّابًا رَحِيمًا [سورة النساء 4:64]
"they would have found Allāh Accepting of Repentance and Merciful."
(تَوَّابًا has been analyzed as a second direct object[3])

However, if these verbs are mere verbs of sense, i.e. they express nothing but acts of the external organs of sense, then they may still have two governees in the a-case but the second governee will no longer be a direct object but a ḥāl.[4] For example:

[1] النحو الوافي 2/386
[2] إعراب القرآن للدرويش for سورة المعارج 70:6
[3] إعراب القرآن للدرويش for سورة النساء 4:64
[4] Wright 2/50B

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(1270) رَأَيْتُكَ نَائِمًا [Wright 2/50C]
"I saw you sleeping."

(1271) وَجَدْتُهُ مَرِيضًا [Wright 2/50C]
"I found him sick."

38.6. Multiple ḥāls or persons of ḥāl

There may be one or multiple ḥāls that correspond to one or multiple persons of ḥāl. This occurs in the following cases:

38.6.1. Multiple ḥāls for one person of ḥāl

These are examples of multiple ḥāls corresponding to one person of ḥāl:

(1272) وَلَمَّا رَجَعَ مُوسى إِلى قَوْمِهِ غَضْبانَ أَسِفًا [سورة الأعراف 7:150]
"And when Moses returned to his people, angry and grieved"

(1273) ارْجِعِي إِلَى رَبِّكِ رَاضِيَةً مَرْضِيَّةً [سورة الفجر 89:28]
"Return to your Lord, well-pleased and pleasing [to Him]"

(1274) مَا لَكِ يَا عَائِشُ حَشْيَا رَابِيَةً [صحيح مسلم :974b]
"Why are you, O Ɛāʾiša̅h, panting and short of breath?"
(حَشْيَا, on the pattern فَعْلَىٰ, is the feminine of حَشْيَان meaning "short of breath". رَابِيَة has a similar meaning.)

As you can see, there is no need for a conjunction like و to connect the multiple ḥāls (though we may use the word "and" in the translation). If such a و is inserted, then the noun(s) following it is technically no longer a ḥāl. Rather, it is now a post-conjunction to the preceding ḥāl.[5] For example:

(1275) أَقْبَلَ ٱلْمُنْتَصِرُ فَرِحًا وَمُسْرِعًا وَمُصَافِحًا رِفَاقَهُ [النحو الوافي 2/430]
"The victor approached rejoicing, hastening, and shaking hands with his companions."

In the above example, فَرِحًا is a ḥāl, مُسْرِعًا and مُصَافِحًا are post-conjunctions.

This distinction is technically correct. However, loosely speaking, words like مُسْرِعًا and مُصَافِحًا in the example above may be referred to as ḥāls.[6]

See also section (ref) later in this chapter for multiple ḥāls when one or more is a *sentence ḥāl*.

[5] النحو الوافي 2/386

[6] See, for example, the analysis of طَمَعًا in البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة السجدة 32:16 (يَدْعُونَ رَبَّهم خَوْفًا وطَمَعًا)

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38.6.2. One ḥāl for multiple persons of ḥāl

If there are multiple persons of ḥāl and the same ḥāl can be used to describe all of them, then one ḥāl, appropriately dualized or pluralized, may be used. We have already seen an example of this in example (1238) earlier in this chapter:

(1238) جَاءَ سَعِيدٌ وَخَالِدٌ رَاكِبَيْنِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/38]
"Saʿīd and K͡hālid came riding."

Here is another example:

(1276) وَسَخَّرَ لَكُمُ ٱلشَّمْسَ وَٱلْقَمَرَ دَائِبَيْنِ [سورة إبراهيم 14:33]
"And He subjected for you the sun and the moon, continuous [in orbit]"

Sometimes the multiple persons of ḥāl may even occur in different functions in the sentence. For example:

(1277) قَابَلَ عَلِيٌّ صَدِيقَهُ مَسْرُورَيْنِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/28]
"Ɛaliyy met his friend (while they both were) happy."

(1278) لَقِيتُهُ رَاكِبَيْنِ [Wright 2/113B]
"I met him (while we both were) riding"

38.6.3. Multiple ḥāls for multiple persons of ḥāl

If there are multiple persons of ḥāl, and each is to be described by different ḥāls, then the individual ḥāls may occur in the sentence without any conjunction. If context and meaning are not sufficient to determine which ḥāl applies to which person of ḥāl, then the first ḥāl (in sentence word order) should apply to the second person of ḥāl, and the second ḥāl should apply to the first person of ḥāl.[7] For example:

(1279) لَقِيتُ خَالِدًا مُصْعِدًا مُنْحَدِرًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/39]
"I met K͡hālid (while he was) going up (and I_m was) coming down."

But if meaning and context are sufficient to disambiguate, then the ḥāls may occur in either order. For example:

(1280) لَقِيتُ هِنْدًا مُصْعِدًا مُنْحَدِرَةً [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/39]
"I met Hind (while I_m was) going up (and she was) coming down."

[7] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/38–39. But see also النحو الوافي, 2/387 Wright 2/115CD

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38.7. Definiteness of the ḥāl

The ḥāl is typically an indefinite noun, as we have seen in all the examples so far. Occasionally, however, it does occur as a definite noun. The most common such ḥāl is the noun وَحْد annexed to a pronoun, meaning "alone". For example:

(1281) جَاءَ ٱلضَّيْفَ وَحْدَهُ [النحو الوافي 2/375]
"The guest came by himself."

Other definite nouns may also occur as ḥāls. For example:

(1282) ٱدْخُلُوا ٱلْأَوَّلَ فَٱلْأَوَّلَ
[النحو الوافي 2/376]
"Enter! the first then the first"
(i.e. "Enter in order")

(1283) كَلَّمْتُهُ فَاهُ إِلَىٰ فِيَّ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/34]
"I spoke to him his mouth to my mouth."
(i.e. face to face)

The definite ḥāl may also occur in a comparative statement. For example:

(1284) زَيْدٌ ٱلرَّاكِبَ أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ ٱلْمَاشِي [Wright 2/116D]
"Zayd as the rider is more handsome than he is (as) the walker."

Although, it is more usual to use the indefinite ḥāl in this case: زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ مَاشِيًا.

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38.8. Definiteness of the person of ḥāl

The person of ḥāl is typically a definite noun, as we have seen in all the examples so far. Sometimes, however, it does occur as an indefinite noun. Usually, when the person of ḥāl is indefinite, it occurs in the following circumstances:

The ḥāl precedes the indefinite person of ḥāl

(1285) فِيهَا قَائِمًا رَجُلًا [Wright 2/117B]
"in it (i.e. the house) is a man standing"

The order of the ḥāl and the person of ḥāl is treated in more detail in section (ref).

The indefinite person of ḥāl is qualified by a attribute or a annexed-to

(1286) عِنْدِي غُلَامُ رَجُلٍ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/117D]
"in my house is a man's slave standing"

(1287) قَدِمَ طِفْلٌ صَغِيرٌ بَاكِيًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/45]
"a small child came crying"

(1288) وَبَارَكَ فِيهَا وَقَدَّرَ فِيهَا أَقْوَاتَهَا فِي أَرْبَعَةِ أَيَّامٍ سَوَاءً لِّلسَّائِلِينَ [النحو cited by سورة فصلت 41:10 العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/45]
"and He blessed it and determined therein its [creatures'] sustenance in four days without distinction - for [the information of] those who ask."

The indefinite person of ḥāl is in a negative statement or a question

(1289) مَا خَابَ عَامِلٌ مُخْلِصًا [النحو الوافي 2/403]
"A worker, when sincere, does not fail."

(1290) لَا تَشْرَبْ فِي كُوبٍ مَكْسُورًا [النحو الوافي 2/403]
"Don't drink in a cup (when it is) broken."

(1291) أَجَاءَ أَحَدٌ رَاكِبًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/44]
"Did anyone come riding?"

The indefinite person of ḥāl without any special circumstance

Occasionally, the person of ḥāl may be indefinite without any special circumstance.[8] For example:

(1292) وَصَلَّى وَرَاءَهُ قَوْمٌ قِيَامًا [صحيح البخاري: 1113]
"and [some] people prayed behind him standing"

38.9. The order of the ḥāl, the person of ḥāl and the governor

The normal order is: first the governor, then the person of ḥāl, then the ḥāl. However, there is much variability permitted, subject to certain rules.

[8] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/45–47

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38.9.1. The ḥāl preceding the governor

The ḥāl may precede the governor if the governor is an verb or quasi-verb that flexes based on the doer.

So we can say:

(1293) رَاكِبًا جَاءَ زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/118B]
"Zayd came riding."

(1294) مُسْرِعًا ذَا رَاحِلٌ [Wright 2/118B and النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/53]
"In haste is this this (man) departing."
(ذَا is a pointing noun like هَـٰذَا. See section (ref).)

(1295) مُخْلِصًا زَيْدٌ دَعَا [add ref to alfiyyah ibn malik]
"Sincerely did Zayd supplicate."
(The ḥāl مُخْلِصًا precedes not just its governor in the info دَعَا, but also the subject زَيْدٌ.)

If the governor is a verb or adjectival noun that is rigid (does not flex based on the doer), then the ḥāl rarely[9], if ever[10], precedes the governor. Examples of such governors are the verb of wonder and the comparative noun. For example:

(1296) مَا أَحْسَنَ زَيْدٌ ضَاحِكًا [Wright 2/118B]
(not × ضَاحِكًا مَا أَحْسَنَ زَيْدٌ)
"How handsome is Zayd (when) laughing!"

(1297) زَيْدٌ أَحْسَنُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو ضَاحِكًا [Wright 2/118B]
(not × زَيْدٌ ضَاحِكًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو)
"Zayd is more handsome than Ɛamr (when) laughing."

An exception is permitted when a noun, in one ḥāl, is compared with itself or another noun in another ḥāl. In this case, the ḥāl regularly precedes its comparative noun governor. For example:

(1298) زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا أَحْسَنُ مِنْهُ قَاعِدًا [Wright 2/118C]
"Zayd when standing is more handsome than [himself] when sitting."

(1299) زَيْدٌ مُفْرَدًا أَنْفَعُ مِنْ عَمْرٍو مُعَانًا [Wright 2/118C]
"Zayd when alone is more useful than Ɛamr when assisted (by others)."

If the governor is not a verb or a quasi-verb but an expression that has verbal force, then the ḥāl usually does not precede the governor.[11]

[9] ibn uthaymeen
[10] wright
[11] See, however, البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الزمر 39:67 for the recitation والسماوات مطوياتٍ بيمينه. Also mentioned by Wright 2/118D

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(1300) كَأَنَّ زَيْدٌ رَاكِبًا أَسَدٌ [Wright 2/118D]
(not × رَاكِبًا كَأَنَّ زَيْدٌ أَسَدٌ)
"[It is] as if Zayd, when riding, is a lion."

(1301) زَيْدٌ فِي ٱلدَّارِ قَائِمًا [Wright 2/118D]
(not × زَيْدٌ قَائِمًا فِي ٱلدَّارِ)
"Zayd is in the house standing."

(1302) تِلْكَ هِنْدٌ بَاحِثَةً [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/53]
(not × بَاحِثَةً تِلْكَ هِنْدٌ)
"That is Hind, searching."

38.9.2. The ḥāl preceding the person of ḥāl

The ḥāl is generally allowed to precede the person of ḥāl when the person of ḥāl is in the u-case or a-case. For example:

(1303) جَاءَ ضَاحِكًا زَيْدٌ [Wright 2/119A]
"Zayd came riding."

(1304) شَرِبْتُ ٱلْمَاءَ صَافِيًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/48]
"I drank the water clear."

Excepted from this general permissibility is if the person of ḥāl is restricted by إِلَّا. For example:

(1305) مَا جَاءَ أُسَامَةُ إِلَّا رَاكِبًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/48]
"Usāmah did not come except riding."

(1306) وَمَا نُرْسِلُ ٱلْمُرْسَلِينَ إِلَّا مُبَشِّرِينَ وَمُنْذِرِينَ [سورة الأنعام 6:48]
"And We send not the messengers except as bringers of good tidings and warners."

When the person of ḥāl is in the i-case then: if it is a annexed-to in an annexation, then the ḥāl should follow the person of ḥāl and not precede it.
For example:

(1307) أَعْجَبَنِي قِيَامُ زَيْدٍ مُسْرِعًا [Wright 2/119C]
"Zayd's standing speedily pleased me."

If the person of ḥāl is in the i-case due to a preceding preposition, then the ḥāl will usually follow it and not precede it. For example:

(1308) مَرَرْتُ بِهِنْدٍ جَالِسَةً [Wright 2/119B]
"I passed by Hind (when she was) sitting."

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Occasionally, however, the ḥāl has been found to precede the i-case person of ḥāl preceded by a preposition. For example:

(1309) وَمَا أَرْسَلْنَاكَ إِلَّا كَافَّةً لِلنَّاسِ [سورة سبأ 34:28]
"And We have not sent you except comprehensively to mankind"

38.9.3. Reasons for varying the normal order

The natural order, as we have mentioned, is: first the governor, then the person of ḥāl, then the ḥāl. So normally we would say:

(1310) حَضَرَ مُحَمَّدٌ مَاشِيًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/55]
"Muḥammad came walking."

The speaker may choose to vary this normal order for a variety of reasons. For example, if Muḥammad had been previously hampered from walking due to an illness or injury, then in order to emphasize his being able to walk, the speaker may say:

(1311) حَضَرَ مَاشِيًا مُحَمَّدٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/55]

Or if the listener was incorrectly assuming that Muḥammad came riding and not walking, then the speaker may wish to disabuse him by saying

(1312) مَاشِيًا حَضَرَ مُحَمَّدٌ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/55]

There may be other reasons as well.[12]

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38.10. Transitory and permanent meanings for the ḥāl

Fundamentally, the ḥāl is transitory in its meaning; i.e. it is not meant to be a permanent description of the person of ḥāl. For example:

(1313) جَاءَ سَعِيدٌ غَاضِبًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/28]
"Saeīd came angry"

(1314) أَقْبَلَ خَالِدٌ رَاكِبًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/28]
"K͡hālid came riding."

[12] معاني النحو 2/354

In the above examples, the ḥāls غَاضِبًا “angry” and رَاكِبًا “riding” are meant to be transitory descriptions, such that it is conceivable that Saɛīd may cease to be angry, and that K͡hālid could come walking instead of riding.

However, it is possible that the ḥāl have a more permanent meaning. This is primarily when the ḥāl describes person of ḥāl as it comes in to existence or relevance.

For example:

(1315) وَخُلِقَ ٱلْإِنْسَانُ ضَعِيفًا [سورة النساء 4:28]
“and mankind was created weak”

(1316) قَالَتْ رَبِّ إِنِّي وَضَعْتُهَا أُنْثَىٰ [سورة آل عمران 3:36]
“she said, ‘My Lord, I have delivered a female.’ ”

(1317) وَلَدَتْهُ أَزْرَقَ ٱلْعَيْنَينِ أَفْطَسَ ٱلْأَنْفِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/29]
“She gave birth to him blue-eyed (and) snub-nosed”

The ḥāl may also have a more permanent meaning in the sense that while it describes the person of ḥāl linked in time to the governor, its meaning also applies more permanently to the person of ḥāl. For example:

(1318) وَهَـٰذَا صِرَاطُ رَبِّكَ مُسْتَقِيمًا [سورة الأنعام 6:126 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/30]
“And this is the path of your Lord, [leading] straight”
(The ḥāl مُسْتَقِيمًا “straight” applies permanently to the person of ḥāl صِرَاطُ رَبِّكَ “path of your Lord”)

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38.11. Difference in meaning between the ḥāl and the attribute

The ḥāl and the the attribute are typically both sourced from adjectival nouns. And generally when you use the adjectival noun as a ḥāl it will have a different meaning from when it is used as a adjectival noun.

Consider the following two examples:

(1319) هَـٰذَا ٱلْفَرَسُ ٱلسَّابِقُ [معاني النحو 2/334]
“This is the foremost horse.”

(1320) هَـٰذَا ٱلْفَرَسُ سَابِقًا [معاني النحو 2/334]
“This is the horse (when it is) foremost”

The former sentence is describing the horse as being foremost, but not necessarily at the time when the speaker is pointing to it. So, at the moment of

pointing to it, the horse may actually be tethered. Whereas the latter sentence is describing the horse at the moment of pointing at it. It would likely be running and and being foremost at that time.

Similarly, consider:

(1321) أَقْبَلَ ٱلطَّالِبُ ٱلْمُقَصِّرُ [معاني النحو 2/333]
"The slacking student approached."

(1322) أَقْبَلَ ٱلطَّالِبُ مُقَصِّرًا [معاني النحو 2/333]
"The student approached (while) slacking."

The same distinction appiles to the above two examples. The former sentence describes the student as a slacker generally. But he may not be slacking at the moment when he is approaching. Whereas the latter sentence describes the student as slacking when he is approaching. He may not be a slacker in general.

However, there can sometimes be some overlap in meaning.[13] For example, in the scenario when all the following conditions are satisfied:

- the ḥāl has a transitory meaning,
- the meaning of the ḥāl is a description of motion or posture (like "sitting", "standing", "sleeping", "running", etc.),
- the person of ḥāl is indefinite,
- the governor is an expression that has verbal force (see section (ref)).

In such a case, the adjectival noun used as a attribute may have a somewhat similar meaning to it being used a ḥāl. For example:

(1323) فِيهَا رَجُلٌ قَائِمٌ
"In it (i.e. the house), is a standing man."
(attribute)

(1324) فِيهَا رَجُلٌ قَائِمًا
[سيبويه 1/272 cited by معاني النحو 2/352]
"In the house, is a man standing."
(ḥāl)

There may also be a case where the ḥāl is indistinguishable from the attribute due to the person of ḥāl being indefinite and in the a-case. For example:

(1325) رَأَيْتُ طَالِبًا مُقَصِّرًا [معاني النحو 2/352]
"I saw a student slacking."
or
"I saw a slacking student."

[13] See also سيبويه كتاب بهامش سعيد إبي شرح 1/272 cited by معاني النحو 2/350

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38.12. An primitive noun as the ḥāl

Because the ḥāl is a description of the person of ḥāl, and a description is likely to be a adjectival noun, and adjectival nouns are typically deverbal nouns, it therefore follows that the ḥāl is likely to be a deverbal noun. Most of the examples we have seen so far have been of the ḥāl as a deverbal noun. For example: رَاكِبًا, غَاضِبًا, etc. However, it is possible for the ḥāl to be primitive noun. Here are some examples:

(1326) طَلَعَ ٱلْقَمَرُ بَدْرًا [Wright 2/115A]
"The moon rose (as) a full moon."

(1327) كَرَّ زَيْدٌ أَسَدًا [Wright 2/115A]
"Zayd charged (like) a lion."

(1328) بِعْهُ مُدًّا بِدِرْهَمٍ [Wright 2/115A]
"Sell it (at the rate of) a mudd for a dirham"
(a mudd is a measure of volume)

(1329) بِعْتُ ٱلشَّاءَ شَاةً وَدِرْهَمًا [Wright 2/115A]
"I sold the sheep (at the rate of) a sheep [for] a dirham."

(1330) بَايَعْتُهُ يَدًا بِيَدٍ [Wright 2/115A]
"I traded with him hand in hand"
(i.e. for ready money)

(1331) بَيَّنْتُ لَهُ حِسَابَهُ بَابًا بَابًا [Wright 2/115A]
"I explained his account for him item by item."

(1332) دَخَلَ ٱلْقَوْمُ رَجُلًا رَجُلًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/30]
"The people entered, man by man."

(1333) كَلَّمْتُهُ فَاهُ إِلَىٰ فِيَّ [Wright 2/115B]
"I spoke to him his mouth to my mouth."
(i.e. face to face)

(1334) هَـٰذَا عِنَبًا أَطْيَبُ مِنْهُ زَبِيبًا [Wright 2/115B]
"This (fruit), as a grape, is better than it as a raisin."

(1335) وَكَذَٰلِكَ أَنْزَلْنَاهُ قُرْآنًا عَرَبِيًّا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/33 cited by سورة طه 20:113]
"And thus We have sent it down as an Arabic Qur'ān"

(1336) هَـٰذِهِ أَمْوَالُكَ ذَهَبًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/34]
"These are your wealths, as gold."

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(1337) هَـٰذِهِ فِضَّتُكَ خَاتَمًا [2/34 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
"This is your silver, as a ring."

(1338) هَـٰذَا خَاتَمُكَ فِضَّةً [2/34 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
"This is your ring, in silver"

TODO: add حال موطئة in Sheyhatovitch, "The concept of tawṭi'a"

38.13. A maṣdar as the ḥāl

The maṣdar can sometimes *appear* to be a ḥāl. For example:

(1339) أَقْبَلَ عَلِيٌّ رَكْضًا [2/345 معاني النحو]
"Ɛaliyy approached (in the state of) running."

In the above example, the opinion of some scholars would be that the maṣdar رَكْضًا is a ḥāl. And this is a substitute for saying أَقْبَلَ عَلِيٌّ رَاكِضًا.

When the maṣdar is used thus it remains in the indefinite singular regardless of the number of the persons of ḥāl. For example:

(1340) أَقْبَلَ ٱلْقَوْمُ رَكْضًا
"The people approached running."

The reasons for using a maṣdar رَكْضًا in this way instead of the adjectival noun رَاكِضًا may be:

i. Emphasis. The maṣdar signifies purely the meaning of the verb "to run". Whereas the adjectival noun signifies the meaning of the verb along with person described by the adjectival noun (the runner). So using the maṣdar as a ḥāl draws attention to the meaning of running rather than the person who is running. The maṣdar used in this way can also be seen as a sort of metaphor, as if Ɛaliyy, while executing the action of running, *became* the act of running.[14]

ii. Expanding the sense of the adverb to incorporate other adverbs. The maṣdar رَكْضًا, in the above example, can also be analyzed as an absolute object (being a deputy to the maṣdar إِقْبَال) meaning:

(1341) أَقْبَلَ عَلِيٌّ إِقْبَالَ رَكْضٍ [2/348 معاني النحو]
"Ɛaliyy approached (in) the type of approaching (that is) running."

[14] 2/348 معاني النحو

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> The use of the maṣdar in this way could then be used to intend both the ḥāl meaning and the absolute object meaning together. That is Ɛaliyy's type and state of approaching was running.
>
> Depending on the meaning of the maṣdar, other types of adverbs, like the adverb of reason, may be included in this expanded sense as well.[15]

Some scholars are conservative in analyzing a maṣdar as a ḥāl, and instead prefer that it be analyzed as another adverb, like a (deputy) absolute object or an adverb of reason, etc.[16] And if the meaning of the maṣdar does not allow it to be analyzed as another adverb, and only as a ḥāl then it is accepted as a permitted usage but one that is restricted to what has been recorded from Classical Arabic.

Here are some examples of maṣdars having being analyzed as ḥāl. They may fit other adverbs instead or as well.

(1342) قَتَلْتُهُ صَبْرًا [Wright 2/114C]
"I killed him in cold blood."

(1343) كَلَّمْتُهُ مُشَافَهَةً [2/12 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
"I spoke to him face to face."

(1344) يَدْعُونَ رَبَّهم خَوْفًا وطَمَعًا [32:16 سورة السجدة]
"they supplicate their Lord in fear and aspiration"
(خَوْفًا (above) is analyzed as either a adverb of reason or a ḥāl.[17])

(1345) ٱلَّذِينَ يُنْفِقُونَ أَمْوَالَهُمْ بِٱلَّيْلِ وَٱلنَّهَارِ سِرًّا وَعَلَانِيَةً [2:274 سورة البقرة]
"Those who spend their wealth [in Allāh's way] by night and by day, secretly and publicly"
(سِرًّا is analyzed as either a ḥāl or a attribute to a deleted absolute object إِنْفَاقًا.[18])

(1346) إِنَّ الَّذِينَ يَأْكُلُونَ أَمْوالَ اليَتامى ظُلْمًا [4:10 سورة النساء]
"Indeed, those who devour the property of orphans unjustly"
(ظُلْمًا (above) is analyzed as either a adverb of reason or a ḥāl.[19])

(1347) حَتَّىٰ إِذَا جَاءَتْهُمُ ٱلسَّاعَةُ بَغْتَةً [6:31 سورة الأنعام]
"until when the Hour [of resurrection] comes upon them unexpectedly"
(بَغْتَةً (above) is analyzed as either a ḥāl or a absolute object.[20])

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[15] 2/348 معاني النحو
[16] See مجموع مقالات فيصل المنصور 529–530; Sadan, "Which verbal nouns can function as adverbial accusatives of state or condition (ḥāl) according to Sībawayhi and later grammarians?"
[17] See البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة السجدة 32:16
[18] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة البقرة 2:274
[19] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة النساء 4:10
[20] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الأنعام 6:30

38.14. A sentence as the ḥāl

In the examples so far, the ḥāl has always been a single word, usually an adjectival noun. For example, جَاءَ زَيْدٌ ضَاحِكًا "Zayd came laughing". Instead, of using the adjectival noun ضَاحِكًا, we can instead use the u-case PC verb يَضْحَكُ:

(1348) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ يَضْحَكُ [Wright, 2/331C]
"Zayd came laughing."

Actually, يَضْحَكُ is not just a verb. Rather, it is a complete sentence comprising of the verb itself and the doer which, in this case, is the hidden pronoun "he". So the ḥāl here is a sentence.

As we know, the ḥāl describes the person of ḥāl during time of ḥāl's governing verb. The use of the PC verb يَضْحَكُ signifies that Zayd's action of laughing was ongoing during the time of the governor جَاءَ. So يَضْحَكُ has a past meaning because of the SC verb جَاءَ. An additional verb like كَانَ is not needed to transport the verb يَضْحَكُ to the past. Similarly, if the governor was in the present or the future, the PC verb in the ḥāl would automatically be transported to the present or future as well. For example:

(1349) سَيَأْتِي زَيْدٌ يَضْحَكُ
"Zayd will come laughing."

In fact, it is not permitted for the ḥāl sentence that begins with the PC verb to itself be prefixed with سَ or سَوْفَ.[21] So we cannot say (intending سَيَضْحَكُ to be a ḥāl):

(1350) ✗ سَيَأْتِي زَيْدٌ سَيَضْحَكُ or
✗ يَأْتِي زَيْدٌ سَيَضْحَكُ

This restriction only applies to PC verbs that begin a sentence ḥāl. If a PC verb begins a sentence that is not a ḥāl then it may begin with سَ or سَوْفَ. For example:

(1351) وَقَالَ إِنِّي ذَاهِبٌ إِلَىٰ رَبِّي سَيَهْدِينِ [سورة الصافات 37:99]
"And [then] he said, 'Indeed, I will go to [where I am ordered by] my Lord; He will guide me."

Here are some more examples of sentence ḥāls comprised of a PC verb and a doer (or deputy doer) pronoun:

(1352) وَجَاءُوا أَبَاهُمْ عِشَاءً يَبْكُونَ [سورة يوسف 12:16]
"And they came to their father at night, weeping."

[21] معاني النحو 2/354 citing شرح الرضي على الكافية. But see تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة الصافات 37:99 for a dissenting opinion.

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38.14.1. The link between the sentence ḥāl and the person of ḥāl

The sentence comprising of only the PC verb and its doer is the simplest, and one of the most common, kind of ḥāl sentence. However, more complex ḥāl sentences are also possible. And the person of ḥāl need not always be the doer of the verb in the sentence.

But the sentence ḥāl needs to have a link between it and the person of ḥāl. This link is often a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. In the examples above this link pronoun was the doer pronoun of the PC verb. Here is an example of a more complex ḥāl sentence:

(1353) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ يَدُهُ عَلَىٰ رَأْسِهِ [Wright, 2/331A]
"Zayd came (with) his hand on his head."

In the example above, the sentence يَدُهُ عَلَىٰ رَأْسِهِ is the ḥāl. Note that يَد is in the u-case because it is the subject of the sentence. It is not in the a-case because it is not, by itself, the ḥāl. The entire sentence يَدُهُ عَلَىٰ رَأْسِهِ is considered to be in the a-case as the ḥāl. The link is the pronoun ه in يَدُهُ and رَأْسِهِ.

Here are some more examples:

(1354) ٱهْبِطُوا بَعْضُكُمْ لِبَعْضٍ عَدُوٌّ [سورة البقرة 2:36]
"Go down, [all of you], as enemies to one another"
(The sentence بَعْضُكُمْ لِبَعْضٍ عَدُوٌّ is the ḥāl. The link is the pronoun كُمْ in بَعْضُكُمْ.)

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38.15. The و of ḥāl and its rules

Instead of, or in addition to, a pronoun as the link between the sentence ḥāl and the person of ḥāl, a special و, called the و *of ḥāl*, may be used. The و of ḥāl signifies that the sentence ḥāl occurred *while* the governing verb took place. Here are some examples of the the و of ḥāl:

(1355) قَامَ زَيْدٌ وَهُوَ بَاكٍ [Wright 2/330C]
"Zayd stood up while he was crying."

(1356) أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم مَرَّ بِسَعْدٍ وَهُوَ يَتَوَضَّأُ [سنن ابن ماجه: 425]
"that the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ passed by Saʿd while he was performing ablution"

We have defined the ḥāl as an adverb that describes the person of ḥāl. However, sometimes, the ḥāl sentence that is linked with a و of ḥāl won't apparently describe

the person of ḥāl. In fact, it may not even refer to the person of ḥāl at all. For example:

(1357) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ وَعَمْرٌو يَشْتَغِلُ [Wright 2/331A]
"Zayd went while Ɛamr was busy."

In the example above, the ḥāl's description of the person of ḥāl is only circumstantial, in that it alludes to the time in which the action of the governing verb occurred. In such cases the meaning of the ḥāl approaches that of the adverb of time. This is another of the cases where the lines between different types of adverbs get blurred. We have seen similar cases in sections (ref). Here are some more examples:

Depending on the sentence, the و of ḥāl can be either mandatory, optional, or disallowed.

Let's go over the different types of ḥāl sentences, and discuss the ruling of the و of ḥāl in each type of sentence.

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38.15.1. The ḥāl sentence is a nounal sentence

When the ḥāl sentence is a nounal sentence, then there are three possibilities:

i. The ḥāl sentence is devoid of a pronoun referring back to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the و of ḥāl is obligatory. For example:

(1358) مَرَرْتُ بِزَيْدٍ وَعَمْرٌو فِي ٱلدَّارِ [المقتضب للمبرد 4/125 cited by وجوب الربط بالواو لعبد الجبار فتحي زيدان]
"I passed by Zayd while Ɛamr (was) in the house."

In the above example the person of ḥāl is زَيْد and the ḥāl is the nounal sentence عَمْرٌو فِي ٱلدَّارِ. The sentence ḥāl does not have a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. Therefore the و of ḥāl is necessary to link the sentence ḥāl to the person of ḥāl.

We have also already seen this usage in example (1357) ذَهَبَ زَيْدٌ وَعَمْرٌو يَشْتَغِلُ. Here are more examples:

(1359) كَمَا أَخْرَجَكَ رَبُّكَ مِنْ بَيْتِكَ بِٱلْحَقِّ وَإِنَّ فَرِيقًا مِّنَ ٱلْمُؤْمِنِينَ لَكَارِهُونَ [سورة الأنفال 8:5 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58]
"[It is] just as when your Lord brought you out of your home [for the battle of Badr] in truth, while indeed, a party among the believers were unwilling,"

(1360) قَالُوا لَئِنْ أَكَلَهُ ٱلذِّئْبُ وَنَحْنُ عُصْبَةٌ [سورة يوسف 12:14 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58]
"They said, 'If a wolf should eat him while we are a [strong] clan,"

ii. The sentence ḥāl begins with a pronoun that refers to person of ḥāl. In this case as well, the و of ḥāl is obligatory. The link between the sentence ḥāl and the person of ḥāl is now both the pronoun and the و of ḥāl. We saw this usage in examples (1355) قَامَ زَيْدٌ وَهَوَ بَاكٍ and (1356) أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم مَرَّ بِسَعْدٍ وَهُوَ يَتَوَضَّأُ.

Here are some more examples:

(1361) لَا تَقْرَبُوا ٱلصَّلَاةَ وَأَنتُمْ سُكَارَىٰ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58] cited by سورة النساء 4:43]
"do not approach prayer while you are intoxicated"

(1362) كَذَبْتُمْ وَأَنْتُمْ تَعْلَمُونَ [Wright 2/330D]
"You lied, knowing (that you did so)."

(1363) وَلَا يَأْتُونَ الصَّلَاةَ إِلَّا وَهُمْ كُسَالَى [سورة التوبة 9:54]
"and that they come not to prayer except while they are lazy"

Some grammarians admitted optionally dropping the و of ḥāl in this case to allow sentences like:

(1364) جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ هُوَ فَارِسٌ [وجوب الربط بالواو لعبد الجبار cited by 2/317 معاني القرآن وإعرابه للزجاج فتحي زيدان]
"Zayd came to me while he (was) on horseback."
(instead of the more normal usage with the و of ḥāl: جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ وَهُوَ فَارِسٌ)

But this opinion is considered anomalous by the majority of the grammarians.[22]

iii. The ḥāl sentence has a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl but it does not begin the ḥāl sentence. In this case, the و of ḥāl is optional. But generally, it will be preferred to have the و of ḥāl. For example:

(1365) جَاءَ مُحَمَّدٌ وَيَدُهُ فِي جَيْبِهِ. [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/61] (more preferred)
جَاءَ مُحَمَّدٌ يَدُهُ فِي جَيْبِهِ. [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/61] (less preferred)
Muḥammad came (with) his hand in his pocket."

If the ḥāl sentence's info is a quasi-sentence (consisting of an prepositional or adverbial phrase), and the info precedes the subject, then dropping the و of ḥāl is normal.[23] For example:

(1366) جَاء زَيْدٌ فِي يَدِهِ سَوْطٌ
"Zayd came (with) a whip in his hand."
(The ḥāl sentence is فِي يَدِهِ سَوْطٌ. Its info فِي يَدِهِ precedes its subject سَوْطٌ.)

[22] وجوب الربط بالواو لعبد الجبار فتحي زيدان
[23] 1/203 دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني

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38.15.2. The ḥāl sentence is a verbal sentence that begins with a SC verb

There are several possible cases here:

i. The ḥāl sentence is devoid of a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. In this case the و of ḥāl is mandatory. Furthermore, if the ḥāl sentence is affirmative, the SC verb shall be preceded by the particle قَدْ. And if the ḥāl sentence is negative, the SC verb shall not be preceded by the particle قَدْ. Examples:

(1367) جِئْتُ وَقَدْ طَلَعَتِ ٱلشَّمْسُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58]
"I came while the sun had already risen."

(1368) جِئْتُ وَمَا طَلَعَتِ ٱلشَّمْسُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/58]
"I came while the sun had not risen."

ii. The ḥāl sentence has a pronoun that refers back to the person of ḥāl. In this case the و of ḥāl is optional. Furthermore, if the ḥāl sentence is affirmative, the SC verb can optionally be preceded by the particle قَدْ. And if the ḥāl sentence is negative, the SC verb shall not be preceded by the particle قَدْ. Here are some examples:

Affirmative with و of ḥāl and with قَدْ. (This is the most common case.):

(1369) وَمَا لَنَا أَلَّا نُقَاتِلَ فِى سَبِيلِ ٱللَّهِ وَقَدْ أُخْرِجْنَا مِنْ دِيَارِنَا وَأَبْنَائِنَا [سورة البقرة 2:246 cited by Wright 2/332B]
"And why should we not fight in the cause of Allāh when we have been driven out from our homes and from our children?"

Affirmative with و of ḥāl and without قَدْ:

(1370) قَالُوا أَنُؤْمِنُ لَكَ وَٱتَّبَعَكَ ٱلْأَرْذَلُونَ [سورة الشعراء 26:111 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/62]
"They said, 'Should we believe you while you are followed by the lowest [class of people]?' "

Affirmative without و of ḥāl and without قَدْ:

(1371) أَوْ جَاءُوكُمْ حَصِرَتْ صُدُورُهُمْ أَنْ يُقَاتِلُوكُمْ [سورة النساء 4:90 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/62 and Wright 2/332B]
"or those who come to you, their hearts strained at [the prospect of] fighting you"

Affirmative without و of ḥāl and with قَدْ:

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(1372) رَأَيْنَاهُ قَدْ تَغَيَّرَ لِزَيْدٍ وَكَانَ عَلَىٰ جُنْدِهِ [Wright 2/332C]
"We saw him (when) he had changed [color due to being enraged] at Zayd who (was) [in command of] his army."

Negative with و of ḥāl (more common):

(1373) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ وَمَا قَامَ أَبُوهُ [Wright 2/332D]
"Zayd came without his father having stood up."

Negative without و of ḥāl (less common):

(1374) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ مَا قَامَ أَبُوهُ [Wright 2/332D]
"Zayd came without his father having stood up."

iii. The ḥāl sentence is an exception, preceded by إِلَّا. In this case the و of ḥāl is prohibited. For example:

(1375) وَمَا يَأْتِيهِم مِّن رَّسُولٍ إِلَّا كَانُوا بِهِ يَسْتَهْزِءُونَ [النحو العربي: cited by 15:11 سورة الحجر 2/61 أحكام ومعان]
"And no messenger would come to them except that they ridiculed him."
(The sentence كَانُوا بِهِ يَسْتَهْزِءُونَ is the ḥāl beginning with a SC verb.)

Some grammarians allowed the و of ḥāl in this case, but the examples they cite are considered irregular to normal usage.[24]

iv. The SC verb is followed by the conjunction أَوْ. In this case, the SC verb is used with a conditional meaning. For example:

(1376) أَحْفَظُ زَوْجِي غَابَ أَوْ حَضَرَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/61]

(1377) لأضربنَّه ذهب أو مكث [أوضح المسالك لابن and حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان هشام 2/289]
"I will certainly beat him [whether] he went or stayed."

38.15.3. The ḥāl sentence is a verbal sentence that begins with a PC verb

When a sentence ḥāl begins with a PC verb, then, if the PC is used with a continuous meaning (i.e. not with لَمْ or لَمَّا), then the ḥāl sentence will contain a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. If the PC is used with a past meaning (i.e. with لَمْ or لَمَّا), then the ḥāl sentence may or may not have a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl.[25]

[24] حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان

[25] Derived from sections علّة امتناع ربط المضارع المنفي بـ(لا) و(ما) and علةُ امتناع ربط المضارع المثبت بالواو حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان in بالواو

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There are again a number of possible cases.

i. The sentence is affirmative and the PC verb is preceded by the particle قَدْ. In this case, the و of ḥāl is obligatory. For example,

(1378) لِمَ تُؤْذُونَنِى وَقَدْ تَعْلَمُونَ أَنِّى رَسُولُ ٱللَّهِ إِلَيْكُمْ [سورة الصف 61:5 cited by Wright 2/331C]
"why do you harm me while you certainly know that I am the messenger of Allāh to you?"

ii. The sentence is affirmative and the PC verb is not preceded by the particle قَدْ. We assume here that the sentence ḥāl contains a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl.

In this case, the و of ḥāl is usually not used. We have already seen examples of this case earlier, like (1348) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ يَضْحَكُ and (1352) وَجَاءُوا أَبَاهُمْ عِشَاءً يَبْكُونَ.

Here are some more examples:

(1379) جَاءَ ٱلْأَمِيرُ تُقَادُ ٱلْجَنَائِبُ بَيْنَ يَدَيْهِ [Wright 2/331C]
"The commander came with the horses led in front of him."
(جَنَائِب is the plural of جَنِيب which is a word for a tractable horse that is led.)

(1380) وَجَاءَ رَجُلٌ مِنْ أَقْصَى ٱلْمَدِينَةِ يَسْعَىٰ [سورة القصص 28:20]
"And a man came from the farthest end of the city, running."

What we have shown above constitutes the more common usage. However, we do sometimes see a ḥāl sentence beginning with a PC verb with the و of ḥāl and without قَدْ. For example,

(1381) قُمْتُ وَأَصُكُّ عَيْنَهُ [حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي: أحكام ومعان 2/59 and النحو العربي زيدان]
"I stood up, slapping his eye."

More usually though, if a و of ḥāl is to be used with a PC verb, then a pronoun referring to the doer is inserted before it, converting the ḥāl sentence to a nounal sentence, thus:

(1382) قُمْتُ وَأَنَا أَصُكُّ عَيْنَهُ
"I stood up, slapping his eye."

We have already covered this type of ḥāl sentence in section (ref) above.

iii. The sentence is negative and the PC verb is negated with لَا or مَا. We again assume here that the sentence ḥāl contains a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the و of ḥāl is prohibited.

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(1383) وَمَا لَنَا لَا نُؤْمِنُ بِٱللَّهِ [سورة المائدة 5:84 cited by أحكام ومعان النحو العربي: 2/59 and أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 2/289]
"And why should we not believe in Allāh"

(1384) عَهَدْتُكَ مَا تَصْبُو وَفِيكَ شَبِيبَةٌ [أحكام ومعان النحو العربي: 2/60 and أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 2/290]
"I knew you when you were not childish while [you had] in you youth."
(مَا تَصْبُوا "You were not childish" is a sentence ḥāl)

iv. The sentence is negative and the PC verb is negated with لَمْ. Here, the sentence ḥāl need not contain a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the و of ḥāl is usually kept, although it is permissible to drop it. For example:

(1385) أَوْ قَالَ أُوحِيَ إِلَيَّ وَلَمْ يُوحَ إِلَيْهِ شَيْءٌ [سورة الأنعام 6:93 cited by أحكام ومعان النحو العربي: 2/60]
"or says, 'It has been inspired to me,' while nothing has been inspired to him"

(1386) فَٱنْقَلَبُوا بِنِعْمَةٍ مِنَ ٱللَّهِ وَفَضْلٍ لَمْ يَمْسَسْهُمْ سُوءٌ [سورة الأنعام 6:93 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/60]
"So they returned with favor from Allāh and bounty, no harm having touched them."

(1387) أَقْبَلَ مُحَمَّدٌ وَلَمْ يَحْمِلْ كُتُبَهُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/60]
أَقْبَلَ سَعِيدٌ لَمْ يَحْمِلْ كُتُبَهُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/60]
"Muḥammad/Saɛīd approached while he didn't carry his books."

If the sentence ḥāl does not have a pronoun that links to the person of ḥāl then the و of ḥāl is to be used. For example:

(1388) أَقْبَلَ سَعِيدٌ وَلَمْ تَطْلُعِ ٱلشَّمْسُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/60]
"Saɛīd approached while the sun had not risen."

(1389) وَلَقَدْ خَشِيتُ بِأَنْ أَمُوتَ وَلَمْ تَدُرْ لِلْحَرْبِ دَائِرَةٌ عَلَى ابْنَيْ ضَمْضَمِ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/60]
"And indeed I feared that I would die, while a turn [of misfortune] had not [yet] turned, in battle, on the two sons of D͡ham͡d͡ham"
(وَلَمْ تَدُرْ لِلْحَرْبِ دَائِرَةٌ is the sentence ḥāl)

v. The sentence is negative and the PC verb is negated with لَمَّا. Here again, the sentence ḥāl need not contain a pronoun that refers to the person of ḥāl. In this case, the و of ḥāl is typically chosen to be used.[26] For example:

(1390) أَمْ حَسِبْتُمْ أَن تَدْخُلُوا ٱلْجَنَّةَ وَلَمَّا يَعْلَمِ ٱللَّهُ ٱلَّذِينَ جَاهَدُوا مِنكُمْ وَيَعْلَمَ ٱلصَّابِرِينَ [سورة آل عمران 3:142]

[26] From إعراب القرآن للدرويش for سورة الأعراف 7:4: وإن كانت منفية ب «لما» فالمختار ربطها بالواو

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> "Or do you think that you will enter Paradise while Allāh has not yet made evident those of you who fight in His cause and made evident those who are steadfast?"

38.15.4. The sentence ḥāl strengthens the meaning of the preceding sentence as a whole

Sometimes the ḥāl describes, not just a single word as the person of ḥāl but the preceding sentence as a whole. (See section (ref)). If the ḥāl is itself a sentence, then the و of ḥāl is not used.

For example:

(1391) ذَٰلِكَ ٱلْكِتَابُ لَا رَيْبَ فِيهِ [سورة البقرة 2:2 cited by أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 2/289 and حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان]

"This is the Book about which there is no doubt"

(The sentence لَا رَيْبَ فِيهِ, in this interpretation, is analyzed as a ḥāl to the preceding sentence ذَٰلِكَ ٱلْكِتَابُ.)

38.15.5. The sentence ḥāl is a post-conjunction

If a sentence ḥāl is preceded by a conjunction (see section (multiple hals) above), then an additional و of ḥāl is not typically tacked on to the conjunction.

For example:

(1392) فَجَاءَهَا بَأْسُنَا بَيَاتًا أَوْ هُمْ قَائِلُونَ [سورة الأعراف 7:4]

"and Our punishment came to them at night or while they were sleeping at noon."

(An additional و of ḥāl is not tacked on to the conjunction أَوْ.)

However, according to some grammarians, a و of ḥāl, can be added to the conjunction and it would be acceptable.[27] For example:

(1393) أَتَيْتَنِى وَالِيًا أَوْ وَأَنَا مَعْزُولٌ [سورة الأعراف 7:4 for معاني القرآن للفراء]

"You came to me, while I was adjacent, or while I was remote."

[27] معاني القرآن للفراء citing حالات الربط بواو الحال الجبار فتحي زيدان

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38.16. Purposes of the و of ḥāl

The و of ḥāl essentially distances the ḥāl from the influence of the governing verb.[28] For example, consider the expression:

(1394) جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ يُسْرِعُ [دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني 1/213]
"Zayd came to me hastening."

The above example is almost equivalent to saying جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ مُسْرِعًا. The ḥāl يُسْرِعُ is tightly bound to the governor جَاءَ. So the expression asserts Zayd's coming and his hastening as one assertion.

Consider now the expression with the و of ḥāl:

(1395) جَاءَنِي زَيْدٌ وَهُوَ يُسْرِعُ [دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني 1/214]
"Zayd came to me while he was hastening."

Here the ḥāl sentence وَهُوَ يُسْرِعُ is a more independent assertion. Now, the only link between the ḥāl and its governing verb is that the ḥāl expresses the state of the person of ḥāl when the action of the governing verb took place.

The و of ḥāl can be used for a different purposes. We will list them below. In the following discussion, there will be three distinct expressions that we will refer to:

i. The و of ḥāl
ii. The ḥāl sentence which follows the و of ḥāl
iii. The *preceding statement* which precedes the و of ḥāl

Here are some purposes of the و of ḥāl:

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the event in the preceding statement took place at the time when the ḥāl occurred. For example:

(1396) جَاءَ زَيْدٌ وٱلشَّمْسُ طَالِعَةٌ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 606 cited by معاني النحو 2/361]
"Zayd came when the sun was risen."

(1397) سَأَزُورُكَ وٱلْقَمَرُ طَالِعٌ [معاني النحو 2/367]
"I will visit you when the moon is risen."

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the person of ḥāl was already in the state described by the ḥāl before the event in the preceding statement occurred. For example:

[28] دلائل الإعجاز للجرجاني 1/213–214 cited by معاني النحو 357–358

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(1398) وَمَا لَنَا أَلَّا نُقَاتِلَ فِي سَبِيلِ ٱللَّهِ وَقَدْ أُخْرِجْنَا مِنْ دِيَارِنَا وَأَبْنَائِنَا [سورة البقرة 2:246 cited by معاني النحو 2/368]
" "And why should we not fight in the cause of Allāh when we have been driven out from our homes and from our children?"

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the ḥāl after it is something obvious and should be taken into account, when considering the preceding statement. For example:

(1399) أَمْ حَسِبْتُمْ أَنْ تَدْخُلُوا ٱلْجَنَّةَ وَلَمَّا يَأْتِكُمْ مَثَلُ ٱلَّذِينَ خَلَوْا مِنْ قَبْلِكُمْ [سورة البقرة 2:214 cited by معاني النحو 2/367]
"Or do you think that you will enter Paradise while such [trial] has not yet come to you as came to those who passed on before you?"

(1400) أَرَأَيْتَ لَوْ مَضْمَضْتَ مِنَ الْمَاءِ وَأَنْتَ صَائِمٌ [سنن أبي داود: 2385]
"What do you think if you rinse your mouth with water while you are fasting?"

- The و of ḥāl indicates that the ḥāl sentence is is describing something extraordinary. For example:

(1401) عَبَرَ ٱلنَّهْرَ وَلَمْ يُحَرِّكْ يَدَهُ [معاني النحو 2/368]
"He crossed the river while not (even) moving his hand!"

(1402) دَخَلَ عَلَى ٱلْأَمِيرِ وَبِيَدِهِ سَيْفُهُ [معاني النحو 2/368]
"He entered upon the commander while in his hand was his sword!"

- To differentiate between a ḥāl and a attribute. For example:

(1403) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا عِنْدَهُ مَالٌ [معاني النحو 2/368]
"I saw a man (who) had wealth."
(The sentence عِنْدَهُ مَالٌ can be analyzed as a attribute.)

(1404) رَأَيْتُ رَجُلًا وَعِنْدَهُ مَالٌ [معاني النحو 2/368]
"I saw a man while he had wealth."
(The sentence عِنْدَهُ مَالٌ can only be analyzed as a ḥāl.)

There may be other purposes as well.[29]

38.17. A quasi-sentence as the ḥāl

(Compare this section to section (ref).) A quasi-sentence, in this context, is a prepositional or adverbial phrase. For example: عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ "on the branch" and بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ "between the clouds".

[29] معاني النحو 2/368–369

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Just like a complete sentence, a quasi-sentence too may occur as a ḥāl. For example:

(1405) رَأَيْتُ ٱلْهِلَالَ بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ [2/285 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام]
"I saw the crescent between the clouds."
(بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ is analyzed as a ḥāl.)

(1406) نَظَرْتُ ٱلْعُصْفُورَ عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ [3/101 جامع الدروس العربية لمصطفى الغلاييني]
"I looked at the sparrow on the branch."

(1407) كتب عمر إلى أبي عبيدة بالشام [2/52 الأصول في النحو لابن السراج]
"Ɛumar wrote to Abī Ɛubaydah in Syria."

(1408) فَخَرَجَ عَلَىٰ قَوْمِهِ فِى زِينَتِهِ [28:79 سورة القصص cited by 2/285 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام]
"So he came out before his people in his adornment."
(فِى زِينَتِهِ is analyzed as a ḥāl.[30])

(1409) وَيُكَلِّمُ ٱلنَّاسَ فِي ٱلْمَهْدِ [3:46 سورة آل عمران]
"He will speak to the people in the cradle"
(فِي ٱلْمَهْدِ has been analyzed as a ḥāl.[31])

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Now, you might be thinking: Didn't we learn in chapter (ref) that بَيْنَ is an adverb of place? So why are we now saying that it is a ḥāl?

Well, first of all, we are saying that the quasi-sentence بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ is a ḥāl, not just بَيْنَ. Secondly, we say that the quasi-sentence is a ḥāl only loosely speaking.

Remember that an adverb of time or place is governed by a verb. And the adverb of time or place indicates the time or place where the action of the verb occurred. In a sentence like (1405) رَأَيْتُ ٱلْهِلَالَ بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ, the crescent was between the clouds before the action of seeing took place. So, in this case, we say that بَيْنَ is an adverb of place, but it is governed, not by the verb رَأَىٰ, but by an implied general beingness (see section (ref)) So it is as if we are saying:

"I saw the crescent (while it was) [being] between the clouds."

And it is this implied general beingness which is technically the ḥāl.[32] While بَيْنَ remains (technically) an adverb of place.

Because the actual ḥāl "being" is (necessarily) unexpressed and only implied, we can loosely say that the quasi-sentence بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ is a ḥāl.

Similarly, in example (1406) نَظَرْتُ ٱلْعُصْفُورَ عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ, the prepositional phrase عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ is governed, not by the verb نَظَرَ but by an implied verb "being" which is the true ḥāl. But, loosely speaking, we may say that the quasi-sentence عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ is the ḥāl.

[30] See تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة القصص 28:79
[31] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة آل عمران 3:46
[32] جامع الدروس العربية لمصطفى الغلاييني 3/101

Similarly, in example (1407) كتب عمر إلى أبي عبيدة بالشام, the act of writing was dony by Ɛumar in al-Ḥijāz, not in Syria. So the prepositional phrase بالشام is describing the state of Abū Ɛubaydah while he was in Syria.

This is yet another instance of where the lines between different types of adverbs get blurred. In fact, some grammarians have classified the ḥāl to be of the same class of adverbs as the adverb of time and the adverb of place.[33]

From the perspective of meaning, the quasi-sentence بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ "between the clouds" describes the state of the person of ḥāl ٱلْهِلَالُ during the occurrence of the verb رَأَىٰ. Similarly, the quasi-sentence عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ "on the branch" describes the state of the person of ḥāl ٱلْعُصْفُور during the occurrence of the verb نَظَرَ.

Here is an example of where the quasi-sentence does not work as a ḥāl:

(1410) وَقَعَ ٱلْحَجَرُ فِي ٱلْحُفْرَةِ
"The stone fell in the pit."

In the above example, the stone went in the pit due to the action of the verb وَقَعَ. So the preposition فِي is governed by the verb وَقَعَ. Because فِي is not governed by an implied governor meaning "being", therefore, the quasi-sentence فِي ٱلْحُفْرَةِ is not a ḥāl.

One indicator to test if the quasi-sentence is valid as ḥāl in any particular sentence, is to insert a و of ḥāl and a pronoun (referring to the person of ḥāl) before the quasi-sentence (thus making it a complete sentence). The purpose of the و of ḥāl, here, is to make the ḥāl a pre-existing state. If the resulting expression (with the و of ḥāl is interpreted as making the ḥāl a pre-existing state) retains the same meaning as the original, then the quasi-sentence could be valid as a ḥāl. Let's use this test on some of the examples above.

(1411) وَقَعَ ٱلْحَجَرُ وَهُوَ فِي ٱلْحُفْرَةِ
"The stone fell while it had already been in the pit."
(This does not retain the same meaning as the original وَقَعَ ٱلْحَجَرُ فِي ٱلْحُفْرَةِ. So the quasi-sentence in the original example is not a ḥāl.)

(1412) رَأَيْتُ ٱلْهِلَالَ وَهُوَ بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ
"I saw the crescent while it had already been between the clouds."
(This retains the meaning of the original رَأَيْتُ ٱلْهِلَالَ بَيْنَ ٱلسَّحَابِ. So the quasi-sentence in the original example is valid as a ḥāl.)

(1413) نَظَرْتُ ٱلْعُصْفُورَ وَهُوَ عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ
"I looked at the sparrow while it had already been on the branch."
(This retains the meaning of the original نَظَرْتُ ٱلْعُصْفُورَ عَلَى ٱلْغُصْنِ. So the quasi-sentence in the original example is valid as a ḥāl.)

[33] المقتضب للمبرد 4/166

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There may be examples where a quasi-sentence could be validly interpreted either as a ḥāl (governed by an implied governor meaning "being"), or as governed by an overt verb.[34] For example:

(1414) رأيتُ زيدًا في الدار [2/52 الأصول في النحو لابن السراج]
"I saw Zayd in the house."

Without context, the prepositional phrase في الدار could either be governed by رَأَىٰ, signifying that the act of seeing was done in the house. Or it could be governed by the implication of general beingness, as a ḥāl for زَيْد.[35]

A quasi-sentence can only be a ḥāl if it is governed by an implied (unexpressed) governor. This implicated governor will typically be general beingness, as in the examples above.[36] In fact, some grammarians insist that the implied governor can only be general beingness.[37] However, it is conceivable that the implied governor of the preposition be interpreted, if not formally then at least in meaning, as some other verb (or verbal noun).[38] For example:

(1415) رَبَّنَا وَءَاتِنَا مَا وَعَدتَّنَا عَلَىٰ رُسُلِكَ [3:194 سورة آل عمران]
"Our Lord, and grant us what You promised us through Your messengers"

In one interpretation of the above āyah, the prepositional phrase عَلَىٰ رُسُلِكَ "through Your messengers" has been analyzed as ḥāl of مَا وَعَدتَّنَا "what You promised us" The meaning with the implicated governor has been explained as مُنَزَّلًا عَلَيْهِمْ "*sent down* on [Your messengers]."[39]

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38.18. Interpreting a sentence as a ḥāl vs. a attribute

We have just seen how a sentence (or quasi-sentence) can be intrepreted as a ḥāl. And we already know that a sentence (or quasi-sentence) can be intrepreted as a attribute. So how can we tell when a sentence (or quasi-sentence) is a ḥāl vs. when it is a attribute?

We may use the following guidelines[40]:

[34] See also, for example, the tafsīr of تَحْتَ ٱلشَّجَرَةِ in البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الفتح 48:18
[35] 2/52 الأصول في النحو لابن السراج
[36] 1/213 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية, 2/285 أوضح المسالك لابن هشام
[37] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة آل عمران 3:194 (مَا وَعَدْتَنَا عَلَىٰ رُسُلِكَ)
[38] 2/447 النحو الوافي footnote
[39] تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة آل عمران 3:194
[40] 560 مغني اللبيب لابن هشام

- When a sentence (or quasi-sentence) occurs after a specific definite noun, then it will be a ḥāl.
- And when a sentence (or quasi-sentence) occurs after a unspecified indefinite noun, then it will be a attribute.
- And when a sentence (or quasi-sentence) occurs after a generic definite noun or an specified indefinite noun then it may be interpreted as either a ḥāl or a attribute.

  However, in this case when both the attribute and the ḥāl interpretations are possible, one may still be preferred over the other depending on what the overall meaning and context demands.[41]

  This is because when a sentence is interpreted as a ḥāl then it will be describing the state of the person of ḥāl. And when a sentence is interpreted as a attribute then it will be specifying or identifying the attributed-to.

What we mean by a *specific definite* noun is one that refers to a specific entity. Not one that refers to a generic type (for which Arabic also uses the definite).

For example, in the sentence زَيْدٌ فِي ٱلدَّارِ "Zayd is in the house," زَيْدٌ is a specific definite noun because it refers to a specific person. On the other hand, if we say ٱلْفِيلُ حَيَوانٌ "The elephant is an animal," then we may be using ٱلْفِيل to refer to the species, and not a specific elephant. In this case, ٱلْفِيل is a *generic definite* noun.

And what we mean by an unspecified indefinite noun is one that is not restricted by a attribute or other qualifier. So it is applicable to any entity denoted by that noun. For example, رَجُل in فِي ٱلدَّارِ رَجُلٌ is an unspecified indefinite noun. But in فِي ٱلدَّارِ رَجُلٌ خَيْرٍ and فِي ٱلدَّارِ رَجُلٌ كَبِيرٌ it is a specified indefinite noun.

Here are some examples of sentences analyzed as attributes or ḥāls:

(1416) حَتَّىٰ تُنَزِّلَ عَلَيْنَا كِتَابًا نَقْرَؤُهُ [سورة الإسراء 17:93 cited by مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 560]
"until you bring down to us a book we may read"
(نَقْرَؤُهُ is analyzed as a attribute because كِتَاب is an unspecified indefinite noun.)

(1417) فَلَقَدْ رَأَيْتُهُ يَقِيهَا مِنَ الْحِجَارَةِ بِنَفْسِهِ [صحيح مسلم :1699a]
"for indeed I saw him protecting her from the stones with his [body]."
(يَقِيهَا is analyzed as a ḥāl because the pronoun ه in رَأَيْتُهُ is a specific definite noun.)

(1418) وَقَالُوا لَوْلَا نُزِّلَ هَـٰذَا ٱلْقُرْءَانُ عَلَىٰ رَجُلٍ مِنَ ٱلْقَرْيَتَيْنِ عَظِيمٍ [سورة الزخرف 43:31]
And they said, "Why was this Qur'ān not sent down upon a great man from

[41] النحو الوافي 3/477

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[one of] the two cities?"
(مِنَ ٱلْقَرْيَتَيْنِ is a attribute to رَجُل. عَظِيم is a second attribute.)

(1419) كَمَثَلِ ٱلْحِمَارِ يَحْمِلُ أَسْفَارًا [سورة الجمعة 62:5 cited by مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 561]
"is like that of a donkey who carries volumes [of books]"
(ٱلْحِمَارِ is a generic definite noun. So, the sentence يَحْمِلُ أَسْفَارًا has been analyzed as either a ḥāl or a attribute.[42])

Consider now the following example:

(1420) وَقَالَ رَجُلٌ مُؤْمِنٌ مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ [سورة غافر 40:28]
"And a believing man from the family of Pharaoh who concealed his faith said,"

In the above example, there are two (quasi-) sentences after the first attribute مُؤْمِن:

i. مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ
ii. يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ

There are now multiple possible interpretations:
Since رَجُلٌ is now a specified indefinite noun (having been described by the attribute مُؤْمِنٌ) it is permissible for both مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ and يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ to be ḥāls. Or مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ can be a attribute and يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ can be a ḥāl. Or both مِنْ آلِ فِرْعَوْنَ and يَكْتُمُ إِيمَانَهُ can be attributes.[43]

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38.19. Multiple ḥāls when one or more is a sentence or quasi-sentence

From section (ref) earlier in this chapter, we learned that there may be more than one ḥāl for one person of ḥāl. These multiple ḥāls may consist of sentence and quasi-sentence ḥāls. For example:

(1421) فَنَادَتْهُ ٱلْمَلَائِكَةُ وَهُوَ قَائِمٌ يُصَلِّى فِى ٱلْمِحْرَابِ [سورة آل عمران 3:39]
"So the angels called him while he was standing in prayer in the chamber,"
(هُوَ قَائِمٌ and يُصَلِّى فِى ٱلْمِحْرَابِ have both been analyzed as ḥāls as one interpretation.[44])

[42] الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة الجمعة 62:5
[43] تفسير ابن عثيمين for سورة غافر 40:28
[44] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة آل عمران 3:39

When one or more of these multiple ḥāls is a sentence or quasi-sentence, then it is usual, though not imperative, that the ḥāls be in the following order[45]:

1. First, any ḥāls that are comprised of a single word
2. Then any quasi-sentence ḥāls
3. Then any sentence ḥāls

This is the same order that is usually followed for attributes as well. Here is an example:

(1422) فَخَرَجَ مِنْهَا خَائِفًا يَتَرَقَّبُ [سورة القصص 28:21]
"So he left it, fearful and anticipating [apprehension]."

38.20. Suppressing the governor of the ḥāl

The governor of the ḥāl may be suppressed (i.e. omitted) in some cases optionally, and in other cases necessarily. We will discuss these cases below

38.20.1. Optional suppressing of the governor of the ḥāl

38.20.2. Necessary suppressing of the governor of the ḥāl

The governor is also omitted when it is conceptual with the meaning "existing" or "being". We have seen this in section (ref) above.

38.21. TODO topics

- حذف عامل الحال
- الحال المؤكدة
- الحال من حيث الزمن/الحال المقدرة
- الحال السببي [النحو الوافي 2/400]

[45] سورة آل عمران 3:46 for البحر المحيط لأبي حيان

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Chapter 39.

The connected nouns

> ⚠ Warning
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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39.1. Introduction

Consider the sentence:

(1423) رَأَيْتُ ٱلرَّجُلَ
«I saw the man.»

If the listener (or reader) can identify the individual referred to by the noun "the man" (maybe from a pre-existing mutual understanding with the speaker), then there is no problem with this sentence. But often, further clarification is needed for the listener to correctly identify the individual to whom the speaker is referring. This further clarification can be provided in a number of ways.

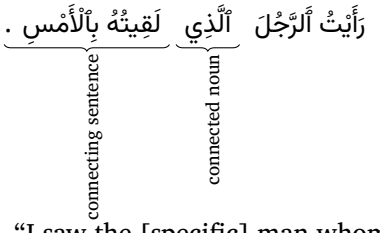
One way is to use an adjectival noun to describe the noun. For example:

(1424) رَأَيْتُ ٱلرَّجُلَ ٱلطَّوِيلَ
«I saw the *tall* man.»

Another way is to use a pointing noun, thus:

(1425) رَأَيْتُ ذَٰلِكَ ٱلرَّجُلَ
«I saw *that* man.»

But sometimes, a whole sentence is needed to provide the needed identification. In this case, Arabic uses what is called a *connected noun* and a *connecting sentence*. This example should help you understand what we mean:



"I saw the [specific] man whom I met yesterday."

In the above sentence, the connected noun is ٱلَّذِي *ʾalladhī*. It is applied to singular masculine nouns, like ٱلرَّجُل. By itself it may be translated as "the one$_{1m}$ that/which/who/whom". It is called a connected noun because it is directly followed by, i.e. *connected* to, a connecting sentence. The connecting sentence contains necessary information for the listener to correctly identify the individual that the connected noun refers to. The connecting sentence in the above example is the sentence لَقِيتُهُ بِٱلْأَمْسِ "I met him yesterday."

Note by the way, that we did not translate the pronoun "him" in our original translation (above). This is because it would sound unnatural in English to say: "I saw the [specific] man (whom) I met *him* yesterday." But this pronoun is an essential part of the Arabic connecting sentence and is called the *refer-back pronoun*. We will deal with it in section @ref(refer-back-pronoun) later in this chapter.

There are two types of connected nouns:

1. The specific connected nouns
2. The general connected nouns

We will study both these types separately within this chapter.

39.2. The specific connected nouns

The specific connected nouns have a significance which is restricted to a specific individual or category of individuals, and its connecting sentence should contain sufficient information to identify that specific individual.

The specific connected nouns is a group of nouns where each noun is applied to a gender and number of individuals. They are:

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connected noun	Description
ٱلَّذِي *ʾalladh͡hī*	Singular masculine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Rigid. Only one ل in its spelling.
ٱلَّتِي *ʾallatī*	Singular feminine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Also used for plural non-intelligent beings of both genders. Rigid. Only one ل in its spelling.
ٱللَّذَانِ *ʾalladh͡hānī*	Dual masculine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Flexible: ٱللَّذَيْنِ *ʾalladh͡hayni* in the a-case and i-case. Two ل's in its spelling.
ٱللَّتَانِ *ʾallatānī*	Dual feminine. For both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Flexible: ٱللَّتَيْنِ *ʾallatayni* in the a-case and i-case. Two ل's in its spelling.
ٱلَّذِينَ *ʾalladh͡hīna*	Plural masculine. For both intelligent beings. Rigid. Only one ل in its spelling.
ٱللَّاتِي *ʾallātī*	For plural feminine intelligent beings. Also used for non-intelligent beings of both genders but ٱلَّتِي is more common there. Rigid. Two ل's in its spelling. Has the following variants: ٱلَّلَاتِ *ʾallāti*, ٱلَّلَائِي *ʾallāʾī*, ٱللَّوَاتِي *ʾallawātī*

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39.2.1. Grammatical position of the specific connected noun

Consider again the same example:

(1426) رَأَيْتُ ٱلرَّجُلَ ٱلَّذِي لَقِيتُهُ بِٱلْأَمْسِ
«I saw the [specific] man whom I met yesterday.»

In this example, the connected noun ٱلَّذِي *ʾalladh͡hī* is a attribute (in the a-case) to the described noun ٱلرَّجُلَ. Because ٱلَّذِي is a rigid noun, it will appear the same in all cases without any change to its ending.

As a attribute, the connected noun may also come as the last in a series of attributes, and can also be combined with a pointing noun. For example:

(1427) رَأَيْتُ ذَٰلِكَ ٱلرَّجُلَ ٱلطَّوِيلَ ٱلَّذِي لَقِيتُهُ بِٱلْأَمْسِ
«I saw that [specific] tall man whom I met yesterday.»

But connected nouns need not only occur as attributes. They may occur in various grammatical positions. Here are some examples:

As a subject:

(1428) وَالَّذِينَ يَكْنِزُونَ ٱلذَّهَبَ وَٱلْفِضَّةَ وَلَا يُنْفِقُونَهَا فِي سَبِيلِ ٱللَّـهِ فَبَشِّرْهُمْ بِعَذَابٍ أَلِيمٍ [سورة التوبة 9:34]
«And those who hoard gold and silver and spend it not in the way of Allāh - give them tidings of a painful punishment.»

As an info:

(1429) خِيَارُ أَئِمَّتِكُمُ الَّذِينَ تُحِبُّونَهُمْ وَيُحِبُّونَكُمْ [صحيح مسلم: 1855]
«The best of your rulers are the ones whom you love and who love you»

(1430) هُنَّ اللَّوَاتِي عَلَى الْمِنْبَرِ [سنن الدارمي: 36]
«They are the ones which (are) on the pulpit.»

As a doer:

(1431) قَدْ بَلَغَنَا ٱلَّذِي قُلْتُمُوهُ
«The [specific] one (thing) that you said has reached us.»

As a direct object:

(1432) رَبَّنَا أَرِنَا ٱللَّذَيْنِ أَضَلَّانَا مِنَ ٱلْجِنِّ وَٱلْإِنْسِ [سورة فصلت 41:29]
«Our Lord, show us those who misled us of the jinn and men»

Following a preposition:

(1433) أَوْ كَٱلَّذِي مَرَّ عَلَىٰ قَرْيَةٍ [سورة البقرة 2:259]
«Or [consider such an example] as the one who passed by a township»

As a annexed-to in an annexation:

(1434) قَدْ سَمِعَ ٱللَّـهُ قَوْلَ ٱلَّتِي تُجَادِلُكَ فِي زَوْجِهَا [سورة المجادلة 58:1]
«Certainly has Allāh heard the speech of the one who argues [i.e., pleads] with you, [O Muḥammad]»

39.3. The refer-back pronoun

The connecting sentence is directly follows the connected noun. As we mentioned in the introduction, the connecting sentence provides clarifying information for the listener (or reader) to identify the individual referred to by the connected noun.

In the connecting sentence is a pronoun that refers back to the connected noun. This pronoun is called the *refer-back pronoun*. and it is an essential (though not always apparent) part of the connecting sentence.

Let us identify some of the refer-back pronouns in the examples we have given.

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(1435) وَالَّذِينَ يَكْنِزُونَ ٱلذَّهَبَ وَٱلْفِضَّةَ
«And those who hoard gold and silver»
refer-back pronoun: the plural masculine doer pronoun و in يَكْنِزُونَ

(1436) خِيَارُ أَئِمَّتِكُمُ الَّذِينَ تُحِبُّونَهُمْ
«The best of your rulers are the ones whom you love and who love you»
refer-back pronoun: the plural masculine direct object attached pronoun هُمْ in تُحِبُّونَهُمْ

(1437) قَدْ بَلَغَنَا ٱلَّذِي قُلْتُمُوهُ
«The [specific] one (thing) that you said has reached us.»
refer-back pronoun: the singular masculine direct object attached pronoun هُ in قُلْتُمُوهُ

(1438) رَبَّنَا أَرِنَا ٱللَّذَيْنِ أَضَلَّانَا مِنَ ٱلْجِنِّ وَٱلْإِنْسِ
«Our Lord, show us those who misled us of the jinn and men»
refer-back pronoun: the dual masculine doer pronoun ا in أَضَلَّانَا

(1439) أَوْ كَٱلَّذِي مَرَّ عَلَىٰ قَرْيَةٍ
«Or [consider such an example] as the one who passed by a township»
refer-back pronoun: the implied singular masculine doer pronoun “he” in مَرَّ

(1440) قَدْ سَمِعَ ٱللَّـهُ قَوْلَ ٱلَّتِي تُجَادِلُكَ فِي زَوْجِهَا
«Certainly has Allāh heard the speech of the one who argues [i.e., pleads] with you, [O Muḥammad]»
refer-back pronoun: the implied singular feminine doer pronoun “she” in تُجَادِلُكَ

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39.3.1. Matching the refer-back pronoun with the connected noun

The refer-back pronoun matches the specific connected noun in gender and number. And the refer-back pronoun is generally an absent-person pronoun (هُ, هَا, هُمْ, هُوَ, etc.). In the example وَالَّذِينَ يَكْنِزُونَ ٱلذَّهَبَ وَٱلْفِضَّةَ “And those who hoard gold and silver,” the refer-back pronoun is the plural masculine absent-person doer pronoun و “they” in يَكْنِزُونَ “they hoard”. And it matches the plural masculine connected noun ٱلَّذِينَ.

However, there is an exception to the refer-back pronoun being an absent-person pronoun. And that is when the connected noun refers to the speaker or the addressed person, like أَنَا ٱلَّذِي, or أَنْتُمُ ٱلَّذِينَ, etc. In these cases, the refer-back pronoun may optionally:

i. either be an absent-person pronoun to match the connected noun (as usual),
ii. or match the pronoun for the speaker or addressed person (as the case may be)

The latter is generally more common but both options are permissible. For example:

أَنَا ٱلَّذِي حَضَرْتُ

refer-back pronoun: the singular masculine doer pronoun for the speaker تُ in حَضَرْتُ

or

أَنَا ٱلَّذِي حَضَرَ

refer-back pronoun: the implied singular masculine doer pronoun for the absent person "he" in حَضَرَ

"I am the one (who) was present."

Here are some examples from Classical Arabic:

(1441) أَنَا ٱلَّذِي سَمَّتْنِ أُمِّي حَيْدَرَهْ [Wright 2/324B]
«I am the one whom my mother named Ḥaydarah»
(The refer-back pronoun is the speaker person's direct object pronoun in سَمَّتْنِ, which is an abbreviation of سَمَّتْنِي "she named me".)

(1442) فَقَالَ مُوسَى يَا آدَمُ أَنْتَ الَّذِي خَلَقَكَ اللَّهُ بِيَدِهِ [جامع الترمذي: 2134]
«Mūsā said: O Ādam, you are the one whom Allāh created with His Hand»
(The refer-back pronoun is the addressed person's direct object pronoun كَ in خَلَقَكَ.)

There is one circumstance where matching the refer-back pronoun to the (absent person) connected noun is mandated. And that is when the connected noun is the called-out person using the particle أَيُّهَا or أَيَّتُهَا. For example,

(1443) يَاأَيُّهَا ٱلَّذِينَ آمَنُوا
«O you who have believed»
not × يَاأَيُّهَا ٱلَّذِينَ آمَنْتُمْ

Similarly,

(1444) يَاأَيُّهَا الَّذِي نُزِّلَ عَلَيْهِ الذِّكْرُ [سورة الحجر 15:6]
«O you upon whom the message has been sent down»

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39.4. The general connected nouns مَنْ and مَا

The general connected nouns are unrestricted in significance, and may be applied to any individual who fits the criteria given in the connecting sentence. The most commonly general connected nouns are:

- مَنْ *man*. Typically used for intelligent beings and translated as “who”.
- مَا *mā*. Typically used for non-intelligent beings and translated as “what”.
- أَيّ *ʾayy*. Used for both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. Translated as “which”, “whichever” or “any”.

There are also a couple of rarely or dialectally used general connected nouns that we will not cover. These are ذُو *d͡hū*, and ذَا *d͡hā*.

In this section we will deal with مَنْ and مَا. We will deal with أَيّ separately in section (give ref) later in this chapter.

Unlike the specific connected nouns (اَلَّذِي, etc.), the general connected nouns do not vary for number and gender.

For example:

(1445) أُحِبُّ مَنْ يَعْدِلُ [Wright 2/322A]
«I love [him] who is just.»

(1446) وَمِنْهُم مَّن يَسْتَمِعُونَ إِلَيْكَ
[سورة يونس 10:42] «And among them are those who listen to you.»

(1447) اِصْنَعْ مَا بَدَا لَكَ
«Do what seems (good) to you.»

(1448) مَرَرْتُ بِمَا يُعْجِبُكَ
«I passed by what will please you.»

(1449) عرفت ما اشتريته، وما اشتريتهما، وما اشتريتها، وما اشتريتهن [https://shamela.ws/book/13257/195]

39.4.1. مَنْ and مَا after prepositions

When مَنْ and مَا are directly preceded by the prepositions مِنْ and عَنْ, these prepositions lose their ن and are joined to the following noun with the noun’s م doubled. For example: مَمَّنْ *mimman*, مَمَّا *mimmā*, عَمَّنْ *ɛamman*, عَمَّا *ɛammā*.

The preposition فِي is also often (though not always) optionally attached to these connected nouns, thus: فِيمَنْ *fīman*, فِيمَا *fīmā*.

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The remaining prepositions follow the normal rules: عَلَى مَا, كَمَنْ, etc. But we will see, if Allāh wills, in chapter @ref(questions), that مَا and مَنْ are also used as question nouns, in which case the rules of joining prepositions to them will differ.

39.4.2. The refer-back pronoun for the general connected nouns

The general connected nouns مَنْ and مَا are themselves singular masculine in number and gender. However, they can be used to signify persons or things of any number and gender.

Their refer-back pronouns can then, optionally:

i. Either match the gender and number of the persons or things meant by the connected noun. For example, for مَنْ:

(1450) وَمِنْهُمْ مَنْ يَسْتَمِعُونَ إِلَيْكَ [سورة يونس 10:42] "And among them are those who listen to you"

(1451) قَدْ خَابَتْ مَنْ فَعَلَتْ ذَلِكَ مِنْهُنَّ وَخَسِرَتْ [جامع الترمذي: 3318]
"She has thwarted herself, whoever did that from them$_{3f}$, and lost."

Note also how, in this example how, in addition to the feminine refer-back doer pronouns in فَعَلَتْ and خَسِرَتْ, the feminine gender of the person signified by مَنْ has also caused the تْ of femininity to be added to the verb خَابَ (of which مَنْ is the doer noun).

Examples for مَا:

(1452) عرفت ما اشتريته، وما اشتريتهما، وما اشتريتها، وما اشتريتهن [https://shamela.ws/book/13257/195

ii. Or be singular masculine to match the connected noun itself. This is generally more common for مَا. For example:

(1453) وَمِنْهُم مَّن يُؤْمِنُ بِهِ وَمِنْهُم مَّن لَّا يُؤْمِنُ بِهِ [سورة يونس 10:40]
"And of them are those who believe in it, and of them are those who do not believe in it."

(1454) جَمَعْتُ مِنَ ٱلْوَرَقِ مَا سَقَطَ «I gathered what fell from the leaves.»

(1455) صَلِّ مِنَ ٱلرَّكَعَاتِ مَا يَتَيَسَّرُ
«Pray from the units (of prayer) what is easy.»

(1456) لَمْ أَجِدْ مَا أَعْتَذِرُ بِهِ [مساوئ الأخلاق للخرائطي:171] «I did not find what I (could) make an excuse for with.»

Both options can be utilized together as well. For example:

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(1457) بَلَىٰ مَنْ أَسْلَمَ وَجْهَهُ لِلَّهِ وَهُوَ مُحْسِنٌ فَلَهُ ۥ أَجْرُهُ عِندَ رَبِّهِ وَلَا خَوْفٌ عَلَيْهِمْ وَلَا هُمْ يَحْزَنُونَ [2:112 سورة البقرة]
«Yes, [on the contrary], whoever submits his face [i.e., self] in Islām to Allāh while being a doer of good will have his reward with his Lord. And no fear will there be concerning them, nor will they grieve.»

(1458) فَمَن تَبِعَ هُدَايَ فَلَا خَوْفٌ عَلَيْهِمْ وَلَا هُمْ يَحْزَنُونَ [2:38 سورة البقرة]
«whoever follows My guidance - there will be no fear concerning them, nor will they grieve.»

39.4.3. Applicability of مَا and مَنْ to intelligent and non-intelligent beings

As we mentioned earlier, مَنْ is typically used to refer to intelligent beings. And مَا is typically used to refer to non-intelligent beings. However, there are some circumstances in which these roles can differ.

مَنْ may be used for non-intelligent beings when a non-intelligent being is compared with an intelligent being. For example,

وَاللَّهُ خَلَقَ كُلَّ دَابَّةٍ مِّن مَّاءٍ فَمِنْهُم مَّن يَمْشِي عَلَىٰ بَطْنِهِ وَمِنْهُم مَّن يَمْشِي عَلَىٰ رِجْلَيْنِ وَمِنْهُم مَّن يَمْشِي عَلَىٰ أَرْبَعٍ

[24:45 سورة النور]

“Allāh has created every [living] creature from water. And of them are those that move on their bellies, and of them are those that walk on two legs, and of them are those that walk on four.”

مَنْ may also be used for non-intelligent beings when attributes usually applicable to intelligent beings are applied to a non-intelligent being. For example:

(1459) أَسِرْبَ الْقَطَا، هَلْ مَنْ يُعِيرُ جَنَاحَه * لَعَلِّي إِلَىٰ مَنْ قَدْ هَوِيتُ أَطِيرُ [Wright 2/314D]
«O flock of birds, is there who will lend his wing»
that perhaps I may fly to whom I love
أَ: “O”, سِرْب: “flock”, قَطَا: a species of bird, هَلْ: “is there?”, يُعِيرُ: “lend”, جَنَاح: “wing”, لَعَلِّي: “Perhaps I”, هَوِيتُ: “I love”, أَطِيرُ: “I fly”.

مَنْ may also be used for non-intelligent beings when there is a mixed group including both intelligent and non-intelligent beings, and the intelligent beings are given preference. For example:

(1460) وَلِلَّهِ يَسْجُدُ مَن فِى ٱلسَّمَـٰوَٰتِ وَٱلْأَرْضِ [13:15 سورة الرعد]
«And to Allāh prostrates whoever is within the heavens and the earth»

Similarly, مَا may, in some circumstances, be used for intelligent beings. This may be when there is a mixed group including both intelligent and non-intelligent

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beings, and the non-intelligent beings are given preference because of their larger number. For example:

(1461) يُسَبِّحُ لِلَّهِ مَا فِي السَّمَاوَاتِ وَمَا فِي الْأَرْضِ [سورة الجمعة 62:1]
«Whatever is in the heavens and whatever is on the earth is exalting Allāh»

مَا may also be used for intelligent beings when the person being referred to is vague to the speaker. For example:

(1462) رَبِّ إِنِّي نَذَرْتُ لَكَ مَا فِي بَطْنِي مُحَرَّرًا [سورة آل عمران 3:35]
«My Lord, indeed I have pledged to You what is in my womb, consecrated [for Your service]»

مَا may also be used for intelligent beings when the characteristics of an intelligent being are highlighted when referring to them. For example:

(1463) فَانكِحُوا مَا طَابَ لَكُم مِّنَ النِّسَاءِ [سورة النساء 4:3]
«then marry those that please you of [other] women»

39.4.4. Grammatical position of the general connected nouns

The general connected noun may occur in various grammatical positions. Here are some examples:

As a subject:

(1464) ما عِنْدَكُمْ يَنْفَدُ [سورة النحل 16:96]
«Whatever you have will end»

As an info:

(1465) مَالُكَ مَا قَدَّمْتَ، وَمَالُ وَارِثِكَ مَا أَخَّرْتَ [الأدب المفرد: 153]
«Your wealth is what you have sent forward, and the wealth of your inheritors is what you have left behind.»

As a doer:

(1466) فَعَلَهُ مَنْ هُوَ خَيْرٌ مِنِّي [صحيح البخاري: 668]
«it was done by one who was better than I»

As a direct object:

(1467) اعْمَلُوا مَا شِئْتُمْ [سورة فصلت 41:40]
«Do whatever you will»

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Following a preposition:

(1468) وَأَغْنِنِي بِفَضْلِكَ عَمَّنْ سِوَاكَ [جامع الترمذي :3563]
«and make me independent from (all) who are besides You»

As a annexed-to in an annexation:

(1469) فَذَلِكَ مَثَلُ مَنْ أَطَاعَنِي [صحيح مسلم :2283]
«So that is the similitude of the one who obeyed me»

(1470) مَا تَرَىٰ رَأْيَ مَا نَرَىٰ [Fischer 218]
«You do not think what we think.»
(literally: "You do not opine the opinion of what we opine.")

(1471) أَمْرَ مَا تَحْذَرُ [Fischer 218]
«the matter of which you are wary»

Unlike the specific connected nouns (ٱلَّذِي, etc), the general connected nouns do not occur as attributes. So while we can say:

(1472) مَرَرْتُ بِٱلرَّجُلِ ٱلَّذِي أَحْسَنَ إِلَيّ
«I passed by the man who was good to me.»

we cannot say:

(1473) × مَرَرْتُ بِٱلرَّجُلِ مَنْ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيّ

We will have to say instead:

(1474) مَرَرْتُ بِمَنْ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيّ

The general connected noun can, however, occur as a replacement. For example,

(1475) والمسلمون مَن تبع رسول الله صلى الله عليه وسلم كثير [Fischer §421.2. Originally, from السيرة النبوية لابن هشام.]
«And the Muslims, who follow the Messenger of Allāh, are many»

39.4.5. Use with the preposition مِنْ

The preposition مِنْ is frequently used with the general connected nouns to restrict the applicability of the connected noun to a group or type. This مِنْ may come either before the connected noun, or after its connecting sentence. For example:

(1476) فَأَعْطَانِي مَا كَانَ عِنْدَهُ مِنْ خُبْزٍ [Fischer 218]
«Then he gave me what he had of bread.»

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(1477) مَنْ دَخَلَ ٱلشَّأْمَ مِنَ ٱلْعَرَبِ [Fischer 218]
«Those Arabs who entered Syria»
(literally: "Who entered Syria from the Arabs")

(1478) فَانكِحُوا مَا طَابَ لَكُم مِّنَ النِّسَاءِ [سورة النساء 4:3]
«then marry those that please you of [other] women»

(1479) اللَّهُمَّ اقْسِمْ لَنَا مِنْ خَشْيَتِكَ مَا يَحُولُ بَيْنَنَا وَبَيْنَ مَعَاصِيكَ [جامع الترمذي: 3502]
«O Allāh, apportion for us, from the fear of You, (that) what shall come between us and disobedience of You»
(The connected noun مَا is the direct object of the verb of command اقْسِمْ.)

39.4.6. Use with a repeated word to express vagueness or uncertainty

The general connected nouns مَنْ and مَا are used with a word that is repeated to express a vague or uncertain quantity or quality. For example:

(1480) هُمْ مَا هُمْ [Fischer 218]
«They are what they are.»

(1481) نَزَلَ مَنْ نَزَلَ مِنْهُمْ [Fischer 218]
«Some of them came down.»
(literally: Came down who came down from them.")

(1482) جَمَعْتُ مَا جَمَعْتُ [Fischer 218]
«I gathered what I gathered.»

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39.5. Deleting the refer-back pronoun

The refer-back pronoun may be deleted (and its meaning is then implicit) if some conditions are satisfied. Some conditions are specific to the case of the refer-back pronoun. These are:

(a) When the refer-back pronoun is the subject of a nounal sentence, then it may be deleted, and its meaning will be implied. When deleting the refer-back pronoun in this case, it is preferred that the connecting sentence not be too short.

For example:

(1483) انْظُرُوا إِلَى مَنْ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ [صحيح مسلم: 2963c][1]
«Look at who is lower than you.»
(instead of انْظُرُوا إِلَى مَنْ هُوَ أَسْفَلَ مِنْكُمْ.)

(1484) وَلَهُ مَن فِي السَّمَاوَاتِ وَالْأَرْضِ [سورة الأنبياء 21:19]
«To Him belongs whoever is in the heavens and the earth.»
(instead of مَنْ هُوَ فِي ٱلسَّمَوَاتِ وَٱلْأَرْضِ)

(1485) مَا أَنَا بِٱلَّذِي قَائِلٌ لَكَ شَيْئًا [Wright 2/322D]
«I am not the one who says anything to you.»
(instead of مَا أَنَا بِٱلَّذِي هُوَ قَائِلٌ لَكَ شَيْئًا)

If the connecting sentence is very short, the deleting the refer-back pronoun subject is permissible, though rare. For example:

(1486) لَا يَنْطِقُ بِمَا سَفَهٌ [Wright 2/322D]
«He does not speak what is foolish.»
(instead of بِمَا هُوَ سَفَهٌ)

(b) When the refer-back pronoun is an attached pronoun for the direct object it is permissible to delete it. For example:

(1487) هَـٰذَا مَا كَنَزْتُمْ لِأَنْفُسِكُمْ [سورة التوبة 9:35]
«This is what you hoarded for yourselves»
(instead of مَا كَنَزْتُمُوهُ)

(c) When the refer-back pronoun is in the i-case, it is permissible to delete it:

(i) When the refer-back pronoun is the annexed-to in an annexation whose annexe is a doer participle or the direct object implying a present or future meaning. For example:

(1488) فَاقْضِ مَا أَنتَ قَاضٍ [سورة طه 20:72]
"So decree whatever you are to decree."
(instead of فَاقْضِ مَا أَنتَ قَاضِيهِ)

(1489) قَالَ أَنَبْعَثُ إِلَيَّ مَا لَسْتَ آكِلًا [مسند أحمد: 21023]
"He said: Do you send to me what you do not eat?"
(instead of مَا لَسْتَ آكِلَهُ)

(ii) When the refer-back pronoun is attached to a preposition or adverb, and the same preposition or adverb has already been used (with the same meaning) with the connecting noun or its described noun. The preposition/adverb is deleted along with its attached pronoun. For example:

[1]See also صحيح مسلم: 2963c and سنن ابن ماجه: 4142 for variants with the refer-back pronoun.

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(1490) أَنَا عِنْدَ مَنْ أَنْتَ [Wright 2/323C]
«I am at his [house] at whose you (are).»
(instead of مَنْ أَنْتَ عِنْدَهُ)

(1491) مَرَرْتُ بِٱلَّذِي مَرَّ سُلَيْمَانُ [Wright 2/323D]
«I passed by the (same) one that Sulaymān did.»
(instead of مَرَرْتُ بِٱلَّذِي مَرَّ بِهِ سُلَيْمَانُ)

In addition to the above conditions that are specific to the case of the refer-back pronoun, a further, general, condition should be satisfied, which is: that the omission of the refer-back pronoun be obvious to the listener, and the listener can re-construct the original meaning by restoring the refer-back pronoun to get the intended meaning.

If the refer-back pronoun is deleted, and the remaining connecting sentence (with the refer-back pronoun deleted) is valid as a connecting sentence on its own right, then it will give a different meaning (even if slightly) from the original. And the listener will not know that the refer-back pronoun has been deleted. In this case, it is not permitted to delete the refer-back pronoun. Here is an example that should explain what we mean:

Consider the sentence:

(1492) جاء الذي ضربته في داره [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 1/168]
«"The one whom I beat (him) in his house, came.»

The connecting sentence is ضربته في داره "I beat him in his house." and the refer-back pronoun is the a-case direct object pronoun ه "him". If we delete this pronoun, the sentence becomes

(1493) جاء الذي ضربت في داره
«"The one who I beat in his house, came.»

Now the meaning of the sentence is markedly different. The connecting sentence ضربت فِي دَارِهِ is valid on its own right but it gives a different meaning from the original. It does not specify that I beat *him* in his house, just that I beat in his house, possibly others. Because the omission of the refer-back pronoun is not obvious, the sentence now does not siginify the original intent. And so deleting the refer-back pronoun in this case is not permitted.

39.6. The general connected noun أَيّ

أَيّ *ʾayy* "which/whichever" is a general connected noun similar to مَا "what" and مَنْ "who". But it differs from مَا and مَنْ in a few aspects:

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Firstly, أيّ is (generally) fully flexible. So it will display its case as a vowel mark on its final letter. Whereas مَا and مَنْ, as we know, are rigid.

Secondly, أيّ can be, and, in fact, properly is, the annexe in an annexation. Whereas مَا and مَنْ cannot be annexes. For example,

(1494) يُعْجِبُنِي أَيُّ ٱلتَّلَامِذَةِ يَجْتَهِدُ
«Whichever of the students strives, pleases me.»
(أيّ is in the u-case)

(1495) فَأْوِ إِلَى أَيِّهِمْ يَحْمِيكَ
«So take shelter with whichever of them protects you.»
(أيّ is in the i-case)

Also, أيّ is used indiscriminately for both intelligent and non-intelligent beings. For example,

(1496) أَحْمِلُ أَيَّ ٱلْحَقِيبَتَيْنِ هِيَ ٱلْأَثْقَلُ
«I shall carry whichever of the two bags is the heavier.»
(أيّ is in the a-case)

Note how, in the above examples, the final vowel mark on أيّ varies, depending on its case due to its being a flexible noun.

أَيّ, like مَا and مَنْ, is itself a singular masculine noun. And, like مَا and مَنْ, أَيّ can be used, unchanged, for both genders. The previous example used أَيّ with حَقِيبَة which is a feminine noun. But a feminine version أَيَّة does exist and can be used with feminine annexed-tos. It is, however, only commonly used if its annexed-to is a feminine pronoun. For example,

(1497) صَادِقِي أَيَّتَهُنَّ تَنْصَحُكِ
«Befriend whichever of them$_{3,f}$ is sincere to you$_{1,f}$.»

By the way, أَيّ *ʾayy* (like مَا and مَنْ) is also a question noun and we will discuss its properties in more detail in section …

39.6.1. The connected noun أَيّ without a annexed-to

أيّ can sometimes occur without a annexed-to. Technically, it will then be indefinite, and thus tanwīned. However, it will carry the meaning of an implied annexation. For example,

(1498) سَأُقَاتِلُ أَيًّا يُقَاوِمُنِي
«I will fight whichever [of them, the enemies, etc.] resists me.»

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39.6.2. The connected noun أَيّ with a deleted refer-back pronoun

Consistent with what we have already learned for the other connected nouns, the refer-back pronoun may be deleted in connected sentences for the connected noun أيّ.

For example,

(1499) أَجْزِي أَيَّهُمْ صَادِقٌ
«I will reward whichever of them is truthful.»
(instead of أَيَّهُمْ هُوَ صَادِقٌ.)

39.6.3. Circumstance for the rigidity of أَيّ

As mentioned, أَيّ is generally fully flexible. However, there is one circumstance in which it may optionally be a rigid noun with the final vowel mark ُ thus: أَيُّ. This is when both of the following conditions are satisfied:

i. أَيّ is an annexe.
ii. The refer-back pronoun to أَيّ is the subject of the connecting sentence and it is deleted.

For example,

(1500) أَجْزِي أَيُّهُمْ صَادِقٌ
«I will reward whichever of them is truthful.»

Since this rigidity is optional, أَيّ may, in this case, retain its full-flexibility:

(1501) أَجْزِي أَيَّهُمْ صَادِقٌ
«I will reward whichever of them is truthful.»

But if both the conditions above are not satisfied then أَيّ shall remain fully-flexible. For example,

(1502) أَجْزِي أَيَّهُمْ هُوَ صَادِقٌ
أَجْزِي أَيًّا هُوَ صَادِقٌ
أَجْزِي أَيًّا صَادِقٌ [2]

[2]The examples generally quoted by the grammarians are (1) the verse of poetry إِذَا مَا لَقِيتَ بَنِي مَالِكٍ, and (2) the āyah [سورة مريم] ثُمَّ لَنَنْزِعَنَّ مِنْ كُلِّ شِيعَةٍ أَيُّهُمْ أَشَدُّ عَلَى الرَّحْمَنِ عِتِيّاً فَسَلِّمْ عَلَى أَيُّهُمْ أَفْضَلُ 19:69]

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39.7. Separating the connecting sentence from the connected noun

Generally, the connecting sentence directly follows the connected noun, as in all the examples we have given so far. However, the connecting sentence may be separated from the connected noun by one of the following:

i. An oath. For example:

(1503) جَاءَ ٱلَّذِي وَٱللَّـه قَهَرَ ٱلْأَعْدَاءَ
« The one who - by Allāh - overpowered the enemies has come. »

ii. A sentence calling out to someone. For example,

(1504) أَنْتَ ٱلَّذِي يَا زَيْدُ فَتَحْتَ ٱلْبَابَ
« You are the one - O Zayd - who opened the door. »

iii. A parenthetical clause, which is a sentence within the main sentence that adds information to it, but which can be deleted without affecting the completeness of the main sentence. For example:

(1505) قَدِمَ ٱلَّذِي أَطَالَ ٱللَّـهُ عُمْرَهُ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيَّ
« The one who - may Allah lengthen his age - was good to me has arrived. »

(1506) قَدِمَ ٱلَّذِي وَهُوَ مُبْتَسِمٌ أَحْسَنَ إِلَيَّ
« The one who - and he is smiling - was good to me has arrived. »

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39.8. Deleting the connected noun and/or the connecting sentence

TODO. See □□□□□□ □□□□□

(1507) أَنَا أَوَّلُ الْعَرَبِ سَأَلَهُ [سنن النسائي: 5687]
I [was] the first of the Arabs [who] asked him

39.9. Sentences without connected nouns

There are some sentences where we might expect a connected noun but which are always, or often (as the case may be), expressed in Arabic without a connected noun. These sentences are of different types:

39.9.1. Sentences with indefinite nouns needing a qualifying sentence

When an indefinite noun needs a qualifying sentence, it is natural in English to insert “that”, “which”, “who”, etc. between the noun and the following sentence. For example, “I passed by a man *who* was sleeping.”

In Arabic, however, we will not use any connected noun in such sentences. This is because the connected nouns are considered definite nouns. And therefore they may not be a attribute to an indefinite noun. So while we can say:

(1508) مَرَرْتُ بِٱلرَّجُلِ ٱلَّذِي يَنَامُ
«I passed by the man who is sleeping.»

we cannot say

(1509) × مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ ٱلَّذِي يَنَامُ

Instead, we put the qualifying sentence directly after the indefinite noun. The qualifying sentence will then not be a connecting sentence, but will itself be the attribute to the described noun:

(1510) مَرَرْتُ بِرَجُلٍ يَنَامُ
«I passed by a man (who) is sleeping.»

Here is another example:

(1511) جَلَسْتُ فِي مَجْلِسٍ قَدْ رُشَّ بِمَاءِ ٱلْوَرْدِ
«I sat in a sitting (that) had been sprinkled with rose-water.»

A connected noun can, however, follow an indefinite noun, if we intend to start a separate sentence with it, or if it is a *replacement* (see chapter @ref(the-replacement)). For example.

(1512) وَابْعَثْهُ مَقَامًا مَحْمُودًا الَّذِي وَعَدْتَهُ [صحيح البخاري: 614]
«Resurrect him to a praiseworthy station, the one that you promised him»

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(1513) وَيْلٌ لِّكُلِّ هُمَزَةٍ لُّمَزَةٍ الَّذِي جَمَعَ مَالًا وَعَدَّدَهُ [سورة الهمزة 104:1–2]
«Woe to every scorner and mocker. Who collects wealth and [continuously] counts it.»

39.9.2. Sentences containing a noun with generic definiteness

Sometimes the definite article أَلْ does not determine a particular individual, but makes a noun definite only in a generic way. In this case a qualifying sentence may directly follow it without any intermediate connected noun used as a attribute.[3] Because there is no connected noun, the qualifying sentence is, again, not analyzed as a connecting sentence. For example:

(1514) كَمَثَلِ الْحِمَارِ يَحْمِلُ أَسْفَارًا [سورة الجمعة 62:5]
«like that of a donkey who carries volumes [of books]»
(Note how the translator has translated ٱلْحِمَار as "a donkey" because in English an indefinite noun is often used to indicate a generic type.)

(1515) أَنْتَ ٱلْوَزِيرُ لَا يُعْصَىٰ [Fischer 219]
«You are the (sort of) vizier (who) is not disobeyed.»

(1516) هُمُ ٱلْفَوَارِسُ يَحْمُونَ ٱلنِّسَاءَ [Fischer 219]
«They are the (kind of) horsemen (who) protect the women.»

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39.9.3. Sentences with prepositional or adverbial phrases

If a sentence has a definite noun which is to be qualified by a prepositional or adverbial phrase, then in many cases, that phrase may directly follow the definite noun without any intermediate connected noun used a attribute. But using a connected noun is also permissible if one wishes to emphasize that the specificity of the noun. When there is no connected noun, the prepositional or adverbial phrase is not analyzed as a connecting sentence, but is considered attached to an implied verb that has the idea of "being", like "is", "are", etc. When there is a connected noun, then it is analyzed as a connecting sentence, as usual. For example:

(1517) سِرْتُ فِي ٱلْحَدِيقَةِ عِنْدَ ٱلْمَسْجِدِ
«I walked in the garden next to the mosque.»

[3]Wright 2/318C

or

(1518) سِرْتُ فِي ٱلْحَدِيقَةِ ٱلَّتِي عِنْدَ ٱلْمَسْجِدِ

or

(1519) سِرْتُ فِي ٱلْحَدِيقَةِ ٱلَّتِي هِيَ عِنْدَ ٱلْمَسْجِدِ
«I walked in the [specific] garden that [is] next to the mosque.»

39.10. Tense of the connecting sentence

وقد يقع الماضي بعد الموصول المذكور وهو بمعنى المستقبل لتضمنه معنى الشرط، كقولك: الذي أتاني فله درهم
...
وكذا كان حق الصلة ألا تكون الا فعلا مستقبل المعنى كشرط من وما، إلا أنه لما لم يكن شرطا في الحقيقة جاز ألا يكون صريحا في الفعلية...

[شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/268–269]

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Chapter 40.

The question sentence

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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40.1. Introduction

Questions in Arabic are introduced by *question-devices*. Question-devices can be particles like أَ and هَلْ used to introduce yes/no questions. Or they can be nouns like:

- مَا « what »
- مَنْ « who »
- أَيّ « which »
- كَيْفَ « how »
- أَيْنَ « where »
- مَتَىٰ « when »

Question-devices occur in the beginnning of a question sentence. We will study these and other question-devices in this chapter, if Allāh wills.

40.2. أَ and هَلْ

40.2.1. أَ

أَ is the most basic question-device. It is used to form:

1. Yes-no questions. For example:

(1520) أَحَضَرَ القَاضِي [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Has the judge come?»

2. Multiple-choice questions. For example:

(1521) أَمُحَمَّدٌ عِنْدَكَ أَمْ خَالِدٌ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Is Muḥammad with you or K͡hālid?»

Here are some examples of yes/no questions using أَ:

(1522) أَصَلَّى النَّاسُ [صحيح البخاري :687]
«Have the people prayed?»

(1523) أَتَرْضَوْنَ أَنْ يَذْهَبَ النَّاسُ بِالشَّاةِ وَالْبَعِيرِ، وَتَذْهَبُونَ بِالنَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم إِلَى رِحَالِكُمْ [صحيح البخاري :4330]
«Are you pleased that the people are going away with sheep and camels, while you are going with the Prophet ﷺ to your homes?»

(1524) قَالُوٓاْ ءَأَنتَ فَعَلْتَ هَٰذَا بِـَٔالِهَتِنَا يَـٰٓإِبْرَٰهِيمُ [سورة الأنبياء 21:62]
«They said, “Have you done this to our gods, O Abraham?”»

(1525) أَمَا تَسْتَحِي مِنَ اللهِ
[Wright 2/307A]
«Aren’t you ashamed from Allāh?»

(1526) أَلَمْ أُرْسِلْ إِلَيْكَ رَسُولاً [صحيح البخاري :1413]
«Didn’t I send a messenger to you?»

Exceptionally, when conjunctions like وَ, فَ, and ثُمَّ are to be added before the question, they will follow أَ, not precede it. For example:

(1527) فَقَالَ أَبُو بَكْرٍ أَوَكُلُّكُمْ رَأْيُهُ عَلَى هَذَا [Wright 2/307A]
«Abū Bakr said, “Are all of you of this opinion?”»

(1528) أَفَتَدْرُونَ أَيُّ شَهْرٍ هَذَا [صحيح البخاري :1742]
«Do you then know which month this is?»

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(1529) أَثُمَّ إِذَا مَا وَقَعَ ءَامَنتُم بِهِۦٓ ءَآلْـَٰٔنَ وَقَدْ كُنتُم بِهِۦ تَسْتَعْجِلُونَ [سورة يونس 10:51]
«Then is it that when it has [actually] occurred you will believe in it? Now? And you were [once] for it impatient.»

When the word following أَ is a nound beginning with a connecting hamzah, then أَ may replace the connecting hamzah. For example:

(1530) ... أَبْنُكَ [Wright 1/24A]
«Is your son ...?»
(instead of أَأَبْنُكَ.)

(1531) أَنْكَسَرَتْ [Wright 1/24A]
«Did it break?»
(instead of أَأَنْكَسَرَتْ.)

(1532) ... أَلْمَاءُ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is the water ...?»
(instead of أَأَلْمَاءُ.)

When أَ precedes ال, as in example () above, then the two alifs may also be combined to form آ. So we can also say:

(1533) ... آلْمَاءُ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is the water ...?»
(instead of أَأَلْمَاءُ or أَلْمَاءُ.)

Similarly,

(1534) آلْحَسَنُ عِنْدَكَ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is al-Ḥasan with you?»
(instead of أَأَلْحَسَنُ.)

(1535) آلْقُرَشِيُّ أَمْ الثَّقَفِيُّ عِنْدَكَ [Wright 1/24B]
«Is [he] of Quraysh͡ or of T͡haqīf?»

40.2.2. أَمْ vs أَوْ

أَمْ is used to provide options in multiple-choice questions when the answer is *either* one *or* another of the provided options. For example, in the question:

(1536) أَمُحَمَّدٌ عِنْدَكَ أَمْ خَالِدٌ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Is Muḥammad with you or K͡hālid?»

The answer can only be either «Muḥammad». or «K͡hālid». Similarly, if we say:

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(1537) أَزَيْدٌ أَفْضَلُ أَمْ خَالِدٌ [كتاب سيبويه 4/296 citing معاني النحو]
«Is Zayd better or K͡hālid?»

The answer can only be either «Zayd» or «K͡hālid».
أَوْ, on the other hand, is used in yes/no questions. For examples:

(1538) أَلَقِيتَ زَيْدًا أَوْ عَمْرًا أَوْ خَالِدًا [كتاب سيبويه 4/295 citing معاني النحو]
«Did you meet Zayd or Ɛamr or K͡hālid?»

(1539) أَعِنْدَكَ زَيْدٌ أَوْ خَالِدٌ أَوْ عَمْرٌو [كتاب سيبويه 4/295 citing معاني النحو]
«Is Zayd or K͡hālid or Ɛamr with you?»

then we are asking if you met *any* one of the named persons, and if any of them are with you. So the answer can be «yes» or «no».

Here is another scenario where أَمْ is contrasted with أَوْ. Consider the following examples:

(1540) مَا أَدْرِي أَأَكَلَ أَمْ شَرِبَ [4/296 معاني النحو]
«I don't know: did he eat or [or did he] drink.»

(1541) مَا أَدْرِي أَأَكَلَ أَوْ شَرِبَ [4/296 معاني النحو]
«I don't know: did he eat or drank.»

In the first example, you are wondering which of the two options he did. Whereas in the second example, you are wondering if he did any of the two examples.

40.2.3. أَمْ as a question-device

أَمْ is also used as a question-device on its own right, when asking a yes/no question as an alternative. For example:

(1542) هَلْ لك قبلنا حق أم أنت رَجُل معروفٌ بالظلم [مغني اللبيب 1/72 cited by معاني القرآن للفراء 1/289 لابن هشام]
«Do you have a right before us, or are you a man known for transgression?»

Similarly,

(1543) قُلْ هَلْ يَسْتَوِى ٱلْأَعْمَىٰ وَٱلْبَصِيرُ أَمْ هَلْ تَسْتَوِى ٱلظُّلُمَٰتُ وَٱلنُّورُ ۗ أَمْ جَعَلُوا۟ لِلَّهِ شُرَكَآءَ خَلَقُوا۟ كَخَلْقِهِۦ فَتَشَٰبَهَ ٱلْخَلْقُ عَلَيْهِمْ ۚ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 1/289 cited by سورة الرعد 13:16]
«Say, "Is the blind equivalent to the seeing? Or is darkness equivalent to light? Or have they attributed to Allāh partners who created like His creation so that the creation [of each] seemed similar to them?"»

(1544) أَمْ لَهُ ٱلْبَنَٰتُ وَلَكُمُ ٱلْبَنُونَ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 1/289 cited by سورة الطور 52:39]
«Or has He daughters while you have sons?»

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40.2.4. Omitting أَ

أَ may frequently be omitted from a question sentence. Its meaning will then be implicit. For example:

(1545) فَوَاللهِ مَا أَدْرِي وَإِنْ كُنْتُ دَارِيًا بِسَبْعٍ رَمَيْنَ الْجَمْرَ أَمْ بِثَمَانِ [cited by معاني النحو 237]
«By Allāh, I don't know, even though I am knowledgeable, with seven did they throw the pebbles or with eight?»
(for أَبِسَبْعٍ)

40.2.5. هَلْ

هَلْ is similar to أَ in that it introduced yes/no questions. Here are some examples with هَلْ:

(1546) هَلْ أَتَىٰكَ حَدِيثُ ٱلْجُنُودِ [سورة البروج 85:17 cited by Wright 2/308C]
«Has there reached you the story of the soldiers -»

(1547) يَٰٓأَيُّهَا ٱلَّذِينَ ءَامَنُواْ هَلْ أَدُلُّكُمْ عَلَىٰ تِجَٰرَةٍ تُنجِيكُم مِّنْ عَذَابٍ أَلِيمٍ [سورة الصف 61:10 cited by Wright 2/308C]
«O you who have believed, shall I guide you to a transaction that will save you from a painful punishment?»

(1548) هَلْ أَنْتُمْ تَارِكُو لِي صَاحِبِي [صحيح البخاري :4640 cited by Wright 2/308C]
«Are you (people) leaving for me my companion?»

40.2.6. هَلْ vs أَ

هَلْ or أَ are often interchangeable, but there are also some differences between them. أَ is more basic and direct, whereas هَلْ will add more wonder, liveliness, or incredulity to the question.[1], Unlike أَ, هَلْ cannot be used for multiple-choice questions.

Here are some more differences between هَلْ and أَ:

Unlike أَ, the conjunctions وَ, فَ, and ثُمَّ do precede هَلْ when needed. For example:

(1549) وَهَلْ أَتَىٰكَ حَدِيثُ مُوسَىٰٓ [سورة طه 20:9 cited by Wright 2/308D]
«And has the story of Moses reached you? -»

[1]Wright 2/308C

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(1550) إِنْ أَقَمْتُ إِلَى الْمَسَاءِ فَهَلْ أَنْتَ رَائِحٌ مَعِي [Wright 2/308D]
«If I stay till the evening, then will you go with me?»

هَلْ cannot be prefixed to a negative clause (excepting هَلَّا, see () below). For example:

(1551) × هَلْ لَمْ يَحْضُرْ أَخُوكَ
✓ أَلَمْ يَحْضُرْ أَخُوكَ
[معاني النحو 4/283]
«Didn't your brother come?»

(1552) × هَلْ لَيْسَ أَخُوكَ حَاضِرًا
✓ أَلَيْسَ أَخُوكَ حَاضِرًا
[معاني النحو 4/283]
«Isn't your brother present?»

هَلْ prefixed to a PC verb usually (not not exclusively) restricts the tense to the future. For example:

(1553) هَلْ تُسَافِرُ [معاني النحو 4/283]
«Will you journey?»

Occassionally, it can admit a present tense meaning. For example:

(1554) قُلْ يَٰٓأَهْلَ ٱلْكِتَٰبِ هَلْ تَنقِمُونَ مِنَّآ إِلَّآ أَنْ ءَامَنَّا بِٱللَّهِ وَمَآ أُنزِلَ إِلَيْنَا وَمَآ أُنزِلَ مِن قَبْلُ وَأَنَّ أَكْثَرَكُمْ فَٰسِقُونَ [معاني النحو 4/283 cited by سورة المائدة 5:59]
«Say, "O People of the Scripture, do you resent us except [for the fact] that we have believed in Allāh and what was revealed to us and what was revealed before and because most of you are defiantly disobedient?"»

هَلْ is not prefixed to a conditional-device. For example:

(1555) × هَلْ إِنْ سَافَرَ سَافَرْتَ مَعَهُ
✓ أَإِنْ سَافَرَ سَافَرْتَ مَعَهُ
[معاني النحو 4/284]
«If he journeys, will you journey with him?»

هَلْ is not prefixed to a إِنَّ. For example:

(1556) × هَلْ إِنَّهُ شَاعِرٌ
✓ أَإِنَّهُ شَاعِرٌ
[معاني النحو 4/284]
«Is he indeed a poet?»

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هَلْ is not prefixed to a noun, following which is a verb indicating a choice or alternative. For example:

(1557) × هَلْ خَالِدٌ يَرْجِعُ
✓ أَخَالِدٌ يَرْجِعُ
[معاني النحو 4/243]
«Is it K͡hālid returning?»

(1558) × هَلْ خَالِدًا أَكْرَمْتَ
✓ أَخَالِدًا أَكْرَمْتَ
[معاني النحو 4/243]
«Is it K͡hālid you honored?»

هَلْ is used in an exceptive question sentence that gives the meaning of a negative sentence. أَ is not used in this manner. For example:

(1559) ✓ أَحَضَرَ إِلَّا مُحَمَّدٌ × هَلْ حَضَرَ إِلَّا مُحَمَّدٌ [معاني النحو 4/243]
«Did anyone come except Muḥammad?»
(i.e. «No one came except Muḥammad.»)

Also, أَ because of its direct nature can imply that the action being asked about was done or is being done. هَلْ has no such implication.[2] For example:

(1560) أَتَضْرِبُ زَيدًا [كتاب سيبويه citing معاني النحو 4/247]
«Are you beating Zayd?»
(The implication could be that you *are* beating him and the question is in response to your action.)

(1561) هَلْ تَضْرِبُ زَيدًا [كتاب سيبويه citing معاني النحو 4/247]
«Are you beating Zayd?»
(There is no implication you are beating him.)

Similarly,

(1562) أَحَضَرَ خَالِدٌ [معاني النحو 4/248]
«Did K͡hālid come?»
(The implication could be that you expected K͡hālid to have come and you are confirming whether he did.)

(1563) هَلْ حَضَرَ خَالِدٌ [معاني النحو 4/248]
«Did K͡hālid come?»
(There is no implication you expected K͡hālid to have come.)

[2] معاني النحو 4/247

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هَلْ with the verb تَسْتَطِيعُ «can» can also be used for requests.[3] For example:

(1564) هَلْ تَسْتَطِيعُ أَنْ تُرِيَنِي كَيْفَ كَانَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَتَوَضَّأُ [سنن النسائي: 98]
«Can you show me how the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ would perform wuḍ̄hū'?»

40.2.7. هَلْ لَكَ فِي

Wright 2/309D

40.2.8. أَلَا, هَلَّا

Wright 310D

40.3. Sentence word order

In a question sentence, the noun being asked about is typically put first in sentence word order. So, for example, if the question sentence is led with a verb, then it is the action of the verb which is being asked about:

(1565) أَحَضَرَ مُحَمَّدٌ [معاني النحو 4/270]
«Did Muḥammad attend?»
(i.e. did Muḥammad's attending occur?)

But if the noun comes first, then the identity of the person attending is being asked about:

(1566) أَمُحَمَّدٌ حَضَرَ [معاني النحو 4/270]
«Is it Muḥammad who attended?»

Similarly,

(1567) أَأَكْرَمْتَ مُحَمَّدًا [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Did you honor Muḥammad?»

(1568) أَمُحَمَّدًا أَكْرَمْتَ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Is it Muḥammad you honored?»

and

[3] See also the tafsīr of إِذْ قَالَ ٱلْحَوَارِيُّونَ يَٰعِيسَى ٱبْنَ مَرْيَمَ هَلْ يَسْتَطِيعُ رَبُّكَ أَن يُنَزِّلَ عَلَيْنَا مَآئِدَةً مِّنَ ٱلسَّمَآءِ [سورة المائدة 5:112]

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(1569) أَسَافَرَ خَالِدٌ يَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Did K͡hālid journey on Friday?»

(1570) أَيَوْمَ الْجُمُعَةِ سَافَرَ خَالِدٌ [معاني النحو 4/271]
«Is it on Friday K͡hālid journeyed?»

40.4. مَا and مَنْ

40.4.1. Position in the beginning of the question sentence

All question-devices typically occur in the beginning of the question sentence. (Particles like وَ, فَ, etc. are allowed to precede them.) For example,

(1571) مَنْ أَنْتَ؟ [Wright 2/311D]
«Who are you?»

(1572) وَمَا تِلْكَ بِيَمِينِكَ؟ [سورة طه 20:17]
«And what is that in your right hand?»

In both the above examples, the question nouns مَا and مَنْ are in the u-case as the subject of their respective question sentences.

When the question is asking about the direct object of a verb, then too is the question noun placed in the beginning of the sentence. For example,

(1573) مَا تَقُولُ؟ [Wright 2/312A]
«What do you say?»

(1574) مَنْ قَتَلْتَ؟ [Wright 2/311D]
«Whom did you kill?»

(1575) مَا فَرَضَ رَبُّكَ عَلَىٰ أُمَّتِكَ؟ [صحيح مسلم :162a]
«What has your Lord enjoined upon your Ummah?»

In the above three examples, the question nouns مَا and مَنْ are analyzed as the a-case direct object of the verb following it.

It is also possible, in such cases, for the verb to have a pronoun direct object. For example:

(1576) مَنْ رَأَيْتَهُ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 5/436]
«Whom did you see?»
(instead of مَنْ رَأَيْتَ)

Work in progress

In example (1576) above, مَنْ can be analyzed as either a (positional) u-case subject such that the verbal sentence رَأَيْتَهُ is its info, or مَنْ can be a preoccupied-from direct object (see (ref)).[4]

The question nouns are exempted from being placed in the beginning of the question noun when they are in the i-case: either following a preposition, or as the annexed-to in an annexation. For example,

(1577) لِمَنْ هَـٰذَا ٱلْقَصْرُ؟ [جامع الترمذي: 3688]
«Whose is this palace?»

(1578) بِنْتُ مَنْ أَنْتِ؟ [Wright 2/311D]
«Whose daughter are you?»

40.4.2. مَا shortened to مَ in the i-case

When the question noun مَا *mā* is in the i-case it is typically shortened to مَ *ma*. Example:

(1579) بِمَ يَرْجِعُ؟ [سنن ابن ماجه: 4108]
«With what does he return?»

This shortened مَ is also usually joined to the preposition before it, even for prepositions constituting more than one letter (which don't typically join to the word directly following it). So we get:

- بِمَ for بِمَا
- لِمَ for لِمَا
- فِيمَ for فِي مَا
- إِلَامَ for إِلَىٰ مَا
- عَلَامَ for عَلَىٰ مَا
- حَتَّامَ for حَتَّىٰ مَا
- مِمَّ for مِمَّا (مِنْ مَا)
- عَمَّ for عَمَّا (عَنْ مَا)

When pausing on this shortened مَ, a هْ is appended to it to preserve the sound of the fat·ḥah. For example:

(1580) لِمَهْ؟
limah?
«For what?»

[4] مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 5/436

Work in progress

The shortened مَ is also used when it is the annexed-to in an annexation. However, in this case it won't be joined to the previous word. For example:

(1581) مِثْلُ مَ أَنْتَ؟ [Wright 1/275A]
«What are you like?»

40.4.3. مَا and مَنْ referred back to with an i-case pronoun

As an alternative to placing the question noun مَا or مَنْ after the preposition or annexe, the question noun may be placed in the beginning of the sentence and it is referred back to by a pronoun. For example,

(1582) قُلْ مَنْ بِيَدِهِ مَلَكُوتُ كُلِّ شَيْءٍ [سورة المؤمنون 23:88]
«Say, "In whose hand is the realm of all things"»

(1583) مَاذَا يَسْتَعْجِلُ مِنْهُ الْمُجْرِمُونَ [سورة يونس 10:50]
«for which [aspect] of it would the criminals be impatient?»

40.4.4. Verb gender when inquiring about the doer of a verb

The question nouns مَا and مَنْ are themselves masculine singular nouns. But they can be used to ask about nouns of any gender or number. For example,

(1584) وَمَا تِلْكَ بِيَمِينِكَ؟ [سورة طه 20:17]
«And what is that in your right hand?»

(1585) مَنْ هَـٰؤُلَاءِ ٱلرِّجَالُ؟
«Who are these men?»

When inquiring about the doer of a verb, then the verb is usually construed with a masculine singular doer to match the question noun. For example:

(1586) مَنْ جَاءَ؟
«Who has come?»

(1587) مَا يُبْكِيكَ؟ [جامع الترمذي :3894]
«What makes you cry?»

Ocassionally, the feminine verb may be used if asking about a feminine doer. For example:

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(1588) مَنْ كَانَتْ أُمَّكَ؟ [5] [Wright 2/313C]
«Who was your mother?»

If the question is regarding a specific number and gender, then we are more likely to insert the corresponding specific connected noun (ٱلَّذِي, etc.) between the question noun مَن and the verb. For example:

(1589) مَنِ اللَّتَانِ تَظَاهَرَتَا عَلَى النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم مِنْ أَزْوَاجِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 4913]
«Who are the ones$_{2f}$, from his wives, who aided one another against the Prophet ﷺ?»

Note that now the dual feminine doer pronoun ا in تَظَاهَرَتَا is the refer-back pronoun that refers back to the connected noun ٱللَّتَانِ.

40.4.5. An indefinite noun after مَا and مَنْ

The question nouns مَا and مَنْ cannot occur as annexes. Nor can either of them be a replacee. So any indefinite noun after them must necessarily be the info of the question sentence. For example, مَنْ فَارِسٌ؟ [Wright 2/312C] can only mean, "Who is a horseman?" not "Who horseman?" or "Which horseman?"

40.4.6. مَاذَا and مَنْ ذَا

To lend more force to the question or to make it more lively, ذَا may be appended to the question nouns مَا and مَنْ. For example,

(1590) مَاذَا قَالَ رَبُّكُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 4800]
«What did your lord say?»

With مَنْ ذَا especially, but also with مَا, the specific connected noun ٱلَّذِي is often appended as well. For example:

(1591) مَنْ ذَا الَّذِي قَالَ هَذَا [سنن ابن ماجه: 3802]
«Who is the one that said this?»

(1592) مَاذَا ٱلَّذِي تَقُولُ؟ [Wright 2/312B]
«What is it that you say?»

Note that ذَا is also a variant pointing noun meaning "this" or "that". In which case, it can be the info of the question sentence by itself. For example:

[5] See also البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة النساء 4:176 (فإن كانتا اثنتين) and البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الأنعام 6:23 (ثم لم تكن فتنتهم)

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(1593) فَدَقَقْتُ الْبَابَ، فَقَالَ: مَنْ ذَا؟ فَقُلْتُ: أَنَا، قَالَ: أَنَا، أَنَا؟، كَأَنَّهُ كَرِهَهُ. [الأدب المفرد: 1086]
«So I knocked at the door. He said, 'Who is that?' I said, 'I.' He said 'I? I?' as if he disliked it.»

40.4.7. Why

Arabic has no distinct question-device for "why". Instead, the question noun مَا is used with a preposition, typically لِ to give the meaning "For what?". For example,

(1594) لِمَ فَعَلَ ذَلِكَ [صحيح مسلم: 705b]
«Why did he do that?»

(1595) لِمَاذَا وَلَّيْتَ بَعْدَ مَجِيِّكَ إِلَىٰ هَـٰهُنَا؟ [Wright 2/312B]
«Why did you turn back after your coming here?»

Sometimes, other prepositions like عَلَىٰ and بِ may be used. But this is dependent on the verb in the sentence. For example,

(1596) عَلَامَ يَقْتُلُ أَحَدُكُمْ أَخَاهُ [مشكاة المصابيح: 4562]
«Why does one of you kill his brother?»
i.e. "on what [basis]"

(1597) بِمَ يَأْخُذ أحدكُم مَال أَخِيه؟ [مشكاة المصابيح: 2840]
«Why should any of you take his brother's property?»
i.e. "by what [justification]"

And often times, the meaning "why" is conveyed using مَا when a suitable verb exists. For example:

(1598) مَا يُبْكِيكَ؟ [جامع الترمذي: 3894]
«What makes you cry?»
i.e. "Why are you crying?"

40.4.8. Applicability of مَا and مَنْ to intelligent and non-intelligent beings

In (give ref) we discussed how, sometimes, the connected noun مَا may be used for intelligent beings and مَنْ for non-intelligent beings. Those same guidelines apply for مَا and مَنْ when they are question nouns. For example, when inquiring about the nature or qualities of a person مَا may be used. Examples:

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(1599) فَقُلْتُ لَهُ مَا أَنْتَ قَالَ أَنَا نَبِيٌّ. فَقُلْتُ وَمَا نَبِيٌّ قَالَ أَرْسَلَنِي اللَّهُ [صحيح مسلم :832]
«I said, 'Who are you?' He said, 'I am a prophet.' So I said, 'And who is a prophet?' He said 'Allāh has sent me.'»

40.5. أَيّ

In section .. we studied أَيّ as a general connected noun. Just like مَا and مَنْ, أَيّ too can be a question noun for "which" questions. Many of the rules that apply the question nouns مَا and مَنْ also apply to أَيّ. For example, the default position of أَيّ is in the beginning of the question sentence.

However, أَيّ is also different from مَا and مَنْ in some respects. For example, consistent with what we learned in its use as a connected noun, the question noun أَيّ is a fully-flexible noun and can be used indiscriminately for both intelligent and non-intelligent beings.

Also, أَيّ is typically the annexe in an annexation. When أَيّ is a connected noun, then its annexed-to is usually definite. But when أَيّ is a question noun, then its annexed-to may be either definite or indefinite.

40.5.1. أَيّ with a definite annexed-to

When the annexed-to of أَيّ is a definite noun, the annexation has the meaning "which [one] of". For example,

(1600) فَأَيَّ آيَاتِ ٱللَّهِ تُنكِرُونَ [سورة غافر 40:81]
«So which of the signs of Allāh do you deny?»

(1601) أَيُّ الأَعْمَالِ أَفْضَلُ [سنن أبي داود :1449]
«Which of the deeds is best?»

(1602) فَأَيُّ الْفَرِيقَيْنِ أَحَقُّ بِالْأَمْنِ [سورة الأنعام 6:81]
«So which of the two parties has more right to security»

(1603) مِنْ أَيِّ أَيَّامِ الشَّهْرِ كَانَ يَصُومُ [صحيح مسلم :1160]
«From which of the days of the month would he fast?»

As in the examples above, the annexed-to in such a case is typically a plural or a dual. If the annexed-to is a definite singular noun, then there is an implied partitive meaning, i.e. "which part of".[6] For example,

[6] Wright 2/220A

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(1604) فِي أَيِّ طَعَامِهِ يُبَارَكُ لَهُ [سنن أبي داود: 3845]
«in which (part) of his food is the blessing»

(1605) مِنْ أَيِّ الْمَالِ [سنن أبي داود: 4063]
«From which (category) of wealth?»

However, if the noun is of generic definiteness then the partitive aspect indicates one out of the set that constitutes the generic type. In English the plural is often used to signify the generic type. For example the generic type ٱلْعَمَل "the deed" can be translated in English as "deeds". So أَيُّ ٱلْعَمَلِ means "which one from the generic type 'deeds'" or simply "which deed". Examples:

(1606) أَيُّ الْعَمَلِ أَحَبُّ إِلَى اللهِ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ؟ [الأدب المفرد: 1]
«Which deed is most beloved to Allāh?»

(1607) أَيُّ الدُّعَاءِ أَفْضَلُ [الأدب المفرد: 637]
"Which supplication is best?"

(1608) أَيُّ الذَّنْبِ أَعْظَمُ عِنْدَ اللَّهِ [صحيح البخاري: 4477]
«Which deed is most enormous in the sight of Allāh?»

40.5.2. أَيّ with a indefinite annexed-to

When the annexed-to of أَيّ is a indefinite noun, the annexation has the meaning "which" without "of". For example,

(1609) أَيَّ شَيْءٍ كُنْتَ تَصْنَعُ [سنن ابن ماجه: 2606]
«Which thing would you do?»

(1610) أَيَّ شَيْءٍ نَشْتَهِي [صحيح مسلم: 1887]
«What thing shall we desire?»

(1611) أَيُّ لَيْلَةٍ لَيْلَةُ الْقَدْرِ [جامع الترمذي: 3513]
«Which night is the night of Decree»

If the annexed-to is a dual or plural indefinite then then inquiry is about the complete number, not just one of them. For example:

(1612) أَيُّ رِجَالٍ؟ [Wright 2/220A]
«Which men?»

(1613) أَيُّ رَجُلَيْنِ؟ [Wright 2/220A]
«Which two men?»

work in progress

40.5.3. Matching the rest of the question sentence with أَيّ

أَيّ itself, like مَا and مَنْ, is singular masculine. For the purpose of matching the rest of the question sentence with أَيّ, either it can match the singular masculine to match with the word أَيّ, or it can match the gender and number of what أَيّ refers to. For example,

(1614) أَيُّ أَزْوَاجِ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم اسْتَعَاذَتْ مِنْهُ [صحيح البخاري :5254]
«Which of the wives of the Prophet sought refuge (with Allāh) from him?»
(اسْتَعَاذَتْ is a feminine verb to match the feminine "wife".)

(1615) فَأَيُّ نِسَاءِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم كَانَ أَحْظَى عِنْدَهُ مِنِّي [صحيح مسلم :1423]
«So which of the women of the Prophet was dearer to him than I?»
(كَانَ is a masculine verb to match masculine أَيّ.)

40.5.4. أَيّ standalone without a annexed-to

Occasionally, أَيّ is used without a annexed-to. It is then, technically, indefininte. However, the meaning of an annexation is still implicit. This may be when أَيّ has already been used once with an an annexation, and subsequent uses of أَيّ are restricted to the previously mentioned annexation. For example,

(1616) أَيُّ الْعَمَلِ أَحَبُّ إِلَى اللهِ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ؟ قَالَ الصَّلاَةُ عَلَى وَقْتِهَا، قُلْتُ ثُمَّ أَيٌّ؟ [الأدب المفرد :1]
«'Which deed is most beloved to Allāh?' He replied, 'Prayer at its proper time.' I said, 'Then which?'»

See also section … below, where أَيّ is used standalone in a response.

40.5.5. أَيّ annexed to multiple annexed-tos

One أَيّ may be annexed to multiple annexed-tos separated by وَ "and". For example,

(1617) أَيُّ زِرَاعَةِ ٱلْفَاكِهَةِ وَزِرَاعَةِ ٱلْقُطْنِ أَرْبَحُ؟ [النحو الوافي 3/107]
«Which one of the agriculture of fruit, and the agriculture of cotton is more profitable?»

In such a case, it is optional to have one أَيّ or to repeat it. So we could also say, for the same meaning:

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(1618) أَيُّ زِرَاعَةِ ٱلْفَاكِهَةِ وَأَيُّ زِرَاعَةِ ٱلْقُطْنِ أَرْبَحُ؟

However, if one of the annexed-tos is an attached pronoun then repeating أَيّ is mandatory.[7] Example:

(1619) أَيِّي وَأَيُّكَ أَعْلَمُ؟
«Which one of you and me is more knowledgeable?»

أَيِّي وَأَيُّكَ is equivalent to أَيُّنَا but it spells out the two options to choose from.

40.6. The question sentence within another sentence[8]

TODO

40.7. Usage of question nouns in quoting and standalone[9]

TODO

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Interpretating a question-device vs a connected noun

We saw in example () above that أَيّ could be interpreted as a question-device or as a connected noun. This can be done with the other general connected nouns as well like مَنْ and مَا. But there can be a difference in meaning when one interpretation is chosen over the other.[10] Consider the following sentence:

(1620) عَلِمْتُ مَنْ قَامَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية citing معاني النحو 2/37]
«I knew who stood.»

If you choose to interpret مَنْ as an connected noun, then you are saying that the person who stood was known to you. As if to say, "I am familiar with the person who stood." مَنْ in this case is (itself) the direct object of عَلِمْتُ.

[7] Wright 2/220B
[8] التعليق. See ٢/٣٧ (ظن وأخواتها) معاني النحو; ٢/٢٧ النحو الوافي; Howell, part II, book 5, §444, pp. 155–165.
[9] الحكاية. See Wright, vol. i., §352–353, pp. 275B–276B, vol. ii, §170, p. 313
[10] معاني النحو 2/37

And if you choose to interpret مَنْ as an question-device, then you are saying that you knew the answer of the question, “Who stood?” So you could pick him out of a line-up. But you are not necessarily saying that you know, or are familiar with, that person. The entire question sentence in this case is the direct object of عَلِمْتُ.

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Similarly, consider:

(1621) سَلْ أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/347]
«Ask: which of them stood?»

When أَيّ is a question-device then you are commanding someone to ask the question, “Which of them stood?” But if you say, with أَيّ in the a-case:

(1622) سَلْ أَيَّهُمْ قَامَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/347]
«Ask the one of them who stood.»

then you are commanding someone to interrogate the person (amongst a group of people) who stood.[11]

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40.8. Differentiating question-devices from their other functions

معاني النحو 2/37

Many of the question-devices (أَ, مَنْ, مَا, كَيْفَ, etc.) also have other functions. For example, in chapter @ref(the-connected-nouns) we learned that مَنْ, مَا, and أَيّ are also connected nouns. Many of the question nouns can also be used as *conditional nouns* that we will study in chapter @ref(…), if Allāh wills.

In this section, we will discuss briefly how to determine when words like أَ, مَنْ, مَا, كَيْفَ, etc. are question-devices, and when they could have one of their other functions.

The basic principle regarding a question sentence is that it is to be treated as one unit. A word from within a question sentence is not, individually, affected by anything outside the question. Let’s try to understand this using an example.

Consider the following sentence:

(1623) اِسْأَلْ أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ
ʾisʾal ʾayyuhum qām
«Ask: ‘Which of them stood?’»

[11] النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 1/347

The speaker is commanding the addressed person to ask a group of people the question: “Which of them stood”.

The question sentence is أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ *ʾayyuhum qām* «Which of them stood». This entire sentence is considered the direct object of the verb of command ٱسْأَلْ “ask!”. The question noun أَيٌّ *ʾayyu* is in the u-case because it is the subject of the question sentence. It does not become أَيَّ *ʾayya* in the a-case because it is not, by itself, the direct object of ٱسْأَلْ. Rather, as we have just stated, the entire question sentence is the direct object. But because the direct object is a sentence, and not an individual word, it does not indicate its case using, for example, an fat·ḥah ◌َ.

Now, let’s modify the example. Consider now this sentence:

(1624) ٱِسْأَلْ أَيَّهُمْ قَامَ
ʾisʾal ʾayyahum qām
«Ask the one of them who stood!»

Now, the noun أَيَّ is in the a-case because it (individually) is the direct object of the verb of command ٱسْأَلْ. The speaker is now commanding the addressed person to ask (something) of only the person who stood, out of a group of people. The rest of the people are not to be asked. Because the noun أَيَّ is individually affected by the preceding verb ٱسْأَلْ it is now not a question noun, and must be one of the other functions that the word أيّ can have. As a matter of fact, it is here a connected noun, and the sentence following it: قَامَ “he stood” is its connecting sentence.

The other noteworthy point regarding questions (besides their being considered one unit) is that they may only be preceded either by a verb of knowledge, (like عَلِمَ, دَرىٰ, etc.) or by an expression indicating that the question is being quoted. We have already seen an example of the question being quoted in the example:

(1625) ٱِسْأَلْ أَيُّهُمْ قَامَ
«Ask: ‘Which of them stood?’»

An example of a question being preceded by a verb of knowledge is:

(1626) مَا عَلِمْتُ أَذَهَبَ أَمْ مَكَثَ
«I don’t know whether he went or stayed.»

Here the question sentence is: أَذَهَبَ أَمْ مَكَثَ «Did he go or did he stay?»

By the way, a question sentence may be part of a bigger question as well. For example:

(1627) أَتَدْرِي أَيُّهُمْ فِي ٱلدَّارِ؟
ʾatadrī ʾayyuhum fi -ddār
«Do you know: which of them is in the house?»

Work in progress

Note now the subtle difference in meaning if we change the case of أَيّ in the above example from the u-case to the a-case:

(1628) أَتَدْرِي أَيَّهُمْ فِي ٱلدَّارِ؟
ʾatadrī ʾayyahum fi -ddār
« Do you know the one of them who is in the house? »

When أَيّ was in the u-case it was a question noun. And the speaker was asking the addressed person if he could figure out who, from among the group of people, was in the house.

When أَيّ is in the a-case it is now a connected noun. The connecting sentence's refer-back pronoun is omitted (as is permissible in this case, see section @ref(…)). With the refer-back pronoun restored, the sentence is أَتَدْرِي أَيَّهُمْ هُوَ فِي ٱلدَّارِ؟ And the speaker is asking the addressed person if he is familiar with the person who is in the house. Now he is not asking the addressed person to identify him, but rather if knows him as a person.

This difference is apparent with أَيّ because it is a flexible noun whose case is indicated by the vowel mark at its end. The same occurs in the other question nouns that are also connected nouns: مَا, and مَنْ but it won't often be as apparent because they are rigid nouns.

As a final note, sometimes, one of the words like أَ, مَنْ, مَا, كَيْفَ, etc. may be preceded by parts of a sentence that are neither quoting, nor a verb of knowledge. Here we can be sure that the word is not a question-device and must be one of its other functions. However, it still may not be easy to figure out what that other function is. Nevertheless, the meaning of the sentence can still usually be gleaned. For example:

(1629) فَلْتَدْخُلْ مِنْ أَيِّ أَبْوَابِ الْجَنَّةِ شَاءَتْ
« then let her enter from whichever of the doors of paradise she wishes. »[^question-vs-other-functions]

Work in progress

Chapter 41.

The conditional sentence

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Glossary of terms used in this chapter

Conditional sentence	الجُمْلة الشَّرْطِيّة
Conditional-device	أَداة الشَّرْط
ø-case-izing conditional-devices	أَدَوات الشَّرْط الجازِمة
Non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices	أَدَوات الشَّرْط غَيْر الجازِمة
Condition	الشَّرْط
Condition-core	جُمْلة الشَّرْط
Condition-verb	فِعْل الشَّرْط
Condition-response	جَواب الشَّرْط
Condition-response-core	جُمْلة جَواب الشَّرْط
Condition-response-verb	فِعْل جَواب الشَّرْط
Condition-response-link	[الفاء] المُقْتَرَنَة بِجَواب الشَّرْط
Request-response	جَواب الطَّلَب

Work in progress

41.1. Introduction

Here is an example of a conditional sentence in English:

(1630) « If you come to me, then I will honor you. »

Figure 41.1 shows its parts.

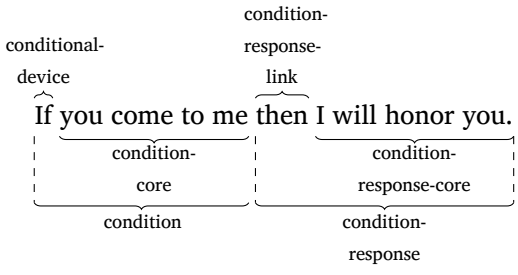


Figure 41.1.: The parts of a conditional sentence.

As you can see, a conditional sentence is a special sentence, which consists of two parts:

1. A *condition* (« If you come to me ») The condition itself consists of two parts:
    i. The *conditional-device*: (« if »)
    ii. The *condition-core*: (« you come to me »)
2. A *condition-response*. (« then I will come to you ») The condition-response can also consist of two parts:
    i. The *condition-response-link*: (« then »). This may be null for some conditional sentences.
    ii. The *condition-response-core*: (« I will honor you »)

There are many *conditional-devices* in Arabic. Some common ones are:

- إِنْ « if »
- إِذَا « when »
- لَوْ « if »
- مَنْ « who(ever) »
- مَا « what(ever) »

We will study them in the following sections.

Work in progress

41.2. The إِنْ conditional sentence

إِنْ is considered the most basic of all the conditional-devices.[1]

There are a few different types of conditional sentence that can be formed with إِنْ. We will discuss them below:

[1] كتاب سيبويه 3/63; شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/106

41.2.1. The archetypal إِنْ conditional sentence

Here is an example of an archetypal, or most basic, conditional sentence:

(1631) إِنْ يَأْتِ زَيْدٌ يُكْرِمْهُ عَمْرٌو
«If Zayd will come, Ɛamr will honor him.»

The archetypal, إِنْ conditional sentence uses ø-case PC verbs in both the condition and the condition-response. This conditional sentence consists of two parts:

1. a condition, (إِنْ يَأْتِ زَيْدٌ)
   consisting of:
   i. the conditional-device (إِنْ), and
   ii. the condition-core (يَأْتِ زَيْدٌ), which is a verbal sentence containing:
      - a ø-case PC verb known as the *condition-verb* (يَأْتِ)
      - its doer (زَيْدٌ)
2. a condition-response, (يُكْرِمْهُ عَمْرٌو) consisting of:
   i. the condition-response-core (يُكْرِمْهُ عَمْرٌو), which is a verbal sentence containing:
      - a ø-case PC verb known as the *condition-response-verb* (يُكْرِمْ)
      - its doer (عَمْرٌو)

   There is no condition-response-link in the archetypal إِنْ conditional sentence.

The conditional particle إِنْ directly governs the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the ø-case.[2]

Figure 41.2 depicts this government for example (1631) above.

Here are some more examples of the archetypal conditional sentence:

(1632) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي آتِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/63]
«If you will come to me, I will come to you.»

(1633) إن تضرب أضرب [كتاب سيبويه 3/63]
«If you will beat, I will beat.»

41.2.2. The SC verb with إِنْ

A SC verb can be used instead of one or both of the ø-case verbs in a conditional sentence. So, for example, instead of saying:

[2]Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 3–4 citing كتاب سيبويه

Work in progress

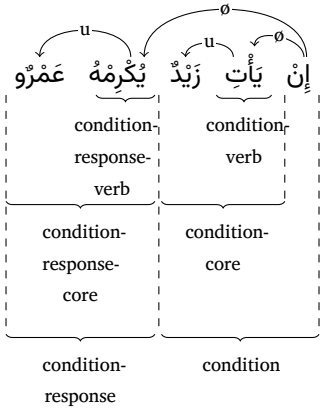


Figure 41.2.: A government diagram of a basic conditional sentence. The arrows flow from governor to governee and are labelled with the state of the governee.

(1634) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي أُكْرِمْكَ

we can say, any one of:

(1635) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ

(1636) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أُكْرِمْكَ

(1637) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ

Work in progress

As a matter of fact, in terms of frequency of usage, the SC verb is more common than the archetypal ø-case PC verb in conditional sentences.[3]

In general, all four options will have more-or-less the same meaning: «If you come to me, I will come to you». In Section 41.6 below, we will discuss the tense indicated by conditional sentences in more detail. But for now we can generally consider the SC verb in a conditional sentence to lose its past tense.

For convenience, in this, and the following sections, we will use قَتَلَ to refer to a SC verb form in either the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb. Similarly, we will use يَقْتُلُ, يَقْتُلَ and يَقْتُلْ to refer to u-case, a-case, and ø-case PC verbs respectively.

Of the four options in examples (1634) through (1637), the combinations إِنْ يَقْتُلْ يَقْتُلْ and إِنْ قَتَلَ قَتَلَ are most preferred. This is because they exhibit a symmetry between the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb.[4]

The combination إِنْ قَتَلَ يَقْتُلْ, however, is by no means uncommon.

[3] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 14–15. See also footnote 5 on p. 15

[4] كتاب سيبويه 3/91 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 7–8

But combination إِنْ يَقْتُلْ قَتَلَ is the least commonly found in actual usage. This is because when the condition-verb is يَقْتُلْ it prefers the presence of another يَقْتُلْ after it as the condition-response-verb.[5] Nevertheless, this combination is occasionally found, as we show in example (1648) below.

With regards to the government of the conditional sentences in examples (1635) through (1637), The conditional-device إِنْ will continue to govern the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the ø-case directly, regardless of whether the verbs are يَقْتُلْ or قَتَلَ. For a قَتَلَ verb, إِنْ will govern it in the positional ø-case.[6]

In other words, for example (1635) above, إِنْ does not govern the verbal sentences أَتَيْتَنِي and أَكْرَمْتُكَ in the positional ø-case. Rather, the SC verbs أَتَى and أَكْرَمَ are, both times, directly governed in the positional ø-case.[7]

Figure 41.3 depicts the government of example (1635).

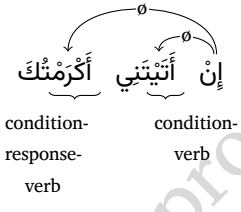


Figure 41.3.

Here are some examples from attested usage of combinations of SC verbs and PC verbs in conditional sentences:

Examples of إِنْ يَقْتُلْ يَقْتُلْ:

(1638) وَإِن تَعُودُواْ نَعُدْ [سورة الأنفال 8:19]
«but if you return [to war], We will return»

(1639) وَإِنْ تَسْأَلِ الْجَارِيَةَ تَصْدُقْكَ [صحيح البخاري :4750]
«If you ask the slave-girl, she will tell you the truth.»

(1640) إِنْ أَنْطِقْ أُطَلَّقْ وَإِنْ أَسْكُتْ أُعَلَّقْ [الشمائل المحمدية :252]
«If I speak, I will be divorced. And If I stay quiet, I will be left suspended.»

(1641) إِنْ تَقْتُلْنِي تَقْتُلْ ذَا دَمٍ وَإِنْ تُنْعِمْ تُنْعِمْ عَلَى شَاكِرٍ [صحيح البخاري :4372]
«If you kill me, you kill a person wanted for a killing. But if you bestow favor, you bestow favor on a grateful person.»

[5] كتاب سيبويه 3/66
[6] النحو الوافي 4/22
[7] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للحازمي 113/1

Work in progress

Examples of إِنْ قَتَلَ قَتَلَ:

(1642) إِنْ أَحْسَنتُمْ أَحْسَنتُمْ لِأَنفُسِكُمْ [سورة الإسراء 17:7]
«If you do good, you do good for yourselves»

(1643) وَإِنْ عُدتُّمْ عُدْنَا [سورة الإسراء 17:8]
«But if you return [to sin], We will return [to punishment].»

(1644) إِنْ أَذِنْتَ لِي أَعْطَيْتُ هَؤُلاَءِ [صحيح البخاري: 2602]
«If you permit me, I will give to these [people].»

(1645) إِنْ أَحْسَنَ النَّاسُ أَحْسَنَّا وَإِنْ ظَلَمُوا ظَلَمْنَا [جامع الترمذي: 2007]
«If the people are good to us, we will be good [to them]. And if they wrong [us], we will wrong [them].»

(1646) إِنْ كَرِهَ مِنْهَا خُلُقًا رَضِيَ مِنْهَا آخَرَ [صحيح مسلم: 1468b]
«If he dislikes a characteristic of hers, he is pleased with another [characteristic of hers].»

Examples of إِنْ قَتَلَ يَقْتُلْ:

(1647) وَإِنْ أَدْرَكَنِي يَوْمُكَ أَنْصُرْكَ نَصْرًا مُؤَزَّرًا [صحيح البخاري: 3392 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 16]
«If your day should overtake me, I will aid you.»

Examples of إِنْ يَقْتُلْ قَتَلَ:

(1648) إِنْ يَعْلَمُوا أَنِّي قَدْ أَسْلَمْتُ قَالُوا فِيَّ مَا لَيْسَ فِيَّ [صحيح البخاري: 3911 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17]
«If they know that I have accepted Islām, they will say about me that which is not [true].»

41.2.3. Negating the condition or condition-response

When either of the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb are to be negated, then we have two options:

i. لَا يَقْتُلْ
ii. لَمْ يَقْتُلْ

Work in progress

Negations مَا قَتَلَ and لَنْ يَقْتُلَ are not used when negating the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb.[8] (They can however be used when negating a verb which is not directly the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb, as we will see in Section 41.7.1, if Allāh wills.)

لَا يَقْتُلْ is considered the negative counterpart of يَقْتُلْ. And لَمْ يَقْتُلْ is considered the negative counterpart of قَتَلَ. And as with positive conditional sentences, a symmetry between the condition-verb and the condition-response is preferred.

So if the condition is إِنْ قَتَلَ, then لَمْ يَقْتُلْ is preferred in the condition-response.[9] For example:

(1649) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لَمْ آتِكَ [composed from شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295]
«If you come to me, I will not come to you.»

And if the condition is إِنْ يَقْتُلْ, then لَا يَقْتُلْ is preferred in the condition-response.[10] For example:

(1650) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي لَا آتِكَ [composed from شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295]
«If you come to me, I will not come to you.»

The non-symmetric combination إِنْ لَمْ يَقْتُلْ يَقْتُلْ, (corresponding to إِنْ قَتَلَ يَقْتُلْ), is also fairly common. For example:

(1651) إِنْ لَمْ تَأْتِنِي أَجْزِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/68]
«If you don't come to me, I will recompense you.»

But as with the combination إِنْ يَقْتُلْ قَتَلَ in Section 41.2.2 above, the combination إِنْ يَقْتُلْ لَمْ يَقْتُلْ is uncommon. For example:

(1652) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي لَمْ آتِكَ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295]
«If you come to me, I will not come to you.»

In any case, symmetry is by no means mandatory, and the longer the distance (in words) between the condition-verb and the condition-response, the easier it is to disregard its being preferred.[11]

With regards to their frequencies in attested usage, option (i) لَا يَقْتُلْ is possibly the more original,[12] but it is rarer in usage. Here are some examples:

(1653) إِلَّا تَفْعَلُوهُ تَكُن فِتْنَةٌ فِى ٱلْأَرْضِ وَفَسَادٌ كَبِيرٌ [سورة الأنفال 8:73 cited by Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 487]
«If you do not do so [i.e., ally yourselves with other believers], there will be fitnah [i.e., disbelief and oppression] on earth and great corruption.»

[8] النحو الوافي 4/445
[9] شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295
[10] شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/295
[11] شرح كتاب سيبويه للرماني - جزء منه 951
[12] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17

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(1654) إِنْ تَدْفِنُوا الدَّاءَ لَا نُخْفِهِ [Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 487]
«If you bury the rancor, we will not conceal it»

(1655) إِنْ لَا تَكُنْ هِنْدٌ بَكَتْهُ فَقَدْ بَكَتْ عَلَيْهِ الثُّرَيَّا [Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 487]
«If Hind did not weep [for] him, then the Pleiades have wept over him»
(The condition-response in this example begins with فَ. We will discuss this in Section 41.7 below.)

(1656) اللهُمّ إِنْ تَظْهَرْ عَلَيّ هَذِهِ الْعِصَابَةُ يَظْهَرْ الشّرْكُ، وَلَا يَقُمْ لَك دِين [مغازي الواقدي 1/67 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 15]
«O Allāh if this band should gain ascendancy over me, polytheism would gain ascendancy, and a religion would not be established for you.»

(1657) وَإِنْ لَا تَفْعَلْ مَلَأْتُ يَدَكَ شُغْلًا وَلَمْ أَسُدَّ فَقْرَكَ [صحيح ابن حبان: 393]
«And if you don't do [so], I will fill your hand with preoccupation, and I will not block your poverty.»

The particle لَا will not affect the government of the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb. The conditional particle إِنْ will continue to govern these verbs directly in the ø-case. Figure 41.4 depicts the government of the negated condition-response-verb in example (1654) above.

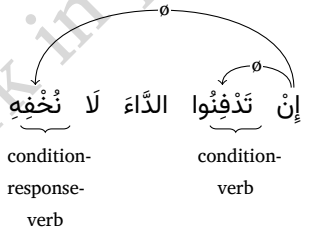


Figure 41.4.

Compared to option (i) لَا يَقْتُلْ, option (ii) لَمْ يَقْتُلْ is by far the more common technique to negate the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb.

Just like the case for قَتَلَ, when لَمْ is used to negate the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb, it also generally loses its past tense.

Here are some examples of the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb, negated with لَمْ:

(1658) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لَمْ آتِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/91]
«If you come to me, I will not come to you.»

(1659) إِنْ لَمْ تَأْتِنِي أَجْزِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/68]
«If you don't come to me, I will recompense you.»

Work in progress

(1660) إِنْ لَمْ تُكْرِمْنِي لَمْ أُكْرِمْكَ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي 6/133]
«If you don't honor me, I will not honor you.»

(1661) إِنِ افْتَرَقْتُمْ لَمْ تَجْتَمِعُوا أَبَدًا [تاريخ الطبري 4/24 cited by Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 485]
«If you factionate, you will not be united ever.»

(1662) وَإِنْ لَمْ يَعْمَلْهَا كُتِبَتْ حَسَنَةً [مسند أحمد :2001]
«And if he did not do it, a good deed is written for him.»

(1663) فَإِنْ وَجَدْتُ بُكَاءً بَكَيْتُ وَإِنْ لَمْ أَجِدْ بُكَاءً تَبَاكَيْتُ لِبُكَائِكُمَا [صحيح مسلم :1763]
«For if I feel like crying I will cry, and if I don't feel like crying, I will compel myself to cry [in sympathy] to your crying.»

The grammarians differed regarding the government of the the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb, when negated with لَمْ.[13] Some grammarians are of the opinion that لَمْ directly governs the ø-case mudarie verb while إِنْ governs the verbal sentences which contain the PC verb. This government is depicted in Figure 41.5 for example (1658).

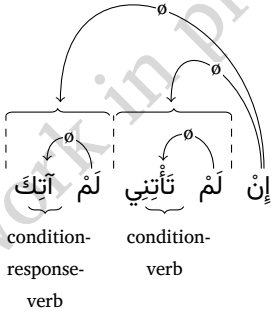


Figure 41.5.

Other grammarians were of the opinion that إِنْ would continue to govern the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb directly, and that لَمْ has no governing effect in this case. This is depicted in Figure 41.6 for the same example (1658).

41.2.4. The inverted conditional sentence

Oftentimes, we come across an *inverted* conditional sentence, where what seems to be the condition-response comes before the condition. For example:

[13] النحو الوافي 4/414–415

Work in progress

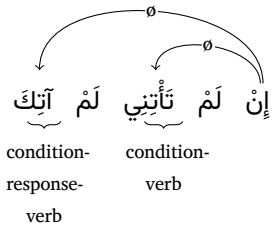


Figure 41.6.

(1664) آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى [5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«I will come to you if you come to me.»

In example (1664) above, it would seem that آتِيكَ is the condition-response and إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى is the condition.

But actually, the mainstream view amongst the grammarians is that آتِيكَ cannot be a condition-response because the condition-response is not allowed to precede the condition.

This view is supported by the fact that the verb in آتِيكَ is in the u-case. If it were a condition-response-verb then it would be in the ø-case, thus: آتِكَ. But a ø-case PC verb in the beginning of sentence, followed by a condition is not a correctly formed sentence. So we cannot say, for example:

(1665) × آتِكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى [5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]

The way the grammarians solve the analysis of example (1664) is by considering آتِيكَ an independent sentence that is leaned. إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى is then considered to be a condition. Its condition-response [آتِكَ] is taqdīred after it. The taqdīred condition-response is deleted in surface speech and its meaning is indicated by the preceding independent sentence آتِيكَ.

The complete sentence with the taqdīr is:

(1666) آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى [آتِكَ]

But how is the conditional sentence إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى [آتِكَ] connected to the preceding independent sentence آتِيكَ? One opinion is that the conditional sentence إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى [آتِكَ] can be considered to be dependent on the verb in آتِيكَ in much the same way as an adverb of time/place or preposition would be,[14] for example, in:

(1667) آتيك يومَ الجمعة [5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل]
«I will come to you the day of Friday.»

[14] 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل

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Having said all the above, there is no problem if we refer to sentences like example (1664) آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي loosely speaking and for convenience, as inverted conditional sentences. As long as we understand that the true condition-response is deleted and taqdīred after the condition in sentence word order.

Here are some more examples of inverted conditional sentences:

(1668) أَحْسِنُ إليك إن أكرمتَنى [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/118]
«I will be good to you if you honor me.»

(1669) أنتِ طالقٌ إن دخلتِ الدارَ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/118]
«You$_f$ are divorced if you enter the house.»

(1670) أنا ظالمٌ إن فعلتُ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/118]
«I [will be] a wrongdoer if I did [some action].»

(1671) لاَ يَقُلْ أَحَدُكُمُ اللَّهُمَّ اغْفِرْ لِي إِنْ شِئْتَ ارْحَمْنِي إِنْ شِئْتَ ارْزُقْنِي إِنْ شِئْتَ وَلْيَعْزِمْ مَسْأَلَتَهُ إِنَّهُ يَفْعَلُ مَا يَشَاءُ لاَ مُكْرِهَ لَهُ [صحيح البخاري: 7477]
«Let not any of you say, "O Allāh, forgive me if You wish, have mercy on me if You wish, provide sustenance me if You wish." [Rather,] let him be resolved in his asking. Indeed He does what He wills, there is no one to compel Him.»

In examples (1669) and (1670) above, the "inverted" condition-responses are the nounal sentences (أَنْتِ طَالِقٌ and أَنَا ظَالِمٌ), not verbal sentences. We will discuss such condition-responses in Section 41.7.1, if Allāh wills.

Note that all the examples of inverted conditional sentences, that we have given so far have إِنْ قَتَلَ in the condition and not إِنْ يَقْتُلْ. This is because, as we mentioned in Section 41.2.2 above, when the condition-verb is يَقْتُلْ it prefers the presence of another يَقْتُلْ after it as the condition-response-verb. So the following example is not preferred:

(1672) آتِيكَ إِنْ تَأْتِنِي [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/118; كتاب سيبويه 3/68]
«I will come to you, if you come to me.»

This is because يَقْتُلْ in the condition (إِنْ تَأْتِنِي) prefers that it have another يَقْتُلْ in the condition-response, and that its condition-response not be deleted.[15]

Having said that, an inverted إِنْ يَقْتُلْ condition could very rarely be found.[16]

إِنْ لَمْ يَقْتُلْ in an inverted conditional sentence is, however, fine. This is because it is the negative counterpart to إِنْ قَتَلَ. For example,

(1673) وَاعْلَمِي أَنِّي امْرُؤٌ سَأَمُوتُ إِنْ لَمْ أُقْتَلِ [عنترة cited by Reckendorf, *Arabische syntax* 488]
«Know that I am a person– I will die if I am not killed.»

[15] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/118; كتاب سيبويه 3/68
[16] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 143

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41.2.5. A u-case PC condition-response-verb

Occassionally we see a conditional sentence of the form إِنْ قَتَلَ يَقْتُلُ. That is, a PC condition-response-verb is in the u-case, not the ø-case. For example:

(1674) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي آتِيكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/66]
«If you come to me, I come to you.»

This structure again requires taqdīr to analyze it. This is because the underlying principle that the grammarians have theorized for the conditional sentence, is that the conditional-device إِنْ governs both the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the ø-case.

One way the grammarians work around this problem is by taqdīring example (1674) to essentially be an inverted conditional sentence, thus:

(1675) آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي [آتِكَ]
«I come to you if you come to me [I come to you].»

Once the original condition-response آتِكَ is deleted, then the independent sentence آتِيكَ is (optionally) moved to after the condition to take the place of the original condition-response آتِكَ.[17]

There is also another technique to analyze such conditional sentences, and that is to assume a deleted فَ (and also possibly a deleted subject) before the condition-response.[18] With the deleted elements restored, restored, the sentence is:

(1676) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي فَآتِيكَ
or
إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي فَأَنا آتِيكَ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للرماني - جزء منه composed from 949]
«If you come to me then I will come to you.»

Condition-responses that begin with فَ will be treated in Section 41.7 below, if Allāh wills.

Here are some more examples of this kind of conditional sentence:

(1677) وإن أتاه خليلٌ يومَ مسألةٍ يقولُ لا غائبٌ مالي ولا حَرِمُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/66]
«And if a friend came to him on a day of asking, he says, “My wealth is neither absent nor denied.”»

Note again, that the condition-verb in these examples has been قَتَلَ, not يَقْتُلْ. This is again consistent with what we mentioned in Section 41.2.2, that when

[17] كتاب سيبويه citing النحو الوافي 4/475–476 (footnotes)
[18] شرح كتاب سيبويه للرماني - جزء منه 949

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the condition-verb is يَقْتُلْ then it prefers the presence of another يَقْتُلْ as the condition-response-verb.

Having said that, a conditional sentence of the form إِنْ يَقْتُلْ يَقْتُلُ is found on occasion, often by poetic license.[19] For example:

(1678) يا أَقْرَعُ بنَ حابسٍ يا أَقْرَعُ ~ إنَّك إن يُصْرَعْ أخوك تُصْرَعُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/67]
«O Aqraɛ son of Ḥābis, O Aqraɛ! Indeed if your brother would be thrown down, you are being thrown down.»
An alternate analysis is that the condition is parenthetical and تُصْرَعُ is the info of إِنَّكَ.[20]

(1679) قَالَتِ اللَّهُمَّ إِنْ يَمُتْ يُقَالُ هِيَ قَتَلَتْهُ [صحيح البخاري :2217 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17]
«She said, "O Allāh if he should die, it will be said, 'She killed him.'"»

41.2.6. إِمَّا

مَا may optionaly be suffixed to إِنْ. The ن is assimilated with the م, and it is then written and pronounced as إِمَّا. By the way, this إِمَّا is distinct from the إِمَّا that is used to signify «either … or».[21] The addition of مَا to إِنْ can emphasize the meaning of the condition-response. Example:

(1680) إمّا تَأْتِنِي آتِكَ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/115]
«If you come to me, I will come to you.»

يَقْتُلْ, as a condition-verb, is only used with إِمَّا uncommonly or by poetic license.[22] Instead, the condition-verb with إِمَّا is usually a emphatic verb (يَقْتُلَنَّ). For example:

(1681) سورة] فَإِمَّا تَرَيِنَّ مِنَ ٱلْبَشَرِ أَحَدًا فَقُولِىٓ إِنِّى نَذَرْتُ لِلرَّحْمَٰنِ صَوْمًا فَلَنْ أُكَلِّمَ ٱلْيَوْمَ إِنسِيًّا مريم 19:26 cited by شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/115]
«And if you see from among humanity anyone, say, 'Indeed, I have vowed to the Most Merciful abstention, so I will not speak today to [any] man.'"»
(فَ introducing the condition-response is discussed in Section 41.7 below.)

[19] كتاب سيبويه 3/67
[20] see الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 246
[21] مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 1/61
[22] النحو الوافي 4/174

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41.3. The إِذَا conditional sentence

41.3.1. The original temporal signification of إِذَا

إِذَا « when » is a noun which originally has a temporal (time) signification rather than a conditional signification.[23] For example,

(1682) آتِيكَ إِذَا احْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/60]
« I will come to you when the unripe dates redden. »

In example (1682) above, the u-case PC verb آتِي signifies its usual imperfect aspect « I come/will come ». This is because example (1682) is technically not a conditional sentence. إِذَا signifies « when », not as a condition which may or may not occur, but as an event which is expected to occur.

إِذَا is in the a-case as a adverb of place. It is governed by the verb آتِي. إِذَا is also a annexe. Its (positional) annexed-to is the following verbal sentence احْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ. The government of example (1682) above is depicted in Figure 41.7.

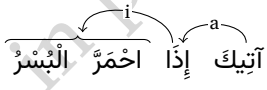


Figure 41.7.

A قَتَلَ verbal sentence typically does not hold on to its past tense when it is the positional annexed-to of إِذَا. That is why we have translated احْمَرَّ in example (1682) as « redden », not « reddened ».

41.3.2. Conditional signification of إِذَا

Example (1682) above can be transformed into a conditional sentence. This is done by taking إِذَا and its positional annexed-to احْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ, and putting them in the front of the sentence, thus:

(1683) إِذَا احْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ أَتَيْتُكَ
« When the unripe dates redden, I will come to you. »

Note that we have also replaced the يَقْتُلُ verbal sentence آتِيكَ in example (1682) with the قَتَلَ verbal sentence أَتَيْتُ. This is because now that example (1683) is a

[23] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 24 citing كتاب سيبويه 3/60; المقتضب للمبرد 2/55-56

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conditional sentence (with the condition-response following the condition), قَتَلَ as the condition-response-verb also does not hold on to its past tense meaning.

Also unlike إِنْ, even when إِذَا is a conditional-device, it does not (directly) govern either of the verbs in the condition or the condition-response. Rather, إِذَا governs entire verbal sentence in the condition in an annexation. And إِذَا itself is governed by the verb in the condition-response.[24] Figure 41.8 depicts the government of example (1683).

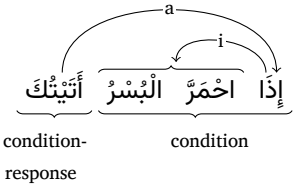


Figure 41.8.

Here are some more examples of conditional sentences with إِذَا:

(1684) إِذَا صَلَحَتْ صَلَحَ الْجَسَدُ كُلُّهُ وَإِذَا فَسَدَتْ فَسَدَ الْجَسَدُ كُلُّهُ [صحيح البخاري: 52]
«When it is upright, the whole body is upright. And when it is corrupt, the whole body is corrupt.»

(1685) كَانَ رَسُولُ اللهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم إِذَا سَجَدَ جَافَى حَتَّى يُرَى بَيَاضُ إِبْطَيْهِ [مسند أحمد: 14138]
«When the Messenger of Allāh would prostrate, he would put his upper arms apart from his sides until the whiteness of his underarms could be seen.»

(1686) كَانَ إِذَا خَرَجَ أَقْرَعَ بَيْنَ نِسَائِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 5211]
«When he would go out (on a journey), he would draw lots among his wives.»

(1687) إِذَا دَخَلَ أَهْلُ الْجَنَّةِ الْجَنَّةَ، نُودُوا ... [مسند أحمد: 18935]
«When the people of Paradise enter Paradise, it will be called out to them …»

41.3.3. PC verbs in the إِذَا conditional sentence

We learned in Section 41.2.1 above, that the conditional-device إِنْ governs the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the ø-case.

The conditional-device إِذَا, however, does not govern either the condition-verb or condition-response-verb, as we saw in Figure 41.8 above. So يَقْتُلْ is not usually

[24] Some grammarians disagreed. Give Abu Hayyan's opinion.

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used in إِذَا conditional sentences. The most common form for إِذَا conditional sentences, as we saw in example (1683) above, is إِذَا قَتَلَ قَتَلَ.

Having said that, we do often find the *u-case* PC verb يَقْتُلُ as either or as both the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb.[25] Here are some examples:

(1688) إِذَا تُتْلَىٰ عَلَيْهِمْ ءَايَٰتُ ٱلرَّحْمَٰنِ خَرُّواْ سُجَّدًا وَبُكِيًّا [سورة مريم 19:58 cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 648]
« When the verses of the Most Merciful were recited to them, they fell in prostration and weeping. »

(1689) إِذَا تَكُونُ كَرِيهَةٌ أُدْعَى لَهَا [cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 647]
« When there is an inconvenience, I am called to it. »

(1690) إِنّ الكريم إذا يُحَرَّبُ يَغضَبُ [cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 647]
« The noble person – when he is provoked, he becomes angry. »

(1691) وإذا تَضْحَكُ تُبْدي حَبباً [cited by Reckendorf, *Die syntaktischen Verhältnisse des Arabischen* 647–648]
« When she laughs, she shows musky bubbles. »

Very rarely, we also find يَقْتُلْ used in إِذَا conditional sentences. For example:

(1692) إِذَا أَخَذْتُمَا مَضَاجِعَكُمَا تُكَبِّرَا أَرْبَعًا وَثَلَاثِينَ وَتُسَبِّحَا ثَلَاثًا وَثَلَاثِينَ وَتَحْمَدَا ثَلَاثَةً وَثَلَاثِينَ فَهُوَ خَيْرٌ لَكُمَا مِنْ خَادِمٍ
[شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 71 cited by صحيح البخاري :3705]
« When you go to bed, you magnify thirty-four times, and glorify thirty-three times, and praise thirty-three times. »

(1693) إِذَا تُصِبْكَ خَصَاصَةٌ فَتَجَمَّلِ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/18; Wright 2/12B]
« When poverty befalls you then bear it patiently. »
(تَجَمَّلِ in rhyme for تَجَمَّلْ.)

41.3.4. Negation in the إِذَا conditional sentence

When the negating the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb in إِذَا conditional sentences, the form لَمْ يَقْتُلْ is used.

The form لَا يَقْتُلُ can also be used to negate the condition-response-verb.

Here are some examples:

[25] معاني النحو 4/79

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(1694) إِنَّ مِمَّا أَدْرَكَ النَّاسُ مِنْ كَلاَمِ النُّبُوَّةِ الأُولَى إِذَا لَمْ تَسْتَحِي فَاصْنَعْ مَا شِئْتَ [صحيح البخاري :6120]
«One of the sayings of the early prophets which the people have got is: If you don't feel ashamed, then do whatever you like.»

(1695) إِذَا لَمْ يَجِدِ الْمَاءَ لاَ يُصَلِّي [صحيح البخاري: 345 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 28]
«If he doesn't find water, he doesn't pray?»

(1696) أَلَيْسَ إِذَا حَاضَتْ لَمْ تُصَلِّ وَلَمْ تَصُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 304]
«Is it not the case [that] when she mensurates, she does not pray, and she does not fast?»

41.3.5. The inverted conditional sentence with إِذَا

Let's go back to example (1682) above:

(1697) آتِيكَ إِذَا احْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/60]
«I will come to you when the unripe dates redden.»

Technically, this is not a conditional sentence. Nor does it technically contain a conditional sentence. This is because a conditional sentence, according to our definition, requires that the condition-response follow the condition in sentence word order. But there is no condition-response, whether surface or taqdīred, after إِذَا احْمَرَّ الْبُسْرُ. (See the government of this sentence in Figure 41.7.)

Having said that, there is no problem if we refer to such a sentence, loosely speaking and for convenience, as an inverted conditional sentence. if contains the *meaning* of a condition. Here are some more examples:

(1698) وَتَوَفَّنِي إِذَا كَانَتِ الْوَفَاةُ خَيْرًا لِي [صحيح البخاري: 5671]
«And take my soul if death is better for me.»

(1699) فَأَقْبَلَ رَجُلٌ غَائِرُ الْعَيْنَيْنِ مُشْرِفُ الْوَجْنَتَيْنِ نَاتِئُ الْجَبِينِ كَثُّ اللِّحْيَةِ مَحْلُوقٌ فَقَالَ اتَّقِ اللَّهَ يا مُحَمَّدُ فَقَالَ مَنْ يُطِعِ اللَّهَ إِذَا عَصَيْتُ أَيَأْمَنُنِي اللَّهُ عَلَى أَهْلِ الأَرْضِ فَلاَ تَأْمَنُونِي[26] [صحيح البخاري: 3344 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 142]
«Then a man with sunken eyes, prominent checks, a raised forehead, a thick beard and a shaven head, came in front [of the Prophet ﷺ] and said, "Be afraid of Allāh, O Muḥammad!" The Prophet ﷺ said, "Who would obey Allah if I disobeyed [Him]? (Is it fair that) Allāh has trusted all the people of the earth to me while you do not trust me?"»

[26] It is not clear to us why يُطِع is in the ø-case from this source. Peled's source الجامع الصحيح, ed. L. Krehl, Leiden: Brill, 1864, II, 337 l:9 has يُطِيعُ in the u-case.

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(1700) لِلْمُسْلِمِ عَلَى الْمُسْلِمِ سِتٌّ بِالْمَعْرُوفِ يُسَلِّمُ عَلَيْهِ إِذَا لَقِيَهُ وَيُجِيبُهُ إِذَا دَعَاهُ وَيُشَمِّتُهُ إِذَا عَطَسَ وَيَعُودُهُ إِذَا مَرِضَ وَيَتْبَعُ جَنَازَتَهُ إِذَا مَاتَ وَيُحِبُّ لَهُ مَا يُحِبُّ لِنَفْسِهِ [جامع الترمذي: 2736]

« There are six courtesies due to a Muslim from another Muslim: he gives the greeting of peace when he sees him, he responds to him when he invites him, he [says يرحمك الله] when he sneezes, he visits him when he is ill, he follows his funeral when he dies, and he loves for him what he loves for himself. »

41.3.6. Certainty of the event indicated by إِذَا

إِذَا is typically used when the condition is certain to occur. The English expression, « It's not a matter of "if" but "when" », also indicates the fundamental difference between « if » and « when » conditional sentences. So, for example, if you say:

(1701) إن تكرمني أكرمك [2/117 الإيضاح في علوم البلاغة للقزويني]

« If you will honor me, I will honor you. »

then you are not certain if the other person would honor you or not. But if you say:

(1702) إذا زالت الشمس آتيك [2/117 الإيضاح في علوم البلاغة للقزويني]

« When the sun declines, I will come to you. »

then you are certain that the condition إذا زالت الشمس will, at some point, be valid.[27]

Having said that, إِذَا may not always indicate the certainness of the event in the condition. For example:

(1703) فَأَقْبَلَ رَجُلٌ غَائِرُ الْعَيْنَيْنِ مُشْرِفُ الْوَجْنَتَيْنِ نَاتِئُ الْجَبِينِ كَثُّ اللِّحْيَةِ مَحْلُوقٌ فَقَالَ اتَّقِ اللَّهَ يَا مُحَمَّدُ فَقَالَ مَنْ يُطِعِ اللَّهَ إِذَا عَصَيْتُ أَيَأْمَنُنِي اللَّهُ عَلَى أَهْلِ الأَرْضِ فَلاَ تَأْمَنُونِي [صحيح البخاري: 3344]

« Then a man with sunken eyes, prominent checks, a raised forehead, a thick beard and a shaven head, came in front [of the Prophet ﷺ] and said, "Be afraid of Allāh, O Muḥammad!" The Prophet ﷺ said, "Who would obey Allah if I disobeyed [Him]? (Is it fair that) Allāh has trusted all the people of the earth to me while you do not trust me?" »

Even though إِذَا is used in the above ḥadīth, it does not indicate a certain event. Far from it. In fact, there is no question that the Prophet ﷺ would never disobey Allāh.

In such cases, إِذَا can retain its temporal signification, but the event in the condition would not be considered certain.

[27] 2/117 الإيضاح في علوم البلاغة للقزويني

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41.3.7. إِذَا مَا

مَا may optionaly be suffixed to إِذَا. This مَا is redundant and it can (but does not necessarily have to) imply a vagueness in meaning.[28] For example:

(1704) آتيك إذا ما طلعت الشمس
[composed from الكليات للكفوي citing 4/95 معاني النحو]
«I will come to you, [one of the days] when the sun will rise.»

Or it can imply an extra emphasis. For example:

(1705) [سورة فصلت 41:20 cited by معاني النحو 4/96ff]
حَتَّىٰٓ إِذَا مَا جَآءُوهَا شَهِدَ عَلَيۡهِمۡ سَمۡعُهُمۡ وَأَبۡصَٰرُهُمۡ وَجُلُودُهُم بِمَا كَانُواْ يَعۡمَلُونَ
«Until, when they reach it, their hearing and their eyes and their skins will testify against them of what they used to do.»

إِذَا مَا is more common than إِذَا when the condition-verb and/or the condition-response-verb are يَقْتُلْ instead of قَتَلَ (see examples (1692) and (1693) above).[29] Examples:

(1706) إذا ما تأتني أُحسِنْ إليك [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/272]
«Whenever you come to me, I will do good to you.»

(1707) وَكَانَ إِذَا مَا يَسْلُلِ السَّيْفَ يَضْرِبِ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/19]
«And he would, when he drew his sword, strike.»

41.3.8. كَانَ before the إِذَا conditional sentence

TODO:
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(1708) كان إذا اشتكيت رحمني

(1709) كنت إذل قوم غزوني غزوتهم

(1710) كانت العجوز إذا كلمها تسكت عنه

41.4. Other conditional-devices

In addition to إِنْ and إِذَا, there are other conditional-devices as well. The main other conditional-device is لَوْ but we will treate it separately in Section 41.9 below. Besides لَوْ, the additional conditional-devices can be split into two categories:

[28] الكليات للكفوي citing 4/95 معاني النحو
[29] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/272

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i. ø-case-izing conditional-devices like إِنْ: these govern a condition-verb and a condition-response-verb in the ø-case.
ii. Non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices: these *don't* govern the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb in the ø-case.

We will discuss both categories below:

41.4.1. ø-case-izing conditional-devices

Most of the nouns that constitute the question-devices (like مَنْ «who», مَا «what», أَيْنَ «where», etc.) double as ø-case-izing conditional-devices.[30]

In addition to the question-devices, some other adverbs of time/place also double as ø-case-izing conditional-devices, like حَيْثُ «where», and إِذْ «when».

Suffixing مَا

When the above nouns are re-used as conditional-devices, an extra مَا is often suffixed to many of them, signifying and emphasizing an «-ever» meaning. For example: أَيْنَمَا «wherever». The suffixing of مَا to these conditional-devices falls under three categories[31]:

i. Those for whom suffixing a مَا is obligatory:
   - إِذْمَا «if». (By the way, according to some grammarians, once مَا is suffixed to إِذْ to make it an conditional-device, it ceases to be a noun and becomes a particle.[32])
   - حَيْثُمَا «wherever»
ii. Those for whom suffixing a مَا is optional. These are the majority of the question-devices that are reused as conditional-devices. For example:
   - مَهْمَا/مَا «what(ever)». (One theory is that the origin of مَهْمَا is مَامَا.[33])
   - أَيْنَمَا/أَيْنَ «where(ever)»
   - مَتَى مَا/مَتَى «when(ever)»
   - أَيَّانَ مَا/أَيَّانَ «when(ever)»
   - أَيُّمَا/أَيّ «which(ever)»
   - كَيْفَمَا/كَيْفَ «however». (كَيْفَمَا/كَيْفَ as conditional-devices are disputed; some grammarians did not allow them.[34]

[30] الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 148
[31] الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 174ff
[32] الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 162
[33] الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 175
[34] الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 177; شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/18)

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Note that when مَا is suffixed, it is joined, in writing, to some of the question-devices and not to others.

iii. Those that are not suffixed with a مَا, according to the standard view. But some grammarians did allow them to be suffixed with مَا.[35]:

- مَنْ « who(ever) »
- أَنَّى « whence » (can mean « from where », « how », « when »[36])

Conditional sentences with the ø-case-izing the conditional-devices

Like إِنْ, these conditional-devices will govern a condition-verb and a condition-response-verb in the ø-case. Also, like إِنْ, SC verbs can be used instead of the ø-case PC verbs.

The analysis of these conditional-devices governing the condition-verb and condition-response-verb in the ø-case, while themselves oftentimes being governees, becomes complex, and has been the subject of much discussion by the grammarians.[37] Here, we treat the subject summarily:

The conditional-devices مَنْ, مَا, and مَهْمَا, are, by default, in the u-case as the subject of the sentence. Examples:

(1711) مَنْ يُكْرِمْنِي أُكْرِمْهُ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/15]
« Whoever honors me, I will honor him. »

(1712) مَن يَعْمَلْ سُوٓءًا يُجْزَ بِهِۦ [سورة النساء 4:123 cited by شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/27]
« Whoever does a wrong will be recompensed for it »

(1713) مَنِ اتَّبَعَ عَوْرَاتِهِمْ يَتَّبِعِ اللَّهُ عَوْرَتَهُ [سنن أبي داود: 4880]
« Whoever trails [them for] their faults, Allāh will trail [him for] his fault. »

(1714) مَنْ يَقُمْ لَيْلَةَ الْقَدْرِ إِيمَانًا وَاحْتِسَابًا غُفِرَ لَهُ مَا تَقَدَّمَ مِنْ ذَنْبِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 35]
« Whoever stands [in prayer] on the Night of Decree, in faith, and hoping for reward, then his previous sins will be forgiven. »
(This is a rare example of مَنْ يَقْتُلْ قَتَلَ.)

(1715) مَا يُعْجِبْكَ يُعْجِبْنِي [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/15]
« Whatever pleases you, it will please me. »

[35] شرح الأشموني على ألفية ابن مالك 4/18; شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 582
[36] شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/16
[37] See for example: الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 165ff; همع الهوامع للسيوطي 2/566; مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 5/434

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(1716) وَمَا تَفْعَلُواْ مِنْ خَيْرٍ يَعْلَمْهُ ٱللَّهُ [سورة البقرة 2:197 cited by شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/27]
«And whatever good you do - Allāh knows it.»

(1717) مَهْمَا حَصَلَ كَفَى [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/15]
«Whatever is achieved, it is sufficient.»

(1718) أَغَرَّكِ مِنِّي أَنَّ حُبَّكِ قَاتِلِي وَأَنَّكِ مَهْمَا تَأْمُرِي الْقَلْبَ يَفْعَلْ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/267]
«That your love is killing me has emboldened you against me. And that you: whatever you order the heart, it will do [it].»

If they refer to the direct object of the condition-verb, then they are analyzed in the a-case as a direct object.

(1719) مَنْ تَضْرِبْ أَضْرِبْ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/15]
«Whomever you beat, I will beat.»

(1720) مَا تَفْعَلْ أَفْعَلْ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/15]
«Whatever you do, I will do.»

(1721) مَهْمَا تَفْعَلْ أَفْعَلْ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/15]
«Whatever you do, I will do.»

(1722) آتِي مَنْ أَتَانِي [كتاب سيبويه 3/70]
«I will come to who will come to me.»
(This is an inverted conditional sentence with a deleted condition-response. See Section 41.2.4 above and also example (1752) below.)

In such cases, the condition-core and/or the condition-response-core may include a pronoun that refers back to the conditional-device. Examples:

(1723) من تضرب أضربه [همع الهوامع للسيوطي 2/566]
«Whomever you beat, I will beat him.»

(1724) من يضْربهُ زيد أضربه [همع الهوامع للسيوطي 2/566]
«Whoever Zayd beats [him], I will beat him.»

(1725) من تضربه أضربه [همع الهوامع للسيوطي 2/566]
«Whomever you beat [him], I will beat him.»

If the conditional-device is preceded by a preposition, or a annexe, it they will be in the i-case. Example:

(1726) بِمَنْ تَمْرُرْ أَمْرُرْ بِهِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/82]
«By whom you pass, I will pass.»

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(1727) غُلَامَ مَنْ تَضْرِبْ أَضْرِبْ [2/451 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«Whoever's slave-boy you beat, I will beat.»

The conditional-devices أَيْنَ/أَيْنَمَا, حَيْثُمَا, مَتَى, أَيَّانَ, and أَنَّى are analyzed in the a-case as adverbs of time/place. For example:

(1728) مَتَى تَخْرُجْ أَخْرُجْ [4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«When you will exit, I will exit.»

(1729) مَتَى أَضَعِ الْعِمَامَة تَعْرِفُونِي [86 شرح قطر الندى وبل الصدى]
«When I take off the turban, you will recognize me.»

(1730) مَتَى مَا تَلْقَنِي فَرْدَيْنِ تَرْجُفْ [4/17 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«Whenever you meet me individually, you shall quake.»

(1731) أَيَّانَ تَذْهَبْ أَذْهَبْ [4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«When you will go, I will go.»

(1732) فَأَيَّانَ مَا تَعْدِلْ بِهَا الرِّيحُ تَنْزِلِ [88 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«So whenever the wind inclines it, it comes down.»

(1733) أَيْنَ تَجْلِسْ أَجْلِسْ [4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«Where you will sit, I will sit.»

(1734) أَيْنَمَا تَكُونُواْ يُدْرِككُّمُ ٱلْمَوْتُ [4:78 سورة النساء]
«Wherever you may be, death will overtake you»

(1735) أَنَّى تَذْهَبْ تُصِبْ خَيْرًا [4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«Wherever you will go, you will strike goodness.»

(1736) حَيْثُمَا تَسْتَقِمْ تُفْلِحْ [4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«Wherever you stand firm, you will succeed.»

The conditional-device كَيْفَمَا is anaylzed as a ḥāl. For example:

(1737) كَيْفَمَا تَكُنْ أَكُنْ [6/108 شرح ألفية ابن مالك للشاطبي]
«However you will be, I will be.»

The conditional-device أَيّ

The conditional-device أَيّ behaves like the others above. Except, it displays its case. Examples:

As a subject:

(1738) أَيٌّ يُكْرِمْنِي أُكْرِمْهُ [4/16 شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك]
«Whichever [man] honors me, I will honor him.»

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(1739) أَيَّةٌ تُكْرِمْنِي أُكْرِمْهَا [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/16]
«Whichever [woman] honors me, I will honor her.»

As a direct object:

(1740) أَيَّهم تَضْرِبْ أَضْرِبْ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/16]
«Whichever of them you beat, I will beat.»

(1741) أَيًّا تَضْرِبْ أَضْرِبْ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/16]
«Whichever you beat, I will beat.»

(1742) أَيًّا مَّا تَدْعُواْ فَلَهُ ٱلْأَسْمَآءُ ٱلْحُسْنَىٰ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك cited by 17:110 سورة الإسراء 4/16]
«Whichever [name] you call - to Him belong the best names.»
(فَ introducing the condition-response is discussed in Section 41.7 below.)

مَا can be added between أَيّ and its annexed-to. For example:

(1743) أَيَّمَا ٱلْأَجَلَيْنِ قَضَيْتُ فَلَا عُدْوَانَ عَلَيَّ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك cited by 17:110 سورة الإسراء 4/16]
«Whichever of the two terms I complete - there is no injustice to me»

As a adverb of time/place:

(1744) أَيَّ وَقْتٍ تَقُمْ أَقُمْ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/16]
«Whichever time you stand, I will stand.»

(1745) أَيَّ مَكَانٍ تَجْلِسْ أَجْلِسْ [شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/16]
«Whichever time you stand, I will stand.»

The conditional-device إِذْمَا

إِذْمَا, according to the standard view, is a particle like إِنْ. And like إِنْ it will then mean «if», not «when».[38]

(1746) إِذْمَا تَقُمْ أَقُمْ [شرح التصريح على التوضيح 2/398]
«If you stand, I will stand.»

[38] معاني النحو 4/79; شرح التصريح على التوضيح 2/398

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41.4.2. Non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices

The main non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices are إِذَا (which we treated in Section 41.3 above), and لَوْ (which we treat in Section 41.9 below.)

For some background regarding non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices, for the earlier grammarians, conditionality was strongly associated with the syntax of a ø-case condition-verb. So much so that even إِذَا and لَوْ may not have been treated under the heading of conditional sentences. As grammar developed, semantic considerations allowed them to be discussed with إِنْ as conditional-devices.[39]

Even so, unlike ø-case-izing conditional-devices, non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices, are a loosely defined set, with some ø-case-izing conditional-devices imparting only a whiff of, or only partial conditionality.

There are some indicators, such that if one or more are present, they can allow a sentence to have a conditional meaning, in varying degrees. These are:

- There are two clauses where the execution of the event in one (condition-response) clause is dependent on the fulfilment of the execution of an event in the other (condition) clause.
- The condition clause occurs before the condition-response clause in sentence word order.
- The condition clause has a verb which can be considered (loosely) the condition-verb. Same goes for the condition-response clause.
- The tense of the condition-verb and/or condition-response-verb (if SC) is shifted to the future.

We discuss some of these non-ø-case-izing conditional-devices below:

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Connected nouns and adverbs of time/place

The same connected nouns the adverbs of time/place which we discussed as ø-case-izing conditional-devices can also impart a conditional meaning when used with their original functions as connected nouns and adverbs of time/place.

As discussed above, when used as such, they may technically not be considered "conditional sentences" because of the lack of an (either overt or positional) ø-case condition-verb.

We list some examples below. Note that the verbs in the condition and condition-response are not in the ø-case. Technically, they won't be called the "condition-verb" and "condition-response-verb". Furthermore, the structure of the "condition-core" and "condition-response-core" could technically not have to be a verbal sentence.

[39] Giolfo and Hodges, "Conditionality: Syntax and meaning in al-Sīrāfī and Ibn Sīnā"; Giolfo, "Real and irreal conditionals in Arabic grammar: From al-ʾAstarābāḏī to Sībawayhi"

(1747) مَا تَقُولُ أَقُولُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/69]
«What you say, I will say.»

(1748) أَقُولُ مَا تَقُولُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/70]
«I will say what you say.»
This sentence (and similar examples below) has little conditional meaning, if any, but we have included it as the inverse of example (1747) above.

(1749) الَّذِي تَقُولُ أَقُولُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/69]
«The one that you say, I will say.»

(1750) مَنْ يَأْتِينِي آتِيهِ[40] [كتاب سيبويه 3/69]
«Who comes to me, I will come to him.»

(1751) آتِي مَنْ يَأْتِينِي [كتاب سيبويه 3/70]
«I will come to the one who comes to me.»

(1752) آتِي مَنْ أَتَانِي [كتاب سيبويه 3/70]
«I will come to who came to me.»
(Note that in this particular sentence, مَنْ may also be considered to be a ø-case-izing conditional-device, like in example (1722) above. In which case أَتَانِي is a true condition-verb in place of يَأْتِنِي, and there is a deleted condition-response after it. And the meaning will be «I will come to who will come to me».[41])

(1753) ومَنْ يَمِيلُ أَمَالَ السَّيْفُ ذِرْوَتَهُ ~ حَيْثُ الْتَقَى من حفا فِي رَأْسِهِ الشَّعَرُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/70]

(1754) بِمَنْ تَمُرُّ بِهِ أَمُرُّ [كتاب سيبويه 3/80]
«By whom you pass, I pass.»

(1755) أَيُّهَا تَشَاءُ أُعْطِيكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/69]
«Whichever of them you wish, I will give you.»

(1756) أُعْطِيكَ أَيُّهَا تَشَاءُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/70]
«I will give you whichever of them you wish.»

(1757) حَيْثُ تَكُونُ أَكُونُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/58]
«Where you will be, I will be.»

(1758) إِنَّ أَبَا بَكْرٍ رَجُلٌ أَسِيفٌ وَإِنَّهُ مَتَى يَقُومُ فِي مَقَامِكَ لاَ يُسْمِعُ النَّاسَ [سنن النسائي: 833 cited by شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 72][42]
«Abū Bakr is a tender-hearted man, and when he stands in your place he will not be able to make the people hear.»

[40] This is يأتني in the source, but the context seems to indicate that it is a typographical error and that it should be يأتيني. The commentary شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/266 for this section has يأتيني.
[41] كتاب سيبويه 3/70
[42] شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 72 actually cites صحيح البخاري but it has متى يقم

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Connected nouns exhibit a conditional meaning particularly when the "condition-response" begins with فَ.[43] For example:

(1759) الَّذِي يَأْتِينِي فَلَهُ دِرْهَمَانِ [كتاب سيبويه 4/127ff citing معاني النحو]
«The one who will come to me, he will have two dirhams.»

Also, because of the connected noun's having a conditional meaning, a SC verb after it may signify the future tense. For example:

(1760) الَّذِي أَتَانِي فَلَهُ دِرْهَمٌ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 1/268]
«The one who will come to me, he will have a dirham.»

كُلَّمَا

The adverb of time كُلَّمَا «every time» is considered to be able to have a conditional meaning. So much so, that it can cause tense-shifting. So if a SC verb is after then it can (but doesn't have to) have a future meaning.[44]

Example:

(1761) كُلَّمَا أَصْبَحْتَ فَسَبِّحِ اللّٰهَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 198]
«Every time you enter the morning, then glorify Allāh»

أَمَّا

The particle أَمَّا, meaning «as for», is considered by some to sometimes have a conditional meaning.[45] Usually, it is followed by a noun, and the condition-response is introduced with فَ. For example:

(1762) أَمَّا زَيدٌ فَذَاهِبٌ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 57]
«As for Zayd, then [he is] going.»

In example (1762) above, the conditional meaning is apparent if we paraphrase it as «Whatever happens, Zayd is going.».[46]

Sometimes the فَ may be omitted in the condition-response. For example:

(1763) فأما القتال لا قتال لديكم [شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/53]
«As for fighting, [then] there is no fight with you.»

[43] معاني النحو 4/127ff; مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 1/165
[44] شرح الرضي على الكافية 197
[45] Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 136; شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/52
[46] مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 57

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إِذْ

According to some reseachers, the adverb of time إِذْ «when» can sometimes have a conditional meaning. For example:

(1764) وَإِذْ لَمْ يَهْتَدُواْ بِهِۦ فَسَيَقُولُونَ هَٰذَآ إِفْكٌ قَدِيمٌ [سورة الأحقاف 46:11 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 173]
«And when they are not guided by it, they will say, "This is an ancient falsehood."»

لَمَّا

لَمَّا has a meaning similar to إِذْ, and can also be considered to have a conditional meaning for the past tense.[47]

(1765) لَمَّا نَزَلَ الْمَطَرُ رَبَا الزَّرْعُ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/481]
«When the rain came down, the crop grew.»

General two-clause sentences with فَ as a condition-response-link

Two-clause sentences with generality in their meaning, when the second clause begins with فَ, may have some conditionality in their meaning.[48] Examples:

(1766) كل رجل يأتيني فله دينار [معاني النحو 4/130]
«Every man that comes to me, he will get a dirham.»

(1767) كل رجل في الدار فله درهم [معاني النحو 4/130]
«Every man in the house, he will get a dirham.»

(1768) رجل يسألني فله أجر [معاني النحو 4/130]
«A man who asks me, he will get a reward.»

(1769) رجل في المسجد فله بر [معاني النحو 4/130]
«A man in the mosque, he will achieve piety.»

41.5. Using يَقْتُلْ vs قَتَلَ

Regarding the distinction in meaning between using يَقْتُلْ vs. قَتَلَ for a future meaning, the SC verb signifies certainty and the completion of an action. Whereas,

[47] شرح الرضي على الكافية 3/230
[48] معاني النحو 4/130 citing كتاب سيبويه, شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك, etc.

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the PC verb in general signifies an imperfect (i.e. progressive, continual, habitual, or future) action. And a ø-case PC verb, in particular, signifies the potentiality of an action.[49]

Here are some possible circumstances where choosing a SC vs PC verb in a conditional sentence may affect nuances in the meaning:

The PC verb can be used to signify a continual action

In some contexts, the PC verb can be used to signify a continual action. Whereas قَتَلَ can be used to signify a single action.[50] For example:

(1770) وَمَن يَشْكُرْ فَإِنَّمَا يَشْكُرُ لِنَفْسِهِۦ ۖ وَمَن كَفَرَ فَإِنَّ ٱللَّهَ غَنِىٌّ حَمِيدٌ [31:12 سورة لقمان]
«And whoever is grateful is grateful for [the benefit of] himself. And whoever denies [His favor] - then indeed, Allāh is Free of need and Praise-worthy.»

In example (1770) above, يَشْكُرْ uses the يَقْتُلْ form, whereas كَفَرَ uses the قَتَلَ form. One interpretation is that gratitute is a continual action whereas even only one action of disbelief requires that one stop doing it.[51]

By the way, شَكَرَ in the قَتَلَ form is also found as a condition-verb:

(1771) وَمَن شَكَرَ فَإِنَّمَا يَشْكُرُ لِنَفْسِهِۦ ۖ وَمَن كَفَرَ فَإِنَّ رَبِّى غَنِىٌّ كَرِيمٌ [27:40 سورة النمل]
«And whoever is grateful - his gratitude is only for [the benefit of] himself. And whoever is ungrateful - then indeed, my Lord is Free of need and Generous.»

قَتَلَ can be used to signify a generic action

قَتَلَ can be used to signify a generic action.[52] The implication is that it is proven through past experience.[53] For example:

(1772) مَنْ صَبَرَ ظَفَرَ [4/63 معاني النحو]
«Whoever is patient, overcomes.»

Whereas, يَقْتُلْ may signify potentiality. For example:

(1773) مَنْ يَعْمَلْ يَأْكُلْ [4/63 معاني النحو]
«Whoever should work, he may eat.»

[49] see التأويل الزمني للجملة الشرطية في اللغة العربية لعارف الدين 49
[50] معاني النحو 4/58
[51] معاني النحو 4/58 cited by تفسير الرازي for سورة لقمان 31:12
[52] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17–18
[53] معاني النحو 4/63

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قَتَلَ can be used to signify certainty in an event

In some contexts, قَتَلَ could be used when an event is deemed or hoped to be more certain.[54] For example:

(1774) إِنْ دَخَلَ الْجَنَّةَ ... [Jamil, "Arabic rhetoric made simple" Conditionals, part 2]
«If he enters Paradise (and we hope it will be so) …»

Consider also the following āyah:

(1775) فَإِذَا جَآءَتْهُمُ ٱلْحَسَنَةُ قَالُواْ لَنَا هَٰذِهِۦۖ وَإِن تُصِبْهُمْ سَيِّئَةٌ يَطَّيَّرُواْ بِمُوسَىٰ وَمَن مَّعَهُۥٓۗ
[مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني 89 cited by سورة الأعراف 7:131]
«But when good [i.e., provision] came to them, they said, "This is ours [by right]." And if a bad [condition] struck them, they saw an evil omen in Moses and those with him.»

Note that the condition with الْحَسَنَة «good» is expressed with the قَتَلَ form جَاءَ and with إِذَا. Whereas the condition with سَيِّئَة «evil» is expressed with the يَقْتُلْ form تُصِبْ and with إِنْ. This contrast has been explained by stating that إِذَا and the SC verb indicate a higher probability of occurrence, and إِنْ and the ø-case PC verb indicate a lower probability.[55]

قَتَلَ can be used to impart more force to the statement

In some contexts, قَتَلَ could be used to impart more force to the conditional sentence, without necessarily implying the condition is likely to take place. For example:

(1776) وَلَقَدْ أُوحِيَ إِلَيْكَ وَإِلَى ٱلَّذِينَ مِن قَبْلِكَ لَئِنْ أَشْرَكْتَ لَيَحْبَطَنَّ عَمَلُكَ وَلَتَكُونَنَّ مِنَ ٱلْخَٰسِرِينَ
[مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني 93 cited by سورة الزمر 39:65]
«And it was already revealed to you and to those before you that if you should associate [anything] with Allāh, your work would surely become worthless, and you would surely be among the losers.»

Regarding the condition لَئِنْ أَشْرَكْتَ in this āyah, the Prophet ﷺ would never associate anyone with Allāh. And so it is actually his nation, to whom this threat is directed.[56] The usage of the قَتَلَ form أَشْرَكَ has been analyzed to lend more force to this indirect use of the condition.[57]

[54] Jamil, "Arabic rhetoric made simple" Conditionals, part 2
[55] مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني 89; تفسير ابن عاشور for سورة الأعراف 7:131
[56] تفسير ابن عثيمين for سورة الزمر 39:65
[57] مختصر المعاني للتفتازاني 93

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41.6. The tense of the conditional sentence

41.6.1. The tense of the simple conditional sentence

In a simple conditional sentence, i.e. one where the condition-core and the condition-response-core are simple verbal sentences, the tense of both the condition and the condition-response is typically shifted to the future due to the influence of the conditional-device. regardless of whether the قَتَلَ or يَقْتُلْ form is used as the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb. So, for example, all of the following conditional sentences will typically have a future meaning:

(1777) a. إِنْ تَأْتِنِي أُكْرِمْكَ

b. إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ

c. إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أُكْرِمْكَ

d. إِنْ تَأْتِنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ

e. إِذَا أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ
«If you come to me, I will honor you.»

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Having said this, a conditional sentence will not necessarily always signify a future event. Instead, the tense of a conditional sentence should really be determined from context. In order to prove this, we show that the simple conditional sentence can occasionally admit a past tense meaning. Examples:

(1778) قَالُوٓاْ إِن يَسۡرِقۡ فَقَدۡ سَرَقَ أَخٞ لَّهُۥ مِن قَبۡلُۚ
[سورة يوسف 12:77 cited by شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 231][58]
«They said, “If he steals - a brother of his has stolen before.”»

(1779) وَإِذَا رَأَوۡاْ تِجَٰرَةً أَوۡ لَهۡوًا ٱنفَضُّوٓاْ إِلَيۡهَا وَتَرَكُوكَ قَآئِمٗاۚ [سورة الجمعة 62:11 cited by معاني النحو 4/66]
«But [on one occasion] when they saw a transaction or a diversion, [O Muḥammad], they rushed to it and left you standing.»

[58] See also البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة يوسف 12:77 and Gätje, “Zur Struktur gestörter Konditionalgefüge im Arabischen” 175.

(1780) قُلْ إِنِ ٱفْتَرَيْتُهُۥ فَعَلَيَّ إِجْرَامِى وَأَنَا۠ بَرِىٓءٌ مِّمَّا تُجْرِمُونَ [معاني النحو cited by 11:35 سورة هود 4/66]
« Say, “If I have invented it, then upon me is [the consequence of] my crime; but I am innocent of what [crimes] you commit.” »

(1781) أَنَّ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم كَانَ إِذَا أُتِيَ بِطَعَامٍ سَأَلَ عَنْهُ فَإِنْ قِيلَ هَدِيَّةٌ أَكَلَ مِنْهَا وَإِنْ قِيلَ صَدَقَةٌ لَمْ يَأْكُلْ مِنْهَا [صحيح مسلم: 1077]
« that the Prophet ﷺ would, when he was brought some food, ask about it. If it was said [that it was] a gift, he ate from it, and if it was said [that it was] charity, he did not eat from it. »

(1782) مَا عَابَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم طَعَامًا قَطُّ إِنِ اشْتَهَاهُ أَكَلَهُ وَإِنْ كَرِهَهُ تَرَكَهُ [صحيح البخاري: 5409]
« The Prophet ﷺ never criticized any food whatsoever. If he liked it, he ate it. And if he disliked it, he left it. »

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41.6.2. With فَ as the condition-response-link

In Section 41.7 below we will learn that فَ is sometimes used as a condition-response-link. And we will learn the rules of when فَ is required to introduce the condition-response. In this section, we will only note that when فَ is used as a condition-response-link then the tense of condition-response-core is free from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device. The tense of the condition-response-core is then determined from evaluating it independently. Here are some examples:

(1783) وَإِن كَانَ قَمِيصُهُۥ قُدَّ مِن دُبُرٍ فَكَذَبَتْ وَهُوَ مِنَ ٱلصَّٰدِقِينَ [12:27 سورة يوسف]
« But if his shirt is torn from the back, then she has lied, and he is of the truthful. »

(1784) فَإِنْ كُنْتِ بَرِيئَةً فَسَيُبَرِّئُكِ اللَّهُ وَإِنْ كُنْتِ أَلْمَمْتِ بِذَنْبٍ فَاسْتَغْفِرِي اللَّهَ وَتُوبِي إِلَيْهِ [صحيح مسلم: 2770]
« If you are innocent, then Allāh will acquit you, and if you have lapsed into a sin then seek forgiveness from Allāh and turn to Him in repentance. »

(1785) إِنْ قَتَلْتَ حَمْزَةَ بِعَمِّي فَأَنْتَ حُرٌّ [صحيح البخاري: 4072]
« If you kill Ḥamzah [in revenge] for my uncle, then you are free. »

41.6.3. With كَانَ as the condition-verb

We saw above that when فَ is used to introduce the condition-response then its tense is free from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device. The verb

كَانَ can similarly be used to introduce the condition, and it makes the tense of the condition free from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device. In such sentences, the condition-core beginning with كَانَ will still be considered a verbal sentence.

Let's say that we wish to expressly indicate a past tense for the condition, as in the example:

(1786) «If he studied, then he will succeed.»

If we express the condition as إِنْ دَرَسَ, then it will typically take a future tense meaning. In order to explicitly specify a past tense, we begin the condition-core with كَانَ, thus:

(1787) إِنْ كَانَ قَدْ دَرَسَ فَسَيَنْجَحُ
«If he studied, then he will succeed.»

In example (1787) above, the قَدْ is optional, and may be removed for the same meaning.

Similarly, let's say that we expressly indicate a present tense meaning for the condition as in the example:

(1788) «If he is eating, then let him.»

«He is eating» can be translated as يَأْكُلُ which is a u-case PC verb. We cannot use this verb directly as the condition-verb with إِنْ and would have to modify it to the ø-case verb thus: إِنْ يَأْكُلْ. But then this would typically have the tense meaning «if he will eat».

In order to specify a present tense, we begin the condition-core with كَانَ, thus:

(1789) إِنْ كَانَ يَأْكُلُ فَدَعْهُ
«If he is eating, then let him.»

كَانَ now can lose its past-tense meaning of "was". But إِنْ كَانَ يَأْكُلُ could also signify the past-continuous tense «if he was eating». Context will tell us which of two is intended.

كَانَ can also be used to allow arbitrary sentences in the condition. Let's say that we widh to express:

(1790) «If you are sitting, then come to me.»

«You are sitting» may be translated as أَنْتَ جَالِسٌ. In order to use this as the condition, we transform it using كَانَ thus:

(1791) إِنْ كُنتَ جَالِسًا فَأْتِنِي
«If you are sitting, then come to me.»

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By the way إِنْ كُنْتَ جَالِسًا could also signify the past-continuous tense « if you were sitting ». It could even signify a future tense, for example:

(1792) إن كنت غدا جالسا فائتني [4/115 شرح الرضي على الكافية]
« If you are tomorrow sitting then come to me. »

Here is another example of conditions with كَانَ signifying a future meaning:

(1793) إِنْ كَانَ لَهُ عَمَلٌ صَالِحٌ أُخِذَ مِنْهُ بِقَدْرِ مَظْلَمَتِهِ، وَإِنْ لَمْ تَكُنْ لَهُ حَسَنَاتٌ أُخِذَ مِنْ سَيِّئَاتِ صَاحِبِهِ فَحُمِلَ عَلَيْهِ [صحيح البخاري: 2449]
« If he will have a good deed, it will be taken from according to his oppression, and if he will not have good deeds, his companion's bad deeds will be taken from and put on him. »

Context will help disambiguate which meaning is intended.

Here are some more examples of conditional sentences with كَانَ as the condition-verb:

(1794) إِن كُنتُ قُلْتُهُۥ فَقَدْ عَلِمْتَهُۥ [سورة المائدة 5:116, cited by معاني النحو 4/64]
« If I had said it, You would have known it. »

(1795) إِن كَانَ قَمِيصُهُۥ قُدَّ مِن قُبُلٍ فَصَدَقَتْ وَهُوَ مِنَ ٱلْكَٰذِبِينَ [سورة يوسف 12:26, cited by معاني النحو 4/64]
« If his shirt is torn from the front, then she has told the truth, and he is of the liars. »

(1796) قَالَ فَمَا لِي لَا أَعْتَدُّ بِهَا وَإِنْ كُنْتُ قَدْ عَجَزْتُ وَاسْتَحْمَقْتُ [مسند أحمد: 304]
« He said, "Why wouldn't I count it? Even if I wasn't able to and acted foolishly." »

(1797) قَالَ لَهَا وَإِنْ كَانَ لَمْ يُؤْذَنْ لِي فِي ثَقِيفٍ يَا خُوَيْلَةُ [تاريخ الطبري 3/85 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 33]
« He (ﷺ) said to her, "And if Thaqīf has not been permitted for me, O Khuwaylah?" »

(1798) إِنْ كَانَ لَا يَضُرُّكِ وَلَا يُضَيِّقُ عَلَيْكِ فَإِنِّي أُحِبُّ أَنْ أُدْفَنَ مَعَ صَاحِبَيَّ [مستدرك الحاكم: 4519]
« If it does not harm you or make it difficult for you then I would like that I be buried with my two companions. »

(1799) مَنْ قَالَ أَسْتَغْفِرُ اللَّهَ الَّذِي لاَ إِلَهَ إِلاَّ هُوَ الْحَىُّ الْقَيُّومُ وَأَتُوبُ إِلَيْهِ غُفِرَ لَهُ وَإِنْ كَانَ فَرَّ مِنَ الزَّحْفِ [سنن أبي داود: 1517]
« Whoever says, "I seek forgiveness from Allāh, the one whom there is no deity except He, the Ever-Living, the Self-Sustaining, and I turn to Him in repentance," he is forgiven even if he had fled from battle. »

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(1800) إِنْ كُنْتَ تُرِيدُ أَنْ تُصِيبَ السُّنَّةَ الْيَوْمَ فَاقْصُرِ الْخُطْبَةَ وَعَجِّلِ الْوُقُوفَ [صحيح البخاري: 1663]
«If you want to follow the Sunnah today then shorten the sermon and make earlier the stay [at Ɛarafah].»

(1801) فَإِنْ كُنْتِ بَرِيئَةً فَسَيُبَرِّئُكِ اللَّهُ وَإِنْ كُنْتِ أَلْمَمْتِ بِذَنْبٍ فَاسْتَغْفِرِي اللَّهَ وَتُوبِي إِلَيْهِ [صحيح مسلم: 2770 cited by معاني النحو 4/65]
«If you are innocent, Allāh will acquit you, and if you have lapsed into a sin then seek forgiveness from Allāh and turn to Him in repentance.»

(1802) وَإِن كُنتُمْ فِى رَيْبٍ مِّمَّا نَزَّلْنَا عَلَىٰ عَبْدِنَا فَأْتُوا۟ بِسُورَةٍ مِّن مِّثْلِهِۦ وَٱدْعُوا۟ شُهَدَآءَكُم مِّن دُونِ ٱللَّهِ إِن كُنتُمْ صَٰدِقِينَ [سورة البقرة 2:23]
«And if you are in doubt about what We have sent down [i.e., the Qur'ān] upon Our Servant [i.e., Prophet Muḥammad (ﷺ)], then produce a sūrah the like thereof and call upon your witnesses [i.e., supporters] other than Allāh, if you should be truthful.»

(1803) إِذَا كَانَ الْمَاءُ قُلَّتَيْنِ لَمْ يَحْمِلِ الْخَبَثَ [سنن النسائي: 52]
«When the water is two qullahs then it will not carry filth.»

(1804) فَإِنْ كُنْتُمْ أَكْفَاءَ قَاتَلْنَاكُمْ [مغازي الواقدي 1/68]
«If you are a match for us we will fight you.»

If the condition's sentence already has كَانَ to indicate the past tense, then another كَانَ is not added. For example:

(1805) كَانَ يَنَامُ أَوَّلَ اللَّيْلِ ثُمَّ يَقُومُ فَإِذَا كَانَ مِنَ السَّحَرِ أَوْتَرَ ثُمَّ أَتَى فِرَاشَهُ فَإِذَا كَانَ لَهُ حَاجَةٌ أَلَمَّ بِأَهْلِهِ فَإِذَا سَمِعَ الأَذَانَ وَثَبَ فَإِنْ كَانَ جُنُبًا أَفَاضَ عَلَيْهِ مِنَ الْمَاءِ وَإِلاَّ تَوَضَّأَ ثُمَّ خَرَجَ إِلَى الصَّلاَةِ [سنن النسائي: 1680]
«He would sleep in the first part of the night. Then he would stand (for prayer). Then when it was the last part of the night, he would pray the witr. Then he would come to his bed. Then if he had a need he would go to his wife. Then when he heard the adhān, he would get up. If we was in a state of sexual impurity he poured water over himself. And if not he would perform wudūʾ. Then he would go out to the prayer.»

The ø-case PC verb يَكُنْ can also be used in this manner. It may indicate potentiality or possibility. For example:

(1806) فَإِن يكن قد علا رَأْسِي وَغَيره ~ صرف الزَّمَان وتغيير من الشّعْر [جمهرة الأمثال للعسكري 1/263]
«So if it be that my head has become dignified and the elapsing of time and a changing of hair has changed it …»

(1807) فَإِنْ تَكُنِ الدُّنْيَا بِلُبْنَى تَغَيَّرَتْ فَلِلدَّهْرِ وَالدُّنْيَا بُطُونٌ وَأَظْهُرُ [cited by Gätje, "Zur Struktur gestörter Konditionalgefüge im Arabischen" 175]

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«And if the world has changed by Lubnā, then the world has innards and outwards.»

(1808) إِنْ يَكُ هَذَا مِنْ عِنْدِ اللَّهِ يُمْضِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 3895 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 21]
«If this be from Allāh, He will make it happen.»

(1809) فَإِنْ يَكُ صَوَابًا فَمِنَ اللَّهِ وَإِنْ يَكُنْ خَطَأً فَمِنِّي وَمِنَ الشَّيْطَانِ وَاللَّهُ وَرَسُولُهُ بَرِيئَانِ [سنن أبي داود: 2116]
«If this be correct then [it is] from Allāh, and if it be erroneous then [it is] from me and from Satan. And Allāh and His Messenger are free [from it].»

Remember from Section 34.3 that the doer participle can be used to indicate an intention to do a future action. This use of the doer participle can carry over to its use in a condition. For example:

(1810) إِنْ كُنْتَ فَاعِلاً فَوَاحِدَةً [صحيح البخاري: 1207]
«If you are going to do it, then (only) once.»

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41.6.4. With a static verb as the condition-verb

In the discussion above, we have seen that, if the condition is to signify the present tense, then we will usually have كَانَ as the condition-verb. In this section, we add that when the condition-verb is a *static* verb, then كَانَ is not required to signify the present tense.[59] We define a static verb, in the context of conditional sentences to be one of the following[60]:

1. An intransitive verb that has an adjectival meaning. For example: كَثُرَ «to be many», صَحَّ «to be correct», كَبُرَ «to be big», etc.
2. A *modal* verb that takes a أَنْ clause as a direct object. For example: شَاءَ «to wish», اسْتَطَاعَ «can», etc.
3. A mental verb. For example: عَلِمَ «to know», ظَنَّ «to think», حَسِبَ «to consider», etc.

Here are some examples of conditional sentences with a static verb as the condition-verb:

(1811) الرِّبَا وَإِنْ كَثُرَ فَإِنَّ عَاقِبَتَهُ تَصِيرُ إِلَى قُلٍّ [مسند أحمد: 3754]
«Interest, even if it is much, its outcome becomes less.»

[59] كَانَ can still be used with a static verb. See for example سورة الأنعام 6:35, سورة يونس 10:71
[60] from Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 13

(1812) فَإِن طَلَّقَهَا فَلَا جُنَاحَ عَلَيۡهِمَآ أَن يَتَرَاجَعَآ إِن ظَنَّآ أَن يُقِيمَا حُدُودَ ٱللَّهِ [سورة البقرة 2:230]
«And if he [i.e., the latter husband] divorces her [or dies], there is no blame upon them [i.e., the woman and her former husband] for returning to each other if they think that they can keep [within] the limits of Allāh.»

For modal verbs like شَاءَ «to wish, want», اسْتَطَاعَ «can», etc., if the أَنْ clause that is the direct object of the modal verb is in the condition then it need not be repeated in the condition-response. The condition-response can then have an empty verb like فَعَلَ.[61] Example:

(1813) إِنْ أَحَبَّ أَهْلُكِ أَنْ أَصُبَّ لَهُمْ ثَمَنَكِ صَبَّةً وَاحِدَةً فَأُعْتِقَكِ فَعَلْتُ [صحيح البخاري: 2564 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 22]
«If your people like that I pay them your price in a lump sum and so manumit you, I will do so.»

(1814) إِنَّكُمْ سَتَرَوْنَ رَبَّكُمْ كَمَا تَرَوْنَ هَذَا الْقَمَرَ لاَ تُضَامُّونَ فِي رُؤْيَتِهِ، فَإِنِ اسْتَطَعْتُمْ أَنْ لاَ تُغْلَبُوا عَلَى صَلاَةٍ قَبْلَ طُلُوعِ الشَّمْسِ وَقَبْلَ غُرُوبِهَا فَافْعَلُوا [صحيح البخاري: 554]
«Certainly you will see your Lord as you see this moon and you will have no trouble in seeing Him. So if you can avoid missing a prayer before the sunrise and a prayer before sunset then do so.»

Or the أَنْ clause direct object of the modal verb can be omitted from the condition when its meaning is given in the condition-response. For example:

(1815) إِنْ شِئْتَ دَفَعْتُهَا إِلَيْكَ [صحيح البخاري: 3828 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 22]
«If you wish, I will give her to you»

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41.7. فَ as a condition-response-link

In the simple conditional sentence, i.e. one where the condition-core and the condition-response-core are simple verbal sentences, the condition-verb and the condition-response-verb can take, what we will call, the following *basic forms*:

- يَقْتُلْ, negated using لَا يَقْتُلْ.
- قَتَلَ, negated using لَمْ يَقْتُلْ.

Also, as we know, the conditional-device generally has a future-shifting influence on these basic forms.

When the condition-response falls outside the above basic forms, then it will typically be introduced by فَ. For example:

[61] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 22

(1816) إِنْ يَأْتِكَ فَأَكْرِمْهُ
«If he comes to you, then honor him.»

The condition-response in example (1816) above is a verb of command verbal sentence. Since it is not one of the basic forms of the condition-response we use a فَ to introduce it.

The main reason that a فَ is needed in such cases, is to indicate that the condition-response is linked to the condition.[62] That is, the condition-response is a consequence of the condition being fulfilled. فَ is not needed when the condition-response is one of the basic forms because in those cases, the condition-response is directly linked to the conditional-device, either by the conditional-device's future-shifting the tense of the condition-response-verb (in most cases), or by the conditional-device's directly governing the condition-response-verb, if applicable.

Once the فَ is added, the condition-response is freed from the future-shifting influence of the conditional-device and its direct government (if applicable). So, as we learned in Section 41.6.2 above, the tense of the condition-response introduced by فَ is evaluated independently.

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41.7.1. Situations where فَ is used as a condition-response-link

Here is a (non-exhaustive) list of cases where فَ is used to introduce the condition-response:

Direct commands

(1817) وَلاَ تُكَلِّفُوهُمْ مَا يَغْلِبُهُمْ، فَإِنْ كَلَّفْتُمُوهُمْ فَأَعِينُوهُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 30]
«Do not task them with what is too much for them but if you task them, then help them.»

(1818) فَإِنْ غُمَّ عَلَيْكُمْ فَاقْدُرُوا لَهُ [صحيح البخاري: 1906]
«If it is overcast then estimate for it.»

(1819) إِذَا لَمْ تَسْتَحِي فَافْعَلْ مَا شِئْتَ [صحيح البخاري: 3483]
«If you do not feel ashamed then do whatever you wish.»

(1820) فَإِذَا لَقِيتُمُوهُمْ فَاصْبِرُوا [صحيح البخاري: 2965]
«If you meet them then be patient.»

(1821) إِنْ لَمْ تَجِدِينِي فَأْتِي أَبَا بَكْرٍ [صحيح البخاري: 7220]
«If you$_{1f}$ don't find me then come to Abū Bakr.»

[62] شرح الرضي على الكافية, 4/110 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل, 5/111

(1822) اللَّهُمَّ إِنْ كُنْتَ تَعْلَمُ فِيَّ خَيْرًا فَأَرِنِي رُؤْيَا [صحيح البخاري: 7028]
«O Allāh, if you are knowing good in me then show me a dream.»

Prohibitions

The form of the condition-response in prohibitions is لَا تَقْتُلْ, which appears to be a basic form. But because the meaning that is intended by لَا تَقْتُلْ is a prohibition, and not a simple future tense, a فَ is added before it.

(1823) فَإِنْ وَجَدْتُمْ غَيْرَ آنِيَتِهِمْ فَلاَ تَأْكُلُوا فِيهَا [صحيح البخاري: 5488]
«If you find other than their utensils then don't eat in them»

(1824) وَإِنْ خَالَطَهَا كِلاَبٌ مِنْ غَيْرِهَا فَلاَ تَأْكُلْ [صحيح البخاري: 5483]
«And if other hounds join in it then don't eat [it]»

(1825) فَإِذَا سَمِعْتُمْ بِهِ بِأَرْضٍ فَلاَ تَقْدَمُوا عَلَيْهِ وَإِذَا وَقَعَ بِأَرْضٍ وَأَنْتُمْ بِهَا فَلاَ تَخْرُجُوا فِرَارًا مِنْهُ [صحيح البخاري: 3473]
«So if you hear of it in a land then don't approach it, and if occurs in a land where you are present, then don't leave [that land] in order to flee from it.»

(1826) إِنْ رَأَيْتُمُونَا ظَهَرْنَا عَلَيْهِمْ فَلاَ تَبْرَحُوا وَإِنْ رَأَيْتُمُوهُمْ ظَهَرُوا عَلَيْنَا فَلاَ تُعِينُونَا [صحيح البخاري: 4043]
«If you see us having overcome them then don't leave [this place], and if you see them having overcome us then don't help us.»

Indirect commands

(1827) فَأَيُّكُمْ إِذَا أَرَادَ أَنْ يُوَاصِلَ فَلْيُوَاصِلْ حَتَّى السَّحَرِ [صحيح البخاري: 1963]
«So whichever of you – if he wants to continue on, then let him continue on until the last part of the night.»

(1828) إِذَا أَتَى أَحَدَكُمْ خَادِمُهُ بِطَعَامِهِ فَإِنْ لَمْ يُجْلِسْهُ مَعَهُ فَلْيُنَاوِلْهُ أُكْلَةً أَوْ أُكْلَتَيْنِ أَوْ لُقْمَةً أَوْ لُقْمَتَيْنِ [صحيح البخاري: 5460]
«If the servant of one of you brings him his food, then if he doesn't make him sit with him, then let him hand him a bite or two, or a morsel or two.»

Indirect prohibitions

(1829) إِذَا شَرِبَ أَحَدُكُمْ فَلاَ يَتَنَفَّسْ فِي الإِنَاءِ [صحيح البخاري: 5630 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 79]
«When one of you drinks then let him not breathe in the vessel.»

(1830) إِذَا كَانَ أَحَدُكُمْ يُصَلِّي، فَلاَ يَبْصُقْ قِبَلَ وَجْهِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 406 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 79]
«When one of you is praying then let him not spit in front of him.»

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Statements of hope

(1831) إِنْ كُنْتَ كَاذِبًا فَصَيَّرَكَ اللَّهُ إِلَى مَا كُنْتَ [صحيح البخاري: 3464]
«If you are a liar then may Allah make you to what you used to be.»
(The condition-response begins with a قَتَلَ form but it is used as a wish and is not linked directly to the conditional-device.)

The condition-response-core begins with a fixed verb

(1832) إِنْ يَعِشْ هَذَا الْغُلاَمُ فَعَسَى أَنْ لاَ يُدْرِكَهُ الْهَرَمُ حَتَّى تَقُومَ السَّاعَةُ [صحيح مسلم: 2953a]
«If this boy should live then maybe old age will not hit him until the hour is estalished.»

(1833) فَإِنْ صَدَقَا وَبَيَّنَا بُورِكَ لَهُمَا فِي بَيْعِهِمَا وَإِنْ كَذَبَا وَكَتَمَا فَعَسَى أَنْ يَرْبَحَا رِبْحًا وَيُمْحَقَا بَرَكَةَ بَيْعِهِمَا [صحيح البخاري: 2114]
«If they speak the truth and mention the defects, then their bargain will be blessed, and if they tell lies and conceal the defects, they might gain some financial gain but they will be deprived of the blessing of their sale.»

(1834) فَإِذَا كَانَتْ سَائِمَةُ الرَّجُلِ نَاقِصَةً مِنْ أَرْبَعِينَ شَاةً وَاحِدَةً فَلَيْسَ فِيهَا صَدَقَةٌ [صحيح البخاري: 1454]
«If the man's livestock is less than forty sheep then there is no zakāh on it.»

(1835) وَمَن يَفْعَلْ ذَالِكَ فَلَيْسَ مِنَ ٱللَّهِ فِى شَىْءٍ إِلَّآ أَن تَتَّقُواْ مِنْهُمْ تُقَىٰةً [سورة آل عمران 3:28 cited by النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/466]
«And whoever [of you] does that has nothing [i.e., no association] with Allāh, except when taking precaution against them in prudence.»

The condition-response-core is a nounal sentence

(1836) إِنْ قَتَلْتَ حَمْزَةَ بِعَمِّي فَأَنْتَ حُرٌّ [صحيح البخاري: 4072]
«If you kill Ḥamzah [in revenge] for my uncle, then you are free.»

(1837) فَإِذَا رَأَيْتَ الَّذِينَ يَتَّبِعُونَ مَا تَشَابَهَ مِنْهُ فَأُولَئِكَ الَّذِينَ سَمَّى اللَّهُ، فَاحْذَرُوهُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 4547]
«If you see the people who follow what is open to different interpretations, then they are ones whom Allāh named, so beware of them.»

The nounal sentence may begin with a particle, in which case as well فَ is used. For example:

(1838) مَن يُضْلِلِ ٱللَّهُ فَلَا هَادِىَ لَهُۥ [سورة الأعراف 7:186 cited by شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/110]
«Whoever Allāh sends astray - there is no guide for him.»

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(1839) إِن تُعَذِّبْهُمْ فَإِنَّهُمْ عِبَادُكَ ۖ [سورة المائدة 5:118 cited by شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/110]
«If You should punish them - indeed they are Your servants;»

The condition-response-core is a قَتَلَ verbal sentence but it signifies the past tense

When the condition-response is a قَتَلَ verbal sentence but the verb signifies the past tense then فَ is added to it.[63]

(1840) وَإِن كَانَ قَمِيصُهُۥ قُدَّ مِن دُبُرٍ فَكَذَبَتْ وَهُوَ مِنَ ٱلصَّٰدِقِينَ [سورة يوسف 12:27 cited by معاني النحو 4/105]
«But if his shirt is torn from the back, then she has lied, and he is of the truthful.»

قَدْ may also optionally be added. For example:

(1841) إِنْ تَطْعَنُوا فِي إِمَارَتِهِ فَقَدْ طَعَنْتُمْ فِي إِمَارَةِ أَبِيهِ مِنْ قَبْلِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 4250]
«If you speak ill of his leadership, you have already spoken ill of his father's leadership before.»

The condition-response-verb is preceded by a particle other than لَمْ

When the condition-response-verb is preceded by لَمْ then it typically occurs directly in the condition-response without being introduced by فَ. But when the verb in the condition-response is preceded by another particle like سَ, سَوْفَ, مَا or لَنْ, then a فَ is required. For example:

(1842) إِنْ كُنْتِ بَرِيئَةً فَسَيُبَرِّئُكِ اللَّهُ وَإِنْ كُنْتِ أَلْمَمْتِ بِذَنْبٍ فَاسْتَغْفِرِي اللَّهَ وَتُوبِي إِلَيْهِ [صحيح البخاري: 4690]

(1843) إِن تَسْتَغْفِرْ لَهُمْ سَبْعِينَ مَرَّةً فَلَن يَغْفِرَ ٱللَّهُ لَهُمْ ۚ [سورة التوبة 9:80]
«If you should ask forgiveness for them seventy times - never will Allāh forgive them.»

By the way, once فَ is used as a condition-response-link, then مَا may freely be used to negate a verb directly after it in the condition-response. Remember from Section 41.2.3 above, that مَا may not be used to negate the condition-response-verb (when there is no فَ). Here is an example of مَا negating a verb in the condition-response that is introduced by فَ:

(1844) وَمَن تَوَلَّىٰ فَمَآ أَرْسَلْنَٰكَ عَلَيْهِمْ حَفِيظًا [سورة النساء 4:80]
«but those who turn away - We have not sent you over them as a guardian.»

In example (1844) above, فَ is analyzed as a condition-response-link and مَا after it negates the SC verb أَرْسَلَ.[64]

[63] See also Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 80
[64] الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي for سورة النساء 4:80

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فَ is typically not used to introduce condition-responses that begin with لَمْ. However, some grammarians disagreed and allowed it.[65]

41.7.2. Flexibility of allowing or dropping فَ

In Section 41.7.1 above, we listed the main scenarios where فَ is used as a condition-response-link. In this section, we will give some examples where فَ would seem to be required but is dropped, and conversely, where فَ would seem to be disallowed but is added. Grammarians have analyzed these and similar examples either by taqdīring or by relaxing the rules to allow flexibility in having فَ as a condition-response-link.[66]

The condition-response is a nounal sentence

(1845) مَن يَفعلِ الحَسَناتِ اللّٰهُ يَشْكُرُها [كتاب سيبويه 3/65]
«Whoever does good deeds, Allāh will thank them.»

In example (1845) above, the condition-response اللّٰهُ يَشْكُرُها is a nounal sentence but it does not begin with a فَ. Some allow this by poetic license only[67] while others allow it generally.[68]

(1846) وَإِنْ أَطَعْتُمُوهُمْ إِنَّكُمْ لَمُشْرِكُونَ [سورة الأنعام 6:121]
«And if you were to obey them, indeed, you would be associators [of others with Him].»

In example (1846) above, there is no فَ before إِنَّكُمْ لَمُشْرِكُونَ. In order to reconcile this, some have taqdīred a deleted oath (see Section 41.14 below), such that إِنَّكُمْ لَمُشْرِكُونَ is not the condition-response but a oath-response.[69]

(1847) إِنَّكَ إِنْ تَرَكْتَ وَلَدَكَ أَغْنِيَاءَ خَيْرٌ مِنْ أَنْ تَتْرُكَهُمْ عَالَةً [صحيح البخاري 6733: شواهد cited by التوضيح لابن مالك 192 see footnote 918]
«Indeed if you leave your offspring wealthy, [then it] is better than that you leave them poor.»

In example (1847) above a deleted فَهُوَ is taqdīred in the condition-response,[70] thus: إِنَّكَ إِنْ تَرَكْتَ وَلَدَكَ أَغْنِيَاءَ فَهُوَ خَيْرٌ.

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[65] See الكشاف للزمخشري for سورة الأنفال 8:17 فَلَمْ تَقْتُلُوهُمْ
[66] See اقتران الفاء في جواب الشرط وعدمها في التعبير القراني for a survey of the different opinions held by the grammarians.
[67] See النحو الوافي 4/465
[68] See شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 192
[69] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الأنعام 6:121
[70] شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 192

The condition-response is a command

(1848) فَإِنْ جَاءَ صَاحِبُهَا وَإِلاَّ اسْتَمْتِعْ بِهَا
[النحو الوافي 4/466 footnote; شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 192 cited by 2437: صحيح البخاري]
«Then if its owner comes [then give it to him], and if not [then] utilize it»

In example (1848) above the condition-response is a verb of command but it is not preceded by a فَ. The above ḥadīṯ has also been narrated with a فَ before the verb of command:

(1849) فَإِنْ جَاءَ صَاحِبُهَا، وَإِلاَّ فَاسْتَمْتِعْ بِهَا [صحيح البخاري: 2426 cited by شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 192 footnote 919]
«Then if its owner comes [then give it to him], and if not then utilize it»

The condition-response begins with a u-case PC verb

When the condition-response is a u-case PC verb, then it is common for it to be preceded by فَ. For example:

(1850) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي فَأُكْرِمُكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/69]
«If you come to me then I will honor you.»

(1851) وَمَنْ عَادَ فَيَنتَقِمُ ٱللَّهُ مِنْهُۚ [كتاب سيبويه 3/69 cited by سورة المائدة 5:95]
«but whoever returns [to violation], then Allāh will take retribution from him.»

(1852) فَمَن يُؤْمِنۢ بِرَبِّهِۦ فَلَا يَخَافُ بَخْسًا وَلَا رَهَقًا [كتاب سيبويه 3/69 cited by سورة الجن 72:13]
«And whoever believes in his Lord will not fear deprivation or burden.»

In such cases, some grammarians have treated فَ as being allowed because of a deleted subject such that the taqdīr of إِنْ تَأْتِنِي فَأُكْرِمُكَ in example (1850) above is فَأَنَا أُكْرِمُكَ.[71] Others did not see the need for such taqdīr.[72]

فَ may also be omitted in such sentences. We have already seen some examples where the u-case PC verb in the condition-response does not begin with فَ in Section 41.2.5 above. For convenience, we repeat here the examples we had given there:

(1853) إن أتيتني آتيك [كتاب سيبويه 3/66]
«If you come to me, I come to you.»

(1854) وإن أتاه خليلٌ يومَ مسألةٍ يقولُ لا غائبٌ مالي ولا حَرِمُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/66]
«And if a friend came to him on a day of asking, he says, "My wealth is neither absent nor denied."»

[71] كتاب سيبويه 3/69
[72] شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/112 citing المبرد; See also معاني النحو 4/109

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(1855) يا أَقْرَعُ بنَ حابسٍ يا أَقْرَعُ ~ إنَّك إن يُصْرَعْ أخوك تُصْرَعُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/67]
«O Aqraɛ son of Ḥābis, O Aqraɛ! Indeed if your brother would be thrown down, you are being thrown down.»

(1856) قَالَتِ اللَّهُمَّ إِنْ يَمُتْ يُقَالُ هِيَ قَتَلَتْهُ [صحيح البخاري: 2217 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 17]
«She said, "O Allāh if he should die, it will be said, 'She killed him.'"»

41.7.2.1. The condition-response is a question

When the condition-response is a question, then فَ is often omitted. This is usual when the question-device is أ but other question-devices may also occur in this manner.[73] Here are some examples:

(1857) أَءِذَا مِتْنَا وَكُنَّا تُرَابًا وَعِظَامًا أَءِنَّا لَمَبْعُوثُونَ [سورة الصافات 37:16]
«When we have died and become dust and bones, are we indeed to be resurrected?»

(1858) قُلْ أَرَءَيْتَكُمْ إِنْ أَتَىٰكُمْ عَذَابُ ٱللَّهِ بَغْتَةً أَوْ جَهْرَةً هَلْ يُهْلَكُ إِلَّا ٱلْقَوْمُ ٱلظَّٰلِمُونَ
[شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/113 cited by سورة الأنعام 6:47]
«Say, "Have you considered: if the punishment of Allāh should come to you unexpectedly or manifestly, will any be destroyed but the wrongdoing people?"»

(1859) قُلْ أَرَءَيْتُمْ إِنْ أَخَذَ ٱللَّهُ سَمْعَكُمْ وَأَبْصَٰرَكُمْ وَخَتَمَ عَلَىٰ قُلُوبِكُم مَّنْ إِلَٰهٌ غَيْرُ ٱللَّهِ يَأْتِيكُم بِهِۦٓ ۗ ٱنظُرْ كَيْفَ نُصَرِّفُ ٱلْءَايَٰتِ ثُمَّ هُمْ يَصْدِفُونَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/113 cited by سورة الأنعام 6:46]
«Say, "Have you considered: if Allāh should take away your hearing and your sight and set a seal upon your hearts, which deity other than Allāh could bring them [back] to you?"»

But فَ may also be admitted when the the condition-response is a question. For example:

(1860) قَالَ يَٰقَوْمِ أَرَءَيْتُمْ إِن كُنتُ عَلَىٰ بَيِّنَةٍ مِّن رَّبِّى وَءَاتَىٰنِى مِنْهُ رَحْمَةً فَمَن يَنصُرُنِى مِنَ ٱللَّهِ إِنْ عَصَيْتُهُۥ ۖ
[شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/113 cited by سورة هود 11:63]
«He said, "O my people, have you considered: if I should be upon clear evidence from my Lord and He has given me mercy from Himself, who would protect me from Allāh if I disobeyed Him?»

[73] شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/113

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41.8. Alternate condition-response-links

41.8.1. Sudden-إِذَا

When the condition-response begins with فَ, then it can be replaced with a sudden-إِذَا, when the meaning of suddenness is appropriate, and when the folloing conditions are satisfied[74]:

1. The condition-response must be a nounal sentence, not a verbal sentence.
2. The condition-response must be affirmative, not negative.
3. The condition-response must be truth-evaluable.
4. The condition-response must not begin with إِنَّ.

Here is an example of a conditional sentence that satisfies these conditions:

(1861) وَإِذَا ذُكِرَ ٱلَّذِينَ مِن دُونِهِۦٓ إِذَا هُمْ يَسْتَبْشِرُونَ [سورة الزمر 39:45 cited by معاني النحو 4/115]
«but when those [worshipped] other than Him are mentioned, immediately they rejoice.»

41.8.2. إِذَنْ

The particle إِذَنْ «in that case» can be inserted between a condition and a condition-response. So it can be considered a condition-response-link. But it will have no affect on the condition-response-verb, which can continue to be in the ø-case.[75]

It does not take the place of فَ like sudden-إِذَا, so it can be used in conditional sentences which don't allow فَ as a condition-response-link.

For example:

(1862) إِنْ تَزُرْنِي إِذَنْ أُكْرِمْكَ [ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب 4/1652]
«If you visit me, in that case I will honor you.»

41.9. The لَوْ conditional sentence

The third main conditional-device used, after إِنْ and إِذَا, is لَوْ. In terms of its classification as a word, لَوْ is a particle, like إِنْ, and unlike إِذَا, which is a noun. In

[74] معاني النحو 4/115
[75] See also مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 1/20

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terms of its meaning, لَوْ typically forms a different sort of conditional sentence than إِنْ and إِذَا, and therefore it is generally treated separately.

لَوْ is most commonly used to form past and present *counterfactual* conditional sentences. Less commonly, it is also used to form future *hypothetical* conditional sentences.[76] Here are examples of such conditional sentences in English:

(1863) « If you had been awake, you would have heard the coyote. » [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40]
This is a past counterfactual. The implication is that the addressed person was not awake. So his being awake is counter to fact.

(1864) « If I were a boy, I would have curls. » [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40]
This is a present counterfactual. The implication is that the speaker is not a boy. So her being a boy is counter to fact.

(1865) « If he ate all those doughnuts, he would be ill. » [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40]
This is a future hypothetical. This is similar to the kind of conditional sentence where إِنْ is used but it is more *imaginative*.

We will cover the use of لَوْ in such conditional sentences in the following subsections.

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41.9.1. The basic structure of a لَوْ conditional sentence

The archetypal لَوْ conditional sentence typically has the form

(1866) لَوْ قَتَلَ لَقَتَلَ

where لَ is the (optional) condition-response-link. Here is an example of a لَوْ conditional sentence:

(1867) لَوْ جِئْتَنِي لَأَكْرَمْتُكَ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/105]
« If you had come to me, I would have honored you. »

As you can see, the meaning of the لَوْ conditional sentence is, by default, a past counterfactual. In example (1867) above, the implication is that you had not come to me. So the condition never occurred.

Out of context, and sometimes even in context, both a counterfactual and a hypothtical meaning can be understood.[77] For example:

[76] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 40
[77] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 44–45

(1868) لَوْ كَانَ عِنْدَنَا مَالٌ لَأَعْطَيْنَاكَ [cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 45]
«If we had (or were to have) money, we would have (or would) give you.»

Here are some more examples of basic لَوْ conditional sentences:

(1869) لَوْ جِئْتَ بِهَا بِالأَمْسِ لَقَبِلْتُهَا فَأَمَّا الْيَوْمَ فَلاَ حَاجَةَ لِي بِهَا [صحيح البخاري: 1411 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 43]
«Had you brought it to me yesterday I would have accepted it. But as for today, then I have no need for it.»

(1870) لَوْ أُوتِيتُ مِثْلَ مَا أُوتِيَ هَذَا لَفَعَلْتُ كَمَا يَفْعَلُ [صحيح البخاري: 7232]
«If I had been given similar to what this [person] has been given, I would do similar to what he does.»

(1871) لَوْ دُعِيتُ إِلَى كُرَاعٍ لأَجَبْتُ وَلَوْ أُهْدِيَ إِلَىَّ ذِرَاعٌ لَقَبِلْتُ [صحيح البخاري: 5178]
«If I were invited to [a meal of] trotters, I would respond. And if forelegs were gifted to me I would accept.»

(1872) لَوْ لَبِثْتُ فِي السِّجْنِ مَا لَبِثَ يُوسُفُ ثُمَّ أَتَانِي الدَّاعِي لأَجَبْتُهُ [صحيح البخاري: 6992]
«If I stayed in prison as long as Yūsuf stayed, then the summoner came to me, I would have responded to him (to leave the prison).»

(1873) لَوْ أَدْرَكَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم مَا أَحْدَثَ النِّسَاءُ لَمَنَعَهُنَّ كَمَا مُنِعَتْ نِسَاءُ بَنِي إِسْرَائِيلَ [صحيح البخاري: 869]
«Had the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ come across what the women have started doing, he would have forbidden them like the women of the Children of Isrāʾīl were forbidden.»

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41.9.2. Optionality of لَ in the condition-response

While لَ is often used as a condition-response-link it is optional and may be dropped. Here are some examples with and without لَ:

(1874) إِنِّي لأَعْلَمُ كَلِمَةً لَوْ قَالَهَا ذَهَبَ عَنْهُ مَا يَجِدُ [صحيح البخاري: 3282]
«Indeed I know a phrase, if he were to say it, what he feels will go away from him.»

(1875) إِنِّي لأَعْلَمُ كَلِمَةً لَوْ قَالَهَا لَذَهَبَ عَنْهُ مَا يَجِدُ [صحيح البخاري: 6115]
«Indeed I know a phrase, if he were to say it, what he feels will go away from him.»

(1876) إِنَّ اللَّهَ عَزَّ وَجَلَّ يَقُولُ يَوْمَ الْقِيَامَةِ يَا ابْنَ آدَمَ مَرِضْتُ فَلَمْ تَعُدْنِي قَالَ يَا رَبِّ كَيْفَ أَعُودُكَ وَأَنْتَ رَبُّ الْعَالَمِينَ قَالَ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّ عَبْدِي فُلَانًا مَرِضَ فَلَمْ تَعُدْهُ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّكَ لَوْ عُدْتَهُ لَوَجَدْتَنِي عِنْدَهُ يَا ابْنَ آدَمَ اسْتَطْعَمْتُكَ فَلَمْ تُطْعِمْنِي قَالَ يَا رَبِّ وَكَيْفَ أُطْعِمُكَ وَأَنْتَ رَبُّ الْعَالَمِينَ قَالَ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّهُ اسْتَطْعَمَكَ عَبْدِي فُلَانٌ فَلَمْ تُطْعِمْهُ أَمَا عَلِمْتَ أَنَّكَ لَوْ أَطْعَمْتَهُ لَوَجَدْتَ ذَلِكَ عِنْدِي يَا ابْنَ آدَمَ اسْتَسْقَيْتُكَ فَلَمْ تَسْقِنِي قَالَ يَا رَبِّ كَيْفَ أَسْقِيكَ وَأَنْتَ رَبُّ الْعَالَمِينَ قَالَ اسْتَسْقَاكَ عَبْدِي فُلَانٌ فَلَمْ تَسْقِهِ أَمَا إِنَّكَ لَوْ سَقَيْتَهُ وَجَدْتَ ذَلِكَ عِنْدِي [صحيح مسلم: 2569]

«Verily, Allāh, the Exalted and Glorious, would say on the Day of Resurrection: O son of Adam, I was sick but you did not visit Me. He would say: O my Lord; how could I visit You whereas You are the Lord of the worlds? Thereupon He would say: Didn't you know that such and such servant of Mine was sick but you did not visit him and were you not aware of this that if you had visited him, you would have found Me by him? O son of Adam, I asked food from you but you did not feed Me. He would say: My Lord, how could I feed You whereas You are the Lord of the worlds? He said: Didn't you know that such and such servant of Mine asked food from you but you did not feed him, and were you not aware that if you had fed him you would have found him by My side? (The Lord would again say:) O son of Adam, I asked drink from you but you did not provide Me. He would say: My Lord, how could I provide You whereas You are the Lord of the worlds? Thereupon He would say: Such and such of servant of Mine asked you for a drink but you did not provide him, and had you provided him drink you would have found him near Me.»

(1877) أُمِّي افْتُلِتَتْ نَفْسَهَا، وَأُرَاهَا لَوْ تَكَلَّمَتْ تَصَدَّقَتْ [صحيح البخاري: 2760]

«My mother died suddenly and I think that if she had spoken she would have given in charity.»

41.9.3. قَدْ before the condition-verb or the condition-response-verb

As shown in example (1867) above, the basic form of the لَوْ conditional sentence is لَوْ قَتَلَ لَقَتَلَ. Rarely, a قَدْ may be inserted before the condition-verb and/or the condition-response-verb.[78] For example:

(1878) لَوْ قَدْ جَاءَ مَالُ الْبَحْرَيْنِ لَقَدْ أَعْطَيْتُكَ هَكَذَا وَهَكَذَا ثَلاَثًا [صحيح البخاري: 4383]

«If the money of al-Baḥrayn should come, I will give you such-and-such ([repeating such-and-such] thrice).»

[78] شرح الفارضي على ألفية ابن مالك 4/64

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قَدْ may even be used in the condition-response without لَ. For example:

(1879) لَوْ قَدْ جَاءَ مَالُ الْبَحْرَيْنِ قَدْ أَعْطَيْتُكَ هَكَذَا وَهَكَذَا وَهَكَذَا [صحيح البخاري: 2296]
«If the money of al-Baḥrayn should come, I will give you such-and-such.»

Furthermore, the context of examples (1878) and (1879) above, indicates a future hypothetical tense. So قَدْ, used in this way, does not necessarily restrict the tense to the past.

41.9.4. Negating the condition-verb

For negating the condition-verb, لَمْ is used thus:

(1880) لَوْ لَمْ يَقْتُلْ ...

لَوْلَا and لَوْمَا are also used in negative conditional sentences but we will treat them separately in Section 41.9.8 below.

Here are some examples of the condition-verb being negated with لَمْ:

(1881) لَوْ لَمْ تُذْنِبُوا لَذَهَبَ اللَّهُ بِكُمْ وَلَجَاءَ بِقَوْمٍ يُذْنِبُونَ فَيَسْتَغْفِرُونَ اللَّهَ فَيَغْفِرُ لَهُمْ [صحيح مسلم: 2749]
«If you were not to sin Allāh would do away with you and He would bring a people who would sin and seek forgiveness from Allāh, and He would forgive them.»

(1882) أَمَا إِنَّكِ لَوْ لَمْ تُعْطِيهِ شَيْئًا كُتِبَتْ عَلَيْكِ كِذْبَةٌ [سنن أبي داود: 4991]
«If you were not to give him anything, a lie would be recorded against you.»

(1883) أَمَا إِنَّكَ لَوْ لَمْ تَفْعَلْ لَلَفَعَتْكَ النَّارُ أَوْ لَمَسَّتْكَ النَّارُ [سنن أبي داود: 5159]
«If you hadn't done [so], the fire would have enveloped you or the fire would have touched you.»

(1884) لَوْ لَمْ أَحْتَضِنْهُ لَحَنَّ إِلَى يَوْمِ الْقِيَامَةِ [سنن ابن ماجه: 1415]
«Had I not embraced it, it would have cried yearning until the Day of Resurrection.»

41.9.5. Negating the condition-response-verb

When the condition-response-verb is to be negated, then either لَمْ or مَا can be used. For the case of لَمْ, the particle لَ is not used as a condition-response-link. For the case of مَا, the particle لَ is optional but it is almost always dropped. Here are some examples:

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(1885) لَوْ قَالَ إِنْ شَاءَ اللَّهُ لَمْ يَحْنَثْ [صحيح البخاري: 6720]
«If he had said, “If Allāh wills,” he would not have been unsuccessful.»

(1886) لَوْ لَمْ أَرَ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَسْجُدُ لَمْ أَسْجُدْ [صحيح البخاري: 1074]
«Had I not seen the Prophet ﷺ prostrating I would not have prostrated.»

(1887) لَوِ اسْتَقْبَلْتُ مِنْ أَمْرِي مَا اسْتَدْبَرْتُ مَا سُقْتُ الْهَدْىَ، وَلَحَلَلْتُ مَعَ النَّاسِ حِينَ حَلُّوا [صحيح البخاري: 7229]
«Had I known earlier of my affair what I knew later, I would not have driven my sacrificial animal and I would have exited Iḥrām with the people when they exited Iḥrām.»

(1888) إِنِّي لأَظُنُّ رَجُلاً لَوْ لَمْ يَطُفْ بَيْنَ الصَّفَا وَالْمَرْوَةِ مَا ضَرَّهُ [صحيح مسلم: 1277a]
«Indeed I think that if a man were not to go between al-Ṣafā and al-Marwah it would not harm him.»

Finally, here is a rare example of لَمَا in the condition-response:

(1889) لَوْ وَجَدَنِي نَائِمًا لَمَا أَيْقَظَنِي [سيرة ابن هشام 2/56 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 51]
«If he had found me sleeping, he would not have woken me.»

A different version of the same sentence without لَ is also found:

(1890) وَاللهِ لَوْ وَجَدَنِي نَائِمًا مَا أَيْقَظَنِي [مغازي الواقدي 1/189 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 51]
«By Allāh if he had found me sleeping, he would not have woken me.»

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41.9.6. كَانَ in the condition or the condition-response

The verb كَانَ can be used as the condition-verb. This can be for a few purposes كَانَ can be used to transform nounal sentences so that they can be used in the condition. Here are some examples:

(1891) لَوْ كَانَ الْمُطْعِمُ بْنُ عَدِيٍّ حَيًّا، ثُمَّ كَلَّمَنِي فِي هَؤُلاَءِ النَّتْنَى، لَتَرَكْتُهُمْ لَهُ [صحيح البخاري: 3139]
«If al-Muṭɛim ibn Ɛadiyy were alive and he spoke to me regarding these mean people, I would have left them to him.»

(1892) لَوْ كَانَ لِابْنِ آدَمَ وَادِيَانِ مِنْ مَالٍ لاَبْتَغَى ثَالِثًا [صحيح البخاري: 6436]
«If the son of Adam had two valleys of wealth, he would want a third.»

Here are some examples of لَوْ كَانَ قَتَلَ to signify a past counterfactual:

(1893) لَوْ كُنْتَ قُلْتَهَا لَكَانَ أَحَبَّ إِلَيَّ مِنْ كَذَا وَكَذَا [صحيح البخاري: 6122]
«If you had said it, it would have been more beloved to me than such-and-such.»

(1894) لَوْ كُنْتُ سَمِعْتُهُ قَبْلَ أَنْ أَهْدِمَهُ لَتَرَكْتُهُ عَلَى مَا بَنَى ابْنُ الزُّبَيْرِ [صحيح مسلم: 1333i]
«If I had heard it before demolishing it, I would have left it [in the state] that Ibn al-Zubayr built [it].»

(1895) لَوْ كُنْتِ أَعْطَيْتِهَا أَخْوَالَكِ كَانَ أَعْظَمَ لأَجْرِكِ [سنن أبي داود: 1690]
«If you had given her to your maternal uncles, it would have been greater for your reward.»

Here are some examples of لَوْ كَانَ يَقْتُلُ to signify a progressive counterfactual:

(1896) وَقَالُواْ لَوْ كُنَّا نَسْمَعُ أَوْ نَعْقِلُ مَا كُنَّا فِيٓ أَصْحَٰبِ ٱلسَّعِيرِ [سورة الملك 67:10]
«And they will say, "If only we had been listening or reasoning, we would not be among the companions of the Blaze."»

(1897) لَوْ كُنْتُ أُبْصِرُ لأَرَيْتُكُمْ مَوْضِعَ الشَّجَرَةِ [صحيح مسلم: 1856e]
«If I were seeing (i.e. had sight) I would show you the place of the tree.»

The combination of كَانَ and a doer participle is very commonly used to indicate a hypothetical situation. Here are some examples:

(1898) لَوْ كُنْتُ مُتَّخِذًا خَلِيلاً لاَتَّخَذْتُهُ خَلِيلاً وَلَكِنْ أُخُوَّةُ الإِسْلاَمِ أَفْضَلُ [صحيح البخاري: 3657]
«Were I to take a close friend, I would have taken [Abū Bakr] as a close friend. But the brotherhood of Islām is better.»

(1899) لَوْ كُنْتُ رَاجِمًا أَحَدًا بِغَيْرِ بَيِّنَةٍ لَرَجَمْتُهَا [صحيح مسلم: 1497c]
«If I were to stone anyone without evidence, I would have stoned her.»

Oftentimes, different expressions, with and without كَانَ, can be used for the same meaning. For example:

(1900) لَوْ كُنْتُ آمِرًا أَحَدًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لأَحَدٍ لأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا [جامع الترمذي: 1159]
«If I were to order anyone that they prostrate to another, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse.»

(1901) لَوْ كُنْتُ آمِرُ أَحَدًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لِأَحَدٍ لَأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا [مسند أحمد: 19403]
«If I were ordering anyone that they prostrate to another, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse.»

(1902) لَوْ أَمَرْتُ شَيْئًا أَنْ يَسْجُدَ لِشَيْءٍ لَأَمَرْتُ الْمَرْأَةَ أَنْ تَسْجُدَ لِزَوْجِهَا [صحيح ابن حبان: 4171]
«If I were to order anything that they prostrate to [another] thing, I would have ordered the woman to prostrate to her spouse.»

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كَانَ can also be used with لَوْ for an impersonal condition:

(1903) لَوْ كُنْتُ أَنَا لَمْ أُحَرِّقْهُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 3017]
«If it were I, I would not have burned them.»

كَانَ is also used as the condition-response-verb. Here are some examples of كَانَ as the condition-response-verb. allowing a nounal sentence in the condition-response:

(1904) لَوْ رَأَوْكَ كَانُوا أَشَدَّ لَكَ عِبَادَةً [صحيح البخاري: 6408]
«If they were to see you they would be more devout to you in worship.»

(1905) قَالَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَرْحَمُ اللَّهُ أُمَّ إِسْمَاعِيلَ لَوْ تَرَكَتْ زَمْزَمَ أَوْ قَالَ لَوْ لَمْ تَغْرِفْ مِنَ الْمَاءِ لَكَانَتْ عَيْنًا مَعِينًا [صحيح البخاري: 2368]
«The Prophet ﷺ said, “May Allāh have mercy on the mother of Ismāɛīl. Had she left Zamzam”—or he said, “Had she not scooped from the water”—“it would have been a flowing spring.”»

41.9.7. لَوْ أَنَّ

لَوْ is frequently followed, not by a verb, but by an أَنَّ clause. For example:

(1906) لَوْ أَنَّ زَيْدًا جَاءَ لَأَكْرَمْتُهُ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/528]
«If Zayd had come to me, I would have honored him.»

The grammarians analyze this kind of لَوْ conditional sentence in two ways[79]:

a. That the أَنَّ clause is the doer of a taqdīred condition-verb that signifies occurrence, like ثَبَتَ «to be ascertained» or وَقَعَ «to occur». So the taqdīr of the above example is:

(1907) لَوْ وَقَعَ مَجِيءُ زَيْدٍ لَأَكْرَمْتُهُ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/528]
«If Zayd's coming had occurred, I would have honored him.»

b. That لَوْ in this case does not need a condition-verb, and that the أَنَّ clause is a subject to a taqdīred info which is a noun like ثَابِتٌ «ascertained». So the taqdīr of the above example is:

(1908) لَوْ مَجِيءُ زَيْدٍ ثَابِتٌ لَأَكْرَمْتُهُ
«If Zayd's coming [was] ascertained, I would have honored him.»

According to some grammarians, the info of أَنَّ should, in such cases, be a verb.[80] So the folloing would be disallowed:

[79] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 4/528; النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/478
[80] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/120

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(1909) × ... لَوْ أَنَّ زَيْدًا حَاضِرِي [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/120]
«If Zayd were present with me …»

Here are some more examples of لَوْ أَنَّ:

(1910) وَلَوْ أَنَّهُمْ صَبَرُواْ حَتَّىٰ تَخْرُجَ إِلَيْهِمْ لَكَانَ خَيْرًا لَّهُمْ [النحو العربي: 49:5 cited by سورة الحجرات 2/478 أحكام ومعان]
«And if they had been patient until you [could] come out to them, it would have been better for them.»

(1911) وَلَوْ أَنَّهُمْ إِذ ظَّلَمُوٓاْ أَنفُسَهُمْ جَآءُوكَ فَٱسْتَغْفَرُواْ ٱللَّهَ وَٱسْتَغْفَرَ لَهُمُ ٱلرَّسُولُ لَوَجَدُواْ ٱللَّهَ تَوَّابًا رَّحِيمًا [سورة النساء 4:64]
«And if, when they wronged themselves, they had come to you, [O Muḥammad], and asked forgiveness of Allāh and the Messenger had asked forgiveness for them, they would have found Allāh Accepting of Repentance and Merciful.»

(1912) لَوْ أَنَّ أَحَدَهُمْ رَفَعَ قَدَمَهُ رَآنَا [صحيح البخاري: 4663]
«If one of them should lift his foot, he would see us.»

(1913) لَوْ أَنَّ لِابْنِ آدَمَ وَادِيًا مِنْ ذَهَبٍ أَحَبَّ أَنْ يَكُونَ لَهُ وَادِيَانِ [صحيح البخاري: 6439]
«If the son of Ādam had a valley of gold, he would like that he have two valleys.»

(1914) لَوْ أَنَّ الأَنْصَارَ سَلَكُوا وَادِيًا أَوْ شِعْبًا، لَسَلَكْتُ فِي وَادِي الأَنْصَارِ [صحيح البخاري: 3779]
«If the Anṣār should take their way through a valley or a ravine, I would take my way in the valley of the Anṣār.»

(1915) لَوْ أَنَّ أَحَدَكُمْ أَنْفَقَ مِثْلَ أُحُدٍ ذَهَبًا مَا أَدْرَكَ مُدَّ أَحَدِهِمْ وَلاَ نَصِيفَهُ [صحيح مسلم: 2540]
«If one of you should spend [the measure of] Uḥud in gold, it would not reach [the measure of] one of them's [spending] one *mudd*, nor [would it reach] its half.»

41.9.8. لَوْلَا and لَوْمَا

لَوْلَا is a special conditional-device that almost always[81] precedes a noun in the condition-core. The noun is treated as a subject and its info is usually deleted. For example:

(1916) لَوْلَا زَيْدٌ لَغَرَقْتُ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين 19/3]
«Were it not for Zayd, I would have drowned.»

[81] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61 cites exceptions in poetry

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In example (1916) above, زَيْدٌ is a subject. Its info is a deleted noun, whose taqdīr is مَوْجُودٌ or حَاضِرٌ «present» (meaning *there*). So a possible taqdīr of the condition is:

(1917) لَوْلَا زَيْدٌ مَوْجُودٌ [شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين 19/3]
«If Zayd were not present …»

لَوْلَا is frequently also followed by an أَنَّ (or أَنْ) clause. In which case the أَنَّ clause is treated as the subject. For example:

(1918) لَوْلَا أَنَّ زَيْدًا عِنْدِي لَأَتَيْتُكَ [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/336]
«Were it not that Zayd is with me, I would have come to you.»

The info of the noun after is usually but not always deleted.[82] Here is an example with a info:

(1919) فَلَوْلَا بَنُوهَا حَوْلَهَا لَخَبَطْتُهَا [شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك]
«Were it not for her sons around her I would have struck her»
(حَوْل is technically not the info but a adverb of place governed by a taqdīred info.)

There is a difference in meaning between لَوْلَا, and لَوْ with a negated verb. Consider the following two examples:

(1920) لَوْ لَمْ تَضْرِبْنِي لَأَعْطَيْتُكَ الْمَالَ [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61] «Had you not beaten me, I would have given you the money.»

(1921) لَوْلَا أَنَّكَ ضَرَبْتَنِي لَأَعْطَيْتُكَ الْمَالَ [Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61]
«Were it not that you had beaten me, I would have given you the money.»

Example (1920) above only presupposes the condition, whereas example (1921) asserts it.[83]

لَوْمَا is less used than لَوْلَا but is similar in usage and meaning. Here are some more examples of لَوْلَا and لَوْمَا

(1922) لَوْلاَ بَنُو إِسْرَائِيلَ لَمْ يَخْنَزِ اللَّحْمُ، وَلَوْلاَ حَوَّاءُ لَمْ تَخُنْ أُنْثَى زَوْجَهَا [صحيح البخاري: 3330]
«Were it not for the Children of Isrāʾīl, meat would not decay. And were it not for Ḥawwāʾ, a female would not betray her spouse.»

(1923) لَوْلاَ آخِرُ الْمُسْلِمِينَ مَا فُتِحَتْ عَلَيْهِمْ قَرْيَةٌ إِلاَّ قَسَمْتُهَا، كَمَا قَسَمَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم خَيْبَرَ [صحيح البخاري: 4236]
«Were it not for the latter Muslims, never would a town be conquered except that I would have divided it like the Prophet ﷺ divided K͡haybar»

[82] شرح ألفية ابن مالك للعثيمين 19/3
[83] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 61

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(1924) لَوْلاَ أَنِّي رَأَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم قَبَّلَكَ مَا قَبَّلْتُكَ [صحيح البخاري: 1610]
«Were it not that I saw the Messenger of Allāh had kissed you, I would not have kissed you.»

(1925) وَلَوْلَآ أَن كَتَبَ ٱللَّهُ عَلَيْهِمُ ٱلْجَلَآءَ لَعَذَّبَهُمْ فِى ٱلدُّنْيَا [سورة الحشر 59:3]
«And if not that Allāh had decreed for them evacuation, He would have punished them in [this] world»

(1926) لَوْلاَ أَنْ تَكُونَ صَدَقَةً لأَكَلْتُهَا [صحيح مسلم: 1071c]
«Were it not that it may be charity, I would have eaten it.»

(1927) لَوْلاَ أَنْ أَشُقَّ عَلَى أُمَّتِي لأَمَرْتُهُمْ بِالسِّوَاكِ [صحيح البخاري: 7240]
«Were it not that I may make it hard on my nation, I would have ordered them to use the siwāk.»

(1928) لَوْلاَ أَنَّ النَّبِيَّ صلى الله عليه وسلم نَهَانَا أَنْ نَدْعُوَ بِالْمَوْتِ لَدَعَوْتُ بِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 6350]
«Were it not that the Prophet ﷺ had forbidden us to invoke [Allāh] for death, I would have invoked [Allāh] for it.»

Here is an example with لَوْمَا:

(1929) لَوْمَا أَنَّ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم نَهَانَا أَنْ نَدْعُوَ بِالْمَوْتِ لَدَعَوْتُ بِهِ [صحيح مسلم: 2681a]
«Were it not that the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ had forbidden us to invoke [Allāh] for death, I would have invoked [Allāh] for it.»

لَوْلَا as a question-device

لَوْلَا is also used as a question-device to me «why not». For example:

(1930) لَوْلاَ مَتَّعْتَنَا بِهِ [صحيح البخاري: 6331]
«Why didn't you let us enjoy him?»

In this case we won't consider it a conditional-device.

41.9.9. A u-case PC condition-verb

The condition-verb in لَوْ conditional sentences is typically of the form قَتَلَ. Sometimes, however, the يَقْتُلُ form is also found, particularly (but not exclusively) when the condition-verb is يَعْلَمُ.[84] Here are some examples:

[84] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 57

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(1931) لَوْ يُطِيعُكُمْ فِى كَثِيرٍ مِّنَ ٱلْأَمْرِ لَعَنِتُّمْ [49:7 سورة الحجرات]
«If he were to obey you in much of the matter, you would be in difficulty»

(1932) قَالُواْ لَوْ نَعْلَمُ قِتَالًا لَّٱتَّبَعْنَٰكُمْ [3:167 سورة آل عمران]
«They said, "If we had known [there would be] battle, we would have followed you."»

(1933) لَوْ تَعْلَمُونَ مَا أَعْلَمُ لَضَحِكْتُمْ قَلِيلاً وَلَبَكَيْتُمْ كَثِيرًا [صحيح البخاري: 6486]
«If you knew what I know you would laugh little and you would cry much.»

(1934) فَقَالَ الْحَجَّاجُ لَوْ نَعْلَمُ مَنْ أَصَابَكَ فَقَالَ ابْنُ عُمَرَ أَنْتَ أَصَبْتَنِي [صحيح البخاري: 966 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 57]
«al-Ḥajjāj said, "If we could only know who hit you." Ibn Ɛumar said, "You hit me."»

(1935) رَأَيْتُنِي يَوْمَ أَبِي جَنْدَلٍ وَلَوْ أَسْتَطِيعُ أَنْ أَرُدَّ أَمْرَ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم لَرَدَدْتُهُ [صحيح البخاري: 3181 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 57]
«I found myself on the day of Abū Jandal [where] if I could have reversed the order of the Prophet ﷺ, I would have reversed it.»

41.9.10. A ø-case PC condition-verb

A ø-case PC condition-verb is exceedingly rare with لَوْ but it is occasionally found. For example:

(1936) لَوْ تَعُذْ حِينَ فَرَّ قَوْمُكَ بِي كُنْتَ مِنَ الأَمْنِ فِي أَعَزِّ مَكَانِ [شواهد التوضيح لابن مالك 72]
«Had you taken refuge, when your people fled, with me, you would have been, with regards to security, in the mightiest place.»

41.9.11. لَوْ expressing a wish or hope

A special use of لَوْ is for expressing a wish or hope. These are of two types[85]:
The first is a لَوْ clause by itself. For example:

(1937) يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ إِنَّ أَبَا بَكْرٍ رَجُلٌ أَسِيفٌ مَتَى يَقُمْ مَقَامَكَ لَا يُسْمِعِ النَّاسَ لَوْ أَمَرْتَ عُمَرَ [صحيح ابن حبان: 6873]
«O Messenger of Allāh Indeed Abū is a tender-hearted man. When he stands in your place, he will not be able to make the people hear. Would that you ordered Ɛumar.»

[85] Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 53

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The second is the لَوْ-clause followed by a فَ introducing a cause/purpose clause. For example:

(1938) لَوْ تَأْتِينِي فَتُحَدِّثَنِي
لَوْ تَأْتِينِي فَتُحَدِّثُنِي
[شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/124]
«Would that you could come to me so that you could talk to me.»

One way of analyzing these types of sentences is that the true condition-response of لَوْ is deleted[86] (see Section 41.10 below). And the clause beginning with فَ takes the place of the true condition-response.

Occasionally the true condition-response is not deleted. For example:

(1939) فَلَوْ نُبِشَ الْمَقَابِرُ عَنْ كُلَيْبٍ فَيُخْبِرُ بِالذَّنَائِبِ أَي زير
بيوم الشعشمين لَقَرَّ عَيْنًا وَكَيْفَ لِقَاءُ مَنْ تَحْتَ الْقُبُورِ [البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة السجدة 32:12]
«And if the graves were exhumed from Kulayb … it would have been a coolness of the eyes …»

Here are some more examples of لَوْ used to express a wish or hope:

(1940) وَدُّواْ لَوْ تُدْهِنُ فَيُدْهِنُونَ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 1/265 cited by سورة القلم 68:9]
«They wish that you would soften [in your position], so they would soften [toward you].»

(1941) لَوْ صَلَّيْتَ بَعْدَهَا رَكْعَتَيْنِ [صحيح مسلم :694e]
«Would that you prayed after it two rakɛahs.»

(1942) يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ لَوْ أَمْسَيْتَ إِنَّ عَلَيْكَ نَهَارًا [صحيح البخاري :5297]
«O Messenger of Allāh, would that you entered the evening. Indeed daytime is (still) upon you.»

(1943) فَقُلْتُ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ لَوِ اتَّخَذْنَا مِنْ مَقَامِ إِبْرَاهِيمَ مُصَلًّى فَنَزَلَتْ وَاتَّخِذُوا مِنْ مَقَامِ إِبْرَاهِيمَ مُصَلًّى وَآيَةُ الْحِجَابِ قُلْتُ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ لَوْ أَمَرْتَ نِسَاءَكَ أَنْ يَحْتَجِبْنَ فَإِنَّهُ يُكَلِّمُهُنَّ الْبَرُّ وَالْفَاجِرُ فَنَزَلَتْ آيَةُ الْحِجَابِ [صحيح البخاري :402]
«I said, “O Messenger of Allāh, would that we took the standing place of Abraham as a place of prayer.” So [the āyah] came down: And take, [O believers], from the standing place of Abraham a place of prayer. And [as regards] the āyah of the veil, I said, “O Messenger of Allāh, would that you ordered your wives to cover themselves, for indeed the good and bad ones talk to them.” So the āyah of the veil came down.»

[86] مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 1/267; همع الهوامع للسيوطي 2/574

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41.9.12. A nounal sentence in the condition-response

Very rarely, a nounal sentence has been found to directly occur in the condition-response:

(1944) وَلَوْ أَنَّهُمْ ءَامَنُواْ وَٱتَّقَوْاْ لَمَثُوبَةٌ مِّنْ عِندِ ٱللَّهِ خَيْرٌ [سورة البقرة 2:103]
«And if they had believed and feared Allāh, then the reward from Allāh would have been [far] better»

Some grammarians have analyzed لَمَثُوبَةٌ مِنَ اللهِ خَيرٌ to directly be the condition-response. Whereas others have used taqdīr.[87]

41.10. Deletion in the conditional sentence

For reasons of economy, emphasis, or style, part of the conditional sentence may be omitted (i.e. deleted) in speech. From context, the listener is able to restore the deleted part when understanding the conditional sentence.[88] In this section, we will give examples of deletion in the conditional sentence.[89]

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41.10.1. Part of the condition or the condition-response is deleted

Consider the following examples:

(1945) الناسُ مَجزيُّونَ بأَعمالهم إنْ خيراً فخيرٌ وإن شراً فشرٌ [كتاب سيبويه 1/258]
«The people are rewarded according to their deeds: if good then good and if bad then bad.»

(1946) المرء مقتولٌ بما قَتَلَ به إنْ خِنْجَراً فخنجرٌ وإن سيفاً فسيفٌ [كتاب سيبويه 1/258]
«[A] person is killed by what he killed with: if a dagger then a dagger, and if a sword then a sword.»

[87] هل يقع جواب (لو) جملة اسمية؟, jamharah.net
[88] Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 198 quoting Crystal, *A dictionary of linguistics and phonetics*.
[89] The discussion follows Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* Chapter V, and re-uses many of the same examples.

Examples (1945) and (1946) above have parts of both the condition and the condition-response deleted. Consider the single conditional sentence from example (1945) above:

(1947) إِنْ خَيْرًا فَخَيْرٌ [cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 208]

The sentence, with the deleted parts restored is:

(1948) إِنْ كَانَ عَمَلُهُمْ خَيْرًا فَجَزَاؤُهُمْ خَيْرٌ [أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/254]
«If their deed was good, then their reward is good.»

More combinations with deletion are permissible. Let's use example (1945) again. We can have the following combinations:

(1949) a. إِنْ خَيْرٌ فَخَيْرٌ

b. إِنْ خَيْرًا فَخَيْرًا

c. إِنْ خَيْرًا فَخَيْرٌ

d. إِنْ خَيْرٌ فَخَيْرًا
[شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 2/156]

In example (1949) above, when the condition has the a-case خَيْرًا, then its restoration, as we have seen, is إِنْ كَانَ عَمَلُهُمْ خَيْرًا. And when the condition has the u-case خَيْرٌ, then its restoration, as we have seen, is إِنْ كَانَ فِي عَمَلِهِمْ خَيْرٌ.

Similarly when the condition-response has the u-case خَيْرٌ, then its restoration, as we have seen, is فَجَزَاؤُهُمْ خَيْرٌ And when the condition has the a-case خَيْرًا, then its restoration, as we have seen, is فَيُجْزَوْنَ خَيْرًا.[90]

Here is another example:

(1950) صَلِّ قَائِمًا فَإِنْ لَمْ تَسْتَطِعْ فَقَاعِدًا [صحيح البخاري: 1116]
«Pray standing. But if you are not able then sitting.»

41.10.2. The entire condition-core is deleted

The entire condition-core may be deleted when it is understood from context. For example:

(1951) فَطَلِّقْهَا فَلَسْتَ لَهَا بِكُفْءٍ وَإِلَا يَعْلُ مَفْرَقَكَ الْحُسَامُ [cited by شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/42; Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 212]
«So divorce her; for you are not adequate for her. And if not, the sword will hit your hair-parting (on your head)»

[90] أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/254

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The conditional sentence with the deleted condition-core restored is:

(1952) وَإِلَّا تُطَلِّقْهَا يَعْلُ مَفْرَقَكَ الْحُسَامُ [cited by شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية 4/43]
«And if you don't divorce her, the sword will hit your hair-parting (on your head)»

41.10.3. The condition-response is deleted

We have already seen some cases of the condition-response being deleted. For example:

In an inverted conditional sentence (see Section 41.2.4 above). Example:

(1953) هُوَ ظَالِمٌ إِنْ فَعَلَ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 2/647 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 213]
«He is a wrong-doer if he does it.»

In the case of لَوْ expressing a wish or a hope (see Section 41.9.11 above). Example:

(1954) لو أعطاني ووَهَبَني [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/124]
«Would that you gave me and granted me.»

The above can be considered cases of obligatory and regular deletion respectively.

The condition-response is also obligatorily deleted for parenthetical conditions. For example:

(1955) هُوَ إِنْ فَعَلَ ظَالِمٌ [مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 2/647]
«He, if he does it, is a wrong-doer.»

(1956) وَإِنَّآ إِن شَآءَ ٱللَّهُ لَمُهْتَدُونَ [سورة البقرة 2:70 cited by مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 2/647; Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 213]
«And indeed we, if Allāh wills, will be guided.»

We will consider an additional case of obligatory deleted condition-response in Section 41.14 below.

In addition to obligatory or regular deletion, the condition-response may also be optionally deleted for stylistic reasons. For example:

(1957) وَلَوْ أَنَّ قُرْءَانًا سُيِّرَتْ بِهِ ٱلْجِبَالُ أَوْ قُطِّعَتْ بِهِ ٱلْأَرْضُ أَوْ كُلِّمَ بِهِ ٱلْمَوْتَىٰ ۗ بَل لِّلَّهِ ٱلْأَمْرُ جَمِيعًا ۗ [سورة الرعد 13:31 cited by مغني اللبيب لابن هشام 2/647; Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 218]

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«And if there was any Qur'ān [i.e., recitation] by which the mountains would be removed or the earth would be broken apart or the dead would be made to speak, [it would be this Qur'ān], but to Allāh belongs the affair entirely.»

41.10.4. «Even if»

A special case of a deleted condition-response is when the condition imparts the meaning «even if». This occurs when conditional-device is preceded by وَ and is not followed by a condition-response. Examples:

(1958) أَنَا زَعِيمٌ بِبَيْتٍ فِي رَبَضِ الْجَنَّةِ لِمَنْ تَرَكَ الْمِرَاءَ وَإِنْ كَانَ مُحِقًّا [سنن أبي داود: 4800]
«I guarantee a house in the surroundings of Paradise for a man who avoids arguing even if he were in the right.»

(1959) قُلْتُ وَإِنْ زَنَى وَإِنْ سَرَقَ قَالَ وَإِنْ زَنَى وَإِنْ سَرَقَ [صحيح مسلم: 94b]
«I said, "Even if he fornicated and even if he stole?". He said, "Even if he fornicated and even if he stole."»

Here is «even if» as a parenthetical clause:

(1960) زَيْدٌ وَإِنْ كَثُرَ مَالُهُ زَعِيمٌ [Wright 2/40]
«Zayd, even if his wealth be much, is stingy.»

Frequently, the condition in an «even if» may contain only a noun. For example:

(1961) بَلِّغُوا عَنِّي وَلَوْ آيَةً [صحيح البخاري: 3461]
«Convey from me (my teachings) even if one āyah.»

In such cases, as in Section 41.10.1 above, there may be multiple ways to analyze the condition. Consider the following sentence:

(1962) وَأْتِنِي بِدَابَّةٍ وَلَوْ حِمَارًا [كتاب سيبويه 1/269]
«And bring me a beast of burden, even if a donkey.»

The a-case of حِمَار is justified using the taqdīr:

(1963) وَلَوْ [كَانَ] حِمَارًا
«even if [it were] a donkey.»

Instead of the a-case for حِمَار, the i-case may also be used:

(1964) وَأْتِنِي بِدَابَّةٍ وَلَوْ حِمَارٍ [composed from كتاب سيبويه 1/269]
«And bring me a beast of burden, even if a donkey.»

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In this case the taqdīr is:

(1965) وَلَوْ [أَتَيْتَنِي بِـ] حِمَارٍ
«even if [you brought me] a donkey.»

The u-case is also possible, though not as preferred:

(1966) وَأْتِنِي بِدَابَّةٍ وَلَوْ حِمَارٌ [composed from كتاب سيبويه 1/269]
«And bring me a beast of burden, even if a donkey.»

In this case, the taqdīr would be:

(1967) وَلَوْ [يَكُونُ مِمَّا تَأْتِينِي بِهِ] حِمَارٌ
[composed from كتاب سيبويه 1/269]
«even if a donkey [is what you bring me].»

Work in progress

41.10.5. Both the condition-core and the condition-response are deleted

Stylistically, both the condition-core and the condition-response may be deleted. For example:

(1968) قَالَتْ بَنَاتُ الْعَمِّ يَا سَلْمَى وَإِنْ كَانَ فَقِيرًا مُعْدَمًا قَالَتْ وَإِنْ [modified from أوضح المسالك لابن هشام 1/42, cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 219]
«The uncle's daughters (i.e. cousins) said, "O Salmā, even if he is a destitute poor [person]?" She said, "Even if."»

In example (1968) above, there are two conditional sentences. The first conditional sentence is وَإِنْ كَانَ فَقِيرًا مُعْدَمًا It's condition-response is deleted.

The second conditional sentence is only وَإِنْ. Both its condition-core and condition-response are deleted.

Here is another example:

(1969) يقول القائل لا آتى الأمير لأنه جائر فيقال ائته وإن [شرح كتاب سيبويه للسيرافي 3/264, cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 219]
«A speaker says, "I shall not come to the commander because he is unjust." So it is said (to him), "Come to him, even if."»
That is: «Come to him, even if he is unjust»

41.11. A condition-core beginning with a noun

The basic principle for a condition-core is that it should be a verbal sentence. (We include كَانَ sentences in verbal sentences, loosely speaking.) And the verb which begins the condition-core is classified as the condition-verb.

In all the examples we have seen so far, this has been the case. So, in the example: إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي أَكْرَمْتُكَ, the condition-core is the verbal sentence أَتَيْتَنِي, and it is begun with the condition-verb أَتَى.

Occassionally, however, the condition-core is found to begin with a noun. For example:

(1970) إِنِ ٱمْرُؤٌ هَلَكَ لَيْسَ لَهُۥ وَلَدٌ وَلَهُۥٓ أُخْتٌ فَلَهَا نِصْفُ مَا تَرَكَۚ
[شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/120 cited by سورة النساء 4:176]
«If a man dies, leaving no child but [only] a sister, she will have half of what he left.»

In example (1970) above, the conditional-device إِنْ is directly followed by the noun امْرُؤٌ and not the verb هَلَكَ. The way that this, and similar examples, are made to align with the above stated principle of a condition-core always being a verbal sentence, is by taqdīring a deleted verb هَلَكَ directly after the conditional-device إِنْ as its condition-verb, thus[91]:

(1971) إِنْ [هَلَكَ] امْرُؤٌ

Once the original condition-verb هَلَكَ is deleted, its doer is left in place. And an explanatory verb is added after it which gives the meaning of the deleted verb. In this, and most cases, the explanatory verb matches the deleted verb. So the resulting condition becomes إِنْ امْرُؤٌ هَلَكَ.

In this way, the basic principle of the condition-core always being a verbal sentence remains intact. And it restricts the the transformed condition (after the deletion) to have a verb. Therefore, a condition like the following would be disallowed because it does not have a verb:

(1972) × إِنْ عَمْرٌو خَارِجٌ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/120]
«If Ɛamr is outside …»

In such conditions where the condition-core begins with a noun, it is preferred that the conditional-device be إِنْ, and that the condition-verb be قَتَلَ not يَقْتُلُ.[92] Nevertheless, counterexamples do occur. For example:

[91] The following is the standard analysis. Other analyses are described in Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 96–105 and شرح الرضي على الكافية 4/93–94

[92] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/121

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(1973) أَيْنَمَا الرِّيحُ تُمَيِّلْهَا تَمِلْ [كتاب سيبويه 3/112]
«Whichever way the wind makes it incline, it inclines.»

(1974) إِذَا أَنْتَ لَمْ تَنْفَعْ فَضُرَّ [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]
«If you cannot benefit then harm.»

In example (1974) above, the taqdīred original condition is [إِذَا [لَمْ تَنْفَعْ. The verb تَنْفَعْ (and لَمْ) is deleted and its doer is left in place. But because its doer is a latent pronoun (taqdīred as [أَنْتَ]), it is transformed into its detached pronoun equivalent أَنْتَ so that it can appear in surface speech. Then an explanatory verbal expression لَمْ تَنْفَعْ (which matches the deleted verbal expression) is added, and we end up with the resultant إِذَا أَنْتَ لَمْ تَنْفَعْ.

It is also possible for the explanatorily added verb to not exactly match the taqdīred deleted condition-verb. For example:

(1975) فإن أنت لم ينفعك علمك فانتسب ~ لعلّك تهديك القرون الأوائل
[cited by Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 101; شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 2/140]
«If your knowledge does not benefit you then affiliate yourself [to your predecessors]. Perhaps the earlier generations can guide you.»

In example (1975) above, the additional complication is that the doer أَنْتَ that begins the condition-core, does not match the doer عِلْمُكَ of the explanatory verbal sentence لم ينفعك علمك.[93] But we can still mold this to fit in with out basic principle and the transformational steps that we gave above. Here's how:

The taqdīr for the condition can be taqdīred as:

(1976) فإن [لم تنتفع بعلمك]

The taqdīred verbal sentence [لم تنتفع بعلمك] is deleted except for the condition-verb تنتفع's doer, the latent pronoun [أَنْتَ]. This latent doer pronoun is transformed for surface speech into the detached pronoun أَنْتَ. An explanatory verbal sentence لم ينفعك علمك is added after the doer أَنْتَ to give the meaning of a taqdīred verbal sentence. In this case, the explanatory verbal sentence does not exactly match the taqdīred original condition-core in wording, but has a similar meaning.[94]

The noun which follows the conditional-device may also be in the a-case as the direct object of the deleted verb. For example:

(1977) إِنْ زَيْدًا لَقِيتَهُ فَأَكْرِمْهُ [شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 1/428]
«If it is Zayd you meet then honor him.»

[93] Abdel-Ghani, *Conditional sentences within the Arab grammatical tradition* 101–102
[94] شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 2/140; see also التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 6/313

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(1978) حَيْثُمَا عَمْرًا لَقِيتَهُ فَأَهِنْهُ [شرح الأشمونى لألفية ابن مالك 1/428]
«If it is Ɛamr you meet then insult him.»

(1979) لا تجزعي إن مُنفِسًا أهلكتُه وإذا هلكتُ فعند ذلك فاجزعي [شرح التسهيل لابن مالك 2/141; see also التذييل والتكميل لأبي حيان 6/313]
«Do not grieve if I have destroyed a rival; but if I should perish, then at that time grieve.»

Here are some more examples of conditional sentences whose condition-core begins with a noun:

(1980) وَإِنْ أَحَدٌ مِّنَ ٱلْمُشْرِكِينَ ٱسْتَجَارَكَ فَأَجِرْهُ حَتَّىٰ يَسْمَعَ كَلَٰمَ ٱللَّهِ ثُمَّ أَبْلِغْهُ مَأْمَنَهُۥ [سورة التوبة 9:6]
«And if any one of the polytheists seeks your protection, then grant him protection so that he may hear the words of Allāh [i.e., the Qur'ān].»

(1981) فَإِنْ أَحَدٌ تَرَخَّصَ لِقِتَالِ رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم فِيهَا فَقُولُوا إِنَّ اللَّهَ قَدْ أَذِنَ لِرَسُولِهِ وَلَمْ يَأْذَنْ لَكُمْ [صحيح البخاري: 104 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 20]
«So if anyone allows himself license because of the fighting of the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ then say to him, "Allāh permitted His Messenger and did not permit you."»

(1982) وَإِنْ هُمْ أَبَوْا فَوَالَّذِي نَفْسِي بِيَدِهِ، لأُقَاتِلَنَّهُمْ عَلَى أَمْرِي هَذَا حَتَّى تَنْفَرِدَ سَالِفَتِي، وَلَيُنْفِذَنَّ اللَّهُ أَمْرَهُ [صحيح البخاري: 2731 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 19]
«But if they refuse, then by Him in whose Hand my soul is, I will definitely fight them on this cause of mine until [I die], but Allāh will [make His cause victorious].»

Here is an example with إِذَا as the conditional-device:

(1983) إِذَا هُوَ لَمْ يُعْطِ فِيهَا حَقَّهَا تَطَؤُهُ بِأَخْفَافِهَا [صحيح البخاري: 1402 cited by Peled, *Conditional structures in Classical Arabic* 27]
«If he had not given their due [zakāt] for them, then they would tread him with their hooves»

Here is an example with لَوْ as the conditional-device:

(1984) قَالَ أَبُو عُبَيْدَةَ بْنُ الْجَرَّاحِ أَفِرَارًا مِنْ قَدَرِ اللَّهِ فَقَالَ عُمَرُ لَوْ غَيْرُكَ قَالَهَا يَا أَبَا عُبَيْدَةَ، نَعَمْ نَفِرُّ مِنْ قَدَرِ اللَّهِ إِلَى قَدَرِ اللَّهِ [صحيح البخاري: 5729]
«Abū Ɛubaydah ibn al-Jarrāḥ said, "Are you fleeing what Allāh has ordained?" Ɛumar said, "Would that someone else had said [such a thing], O Abū Ɛubaydah! Yes, we are fleeing from what Allah has ordained to what Allah has ordained."»

Work in progress

41.12. The request-response

There is a special kind of sentence where a statement that can be classified as a *request*, is followed by *request-response*. For example:

(1985) ائْتِنِي آتِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/93]
«Come to me, I will come to you.»

In example (1985) above, the sentence ائْتِنِي is the request. And the sentence آتِكَ is the request-response.

Note that the verb آتِ in the request-response is in the ø-case, as the direct consequence of fulfilling the request ائْتِنِي. In order to justify the ø-case of the verb in the request-response, the grammarians taqdīr a deleted condition before it that matches the the request. It is this deleted condition that causes the verb in the request-response to be in the ø-case.[95] Here are a couple of possible taqdīrs of example (1985) above:

(1986) ائْتِنِي [إِنْ تَأْتِنِي] آتِكَ
«Come to me. [If you come to me], I will come to you.»

(1987) ائْتِنِي [إن يكن منك إتيانٌ] آتِكَ
[from كتاب سيبويه 3/94]
«Come to me. [If there is a coming from you], I will come to you.»

Work in progress

41.12.1. Different types of requests

Requests that take a request-response may be of different types:

A command

Example (1985) above is an example of a command request. Here is another example:

(1988) أَسْلِمْ تَسْلَمْ [صحيح مسلم :1773a]
«Submit, you will be in peace.»

A possible taqdīr is:

(1989) أَسْلِمْ [إِنْ أَسْلَمْتَ] تَسْلَمْ
«Submit. [If you submit] you will be in peace.»

[95] كتاب سيبويه 3/94 citing الخليل

A prohibition

(1990) لا تفعل يكن خيراً لك [كتاب سيبويه 3/93 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 205]
«Don't do it, it will be better for you.»

The taqdīr for the example above is:

(1991) لا تفعل [إِنْ لَمْ تَفْعَلْ] يكن خيراً لك
«Don't do it. [If you don't do it] it will be better for you.»

A question

Example:

(1992) أَيْنَ بَيْتُكَ أَزُرْكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/94 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 206]
«Where is your house? I will visit you.»

The taqdīr for the example above is:

(1993) أَيْنَ بَيْتُكَ [إِنْ أَعْلَمْ مَكَانَ بَيْتِكَ] أَزُرْكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/94]
«Where is your house? [If I know the location of your house] I will visit you.»

Here is another example:

(1994) يَٰٓأَيُّهَا ٱلَّذِينَ ءَامَنُواْ هَلۡ أَدُلُّكُمۡ عَلَىٰ تِجَٰرَةٖ تُنجِيكُم مِّنۡ عَذَابٍ أَلِيمٖ ۝ تُؤۡمِنُونَ بِٱللَّهِ وَرَسُولِهِۦ وَتُجَٰهِدُونَ فِي سَبِيلِ ٱللَّهِ بِأَمۡوَٰلِكُمۡ وَأَنفُسِكُمۡۚ ذَٰلِكُمۡ خَيۡرٞ لَّكُمۡ إِن كُنتُمۡ تَعۡلَمُونَ ۝ يَغۡفِرۡ لَكُمۡ ذُنُوبَكُمۡ وَيُدۡخِلۡكُمۡ جَنَّٰتٖ تَجۡرِي مِن تَحۡتِهَا ٱلۡأَنۡهَٰرُ وَمَسَٰكِنَ طَيِّبَةٗ فِي جَنَّٰتِ عَدۡنٖۚ ذَٰلِكَ ٱلۡفَوۡزُ ٱلۡعَظِيمُ ۝ [سورة الصف 61:10–12 cited by كتاب سيبويه 3/94]
«O you who have believed, shall I guide you to a transaction that will save you from a painful punishment? [It is that] you believe in Allāh and His Messenger and strive in the cause of Allāh with your wealth and your lives. That is best for you, if you only knew. He will forgive for you your sins and admit you to gardens beneath which rivers flow and pleasant dwellings in gardens of perpetual residence. That is the great attainment.»

In example (1994) above, the request-response يَغْفِرْ is analyzed to be in the ø-case following the question request هَلْ أَدُلُّكُمْ.[96]

[96] كتاب سيبويه 3/94

Work in progress

A wish

Example:

(1995) أَلَا مَاءَ أَشْرَبْهُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/93 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 206]
«Is there no water I would drink?»

Taqdīr:

(1996) أَلَا مَاءَ [إِنْ يَكُنْ مَاءٌ] أَشْرَبْهُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/94]
«Is there no water? [If there were water] I would drink it.»

Example:

(1997) لَيْتَهُ عِنْدَنَا يُحَدِّثْنَا [كتاب سيبويه 3/93]
«Would that he were with us, he would talk to us.»

Taqdīr:

(1998) لَيْتَهُ عِنْدَنَا [إِنْ يَكُنْ عِنْدَنَا] يُحَدِّثْنَا [كتاب سيبويه 3/94]
«Would that he were with us. [If he were with us] he would talk to us.»

An offer

Example:

(1999) أَلَا تَنْزِلُ تُصِبْ خَيْرًا [كتاب سيبويه 3/93]
«Won't you come settle? You will obtain benefit.»

Taqdīr:

(2000) أَلَا تَنْزِلُ [إِنْ تَنْزِلْ] تُصِبْ خَيْرًا
«Won't you come settle? [If you will come settle] you will obtain benefit.»

41.12.2. The verb following the request may optionally be in the u-case

In the examples above, the verb following the request may optionally be in the u-case.[97] So for example, we can say:

(2001) ائْتِنِي آتِيكَ
«Come to me. I will come to you.»

[97] كتاب سيبويه 3/95

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In such cases, any taqdīred condition would not govern the u-case verb. Here are some more examples:

(2002) خُذْ مِنْ أَمْوَالِهِمْ صَدَقَةً تُطَهِّرُهُمْ وَتُزَكِّيهِم بِهَا [سورة التوبة 9:103 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 207]
«Take, [O Muḥammad], from their wealth a charity by which you purify them and cause them increase, and invoke [Allāh's blessings] upon them.»

(2003) فَهَبْ لِي مِن لَّدُنكَ وَلِيًّا يَرِثُنِي وَيَرِثُ مِنْ ءَالِ يَعْقُوبَ [سورة مريم 19:5–6 cited by Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 207]
«so give me from Yourself an heir Who will inherit me and inherit from the family of Jacob.»

41.12.3. The taqdīred condition should match the request

The grammarians specify that the request-response should be the direct consequence of satisfying a taqdīred condition that matches the request. Let's explain what we mean by taking a look at the following (non-complying) example:

(2004) × لَا تَدْنُ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ يَأْكُلْكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/97]
«Don't go near the lion, it will eat you.»

In example (2004) above, a taqdīred condition that matches the request is إِنْ لَمْ تَدْنُ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ. If we insert this condition into the original sentence we get:

(2005) × لا تدن من الأسد [إِنْ لَمْ تَدْنُ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ] ياكلك
«Don't go near the lion. [If you don't go near the lion] it will eat you.»

As you can see, the sentence does not now make logical sense. In such cases, it is better that the verb following the request be in the u-case.[98] So we should say

(2006) ✓ لَا تَدْنُ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ يَأْكُلْكَ
«Don't go near the lion. It will eat you.»

A فَ may also be prefixed to the u-case verb with no problem:

(2007) ✓ لَا تَدْنُ مِنَ الْأَسَدِ فَيَأْكُلْكَ
«Don't go near the lion. For it will eat you.»

[98] كتاب سيبويه 3/97

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By the way, example (1999) أَلَا تَنْزِلُ تُصِبْ خَيْرًا is not a problem because the offer أَلَا تَنْزِلُ is equivalent to the command انْزِلْ.[99]

Similarly, example (1995) أَلَا مَاءَ أَشْرَبْهُ is not a problem because the wish أَلَا مَاءَ is equivalent to hoping for water أَتَمَنَّى مَاءً. So the taqdīred condition إِنْ يَكُنْ مَاءٌ is valid.

41.13. The conditional sentence within a larger sentence

The conditional sentence can occur as an element within a larger compound sentence.[100] It may occur in different capacities. We will discuss some of them below.

41.13.1. The conditional sentence as a info

The conditional sentence may occur as a info of a larger sentence. For example:

(2008) زَيْدٌ إِنْ تُكْرِمْهُ يُكْرِمْكَ [الإيضاح للفارسي citing 430 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
« Zayd: if you honor him, he will honor you. »

In example above, the conditional sentence إِنْ تُكْرِمْهُ يُكْرِمْكَ is analyzed as the info of the subject زَيْدٌ.

Here is another example:

(2009) وَٱلَّـٰٓـِٔى يَئِسْنَ مِنَ ٱلْمَحِيضِ مِن نِّسَآئِكُمْ إِنِ ٱرْتَبْتُمْ فَعِدَّتُهُنَّ ثَلَـٰثَةُ أَشْهُرٍ 65:4 سورة الطلاق] cited by 430 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
« And those who no longer expect menstruation among your women - if you doubt, then their period is three months »

In example (2009) above, the conditional sentence ... إِنِ ارْتَبْتُمْ has been analyzed as a info of اللَّائِي.[101]

41.13.2. The conditional sentence as a attribute

The conditional sentence may occur as a attribute of a attributed-to. For example:

[99] كتاب سيبويه 3/94

[100] Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* chapter 6; الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 430–440, 455ff

[101] القيسي citing 430 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

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(2010) لَا تَسْـَٔلُواْ عَنْ أَشْيَآءَ إِن تُبْدَ لَكُمْ تَسُؤْكُمْ [الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة cited by 5:101 سورة المائدة] [430 العرب للشمسان]
«do not ask about things which, if they are shown to you, will distress you»

In example (2010) above, the conditional sentence إِنْ تُبْدَ لَكُمْ تَسُؤْكُمْ is analyzed to be a attribute of أَشْيَاءَ.[102]

41.13.3. The conditional sentence as a ḥāl

Some grammarians have said that a conditional sentence can occur as a ḥāl. One example given is:

(2011) أفعلُ هذا إن جاء زيدٌ [المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 2/43]
«I will do this if Zayd comes.»

In example (2011) above, the inverted conditional sentence (with a deleted condition-response) إن جاء زيدٌ is analyzed as a ḥāl.[103]

In Section 41.2.4 above for example (1665), we saw that some grammarians may treat such a conditional sentence as something akin to a adverb of time/place.[104] For example:

(2012) آتِيكَ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِى [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/118]
«I will come to you if you come to me.»

41.13.4. The conditional sentence as a connecting sentence

The conditional sentence may occur as a connecting sentence of a connected noun. For example:

(2013) ٱلَّذِينَ إِن مَّكَّنَّٰهُمْ فِى ٱلْأَرْضِ أَقَامُواْ ٱلصَّلَوٰةَ [الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة cited by 22:41 سورة الحج] [430 العرب للشمسان]
«[And they are] those who, if We give them authority in the land, establish prayer»

In example (2013) above, the conditional sentence إِنْ مَكَّنَّاهُمْ فِي الْأَرْضِ أَقَامُوا الصَّلَاةَ is analyzed to be a connecting sentence of الَّذِينَ.[105]

[102] الأنباري citing 430 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان
[103] 2/43 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل
[104] 5/118 شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل
[105] الأنباري citing 430 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان

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41.13.5. The conditional sentence within a question

The main category here is a أَ preceding a conditional sentence. The أَ simply asks a question and has no effect on the syntax on the following conditional sentence.[106] Examples:

(2014) أإن تأتني آتك [كتاب سيبويه 3/82]
«Is it that if you come to me, I come to you?»

(2015) أمتى تشتمني أشتمك [كتاب سيبويه 3/82]
«Is it that when you revile me, I revile you?»

(2016) أمن يفعل ذاك أزره [كتاب سيبويه 3/82]
«Is it that whoever does that, I should visit him?»

41.13.6. The conditional sentence within foundational government sentences

إِنَّ, كَانَ, and لَيْسَ are foundational government-devices and they have subjects and infos. It is possible for their subjects to be مَنْ, مَا, and أَيّ, which, as we know from Section 41.4 above, can also be conditional-devices.

But when these nouns are the subjects of one of these foundational government-devices, then they cannot also be conditional-devices at the same time. These nouns then revert back to connected nouns. For example:

(2017) إِنَّ مَنْ يَأْتِينِي آتِيهِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/71]
«Indeed who comes to us is whom we come to.»

(2018) كَانَ مَنْ يَأْتِينِي آتِيهِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/71]
«Who comes to us was whom we come to.»

(2019) لَيْسَ مَنْ يَأْتِينِي آتِيهِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/71]
«Who comes to us is not whom we come to.»

In examples (2017) through (2019) above, مَنْ is the subject and a connected noun, يَأْتِينِي (in the u-case) is its connecting sentence, and آتِيهِ (in the u-case) is the info.

Conditional-devices that are not connected nouns may not occur as the subjects of these foundational government devices. So we cannot say:

[106] See also الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 432–440

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(2020) إِنَّ إِنْ ... X [كتاب سيبويه 3/72]

(2021) إِنَّ مَتَى ... X [كتاب سيبويه 3/72]

If these foundational government devices have other subjects, then a conditional sentence may freely be info. Examples:

(2022) إِنَّهُ مَنْ يَأْتِنَا نَأْتِهِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/72]
«Indeed [the state-of affairs] is: who will come to us, we will come to him.»

(2023) كُنْتُ مَنْ يَأْتِنَي آتِهِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/72]
«I was: who will come to me, I will come to him.»

(2024) كَانَ مَنْ يَأْتِهِ يُعْطِهِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/72]
«He was: who will come to him, he will give to him.»

(2025) لَيْسَ مَنْ يَأْتِهِ يُحْبِبْهُ [كتاب سيبويه 3/72]
«He is not: who will come to him, he will love him.»

(2026) إِنَّهُ مَن يَأْتِ رَبَّهُ مُجْرِمًا فَإِنَّ لَهُ جَهَنَّمَ لَا يَمُوتُ فِيهَا وَلَا يَحْيَىٰ [كتاب سيبويه 3/72]
«Indeed, whoever comes to his Lord as a criminal - indeed, for him is Hell; he will neither die therein nor live.»

In such sentences, the state-of-affairs pronoun can be deleted. For example:

(2027) إِنَّ مَن لامَ في بني بنت حسّان ألُمهْ وأَعْصِه في الخُطوبِ [كتاب سيبويه 3/73]
«Indeed [the state-of-affairs] is: whoever blames [me] regarding the sons of the daughter of Ḥassān, I will blame him and I will disobey him in the affairs.»
(إِنَّ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun thus: إِنَّهُ.)

(2028) قد علمت أن من يأتني آته [كتاب سيبويه 3/73 cited by سورة طه 20:74]
«You have known that [the state-of-affairs] is: whoever comes to me, I come to him.»
(أَنَّ has a deleted state-of-affairs pronoun thus: أَنَّهُ.)

41.13.7. The conditional sentence after non-foundational government introductory devices

There are words that introduce sentences, but don't govern an subject and info directly. For example: إِذْ «when», أَمَّا «as for», إِذَا «when», لَـكِنْ «but», لَا «not», مَا «not».

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إِذْ, أَمَّا, and مَا

For most such introductory devices will again be followed by connected nouns, and not, typically, conditional-devices. Examples:

(2029) أتذكر إذ من يأتينا نأتيه
[كتاب سيبويه 3/75]
«Do you remember when who [was] coming to us, we [were] coming to him?»

(2030) ما من يأتينا نأتيه
[كتاب سيبويه 3/75]
«It is not that who comes to us, we come to him.»

(2031) أما من يأتينا فنحن نأتيه
[كتاب سيبويه 3/75]
«As for who comes to us, then we come to him.»

Note that again يَأْتِينِي and آتِيهِ are in the u-case. And again, the conditional-device إِنْ would typically not follow these introductory devices.

Having said that, by poetic license, we can find a conditional sentence after these introductory devices. In that case, sentences like the following examples would be pemissible:

(2032) أتذكر إذ من يأتنا نأته [كتاب سيبويه 3/75]
«Do you remember when: whoever would come to us, we would come to him?»

(2033) أتذكر إذ إن تأتنا نأتك [كتاب سيبويه 3/76]
«Do you remember when: if you would come to us, we would come to you?»

When إِذْ is separated from the conditional sentence by a noun, then there is no problem in having the conditional sentence. For example:

(2034) أتذكر إذ نحن من يأتنا نأته [كتاب سيبويه 3/76]
«Do you remember when we: whoever would come to us, we would come to him?»

sudden-إِذَا

The same goes for the sudden-إِذَا. For example:

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(2035) مررت به فإذا من يأتيه يعطيه [كتاب سيبويه 3/76]
«I passed by him, then, suddenly, whoever [was] coming to him, he [was] giving him.»

A conditional sentence can also be used, if we there is a noun after إِذَا:

(2036) مررت به فإذا هو من يأتيه يعطيه [modified from كتاب سيبويه 3/76]
«I passed by him, then, suddenly, he: whoever would come to him, he would give to him.»
(The هو may be optionally deleted, so we can also say: فإذا من يأتيه يعطيه.)

لَـٰكِنْ

لَـٰكِنْ is similar to إِذَا, so we can say (with a deleted pronoun after لَـٰكِنْ):

(2037) ما أنا ببخيلٍ ولكن إن تأتني أعطك [كتاب سيبويه 3/77]
«I am not a miser. Rather if you come to me, I will give to you.»
(There is a deleted pronoun after لَـٰكِنْ.)

لَا

لَا is different from the other introductory devices above. A conditional sentence may freely occur after it. For example:

(2038) لا من يأتك تعطه [كتاب سيبويه 3/76]
«It is not that whoever will come to you, you will give to him.»

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41.14. The condition combined with an oath

We know from chapter () that the oath-sentence, like the conditional sentence, has two parts:

i. The oath
ii. The oath-response

For example,

(2039) وَاللهِ لَأَفْعَلَنَّ [كتاب سيبويه 3/104]
«By Allāh, I will do it.»

In example (2039) above, وَاللهِ is the oath, and لَأَفْعَلَنَّ is the oath-response. The oath-response is prefixed by the oath-response-لَ.

The oath-sentence is often combined with the conditional sentence. This can occur in a few different ways:

a. The oath occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the condition.
b. The condition occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the oath.
c. The oath and condition are in the info of a compound sentence.

Let's discuss each of these in turn.

41.14.1. The oath occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the condition

The general principle, when analyzing such sentences, is that there will be only one response, either a oath-response, or a condition-response. And, typically, the response will be for whichever of the oath or the condition occurred first in sentence word order.

Consider the following example:

(2040) وَاللهِ لَئِنْ أَكْرَمْتَنِي لَأُكْرِمَنَّكَ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/141]
«By Allāh, if you honor me, I will honor you.»

In example (2040) above, the oath وَاللهِ occurs before the condition إِنْ أَكْرَمْتَنِي in sentence word order. Therefore, the response لَأُكْرِمَنَّكَ is here the oath-response. This is evinced by the the usage of emphatic verb and the لَ before it, which are hallmarks of the oath-response. The condition-response is obligatorily deleted.

Note also, the usage of another لَ that prefixes the conditional-device: لَئِنْ. This is a special لَ that is only used when a oath precedes the conditional-device إِنْ. It indicates that any response which follows is a oath-response.[107]

Here is another example of a oath preceding a condition:

(2041) واللهِ لَئِنْ أتيتَني لأتيتُك [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/141]
«By Allāh, if you came to me, I will come to you.»

In example (2041) above, لأتيتُك is again the oath-response. In this case, it uses a SC verb, even though it has a future meaning.

Often times, the actual oath may optionally be deleted. For example:

[107] معجم المسائل النحوية والصرفية الواردة في القرآن الكريم 28

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(2042) لَئِنْ أُخْرِجُواْ لَا يَخْرُجُونَ مَعَهُمْ وَلَئِن قُوتِلُواْ لَا يَنصُرُونَهُمْ [شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/142 cited by سورة الحشر 59:12]
«If they are expelled, they will not leave with them, and if they are fought, they will not aid them.»

In example (2042) above, a oath is assumed to be deleted. The response لَا يَخْرُجُونَ is still analyzed to be an oath-response.[108] This is again indicated by the لَ preceding the conditional-device (لَئِنْ), and also by the use of the u-case of the PC verb in the response (يَخْرُجُونَ) instead of the ø-case.

Occasionally, both the oath and the لَ before the conditional-device إِنْ may optionally be deleted. But the oath is implied, and so the response matches the syntax of the condition-response, not the condition-response. For example:

(2043) إن أتيتني لأكرمنك [كتاب سيبويه 3/66]
«If you came to me, I will honor you»

In example (2043) above, the taqdīr, with the optionally deleted elements restored, is:

(2044) والله لئن أتيتني لأكرمنك [كتاب سيبويه 3/66]
«By Allāh, if you came to me, I will honor you»

When the oath precedes the condition, and thus the response is an oath-response and not a condition-response, it is preferred that the condition-verb be of the form قَتَلَ (or its equivalent لَمْ يَقْتُلْ) and not يَقْتُلْ. This is because (as we also mentioned in Section 41.2.2 above) when the condition-verb is يَقْتُلْ, then it strongly prefers that a condition-response, with a symmetrical يَقْتُلْ as the condition-response-verb, be actually uttered in surface speech. So it is preferred not to say:

(2045) × لَئِنْ تَفْعَلْ لَأَفْعَلَنَّ [كتاب سيبويه 3/66]
«[By Allāh,] if you do, I will do.»

This preference can be seen in the following āyahs:

(2046) وَإِن لَّمْ تَغْفِرْ لَنَا وَتَرْحَمْنَا لَنَكُونَنَّ مِنَ ٱلْخَٰسِرِينَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/66 cited by سورة الأعراف 7:23]
«and if You do not forgive us and have mercy upon us, we will surely be among the losers»
لَنَكُونَنَّ is analyzed as an oath-response to a deleted oath.[109]

(2047) وَإِلَّا تَغْفِرْ لِي وَتَرْحَمْنِيٓ أَكُن مِّنَ ٱلْخَٰسِرِينَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/66 cited by سورة هود 11:47]
«And unless You forgive me and have mercy upon me, I will be among the

[108] شرح ابن يعيش على المفصل 5/142
[109] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الأعراف 7:23

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losers »
أَكُنْ is analyzed as a condition-response.[110]

Here are some more examples of a oath in the beginning of a sentence, preceding a condition:

(2048) لَئِنْ بَقِيتُ إِلَى قَابِلٍ لأَصُومَنَّ التَّاسِعَ [صحيح مسلم: 1134b]
« If I live to the coming year, I will definitely fast the ninth. »

(2049) قَالَ أَبُو جَهْلٍ لَئِنْ رَأَيْتُ مُحَمَّدًا يُصَلِّي لأَطَأَنَّ عَلَى عُنُقِهِ فَقَالَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم لَوْ فَعَلَ لأَخَذَتْهُ الْمَلاَئِكَةُ عِيَانًا [جامع الترمذي: 3348]
« Abū Jahl said, "If I see Muḥammad praying, I shall certainly stomp on his neck." So the Prophet ﷺ said, "If he did that, the angels would seize him visibly." »

(2050) وَاللَّهِ لَئِنْ حَلَفْتُ لاَ تُصَدِّقُونِي وَلَئِنِ اعْتَذَرْتُ لاَ تَعْذِرُونِي [صحيح البخاري: 3388]
« By Allāh, if I were to take an oath, you would not believe me. And if I were to offer an excuse, you would not excuse me. »

What we have said regarding the response being a oath-response when the oath precedes the condition is true generally. However, rarely, the response in such cases can be the condition-response, not the oath-response. For example:

(2051) لَئِنْ كَانَ حُدِّثْتُهُ الْيَوْمَ صَادِقًا أَصُمْ فِي نَهَارِ الْقَيْظِ لِلشَّمْسِ بَادِيًا [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/476]
« If what I have been told today is true, I will fast in the heat of the day out in the sun. »
أَصُمْ in the ø-case indicates that it is the condition-response not the oath-response.

The above discussion has dealt with only the conditional-device إِنْ. Other conditional-devices that govern two ø-case verbs, like مَنْ, مَا, etc., will behave the same way. For example:

(2052) لَّمَن تَبِعَكَ مِنْهُمْ لَأَمْلَأَنَّ جَهَنَّمَ مِنكُمْ أَجْمَعِينَ [سورة الأعراف 7:18]
« Whoever follows you among them - I will surely fill Hell with you, all together »

In example (2052) above, the لَ in لَمَنْ has been analyzed as following a deleted oath. لَأَمْلَأَنَّ is then the oath-response. Other analyses are also possible.[111]

[110] الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي for سورة هود 11:47
[111] البحر المحيط لأبي حيان for سورة الأعراف 7:18

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41.14.2. The condition occurs in the beginning of a sentence, before the oath

When the condition (or any portion thereof) occurs before the oath, then the response is considered to be the condition-response, and the oath-response is obligatorily deleted.

(2053) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي وَاللّٰهِ آتِكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 451 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
«If you came to me, by Allāh, I will come to you.»

(2054) إِنْ قَامَ زَيْدٌ وَاللّٰهِ يَقُمْ عَمْرٌو [4/44 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]
«If Zayd stands, by Allāh, Ɛamr will stand.»

(2055) إِنْ وَاللّٰهِ جِئْتَنِي أُكْرِمْكَ [3/216 شرح التسهيل لابن مالك]
«If, by Allāh, you come to me, I will honor you.»

There is also another possibility, which is that the sentence can have both a oath-response and a condition-response. And the entire oath-sentence is the condition-response. A فَ will be needed as the condition-response-link. Examples:

(2056) إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي فَوَاللّٰهِ لَآتِيَنَّكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية 451 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
«If you came to me, then by Allāh, I will come to you.»

41.14.3. The oath and condition are in the info of a compound sentence

When the oath and condition sentence occur in the info of a compound sentence, then the standard position of the grammarians is that the response shall be the condition-response, and that the oath-response be obligatorily deleted, regardless of whether the condition preceded the oath, or vice-versa.[112]

(2057) زيد والله إن يقم عمرو يأت [3/177 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل]
«Zayd, by Allāh, if Ɛamr stands, will come.»

(2058) زيد إن يقم عمرو والله يأت [3/177 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل]
«Zayd, if Ɛamr stands, by Allāh, will come.»

(2059) أَنَا وَاللّٰهِ إِنْ تَأْتِنِي لَا آتِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 448 citing الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
«I, by Allāh, if you come to me, I will not come to you.»

[112] 3/177 المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل

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(2060) أَنَا إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي وَاللهِ آتِكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية citing 450 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
«I, if you came to me, by Allāh, I will come to you.»

The above is the most common opinion of the grammarians. However, some grammarians have allowed that when the oath precedes the condition, then the response can be the oath-response and the condition-response is deleted.[113] For example:

(2061) أَنَا وَاللهِ إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي لَآتِيَنَّكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية citing 449 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
«I, by Allāh, if you came to me, I will come to you.»

Another opinion found amongst the grammarians is that both the condition-response and the oath-response can be deleted. And so the following verbal sentence is directly the info.[114] For example:

(2062) زَيْدٌ واللهِ إِن أَكْرَمْتَهُ يُكْرِمُكَ [ارتشاف الضرب citing 449 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان من لسان العرب]
«Zayd: by Allāh, if you honor him, he will honor you.»
يُكْرِمُكَ, in the u-case is the info of زَيْدٌ.

Lastly, there is also the possibility that the sentence can have both a oath-response and a condition-response. And the entire oath-sentence is the condition-response.[115] A فَ will be needed as the condition-response-link. For example:

(2063) أَنَا إِنْ أَتَيْتَنِي فَوَاللهِ لَآتِيَنَّكَ [شرح الرضي على الكافية citing 450 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان]
«I, if you came to me, then by Allāh, I will come to you.»

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41.14.4. لَوْ combined with a oath

When the conditional-devices لَوْ or لَوْلَا are combined with a oath, then firstly, no additional لَ is prefixed to them, like it was in the case of لَئِنْ. Secondly, the standard position of the grammarians is that the response shall be the condition-response, and that the oath-response be obligatorily deleted, regardless of whether the condition preceded the oath, or vice-versa.[116] Examples:

[113] ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب للشمسان and شرح الرضي على الكافية citing 449 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب
[114] ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب citing 449 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان
[115] ارتشاف الضرب من لسان العرب citing 449 الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان
[116] المساعد على تسهيل الفوائد لابن عقيل 3/179

(2064) وَاللهِ لَوْلَا اللهُ مَا اهْتَدَيْنَا وَلَا تَصَدَّقْنَا وَلَا صَلَّيْنَا [شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك 2/894]
«By Allāh, were it not for Allāh we would not have been guided, nor would we have given charity, nor would we have prayed.»

(2065) فَأُقْسِمُ لَوْ أَبْدَى النَّدِيُّ سَوَادَهُ لَمَا مَسَحَتْ تِلْكَ الْمُسَالَاتِ عَامِرُ [شرح الكافية الشافية لابن مالك 2/893]
«So I swear, if the gathering [was attended by] his personage, [the tribe of] ƐĀmir would not be able to wipe those sideburns [of his] (out of respect and fear of him).»

However, some grammarians have allowed additional possibilities.[117]

41.15. Multiple verbs in the condition or condition-response

41.15.1. A condition-verb or condition-response-verb with a verbal sentence as a ḥāl

The condition-verb or condition-response-verb may be followed by a verbal sentence which is a ḥāl to it. For example:

(2066) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي تَسْأَلُنِي أُعْطِكَ [الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان cited by كتاب سيبويه 3/85 390]
«If you come to me—asking me–, I will give to you.»

The verbal sentence تَسْأَلُنِي is a ḥāl. And that is why its verb is in the u-case. Here is another example:

(2067) وَإِنْ أَتَانِي يَمْشِي أَتَيْتُهُ هَرْوَلَةً [صحيح مسلم :2675a]
«And if he comes to Me walking, I come to him rushing.»

[117] see تمهيد القواعد بشرح تسهيل الفوائد لناظر الجيش 6/3121ff

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41.15.2. A condition-verb or condition-response-verb with a substitute

The condition-verb or condition-response-verb may be followed by a verbal sentence which is an substitute to it. Examples:

(2068) إِنْ تَأْتِنَا تَسْأَلْنَا نُعْطِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/87 cited by الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 396]
«If you come to us, you ask us, we will give to you.»
تَسْأَلْنَا is a substitute of تَأْتِنَا.

(2069) إِنْ تَأْتِنَا نُحْسِنْ إِلَيْكَ نُعْطِكَ وَنَحْمِيكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/87]
«If you come to use, we will be good to you, we will give to you and we will protect you.»
نُعْطِكَ is a substitute of نُحْسِنْ إِلَيْكَ.

(2070) وَمَن يَفْعَلْ ذَالِكَ يَلْقَ أَثَامًا ۝ يُضَٰعَفْ لَهُ ٱلْعَذَابُ يَوْمَ ٱلْقِيَٰمَةِ وَيَخْلُدْ فِيهِۦ مُهَانًا [سورة الفرقان 25:68–69 cited by كتاب سيبويه 3/87]
«And whoever should do that will meet a penalty. Multiplied for him is the punishment on the Day of Resurrection, and he will abide therein humiliated»
يُضَاعَفْ, in the ø-case, is analyzed as a substitute of يَلْقَ.[118]

41.15.3. A condition-verb followed by a conjunction

If the condition-verb is followed by a conjunction and then the second verb, then the second is, by default, in the ø-case to match the condition-verb. Examples:

(2071) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي ثُمَّ تَسْأَلْنِي أُعْطِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/87]
«If you come to me, then you ask me, I will give to you.»

(2072) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي فَتَسْأَلْنِي أُعْطِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/87]
«If you come to me, then you ask me, I will give to you.»

(2073) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي وَتَسْأَلْنِي أُعْطِكَ [كتاب سيبويه 3/87]
«If you come to me, and you ask me, I will give to you.»

[118] الجدول في إعراب القرآن لمحمود صافي for سورة الفرقان 25:69

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According to one view,[119] the u-case is also permissible for the second verb when the conjunction is with وَ. And this is because its verbal sentence is considered a ḥāl with a preceding و of ḥāl and a following detached pronoun is deleted. For example:

(2074) إِنْ تَأْتِنَا وَتَسْأَلُنَا نُعْطِكَ [الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان cited by 2/66 المقتضب للمبرد]
«If you come to us, while you are asking us, I will give to you.»
The taqdīr is إِنْ تَأْتِنَا وَ[أَنْتَ] تَسْأَلُنَا نُعْطِكَ.

When the conjunction is with وَ or فَ, then the a-case is also permissible for the second verb. A taqdīred أَنْ is implied before the second verb.[120] Examples:

(2075) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي فَتُحَدِّثَنِي أُحَدِّثْكَ [3/88 كتاب سيبويه]
«If you come to me, so [that] you talk to me, I will talk to you.»

(2076) إِنْ تَأْتِنِي وَتُحَدِّثَنِي أُحَدِّثْكَ [3/88 كتاب سيبويه]
«If you come to me, and [that] you talk to me, I will talk to you.»

41.15.4. A condition-response-verb followed by a conjunction

If the condition-response-verb is followed by a conjunction and then the second verb, then the second is, by default, in the ø-case to match the condition-response-verb. For example:

(2077) مَنْ يَأْكُلْ كَثِيرًا يَنْخَمْ وَيَمْرَضْ [2/469 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
«Whoever eats a lot, he will suffer from indigestion and be sick.»

When the conjunction is with وَ or فَ, then the u-case is also permissible for the second verb, with the analysis that a new sentence is beginning. For example:

(2078) مَنْ يَأْكُلْ كَثِيرًا يَنْخَمْ فَيَمْرَضُ [2/470 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
«Whoever eats a lot, he will suffer from indigestion. Then he will be sick.»

When the conjunction is with وَ or فَ, then the a-case is also permissible for the second verb, with the analysis that a taqdīred أَنْ is implied before the second verb.[121]

(2079) مَنْ يَأْكُلْ كَثِيرًا يَنْخَمْ فَيَمْرَضَ [2/469 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان]
«Whoever eats a lot, he will suffer from indigestion causing him to be sick.»

[119] الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان cited by 2/66 المقتضب للمبرد
[120] 2/468 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان
[121] 2/469 النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان

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(2080) إِنْ تُكْرِمْ سَالِمًا أُكْرِمْكَ وَأُسَاعِدَكَ [النحو العربي: أحكام ومعان 2/469]
«If you honor Sālim, I will honor you and [at the same time] I will help you.»

When the condition-response itself begins with a فَ, and the verb in the condition-response is followed by a conjunction and a second verb, then we have two possibilities[122]:

1. The second verb is in the u-case. This is the default.
2. The second verb is in the ø-case, as a condition-response-verb to the original condition.

For example:

(2081) مَن يُضْلِلِ ٱللَّهُ فَلَا هَادِىَ لَهُۥ وَيَذَرُهُمْ فِى طُغْيَٰنِهِمْ يَعْمَهُونَ [سورة الأعراف 7:186 cited by كتاب سيبويه 3/90]
«Whoever Allāh sends astray - there is no guide for him. And He leaves them in their transgression, wandering blindly.»
Some readings have وَيَذَرْهُمْ in the ø-case.[123]

41.16. A conditional sentence interrupted by another conditional sentence

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It is possible for a new conditional sentence to begin before an existing conditional sentence has completed.

(2082) إِنْ رَكِبْتِ إِنْ لَبِسْتِ فَأَنْتِ طَالِقٌ [Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 227 quoting ابن هشام]
«If you ride, if you wear your clothes, you are divorced.»

If only one of the conditions is fufilled then the divorce does not occur. But the question is, would the divorce occur if she wore and then rode, or if she rode and then wore? The grammarians have discussed such conditional sentences at length and the view of the majority is that if the wife wore her clothes and then rode, then in this case she will be divorced.[124]

[122] كتاب سيبويه 3/90 cited by الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان 410
[123] القراءات العشر من الشاطبية والدرة --- دار الصحابة for سورة الأعراف 7:186
[124] Al-Saad, *Conditional structure in Classical Arabic* 230

41.17. Further reading

1. الجملة الشرطية عند النحاة العرب للشمسان
2. التأويل الزمني للجملة الشرطية في اللغة العربية لعارف الدين
3. الدلالة الزمنية للجملة الشرطية في النحو العربي لنور الدين قفي
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Part III.

Backmatter

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Glossary of terms

Term used in this book	Term used in native Arabic grammar	Term used by Western grammars
absolute object	المَفْعُول المُطْلَق	absolute accusative
ø-case	حَالَةُ الجَزْمِ / المَجْزُومُ	jussive mood
condition	الشَّرْط	protasis
condition-response	جَوَابُ الشَّرْط	apodosis
adjectival noun	الصِّفَةُ	epithet
adverb of time	ظَرْفُ الزَّمَانِ / المَفْعُولُ فِيهِ	??
adverb of place	ظَرْفُ المَكَانِ / المَفْعُولُ فِيهِ	??
annexation	الإِضَافَة	??
annexe	المُضَافُ	construct noun
annexed-to	المُضَافُ إِلَيْهِ	??
[verb of] command	الأَمْرُ	imperative
info	الخَبَر	predicate / comment
connected noun	الاسْمُ المَوْصُولُ	relative pronoun
connecting sentence	الصِّلَة	??
deputy –	نَائِبٌ عَنْ -- / نَائِبُ --	??
direct object	المَفْعُول بِهِ	object
doer	الفَاعِلُ	subject
i-case	حَالَةُ الجَرِّ / المَجْرُورُ	genitive case
particle	الحَرْفُ	particle
pointing noun	اسْمُ الإِشَارَةِ	demonstrative pronoun
preposition	حَرْفُ الجَرِّ	preposition
prohibition	النَّهْيُ	??
pronoun	الضَّمِيرُ	pronoun
proper noun	العَلَمُ	??
a-case	حَالَةُ / المَنْصُوبُ النَّصْبِ	accusative case (nouns) / subjunctive mood (verbs)

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Term used in this book	Term used in native Arabic grammar	Term used by Western grammars
questioning	الاسْتِفْهَامُ	interrogative
u-case	حَالَةُ الرَّفْعِ / المَرْفُوعُ	nominative case (nouns) / indicative mood (verbs)
refer-back pronoun	الرَّابِطُ / العَائِدُ	??
inflexible	المَبْنِيُّ	??
semi-flexible	المَمْنُوعُ مِنَ الصَّرْفِ	diptote
state	الإِعْرَابُ	inflection / case (nouns) / mood (verbs)
subject (of إِنَّ, كَانَ, etc.)	اسْمُ --	??
subject (of sentence)	المُبْتَدَأُ, المُبْتَدَأُ بِهِ	subject / topic
tanwīn	التَّنْوِين	nunation

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Appendix A.

Rules for writing hamzah

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

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A.1. Seats of hamzah

Hamzah is traditionally not considered a full letter in the 28-letter Arabic alphabet. Instead, it is written as a *diacritic* on top of the basic alphabetical script. As a diacritic, it is written in four different ways:

1. Seated on an alif: أ or إ
2. Seated on an wāw: ؤ
3. Seated on an yāʾ: ئ
4. Unseated: ء

Here are some rules and examples of writing hamzah in the above four ways:

- When unseated hamzah comes between two letters that are joined, then it is written above the line that joins them, for example: خَطِيئَة *k͡haṭīʾah*. In this word, the yāʾ ي joins to the *tāʾ marbūṭah* ة.

  As a special case, when unseated hamza comes between joined lām and alif (لا), then it is positioned between them thus: لآ. (In most cases, this is replaced with لَآ as we will explain in the next point below.) And this is different from hamzah on the alif following the lām: لأ.

- When unseated hamzah is followed by an alif: ءا, the combination of hamzah and alif is usually written as آ as a convention. Examples: آمَنَ *ʾāmana*, ظَمْآن *ḍ͟ham ʾān*, شَنآن *sh͟ana ʾān*. However, when the alif is a suffix or part of a suffix, or the hamzah is doubled, or there is an alif before the hamzah then we will write ءا, not آ. Examples: شَيْئَانِ *sh͟ay ʾāni*, سَأَّال *saʾʾāl*, قِرَاءَات *qirāʾāt*.

- When hamzah is seated on alif, if it has an kasrah, it is written below the alif: إ. Otherwise, it is written above the alif: أ, أ, أ. See also Section A.2.3 for additional details when hamzah seated on alif occurs at the end of a word.

- When hamzah is seated on yāʾ ئ the dots of the yāʾ are no longer written.[1] Here's how it will appear in different positions:

Isolated	End	Middle	Beginnning
ئ	ـئ	ـئـ	ئـ

  Note that hamzah is seated on yāʾ in the middle position ـئـ is different from unseated hamzah between two joining letters ـئـ.

So how do we know when to write hamzah unseated and when seated? And how do we choose between its three different seats? There are a set of rules that we need to follow in order to correctly write hamzah.

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A.2. Rules for determining the seat of hamzah

We will first learn how to determine the seat of hamzah for a word without any prefix or suffix.

Hamzah can occur in three positions in a word:

1. At the beginning of the word
2. In the middle of the word
3. At the end of the word

We will treat each of these positions below.

[1] But see also van Putten, "When did faṣīḥ become qabīḥ? Rehabilitating classical phonological and morphological features" 8–9 footnote 6

A.2.1. Hamzah in the beginning of the word

When hamzah occurs in the beginning of a word, then:

a. If the hamzah carries a long-*ā* vowel, it is written unseated followed by an alif and written as آ, for example آمَنَ *ʾāmana*.
b. If the hamzah carries any other vowel, it is written seated on an alif, and is marked with the appropriated vowel mark, for example أَسْلَمَ *ʾaslama*, أُرِيدُ *ʾurīdu*, إِسْلَام *ʾislām*, إِيمَان *ʾīmān*, أُوخِذَ *ʾūk͡hid͡ha*.

A.2.2. Hamzah in the middle of the word

Arabic has three short vowels, three long vowels, two semi-vowels, and a zero-vowel indicated by a sukūn ◌ْ. Each of these has an order of precedence and a preferred spelling for hamzah. We have shown them in the table below:

Precedence	Vowel	Preferred hamzah
1.	*ī/ay*	ء
2.	*i*	ئ
3.	*ū/aw*	ء
4.	*u*	ؤ
5.	*ā*	ء
6.	*a*	أ
7.	– (◌ْ)	ء

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Main rule: Disregard any s͡haddah ◌ّ. Consider the vowel on the consonant before the hamzah and the vowel on the hamzah itself. Determine which of the two vowels wins by being higher in precedence in the above table. The winning vowel's seat will be the seat of the hamzah.

Exception: If the vowel *ā* wins, but it is written not as an alif but as a ى, then the hamzah will be seated on an alif.

Examples:

Word	Vowel before hamzah	Vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
هَيْئَة *hayʾah*	*ay*	*a*	*ay*	ء
خَطِيئَة *k͡haṭīʾah*	*ī*	*a*	*ī*	ء

Word	Vowel before hamzah	Vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
اِسْتِيئَاس *ʾistīʾās*	*ī*	*ā*	*ī*	ء (Exception: ءا is not written as آ when the preceding vowel is *ī*.)
تَوْءَم *tawʾam*	*aw*	*a*	*aw*	ء
سَوْءَة *sawʾah*	*aw*	*a*	*aw*	ء
مَوْئِل *mawʾil*	*aw*	*i*	*i*	ئ
سَائِل *sāʾil*	*ā*	*i*	*i*	ئ
تَسَاؤُل *tasāʾul*	*ā*	*u*	*u*	ؤ
تَسَاءَلَ *tasāʾala*	*ā*	*a*	*ā*	ء
قِرَاءَات *qirāʾāt*	*ā*	*ā*	*ā*	ء
نُوآنٌ *nūʾānun*	*ū*	*ā*	*ū*	ء
مَسْئُول *masʾūl*	–	*ū*	*ū*	ء
تَرْئِيس *tarʾīs*	–	*ī*	*ī*	ء
مِرْآة *mirʾāh*	–	*ā*	*ā*	ء
ظَمْآن *ḍ͡hamʾān*	–	*ā*	*ā*	ء
مَسْأَلَة *masʾalah*	–	*a*	*a*	أ
الْمَرْأَة *almarʾah*	–	*a*	*a*	أ
أَسْئِلَة *ʾasʾilah*	–	*i*	*i*	ئ
أَفْئِدَة *ʾafʾidah*	–	*i*	*i*	ئ
بِئْسَ *biʾsa*	*i*	–	*i*	ئ
أَبْؤُس *ʾabʾus*	–	*u*	*u*	ؤ
سُؤْل *suʾl*	*u*	–	*u*	ؤ
كَأْس *kaʾs*	*a*	–	*a*	أ
سُئِلَ *suʾila*	*u*	*i*	*i*	ئ
يَئِسَ *yaʾisa*	*a*	*i*	*i*	ئ
مُطْمَئِنّ *muṭmaʾinn*	*a*	*i*	*i*	ئ
سُؤَال *suʾāl*	*u*	*ā*	*u*	ؤ

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Word	Vowel before hamzah	Vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
رَءِيس *raʾīs*	*a*	*ī*	*ī*	ء
رُءُوس *ruʾūs*	*u*	*ū*	*ū*	ء
شُئُون *sh͡uʾūn*	*u*	*ū*	*ū*	ء
رَءُوف *raʾūf*	*a*	*ū*	*ū*	ء
لُؤَيّ *luʾayy*	*u*	*a*	*u*	ؤ
شَنَآن *sh͡anaʾān*	*a*	*ā*	*ā*	ء
سَأَلَ *saʾala*	*a*	*a*	*a*	أ
رَأَّسَ *raʾʾasa*	*a*	*a*	*a*	أ
سَيِّئَة *sayyiʾah*	*i*	*a*	*i*	ئ
يُرَئِّسُ *yuraʾʾisu*	*a*	*i*	*i*	ئ
رُئِّسَ *ruʾʾisa*	*u*	*i*	*i*	ئ
تَفَؤُّل *tafaʾʾul*	*a*	*u*	*u*	ؤ
سَأَّال *saʾʾāl*	*a*	*ā*	*ā*	ء
لَأَّال *laʾʾāl*	*a*	*ā*	*ā*	ء
رَأَىٰ *raʾā*	*a*	*ā*	*ā*	أ (using exception)

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A.2.3. Hamzah in the end of the word

When hamzah occurs at the end of a word, disregard the vowel on hamzah itself, and consider only the vowel on preceding consonant. Plug it into the precedence table as above to determine the seat of hamzah.

Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Seated hamzah
دُعَاءُ *duɛāʾu*	*ā*	ء
سُوءُ *sūʾu*	*ū*	ء
جِيءَ *jīʾa*	*ī*	ء

Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Seated hamzah
ضَوْءَ *ḍ͡haw'a*	*aw*	ء
شَيْءَ *s͡hay'a*	*ay*	ء
بُطْءُ *buṭ'u*	–	ء
عبْءُ *ɛib'u*	–	ء
شَطْءُ *s͡haṭ'u*	–	ء
يُهَدِّئُ *yuhaddi'u*	*i*	ئ
مُتَّكِئَ *muttaki'a*	*i*	ئ
سَيِّئُ *sayyi'u*	*i*	ئ
بَطُؤَ *baṭu'a*	*u*	ؤ
يَهْدَأُ *yahda'u*	*a*	أ
مُبْتَدِإٍ *mubtada'i*	*a*	إ

The exception to this rule is when the previous letter is a doubled wāw with an ḍ͡hammah. In this case the hamzah will again be unseated. Example تَبَوُّءُ *tabawwu'u*.

Note also that مُبْتَدِإٍ *mubtada'i* can be written with the hamzah below the alif because of the kasrah on the hamzah. But it is also common to write it as مُبْتَدَأ *mubtada'*, especially when the hamzah is unvoweled.

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A.3. With prefixes and suffixes

A.3.1. Prefixes

If hamzah is in the beginning of a word, adding a prefix to the word will not alter the writing of the hamzah. Hamzah will continue to be seated on an alif. Here are some examples of words with beginning hamzahs and prefixes.

Word without prefix	Prefix	Word with prefix
أُسْتَاذ	ل	لِأُسْتَاذ
آخِرَة	الْ	اَلْآخِرَة

A.3.2. Suffixes

If hamzah is at the end of a word, adding a suffix to the word can, in general, alter the writing of the hamzah. Hamzah is now, generally, treated as if it is in the middle of the word, and the rules for hamzah in the middle of a word apply. Examples:

Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Shortened vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
بَرِيئُونَ *barīʾūna*	*ī*	*ū*	*ī*	ء
بَرِيئَانِ *barīʾāni*	*ī*	*ā*	*ī*	ء
بَرِيئِينَ *barīʾīna*	*ī*	*ī*	*ī*	ء
بَرِيئَيْنِ *barīʾayni*	*ī*	*ay*	*ī/ay*	ء
سِيئَتْ *sīʾat*	*ī*	*a*	*ī*	ء
شَيْئُهُ *šayʾuhu*	*ay*	*u*	*ay*	ء
شَيْئَهُ *šayʾahu*	*ay*	*a*	*ay*	ء
شَيْئِهِ *šayʾihi*	*ay*	*i*	*ay*	ء
شَيْئَانِ *šayʾāni*	*ay*	*ā*	*ay*	ء
شَيْئَيْنِ *šayʾayni*	*ay*	*ay*	*ay*	ء
مَجِيئُهُ *majīʾuhu*	*ī*	*u*	*ī*	ء
مَجِيئَهُ *majīʾahu*	*ī*	*a*	*ī*	ء
مَجِيئِهِ *majīʾihi*	*ī*	*i*	*ī*	ء
سُوئِهِ *sūʾihi*	*ū*	*i*	*i*	ئ
ضَوْئِهِ *ḍawʾihi*	*aw*	*i*	*i*	ئ

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Word	Vowel on consonant before hamzah	Shortened vowel on hamzah	Winning vowel	Seated hamzah
يَسُوءُونَ *yasūʾūna*	*ū*	*ū*	*ū*	ء
سُوءُهُ *sūʾuhu*	*ū*	*u*	*ū*	ء
سُوءَهُ *sūʾahu*	*ū*	*a*	*ū*	ء
سُوءَانِ *sūʾāni*	*ū*	*ā*	*ū*	ء
ضَوْءَهُ *ḍ͡hawʾahu*	*aw*	*a*	*aw*	ء
ضَوْءَانِ *ḍ͡hawʾāni*	*aw*	*ā*	*aw*	ء
مُرْجَئَات *murjaʾāt*	*a*	*ā*	*ā*	ء
خَاطِئِين *kʰ͡āṭiʾīn*	*i*	*ī*	*ī*	ء
خَاسِئِين *kʰ͡āsiʾīn*	*i*	*ī*	*ī*	ء
مُتَّكِئِينَ *muttakiʾīna*	*i*	*ī*	*ī*	ء
مُتَّكِئُونَ *muttakiʾūna*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
يُبَرِّئُونَ *yubarriʾūna*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
يُبَرِّءُونَ *yubarraʾūna*	*a*	*ū*	*ū*	ء
اِقْرَءُوا *iqraʾū*	*a*	*ū*	*ū*	ء
سَيِّئَات *sayyiʾāt*	*i*	*ā*	*i*	ئ
فِئَات *fiʾāt*	*i*	*ā*	*i*	ئ
فِئُون *fiʾūn*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
مِئَات *miʾāt*	*i*	*ā*	*i*	ئ
مِئُون *miʾūn*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
يُطْفِئُوا *yuṭfiʾū*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
مُسْتَهْزِئُون *mustahziʾūn*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
مُنْشِئُون *munsʰ͡iʾūn*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
يُضَاهِئُونَ *yuḍ͡hāhiʾūna*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ
مُرْجِئُون *murjiʾūn*	*i*	*ū*	*i*	ئ

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There are some exceptions:

- If the letter before the hamzah has a sukūn and is not wāw or yāʾ, then the hamzah will be written unseated. Examples:
  - جُزْءَانِ *juzʾāni*
  - عِبْئَانِ *εibʾāni*
  - عِبْئَيْنِ *εibʾayni*
  - بُطْئَهُ *buṭʾahu*
  - بُطْئُهُ *buṭʾuhu*
  - بُطْئِهِ *buṭʾihi*

(انِ, يْنِ, هُ, and هِ are suffixes.) Note that the combination اء is not written as آ when the alif is part of the suffix.

A.4. Tanwīn on final hamzah

Tanwīn on final hamzah only affects the writing of the hamzah in the case of a tanwīned fat·ḥah ً. When writing a tanwīned fat·ḥah ً on a hamzah at the end of a word:

1. If there is an alif before a unseated hamzah اء, then we don't add a silent alif when writing the tanwīned fat·ḥah ً. For example دَاء becomes دَاءً *dāʾan*, not دَاءًا.
2. Otherwise, we add the silent alif after the hamzah so that the hamzah is now in the middle of the word with a suffix alif after it. We now pretend that the hamzah has an fat·ḥah and that the alif after it is a long-*ā* vowel. Then we go through the rules for writing hamzah in the middle of a word (given above) to determine how hamzah will be written. We then write the tanwīned fat·ḥah ً on the hamzah. Examples:

- مُبْتَدَأ becomes مُبْتَدَأً، مُبْتَدَءًا، مُبْتَدَإٍ
- مَلْجَأ becomes مَلْجَأً، مَلْجَئًا، مَلْجَإٍ

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- جُزْء becomes جُزْءٌ، جُزْءًا، جُزْءٍ
- شَيْء becomes شَيْءٌ، شَيْئًا، شَيْءٍ
- سَيِّئ becomes سَيِّئٌ, سَيِّئًا, سَيِّئٍ

A.5. Variants

There are some historical and regional variants to the above rules. The main one is when the letter before hamzah has a sukūn, the hamzah is generally written unseated. So with this variant, we write:

- مَسْئَلَة instead of مَسْأَلَة
- أَفْئِدَة instead of أَفْئِدَة

However, this rule appears to be not consistently followed. For example, *nas͡hʾah* is generally always written نَشْأَة never نَشْئَة.

Another variant is that when an unsuffixed word has final hamzah and is followed by a suffix starting with long vowel, then the hamzah is written unseated. Examples:

- مُتَّكِئُون *muttakiʾūn* instead of مُتَّكِئُون
- يُطْفِئُوا *yutfiʾū* instead of يُطْفِئُوا
- مُسْتَهْزِئُون *mustahziʾūn* instead of مُسْتَهْزِئُون
- مُنْشِئُون *munsh͡iʾūn* instead of مُنْشِئُون
- يُضَاهِئُونَ *yuḍ͡hāhiʾūna* instead of يُضَاهِئُونَ
- مُرْجِئُون *murjiʾūn* instead of مُرْجِئُون
- سَيِّئَات *sayyiʾāt* instead of سَيِّئَات

Excepted from this variant are deficient words like:

- فِئُون *fiʾūn*
- مِئُون *miʾūn*

Another, more modern, variant is to modify the precedence rule of vowels. According to this modern variant, the vowel before hamzah is compared with the *shortened* vowel on the hamzah. This can result in some changes in the hamzah seat. For example:

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- مَسْؤُول *masʾūl* instead of مَسْئُول
- رُؤُوس *ruʾūs* instead of رُءُوس
- رَئِيس *raʾīs* instead of رَءِيس
- اِقْرَؤُوا *iqraʾū* instead of اِقْرَءُوا

Excepted from this variant is the combination *aʾā* which will continue to be written as ـَآ or ـآ. For example: شَنَآن, مُرْجَئَات.

A.6. Why so complicated?

Hamzah was not always pronounced in some Classical Arabic dialects. For speakers of these dialects, when hamzah would occur in the middle of a word, they would usually replace it with a و, ي, or another vowel, depending on the surrounding vowels. So they would adjust their pronunciation as follows:

Prounnciation with hamzah	Prounnciation without hamzah
هَيْئَة *hayʾah*	هَيَّة *hayyah*
خَطِيئَة *k͡haṭīʾah*	خَطِيَّة *k͡haṭiyyah*
تَوْءَم *tawʾam*	تَوَّم *tawwam*
تَسَاؤُل *tasāʾul*	تَسَاوُل *tasāwul*
بِئْس *biʾsa*	بِيس *bīsa*
سُؤَال *suʾāl*	سُوَال *suwāl*
سُؤْل *suʾl*	سُول *sūl*
كَأْس *kaʾs*	كَاس *kās*

When the Classical Standard Arabic variety emerged, then, for reasons that are beyond the scope of this text, the pronunciation *with* hamzah and the consonantal spelling *without* hamzah became standardized. So ء is now added as a diacritic on top of the various *seats* that would instead have been dialectally pronounced without hamzah.

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A.7. Typographical limitations

Unfortunately, most digital fonts do not currently allow for correctly typing an unseated hamzah between two joined letters (ـئـ), as in خَطِيئَة *kẖaṭīʾah*. In most fonts, the hamzah character (Unicode `u+0621`) will break the joining between the two letters surrounding it, and the output will be rendered incorrectly: خَطِيءَة *kẖaṭīʾah*.

Two fonts which allow for the correct typesetting are

- Amiri from Alif Type (amirifont.org)
- Naskh™ from DecoType (decotype.com)

We have used the Amiri font for typesetting this appendix chapter.

For most other fonts, an unseated hamzah between two joined letters would have to be approximated in one of two ways:

1. Hamzah seated on yāʾ: ئ. Example: خَطِيئَة. This is a reprehensible, yet more prevalent, and better supported, approximation.

   Beware, though, that this approximation would not allow for the correct rendering of a complex (but thankfully rare) word like لَّآل *laʾʾāl* "pearl seller", where the hamzah is not allowed to disturb the lām-alif ligature لا.

2. Hamzah superscript on a TATWEEL character: ـٔـ. Example: خَطِيـٔـَة. The Unicode input sequence is:

   `u+0640` ARABIC TATWEEL
   `u+0654` ARABIC HAMZA ABOVE

   This is a more accurate approximation, but some fonts may not position the hamzah correctly on the taṭwīl, or position vowel marks on the superscript hamzah correctly.

   Kitab (github.com/nuqayah/kitab-font) is one font that uses this technique to correctly position the hamzah, for example: خَطِيـٔـَة.

Unfortunately, with either of these techniques, the digital representation of the word will have extra Unicode characters (the ئ and the TATWEEL) that are not technically part of the spelling of the word.

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Appendix B.

Usage and style

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

Work in progress

MSA today is considerably influenced by poor translations from English into Arabic. This has resulted in a usage and style that is often far removed from SCA. This appendix aims to highlight some poor usages and styles that the learner would be advised to guard against. For more detailed works on this topic see the list of works in Section B.13 below.

B.1. Existential sentences

In English the plain existence of an indefinite subject is expressed using the word «there». For example:

- «There is a gloom in the house.»
- «There is a type of jealousy which is liked and [there is] a type of jealousy which is disliked.»
- «There are reasons.»
- «There is a god.»
- «Is there food?»

The word «there» in these examples does not indicate a specific place. Rather it signifies the existence of the subject of the sentence. This use of «there» is called the *existential* «there».[1]

[1] See also Haspelmath, "What do we mean by existential clause?"

Expressing such sentences in Arabic can sometimes be tricky. There is a modern tendency to use the adverb of place هُنَاكَ and the passive verb يُوجَدُ. So one might find:

(2083) هُنَاكَ حَزَنٌ فِي ٱلْبَيتِ or
يُوجَدُ حَزَنٌ فِي ٱلْبَيتِ
« There is a gloom in the house. »

(2084) هناك غيرة تستحب وهناك غيرة تكره or
توجد غيرة تستحب وتوجد غيرة تكره
« There is a type of jealousy which is liked and there is a type of jealousy which is disliked. »

(2085) هُناك أسباب or
تُوجَدُ أسباب
« There are reasons. »

(2086) هناك إله or
يوجد إله
« There is a god. »

(2087) هَل هناك طعام or
هل يوجد طعام
« Is there food? »

Sometimes in place of هُنَاكَ, its synonyms ثَمَّ or ثَمَّةَ is used.

This usage of هُنَاكَ and يُوجَدُ is not preferred for SCA. Instead, there here are various strategies for expressing such sentences. We will discuss them below.

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B.1.1. Using or manufacturing scope

If, for example, there is a prepositional or adverbial phrase then it can readily be used as a info that precedes the subject. For example:

(2088) فِي ٱلْبَيتِ حَزَنٌ.
« In the house is gloom. »

Sometimes, a prepositional or adverbial phrase is not original, but can readily be manufactured. For example, in the sentence, « There are reasons » the reasons must be for something, and that something can be used as a info:

(2089) لِلْأَمْرِ أَسْبَابٌ.
« There are reasons for the situation. »

B.1.2. Using or manufacturing an introductory sentence

Similarly, a introductory sentence, prepositional or adverbial phrase can be manufactured to pave the way for the main sentence. For example:

(2090) مِنَ الْغَيْرَةِ مَا يُحِبُّ اللَّهُ وَمِنْهَا مَا يَكْرَهُ اللَّهُ [سنن ابن ماجه: 1996]
« There is a kind of jealousy what Allāh loves, and a kind that Allāh dislikes. »

(2091) الْفَجْرُ فَجْرَانِ فَجْرٌ يَحْرُمُ فِيهِ الطَّعَامُ وَتَحِلُّ فِيهِ الصَّلَاةُ وَفَجْرٌ تَحْرُمُ فِيهِ الصَّلَاةُ وَيَحِلُّ فِيهِ الطَّعَامُ [مستدرك الحاكم: 687]
« There are two dawns: a dawn in which food is forbidden while prayer becomes permissible, and a dawn in which prayer is forbidden while food becomes permissible. »

B.1.3. Using a pointing noun

A pointing noun, like هَذَا, can sometimes be used when English would use « there is » to offer an option. For example:

(2092) فقال: ارى أن تنزل القرية، قَالَ: أكرهها، قَالَ: فهذا الهزيم. قَالَ: أكره اسمه، قَالَ: فهذا البخراء، قصر النعمان بْن بشير [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن accessed via تاريخ الطبري 7/244 الغامدي]
« So he said, “I think that you should stop at a settlement.” He said, “I dislike [doing so].” He said, “Then there is al-Hazīm.” He said, “I dislike its name.” He said, “Then there is al-Bakhrāʾ, the palace of al-Nuʿmān ibn Bashīr. »

B.1.4. Using a suitable verbal expression

For example:

(2093) وَاخْتُلِفَ فِيمَنْ حَجَّ بِالنَّاسِ فِي هَذِهِ السَّنَةِ [خزانة الرصائف accessed via تاريخ الطبري 4/249 لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
« There is a disagreement regarding who led the Ḥajj in this year. »

(2094) فإن فضلَ فضلٌ نقلته إلى البلد الذي يليه، ممن هو أحوج إليه [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via تاريخ الطبري 7/269]
« If there is any surplus, I will transfer it to the country next to it that is in more need of it. »

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B.1.5. Using an interjection

Sometimes it hard to come up with any of the above solutions, as in the sentence: « There is a god. » Such sentences, if they are able to be converted to an interjection, may be expressed with the subject itself as a one word sentence[2]:

(2095) إِلَـهٌ
« [There is] a god! »

(2096) أَمِيرَانِ هَلَكَ الْقَوْمُ [cited by Brockelmann, *Grundriss der vergleichenden Grammatik der semitischen Sprachen* 2/6]
« [There are] two commanders?! The people are destroyed! »

Consider also this example:

(2097) سَأَلْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم هَلْ رَأَيْتَ رَبَّكَ قَالَ نُورٌ أَنَّى أَرَاهُ [صحيح مسلم :178]

The statement نُورٌ أَنَّى أَرَاهُ has been explained by Ibn Taymiyyah with the following wording[3]:

كَانَ ثَمَّ نُورٌ ، أَوْ حَالَ دُونَ رُؤْيَتِهِ نُورٌ فَأَنَّى أَرَاهُ.
« There was light, or light came between [my] seeing Him, so how could I see Him? »

This solution should only be considered if the sentence makes sense as an interjection, and can not be used as a blanket solution. For example, the question:
« Is there food? »
can be expressed in Arabic, not as an interjection, but as:

(2098) هَلْ مِنْ غَدَاءٍ [صحيح مسلم :2052d]
« Is there any food? »

Similarly:

(2099) هَلْ مِنْ مُسْتَغْفِرٍ هَلْ مِنْ تَائِبٍ هَلْ مِنْ سَائِلٍ هَلْ مِنْ دَاعٍ [صحيح مسلم :758e]
« Is there one seeking forgiveness? Is there a penitent? Is there an asker? Is there a caller? »

[2] Cantarino, *Syntax of modern Arabic prose* 1/5 citing Brockelmann, *Grundriss der vergleichenden Grammatik der semitischen Sprachen* 2/35
[3] اجتماع الجيوش الإسلامية لابن القيم 21

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B.1.6. Negative existential sentences

For a negative existential sentence, we can conveniently use لَا, مَا and لَيْسَ. For example:

(2100) لَا أَمَلَ
« There is no hope. »

(2101) ما في المحفظة ريال [العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي 171]
« There are no riyāls in the wallet. »

(2102) فلان ما بقلبه رحمة [العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي 171]
« There is no mercy in so-and-so's heart. »

(2103) يَا أُمَّ سَلَمَةَ إِنَّهُ لَيْسَ آدَمِيٌّ إِلاَّ وَقَلْبُهُ بَيْنَ أُصْبُعَيْنِ مِنْ أَصَابِعِ اللَّهِ فَمَنْ شَاءَ أَقَامَ وَمَنْ شَاءَ أَزَاغَ
[جامع الترمذي: 3522]
« O Umm Salamah, indeed there is no human except that his heart is between two fingers from the fingers of Allāh. Whomsoever He wills He makes steadfast. And whomsoever he wills, he causes to deviate. »

B.1.7. Using كَانَ to express the existential

As we know, يَكُونُ is not normally used as the equivalent of the English « is ». But كَانَ is used for « was » with no problem. This helps us solve the problem of expressing the existential for the past tense. For example:

(2104) كَانَ مَلِكٌ
« There was a king. »
This uses the sufficient كَانَ. (See Section 31.14).

كَانَ and يَكُنْ can also be used to express the existential in conditional sentences and similar sentences, where the tense is determined from context. For example:

(2105) وإن كَانَ ملك فالملك ملككم [تاريخ الطبري 3/269 accessed via خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
« And if there is [to be] any sovereignty it shall be yours. »

(2106) دَعُوهُ، فَإِنْ يَكُ فِيهِ خَيْرٌ فَسَيُلْحِقُهُ اللَّهُ بِكُمْ [تاريخ الطبري 3/107 accessed via خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
« Leave him be, for if there is any good in him, then Allāh will join him to you. »

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(2107) فَوَاللَّهِ لَقَلَّمَا كَانَتِ امْرَأَةٌ قَطُّ وَضِيئَةٌ عِنْدَ رَجُلٍ يُحِبُّهَا وَلَهَا ضَرَائِرُ إِلاَّ كَثَّرْنَ عَلَيْهَا [صحيح مسلم :2770a]
« Rarely is there a woman at all, fair to a man who loves her, and she has co-wives, except that they say much against her. »

B.1.8. Legitimate use of هُنَاكَ, ثَمَّ and يُوجَدُ

If, of course, a place is intended by « there » then there is no problem using هُنَاكَ or its synonyms. We show below some examples that use هُنَاكَ and ثَمَّ. It would appear that they are still locatives, though there may sometimes be a suggestion of the existential.

One technique you can use to determine whether هُنَاكَ or ثَمَّ are appropriate, is to substitute فِي هَذَا/ذَلِكَ الْمَكَانِ in place of it and see if the sentence is still valid.

Here are the examples:

(2108) كُنَّا نَادِينَ بِالصَّبَاحِ وَهُنَاكَ عَبْدُ اللَّهِ بْنُ عَمْرٍو وَكَانَ هُنَاكَ امْرَأَةٌ مِنْ بَنِي الْمُغِيرَةِ يُقَالُ لَهَا فَاطِمَةُ فَسَمِعْتُ عَبْدَ اللَّهِ بْنَ عَمْرٍو يَقُولُ «ذَاكَ يَزِيدُ بْنُ مُعَاوِيَةَ» [مستدرك الحاكم: 8461]
« We used to meet socially in the morning and Ɛabd Allāh ibn Ɛamr would be there. And there was a woman there from Banū al-Mug͡hīrah called Fāṭimah. And she heard Ɛabd Allāh ibn Ɛamr saying, “That is Yazīd ibn Muɛāwiyah.” »

(2109) خَرَجَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم فِي طَائِفَةِ النَّهَارِ لاَ يُكَلِّمُنِي وَلاَ أُكَلِّمُهُ حَتَّى أَتَى سُوقَ بَنِي قَيْنُقَاعَ، فَجَلَسَ بِفِنَاءِ بَيْتِ فَاطِمَةَ فَقَالَ أَثَمَّ لُكَعُ أَثَمَّ لُكَعُ [صحيح البخاري: 2122]
« The Prophet ﷺ went out during the day, neither he talking to me nor I talking to him, until he came to the market of Banū Qaynuqāɛ. He then sat in the courtyard of Faṭimah’s house and said, “Is the little chap there? Is the little chap there?” »

(2110) جَلَبْتُ أَنَا وَمَخْرَمَةُ الْعَبْدِيُّ بَزًّا مِنْ هَجَرَ فَأَتَيْنَا بِهِ مَكَّةَ فَجَاءَنَا رَسُولُ اللَّهِ يَمْشِي فَسَاوَمَنَا بِسَرَاوِيلَ فَبِعْنَاهُ وَثَمَّ رَجُلٌ يَزِنُ بِالأَجْرِ فَقَالَ لَهُ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ زِنْ وَأَرْجِحْ [سنن أبي داود: 3336]
« I and Mak͡hramah al-Ɛabdī imported some garments from Hajar, and brought them to Mecca. The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ came to us walking, and after he had bargained with us for some trousers, we sold them to him. There was a man who was weighing for payment. The Messenger of Allāh ﷺ said to him, “Weigh out and give overweight.” »

(2111) كَانَ رَسُولُ اللهِ إِذَا سَجَدَ وَثَمَّ بَهْمَةٌ أَرَادَتْ أَنْ تَمُرَّ بَيْنَ يَدَيْهِ تَجَافَى [مسند أحمد: 26809]
« When the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ used to prostrate, and there was a lamb that wanted to pass infront of him, he would have his arms to the side. »

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(2112) رَأَيْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ ﷺ يَرْمِي الْجِمَارَ عَلَى نَاقَةٍ صَهْبَاءَ لَيْسَ ثَمَّ ضَرْبٌ وَلَا طَرْدٌ وَلَا إِلَيْكَ إِلَيْكَ [سنن الدارمي: 1942]
«I saw the Prophet ﷺ stone the Pillar, on the Day of Sacrifice, from atop a reddish-brown camel of his; and there wasn't any beating or driving them off or [telling them to] go away.»

(2113) أَنَّ رَكْبًا وَقَفُوا عَلَى عُثْمَانَ بْنِ عَفَّانَ فَمَدَحُوهُ وَأَثْنَوْا عَلَيْهِ وَثَمَّ الْمِقْدَادُ بْنُ الْأَسْوَدِ فَأَخَذَ قَبْضَةً مِنَ الْأَرْضِ فَحَثَاهَا فِي وُجُوهِ الرَّكْبِ [مسند أحمد: 23826]
«… that a group of riders stopped by Ɛuthmān ibn Ɛaffān and praised him. And al-Miqdād ibn al-ʾAswad was there. So he took a handful [of dirt] from the ground and threw it in the faces of the riders.»

Similarly, يُوجَدُ may be used with no problem if the meaning «is (to be) found» is intended. For example:

(2114) مَنْ قَتَلَ مُعَاهَدًا لَمْ يَرَحْ رَائِحَةَ الْجَنَّةِ، وَإِنَّ رِيحَهَا تُوجَدُ مِنْ مَسِيرَةِ أَرْبَعِينَ عَامًا [صحيح البخاري: 3166]
«Whoever killed a person having a treaty with the Muslims, shall not smell the smell of Paradise though its smell is perceived from a distance of forty years.»

B.1.9. Use of existential هُنَاكَ

Some researchers have found هُنَاكَ rarely being used existentially in older works not influenced by European languages. For example:

(2115) وَقَالَ الْكُوفِيُّونَ مِنْ أَصْحَابِ الرَّأْيِ الْوُضُوءُ وَالْغُسْلُ جَائِزَانِ وَإِنْ لَمْ يَكُنْ هُنَاكَ نِيَّةٌ
[الطهور (ت مشهور) لأبي عبيد القاسم بن سلام (d. 224 AH) p. 200 cited by العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي 170]

(2116) وهناك خيانات في صلب الملك، أو في بعض الحرم، فلا يستطيع الملك أن يكشف للعامة موضع العورة في الملك
[البيان والتبيين للجاحظ (d. 255 AH) p. 3/246 cited by العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي 170]

Further research would be required to establish whether this usage is original, or a later addition by a copyist.

B.1.10. Technical and scientific use of يوجَد

Our above directive to avoid the use of يوجد to mean «there is» holds for normal sentences. Sometimes, however, a more technical meaning of «exists» is intended, especially in the language of science. In this case, يوجد and its object participle

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موجود may be used when needing to discuss the existence of something in a scientific text. But such usage should be restricted to its domain, and should not, ideally, spill over to normal sentences, where a simple « there is » is intended.

By the way, the disused verb أَيْسَ « to be », (theorized, along with لَا, to be the origin of the verb لَيْسَ[4]) is also used to express the existence of an object in philosophical works.

B.2. Pronoun of separation after question nouns

In later writing we find the following forms:

(2117) مَنْ هِيَ زَيْنَب؟
« Who is Zaynab? »

(2118) مَا هُوَ ٱلْإِسْلَامُ؟
« What is Islām? »

(2119) لِمَاذَا هُوَ حَزِينٌ؟
« Why is he sad? »

The insertion of the pronoun of separation (هُوَ, هِيَ, etc.) after question nouns is best avoided. So it is better to say:

(2120) مَنْ زَيْنَب؟
« Who is Zaynab? »

(2121) مَا ٱلْإِسْلَامُ؟
« What is Islām? »

As for « why » sentences, Arabic has a native expression using مَا لِ followed by a noun or pronoun in the i-case and then an adjective in the a-case. For example:

(2122) مَا لَهُ حَزِينًا؟
« Why is he sad? »

Another option, that is sometimes possible, is to convert the « why » question into a « what » question, thus:

(2123) مَا أَحْزَنَهُ
« Why is he sad? » (literally: What has made him sad?)

[4] Wilmsen„ "Another Croft cycle in Arabic: The *laysa* negative existential cycle," 329–331; Wright 1/96C

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B.3. « What happened to … »

When asking the question, « What happened to a person/thing? » the verbs فَعَلَ and صَنَعَ are used and the person or thing asked about is made the doer. For example:

(2124) يَا أَبَا عُمَيْرٍ مَا فَعَلَ النُّغَيْرُ
[صحيح البخاري: 6129]
« What happened to the sparrow? »

(2125) ما فعل أصحابك
[رياض الصالحين: 30]
« What happened to your companions? »

(2126) مَا فَعَلَتِ الرَّيْطَةُ
[سنن ابن ماجه: 3603]
« What happened to the thin cloak? »

(2127) فَيَسْأَلُونَهُ مَاذَا فَعَلَ فُلَانٌ مَاذَا فَعَلَ فُلَانٌ
[سنن النسائي: 1833]
« So they ask him: What happened to so-and-so? What happened to so-and-so? »

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B.4. « About »

The word « about » is often indiscriminately translated as عَنْ. عَنْ can be used as such. But more care is required.

عَنْ is normally with the verb سَأَلَ. For example:

(2128) سَأَلَهُ عَنْ أَمْرٍ.
« He asked him about a matter. »

عَنْ can also sometimes be used generically. For example:

(2129) مَا هَذَا الَّذِي يَذْكُرُونَ عَنِ الْحَسَنِ
[سنن أبي داود: 4621]
« What is this that they are mentioning about al-Ḥasan? »

(2130) فأخبره عنهم [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
« So he informed him about them. »

(2131) بلغني أشياء عن الحرشي [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
« Certain things have reached me about al-Ḥarashī. »

Usually, though, the preposition depends on the verb used. For example:

(2132) فسأله عن دينه فأخبره به [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
«He asked him about his religion and he told him about it.»

(2133) وَكَانَ عالما بأمر طليحة [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
«He was knowledgable about the affairs of Ṭulayḥah.»

(2134) فاكتب إلي بالأمر على وجهه لأخبر به أمير المؤمنين [خزانة الرصائف accessed via تاريخ الطبري لأحمد حسن الغامدي]
«So write to me about the matter properly, so that I may inform the Commander of the Faithful about it.»

(2135) قد قيل في ذلك أقوال [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
«[Sundry] statements have been given about that.»

(2136) واختلفوا فِي أمره [خزانة الرصائف لأحمد حسن الغامدي accessed via تاريخ الطبري]
«[Authorities] have differed about his affair.»

B.5. «What about …»

Avoid مَاذَا عَنْ when asking «What about someone/something?»
Instead use مَا بَالُ.
For example:

(2137) حَتَّى إِذَا فَرَغَ مَشَيْتُ، فَقُلْتُ مَا بَالُ الْعَظْمِ وَالرَّوْثَةِ
[صحيح البخاري: 3860]

(2138) إِذَا تَوَاجَهَ الْمُسْلِمَانِ بِسَيْفَيْهِمَا فَكِلاَهُمَا مِنْ أَهْلِ النَّارِ ". قِيلَ فَهَذَا الْقَاتِلُ، فَمَا بَالُ الْمَقْتُولِ
[صحيح البخاري: 7083]

(2139) عَنْ عَائِشَةَ، أَنَّهَا قَالَتْ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ مَا الشَّىْءُ الَّذِي لاَ يَحِلُّ مَنْعُهُ قَالَ الْمَاءُ وَالْمِلْحُ وَالنَّارُ "
. قَالَتْ قُلْتُ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ هَذَا الْمَاءُ قَدْ عَرَفْنَاهُ فَمَا بَالُ الْمِلْحِ وَالنَّارِ
[سنن ابن ماجه: 2474]

When the question «What about …?» is asked as a follow-up to a previous statement then the asked about person/thing can be asked by itself in a single word. For example:

(2140) عَنِ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم أَنَّهُ نَهَى أَنْ يَشْرَبَ الرَّجُلُ قَائِمًا . قَتَادَةُ فَقُلْنَا فَالأَكْلُ فَقَالَ ذَاكَ أَشَرُّ أَوْ أَخْبَثُ [صحيح مسلم: 2024b]
«"What about eating?"»

Work in progress

(2141) قَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم لِلْمُتَلاَعِنَيْنِ حِسَابُكُمَا عَلَى اللَّهِ أَحَدُكُمَا كَاذِبٌ لاَ سَبِيلَ لَكَ عَلَيْهَا قَالَ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ مَالِي
[سنن أبي داود: 2257]
« "What about my wealth?" »

B.6. To make someone do something

In order to express the meaning: to make someone do something, we have a few options:

1. To use a causative verb, like form 4, if one is available with this meaning[5]. For example:

(2142) أَدْخَلْتُهُ ٱلدَّارَ [المقتضب للمبرد 2/104]

2. To use the expression حَمَلَهُ عَلَى أَنْ يَفْعَلَ or حَمَلَهُ عَلَى الفعل. For example

(2143) وَقَالُوا شَيَّأْتُهُ ; أَيْ حَمَلْتُهُ عَلَى أَنْ يَشَاءَ [التبيان في إعراب القرآن للعكبري 1/37]

(2144) وَأَعْجَلْتُهُ بِالْأَلِفِ حَمَلْتُهُ عَلَى أَنْ يَعْجَلَ [المصباح المنير للفيومي عجل root]

This expressions is especially common in questions like « What made you …? » For example:

(2145) مَا حَمَلَكَ عَلَى مَا صَنَعْتَ [سنن أبي داود: 2221]

3. To use the verb جَعَلَ. This isn't as preferred as the other options above. For example:

(2146) جَعَلْتُهُ يَدْخُلَهَا [المقتضب للمبرد 2/104]

B.7. To leave a place

In English, the verb « to leave » is used to mean « to depart ». In Arabic, the verb تَرَكَ should not be used with this meaning unless the intended meaning is to abandon the place. Nor should the verb غَادَر be used with this meaning, because it means « to leave (s.th.) out ». Instead Arabic has a variety or verbs that can be used, sometimes interchangeably and sometimes depending on the exact meaning required. Some (out of many) of these verbs are:

- خَرَجَ « to exit »

[5] العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي 65

Work in progress

(2147) كَانَ إِذَا خَرَجَ مِنْ بَيْتِهِ قَالَ بِسْمِ اللهِ، التُّكْلاَنُ عَلَى اللهِ، لا حَوْلَ وَلا قُوَّةَ إِلا بِاللَّهِ [الأدب المفرد: 1197]
«When he would leave his house, he would say, “In the name of Allāh. Reliance is on Allāh. There is no power or strength except by Allāh.”»

- انْصَرَفَ «to turn around»

(2148) ثُمَّ انْصَرَفَ [صحيح البخاري: 1462]
«Then he left.»

- بَرِحَ «to depart»

(2149) فَقَالَ يَا رَسُولَ اللَّهِ فَكَيْفَ فِيَّ وَأَنَا أَعْمَى قَالَ فَمَا بَرِحَ حَتَّى نَزَلَتْ غَيْرُ أُولِي الضَّرَرِ [سنن النسائي: 3102]
«He said, “O Messenger of Allāh, how about me whereas I am blind?” And so he did not leave until [the āyah] “other than the disabled” [سورة النساء 4:95] was revealed.»

- انْحَرَفَ «to turn away»

(2150) ثُمَّ انْحَرَفَ فَانْحَرَفْتُ [سنن النسائي: 3964]
«Then he left and I left.»

B.8. To bring something

Arabic has no commonly used verb which is the direct equivalent of «to bring». Avoid using verbs أَحْضَرَ and جَلَبَ as common equivalents of the simple verb «to bring». These are legitimate verbs but they have their own specific meanings and are nowhere near as common as أَتَى ب and جَاءَ ب when the simple meaning of «to bring» is intended.

Instead, one may use the verbs أَتَى and جَاءَ «to come» with the preposition بِ. For example:

(2151) أُتِيَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم بِصَبِيٍّ [صحيح البخاري: 5468]
«A baby was brought to the Prophet ﷺ.»

(2152) ثُمَّ دَعَا بِمَاءٍ، فَجِئْتُهُ بِمَاءٍ فَتَوَضَّأَ [صحيح البخاري: 224]
«Then he called for water. So I brought him some water and he performed ablution.»

When bringing something in a particular direction, other, more specific, verbs may be used similarly. For example:

Work in progress

(2153) ثُمَّ مَسَحَ رَأْسَهُ بِيَدَيْهِ، فَأَقْبَلَ بِهِمَا وَأَدْبَرَ، بَدَأَ بِمُقَدَّمِ رَأْسِهِ، حَتَّى ذَهَبَ بِهِمَا إِلَى قَفَاهُ، ثُمَّ رَدَّهُمَا إِلَى الْمَكَانِ الَّذِي بَدَأَ مِنْهُ [صحيح البخاري: 185]
«Then he wiped his head with his hands, so he brought them forwards and backwards. He started with the front part of he head until he took them to the nape of his neck, then he brought them back to the place that he had started from.»

When bringing something out, the verb أَخْرَجَ or ب خَرَجَ are used. For example:

(2154) أَتَى رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم فَأَخْرَجْنَا لَهُ مَاءً فِي تَوْرٍ مِنْ صُفْرٍ فَتَوَضَّأَ [صحيح البخاري: 197]
«Once Allāh's Messenger ﷺ came to us and we brought out water for him in a brass pot. He performed ablution.»

(2155) خَرَجَ إِلَيْنَا أَنَسُ بْنُ مَالِكٍ بِنَعْلَيْنِ لَهُمَا قِبَالاَنِ [صحيح البخاري: 5858]
«Anas ibn Mālik brought out for us, two sandals having two straps.»

B.9. To take someone/something somewhere

Arabic has the verb أَخَذَ which means «to take». But this verb is not typically used when the meaning of «to take someone/something somewhere» is intended. Instead, the verb/preposition combination ذَهَبَ بِ is used. For example:

(2156) ذَهَبَتْ بِي خَالَتِي إِلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 3541]
«My aunt took me to Messenger of Allāh ﷺ.»

Other verbs besides ذَهَبَ may similarly be used. For example:

(2157) أَخَذَ أَبُو طَلْحَةَ بِيَدِي فَانْطَلَقَ بِي إِلَى رَسُولِ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم [صحيح البخاري: 6911]
«Abū Ṭalḥah took my hand and took me to the Messenger of Allāh ﷺ.»

The doer need not actually be *going* anywhere when using this verb. For example:

(2158) ثُمَّ مَسَحَ رَأْسَهُ بِيَدَيْهِ، فَأَقْبَلَ بِهِمَا وَأَدْبَرَ، بَدَأَ بِمُقَدَّمِ رَأْسِهِ، حَتَّى ذَهَبَ بِهِمَا إِلَى قَفَاهُ، ثُمَّ رَدَّهُمَا إِلَى الْمَكَانِ الَّذِي بَدَأَ مِنْهُ [صحيح البخاري: 185]
«Then he wiped his head with his hands, so he brought them forwards and backwards. He started with the front part of he head until he took them to the nape of his neck, then he brought them back to the place that he had started from.»

Work in progress

B.10. «I was going to do something»

In English we may say:

(2159) «I was going to eat but then the bell rang and I went to answer the door.»

When expressing such a meaning in Arabic, don't use the incorrect:

(2160) × كُنْتُ سَأَفْعَلُ

Instead you may use the verb ذَهَبَ before the actual verb as a *verb of beginning*. It will give the meaning «I started to …». Examples:

(2161) فَأَتَانَا وَقَدْ دَخَلْنَا مَضَاجِعَنَا، فَذَهَبْنَا لِنَقُومَ فَقَالَ عَلَى مَكَانِكُمَا [صحيح البخاري: 3113]
«He came to us, when we had already gone to bed. We were going to get up but he said, "Stay at your places."»

https://forum.wordreference.com/threads/i-was-doing-i-was-going-to-do.2774908/

B.11. To try to do something

https://forum.wordreference.com/threads/try-to.2900995/post-20068282

B.12. To feel as a sensory verb

Use وَجَدَ instead of شَعَرَ

B.13. Further reading

1. العرنجية لأحمد الغامدي
2. معجم أخطاء الكتاب لصلاح الدين الزعبلاوي
3. معجم الأخطاء الشائعة لمحمد العدناني
4. معجم الأغلاط اللغوية المعاصرة لمحمد العدناني
5. أخطاء لغوية شائعة لخالد بن هلال بن ناصر العبري

Work in progress

Appendix C.

Vocabulary and reading

C.1. Reading practice

https://www.arabook.org/

C.2. Vocabulary retention

https://apps.ankiweb.net/

Work in progress

Work in progress

Appendix D.

Narrations, quotes and humor

D.1. Narrations

Work in progress

عَنْ عَبْدِ الرَّحْمَنِ بْنِ عَوْفٍ، قَالَ سَمِعْتُ رَسُولَ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم يَقُولُ قَالَ اللَّهُ أَنَا الرَّحْمَنُ وَهِيَ الرَّحِمُ شَقَقْتُ لَهَا اسْمًا مِنَ اسْمِي مَنْ وَصَلَهَا وَصَلْتُهُ وَمَنْ قَطَعَهَا بَتَتُّهُ

[1694: سنن أبي داود]

قَالَ ابْنُ عَبَّاسٍ قَالَ النَّبِيُّ صلى الله عليه وسلم فَأَلْفَى ذَلِكَ أُمَّ إِسْمَاعِيلَ وَهْىَ تُحِبُّ الإِنْسَ فَنَزَلُوا وَأَرْسَلُوا إِلَى أَهْلِيهِمْ فَنَزَلُوا مَعَهُمْ حَتَّى إِذَا كَانَ بِهَا أَهْلُ أَبْيَاتٍ مِنْهُمْ وَشَبَّ الْغُلاَمُ وَتَعَلَّمَ الْعَرَبِيَّةَ مِنْهُمْ وَأَنْفَسَهُمْ وَأَعْجَبَهُمْ حِينَ شَبَّ

[From :3364 صحيح البخاري]

عَنْ عَبْدِ اللَّهِ بْنَ مَسْعُودٍ:
قَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم مَنْ قَرَأَ حَرْفًا مِنْ كِتَابِ اللَّهِ فَلَهُ بِهِ حَسَنَةٌ وَالْحَسَنَةُ بِعَشْرِ أَمْثَالِهَا لاَ أَقُولُ الم حَرْفٌ وَلَكِنْ أَلِفٌ حَرْفٌ وَلاَمٌ حَرْفٌ وَمِيمٌ حَرْفٌ

[2910: جامع الترمذي]

عَنْ عَدِيِّ بْنِ حَاتِمٍ أَنَّ رَجُلاً خَطَبَ عِنْدَ النَّبِيِّ صلى الله عليه وسلم فَقَالَ مَنْ يُطِعِ اللَّهَ وَرَسُولَهُ فَقَدْ رَشَدَ وَمَنْ يَعْصِهِمَا فَقَدْ غَوَى فَقَالَ رَسُولُ اللَّهِ صلى الله عليه وسلم بِئْسَ الْخَطِيبُ أَنْتَ قُلْ وَمَنْ يَعْصِ اللَّهَ وَرَسُولَهُ قَالَ ابْنُ نُمَيْرٍ فَقَدْ غَوِيَ

[870: صحيح مسلم]

حَدَّثَنَا يَحْيَى عَنْ أَجْلَحَ قَالَ حَدَّثَنَا يَزِيدُ بْنُ الْأَصَمِّ عَنِ ابْنِ عَبَّاسٍ قَالَ جَاءَ رَجُلٌ إِلَى النَّبِيِّ ﷺ يُرَاجِعُهُ الْكَلَامَ فَقَالَ مَا شَاءَ اللَّهُ وَشِئْتَ فَقَالَ جَعَلْتَنِي لِلَّهِ عَدْلًا مَا شَاءَ اللَّهُ وَحْدَهُ

[3247: مسند أحمد]

عَنِ ابْنِ شِهَابٍ أَنَّ أَنَسَ بْنَ مَالِكٍ رَضِيَ اللَّهُ عَنْهُ أَخْبَرَهُ أَنَّهُ سَمِعَ عُمَرَ بْنَ الْخَطَّابِ رَضِيَ اللَّهُ عَنْهُ يَقُولُ {فَأَنْبَتْنَا فِيهَا حَبًّا وَعِنَبًا وَقَضْبًا وَزَيْتُونًا وَنَخْلًا وَحَدَائِقَ غُلْبًا وَفَاكِهَةً وَأَبًّا} [عبس: ٢٨] قَالَ فَكُلُّ هَذَا قَدْ عَرَفْنَاهُ فَمَا الْأَبُّ ثُمَّ نَقَضَ عَصًا كَانَتْ فِي يَدِهِ فَقَالَ هَذَا لَعَمْرُ اللَّهِ التَّكَلُّفُ اتَّبِعُوا مَا تَبَيَّنَ لَكُمْ مِنْ هَذَا الْكِتَابِ هَذَا حَدِيثٌ صَحِيحٌ عَلَى شَرْطِ الشَّيْخَيْنِ وَلَمْ يُخَرِّجَاهُ [التعليق - من تلخيص الذهبي]٣٨٩٧ - على شرط البخاري ومسلم

[3897: مستدرك الحاكم]

عن سعيد بن جُبير عن ابن عباس قال بعث ربُّ العزة مَلكَ الموت فأخذ من أديم الأرض من عذْبها ومالحها فخلق منه آدم ومن ثَمَّ سُمي آدم لأنه خُلق من أديم الأرض

[2:31 سورة البقرة for تفسير الطبري]

وعن أبي عبيد حدثني يحيى بن سعيد عن سفيان عن إبراهيم بن المهاجر عن مجاهد عن ابن عباس قال كنت لا أدري ما «فاطر السموات» (١) حتى أتاني أعرابيان يختصمان في بئر فقال أحدهما: أنا فطرتها أي ابتدأتها

[3/212 شعب الإيمان للبيهقي (ط الرشد)]

ٱلْحَمْدُ لِلَّهِ فَاطِرِ ٱلسَّمَٰوَٰتِ وَٱلْأَرْضِ جَاعِلِ ٱلْمَلَٰٓئِكَةِ رُسُلًا أُو۟لِىٓ أَجْنِحَةٍ مَّثْنَىٰ وَثُلَٰثَ وَرُبَٰعَ ۚ (١)

[35:1 سورة فاطر] يَزِيدُ فِى ٱلْخَلْقِ مَا يَشَآءُ ۚ إِنَّ ٱللَّهَ عَلَىٰ كُلِّ شَىْءٍ قَدِيرٌ

قال الأصمعي: قرأت هذه الآية (١)، وإلى جنبي أعرابيٌّ، فقلت: والله غفور رحيم، سهواً، فقال الأعرابي: كلام مَن هذا؟ قلت: كلام الله. قال: أعد فأعدت: والله غفور رحيم، فقال: ليس هذا كلام الله، فتنبهت، فقلت: وَاللَّهُ عَزِيزٌ حَكِيمٌ. فقال:

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أصبت، هذا كلام الله. فقلت له: أتقرأ القرآن؟ قال: لا. قلت: فمن أين علمت أني أخطأت؟ فقال: يا هذا عزَّ فحكم فقطع، ولو غفر ورحم لما قطع.

[1/546 زاد المسير في علم التفسير لابن الجوزي]

سورة] وَٱلسَّارِقُ وَٱلسَّارِقَةُ فَٱقْطَعُوٓاْ أَيْدِيَهُمَا جَزَآءًۢ بِمَا كَسَبَا نَكَٰلًا مِّنَ ٱللَّهِ وَٱللَّهُ عَزِيزٌ حَكِيمٌ (□)
5:38] المائدة]

فقال أبو حاتم: لا تعجبون من هذا، أخبرني الأصمعي أن معتوها جاء إلى أبي عمرو بن العلاء فقال: يا أبا عمرو، لم سميت الخيل خيلا؟ فبقي أبو عمرو ليس عنده فيه جواب. فقال: لا أدري. فقال: لكني أدري. فقال: علمنا نعلم. قال: لاختيالها في المشي. فقال أبو عمرو لأصحابه بعد ما ولى المجنون: اكتبوا الحكمة وارووها ولو عن معتوه.

[187 مجالس العلماء للزجاجي]

وَأخْبرنَا أَبُو حَاتِم عَن الْأَصْمَعِي قَالَ: قَالَ أَبُو عَمْرو بن الْعَلَاء: سَمِعت أَعْرَابِيًا يَمَانِيا يَقُول: فلَان لغوب جَاءَتْهُ كتابي فاحتقرها. فَقلت: يَقُول: جَاءَتْهُ كتابي فَقَالَ: أَلَيْسَ بِصَحِيفَة؟

[1/370 جمهرة اللغة لابن دريد]

قال ابن سلام فقلت أنا ليونس هل سمعت من ابن أبي إسحاق شيئًا قال نعم قلتُ له هل يقول أحدٌ الصَّوِيق يعني السويق قال نعم عمرو بن تميم تقولها وما تريد إلى هذا عليك بباب من النحو يطّرد وينقاس

[32 طبقات النحويين واللغويين للزبيدي]

حدثنا أبو بكر بن دريد قال رأيت رجلًا في الوراقين بالبصرة يفضل كتاب المنطق ليعقوب بن السكيت ويقدم الكوفيين فقيل للرياشي وكان قاعدًا في الوراقين قال فقال إنما أخذنا اللغة عن حرشة الضباب وأكلة اليرابيع وهؤلاء أخذوا اللغة عن أهل السواد أصحاب الكواميخ وأكلة الشوارين أو كلام يشبه هذا

[69 أخبار النحويين البصريين للسيرافي]

Work in progress

D.2. Quotes

وكان المازني يقول:

من أراد أن يعمل كبيرًا في النحو بعد كتاب سيبويه فليستحي

[40 أخبار النحويين البصريين للسيرافي]

وذكر بعض شيوخنا أن الخليل بن أحمد رحمه الله، سئل عن العلل التي يعتل بها في النحو، فقيل له: عن العرب أخذتها أم اخترعتها من نفسك؟ فقال:

إن العرب نطقت على سجيتها وطباعها. وعرفت مواقع كلامها، وقام في عقولها علله، وإن لم يُنقل ذلك عنها، واعتللت أنا بما عندي أنه علة لما علته منه. فإن أكن أصبت العلة فهو الذي التمست. وإن تكن هناك علة له فمثلي في ذلك مثل رجل حكيم دخل داراً محكمة البناء، عجيبة النظم والأقسام، وقد صحت عنده حكمة بانيها، بالخبر الصادق أو بالبراهين الواضحة والحجج اللائحة، فكلما وقف هذا الرجل في الدار على شيء منها قال: إنما فعل هذا هكذا لعلة كذا وكذا، ولسبب كذا وكذا. سنحت له وخطرت بباله محتملة لذلك، فجائز أن يكون الحكيم الباني للدار فعل ذلك للعلة التي ذكرها هذا الذي دخل الدار، وجائز أن يكون فعله لغير تلك العلة، إلا أن ذلك مما ذكره هذا الرجل محتمل أن يكون علة لذلك. فإن سنح لغيري علة لما علته من النحو هو أليق مما ذكرته بالمعاول فليأت بها.

[65 الإيضاح في علل النحو للزجاجي]

وقال الفراء أموت وفي نفسي شيء من حتى

[6/180 وفيات الأعيان لابن خلكان]

ويقال ما زال النحو مجنونا حتى عقله ابن السراج بأصوله

[6/2535 معجم الأدباء للحمودي]

> Without exaggeration one could say that the entire linguistic tradition in Arabic is nothing but a huge commentary on the *Kitāb Sībawayhi*.

[Kees Versteegh, *Landmarks in linguistic thought III: The Arabic linguistic tradition* 39]

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النحو والله جاف، لكن هذا «التقدير» والله روح النحو، وقلبه النابض.
[محاضرة "التّقدير النَّحْويّ بين الواقع والتّقعيد" لـ أ.د. رياض الخوّام]

D.3. Humor

لِمَ ضرب زيد عمرًا؟
لأنه سرق واو داود.

ترنو بِطرف فاتر فاتن ... أَضْعَف من حجَّة نحوي
[3/469 يتيمة الدهر للثعالبي]

اضرب أيهم أفضل
[2/399 كتاب سيبويه]

يعجبني أيهم ضربته في داره
[1/168 شرح ابن عقيل على الألفية]

ومثله ما حكي أن بعض الفقراء وقف على باب نحوي فقرعه فقال النحوي من بالباب فقال سائل فقال ينصرف فقال اسمي أحمد فقال النحوي لغلامه أعط سيبويه كسرة.
[1/40 ثمرات الأوراق في المحاضرات لابن حجة الحموي]

وكان لبعضهم ولد نحوي يتقعر في كلامه، فاعتل أبوه علة شديدة أشرف منها على الموت، فاجتمع عليه أولاده، وقالوا له: ندعو لك فلانا أخانا، قال: لا إن جاءني قتلني، فقالوا: نحن نوصيه أن لا يتكلم، فدعوه، فلما دخل عليه قال له يا أبت: قل لا إله إلا الله تدخل بها الجنة وتفوز من النار، يا أبت: والله ما أشغلني عنك إلا فلان، فإنه دعاني بالأمس، فأهرس وأعدس واستبذج وسكبج وطهبج وأفرج ودجج وأبصل وأمضر ولوزج وافلوزج فصاح أبوه غمضوني، فقد سبق [أخوكم] ملك الموت إلى قبض روحي.
[475 المستطرف في كل فن مستظرف للأبشيهي]

Work in progress

ووقع نحوي في كنيف، فجاء كناس ليخرجه، فصاح به الكناس ليعلم أهو حي أم لا، فقال له النحوي: أطلب لي حبلا دقيقا وشدني شدا وثيقا واجذبني جذبا رفيقا، فقال الكناس: [امرأتي] طالق إن أخرجتك منه، ثم تركه وانصرف.

[475 المستطرف في كل فن مستظرف للأبشيهي]

حدثنا أبو طاهر، قال: حدثنا وكيع، قال: حدثني محمد بن خلّاد، قال: ثنا الوليد بن هشام القَحْذَمِيُّ، قال:

دخل خالدُ بنُ صَفْوَانَ الحَمَّامَ وفيه رَجُلٌ مَعَ ابْنِهِ، فأَرَادَ أَنْ يُعَرِّفَ خالدًا ما عِنْدَهُ من البَيَان فقال: يا بُنَيّ، ابْدَأْ بيداك ورجلاك، ثم التفت إلى خَالِدٍ فقال: يا أبا صَفْوَانَ، هذا كَلامٌ قَدْ ذَهَبَ أَهْلُهُ. قال: هذا كلامٌ ما خَلَقَ الله له أَهْلًا قَطُّ.

[49 أخبار في النحو لأبي طاهر بن أبي هاشم]

ركب نحويّ سفينة فقال للملّاح: أتعرف النحو؟ قال: لا، قال: ذهب نصف عمرك. فهاجت الريح واضطربت السفينة فقال له الملاح: أتعرف السباحة؟ قال لا، قال: ذهب كل عمرك.

[392 روض الأخيار المنتخب من ربيع الأبرار للأماسي]

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Appendix E.

Modifying SCA to sound like a vernacular dialect

> **Warning**
>
> THIS BOOK IS A WORK IN PROGRESS. IT IS INCOMPLETE AND MAY HAVE TYPOGRAPHICAL AND OTHER ERRORS. IT IS NOT YET READY TO BE STUDIED FROM.

work in progress

SCA is not typically used in informal settings. Rather Arabs use their native modern vernacular dialects in everyday settings. For the student of Arabic, in order to fit in, and not seem overly formal in these settings, it's not a bad idea to learn a vernacular dialect. Which vernacular dialect you should learn can depend on where you think you would be using your spoken Arabic. The Egyptian, Levantine, and Urban Hijāzi dialects cover a wide strata of the Arab population and, in our opinion, learning any one of these would be useful.

But if you don't find yourself having enough time to learn both SCA and a dialect, you can water down your spoken SCA to sound more like a vernacular. Here are some tips to do this:

1. Soften the semi-vowels. Examples:

Word	pronunciation in exact SCA	pronunciation in watered down SCA
بَيْت	*bayt*	*beyt*

2. Replace middle and end hamzahs by their seat letters. Examples:

3. Drop the case endings. Example:

The ن of the u-case plural masculine PC verb is also a case ending so it too is dropped.

Drop also the final fathah of the singular masculine SC verb.

4. Use only ين *īn* instead of *ūna/īna* for the sound masculine plural.
5. For PC verbs where the second letter has a sukoon, convert yaf3al to yif3al and taf3al to tif3al.
6. Use only ما and لا for negation, never لم or ليس.
7. Use the plural masculine verb instead of the dual verbs and the feminine plural verb.
8. Drop أَنْ before the a-case PC verb.
9. Learn the vernacular words for:
    - The verb «to go»
    - The verb «to want»
    - The verb «to bring»
    - The question nouns:

TODO: add examples

Work in progress